

JASON ĀNANDA JOSEPHSON STORM

METAMODERNISM

THE FUTURE *of* THEORY



Metamodernism
元现代主义

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The Future of Theory
理论的未来

Jason Ānanda Josephson Storm
Jason nanda 约瑟夫森风暴

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Preface and Acknowledgments

前言及致谢

This is my most personal and most abstract monograph. If Freud and Nietzsche are right, there are probably reasons these go together. This monograph emerges from a particular impasse in religious studies—an impasse to which I have myself contributed. Over the last few decades, many scholars in religious studies have come to reject the analytical utility of the category *religion*. My first book contributed to this movement by shifting the focus away from Euro--American scholars and revealing how Japanese officials, under extreme international pressure, came to terms with the Western concept of religion by “inventing religion” in Japan. The problem with this kind of genealogical research is that it inadvertently forecloses the possibility of generalizations, leaving viable mainly two kinds of scholarship: that which endlessly repeats and valorizes the act of deconstruction, and that which narrowly focuses on irrelevant and microscopic case studies. I have increasingly come to feel that both modes are dead ends. So how do we find our way out of this impasse and into a brighter future of theory? This is a question I am compelled to try to address; this monograph is my attempt.

这是我最新个人化、最抽象的专著。如果弗洛伊德和尼采的观点是正确的，那么他们之间可能存在某些联系。这篇专著是从宗教研究的一个特殊的僵局中出现的——这个僵局是我自己造成的。在过去的几十年里，宗教研究领域的许多学者开始反对宗教分类的分析效用。我的第一本书对这场运动做出了贡献，它把焦点从欧美学者身上转移开来，揭示了日本官员是如何在极大的国际压力下，通过在日本“发明宗教”来接受西方的宗教概念的。这种谱系研究的问题在于，它无意中排除了概括的可能性，主要留下了两种可行的学术：一种是无休止地重复和赞扬解构行为，另一种是狭隘地侧重于不相关和微观的个案研究。我越来越觉得这两种模式都是死胡同。那么，我们如何走出这种僵局，进入更光明的理论未来呢？这是一个我不得不尝试解决的问题；这本专著就是我的尝试。

What is metamodernism? It aspires to be a theoretical revolution. It charts a number of things: a process social ontology, a new multispecies semiotics, a

revaluation of the place of values in the human sciences, and an alternative to the sterile opposition between realisms and anti--realisms. It seeks to establish a new model for producing humble knowledge that is capable of tracing the unfolding of de--essentialized master categories in their full complexity. It is about the future of the disciplines—not just my home disciplines, but the whole of the human sciences.

什么是元现代主义？它渴望成为一场理论革命。它描绘了许多东西：一个过程的社会本体论，一个新的多物种符号学，一个价值观在人类科学中的地位的重新评估，以及一个替代在现实主义和反现实主义之间毫无结果的对立。它寻求建立一个新的模型，以产生谦逊的知识，能够追踪展开的去本质化的主要范畴的全部复杂性。它关系到学科的未来——不仅仅是我的家庭学科，而是整个人文科学。

This represents a departure for me. Reflexivity is something I have been promoting for my entire scholarly career (and I am not stopping now). Turning the techniques of a discipline inward on itself regularly appears theoretically sophisticated and intellectually ambitious, and sometimes even gets praised as revolutionary. But limiting one's research to critical scholarship about scholarship tends to undercut the work of the disciplines and to reduce them to little more than ideological formations themselves—an act which is, essentially, destructive rather than creative.

对我来说，这代表了一种背离。自反性是我在整个学术生涯中一直在提倡的东西(我现在不会停止)。将一门学科的技术向内转化，在理论上经常显得复杂，在智力上雄心勃勃，有时甚至被称赞为革命性的。但是，将一个人的研究局限于关于学术的批判性学术研究，往往会削弱学科的工作，使它们仅仅局限于意识形态的形成本身——这种行为本质上是破坏性的，而非创造性的。

It seems that deconstruction generally takes less effort and is better re-warded than construction. Despite all the controversy it inevitably evokes, it can be seductive to take the stance of an epistemological anarchist and to start exploding fundamental concepts and then reveling in the chaos as disciplines disintegrate. I have largely made my career out of such an attitude. I think this kind of work is valuable, but it is simply not enough.

看起来，解构通常比建造耗费更少的精力，而且得到的回报也更好。尽管它不可避免地引起了争议，但以认识论上的无政府主义者的立场，开始爆发基本概念，然后随着学科的瓦解而陶醉于混乱之中，还是颇具诱惑力的。我的职业生涯很大程度上就是建立在这种态度之上的。我认为这样的工作是有价值的，但是还远远不够。

After something has been destroyed, something new must be built, and for something new to be built, a movement is necessary. That movement, I hope, is metamodernism. Progress is made by collectives, not individuals. I am asking the reader to come with me and experience a paradigm shift—one that turns on my previous work not in order to repudiate it, but to work through my own critical presuppositions and out the other side so that a new way of thinking can be born.

在一些东西被摧毁之后，一些新的东西必须被建立起来，而一些新的东西要被建立起来，一场运动是必要的。我希望这场运动是元现代主义。进步是由集体而不是个人取得的。我请求读者跟我一起经历范式的转变——这种转变不是为了否定我以前的工作，而是通过我自己的批判性前提和另一面来工作，这样一种新的思维方式就可以诞生。

Like many of my scholarly cohort, I have come to feel as though I am living in the shadow of the previous generation's ideological conflicts. My parents are both analytic philosophers, and I originally majored in philosophy myself before I became alienated from it due to its exclusion of Asian philosophy. As a graduate student in Oxford, Paris, and Palo Alto, I had a strong interest in "theory" and made pilgrimages to lectures by such luminaries as Giorgio Agamben, Jacques Derrida, Bernard Faure, René Girard, Bruno Latour, Richard Rorty, Michel Serres, Cornel West, and Slavoj Žižek, among others. As I have been writing this book, I have been working through those influences, sometimes pitting various biological and intellectual progenitors against each other as I push to find a way out of the impasses that have come to constrain us. This has not been easy. I could have struggled with these philosophical forebearers forever and yet not felt myself fully ready—but I bit my tongue too long, so now I'm spitting blood.

和我的许多学者同行一样，我开始觉得自己仿佛生活在上一代人意识形态冲突的阴影之下。我的父母都是分析哲学家，我最初主修的是哲学，后来因为它排斥亚洲哲学而被疏远了。作为牛津大学、巴黎大学和帕洛阿尔托大学的研究生，我对“理论”有着浓厚的兴趣，经常去听一些

名人的演讲，包括阿甘本、德里达、福尔、吉拉德、拉图、罗蒂、塞雷、西康奈尔、希克等等。在我写这本书的时候，我一直在努力克服这些影响，有时在我努力寻找摆脱束缚我们的僵局的方法时，会让不同的生物学和智力上的祖先相互对立。这并不容易。我本可以永远和这些哲学先驱们斗争下去，但我觉得自己还没有完全准备好——但是我咬舌头太久了，所以现在我在吐血。

This project originally came to me in Vienna in 2011, when I met an old friend for a drink at a café. My first book was poised to come out and my friend wanted to know how I was going to follow it, given that it was in some respects a critical genealogy of my whole subfield. The key insight he rightly suggested is that forthcoming projects might have something to do with what was going to come after postmodernism. Inspired by our conversation, I almost immediately began writing a few rough chapters of this book, and then I set about organizing and hosting a conference on “After Postmodernism.” But soon thereafter I ended up shelving this very important project in order to write *The Myth of Disenchantment*. I originally thought that these two projects were connected—since in one I was trying to unravel “modernity” and in the other I was confronting and working through postmodernism—but they quickly diverged. This book remained in my thoughts, however, throughout that process.

这个项目最初是我 2011 年在维也纳想到的，当时我在一家咖啡馆和一位老朋友喝了一杯。我的第一本书即将出版，我的朋友想知道我将如何继续下去，因为它在某些方面是我整个子领域的重要谱系。他提出的关键观点是，即将到来的项目可能与后现代主义之后的发展有关。受我们谈话的启发，我几乎立即开始写这本书的几个粗略章节，然后我着手组织和主持一个关于“后现代主义”的会议但不久之后，为了写《幻灭的神话》，我把这个非常重要的项目搁置了起来。我最初认为这两个项目是相互关联的——因为在一个项目中，我试图揭示“现代性”，而在另一个项目中，我正在通过后现代主义进行对抗和工作——但它们很快分道扬镳。然而，在整个过程中，这本书始终萦绕在我的脑海中。

In the course of writing, I took a break of four months to welcome my magnificent daughter into the world and to focus on her instead of scholarship, and this extended hiatus ended up producing a significant change in the work's tone. My earlier drafts were motivated by the destructive energy employed in the process of deconstructing deconstruction, according to my old mode; but the revisions I produced following my daughter's birth are rooted in compassion. It might not look like it, but this book is a love letter to my daughter, grounded in hope for our capacity to build a better world for the next generation.

在写作的过程中，我花了四个月的时间来欢迎我伟大的女儿来到这个世界上，把注意力集中在她身上而不是学者身份上，这种长时间的停顿最终使作品的基调发生了重大变化。按照我的旧模式，我早期的草稿是受到解构过程中所使用的破坏性能量的激励；但我在女儿出生后所作的修改是基于同情心。也许看起来不像，但这本书是给我女儿的情书，希望我们有能力为下一代建设一个更美好的世界。

This work was written and initially peer reviewed before COVID--19 became pandemic. Its final rounds of editing happened during self-isolation (with a toddler) while the virus caused rampant suffering in the world beyond our walls. My parents were sick and, although confirmational testing was unavailable, there were many anxious days when I worried for their health, but thankfully they recovered. They were lucky. Every day, I read obituaries of those less fortunate. Many days I nearly wept, worrying about the fate of our world.

这本书是在 2019 冠状病毒疾病大流行之前写的，最初是同行评议的。它的最后几轮编辑发生在自我隔离期间(带着一个蹒跚学步的孩子)，而这种病毒在我们墙外的世界造成了猖獗的痛苦。我的父母生病了，尽管无法进行确认性检测，我还是为他们的健康担忧了很多天，但谢天谢地，他们已经康复了。他们很幸运。每天，我都会读到那些不幸的人的讣告。很多天我几乎哭了，担心我们世界的命运。

It is much too early to say what impact this soft apocalypse will have on all of our futures. There will be a tendency to bookend history, to place this pandemic as a watershed. A world is ending, or perhaps has been ending for a long time. But an ending is also an opportunity for a new beginning. My hope is that the metamodern theory propounded in this project will help open the doors to a brighter future: the future of theory after post-modernism.

现在就断言这种软启示将对我们所有人的未来产生什么影响还为时过早。人们倾向于终结历史，将这次流行病作为一个分水岭。一个世界正在灭亡，或者可能已经灭亡很长时间了。但是一个结束也是一个新开始的机会。我希望在这个项目中提出的元现代理论将有助于打开一扇通往更光明未来的大门：后现代主义理论的未来。

I would like to thank a number of people from around the globe whose conversations have been of immense benefit to me over the last decade or so. Thanks are due first of all to my parents and brother—John, Susan, and Seth Josephson—who are all scholars in their own right; to my dear friend, the mathematician Jeremy Bellay; and to three key friends at Williams College: Denise Buell, Jeffrey Israel, and Christian Thorne. In many respects the seeds of this creative project emerged from my productive conversations with these individuals.

我想感谢来自世界各地的许多人，他们的对话在过去十年左右的时间里给我带来了巨大的益处。首先，我要感谢我的父母和兄弟——约翰、苏珊和塞思·约瑟夫森——他们都是有自己权利的学者；感谢我亲爱的朋友，数学家杰里米·贝莱；感谢威廉姆斯学院的三位关键朋友：丹尼斯·布埃尔、杰弗里·伊斯雷尔和克里斯蒂安·索恩。在许多方面，这个创造性项目的种子从我与这些人的富有成效的谈话中显现出来。

I also want to mention the places where I have discussed some aspects of the work and received valuable feedback, including the American Academy of Religion conference, Duke University, Harvard University, Kyōto University, Northwestern University, Ohio University, Princeton University, Syracuse University, Tōyō University, Universität Heidelberg, Université de Genève, Université de Lausanne, Universiteit Antwerpen, University of California—Berkeley, University of North Carolina—Chapel Hill,

我还想提及我讨论过这项工作的一些方面并收到了宝贵反馈的地方，包括美国坎宗学院会议、杜克大学、哈佛大学、西北大学、俄亥俄大学、普林斯顿大学、雪城大学、海德堡大学、日内瓦大学、洛桑大学、安特卫普大学、加州大学伯克利分校、北卡罗来纳大学教堂山分校、

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This book is dedicated to my two hearts—my wife, Dalena, and our wonderful daughter, Athena. Both are a constant source of inspiration and hope.

这本书献给我的两颗心——我的妻子 Dalena 和我们美丽的女儿 Athena。两者都是灵感和希望的源泉。

Jason Ananda Josephson Storm
Jason nanda 约瑟夫森风暴

Williamstown, Massachusetts, 2020
马萨诸塞州威廉斯敦, 2020 年

Note on Texts and Citations

关于文本和引用的注释

The main text of this book is just the tip of the iceberg; the endnotes are heavily interwoven with diverse secondary literature in varied philosophical traditions and academic disciplines in multiple languages. The manuscript as originally written was much too long for conventional publishing standards, so the process of preparing it for publication has resulted in a number of orphaned chapters on topics such as power, causation, Adorno, Derrida, Foucault, Hegel, Quine, and the history of postmodernism. I will likely publish some of these separately. Further content related to the book and links to these fugitive pieces as they appear will be available at a dedicated page on my professional website: <https://absolute--disruption.com>.

这本书的主要文本只是冰山一角，尾注与各种不同的哲学传统和多种语言的学科中的不同的次要文学交织在一起。对于传统的出版标准来说，最初编写的手稿太长了，因此在准备出版的过程中，出现了许多关于权力、因果关系、阿多诺、德里达、福柯、黑格尔、奎因以及后现代主义历史等主题的孤立章节。我可能会单独出版其中的一些。进一步的内容相关的书和链接到这些逃亡作品，因为他们出现将在我的专业网站专门页面: <https://absolute-> 中断。译者注:。

Although translations are few and far between compared to my previous books, those from Japanese, Chinese, French, Spanish, Italian, and German are my own unless otherwise noted. Japanese, Korean, and Chinese names in the text are presented in the traditional order—surname (in small caps) followed by given name.

尽管与我以前的书相比，翻译的内容少之又少，但除非另有说明，那些来自日语、中文、法语、西班牙语、意大利语和德语的翻译都是我自己的。文本中的日文、韩文和中文名称都是按照传统的顺序——姓氏(小写)后面跟着名字。

Opening 开门

[The] metamodern [is an] extension of and challenge to modernism and post-modernism.

元现代主义是对现代主义和后现代主义的延伸和挑战。

Moyo Okediji, *Transatlantic Dialogue: Contemporary Art in and out of Africa*

跨大西洋对话：当代艺术在非洲的进出

Categories decay. The human sciences* used to presuppose the possibility of intellectual progress, but for decades now a host of scholars have called into question the universality of the disciplinary objects and their utility as analytical categories. Conceptual analysis—once the bedrock of the philosophical enterprise—has failed. In many sectors of the academy, it now seems naive to presume the coherence of categories such as “art,” “literature,” or “religion,” much less the possibility of *progress* or *knowledge*. The crowning insight of many disciplines in the human sciences—often reserved for senior majors and graduate students—is that their core conceptual categories are intellectually or ethically compromised. In most colleges and universities, students move unawares from the department of non--religion to the department of non--literature to the department of anthropology (in which they had better not attempt to evaluate culture).

分类衰退。人文科学 * 过去曾预先假定智力进步的可能性，但几十年来，许多学者质疑学科对象的普遍性及其作为分析范畴的效用。概念分析——曾经是哲学事业的基石——已经失败了。在学术界的许多领域，现在假定诸如“艺术”、“文学”或“宗教”等范畴的一致性似乎很幼稚，更不用说进步或知识的可能性了。人文科学的许多学科——通常只对高年级学生和研究生开放——最重要的洞察力在于，它们的核心概念范畴在智力或道德方面受到了损害。在大多数学院和大学里，学生不知不觉地从非宗教系转到非文学系，再到人类学系(在这个系里，他们最好不要试图评价文化)。

For a while, the excitement of these negative positions—and, con-versely, anxieties about them—were wrapped up in the term *postmod-ernism*. In this they came to meet with other forms of skepticism: episte-mological, linguistic,

and ethical. Even disciplines that had dodged the category critiques often found themselves caught in so-called postmodern problematics. Skeptical dogmas of all sorts proliferated. Doubt was praised over understanding. Truth was said to be a sham. Knowledge was nothing more than power. Philosophical problems were recast as problems of language, but then language itself became a problem. Communication was rendered suspect. Translation was believed impossible. Scholarship became skeptical about the capacity of the word to reflect the world. As epistemological issues multiplied, they banished values from the human

有一段时间，这些消极立场带来的兴奋——以及相反的对它们的焦虑——被包裹在后现代主义这个术语中。在这一点上，他们遇到了其他形式的怀疑主义：认识论、语言学 and 伦理学。即使是那些避开类别批评的学科也常常发现自己陷入了所谓的后现代问题学中。各种各样的怀疑论教条激增。怀疑比理解更受赞扬。真理被说成是一个骗局。知识只不过是力量。哲学问题被重新定义为语言问题，但后来语言本身变成了一个问題。交流被认为是可疑的。翻译被认为是不可能的。学者们开始怀疑这个词反映世界的能力。随着认识论问题的成倍增加，他们将价值从人类身上驱逐出去

* “Human Sciences” are humanities plus social sciences. But as I envision them, the human sciences should study not only humans (as a species of animal), but also our multispecies ecology and environment.

人文科学是人文科学加上社会科学。但在我的设想中，人文科学不仅应该研究人类(作为动物的一个物种)，还应该研究我们的多物种生态和环境。

sciences, arguing that ethics were incompatible with objective scholarly inquiry or moral relativism. But ethical negativity also prospered in academic moralizing, if now primarily expressed in terms of disparagement and condemnation. For a time, many scholars imagined themselves to be masters of suspicion. Even today everything seems problematic and almost every thinker morally questionable. Such cynicism can be para-lyzing.

认为伦理学与客观的学术研究或道德相对主义是不相容的。但是，如果现在主要用贬低和谴责来表达的话，道德否定也在学术道德化中大行其道。有一段时间，许多学者把自己想象成猜疑大师。即使在今天，一切似乎都是有问题的，几乎每个思想家在道德上都是有问题的。这种玩世不恭的态度可能会导致分裂。

This is intellectual life under the sign of the negative.

这是知识分子生活中的消极符号。

Postmodern skepticism was supposed to be liberating, but it failed us. Faced with the skeptical arsenal of “deconstruction,” scholarship across the humanistic disciplines was dominated for a time by a kind of post-structuralist poetry and political posturing rooted in the play of homo-nyms.¹ Worse, by way of backlash, it has lately been overwhelmed by waves of radical particularity that are generally hostile toward all general-ization. Both of these moves are errors that are leading us into intellectual dead ends. It should be no surprise that as analytical objects disintegrate, centrifugal forces push us further apart. Even theory—which once aimed to be a grand interdisciplinary synthesis—has begun to fracture along demographic lines. Intersectionality has too often been replaced by competing class and race reductionisms.² Indeed, over the last few decades, scholars have increasingly rejected the possibility of communication and meaningful generalizations, while scholarship succumbs to fragmenting hyperspecialization.

后现代怀疑主义被认为是一种解放，但它让我们失望了。面对“解构主义”的怀疑论武器库，跨越人文学科的学术研究一度被一种后结构主义诗歌和政治姿态所主导，这种诗歌和政治姿态植根于同性恋的游戏之中。更糟糕的是，由于强烈的反弹，它最近被一波又一波的激进的特殊性所淹没，这些激进的特殊性通常敌视所有的普遍化。这两个举动都是错误，正把我们引向知识的死胡同。随着分析对象的分解，离心力将我们推得更远，这也就不足为奇了。甚至理论——曾经的目标是一个宏大的跨学科综合——已经开始沿着人口统计学的方向分裂。实际上，在过去的几十年里，学者们越来越排斥交流和有意义的概括的可能性，而学术却屈从于分裂的超专业化。

Scholarly retreats to the sociological survey, the micro--history, or the archive are not solutions but rather temporary gestures. As bad as word-play

was, the renunciation of abstraction (which seems to be the scholarly move of the moment) ultimately abandons communication so completely that our efforts fall into dissolution. Deconstruction may have largely functioned as the self--inflicted martyrdom of a weak intelligentsia; and yet it would be an equally grave mistake to try to reverse course and re-treat directly into the insincere comforts of a false universalism. It is not enough to be positivists, as though we did not know better.

学术界对社会学调查、微观历史或档案的退缩不是解决方案，而是暂时的姿态。和文字游戏一样糟糕的是，放弃抽象(这似乎是当下的学术行为)最终完全放弃了交流，以至于我们的努力最终化为泡影。解构主义可能在很大程度上起到了弱势知识分子自我牺牲的作用;然而，试图逆转方向，直接回到虚假普遍主义的虚假安慰中，也将是同样严重的错误。仅仅成为实证主义者是不够的，就好像我们不了解更好的事物一样。

Postmodernism left behind a set of philosophical challenges and models that linger in academic life. This matters because even if you do not consider yourself a theorist, even if you have no stated interest in postmodernism or the project of philosophy, if you are a scholar in the humanities or social sciences today you have almost certainly imbibed, without realizing it, a set of unquestioned convictions that originated in postmodernism.

后现代主义留下了一系列在学术生活中挥之不去的哲学挑战和模式。这很重要，因为即使你不认为自己是一个理论家，即使你对后现代主义或哲学项目没有明确的兴趣，如果你今天是一个人文学科或社会科学的学者，你几乎肯定已经吸收了，在没有意识到的情况下，源自后现代主义的一系列毫无疑问的信念。

There is a temptation in the face of the abyss of skepticism to recoil from its edge and to attempt to reconstruct the disciplinary master categories, reassert the supremacy of facts, or exchange skeptical doubts for

在怀疑主义的深渊面前，有一种诱惑，试图从它的边缘退缩回来，并试图重建学科大师的血统，重申事实的至高无上地位，或交换怀疑的怀疑

partisan presuppositions—but this is, in effect, to answer negation with restoration disguised as redefinition. This would be a fatal mistake, a blind alley. It would result in merely the deferral of the central problematic. The decay of master narratives has led to a near--universal distrust of universals, while deepening particularity seems to promise nothing but further disintegration. We scholars need a better model that rejects both modernist essentialism and postmodernist skepticism; a way that is beyond both hyperspecialization and obscurantism; a way that is neither purely inward-gazing nor outward--assimilating, that can sustain the necessary tension in which self and other function in interdependent relationships.

但实际上，这是用伪装成重新定义的恢复来回答否定。这将是一个致命的错误，一条死胡同。它只会导致核心问题的延期。大师叙事的衰落已经导致了对宇宙叙事几乎普遍的不信任，而不断深化的特殊性似乎只会导致进一步的瓦解。我们学者需要一种更好的模式，既拒绝现代主义的本质主义，也拒绝后现代主义的怀疑主义；一种超越过度专业化和蒙昧主义的方式；一种既不是纯粹的内向审视，也不是外向同化的方式，能够维持自我和其他人在相互依存关系中发挥作用的必要张力。

We need to chart a new course.

我们需要开辟一条新的道路。

Many people are dissatisfied with the current moment and are searching for a way out. The last fifty years have allegedly seen the human sciences undergo a series of course corrections. Philosophers began writing about the *linguistic turn* of the 1950s and 1960s. This opened the floodgate to at least three more “turns,” as *cultural*, *interpretive*, and *historical turns* appeared in the late 1970s and early 1980s.³ Then, in the late 1980s, there was a *cognitive turn*.⁴ By the early 1990s scholars were compiling sources for the *postmodern turn*.⁵ By the mid--1990s there was another *historic turn* (or perhaps it was merely the earlier historic turn reasserting itself).⁶ Rather than growing weary, scholars kept going, and the late 1990s and early 2000s saw discussions of both a *turn to religion* and a *corporeal turn*.⁷ The last couple of decades have seen a blinding series of turns, including (in rough chronology) the *speculative turn*, the *visual turn*, the *participatory turn*, the *affective turn*, the *material turn*, the *transnational turn*, the *pragmatic turn*, the *sensory turn*, the *historical turn* (now for the third time, perhaps having forgotten its history), the *mobility turn*, the *temporal turn*, the *spatial turn*, the *reparative turn*, the *animal or nonhuman turn*, a (perhaps antagonistic) *human turn*, and the *ontological turn*.⁸ Scholars have also recently proposed a *pedagogical turn*, a *practice turn*, a *quotidian turn*, and an *empirical turn*, although it is not clear whether any of these will catch on.⁹ At almost the same time I began writing this introduction, the Japanese scholars Isomae Jun'ichi and Kawamura Satofumi were calling for a Levinasian *alterity turn*

(他者論的転回), while the American liter-ary theorist Mark Seltzer was promoting what he refers to as a *turn turn*.¹⁰

许多人对现在不满意,正在寻找出路。据说在过去的五十年里,人类科学经历了一系列的修正过程。哲学家们开始撰写关于 20 世纪 50 年代和 60 年代语言学转向的文章。这打开了至少三个“转折”的闸门,文化、解释和历史的转折出现在 1970 年代末和 1980 年代初。然后,在 20 世纪 80 年代后期,出现了认知转向。到 20 世纪 90 年代初,学者们正在为后现代转向编纂资料。到了 20 世纪 90 年代中期,又出现了一次历史性的转折(或许这仅仅是更早的历史性转折重申了自己)。学者们并没有感到厌倦,而是继续前进,在 20 世纪 90 年代末和 21 世纪初,人们看到了关于宗教转向和物质转向的讨论。在过去的几十年里,我们看到了一系列令人眼花缭乱的转折,包括(按照粗略的时间顺序)投机性转折、视觉性转折、参与性转折、情感性转折、物质性转折、跨国性转折、实用性转折、感官性转折、历史性转折(现在可能已经是第三次忘记了它的历史)、流动性转折、时间性转折、空间性转折、修复性转折、动物或非人类转折、(也许是对立的)人类转折和本体论转折。学者们最近也提出了教学转向、实践转向、日常转向和经验转向,尽管还不清楚这些是否会流行起来。几乎在我开始写这篇序言的同时,日本学者 Isomae Jun'ichi 和 Kawamura Satofumi 正在呼吁一个列文亚洲的转变(他者論的 something 回),而美国文学理论家 Mark Seltzer 正在推动他所谓的转变。¹⁰

Many of these represent the same movement by different names. They are typically promoted by scholars in one field in complete ignorance of what is going on in other disciplines. This is perhaps why so many al-legedly different “turns” repeat the same set of topics—bodies, matter, visibility, emotions, affect, recurring invocations of history itself, and so on. This is also why scholars supporting allegedly identical turns come to conflicting conclusions (e.g., the ontological turn in anthropology is

其中许多代表了同一运动的不同名称。它们通常是由一个领域的学者在完全不知道其他学科正在发生什么的情况下提出的。这也许就是为什么这么多所谓不同的“转向”重复着同一套话题——身体、物质、视觉、情感、情感、历史本身的反复召唤等等。这也是为什么支持所谓相同转向的学者得出相互矛盾的结论(例如,人类学的本体论转向是

nearly the mirror opposite of the ontological turn in political theory). Although there are some bright exceptions, these repeated calls for turns tend to produce not so much intellectual innovations as the translation of older scholarly vocabulary into new jargon. Scholars in other disciplines keep rediscovering art history and material culture. We replace every reference to “structure” with “assemblage” or “network.” The supposed revolutionary nature of these turns is largely confined to rhetorical gestures whose conventionality is masked by appeals to the language of radicalism and polemical condemnations of their proximate peers.¹¹

几乎与政治理论的本体论转向相反)。尽管有一些明显的例外，这些反复呼吁轮流往往产生更多的智力创新，而不是翻译更老的学术词汇到新的行话。其他学科的学者不断重新发现艺术史和物质文化。我们用“组装”或“网络”代替了所有关于“结构”的参考这些转变的所谓革命性质在很大程度上局限于修辞手势，其惯例被诉诸激进主义的语言和其近邻的辩论性谴责所掩盖

There seem to have been enough “turns” at this point to imply the compulsive repetition of a trauma or perhaps a dizzy running in circles. But perhaps we are always turning away because we know neither where we have been nor what we are aiming for.

在这一点上，似乎已经有足够多的“转折”，暗示着创伤的强迫性重复，或者也许是在绕圈子跑晕了。但也许我们总是转身离开，因为我们既不知道我们去过哪里，也不知道我们的目标是什么。

Many of these turns and related anti--postmodern philosophies (such as New Materialism, Speculative Realism, and Affect theory) suffer a common set of flaws. Undeniably each has some valuable insights, but by underestimating postmodernism’s philosophical problematics they have often failed to capitalize on its gains or inadvertently walked the same blind alleys and roundabouts it evoked. New Materialists, for instance, have borrowed much of their intellectual edifice and specific analytic categories (actant, agency, assemblage, network, anthropocentrism) from the linguistic turn and often the very poststructuralists to which they now see themselves opposed. Speculative Realists have merely transposed into ontology the skepticisms of the antirealists, and in doing so largely agree with their supposed rivals. Affect theorists, in attempting to align psychological theories of affect against the poststructuralists, are actually agreeing with many poststructuralists who also imagined that emotions were outside of discourse, and arguing against many psychologists who have come to see emotions as culturally constructed rather than extradiscursive.¹² All that is to say, many contemporary scholars are defining their projects against postmodernism, but without realizing how much of their basic intellectual frameworks they have inherited from it.

这些转向和相关的反后现代主义哲学(如新唯物主义、思辨现实主义和情感理论)都有一系列共同的缺陷。不可否认,每个人都有一些有价值的见解,但由于低估了后现代主义的哲学问题,他们往往未能充分利用其成果,或者无意中走上了它所引发的同样的死胡同和迂回路线。例如,新唯物主义者从语言学的转向中借用了许多他们的知识大厦和特定的分析范畴(行为者、代理、集合、网络、人类中心主义),而且常常是他们现在看到自己反对的后结构主义者。投机现实主义者只是把反现实主义者的怀疑论转换成了本体论,并且在这样做的过程中与他们假定的对手在很大程度上达成了一致。情感理论家试图将关于情感的心理理论和后结构主义者联系起来,实际上他们同意许多后结构主义者的观点,他们也认为情感是话语之外的,他们反对许多心理学家把情感看作是文化建构的,而不是引渡的。¹²这就是说,许多当代学者正在对后现代主义下定义他们的项目,但没有意识到他们从后现代主义中继承了多少基本的知识框架。

Postmodern skepticisms cannot be evaded; they must be worked through. And there is an array of beneficial results waiting at the other end for anyone patient enough to take the effort. To gesture at some of these potential gains:

后现代怀疑论是无法回避的,它们必须得到解决。还有一系列有益的结果等待着那些有足够耐心去努力的人。以下是一些潜在的收益:

Postmodern doubt can be made to doubt itself, and when cleansed of its negative dogmatism and lingering longing for lost certainties it can show us the way toward humble, emancipatory knowledge. Anti-- foundationalism can become a new foundation. Postmodern cynicism and moral outrage can be transmuted into positive ends—Revolutionary Happiness and multispecies flourishing. Irony and despair can become

后现代怀疑可以被用来怀疑自己,当它清除了消极的教条主义和对失去的确定性的挥之不去的渴望时,它可以为我们指明通向谦逊的、解放的知识的道路。反基础主义可以成为一个新的基础。后现代的犬儒主义和道德义愤可以转化为积极的目的——革命性的幸福和多种族的繁荣。讽刺和绝望可以变成

fierce joy and hope. Beyond anti--essentialism is not a new essentialism, but a world of becoming. Rather than defending the master categories from criticism, we can grant and build on those criticisms—because if all these sundry critiques are granted, they actually tell us something fundamental about the social world and the nature of the categories themselves. Put differently, regardless of the status of postmodernism, this monograph provides a new theory of the social world (applying not just to humans but also other animal species) and a new ethical model for the human sciences. Taken together, these insights and others point the way to a bright future for epistemic and ethical enterprises across the disciplines. The stakes for *all* scholars in the humanities and social sciences couldn't be higher. Nietzsche philosophized with a hammer; here I mean to philosophize with lightning.¹³

强烈的喜悦和希望。超越反本质主义不是一个新的本质主义，而是一个成为的世界。我们可以接受并建立在这些批评的基础上，而不是为主类别辩护——因为如果所有这些杂七杂八的批评都被接受了，它们实际上告诉了我们一些有趣的关于社会世界的基本信息，以及这些类别本身的性质。换句话说，不管后现代主义的地位，这本专著提供了一个新的社会世界理论（不仅适用于人类，也适用于其他动物物种）和一个新的人类科学伦理模式。综上所述，这些见解和其他见解为跨学科的认知伦理企业指明了光明的未来。对于所有人文和社会科学的学者来说，利害关系再高不过了。尼采用铁锤进行哲学化；这里我的意思是用闪电进行哲学化

To herald the coming movement I hope to inspire with a name, I am using the term “metamodernism.”¹⁴ Only a handful of significant theorists have used this term previously, so associations with it are mostly unformed, but I am primarily following in the footsteps of the Nigerian art historian Moyo Okediji, who described metamodernism as an artistic attempt to both extend and challenge modernism and postmodernism together. ¹⁵ (For other uses of “metamodernism” see note).¹⁶ Taking Okediji as my initial inspiration, I am applying this form of metamodernism in a positive philosophical mode for the first time. In that respect, previous scholars of “metamodernism” or “metamodernity” are welcome to take this book as an attempt to construct a particular metamodern philosophy and not an attempt to define the entirety of metamodernism per se.

为了预示即将到来的运动，我希望用一个名字来激发灵感，我使用了“元现代主义”这个术语此前只有少数重要的理论家使用过这个术语，因此与它的联系大多尚未形成，但我主要是在追随尼日利亚艺术历史学家 Moyo Okediji 的脚步，他将元现代主义描述为一种将现代主义和后现代主义同时扩展和挑战的艺术尝试。¹⁵（关于“元现代主义”的其他用途见注释）。¹⁶ 以 Okediji 作为我最初的灵感来源，我第一次将这种形式的元现

代主义运用到积极的哲学模式中。在这方面，欢迎以前研究“元现代主义”或“元现代性”的学者将本书视为构建一种特定的元现代哲学的尝试，而不是界定整个元现代主义本身的尝试。

I will return to the term “metamodernism” repeatedly throughout the book, and will build upon this initial perfunctory gesture at character-ization, but for the moment just remember that the “meta--” prefix here is primarily meant to suggest a higher- or second--order position beyond (post)modernism. Put differently, the main emphasis in metamodern-ism should be on this “meta” and not the “modernism.” But as we build to a greater understanding of everything that metamodernism entails, I will draw inspiration from many “postmodern” and “modern” philosophers, recovering parts of their theories in order to construct this new one. (Hence, what follows may occasionally look shockingly modernist and at other times startlingly postmodernist.)

我将在整本书中反复回到“元现代主义”这个术语，并将建立在这个角色化的最初的敷衍姿态之上，但是现在只要记住，这里的“元”前缀主要意味着超越(后)现代主义的一个更高或二级的位置。换句话说，元现代主义的主要重点应该是这个“元”，而不是“现代主义”但随着我们对元现代主义所包含的一切有了更深入的理解，我将从许多“后现代”和“现代”哲学家那里获得灵感，恢复他们的部分理论，以便构建这个新的理论。(因此，接下来的内容可能有时看起来令人震惊的现代主义，有时看起来令人震惊的后现代主义)

So how might we move beyond postmodernism? There is another way that has not yet been tried. I would like to put forward an approach that is neither deconstruction nor restoration—as a substitute, I think we need to find *the negation of the negation*. This is because the various postmodern philosophies seem ideally suited to dialectical analysis. We might therefore think that G.W.F. Hegel, the putative “master of the dialectic,” could

那么，我们如何才能超越后现代主义呢？还有一种方法尚未被尝试。我想提出一种既不是解构也不是恢复的方法——作为替代，我认为我们需要找到否定的否定。这是因为各种各样的后现代哲学似乎非常适合辩证分析。因此，我们可能会认为，公认的“辩证法大师”黑格尔可以

shed some light not only on where postmodernism has been, but also on what it might productively transform. After all, aren't all the various "anti--," "post--," and "de--" prefixes merely different ways of defining a position as the antithesis or negation of its predecessor?

不仅阐明了后现代主义的发展方向，也阐明了后现代主义可能带来的富有成效的变革。毕竟，所有各种各样的“反”、“后”和“去”前缀，不就是用不同的方式来定义一个立场，作为其前身的对立面或否定面吗？

This project does not rely on Hegel's authority. It is not meant to suggest a return to Hegelianism. Hegel's dialectic is merely a source of inspiration. But his account of the movement of thought, especially the negation of the negation, is valuable insofar as it suggests the crucial moment on which the dialectic advances.

这个项目并不依赖于黑格尔的权威。这并不意味着要回归黑格尔主义。黑格尔的辩证法仅仅是灵感的源泉。但是他对思想运动的描述，特别是对否定的否定，是有价值的，因为它暗示了辩证法发展的关键时刻。

In brief, I see the negation of the negation as different and distinct from an older positivity; it is a further radicalization of the negation.¹⁷ No mere rejection of the preceding system, it has actual content. In a geometrical sense, we can imagine tracing the boundaries of a complex figure. This is the first negation, which separates the figure from the ground around it. In the negation of the negation, both the specific contradictions *and* the preceding order are integrated into the form of the second--order negation, which means that a two--dimensional metaphor for visualizing such a figure becomes insufficient. The preceding system is not only cancelled out but is also assimilated into the new system. It has to account for the older totality even as it traces the foundation across which antinomies appear. It therefore preserves in its movement the contradictions of various inherent negativities. To deepen the geometrical metaphor, it is like rotating the figure into a new dimension of space (adding features along a new axis) or turning the figure inside out to produce a new object that provides a place for the old antagonisms to appear unresolved. Hegel's dialectic could thus be thought of as a three--dimensional spiral, passing over its starting point while perpetually ascending.¹⁸ It is a return, but a return in a higher key. Thus, to proceed would seem to require building on the older skeptical gesture to articulate a new concept (hence, *metamodernism*).

简而言之，我认为对否定的否定不同于以往的肯定，它是否定的进一步激进化。¹⁷ 不仅仅是对以前体系的否定，它还有实际的内容。在几何意义上，我们可以想象追踪一个复杂图形的边界。这是第一个否定，它把图形和周围的地面分开。在否定的过程中，特定的矛盾和前面的顺序都被整合成了二阶否定的形式，这意味着二维隐喻不足以形象化这样一个形象。前面的系统不仅被抵消，而且也被吸收到新的系统中。它必须

解释旧的整体性，即使它追溯出现矛盾的基础。因此，它在其运动中保留了各种内在否定性的矛盾。为了深化几何隐喻，就像把图形旋转到一个新的空间维度(沿着一个新的轴线增加特征)，或者把图形翻过来，产生一个新的对象，为旧的对抗提供一个地方，让它显得无法解决。因此，黑格尔的辩证法可以被认为是一个三维的螺旋，在不断提升的同时越过它的起点。¹⁸它是一个回归，但是在更高的调上是一个回归。因此，继续下去似乎需要建立在旧的怀疑姿态的基础上来阐述一个新的概念(因此，元现代主义)。

To skirt a cliché, we need a Copernican revolution. We need to revolve the human sciences on their axis. This is not a turn in the fixed plane of disciplinary horizons (as so many other turns have been) but rather a three-dimensional reorientation. Rather than running in circles, we need to spiral upward. The center must move if we are not going to fall into further fragmentation.

为了避免陈词滥调，我们需要一场哥白尼革命。我们需要让人类科学围绕它们的轴心旋转。这不是在学科视野的固定平面上的转变(就像许多其他的转变一样)，而是一种三维的重新定位。我们需要螺旋上升，而不是在原地打转。如果我们不想进一步陷入分裂，中心就必须移动。

In sum, I aim to move beyond deconstruction by radicalizing it or turn-ing it inside out. While it may sound paradoxical, negating negativity is actually the beginning of a positive gesture that authorizes the new accumulation of knowledge. It seems absurd that while the natural sciences seem to be making consistent progress, the human sciences seem to be continually circling the drain. In a gesture that may look like pulling the plug, I believe there is hope for the future.

总而言之，我的目标是超越解构主义，将其激进化或彻底颠覆。虽然这听起来似乎有些自相矛盾，但是否定消极实际上是一种积极姿态的开始，这种姿态授权了新的知识积累。自然科学似乎在不断地取得进步，而人文科学似乎在不断地走下坡路，这似乎很荒谬。我相信未来还是有希望的。



This is a book for people who are sick of “Theory.” People who are tired of gratuitous namedropping; anti--authoritarian arguments from authority; shallow insights masked in obscurantism; self--loathing humans claiming to represent the agency of microbes; Americanization masquerading as diversification; and most crucially, theory that is merely jargon overlaid on predetermined political judgments. This a book for people who wish that more scholars in the humanities and social sciences chose theories based on empirical adequacy instead of prior ideological commitments. For those people, this book provides a set of empirically testable theories in the philosophy of the human sciences. If taken seriously, it will provide new methodological openings that should lead to fresh scholarly inquiries into the nature of our human and nonhuman environment. It does not presume that you must care about the meaning of postmodernism other than as a springboard for serious theorizing. This work is no mere postur-ing—it has pragmatic implications for how we should do our scholarship. It is also a meta-work about theory formation itself, and as such it tells us something significant about theories (and about generalizations in gen-eral) in the human sciences. It tells us which sorts of theories are likely to hold, which sorts of theories need more substantiation, and which theo-ries must be terminated.

这本书是给那些厌倦了“理论”的人看的人们厌倦了不必要的提名;权威的反独裁论调;蒙昧主义掩盖的肤浅见解;自我厌恶的人类自称代表了微生物的力量;伪装成多样化的美国化;以及最重要的是,仅仅是覆盖在预定政治判断之上的行话的理论。这本书是为那些希望更多的人文和社会科学学者选择基于经验的充分性而不是先前的意识形态承诺的理论的人而写的。对于这些人来说,这本书提供了一套人文科学哲学中的经验可验证的理论。如果认真对待,它将提供新的方法论开端,这将引导我们对人类和非人类环境的本质进行新的学术探索。它并不假定你必须关注后现代主义的意义,而不是作为严肃理论的跳板。这部著作不仅仅是一种姿态——它对我们应该如何做我们的学术研究具有实用主义的意义。它也是一部关于理论形成本身的元著作,因此它告诉我们一些关于人类科学中的理论(以及一般的概括)的重要内容。它告诉我们哪些理论可能成立,哪些理论需要更多的证实,哪些理论必须终止。

This is also a book for people who are content with the current frag-mented theoretical landscape—people who shrug their shoulders at the question of where theory (or philosophy) goes from here; people who are *not* kept up at night by the putative impasse between modernism and postmodernism; people who perhaps even feel liberated from the need to think about questions of epistemology since a broader shift toward phe-nomenology opens up space for them to focus on questions of identity and politics in ethically motivated

subdisciplines. This work draws on and allies itself with current works in feminist theory, critical Black studies, postcolonial theory, science studies, queer theory, and environmental studies. Indeed, it can help further many of the ambitions behind these movements. This is because understanding sources of skepticism about climate change, the causes of anti-Black racism, secular hegemony and their entanglement requires a broader understanding of the social world, which this monograph aims to contribute. This work thus proffers a re-- theorizing of the social sphere, including a fresh theory of the formation of social categories (applicable to race, religion, gender, art, and so on). If we want to change society, we need to understand it better.

这本书也是为那些满足于当前支离破碎的理论景观的人们而写的——那些对理论(或哲学)从此走向何方的问题耸耸肩的人们; 那些对现代主义和后现代主义之间的假定僵局不感到夜不能寐的人们; 那些甚至可能觉得自己从思考认识问题的需要中解放出来的人们, 因为向现象学的更广泛转变为他们开辟了一个空间, 让他们在伦理动机的子学科中关注身份和政治问题。本书借鉴并结合了当前女性主义理论、批判性黑人研究、后殖民理论、科学研究、酷儿理论和环境研究等方面的著作。事实上, 它可以帮助推进这些运动背后的许多雄心壮志。这是因为, 要理解对气候变化的怀疑的根源、反黑人种族主义、世俗霸权及其纠缠的原因, 就需要对社会世界有更广泛的理解, 而这正是本专著的目的所在。这项工作因此提供了一个重新理论化的社会领域, 包括一个新的理论形成的社会类别(适用于种族, 宗教, 性别, 艺术等)。如果我们想要改变社会, 我们需要更好地理解它。

This book provides a positive vision of a possible ethical and political goal rooted in compassion and multispecies flourishing, a vision of how

这本书提供了一个积极的愿景, 一个可能的伦理和政治目标植根于同情心和多种族繁荣, 一个愿景如何

we might struggle together toward utopia in dystopian times. For those readers who are not yet disenchanted with the various strains of pessimism that have recently come to dominance, this book makes a case for why they should be, because the alternative to progress is being caught in the same impasses that have ensnared us for so long. We must seek the way out and forward, because once we do we will be able to build a better world together. 在反乌托邦时代，我们可能会一起努力走向乌托邦。对于那些尚未对最近占据主导地位的各种类型的 pessimism 失望的读者来说，这本书为他们应该失望提供了一个理由，因为替代进步的选择正陷入困扰我们如此之久的同样的僵局。我们必须寻找出路和前进，因为一旦我们这样做，我们将能够共同建立一个更美好的世界。

In addition, this book provides a big picture in which various theoretical subdisciplines can situate themselves. Given that postmodernism and allied theories are waning, metamodernism aims to provide a new grand synthesis. It charts the way that normative and epistemological commitments should be intertwined and suggests openings for further dialogue.

此外，这本书提供了一个大的图片，在其中各种理论的子学科可以定位自己。鉴于后现代主义和相关理论正在衰落，元现代主义旨在提供一个宏观综合。它描绘了规范和认识论的承诺应该交织在一起的方式，并为进一步的对话提供了开放的空间。

Scholars in religious studies and related disciplines will want to know that this is the first full-length work to line up the various critiques of disciplinary master categories (“religion,” but also “science,” “art,” etcetera) and trace out their affinities and shared conceptual roots. Doing this is not only historicizing; it also suggests an innovative approach to scholarship across the disciplines that would have been out of reach for anyone embedded in a singular disciplinary horizon. Thus, metamodernism represents a major intervention with implications across the humanities and social sciences. It is intended to be a concise prolegomenon to a new research program that will be generative to work in a diversity of fields.

宗教研究和相关学科的学者们希望知道，这是第一部将各种对学科大师类别(“宗教”，但也包括“科学”，“艺术”等)的批评排列起来，并追踪它们之间的亲缘关系和共同的概念根源的完整著作。这样做不仅是历史化的；它也暗示了一种跨学科学术的创新方法，这对于任何嵌入单一学科视野的人来说都是遥不可及的。因此，元现代主义代表了一种主要的干预方式，对人文学科和社会科学都有影响。它旨在成为一个新的研究项目的简明序言，这个项目将在多个领域产生影响。

This book is for all readers, but perhaps the most important reader is a scholar or graduate student in the human sciences who has a research project they are passionate about. To make this work accessible to such a reader, I

have intentionally avoided jargon, obfuscation, and bullshit. This is nevertheless a very academic book, and its unadorned prose is quite dense, such that a careless skimmer may find themselves caught in inadvertent traps. For a reader to get the most benefit, this book must be read carefully, with the hermeneutics of charity, and with resistance to disciplinary territorialism.

这本书是为所有的读者，但也许最重要的读者是一个学者或研究生在人文科学谁有一个研究项目，他们的激情。为了让这样的读者能够读到这本书，我特意避免使用术语、混淆视听和胡说八道。尽管如此，这是一本非常学术性的书，其朴实无华的散文相当密集，以至于一个粗心的浏览者可能会发现自己陷入了不知所措的陷阱。为了让读者获得最大的好处，这本书必须仔细阅读，以慈善的解释学，并抵制纪律性的领土主义。

0.1 Into the Abyss: Postmodernism Unraveling

0.1 进入深渊：后现代主义的解体

At the start, I want to make some effort to specify my target—or at the very least my terminological choice about the thing we are in the process of eclipsing. To take a typical example of what I have in mind, the entry on “Postmodernism” in *Encyclopedia of Activism and Social Justice* (2007) reads as follows:

在开始的时候，我想努力明确我的目标——或者至少是我对我们正处于日食过程中的事物的术语选择。举一个典型的例子来说明我的想法，《行动主义与社会正义百科全书》(*Encyclopedia of Activism and Social Justice*, 2007)中的“后现代主义”条目如下：

[Postmodernists argue that] language does not reflect reality outside of it and no theory—scientific or not—can objectively represent the social and

[后现代主义者认为]语言不能反映外在的现实，没有任何理论——科学的或非科学的——能客观地代表社会和文化

natural world which solely consists of texts, inter-texts, interpretations and discourses. . . . Postmodernism can be philosophically associated with an unsystematic skepticism against faith in rationality, objectivity, and scientific knowledge. The rise of epistemological anti-realism and ethical relativism seem to be the main characteristic features of Postmodernism in philosophy.¹⁹

纯粹由文本、互文、解释和话语构成的自然世界。后现代主义在哲学上可以与对理性、客观性和科学知识的信仰的非系统怀疑联系在一起。认识论反现实主义和伦理相对主义的兴起似乎是后现代主义哲学的主要特征

This sample definition presents a concise and fairly representative summary of many scholars' default assumptions about postmodernism. The entry's author also accurately observes, "It has been repeatedly suggested that what is new in this epoch is . . . that it is the end of something: the end of ideology, the end of history, the end of philosophy, [or] the end of reality."²⁰

这个样本定义提出了一个简明和相当具有代表性的总结，许多学者的默认假设后现代主义。该条目的作者也准确地观察到，“有人反复提出，这个时代的新事物是... ..它是某种东西的终结：意识形态的终结，历史的终结，哲学的终结，[或]现实的终结。”²⁰

This is a good depiction of what the academy under the sign of the negative looked like, regardless of what term was used to describe it. But many characterizations of postmodernism include a similar list of features. Although not always with the same succinctness, postmodernism in philosophy is typically associated with: 1) antirealism; 2) an emphasis on endings, which has often included disciplinary autocritique; 3) an extreme version of the linguistic turn that characterizes the world in terms of texts; 4) a broad climate of skepticism; and 5) ethical relativism (sometimes called "ethical nihilism")—all of this is regularly bundled together under the term "postmodernism."²¹

这很好地描述了学院在负面符号下的样子，不管用什么术语来描述它。但是，后现代主义的许多特征都包含了一系列类似的特征。尽管并不总是如此简洁，但哲学中的后现代主义通常与以下几点联系在一起：1) 反现实主义；2) 强调结局，往往包括学科自我批判；3) 语言学转向的极端版本，以文本的形式描述世界；4) 广泛的怀疑主义气氛；5) 伦理相对主义（有时被称为“伦理虚无主义”）——所有这些都经常在“后现代主义”一词下捆绑在一起²¹

Here is the thing: all five of these are genuine theoretical issues irrespective of anything called postmodernism. Much of this monograph will be working out these problematics in turn and it will demonstrate how

addressing them correctly actually permits a reconceptualization of epistemology, ethics, and social ontology. But there are two further points I want to elaborate before we do: first, these conundrums do not correspond to the thinking of any specific thinkers; and second, these issues are older than most accounts of postmodernism give credit.

事情是这样的:这五个问题都是真正的理论问题,与所谓的后现代主义无关。本专著的大部分内容将依次解决这些问题,并将演示如何正确处理这些问题,实际上允许对认识论、伦理学和社会本体论进行重新概念化。但在此之前,我还想进一步阐述两点:第一,这些难题不符合任何特定思想家的思想;第二,这些问题比大多数后现代主义的解释都要古老。

For starters, the properties of a generic postmodernism might suggest its rough interchangeability with a small group of similar terms. Since the 1980s, four terms have been increasingly used in the Anglophone academy to chart a semi--overlapping and inconsistent terrain: *deconstruction*, *post-structuralism*, “*French Theory*,” and *postmodernism*. Initially, these might suggest a set of expanding circles—*deconstruction* naming the work of Jacques Derrida and his followers; *poststructuralism* growing to include other responses to structuralism such as those by Roland Barthes, Jean Baudrillard, Michel Foucault, Luce Irigaray, Julia Kristeva, and Jacques Lacan; “French theory” seemingly expanding this circle still further to suggest a greater range of French thinkers from Pierre Bourdieu to Giles

对于初学者来说,一般后现代主义的特性可能暗示了它与一小组类似术语的粗略互换性。自 20 世纪 80 年代以来,英语学院越来越多地使用四个术语来描绘一个半重叠和不一致的地形:解构主义、后结构主义、“法国理论”和后现代主义。最初,这些可能意味着一系列不断扩大的循环——解构主义以雅克·德里达及其追随者的作品命名;后结构主义逐渐包括对结构主义的其他反应,如罗兰·巴特、让·鲍德里亚、米歇尔·福柯、露西·伊里加雷、朱莉娅·克里斯蒂瓦和雅克·拉康的反应;“法国理论”似乎进一步扩大了这个循环,暗示了从皮埃尔·布迪厄到贾尔斯等更广泛的法国思想家

Deleuze to François Laruelle; and finally, *postmodernism* bringing art, literature, and philosophy together and broadening out from the Franco-phone context to include German and American thinkers like Martin Heidegger, Walter Benjamin, and Richard Rorty.

最后，后现代主义将艺术、文学和哲学结合在一起，并从法语电话语境中扩展到包括德国和美国的思想家，如马丁·希德格尔、沃尔特·本杰明和理查德·罗蒂。

This approximation has distinct flaws. These are exonyms, as almost none of the primary theorists named above actively embraced these terms to describe their movements. These thinkers would not have agreed with being sorted into one camp or the other (there were no self-described “*post-structuralistes*” in France). The terms are also used inconsistently; what one philosopher will criticize as deconstruction, another will characterize as postmodernism or poststructuralism. The terms’ conflation is apparent in frequent messy hybrids like “deconstructive postmodernism” or “postmodern poststructuralism.”²² Given how blurry the boundaries are among terms, one might get the sense that we are not talking about a multiplicity of movements but one variegated movement referred to variously.

这种近似有明显的缺陷。这些都是外来语地名，因为几乎没有上面提到的主要理论家积极接受这些术语来描述他们的运动。这些思想家不会同意被归入这样或那样的阵营(法国没有自称的“后结构主义者”)。这些术语也被不一致地使用；一个哲学家将批评为解构主义，另一个将定性为后现代主义或后结构主义。这些术语的混合在经常出现的混乱的混合物中是显而易见的，比如“解构主义的后现代主义”或“后现代的后结构主义”考虑到术语之间的界限是如此模糊，人们可能会有这样的感觉：我们谈论的不是运动的多样性，而是一种被称为各种各样的运动。

All four movements are often assumed to be European in origin and described together as a European “invasion” of American philosophy, but independent specialists have repeatedly made the opposite observation about each of these terms—namely, that what gets called deconstruction, poststructuralism, and French theory bears very little relation to any recognizably European projects and is instead closer to an American subversion or parody.²³ Hence, there seems to be a consensus among historians of these movements that this whole cluster of theories—whether referred to as *poststructuralism*, *postmodernism*, or *deconstruction*—is an American invention.²⁴ More precisely, there is a strong case to be made that these movements have resulted from a North American engagement with a number of predominantly French (and sometimes German) theorists from different disciplines, whose works, after having been reformulated in the Anglophone academy, were then re-imported in modified form back into Western Europe.

I basically agree with this historiographical inter-vention as far as it goes. But we could take it further.

所有这四个运动通常被认为源于欧洲，并被描述为欧洲对美国哲学的“入侵”，但独立专家一再对每一个术语做出相反的观察——即所谓的解构主义、后结构主义和法国理论与任何可辨认的欧洲项目几乎没有关系，反而更接近于美国的颠覆或模仿。因此，研究这些运动的历史学家似乎一致认为，这一整套理论——无论是后结构主义、后现代主义还是解构主义——都是美国人的发明。²⁴更确切地说，有一个强有力的理由可以说明，这些运动是北美洲与来自不同学科的一些主要是法国(有时是德国)的理论家进行接触的结果，这些理论家的作品在英语学院重新制定之后，又以修改后的形式重新引进到西欧。我基本上同意这种历史学上的干预。但我们可以更进一步。

Before we move on, I want to reconstruct in the barest of brushstrokes how we got here. Anglo--American philosophy's attempt to reformulate itself as a "scientific discipline," along with increasing overspecialization, primed scholars in other human sciences to look elsewhere for grand theorizing.²⁵ Thus, the role previously accorded to philosophy came to be occupied instead by imported European forms of "theory." Literature departments were already prepared to import philosophy because of the preexisting popularity of literary expressions of existentialism. These departments soon became key sites for the formation of the so-called poststructuralist or postmodern canon (note the irony of canonizing an

在我们继续前进之前，我想用最简单的笔触重建我们是如何到达这里的。英美哲学试图将自己重新定位为一门“科学学科”，随着越来越多的过度专门化，其他人文科学领域的学者开始转向其他地方寻找宏大的理论。因此，以前赋予哲学的角色被引进的欧洲形式的“理论”所取代由于存在主义文学表达方式的普及，文学系已经准备好引进哲学。这些部门很快成为形成所谓的后结构主义或后现代主义经典的关键所在

anti-canon), which was produced by drawing together European thinkers from different disciplinary backgrounds that were often opposed to each other. This canon became increasingly linked to emancipatory political struggles both within existing departments and in complement to the birth of women's studies and many ethnic studies programs (which had sprung up in part to address the needs of an increasingly diversified student body).²⁶ The critical response to these critiques by establishment figures only served to solidify a sense of a counter-movement. Looked at from this vantage, "French theory," "postmodernism," and "poststructuralism" were not so much separate movements as a spectrum of Anglo-American appropriations of continental theory, which were marshalled together to address preexisting domestic intellectual concerns and then re-exported to Europe (and the rest of the globe) as a fresh bricolage of skeptical dogmas.

反正统), 这是通过把来自不同学科背景的经常相互对立的欧洲思想家聚集在一起而产生的。这一经典越来越多地与现有部门内部的解放政治斗争联系在一起, 以补充妇女研究和许多民族研究方案的诞生(这些方案的出现部分是为了满足日益多样化的学生群体的需要)。从这个角度来看, "法国理论"、"后现代主义"和"后结构主义"与其说是独立的运动, 不如说是一系列英美对大陆理论的挪用, 这些理论被整合在一起, 以解决先前存在的国内知识分子的担忧, 然后再出口到欧洲(以及全球其他地区), 成为怀疑主义教条的新组合。

I use *postmodernism* to talk about this whole spectrum of theories, but to their proponents and critics they were often referred to as *postmodernism*, *deconstruction*, *poststructuralism*, or *French theory* (the differences between these will mostly be irrelevant in what follows). Under these names, a set of skeptical doctrines, yoked to emancipatory politics, effectively served as a model—a method—even a program for intellectual life. The issues they evoked were not new. They represented preexisting elements in a new constellation. What was historically new was their sway. It was difficult for a younger scholar to enter the humanities and many of the social sciences from the 1980s until the mid-2000s without assenting to the prescribed premises discussed below. In many of the disciplines these got entangled with category decay and autocritique. The consequences of this entanglement continue to impact scholarship today.

我用后现代主义来谈论这一系列的理论, 但是对于他们的支持者和批评者来说, 他们通常被称为后现代主义、解构主义、后结构主义或者法国理论(这些理论之间的区别在接下来的文章中基本上是无紧要的)。在这些名字之下, 一套怀疑主义学说, 与解放政治紧密相连, 有效地作为一种模式——一种方法——甚至作为一个知识分子生活的纲领。它们引发的问题并不新鲜。它们代表了一个新星座中已经存在的元素。历史

上新的是它们的影响力。从 1980 年代到 2000 年代中期，年轻学者如果不同意下面讨论的规定前提，就很难进入人文学科和许多社会科学领域。在许多学科中，这些都与范畴衰退和自动批判纠缠在一起。这种纠缠的后果继续影响着今天的学术研究。

Much of what we regard as the novelty of these movements has been with us for a long time, much longer than is conventionally supposed by even those historians aware of these movements' American backgrounds. This deeper history can be excavated. It is important not because of some arbitrary fetishism of origins, but rather because the key philosophical positions associated with philosophical postmodernism can be found happily coexisting alongside other commitments normally taken to be antithetical to the movement. The discovery of this will be part of what frees us from postmodernism's long shadow.

我们认为这些运动的许多新奇之处已经伴随我们很长时间了，甚至比那些了解这些运动的美国背景的历史学家通常所认为的要长得多。我们可以挖掘这段更深层次的历史。它之所以重要，并不是因为某些对起源的任意拜物教，而是因为与哲学后现代主义相关的关键哲学立场与通常被视为与这场运动对立的其他承诺可以愉快地共存。这一发现将使我们从后现代主义的长期阴影中解放出来。

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We can start with the term “postmodernism” itself. Tantalizing references to the “postmodern” or “postmodernists” began appearing in English--, German--, and Spanish-speaking contexts at the dawn of the twentieth cen-

我们可以从“后现代主义”这个术语本身开始。“后现代主义”或“后现代主义”的诱人提法开始出现在英语，德语和西班牙语的语境中，在 20 世纪初

tury.²⁷ For instance, in *Die Krisis der europäischen Kultur* (1917), the German philosopher Rudolf Pannwitz had already begun arguing that a calamity in European intellectual and cultural life had produced an ethical vacuum leading to a new type of person that he called “the postmodern man” (*postmoderne mensch*).²⁸ The appearance of this text and even the term *postmodern* more than a century ago allows us to see that characterizations of the postmodern condition are far from new. Nor was Pannwitz unique. The first English book with “postmodernism” in its title came out in 1926.²⁹ On a basic philological level, what these examples show is that the term *postmodern* became lexically available shortly after 1901, when variants on the term *pre-modern* appeared and came into common usage in a number of European linguistic repertoires. No sooner had “modernity” become the quintessential periodization than it became possible to imagine its future eclipse.

例如，在《欧洲文化危机》(1917)一书中，德国哲学家鲁道夫·潘维茨已经开始主张，欧洲知识和文化生活中的一种残缺已经产生了一种伦理真空，导致了一种新型的人，他称之为“后现代人”(后现代人)。潘威茨也不是唯一的。第一本标题为“后现代主义”的英语书出版于1926年。²⁹从基本的语言学层面来看，这些例子表明，后现代一词在1901年之后不久就在词汇上变得可用了，当时，前现代一词的变体出现了，并在许多欧洲语言库中普遍使用。当“现代性”成为经典时期之后不久，我们就可以想象它未来的衰落。

Now it is the postmodern that is waning, even as we continue to be haunted by it. This is because the most influential studies of “postmodernism” in culture—by Jean-François Lyotard, David Harvey, Fredric Jameson, and Charles Jencks—explored artistic, philosophical, and cultural trends of the 1970s and 1980s that have mainly fallen out of vogue in the years since.³⁰ For example, paradigmatically postmodern authors (like Alain Robbe-Grillet) seem passé today; the weight given to television in theories of postmodern cultural analysis is equally dated; and the same could be said about almost everything associated with the so-called postmodern zeitgeist, from postmodern architecture to painting. Even Jameson’s identification of postmodernity with “Late Capitalism,” while prescient (especially insofar as we still live in a media-saturated consumer society), still depicted a pre-internet, pre-2008 financial collapse, pre-precariat, pre-credit default swaps, pre-pandemic, pre-surveillance capitalism version of the global economy.³¹

现在，后现代主义正在衰落，尽管我们仍然被它所困扰。这是因为，让-弗朗索瓦·利奥塔、大卫·哈维、弗雷德里克·詹姆逊和查尔斯·詹克斯对文化中的“后现代主义”最有影响力的研究探讨了20世纪70年代和80年代的艺术、哲学和文化趋势，这些趋势在那之后的几年里基本上已经不再流行。例如，典型的后现代作家(如阿兰·罗伯-格里耶)在今天似

乎已经过时;后现代文化分析理论中对电视的重视也同样过时;从后现代主义建筑到绘画,几乎所有与所谓的后现代时代精神相关的东西都是如此。甚至詹姆逊对后现代主义与“晚期资本主义”的认同,尽管有先见之明(特别是我们仍然生活在一个媒体饱和的消费社会),仍然描绘了前互联网,前2008年金融崩溃,前危机,前信用违约互换,前大流行,前监督资本主义版本的全球经济

Even at its heights, postmodernism seemed to refer not to a global pattern, but to narrow and selective groupings of Euro--American cul-tural production. Philosophers in the rest of the world often wondered about whether they could be “postmodern before being modern.”³² “Post-modernity” was unevenly distributed at best. This was true even in North America: while theorists like bell hooks and Cornel West drew on post-modern philosophy, they also criticized how badly the theorizing of post-modern art and culture described Black American artistic and cultural production.³³

即使在其巅峰时期,后现代主义似乎也不是指一种全球模式,而是指欧美文化生产的狭隘和有选择性的集团。世界上其他地方的哲学家经常想知道他们是否可以“在成为现代之前成为后现代”³²“后现代”充其量是分布不均的。即使在北美也是如此:虽然贝尔·胡克斯和康奈尔·韦斯特等理论家借鉴了后现代哲学,但他们也批评了后现代艺术和文化理论对美国黑人艺术和文化产品的描述有多么糟糕

In addition to postmodernism being outdated and parochial, many descriptions of what defined it are also inaccurate. Lyotard famously argued that the defining feature of postmodernity was that the “grand narrative has lost its credibility.” But in his moment, as today, metanarratives were

除了后现代主义已经过时和狭隘之外,许多对其定义的描述也是不准确的。利奥塔有一个著名的观点,即后现代主义的定义特征是“宏大的叙事已经失去了它的拥有属性”但是在他的时代,就像今天一样,元叙事是

far from vanishing. Even when philosophers rejected master narratives, non-philosophers still expounded plenty of master narratives. Narratives of progress, secularization, democratization, enlightenment, and the like were retold by politicians, filmmakers, tech entrepreneurs, psychologists, and even many scholars. Much of the postmodern canon was even rooted in its own pessimistic grand narratives about the fallenness of Being, colonialism, the death of God, or disenchantment. In this last respect, modernism is more similar to postmodernism than is typically described, because many avowed modernists were also pessimists about progress, and references to secularization and rationalization were often framed as laments. All that is to say, *contra* Lyotard, that the death of metanarratives was celebrated prematurely. It was not the defining feature of the post-modernity of his era, and even today I see no end to metanarratives.³⁴

远未消失。即使哲学家拒绝大师叙事，非哲学家仍然阐述了大量的大师叙事。关于进步、世俗化、民主化、启蒙等等的叙述被政治家、电影制作人、科技企业家、心理学家甚至许多学者重述。许多后现代主义经典甚至植根于其自身的悲观宏大叙事，关于存在的堕落、殖民主义、上帝的死亡或幻灭。在这最后一个方面，现代主义比通常描述的更接近后现代主义，因为许多公开承认的现代主义者也是对进步的悲观主义者，对世俗化和合理化的提及往往被框定为悲叹。这就是说，与利奥塔相反，元叙事的死亡被过早地庆祝了。这并不是他那个时代后现代主义的具有属性的特征，即使在今天，我也看不到元叙事的终结



There is another philosophical opposition we need to shed. One common way to define “postmodernism” is as a rejection of “positivism.”³⁵ When this “positivism” is identified with a specific philosophical movement it is usually the “logical positivism” of the Vienna Circle.³⁶ The surprise therefore is that the logical positivists shared a number of positions that have since become associated with postmodernism, and others that turn out to be common to an Anglo-American school of literary theory known as New Criticism. We can see this if we return to the common features associated with postmodernism (the history of disciplinary autocritique will be explored separately in chapter 2).

我们需要摆脱另一种哲学上的对立。定义“后现代主义”的一种常见方式是拒绝“实证主义”当这种“实证主义”与一种特定的哲学运动相提并论时，它通常是维也纳学派的“逻辑实证主义”。因此，令人惊讶的是，逻辑实证主义者共享一些立场，这些立场后来与后现代主义相联系，而其他立场后来被证明是英美文学理论学派新批评的共同立场。如果我们回

到与后现代主义相关的共同特征，我们就能看到这一点(学科自我批判的历史将在第二章单独探讨)。

First, *antirealism*. As I discuss in chapter 1, Derrida and company were not the antirealists they are often accused of being.³⁷ But Rudolf Carnap, the most famous of the Vienna positivists, *was* an antirealist. As he put it in *Der Logische Aufbau der Welt* (1928): “It is shown that the thesis of real-ism, asserting the reality of the external word . . . are pseudostatements, sentences without factual content.”³⁸ The surprise for many contemporary neo-realists who see themselves as defenders of science is that Carnap and company argued that realism was unnecessary for the natural sciences.

首先，反现实主义。正如我在第一章所讨论的，德里达和他的同伴并不是人们常常指责的反现实主义者。但是维也纳实证主义者中最著名的鲁道夫·卡尔纳普却是一个反现实主义者。正如他在《*the Logische Aufbau Der Welt*》(1928)中所说：“事实表明，现实主义的论点，断言外部词...的真实性，是伪陈述，没有事实内容的句子。”³⁸ 对于许多认为自己是科学捍卫者的当代新现实主义者来说，让他们感到惊讶的是，Carnap 和 company 认为自然科学不需要现实主义。

Second, *the linguistic turn*. Few charges are as widespread as the claim that postmodernism represented a relativistic “linguistic turn.”³⁹ But the phrase “the linguistic turn” was initially coined by Gustav Bergmann in 1953 to describe a movement in logical positivism.⁴⁰ Key features of the linguistic turn, though, go back even earlier—to New Criticism.⁴¹ For instance, the “death of the author” was explicitly theorized in the 1940s (decades before Roland Barthes) by members of New Criticism.⁴² Further-

第二，语言学的转向。很少有指控像后现代主义代表了相对论的“语言学转向”这样普遍但是，“语言学转向”这个短语最初是由古斯塔夫·伯格曼(Gustav Bergmann)在 1953 年创造出来的，用来描述一种逻辑实证主义的运动。不过，语言学转向的主要特征可以追溯到更早的时候——新批评。例如，“作者之死”在 20 世纪 40 年代(罗兰·巴特之前的几十年)被新批评的成员明确地理论化了

more, C.K. Ogden and I.A. Richards introduced Ferdinand de Saussure to many Anglophone readers in *The Meaning of Meaning* (1923), a work which also addressed claims often associated with (post)structuralists, such as the arbitrariness of the sign, the power of discourse, and the idea that language determined or socially constructed concepts. It even presented a version of the prison--house of language metaphor (often misattributed to Nietzsche).⁴³ 在《意义的意义》(1923)一书中, c·k·奥格登和 a·a·理查兹向许多英语读者介绍了弗迪南·德·索绪尔, 这本书也讨论了常常与(后)结构主义者联系在一起的主张, 如符号的任意性、话语的力量, 以及语言决定或社会建构概念的观点。它甚至提出了语言隐喻的监狱版本(经常被误认为是尼采的作品)

Third, *generalized skepticism*. The pioneering disability studies theorist Tobin Siebers has argued that postmodern and poststructuralist skepticism are better thought of as “Cold War criticism,” first articulated by theorists connected to New Criticism in the 1940s who cultivated “the project of opposing thought to itself” and formulated a “skepticism about endings, intentions, interpretations . . . and claims to truth and falsehood.”⁴⁴ Siebers held that this largely functioned to project a sense of political or intellectual urgency on what was in practice inward-looking- and depoliticized criticism. We can see, for instance, the attack on “totalizing systems of thought” as a vestige of critiques of “totalitarianism,” a term which was deployed primarily by American anti-Communists to lump together Stalinism and Nazism. Although I emphasize alternate sources of skepticism in chapter 6, I think Siebers is right that a general climate of skepticism, irony, and doubt began long before the supposed heyday of postmodernism.

第三, 广义怀疑主义。身心障碍研究的先驱理论家托宾·西伯斯认为, 后现代主义和后结构主义的怀疑主义更适合被看作是“冷战批评”, 最早由 1940 年代与新批评有关的理论家阐述, 他们培养了“反对思想本身的项目”, 形成了“对结局、意图、解释的怀疑主义, 以及对真理和虚伪的主张。”⁴⁴ Siebers 认为, 这在很大程度上是为了投射一种政治或智力上的紧迫感, 而这种紧迫感实际上是内向的和非政治化的批评。例如, 我们可以看到, 对“思想体系总体化”的攻击是对“极权主义”的批判的残余。“极权主义”一词主要是由美国的反共产主义者用来将斯大林主义和纳粹主义混为一谈的。虽然我在第六章中强调了怀疑论的其他来源, 但我认为 Siebers 是对的, 怀疑论、讽刺和怀疑的普遍氛围早在所谓的后现代主义全盛时期之前就已经开始了。

Fourth, and finally, *ethical relativism or ethical nihilism*. As I show in chapter 7, the common claim that postmodernism is a rejection of ethics is false. Most postmodernists have been moralists. But influential positivists—

like A.J. Ayer—did actually reject ethics as mere emotional state-ments. Moreover, long before postmodernism was accused of ethical nihilism, positivism was accused of the same thing. For instance, Karl Popper contended that “positivism” was an “expression of ethical nihil-ism; that is to say, of an extreme moral skepticism.”⁴⁵ Nor was he alone in making similar accusations about a Logical Positivist rejection of ethics.⁴⁶

第四，也是最后，伦理相对主义或伦理虚无主义。正如我在第七章中指出的那样，后现代主义是对伦理学的一种排斥的普遍观点是错误的。大多数后现代主义者都是道德家。但是有影响力的实证主义者——比如 a.j. 艾耶尔——实际上拒绝伦理学仅作为情感状态。此外，早在后现代主义被指责为伦理虚无主义之前，实证主义就被指责为同样的事情。例如，卡尔·波普尔认为，“实证主义”是“伦理虚无主义的表达；也就是说，极端的道德怀疑主义。”他也不是唯一一个对逻辑实证主义拒绝道德提出类似指控的人

In precis, four of the main charges against postmodernism—its puta-tive antirealism, “the linguistic turn,” generalized skepticism, and ethical nihilism—can be equally laid at the feet of Logical Positivism and New Criticism. But the striking thing is that, in positivism at least, these posi-tions were largely disconnected from pessimism and cynicism, and the positivists were, if anything, optimistic and intensely pro--science. Given this, postmodernists seem like the positivists’ disillusioned cousins. More-over, these various philosophical problematics—alongside the term “post-modernism”—were already available in the Anglo--American academy by the 1950s (if not earlier). But it took time for them to be hybridized into what amounted to a coherent intellectual model. While there are reasons

准确地说，对后现代主义的四个主要指控——其假定的反现实主义、“语言学转向”、广义怀疑主义和伦理虚无主义——可以同样放在逻辑实证主义和新批评的脚下。但引人注目的是，至少在实证主义中，这些立场在很大程度上与悲观主义和犬儒主义是分离的，而实证主义者，如果有的话，是乐观的和强烈的亲科学的。鉴于此，后现代主义者似乎是实证主义者幻灭的堂兄弟。此外，这些各种各样的哲学问题——以及“后现代主义”一词——在 20 世纪 50 年代(如果不是更早的话)就已经在英美学院中出现了。但是，它们混合成为一个连贯的知识模型需要时间。虽然这是有原因的

one might want to distinguish between deconstruction, poststructural-ism, and the like, historicizing their origins has suggested that they are in many respects better thought of as different aspects of the same move-ment. Thus, they must be overcome together.

人们可能想要区分解构主义、后结构主义和类似的东西，历史化它们的起源表明，在许多方面，它们更好地被认为是同一运动的不同方面。因此，它们必须一起克服。

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In summary, postmodernism—as an intellectual style—has been hard to grasp in part because it cannot be found principally in the writings of French theorists whom most scholars seem to mash together or get wrong anyway. The poststructuralist criticism of an American film theorist who has only read the most cited fragments of Deleuze and Baudrillard has more to do with his or her particular disciplinary formation than with the writings of either French philosopher. This means that we will neither overcome nor perfect postmodernism by developing a more exhaustive reading of any “primary” theorist.

总而言之，后现代主义——作为一种知识分子的风格——一直难以把握，部分原因是它主要不能在法国理论家的著作中找到，而大多数学者似乎都把他们的著作混为一谈或者弄错了。一位美国电影理论家只读过德勒兹和鲍德里亚被引用最多的片段，对他的后结构主义批评更多的是与他或她的特殊学科形成有关，而不是与这两位法国哲学家的著作有关。这意味着我们不会通过对任何“初级”理论家进行更详尽的阅读来克服或完善后现代主义。

Postmodernism and its sub--movements live secondhand in a range of different disciplinary compilations. As Thomas Kuhn argued, textbooks often reveal a “community’s paradigms” because introductory works suggest the simplistic exaggerations and secondhand critiques that often function as established truths throughout academic disciplines and are reinforced as part of the disciplining process itself.⁴⁷ Postmodernism was taught to burgeoning scholars either to inspire particular philosophical commitments or to function as a research model, or even sometimes as the reverse—a whetstone against which to sharpen counter--arguments. It was a pastiche that emerged from an amalgamation of disparate frag-ments pieced together in textbooks and edited volumes and reconstructed by secondary figures.

后现代主义及其分支运动在一系列不同的学科汇编中是二手的。正如托马斯·库恩所说，教科书往往揭示了一个“群体的范例”，因为入门作品提出了过于简单化的夸张和二手批评，这些往往作为贯穿整个学科的既定真理发挥作用，并作为学科建设过程本身的一部分得到加强。⁴⁷后

现代主义教给新兴学者，要么是为了激发特定的哲学承诺，要么是为了作为一种研究模式发挥作用，有时甚至是作为一种相反的作用——一块磨刀石，用以尖锐地反驳论点。它是一种模仿，是从教科书和编辑过的卷册中不同的碎片拼凑在一起，再由第二人物重新构建而成的。

Most canonical postmodernist theorists were not actually antirealists, ethical nihilists, or universal skeptics. That said, antirealism, ethical nihilism, and skepticism are actual philosophical problems. Indeed, they suggest certain fundamental questions about reality, values, and knowledge that any serious scholar in the humanities or social sciences will have to address. I am not an anti-postmodernist; rather, I think that most of what has been understood as postmodernist theory is susceptible to diminishing returns, and that those returns have already diminished beyond the point of usefulness. Postmodernism's moment has passed. It's time to work through it and past it.

大多数典型的后现代主义理论家实际上并不是反现实主义者、伦理虚无主义者或普遍怀疑论者。也就是说，反现实主义、伦理虚无主义和怀疑主义才是真正的哲学问题。事实上，它们提出了一些关于现实、价值观和知识的基本问题，任何严肃的人文学科或社会科学学者都必须解决这些问题。我不是一个反后现代主义者；相反，我认为大多数被理解为后现代主义的理论都容易受到收益递减的影响，而且这些收益已经超出了有用性的范围。后现代主义的时代已经过去。现在是时候解决它并且超越它了。

Metamodernism is what we get when we take the strategies associated with postmodernism and productively reduplicate and turn them in on themselves. This will entail disturbing the symbolic system of poststructuralism, producing a genealogy of genealogies, deconstructing decon-

元现代主义是当我们采取与后现代主义相关的策略，并且有效地复制并把它们交给自己时，我们得到的东西。这需要扰乱后结构主义的符号系统，产生谱系学，解构去污

struction, and providing a therapy for therapeutic philosophy. Like a snake devouring its own tail, the very (in)coherence of postmodernism as false unity can be productively disrupted, shattered and disaggregated. This alone will not be sufficient to either prove its validity or move us past it; after all, it is a move anticipated by the main theorists associated with the movement itself. The surprise, however, is that granting most of these skeptical challenges will provide us with a new vantage on the theoretical enterprise as a whole.

结构, 并为治疗哲学提供治疗。就像蛇吞噬自己的尾巴一样, 后现代主义作为虚假统一的一致性可以被有效地破坏、粉碎和分解。这本身不足以证明它的有效性, 也不足以让我们超越它; 毕竟, 这是与运动本身有关的主要理论家所预期的一个步骤。然而, 令人惊讶的是, 给予这些怀疑论的挑战中的大部分, 将为我们提供一个新的优势在理论事业作为一个整体。

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To head off a misunderstanding, I am not using the term “metamodern-ism” to describe a period or collective zeitgeist. While the metamodernism I am describing here is not incompatible with such projects, I am skeptical of both sweeping periodizations and the whole notion of broad epistemes for the following reasons.

为了避免误解, 我并没有用“元现代主义”这个术语来描述一个时期或集体的时代精神。虽然我在这里描述的元现代主义并不与这些项目不相容, 但我怀疑广泛的周期性和广泛认识论的整个概念, 原因如下。

Grand periodizing concepts such as modernity, postmodernity, and metamodernity are generally incoherent. As I argued in *The Myth of Disenchantment*, the term “modernity” is itself vague.⁴⁸ There can be value in vagueness, but “modernity” rests on an extraordinarily elastic tempo-

宏大的周期性概念, 如现代性、后现代性和元现代性通常是不连贯的。正如我在《解除魔法的神话》一书中所论述的, “现代性”这个词本身就是模糊的

rality that is elaborated in disparate and value-laden ways in different regions and periods. Modernity is as much a *spatial* as a temporal category, and to call a culture modern was typically to ally it with newness and to consign its other to some form of colonization. Modernization also picks out different uneven processes (e.g., urbanization, rationalization, global-ization), while modernism captures various dispersed artistic, scientific, or philosophical movements. To speak of “modernity,” “modernization,” or some broad “modernist” episteme is to select from within these and to bundle them together. Enunciations of modernity are not just vague; they are doing a lot of covert work, and “modernity’s” main feature is its capacity to reify a rupture

or breach, which it marks as the expression of a single horizon of temporality. Moreover, as I showed in *The Myth of Disenchantment* most versions of this rupture never really occurred (e.g., we were never disenchanting). Modernity is used paradoxically to indicate equally a diversity of historical and geographic ruptures, a set of contradictory processes, and a cross-cultural episteme and to describe a continuous now-time used for different “nows” from the fourteenth century to the present. All of these are erroneous.

在不同地区和不同时期以不同的、充满价值的方式阐述的现实性。现代性既是一个时间范畴，也是一个空间范畴，称一种文化为“现代”通常意味着将其与新事物结合起来，并将其他文化置于某种形式的殖民之下。现代化也挑选出不同的不平衡过程(例如，城市化，合理化，全球化)，而现代主义捕捉各种分散的艺术，科学或哲学运动。说到“现代性”，“现代化”，或者一些广泛的“现代主义”认识论，就是从这些认识论中进行选择，并将它们捆绑在一起。对现代性的阐述不仅仅是模糊的，它们还做了许多隐蔽的工作，”现代性”的主要特征是它具体化一个断裂或断裂的能力，它标志着一个单一的时间视野的表达。此外，正如我在《幻灭的神话》中展示的那样，这种破裂的大多数版本从未真正发生过(例如，我们从未幻灭过)。现代性被矛盾地用来同样表示历史和地理上的断裂的多样性、一系列相互矛盾的过程和一种跨文化的认识论，并用来描述从十四世纪到现在用于不同“现在”的连续的现在时间。所有这些都是错误的。

Characterizations of the current epoch as *postmodern* are also mis-guided because the concept of “postmodernity” contains a kind of core misrecognition. Postmodernity has never really worked as a periodization. Discussions of *modernism* and *postmodernism* often refer to the

把当前时代描述为后现代也是被误导的，因为“后现代”的概念包含着一种核心的错误认识。后现代从来没有真正作为一个期刊发挥过作用。关于现代主义和后现代主义的讨论经常提到

same canon of early thinkers; for example, Nietzsche, Freud, Marx, Kafka, Samuel Beckett, and James Joyce were often defined as “paradigmatic modernists” before being claimed as paradigmatic early “postmodern-ists.”⁴⁹ Indeed, the appearance of the term “postmodernism” is roughly contemporaneous with characteristically “modernist” art movements like Cubism and Dadaism. While *postmodernism* is often described as a counterreaction to *modernism*, the meaning of both terms often over-lapped inasmuch as they both suggested transcending “modernity.” Later, postmodernity came to be presented as a second rupture after the initial “modern” rupture. In this respect, both periodizations rest on the idea of a fundamental break from the past, which, while inflected differently, often presumes the very notion of modernity I have previously worked to dispel.

例如，尼采、弗洛伊德、马克思、卡夫卡、塞缪尔·贝克特和詹姆斯·乔伊斯在被称为典型的早期“后现代主义者”之前，经常被定义为“典型的现代主义者”事实上，术语“后现代主义”的出现大致与立体主义和达达主义等典型的“现代主义”艺术运动同时发生。虽然后现代主义经常被描述为对现代主义的反作用，但是这两个术语的含义经常重叠，因为它们都暗示着超越“现代性”后来，在最初的“现代”断裂之后，后现代主义作为第二次断裂出现。在这方面，两种期刊都建立在与过去的根本决裂的观念之上，这种决裂虽然有不同的表现形式，但往往假定了我以前努力消除的现代性概念本身。

Neither “modernity” nor “postmodernity” is doing us much good as a conceptual lens; if anything, they seem to be masking serious theoretical disagreements under a superficially shared terminology. I don’t want metamodernism to fall into the same trap. Claiming that metamodern culture oscillates between modernist and postmodernist modes would be adding further obscurity on top of two already overly general periodizations.

作为一个概念透镜，“现代性”和“后现代性”都没有给我们带来多少好处；如果说有什么好处的话，那就是它们似乎在一个表面上共享的术语下掩盖了严重的理论分歧。我不希望元现代主义落入同样的陷阱。声称元现代文化在现代主义和后现代主义模式之间摇摆不定，会在两本已经过于笼统的期刊之上增加更多的晦涩。

Chronological periods can be useful as shorthand. But, as I will argue, periodizers typically go about their work backwards by emphasizing similarities instead of the causes of those similarities (see especially chapters 4 and 6). Many of what are supposed to be a period’s defining features are not uniformly available. Furthermore, *contra* Kuhn, multiple competing research paradigms are often operative simultaneously in the same discipline (e.g., string theory versus loop quantum gravity). The concept of worldview is

itself incoherent. My point here is that it would take a lot of evidence to persuade me that there were ever any generic, epochal paradigms or worldviews. Postmodernism, even at the height of its dominance, was never the sole operative research paradigm in the human sciences. Nor was there a single episteme “modernists” shared.

按时间顺序排列的时期可以作为速记。但是，正如我将要论证的，定期器通常通过强调相似性而不是这些相似性的原因来反向工作(特别参见第4章和第6章)。许多被认为是一个时期的定义特征的东西并不是一致可用的。此外，与库恩相反，多种相互竞争的研究范式常常在同一学科中同时发挥作用(例如，弦理论与回圈量子重力)。世界观的概念本身是不连贯的。我在这里的观点是，需要很多证据才能让我相信，世界上曾经存在过任何通用的、划时代的范式或世界观。后现代主义，即使在其统治地位的顶峰，也从来不是人类科学中唯一可操作的研究范式。也没有一个单一的认识论“现代主义者”共享。

Metamodernism has been used by other scholars to characterize artistic, cultural, and religious movements. This work is valuable on its own. But metamodernism should not be thought of as a pervasive zeitgeist (at least, that is not what I aim to describe here). If periodizations are ways of describing technological, political, cultural, or philosophical constellations, then I think we could adapt what William Gibson said about the future, and note: if metamodernity is here, it's not evenly distributed. I would thus like to encourage finer-grained periodizations (both spatial and temporal) and alternate ways of conceptualizing history and uneven or nonlinear historical trajectories (returns, hauntings, prefigurations).

元现代主义被其他学者用来描述艺术、文化和宗教运动。这本书本身就很有价值。但是元现代主义不应该被认为是一种普遍的时代精神(至少，这不是我在这里要描述的)。如果期刊是描述技术、政治、文化或哲学的星座的方式，那么我认为我们可以采用威廉·吉布森关于未来的说法，并注意到：如果元现代性存在，它是不均匀分布的。因此，我希望鼓励更细粒度的分期(包括空间和时间)，以及历史概念化和不均匀或非线性历史轨迹(返回、萦绕、预测)的替代方法。



All told, postmodernism is not the only movement that will be eclipsed. In what follows, I work through and past much of what was thought of as “modernism” as well. I do not want to dismiss all differences between modernism and postmodernism, but there has been a shared conceptual terrain that gets ignored when the two are presented in polarization.

总而言之，后现代主义运动并不是唯一会黯然失色的运动。在接下来的文章中，我也探讨了很多过去被认为是“现代主义”的东西。我不想否认现代主义和后现代主义之间的所有差异，但当两者在两极分化中呈现时，有一个共同的概念领域被忽视了。

I cannot emphasize this enough: what I am trying to overcome is not some arbitrarily defined “postmodernism” or long--refuted positivism or modernism; rather, my actual target is a set of near hegemonic models for doing scholarship in the human sciences. Most fundamentally, meta-modernism is an attempt to give rise to the next phase of the dialectic, or to advance the movement of thought in Hegelian terms. Rather than just a response to postmodernism or an oscillation between modernist and postmodernist modes, metamodernism is an overcoming of both. But insofar as postmodernism is itself primarily a negation of the preceding mode of modernism, metamodernism *must* negate postmodernism in turn *without* merely returning to the previous system.

这一点我怎么强调都不为过：我试图克服的不是某种武断定义的“后现代主义”或长期被驳斥的实证主义或现代主义；相反，我的实际目标是一套近乎霸权的人文科学学术模式。最根本的是，元现代主义是试图引起下一阶段的辩证法，或推进运动的思想在黑格尔的术语。元现代主义不仅仅是对后现代主义的回应，也不仅仅是现代主义和后现代主义模式之间的振荡，而是对两者的克服。但是，由于后现代主义本身主要是对前现代主义模式的否定，元现代主义必须反过来否定后现代主义，而不仅仅是回到以前的体系。

Thus, in Hegelian terms, metamodernism represents the sublation or *Aufheben* of all that preceded it. This book lifts up both modernism and postmodernism and shows that the places in which they overlap, as well as their shared conceptual strategies, are at the root of a number of philosophical neuroses. Metamodernism aims to lead us forward—not in the manner of a centrist politics that seeks to build itself in the space two opposing camps share, but in a *cancellation* of the two previous camps that works by demolishing shared philosophical assumptions in both terrains. Some oppositions will be rendered irrelevant; others will be undermined. A very select few will be hybridized into new forms. These will form the basis of new theorization.

因此，用黑格尔的术语来说，元现代主义代表了先于它的一切的扬弃或上升。这本书提升了现代主义和后现代主义，并表明他们重叠的地方，以及他们共同的概念策略，是一些哲学神经症的根源。元现代主义旨在引领我们前进——不是以寻求在两个对立阵营共享的空间中建立自己的中间派政治的方式，而是取消之前的两个阵营，这两个阵营通过推翻两个领域中共同的哲学假设而发挥作用。一些反对意见会变得无关紧要，另一些则会被削弱。极少数人会被混合成新的形式。这些将构成新理论的基础。

But (and this is also a key point) metamodernism does not stand on my characterization of past movements. It is not an argument rooted in the authority of particular philosophical progenitors; nor is it an attempt to describe an already inchoate moment. It is rather an exercise of first--order theorizing. If successful, the results should be self--sufficient, my brief account of postmodernism here functioning only as a catalyst.

但是(这也是一个关键点)元现代主义并不支持我对过去运动的角色塑造。它不是一个根植于特定哲学先驱权威的论点，也不是一个描述已经开始的时刻的尝试。它更像是一种一阶理论化的实践。如果成功的话，结果应该是自给自足的，我对后现代主义的简短描述只能起到催化剂的作用。

0.2 Overview of the Work

0.2 工作概览

This book is about the future of not just one discipline, but all the human sciences. My suspicion is that the way forward for religious studies is also the way forward for other fields. Indeed, this work's founding impulse

这本书不仅仅是关于一门学科的未来，而是关于所有人文科学的未来。我怀疑宗教研究的前进之路也是其他领域的前进之路。事实上，这项工作的创始动力

necessitates a meta--level view beyond that of any one discipline. To explain: a range of theorists have justly criticized academic disciplines for their increasing in-group partisanship, construction of disciplinary silos, exclusion of other disciplinary perspectives, and inward fragmentation.⁵⁰ Communication breakdowns across fields are common. Scholars are increasingly working on basically the same topics, but in total ignorance of each other. What one might call “territorial pissing” is widespread as academic departments are often pitted against each other for increasingly scarce funding.

需要超越任何一个学科的元水平视图。解释一下：一系列理论家正确地批评了学科，因为它们增加了群体内部的党派偏见，建立了学科孤岛，排斥其他学科的观点，并且内部分裂。⁵⁰ 跨领域的交流中断是常见的。学者们越来越多地致力于基本上相同的主题，但彼此完全不了解。由于学术部门经常为了日益稀缺的资金而相互竞争，人们可能会称之为“地盘性小便”的现象十分普遍。

This academic trend has been combined with a broader shift toward “epistemological insiderism,” which Rogers Brubaker has defined as “the belief that identity qualifies or disqualifies one from writing with legitimacy and authority about a particular topic.”⁵¹ I do not want to repudiate insider scholarship in general (just as I think there is a place for specialization), but it would seem that identitarian preoccupations combined with hyperspecialization necessarily leads to navel--gazing. Across the humanities and social sciences, in counterreaction to previous generations’ artificial fetishizing of putatively impartial distance, contemporary scholars are increasingly coming to position themselves inside the community they study and to delegitimize the scholarship of outsiders by attacking their identity positions.⁵² The epistemic justification for this is often standpoint theory, which is sometimes *misread* as maintaining that knowledge is completely reducible to social standpoint. Paradoxically, this has led to scholars gesturing at other people’s social standpoints⁵³— for instance, straight white scholars validating their arguments by signaling their argumentative affinity with the standpoints of queer people of color. (Yet if knowledge were completely reducible to standpoint, then not only would this whole signaling business be pointless, but also there would be no reason ever to try to persuade anyone outside of one’s own standpoint community.)

这种学术趋势与一种更广泛的向“认识论内幕主义”的转变相结合，罗杰斯·布鲁贝克(Rogers Brubaker)将这种转变定义为“一种信念，即认为身份使人有资格或丧失资格，不能就某一特定主题进行具有合法性和权威性的写作。”⁵¹ 我不想否定一般的内部学术研究(正如我认为有专门化的地方)，但是看起来同一性的专注和超专业化必然导致自我审视。在整个人文和社会科学领域，为了反击上一代人对公认的公正距离的人为

盲目崇拜，当代学者越来越多地将自己置身于他们所研究的群体之中，并通过强调自己的身份地位，使局外人的学术失去合法性。矛盾的是，这导致了学者们对其他人的社会观点指手画脚。例如，直白的白人学者通过暗示他们与有色人种酷儿的观点之间的争论密切关系来验证他们的论点。(然而，如果知识完全可以简化为立场，那么不仅整个信号传递业务将毫无意义，而且永远也没有理由试图说服自己立场之外的任何人。)

In summary, we are increasingly writing for ourselves and in ignorance of our intellectual neighbors. Despite the common rhetoric of interdisciplinarity, many attempts at crossing disciplinary boundaries fall victim to internal firing squads. Indeed, many scholars unfortunately mistake territorial pissing for rigor and blinkered hyperspecialization for depth, but a work that is narrow will miss an immense swath of common ground. The good news is that this is not inevitable. There is a way out by means of anti-disciplinarity and new forms of theoretical abstraction.

总而言之，我们越来越多地为自己写作，却忽视了我们知识分子的邻居。尽管跨学科平行性是一种常见的修辞，但许多跨学科界限的尝试都成了内部行刑队的牺牲品。事实上，许多学者不幸地把“地域小便”误认为是严格的，把狭隘的超专业化误认为是深度的，但是一部狭隘的著作将会错过一个巨大的共同点。好消息是这并不是不可避免的。有一种方法可以通过反纪律和新形式的理论抽象来解决问题。

This is a stance I need to explicate, especially because in many sectors of the academy philosophy has a reputation for being nothing more than the perspective of “dead white men” who claimed to have access to the univer-

这是我需要解释的一个立场，特别是因为在学院的许多部门，哲学的名声只不过是“死白人”的观点，他们声称可以进入宇宙

sal while simultaneously excluding/discrediting those whose experiences/subject positions were being marginalized.⁵⁴ Similarly, it has often been observed that totalizing systems of thought aspire to explain everything and therefore frequently generate built-in mechanisms for automatically dismissing criticisms of their all-encompassing visions (e.g., if you reject the ubiquity of class struggle it must be because you have “false consciousness”). As a result, any claim to have produced a complete system or to have apprehended universals is now held suspect, and rightly so.

54 同样，人们常常观察到，总体思维系统渴望解释一切，因此常常产生一种内在机制，自动地驳斥对其包罗万象的观点的批评(例如，如果你拒绝阶级斗争的普遍存在，那一定是因为你有“错误的意识”)。因此，任何声称已经产生了一个完整的系统或者已经理解了普遍性的说法现在都被怀疑了，而且是正确的。

Yet, as Kwasi Wiredu has pointed out, while decolonizing philosophy necessitates the “unmasking” of “spurious universals,” not all generalizations are necessarily false.⁵⁵ But the broader the generalization one aims to make, the higher the standard of evidence must be. The universal can-not be approached directly; it must be apprehended in the particular. This means that we must always be careful that our specific vantage on a totality has not led us to mistake a local formation for the whole. But if any moment ever called out for broad solutions and higher-order abstractions, it is this one, in which individualist solutions to collective problems are regularly ending in failure. We will never solve anthropogenic climate change, structural racism, or patriarchal hegemony if we are incapable of thinking in terms of totalities.

然而，正如《连线》杂志所指出的，虽然非殖民化哲学需要“揭露”“虚假的普遍性”，但并非所有的概括都必然是错误的。普遍性不能被直接接近，它必须在特殊情况下被理解。这意味着我们必须时刻小心，我们在整体上的特殊优势不会导致我们将局部形成误认为整体。但是，如果有任何时刻曾经呼吁广泛的解决方案和更高阶的抽象，那就是这个时刻，在这个时刻，对集体问题的个人主义解决方案经常以失败告终。如果我们不能从整体性的角度思考问题，我们就永远无法解决人为的气候变化、结构性种族主义或父权霸权问题。

In this book I put forth a system for an era of anti-system, but with two significant qualifications: (1) It is a system premised on its own incompleteness. In a way, it is a *non-system system* based on an examination of the places in which certain systems have typically broken down, and rooted in a radicalization of skepticism that embraces its own finitude and eventually obsolescence. It presumes that epistemological progress comes not from the rational cogitations of an isolated ego, but via a collective struggle in which we mutually work to verify and falsify each other.⁵⁶ And (2) it is an *anti-*

universalist universalism because it posits not homogeneity or stability, but the ubiquity of diversity, heterogeneity, and change. By emphasizing the pervasiveness of change, I am speaking to this very philosophy's own demise. Yet by embracing impermanence, we can still make progress together. Perhaps a god's eye view comes not from a singular vision but from many eyes.

在这本书中，我提出了一个反系统时代的系统，但有两个重要的限制条件：(1)它是一个以自身的不完整性为前提的系统。在某种程度上，它是一个非系统系统，基于对某些系统通常已经崩溃的地方的检查，并植根于怀疑主义的激进主义，包括它自己的有限性和最终的过时性。它假定认识论的进步不是来自于孤立的自我的理性思考，而是来自于我们相互核实和证伪对方的集体斗争。它是一种反普遍主义的普遍主义，因为它假定的不是同质性或稳定性，而是多样性、异质性和变化的普遍存在。通过强调变化的普遍性，我正在谈论这种哲学自身的灭亡。然而，通过拥抱无常，我们仍然可以一起取得进步。也许上帝的视角不是来自一个单一的视角，而是来自许多双眼睛。

Accordingly, what follows draws widely on disciplines outside both my primary intellectual home (Religious Studies) and my secondary fields (Asian Studies and Science & Technology Studies). This monograph will show some of this breadth, but this work is necessarily idiosyncratic and incomplete. I will leave it to readers from other disciplines to see which aspects appeal to them, and I hope that other inspired scholars out there will find ways to apply the techniques outlined here to their own research.

因此，接下来的内容广泛吸收了我的主要学术领域(宗教研究)和次要领域(亚洲研究和科学技术研究)之外的学科。这本专著将显示一些这样的广度，但这个工作必然是特殊的和不完整的。我将把它留给来自其他学科的读者，看看哪些方面对他们有吸引力，我希望其他受到启发的学者将找到方法，把这里概述的技术应用到他们自己的研究中。

There is only so much that I can do in one book, but with the help of other committed interlocutors, the potential payoffs of this project can be great.

我在一本书中能做的只有这么多，但在其他忠实的对话者的帮助下，这个项目的潜在回报可能是巨大的。

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This book sets out from the five problematics associated with post-modernism: 1) antirealism, 2) disciplinary autocritiques, 3) the linguistic turn, 4) a broad climate of skepticism, and 5) ethical nihilism; and by working through each of them seriously and dialectically produces something new. They will become in turn: 1) metarealism, 2) process social ontology and social kinds, 3) hylosemiotics, 4) Zeteticism, and 5) a revaluation of values converging on Revolutionary Happiness. Again, these five areas have pragmatic consequences irrespective of anything called post-modernism. Theorists have spent a long time circling a small set of fundamental problematics. This is because, whether they are aware of it or not, all scholars in the human sciences need epistemology, ethics (or at least an intellectual goal), a notion of meaning, and a set of research methods for studying social kinds. This is my attempt to produce such. It is an open system in the era of anti--system.

这本书从与后现代主义相关的五个问题出发：1)反现实主义，2)学科独裁批评，3)语言学转向，4)广泛的怀疑主义气氛，5)伦理虚无主义；通过认真和辩证地研究每一个问题，产生了一些新的东西。它们将依次变成：1)超现实主义，2)社会本体论和社会种类的进程，3)符号学，4)时代主义，5)价值观的重新评估，汇聚在革命的幸福上。同样，这五个领域具有实用主义的后果，与所谓的后现代主义无关。理论家们花了很长时间围绕着一小组基本的心理问题展开讨论。这是因为，不管他们是否意识到这一点，所有人文科学的学者都需要认识论、伦理学(或至少是一个智力目标)、意义概念和一套研究社会类型的研究方法。这就是我试图产生的。这是一个反系统时代的开放系统。

The argument of the book proceeds as follows:

本书的论点如下：

The initial chapter, "How the Real World Became a Fable," begins by reconstructing the shared theoretical commitments of a range of realist and antirealist philosophers. The surprise is that while a split between realists and antirealists organizes a host of polemical conflicts, members of these putatively rival camps actually share more than they realize. By dialectically working through the putative opposition, the chapter shows where realism and antirealism turn into each other.

第一章“现实世界如何成为一个寓言”，从重建一系列现实主义和反现实主义哲学家的共同理论承诺开始。令人惊讶的是，尽管现实主义者和反现实主义者之间的分裂组织了大量的争论性冲突，但这些假定的敌对阵营的成员实际上分享的东西比他们意识到的要多。通过辩证地研究假定的对立面，这一章展示了现实主义和反现实主义在哪里相互转化。

I argue that “real” is primarily a contrastive or negative term, which gains most of its meaning from an opposing concept (e.g., a veggie burger is not real meat but it is real food). I suggest that we might want to call the position that grants the contrastive or modal nature of the real “metareal-ism,” as it is beyond both realism and antirealism. The further challenge is that there is a long history of identifying the “real” as mind--independent and in contrast to the social or the mental. Many debates about realism have been haunted by an apocalyptic notion of the real as that which would remain if humans vanished. This clearly poses a problem for scholars in the human sciences who want to deploy the vocabulary of realism: one is left asking, if social phenomena are real, what are they real in re-spect to?

我认为，“真正的”主要是一个对比性的或负面的术语，它的大部分含义来自一个相反的概念(例如，一个蔬菜汉堡包不是真正的肉，但它是真正的食物)。我建议，我们可能想要呼吁的立场，赋予对比或模式性质的真正的“超现实主义”，因为它是超越现实主义和反现实主义。进一步的挑战在于，长久以来，人们一直将“真实”定义为独立于思维的，与社会或思维形成对比的。许多关于现实主义的争论一直被一种关于“真实”的末日概念所困扰，就像人类消失后仍然存在的那种末日概念一样。这显然给那些想运用现实主义词汇的人文科学学者提出了一个问题：人们不禁要问，如果社会现象是真实的，那么它们在什么方面是真实的？

I answer this by analyzing mind--dependence, which has been surprisingly undertheorized. It comes in distinct types, which provide the key to

我通过分析精神依赖来回答这个问题，而精神依赖一直是一个令人惊讶的未被理论化的问题。它有不同类型的，这些类型提供了

unlocking different accounts of social construction. When combined with metarealism, they open the way to a social ontology that allows us to further specify gradients of the real, forms of social construction, and different modes of existence.

揭示社会建设的不同说法。当与超现实主义相结合时，它们开辟了通向社会本体论的道路，使我们能够进一步具体化真实的梯度、社会结构的形式以及不同的存在方式。

With this in hand, part II, “Process Social Ontology,” offers a new account of the nature of the social world and theorizes afresh how social categories function and come into being.

在此基础上，第二部分“过程社会本体论”对社会世界的本质进行了新的阐述，并重新理论化了社会范畴是如何运作和形成的。

In chapter 2, “Concepts in Disintegration,” I stage the “postmodern” critique within the disciplines by working through the various challenges to the utility of the concept of “religion” in religious studies and to “art” in philosophy of art and then providing a kind of deconstructive dojo for taking down any discipline’s main categories. These categories, on which we scholars in the human sciences have focused our disciplines, are all equally vulnerable to a finite set of skeptical challenges.

在第二章“解体中的概念”中，我在各个学科中进行了“后现代”批判，通过对宗教研究中“宗教”概念的实用性以及对艺术哲学中“艺术”概念的各种挑战进行研究，然后提供了一种解构主义的道场，以消除任何学科的主要范畴。这些类别，我们人文科学的学者已经集中我们的学科，都同样容易受到一套有限的怀疑的挑战。

Scholars in disciplines who have been working to fend off criticisms of their central categories (I’m looking at you, political science) will want to know that if the core skeptical issues being raised are not addressed, it is only a matter of time before their discipline’s most cherished concepts will be demolished. Scholars who think they have successfully rejected theory and re--entrenched their disciplinary methodologies (History) should know that they have only kept the skeptics from the gates as long as they have been able to put on blinders, and that even normal scholarship in their field is defenseless against robust and fundamental criticism on core conceptual grounds. Furthermore, while family--resemblance categories, polythetic concepts, and open concepts are a step in the right direction, they open up more problems than they solve.

那些一直在努力避免批评他们核心范畴(我正在看着你，政治科学)的学者们会想知道，如果提出的核心怀疑论问题得不到解决，那么他们学科最珍视的概念被摧毁只是时间问题。那些认为他们已经成功地拒绝了理论并重新确立了他们的学科方法论(历史)的学者应该知道，他们只是

把怀疑论者挡在门外，只要他们能够蒙上眼睛，而且即使是他们领域的正常学术对于核心概念基础上的强有力的和根本的批评也是无能为力的。此外，尽管家族相似性范畴、复合概念和开放概念是朝着正确方向迈出的一步，但它们所带来的问题比它们所解决的问题更多。

One might imagine that these critiques of disciplinary master categories would undermine our capacity for knowledge and throw the disciplines into a morass of endless deconstruction. This is in many cases what has actually happened, but I show that it needn't.

有人可能会认为，这些对学科大师的批评将削弱我们的知识能力，并将学科陷入无休止的解构的沼泽。在很多情况下，这种情况确实发生了，但我认为没有必要。

The following two chapters, “Process Social Ontology” and “Social Kinds,” demonstrate how the critiques of all the various disciplinary master categories are similar, and show that by *granting* these critiques we can describe—in inversion—the common features of what we could call social kinds. We (de)construct social kinds—with all their vagaries and contingencies—in common and predictable ways. Thus, if we abandon any notion of the uniqueness of any central category (including necessarily “religion”) and indeed if we hollow it out such that it has no “essential” content then this will enable us to undertake a grand re-understanding of all the categories. Recast, the method of conceptual analysis advocated by two millennia of philosophers has run aground. But the way that conceptual

接下来的两章，“过程社会本体论”和“社会种类”，展示了所有不同学科类别的批评是如何相似的，并表明通过给予这些批评，我们可以描述-在倒置-我们可以称为社会种类的共同特征。我们以共同的和可预测的方式去构造社会种类——包括它们所有的变化无常和偶然性。因此，如果我们放弃对任何中心范畴(包括必然的“宗教”)的独特性的任何否定，而且确实如果我们把它挖空，使它没有“基本”内容，那么这将使我们能够对所有范畴进行重大的重新理解。重铸，两千年来哲学家们所倡导的概念分析方法已经搁浅。但是，这种概念上的

analysis has foundered tells us something significant about the mechanisms through which concepts and social worlds are produced and maintained. The other side of the dissolution of the disciplinary master categories is a new methodology for the human sciences.

失败的分析告诉我们一些重要的关于概念和社会世界产生和维持的机制。学科大师 categories 解体的另一面是人文科学的一种新方法论。

Metamodernism demonstrates how various properties that make up the social world are constructed. By working through anti-essentialism in feminist theory, chapter 3 demonstrates how process metaphysics points beyond merely skeptical anti-essentialism. It also explains why we need to shift from a substance ontology to a process ontology of the social world and how that solves a number of philosophical problems. Chapter 4—which is in many respects the heart of the book—then examines an important theoretical framework in the philosophy of biology: namely, homeostatic property-cluster kinds. Rather than reducing the social to individuals or abstract social forces, I argue that it is better thought of in terms of social kinds. Once it has been fully elaborated, this theory of social kinds entails new methodologies for the human sciences and implies a host of potentially new research programs. It solves the problem of comparison and generalization across geography/culture/history. In brief, metamodernism suggests a profound reorientation towards the social world that will be of benefit to scholars in the human sciences and lay people alike.

元现代主义展示了构成社会世界的各种属性是如何构建的。通过研究女性主义理论中的反本质主义，第三章展示了过程形而上学如何超越仅仅怀疑的反本质主义。它还解释了为什么我们需要从实体本体论转向社会世界的过程本体论，以及如何解决一些哲学问题。第四章——在许多方面是本书的核心——然后考察了生物学哲学中的一个重要理论框架：即自稳性质——集群类。我认为，与其将所谓的社会性还原为个体或抽象的社会力量，不如从社会类型的角度来考虑它。一旦它得到充分的阐述，这种社会种类理论就需要人类科学的新方法论，并暗示着一系列潜在的新研究项目。它解决了跨地理、文化、历史进行比较和概括的问题。简而言之，元现代主义意味着对社会世界的深刻重新定位，这将有利于人文科学的学者和普通人。

Chapter 5, “Hylosemiotics” (the only chapter in part III, but the book’s longest), begins from a standard account of postmodernism as the linguistic turn. Approaching the problem of the gap between world and representation dialectically permits us to resolve the skepticisms associated with the linguistic turn by deepening rather than retreating from its implications. But it does so by shifting the model for philosophy of language from human

language onto the sign--making behaviors of a range of sentient beings. Hence, metamodernism shows how meaning can be received from the environment and lays out a new panspecies material semiotics called "hylosemiotics."

第五章“语言符号学”(第三部分的唯一一章,但是是本书最长的一章),从后现代主义作为语言学转向的标准描述开始。辩证地看待世界与表征之间的差距问题,使我们能够通过深化而不是回避它的含义来解决与语言转向相关的怀疑论。但这是通过将语言哲学的模型从人类语言转移到一系列有感知能力的生物的符号制造行为来实现的。因此,元现代主义展示了意义是如何从环境中获得的,并提出了一种新的泛物种材料符号学,称为“符号学”

Many issues in the philosophy of language are turned on their head when animals are included in the world of sign producers and consumers, and when attention is given to the materialization of discourse. Meta-modernism provides a new vantage on the way the world itself functions as sign--bearing. It argues that meaning consumption and production are not the same thing. This has significant consequences for the meanings of meaning. It also shows how, while communication is necessarily fraught and prone to faults, translation is nonetheless possible. This hylo-semiotics also addresses a core problem with much of New Materialism—namely, the limitations of typical accounts of agency. Metamodernism

当动物被包含在符号生产者和消费者的世界里,当人们注意到话语的物化时,语言哲学中的许多问题就被颠覆了。元现代主义为世界本身作为符号承载的运作方式提供了一个新的优势。它认为意义消费和生产不是一回事。这对意义的意义有着重要的影响。这也表明,虽然交流必然充满困难,容易出错,但翻译仍然是可能的。这种形而上学符号学也解决了新唯物主义的一个核心问题——即典型的代理描述的局限性。元现代主义

also provides a new system of sign--aspects that will be able to guide future scholars not just in the humanities and social sciences, but across the biological disciplines in their attempt to reconstruct how sentient beings communicate and come to understand the world around them.

也提供了一个新的符号方面的系统，将能够指导未来的学者，不仅在人文和社会科学，而且跨越生物学科，在他们的尝试重建有情众生如何沟通，并开始了解他们周围的世界。

Taken together, parts I, II, and III provide an innovative theory of the social world, both human and nonhuman, and suggest new methodological tools for studying it. The work could have stopped there, but there is another key knot associated with scholarship under the sign of the negative that needs to be untangled.

综上所述，第一、第二和第三部分提供了一个关于人类和非人类社会世界的创新理论，并为研究它提出了新的方法论工具。这项工作本来可以到此为止，但还有另一个与学术研究相关的关键问题需要解决。

Part IV, "Emancipatory Knowledges," broadens out to address the entanglement between ethics and epistemology. Postmodernism often appears as an unsolvable Gordian knot because theorists regularly conflate epistemology and ethics. This part of the book starts from a provisional, analytical bifurcation of knowledge and norms—primarily to prevent common fallacious smuggling operations in which epistemological claims are rejected for ethical or political reasons, while positive normative projects are undercut by epistemological skepticisms.

第四部分“解放性知识”展开论述了伦理学与认识论之间的纠缠。后现代主义经常表现为一个无法解决的难题，因为理论家经常把认识论和伦理学混为一谈。本书的这一部分从知识和规范的临时分析性分歧开始——主要是为了防止常见的谬误走私行为，在这种行为中，认识论的主张因道德或政治原因而遭到拒绝，而积极的规范性项目则被认识论的怀疑论削弱。

Postmodernism is regularly associated with universalized forms of cynicism and doubt. But as chapter 6, "Zetetic Knowledge," argues, there is an alternative to corrosive forms of skepticism. We get there by being skeptical of skepticism. Skepticism inevitably harbors residual epistemological commitments; its very doubt is propelled by attachments to lost certainties and its own doxa and dogmas. When skepticism commits to purifying itself, learning to doubt its own propelling beliefs, then it ceases to be skepticism.

后现代主义经常与普遍形式的犬儒主义和怀疑联系在一起。但正如第六章“Zetetic Knowledge”所指出的那样，对于腐蚀性的怀疑主义，还有另一种选择。我们通过对怀疑论持怀疑态度来达到这个目的。怀疑主义

不可避免地包含着剩余的认识论逻辑承诺; 它的怀疑是由对失去的确定性和它自己的教条和教条的依恋所推动的。当怀疑主义致力于净化自己, 学会怀疑自己推动的信仰时, 它就不再是怀疑主义了。

Deepening, rather than retreating, from skepticism leads us toward an adjustment of our standard of knowledge. The other side of skepticism is an orientation toward knowledge called “Zeteticism,” to which I add a theory about how inference should function in the human sciences.

深化而不是退缩, 从怀疑主义引导我们走向调整我们的知识标准。怀疑论的另一面是对知识的定位, 称为“Zeteticism”, 我在其中加入了一个关于推理应如何在人类科学中发挥作用的理论。

Philosophers typically bifurcate inference into induction and deduction, but they also tend to criticize both modes as deeply flawed. As an alternative, one section of the chapter recovers a version of abduction, or inference to the best explanation. It shows how abduction solves problems with induction and deduction. It also suggests that we should re-conceive of inference on a spectrum from abduction to prediction. This has its own reward beyond simply curing us of our attachment to skeptical dogmas. Metamodern Zeteticism helps us to understand, concretely, how we should structure our thought, how we should evaluate evidence from our senses, how we should formulate generalizations and theories, and what status they should have once they have been produced. This epistemology will work in practice to produce humble, pragmatic, situated knowledges.

哲学家通常将推理分为归纳推理和演绎推理, 但他们也倾向于批评这两种模式存在严重缺陷。作为另一种选择, 本章的一个部分恢复了一个版本的溯因推理, 或最佳解释的推理。它展示了诱导是如何通过归纳和演绎来解决问题的。它还建议我们应该重新思考从诱导到预测的推理。除了简单地治愈我们对怀疑论教条的依恋之外, 这种方法还有其自身的价值。元现代 Zeteticism 帮助我们具体地理解, 我们应该如何构建我们的思想, 我们应该如何评价我们的感官证据, 我们应该如何制定一般性和理论, 以及它们应该具有什么样的地位, 一旦它们产生。这种认识论将在实践中发挥作用, 产生谦逊、务实、局部化的知识。

Finally, chapter 7, “The Revaluation of Values,” presents a goal for the humanities and social sciences. It starts from the accusation that postmodernism is basically ethical nihilism or moral relativism. I argue that the reverse is actually true. A form of ethics has in fact prospered, but it has taken an almost resolutely negative form. Metamodernism turns postmodern ethics inside out and discovers a kind of critical virtue ethics directed toward what I call “Revolutionary Happiness” (capitalization in-tended and explained). This project conceives of Happiness not as paci-fying contentment or euphoric haze, but rather as a more radical project that makes demands on the social order for the benefit of not just humans but also other sentient beings. Metamodernism thus rewrites the putative oppositions between fact and value to articulate a normative, embodied ethics or politics.

最后，第7章，“价值的重估”，提出了人文和社会科学的目标。它从指责后现代主义基本上是道德虚无主义或道德相对主义开始。我认为反过来才是正确的。一种道德形式事实上已经繁荣起来，但是它却采取了一种几乎完全消极的形式。元现代主义把后现代伦理学翻了个底朝天，发现了一种批判性的美德伦理学，指向我称之为“革命幸福”的东西。这个项目设想的幸福不是一种安抚人心的满足或欣快的阴霾，而是一个更为激进的项目，它要求社会秩序不仅造福于人类，而且造福于其他有情众生。元现代主义因此重写了事实和价值之间的假定对立，以阐明一个规范的、具体的道德或政治。

In sum, metamodernism can be conceived as a kind of philosophical therapeutics that leads through the disintegration of concepts and deconstructive vigilance to a kind of reconstructive capability directed at multi-species flourishing. Reading the book in order is therefore tantamount to a kind of therapy, but it may take more than one reading to appreciate this fully. If the project is successful, the very terms “postmodernism” and “modernism” will have been unmasked, their hostilities rendered moot, and even their most ardent followers will be presented with the necessity of reckoning with their fundamental self-misrecognitions. In this way, the work as a whole aspires to be a cure for modernism and postmodernism alike. It aims to transform the reader and heal them of a set of philosophical anxieties and phantom oppositions.

总之，元现代主义可以看作是一种哲学治疗学，它通过概念的瓦解和解构的警惕，导致一种以多种繁荣为目标的重建能力。因此，按顺序阅读这本书就相当于一种治疗，但要充分理解这一点，可能需要不止一次的阅读。如果这个项目成功，”后现代主义”和”现代主义”这两个术语本身就会被揭露，他们的敌意就会变得毫无意义，甚至他们最热心的追随者也会被告知必须清算他们根本的自我错误认识。通过这种方式，作品作

为一个整体渴望成为现代主义和后现代主义的治疗方法。它的目的是转变读者，治愈他们的一系列哲学焦虑和幽灵般的对立。

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This book belongs to no existing camp. If anything, it is a “hopeful monster.” I am a queer, mixed--race Jewish--Buddhist. But while this project has roots in my particular intellectual and all--too--human standpoint as well as in queer, feminist, and critical race theory, in addition to being inspired by Buddhist philosophy, it is not and should not be reduced to any of those.⁵⁷ It is also not merely postcolonial theory, though it is partially a product of a decolonizing impulse, it resists simplistic moralizing. It embraces instead Boaventura de Sousa Santos’s call for an “emancipatory, non--relativistic, cosmopolitan ecology of knowledges.”⁵⁸ This is neither analytic nor continental philosophy. That is to say, while the problematics I am trying to overcome were formulated within the American academy, this work aims to subtly provincialize Euro--American thought by way of a breadth of engagement with non--European (especially Asian) philosophical materials. I have read everything I could get my hands on, from philosophy of sci-

这本书不属于任何现存的阵营。如果有的话，它是一个“充满希望的怪物”我是一个古怪的，混血的犹太佛教徒。但是，尽管这个项目植根于我独特的知识分子和过于人性化的立场，以及酷儿、女权主义者和批判性的种族理论，除了受到佛教哲学的启发外，它不是也不应该被简化为任何这些理论。它也不仅仅是后殖民理论，尽管它在一定程度上是非殖民化冲动的产物，它抵制简单化的道德说教。相反，它接受了Boaventura de Sousa Santos 对“解放的、非相对主义的、世界性的知识生态学”的呼吁这既不是分析哲学，也不是大陆哲学。也就是说，虽然我试图克服的问题是在美国学术界制定的，但这本书的目的是通过广泛涉及非欧洲(特别是亚洲)的哲学材料，巧妙地将欧美思想狭隘化。我已经阅读了所有我能得到的东西，从科学哲学

ence to ethology, biology, psychology, sociology, anthropology, analytic and continental philosophy, and more. This is not eclecticism so much as an active counter--hegemonic reading program culminating in antidisciplinary. To reformulate Audre Lorde's famous phrase: the master's tools never really belonged to him to begin with.

行为学，生物学，心理学，社会学，人类学，分析哲学和大陆哲学等等。这与其说是折衷主义，不如说是一个积极的反霸权主义阅读计划，最终达到了反学科平行性的高潮。用奥德丽·洛德(Audre Lorde)的名言来说：大师的工具从一开始就不属于他。

Part I: Metarealism

第一部分：元现实主义

1: How the Real World Became a Fable, or the Realities of Social Construction

真实世界是如何变成一个寓言，还是社会结构的现实

The 'real world'—an idea that is of no further use, not even as a compulsion—a useless idea, an idea that has become redundant, hence a disproved idea—let's do away with it!

“真实世界”——一个不再有用的想法，甚至作为一种强迫——一个无用的想法，一个已经变得多余的想法，因此是一个被证明是错误的想法——让我们废除它吧！

Nietzsche, *Twilight of the Idols, or How to Philosophize with a Hammer*
偶像的黄昏，或者如何用锤子哲学化

To remove altogether the “realistic” temptation to use the word “world” in the former vacuous sense, we should need to eschew once and for all a whole galaxy of philosophical notions.

为了彻底消除使用“世界”这个词的“现实”诱惑，我们应该一劳永逸地避开整个哲学概念的星系。

Richard Rorty, “The World Well Lost”
理查德·罗蒂《迷失的世界》

How did we get the idea that some people had stopped believing that the world was real? In many academic circles, “postmodern antirealist” is such a routine condemnation that the two terms are regularly assumed to be synonymous. Postmodernism, deconstruction, and poststructuralism are all commonly characterized as types of antirealism.¹ Realists often see themselves as saving modern philosophy from postmodernism. But the putative split between realism and postmodern antirealism is chiefly a phantom opposition. It organizes polemical confrontations while simultaneously obscuring the actual similarities and differences between various thinkers. Even philosophers who explicitly line up for or against “real-ism” as such are typically talking past each other or disagreeing about issues that are basically irrelevant for those of us working in the human sciences.

我们怎么会认为有些人不再相信这个世界是真实的呢？在许多学术圈子里，“后现代反现实主义”是一种常见的谴责，以至于这两个词经常被认为是同义词。后现代主义、解构主义和后结构主义都是反现实主义的典型。现实主义者通常认为自己是后现代主义手中拯救现代哲学的人。但是，现实主义和后现代反现实主义之间的假定分歧主要是一种虚幻的对立。它组织了辩论性的对抗，同时又掩盖了不同思想家之间的实际相似和不同。即使是那些明确表示支持或反对“现实主义”的哲学家，他们通常也会在一些基本上与我们这些从事人文科学工作的人无关的问题上彼此对立或不同意。

These organizing debates around realism could therefore almost be dismissed except for two things: the only way for metamodernism not to be inadvertently lumped together with antirealism or realism is explicitly to unravel at least some of the conflict; and more importantly, I want to suggest a better notion of what it means to refer to something as “real.” Re-assessing the semantics of the “real” will put us in a position to under-cut another key opposition in the human sciences—namely, that between reality and social construction. Real things are often supposed to be mind-- independent while socially constructed things are supposed to be mind--

因此，这些围绕现实主义的组织性辩论几乎可以被忽略，除了两件事情：元现代主义不被无意中与反现实主义或现实主义混为一谈的唯一途径是明确地解决至少一些冲突；更重要的是，我想提出一个更好的概念，说明什么是“真实”的东西重新评估“真实”的语义，将使我们有能力削弱人文科学中的另一个关键对立面——即现实与社会建设之间的对立面。真实的事物通常被认为是心灵独立的，而社会构建的事物被认为是心灵的

dependent. But, surprisingly, the crucial notion of mind--dependence has largely avoided serious scrutiny. In this chapter I remedy that.

但是，令人惊讶的是，精神依赖这一关键概念在很大程度上避免了严格的审查。在这一章中，我补救了这一点。

Scholars in the human sciences who see themselves as realists or anti-realists will want to know why they'd do better to avoid such affiliations. Thus, the project will advance in what I want to suggest is the metamodern mode, which is dialectical, by transcending a perceived opposition, after which it will show the benefits of this kind of philosophical movement. Scholars who presume incompatibilities between real and socially constructed or real and mind--dependent will want to know that this presumption is incoherent. Scholars who have already argued that something can be both real *and* socially constructed will benefit from this chapter's articulation of a more sophisticated notion of the real.

认为自己是现实主义者或反现实主义者的人文科学学者将想知道为什么他们最好避免这样的归属。因此，这个项目将在我想建议的元现代模式中前进，这是辩证的，通过超越感知到的对立，然后它将显示这种哲学运动的好处。那些假设现实与社会建构或现实与心灵依赖之间不兼容的学者们将想知道这种假设是不连贯的。那些已经认为某些事物既可以是真实的，也可以是社会构建的学者们，将从本章阐述的更为复杂的真实概念中受益。

1.1 Realism as Scientism

1.1 科学主义的现实主义

In his most famous work, Thomas Kuhn argued that when a dominant paradigm begins to collapse, scientists begin consulting philosophy, a subject toward which they are normally disdainful.² It seems that only when they are faced with accumulating anomalies and a deepening sense of crisis do scientists begin to take seriously the work of their more humanistic colleagues. But Kuhn's observation could just as easily be re-verses, since when humanistic disciplines are in a state of paradigm collapse, they often invoke the natural sciences. Necessarily, there are good ways to use scientific findings in humanistic research.³ But many gestures toward natural science in philosophy involve superficially misusing scientific terminology or quantitative methods.⁴ Political theory can be spiced up with jargon wrested from pop neuroscience or complexity theory. Continental philosophy can be enlivened with phrases usurped from quantum physics or ecology. Literary analysis can be formalized by hastily adopting "big data" and pretending its subjects can be modeled like fluid dynamics, and so on.⁵ These are largely rhetorical moves that are compelling at a superficial glance, but further analysis demonstrates that these apparent parallels are lacking in deeper

shared substance. Science seems to be useful to humanists mostly when it reinforces positions the humanities already take as givens.

在他最著名的著作中，托马斯·库恩认为，当一个主导的范式开始崩溃时，科学家们就开始咨询哲学，而哲学通常是他们不屑一顾的学科。²似乎只有当科学家们面对不断积累的异常现象和日益加深的危机感时，他们才开始认真对待他们更具人文精神的同事们的工作。但是库恩的观察很容易被推翻，因为当人文学科处于范式崩溃的状态时，他们通常会引用自然科学。当然，在人文科学研究中运用科学发现是有好办法的。但是哲学中许多对自然科学的姿态都涉及到表面上滥用科学术语或定量方法。大陆哲学可以用从量子物理学或生态学中篡夺来的短语来活跃起来。文学分析可以通过草率地采用“大数据”，并假装其主题可以像流体力学一样建模等等来形式化。5. 这些主要是修辞手法，乍看之下令人信服，但进一步的分析表明，这些明显的相似之处缺乏更深层次的共享内容。科学似乎对人文主义者很有用，尤其是当它强化了人文主义者已经习以为常的观点时。

As bad as superficial gestures to science may be, however, the most fulsome expression of this response to paradigm collapse is espousing allegiance toward “realism” as such, especially when undertheorized. When a discipline’s foundations are disintegrating, claiming to be a “realist” is often an attempt to both keep skeptics at bay and signal a shallow scientism. Indeed, the gradual breakdown of various guiding research paradigms in the humanities and social sciences has led to several decades

然而，尽管对科学的表面姿态可能很糟糕，但对范式崩溃的这种反应的最充分的一些表达，就是支持对“现实主义”本身的全力支持，特别是在未理论化的情况下。当一个学科的基础正在瓦解，声称自己是一个“现实主义者”往往是一种企图，既让怀疑论者望而却步，又标志着一种肤浅的科学主义。事实上，人文和社会科学领域各种指导性研究范式的逐渐瓦解已经导致了几十年

of proliferating natural science—inspired “realisms” (e.g., critical realism, speculative realism, and so on).⁶

批判现实主义、思辨现实主义等等。⁶

Some of these realisms are motivated by a backlash against the slow disintegration of the disciplinary objects—“religion,” “art,” and so on—discussed in chapter 2. To anticipate, with many disciplines becoming increasingly skeptical of the utility of their organizing categories, it should not be a surprise that the main thing some of these newer realists are interested in asserting is the reality of the disciplinary objects themselves. For instance, from its title, a “realist ontology of religion” might suggest a theological defense of the reality of some particular religious ontological claim, such as the existence of God. But when we turn toward self-avowed realists in religious studies, “realism” instead seems to announce one’s belief in “a social reality that exists ‘out there’” and a “realist interpretation of the term [religion],” which the author defines in terms of a repackaged nineteenth-century definition of “religion” as “an account that holds that there are forms of life predicated on a belief in the existence of super-human beings.”⁷ I will address these notions of a world “out there” and “social reality” later, but I want the reader to register that what being a realist about “religion” seems to signify is not that any particular religious ontological claims are real, but that particular scholarly definitions should be protected from postmodern criticism.

其中一些现实主义的动机是反对学科对象——“宗教”、“艺术”等——在第二章中讨论的缓慢解体。预计，随着许多学科对其组织类别的效用越来越持怀疑态度，这些较新的现实主义者感兴趣的主要事情是断言学科对象本身的真实性，也就不足为奇了。例如，从标题来看，“宗教的现实主义本体论”可能暗示了对某些特定宗教本体论主张的现实性的神学辩护，例如上帝的存在。但是，当我们转向宗教研究中自称的现实主义者时，“现实主义”反而似乎宣告了一个人对“存在于‘那里’的社会现实”和“对术语[宗教]的现实主义解释”的信仰，作者在重新包装的 19 世纪对“宗教”的定义中将其定义为“认为存在基于对超人存在的信仰的生命形式”⁷ 我稍后将讨论这些关于“外面的世界”和“社会现实”的概念，但我希望读者注意到，作为一个“宗教”的现实主义者似乎意味着，并不是任何特定的宗教本体论主张是真实的，而是应该保护特定的学术定义不受后现代批评的影响。

We could approach this in a different way and ask what, beyond their disciplinary subject matter, are realists in the human sciences realists about? Although this is not meant to be exhaustive, many realisms are stand-ins for two contradictory things: a commitment to a “reality” that functions principally as a proxy for a non-specialist’s notion of the current worldview of physics, and an emphasis on “the real” as something mind-independent.

These two forms of realism are then often conflated with a defense of the social scientist's object of inquiry and presented in contrast to supposedly corrosive social constructionism or postmodern antirealism.

我们可以用一种不同的方式来解决这个问题，并且问一问，除了他们的学科主题之外，人类科学中的现实主义者是关于什么的？虽然这并不意味着详尽无遗，但许多现实主义是两个相互矛盾的事物的替代品：一个是对“现实”的承诺，它主要作为一个非专家对当前物理学世界观的概念的替代品，另一个是强调“真实”是某种独立于思想的东西。这两种形式的现实主义往往与辩护的社会科学家的调查对象，并提出了反对所谓的腐蚀性社会建构主义或后现代反现实主义。

In the first case, many contemporary philosophers have seen the stakes of the debate over realism as being about the status of our current best scientific theories.⁸ These commitments are clearly on display in the new realisms. Critical realism, for instance, often takes as its inaugural moment Roy Bhaskar's *A Realist Theory of Science* and his extension of those insights to social sciences in *The Possibility of Naturalism*. Similarly, allies of speculative realism have argued that “the only credible metaphysic is one that is sensitive to the philosophical implications of the natural sciences” and that “it is science itself that enjoins us to discover the source of its own absoluteness.”⁹ Yet, on a closer reading of their work, most so-called antirealists also grant that the conclusions of contemporary science

在第一种情况下，许多当代哲学家认为关于现实主义的争论的利害关系在于我们当前最好的科学理论的地位。例如，批判现实主义经常把罗伊·巴斯卡尔的《科学的现实主义理论》作为开篇，并把这些见解延伸到《自然主义的可能性》中的社会科学。同样，推测现实主义的支持者们也认为，“唯一可信的形而上学是对自然科学的哲学含义非常敏感的形而上学”，“正是科学本身要求我们去发现它自身绝对性的来源。”然而，仔细阅读他们的作品，大多数所谓的反现实主义者也承认，当代科学的结论

tific research are approximately accurate.¹⁰ Moreover, both realists and antirealists accept the relative reality of commonsense objects. So, what do they actually disagree about?

此外, 现实主义者 and 反现实主义者都接受常识对象的相对真实性。那么, 他们实际上在哪些方面存在分歧呢?

It would seem that realist and antirealist philosophers differ primarily in the nature of the strawman attacks they launch at each other. As Simon Blackburn summarizes:

现实主义哲学家和反现实主义哲学家之间的差异主要体现在他们互相攻击对方的稻草人的本质上。西蒙·布莱克本总结道:

On the one hand it seems absurd . . . to question the reality of the objects of common--sense, or core scientific theory. On the other hand realism is often seen as demanding the mythical God's eye view, whereby we step out of our own skins, and comment on the extent to which our best scientific theory corresponds with an independent reality. . . . In the one view realism seems almost indisputably true, and in another equally obviously false or undiscussable. So there is every opening for debates in which each side talks past each other.¹¹

一方面, 质疑常识或核心科学理论对象的真实性似乎是荒谬的。另一方面, 现实主义通常被视为要求神话般的上帝之眼, 即我们跳出自己的皮囊, 评论我们最好的科学理论在多大程度上符合一个独立的现实。在一种观点中, 现实主义似乎几乎是无可争议的真理, 而在另一种观点中, 同样明显的错误或无法讨论。因此, 每一场辩论都有各自的开场白, 每一方的言论都会超越对方

Hence, although it is controversial, many philosophers have argued that the whole debate over realism is “dead” or basically a non--issue.¹² This is not the whole story, however, and I will discuss debates about “independent reality” further below. But it does seem that the realist vs. antirealist argument is largely a false opposition, and many (but clearly not all) scholars in the humanities and social sciences who declare themselves to be realists without specifying or really understanding current scientific models are basically just signaling their scientism.¹³

因此, 尽管存在争议, 但许多哲学家认为, 关于现实主义的整个辩论已经“死亡”, 或者基本上不存在问题。¹² 然而, 这并不是整个故事, 我将在下面进一步讨论关于“独立-削弱现实”的辩论。但是现实主义者 and 反现实主义者的争论似乎在很大程度上是一种错误的对立, 许多(但显然不是全部)人文和社会科学领域的学者宣称自己是现实主义者, 但没有具

体说明或真正理解当前的科学模型，基本上只是在表明他们的科学主义。13

(Moreover, as I have argued elsewhere, literary realism has historically been in a feedback relationship to scientism—as literary accounts of what is real both reflect contemporary notions of science and produce new understandings of science.)14

(此外，正如我在其他地方论证的那样，文学现实主义文学历来与科学主义有着反馈关系——因为对真实事物的文学描述既反映了当代的科学观念，又产生了对科学的新理解。)14

1.2 Varieties of Mind--Dependence

1.2 精神依赖的多样性

The second challenge to any metaphysical “realism” in the human sciences is that there is a long history of identifying the “real” as mind-- independent. A few illustrative quotations follow. To William Alston, “real-ism” means that “the things we encounter are ‘mind--independent.’”15 For Michael Devitt, a “realist” thinks that “An object has objective existence, in some sense, if it exists and has as its nature whatever we believe, think, or can discover: it is independent of the cognitive activities of the mind.”16 Bimal Krishna Matilal: “the realist believes that the world consists of some mind--independent objects, even discourse--independent objects.”17 Hilary Putnam defines the first commitment of metaphysical realism as agreeing

对人类科学中任何形而上学的“现实主义”的第二个挑战是，将“真实”确定为独立于心智的有着悠久的历史。下面是一些说明性的语录。对威廉·奥尔斯顿来说，“现实主义”意味着“我们遇到的事情是‘心灵独立的’。对于迈克尔·德维特来说，一个“现实主义者”认为“在某种意义上，如果一个物体存在，并且具有我们相信、思考或者能够发现的任何事物的本质，那么它就是客观存在的：它独立于心灵的认知活动。”16 Bimal Krishna Matilal: “现实主义者相信世界是由一些独立于思想的对象组成的，甚至是独立于话语的对象。”希拉里·普特南将形而上学现实主义的第一个承诺定义为同意

with the statement that “The world consists of some fixed totality of mind-independent objects.”¹⁸

“世界由一些固定的、独立于思想的物体组成。”

If *realism* is primarily defined contrastively in terms of mind-independence, to me the obvious question is: what is the opposite case? Namely, what is mind--*dependence*? Astonishingly, mind--dependence is for the most part undertheorized. What is worse for these debates, it could mean very different things. It could be an *ontological*, *causal*, *classificatory*, or *universal* assertion.¹⁹ I'll discuss the last in the next section, but in the following paragraphs I will think through the differences between these (and in chapter 4 I add an additional *representational* subtype of mind--dependence).

如果现实主义主要是根据心灵独立性来定义的,那么对我来说,一个显而易见的问题是:相反的情况是什么?也就是说,什么是精神依赖?令人惊讶的是,精神依赖在很大程度上是未理论化的。对于这些争论来说,更糟糕的是,它可能意味着完全不同的东西。它可以是一个本体论的、因果的、分类的或者普遍的断言。¹⁹我将在下一节讨论最后一个,但是在接下来的段落中,我将考虑它们之间的区别(在第4章中,我增加了一个额外的心灵依赖的表征子类型)。

First, for an entity to be *ontologically mind-dependent* would be to say either that the entity exists in whole or in part as a mental phenomenon (e.g., qualia, subjective sensations, or thought itself) or that it continues to exist primarily because of ongoing mental attitudes or beliefs either individual or collective (e.g., a child's imaginary friend, which exists only as long as she believes in her; the sovereign who is only the sovereign insofar as people believe she is the sovereign; or money, which has value only as long as people are willing to treat it as such). Mental phenomena and collective belief types of ontological mind--dependence could be differentiated, as they have divergent research implications; but in general claims of ontological mind--dependence are used to suggest that the phenomena in question are in some sense mental and not purely material.

首先,如果一个实体在本体论上依赖精神,那么这个实体要么全部或部分地作为一种精神现象存在(例如,质感、主观感觉或思想本身),要么主要由于个人或集体持续的精神态度或信仰而继续存在(例如,一个孩子想象中的朋友,只有在她相信她的时候才存在;只有在人们相信她是主权时才是主权的主权;或者只有在人们愿意这样对待它的时候才有价值的金钱)。心理现象和本体心理依赖的集体信仰类型可以区分开来,因为它们具有不同的研究意义;但是一般来说,本体心理依赖的主张被用来表明这些现象在某种意义上是心理的而不是纯粹的物质。

Second, for an entity to be *causally mind-dependent* would mean that it was either brought into being by a mind or that it has certain important features because of a mind. For instance, a motorcycle is causally mind-dependent because it was brought into being by the human minds that designed and built it. Similarly, we might say that a dachshund is causally mind-dependent as it has most of its breed-specific traits because dog-breeders have chosen to cultivate those traits. Note that causal mind-dependence does not require that the results be intentional. The depletion of the ozone layer would also be causally mind-dependent because it was the unintended byproduct of human decision-making. These causally mind-dependent phenomena are also physical phenomena. So, to say that a dachshund is mind-dependent is of little use when it is urinating on your shoes.

第二，如果一个实体因果地依赖于思想，那就意味着它要么是由思想带来的，要么因为思想而具有某些重要的特征。例如，一辆摩托车之所以因果依赖于思维，是因为它是由设计和制造它的人类思维带来的。同样，我们也可以说，腊肠犬是因果依赖心智的，因为它具有大多数品种特有的性状，因为狗的饲养者选择培养这些性状。请注意，因果意识依赖并不要求结果是有意志的。臭氧层的消耗也是因果意识依赖的，因为它是人类决策的意外副产品。这些因果的精神依赖现象也是物理现象。所以，如果说达克斯猎犬是精神依赖型的，那么当它在你的鞋子上撒尿的时候，就没有什么用了。

Third, for a grouping to be *classificatorily mind-dependent* would mean that it is the result of the classification activities of some kind of mind. For example, the classification of diverse minerals and organic materials into the category “gemstone” suggests that gemstone is a mind-dependent category determined by perceived aesthetic or economic value. *Classifica-*

第三，对于一个群体来说，分类的心灵依赖性意味着它是某种心灵的分类活动的结果。例如，将不同的矿物和有机材料分类为“宝石”类别表明，宝石是一个由感知的审美或经济价值决定的精神依赖类别。分类 a

tory mind-dependence need not be observer--relative. To explain: much of the debate around mind--dependence is confused with a similarly unhelpful opposition between subjectivity and objectivity. I hesitate to use either term, but it is worth noting that while music critic Robert Christgau's list of the best The Coup albums is subjective, that he has classified albums this way is objective. Or perhaps more helpfully, the Japanese language has a classificatory category (indicated by 匹) that lumps together into one category small animals, insects, fish, and demons. This is a mind-- dependent category, but its existence is objective for the researcher at-tempting to describe Japanese linguistic categories.

保守的精神依赖不一定是观察者相对的。解释一下: 许多关于精神依赖的争论被混淆为主观性和客观性之间同样毫无帮助的对立。我不太愿意使用这两个词, 但值得注意的是, 尽管音乐评论家罗伯特·克里斯特高(*robert christgau*)列出的最佳专辑《The Coup》是主观的, 但他这样对专辑进行分类是客观的。或者也许更有用的是, 日语有一个分类类别(由匹配表示), 它把小动物、昆虫、鱼和恶魔归为一类。这是一个依赖于思维的分类, 但是它的存在对于研究人员来说是客观的, 他们试图描述日语的分类。

Demarcating distinct aggregates is a subtype of classificatory mind--dependence. By way of example, the identification of a cloud as a cloud would seem to be partially dependent on someone picking it out as such. Otherwise, it would be just an indefinitely bounded set of fine water drop-lets. Similarly, whether a particular peak is part of the *same* mountain or a different mountain would seem to be a matter of mind--dependent individuation. This individuation could be particular to a person, but it also could be conventional to a community (e.g., as manifested in maps or agreed to by the scientific community). In either case, the aggregating depends on both selection and (to some extent) the material object being so categorized. That is to say, individuating aggregate phenomena, like other types of classification, is to some extent mind--dependent. (Chapter 2 will develop the claim that judgments of identity or similarity and difference are task--dependent.) Additionally, these first three levels of mind-- dependence often overlap (e.g., a classification of the ways that different civilizations have produced money), but they needn't always co--occur.

划分不同的聚合体是分类思维依赖的一个亚型。举个例子, 把一片云识别为一片云, 似乎在一定程度上取决于某个人是如何把它挑出来的。否则, 它就只是一组无限制的细水滴。同样地, 一个特定的山峰是同一座山的一部分还是另一座山的一部分, 似乎是一个依赖于心智的个性化问题。这种个性化可能是一个人特有的, 但也可能是一个群体的传统(例如, 在地图上显示或科学界同意)。在任何一种情况下, 聚合都取决于选择和(在某种程度上)被如此分类的物质对象。也就是说, 个性化的聚合

现象，就像其他类型的分类一样，在某种程度上取决于思维。(第二章将提出判断同一性或相似性和差异性依赖于任务的观点此外，前三个层次的思维依赖通常是重叠的(例如，对不同文明产生金钱的方式进行分类)，但它们并不总是同时发生。

To prefigure this and later chapters' larger issue of concern, the term "mind--dependent" could be swapped with "socially constructed" and still capture most of the relevant literature, which also tends to depict an opposition (that I will challenge) between "socially constructed" and "real." Although my typology of social construction/mind--dependence is more expansive, Sally Haslanger, for example, distinguishes between two different broad types of social construction—causal construction (if social factors caused something) and constitutive construction (if social factors played a key role in its definition).²⁰ Indeed, when scholars are arguing about the social construction of "X" they seem to mean that "X" is ontologically, causally, or classificatorily mind--dependent, but with the added feature that accounts of social construction often emphasize a group's (rather than an individual's) role in the production of "X." Moreover, as discussed below, social construction theorizing tends to lean into the contingency of "X" such that "X" might not have existed without social forces.

为了预示本章以及后面章节更大的关注问题，“思想依赖”一词可以换成“社会建构”，但仍然涵盖了大部分相关文献，这些文献也倾向于描绘“社会建构”和“真实”之间的对立(我将对此提出质疑)尽管我对社会结构/思维依赖的类型更为广泛，但 Sally Haslanger 还是区分了两种不同的广泛的社会结构类型——因果结构(如果社会因素造成了某些事情)和构成结构(如果社会因素在其定义中发挥了关键作用)。²⁰事实上，当学者们争论“x”的社会结构时，他们似乎意味着“x”在本体论上、因果论上或分类上依赖于心智，但随着对社会结构的描述往往强调一个群体(而不是个人)在“x”的产生中的作用,正如下面所讨论的，社会建构理论倾向于倾向于“x”的偶然性，以至于“x”如果没有社会力量就不可能存在。

1.3 When Realism Becomes Antirealism and the Reverse 1.3 当现实主义变成反现实主义，反过来

To return to the earlier argument, sometimes mind--dependence is taken into what might be an idealist or neo--Kantian register and is portrayed as a question about whether the world itself is *universally mind-dependent*. But this largely turns out to be a red herring based on a misreading of contemporary forms of idealism.²¹

回到前面的论点，有时精神依赖被纳入一个可能是理想主义或新康德主义的范畴，并被描绘成一个关于世界本身是否普遍依赖精神的问题。但这在很大程度上被证明是基于对当代形式的理想主义的误读而转移注意力

To explain: ever since George Berkeley published the *Treatise Concerning the Principles of Human Knowledge* (1710), philosophers have been thumping on furniture in frustration and fantasizing about striking idealists and antirealists with rocks. For instance, a famous passage from James Bos-well's *Life of Samuel Johnson* reads:

解释一下: 自从乔治·伯克利发表了《关于人类知识原理的论文》(1710)，哲学家们就一直沮丧地捶打着家具，幻想着用石头打击理想主义者和反现实主义者。例如，詹姆斯·博斯-韦尔(James Bos-well)关于塞缪尔·约翰逊传的一段著名的文章中写道:

We stood talking for some time together of Bishop Berkeley's ingenious sophistry to prove the non--existence of matter, and that everything in the universe is merely ideal. I observed, that though we are satisfied his doctrine is not true, it is impossible to refute it. I shall never forget the alacrity with which Johnson answered, striking his foot with mighty force against a large stone, till he rebounded from it,—“I refute it *thus*.”²²

我们站在一起聊了一会儿伯克利主教巧妙的诡辩来证明物质的不存在宇宙中的一切都只是理想。我观察到，尽管我们确信他的学说是错误的，但却无法反驳它。我永远不会忘记约翰逊回答时的敏捷，他的脚用力地踢在一块大石头上，直到他从石头上弹起来，“我这样反驳它。”²²

Likewise, Bruno Latour has described the frequent attempts of philosophers to counter social construction by “thump[ing] on a table” to demonstrate the table's reality and intimidate their opponents.²³ Indeed this pattern of argumentation is sufficiently widespread that in some circles it is known as the “furniture argument,” for the propensity of so--called realist philosophers to start banging on objects when confronted by their more skeptical colleagues.²⁴

同样，布鲁诺·拉图尔也描述了哲学家们反对社会建设的频繁尝试，他们通过“猛击桌子”来证明桌子的真实性，并恐吓他们的对手。²³事实上，这种论证模式非常普遍，在某些圈子里，它被称为“家具论证”，因为所谓的现实主义哲学家在面对更多疑的同事时，倾向于开始猛击物体

We might see a cousin of this critique in Marx and Engels' *The German Ideology*, which satirizes a “valiant fellow” who “had the idea that men were drowned in water only because they were possessed with the idea of gravity” and who dedicated his life to stopping people from drowning by convincing them not to believe in gravity.²⁵ In this Marx and Engels seem to be parodying a particular version of voluntarist idealism—by which I mean a version of idealism that recognizes a particular feature of the world as not only mind--dependent, but subject to individual choice. We can imagine a more contemporary similar “valiant fellow” asserting not only that “capitalism” is socially constructed, but that it might vanish if only we would stop talking about it.

我们可以在马克思和恩格斯的《德意志意识形态》一书中看到类似的批评，这本书讽刺了一个“勇敢的家伙”，他“认为人类之所以会淹死在水中，只是因为他们被万有引力的概念所控制”，他毕生致力于劝说人们不要相信万有引力，从而使他们免于溺水。在这本书中，马克思和恩格斯似乎是在模仿一种特定版本的唯心主义理想主义——我指的是一种理想主义，它承认世界的一个特定特征不仅依赖于心智，而且受制于个人选择。我们可以想象，一个更为当代的类似“勇敢的家伙”不仅声称“资本主义”是社会构建的，而且声称，只要我们停止谈论它，它就可能消失。

Critics of postmodernism from the vantage of critical realism, speculative realism, or new materialism often seem to imagine that postmodern antirealism amounts to just such a voluntarism.²⁶ For instance, Manuel

批判现实主义、投机现实主义或新唯物主义的后现代主义批评家们似乎常常认为，后现代反现实主义就是这样一种唯意志论

Vásquez provides an unattributed misreading suggesting that Derrida de-nied the existence of the external world.²⁷ One can also find a similar contention by Andrew Collier, who in *Critical Realism* recounts an anecdote about a speaker presenting research on Sartre: “A deconstructionist asked her, in a pained and patronizing tone, whether she was claiming that there really had existed such a person as Jean--Paul Sartre, independently of what we might say of him. When she said yes, she was, she at once lost the attention of the deconstructionist contingent.”²⁸ I think this particular “deconstructionist” was probably mind--dependent insofar as I’m skeptical that they existed outside of Collier’s imagination (although I admit it is a recognizable exaggeration). But for the moment I want to ask: are these fair characterizations of idealism? Or postmodernism for that matter?

27 安德鲁·科利尔(Andrew Collier)也提出了类似的观点, 他在批判现实主义中讲述了一个关于一位演讲者发表关于萨特的研究的轶事: “一位解构主义者以痛苦和居高临下的口吻问她, 她是否声称真的存在让-保罗·萨特这样的人, 而不管我们会怎么评价他。当她说的是的时候, 她立刻失去了解构主义者的注意力。”我认为这个特别的“解构主义者”可能是精神依赖型的, 因为我怀疑他们是否存在于科利尔的想象之外(尽管我承认这是一种可识别的夸张)。但现在我想问的是: 这些是对理想主义的公正描述吗? 还是后现代主义?

By way of counter--example, despite Samuel Johnson’s attempts at refutation by kicking rocks, George Berkeley stated very specifically in *The Principles of Human Knowledge*:

作为反例, 尽管塞缪尔·约翰逊试图用踢石头来反驳, 乔治·伯克利在《人类知识的原则》中非常具体地说:

I do not argue against the existence of any one thing that we can apprehend, either by sense or reflection. That the things I see with mine eyes and touch with my hands do exist, really exist, I make not the least question.²⁹

我不反对任何一件我们可以理解的事物的存在, 无论是通过感觉还是反思。我用我的眼睛看到的和用我的手触摸到的东西确实存在, 真的存在, 我没有提出任何问题

After all, any serious scholar of Berkeley would have reminded Johnson that Berkeley specifically argues that physical objects are not dependent on the mental state of a specific person.³⁰ Indeed, the main thrust of Berkeley’s project was to show that God did not create a material world that itself then has to produce the world of sensory experience via some secondary and mysterious process; instead, God directly produces the world of experiences. If God wanted you to stub your toe, your foot would be hurting. Berkeley denied the existence of “matter” not because it is all in our heads, but because

it is unnecessary to postulate a second--order real world behind that of appearances. To say that something is matter is just to say that it has an appearance. So there is no need to refer to matter as a supposed cause of experience. For Berkeley, it is not that reality does not exist, but rather that we have direct access to it. Keep this in mind, as direct access to reality is often presented as defining both realist *and* anti-realist positions.

毕竟，任何一个严肃的伯克利学者都会提醒约翰逊，伯克利特别指出，物质对象并不依赖于特定人的精神状态。事实上，伯克利项目的主旨是表明，上帝并没有创造一个物质世界，而这个物质世界本身必须通过某种次要和神秘的过程来创造感官体验的世界；相反，上帝直接创造了体验的世界。如果上帝想让你踢你的脚趾，你的脚就会受伤。伯克利否认“物质”的存在，并不是因为它只存在于我们的头脑中，而是因为没有必要假设一个隐藏在表象之后的二阶真实世界。说某物是物质，就是说它有一种表象。因此，没有必要把物质看作是经验的假定原因。对于伯克利来说，并不是说现实不存在，而是我们可以直接接触到它。请记住这一点，因为直接接触现实通常被认为是现实主义和反现实主义立场的定义。

The foremost transcendental “idealist” philosophers—Kant and Schopenhauer—did not deny the existence of a mind--independent world either; rather, in the broadest of brushstrokes, they shared the intuition that we come to know the world by way of our mental categories, but that noumena or things--in--themselves are not conditioned by those categories. As Schopenhauer put it: “nothing is so persistently and constantly misunderstood as idealism, since it is interpreted as meaning that the empiri-

最先进的“理想主义”哲学家——康德和肖彭豪——也没有否认心灵独立世界的存在；相反，在最广泛的笔触中，他们都有一种直觉，即我们是通过我们的心理范畴来认识这个世界的，但本体或事物本身并不受这些范畴的制约。正如叔本华所言：“没有什么如此持续不断地被误解为唯心主义的，因为它被解释为意味着经验

cal reality of the external world is denied.”³¹ So here the supposedly anti-realist position is that there is an external reality, but that we lack access to it to some extent.

否认外部世界的真实性。”³¹ 所以这里所谓的反现实主义立场是，有一个外在的现实，但我们在某种程度上缺乏接近它的途径。

Although Friedrich Nietzsche started as a kind of skeptical neo-Kantian (under the influence of Schopenhauer), his later “anti-realism” was actually a denial of what is typically seen as Kantian idealism. While Nietzsche criticized truth, philosophy, and reason, his antirealist credibility is often established by reference to the section of *Götzen-Dämmerung* titled “How ‘the Real world’ at Last Became a Fable,” which serves as the inspiration for this chapter’s title. But Nietzsche’s essay is regularly misread because it is taken out of context. Nietzsche’s views are clearer in an early part of *Götzen-Dämmerung* where he argues that it is a mistake to “divide the world into ‘real’ and ‘apparent’ parts, whether in the manner of Christianity or in the manner of Kant.”³² Although describing himself as an opponent of idealism, his final position is closer to Berkeley’s inasmuch as Nietzsche’s point is that there is not a second “real world” or “thing-in-itself” behind the apparent world of sense experiences. Those keeping score should note that both pro- and anti-noumena philosophies are regularly accused of antirealism. Ironically, a philosopher can be called an antirealist for arguing either that we have complete access to reality or that we lack complete access to reality. Moreover, Nietzsche is arguing for something quite close to the positivist position discussed below.

虽然弗里德里希·尼采一开始是一个怀疑论的新康德主义者(受叔本华的影响)，但他后来的“反现实主义”实际上是对通常被视为康德唯心主义的否定。当尼采批判真理、哲学和理性的时候，他的反现实主义的可信度通常是通过参考《*Götzen-Dämmerung*》中题为“‘真实世界’最终是如何变成一个寓言的”的章节来建立的，这也是本章题目的灵感来源。但是尼采的文章经常被误读，因为它被断章取义了。在《诸神的黄昏》(*Götzen-Dämmerung*)的早期部分，尼采的观点更为清晰，他认为“把世界分为‘真实的’和‘明显的’两部分，无论是以克里斯-天性的方式，还是以康德的方式，都是错误的。”尽管他把自己描述为理想主义的反对者，但他的最终立场更接近于伯克利，因为尼采的观点是，在表面的感官体验世界之后，不存在第二个“真实世界”或“物体本身”。那些持续得分的人应该注意到，本体论和本体论都经常被指责为反现实主义。具有讽刺意味的是，哲学家可以被称为反现实主义，因为他们认为我们可以完全接近现实，或者我们缺乏完全接近现实的途径。此外，尼采的论点与下面讨论的实证主义立场非常接近。

So how do the postmodernists fit in? The first point I want to make is that canonical postmodernists were not exaggerated voluntarists of the sort

criticized by many contemporary realists. They argued for a gamut of different positions. Many of them were basically skeptical Neo--Kantians. But the postmodernist thinkers who came closest to antirealism typically did so through the methodological suspension of linguistic reference (discussed in more detail in chapter 5).³³ Recast, what normally gets counted as postmodernist or poststructuralist antirealism is their internalist semantics, which was sometimes expressed in a skepticism about the capacity of linguistic categories to represent accurately a mind-independent world. But this was not the antirealism it is often made out to be.

那么后现代主义者是如何融入其中的呢？我想说的第一点是，典型的后现代主义者并不是被当代现实主义者批评的那种被夸大的唯意志主义者。他们主张各种不同的立场。他们中的许多人基本上是持怀疑态度的新康德主义者。但是，最接近反现实主义的后现代主义思想家通常是通过语言参照系的方法论中止来达到这一点的(在第五章中有更详细的讨论)。³³ 重铸，通常被认为是后现代主义或后结构主义的反现实主义是他们的内在主义语义学，这种语义学有时表现为对语言范畴是否有能力准确地表达一个独立于思想的世界的怀疑。但这并不是人们常常认为的那种反现实主义。

More specifically, while Jacques Lacan and Jacques Derrida did embrace this kind of linguistic skepticism, the critics are wrong to say that they denied the existence of a world outside of discourse. As Derrida put it, “the other is ‘the real thing’” that interrupts discourse.³⁴ This is even more clear in Lacan, who made the Real a core component of his influential tripartite registers (alongside the imaginary and the symbolic). Lacan described “the Real” as “that which resists symbolization absolutely,” by which he meant that it subverted both the symbolic and the imaginary.³⁵ In sum, neither thinker actually expunged reality. Both of their projects

更具体地说，虽然拉康和德里达确实支持这种语言学怀疑论，但批评家们说他们否认话语之外的世界的存在是错误的。正如德里达所说，“另一种是‘真实的东西’，它会打断话语。”。这一点在拉康身上表现得更为明显，他把 Real 作为他有影响力的三方登记册的核心组成部分(与虚构和象征性的登记册并列)。拉康将“真实”描述为“绝对抵制符号化的东西”，他的意思是“真实”颠覆了符号和想象。总之，两位思想家都没有真正消灭现实。他们的两个项目

rather suggested what could be called “traumatic realism”—that there is an (ineffable) extra--discursive Real that is glimpsed briefly in moments when discourse breaks down and therefore indicates the presence of something troubling discourse itself. So when New Materialists claim to be demonstrating to postmodernists “the stubbornness of the materiality of things” or shouting at them to take seriously the existence of a “real” world “out there,” they are not saying anything new.³⁶

而是暗示了所谓的“创伤性现实主义”——有一个(不可言喻的)额外的话语真实,在话语中断的时刻被短暂地瞥见,因此表明存在着一些令话语本身不安的东西。因此,当新唯物主义者声称要向后现代主义者证明“事物的物质性的顽固性”或者要求他们认真对待“真实”世界的存在时,他们并没有说什么新的东西

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Moreover, other supposed postmodernist antirealists like Richard Rorty were not antirealists so much as deniers of the distinction between real-ism and antirealism, which they often did in a manner similar to Nietzsche: by rejecting the existence of a gap between appearance and reality.³⁷ If anything, this would seem to suggest a position closer to naive realism than to its antithesis. But this is also a positivist position.

此外,其他所谓的后现代主义反现实主义者,如罗蒂,与其说是反现实主义者,不如说是否认现实主义和反现实主义之间的区别,他们常常以类似尼采的方式否认现实主义和现实主义之间存在差距。但这也是一个实证主义的立场。

To explain: as mentioned in my “Opening,” Rudolf Carnap argued that “asserting the reality of the external word” was a pseudo--statement without meaningful content. This probably sounds like textbook antirealism. But Carnap contended that there was no way to verify scientifically the reality of the world *outside* sense experiences, because there was no way to access the world *except* by means of sense experience. Kant’s nou-mena, even if real, are irrelevant because, by definition, we could never encounter them. So like Nietzsche, Carnap and many of his fellow Logical Positivists rejected the need to conceptualize a real world behind that of appearance. But in contrast to some other similar positions, Carnap’s in-

解释一下:正如我在《开篇》中提到的,鲁道夫·卡尔纳普(Rudolf Carnap)认为,“断言外在词语的真实性”是一种没有有意义内容的伪陈述。这可能听起来像是教科书上的反现实主义。但卡尔纳普认为,没有办法科学地验证外部感觉经验世界的真实性,因为除了通过感觉经验,没有办法进入这个世界。康德的诺米娜,即使是真实的,也是无关紧要的,因为根据定义,我们永远不可能遇到它们。因此,像尼采一样,卡

尔纳普和他的许多逻辑实证主义同仁拒绝将外表背后的真实世界概念化的需要。但与其他类似的观点相反，卡尔纳普的观点是

difference to accounts of mind-independent- reality was driven by his scientism, not in spite of it. In contrast to philosophers today who see realism as the only way to defend scientific naturalism, Carnap argued that science did not need to postulate a mind-independent world. In broad strokes, Carnap was arguing for a pro-science antirealism. Indeed, some scholars have even argued that one of the main outcomes of Logical Positivism was undermining the need for mind-independent realism in the natural sciences.³⁸

对心灵独立的现实的不同解释是由他的科学主义所驱动的，而不是无视它。今天的哲学家认为现实主义是捍卫科学自然主义的唯一途径，与此相反，卡尔纳普认为科学不需要假设一个独立于思想的世界。大致来说，Carnap 主张一种支持科学的反现实主义。事实上，一些学者甚至认为逻辑实证主义的主要结果之一就是削弱了自然科学对心灵独立实在论的需要

Despite their self-presentation, many of the new realisms have just found a way to shift the epistemological claims of skeptics into ontological claims. This is clearest in Quentin Meillassoux's Speculative Realism. Meillassoux made his reputation with his appeals to mathematics and science and his attack on "correlationism," a category which basically collapsed together Kant, Hume, and postmodern skepticisms. But in order to break the circle of correlationism, Meillassoux defined his realism in terms of a commitment to a quasi-Nietzschean "hyper-chaos." He argued

尽管他们自我表述，许多新的现实主义刚刚找到了一种方法，将怀疑论者的认识论主张转变为本体论主张。这一点在昆廷·梅亚苏(quentin meillassoux)的思辨现实主义中表现得最为明显。梅拉苏以他对数学和科学的诉求以及对“相关论”的攻击而闻名。“相关论”基本上是康德、休谟和后现代怀疑论的结合。但是为了打破相关论的循环，梅拉苏将他的现实主义定义为一种准尼采式的“超混沌”他争辩道

that there is reality, but it is a reality that can shift unpredictably, not just contingently, such that the fundamental structure of the cosmos could rework itself at any instant.³⁹ Meillassoux's "realism" therefore posits the existence of a less stable, less predictable, and less comprehensible reality than that suggested by the "antirealist" he opposes.

因此,梅拉苏克斯的“现实主义”假定存在一个不那么稳定、不那么可预测、不那么容易理解的现实,而不是他所反对的“反现实主义”所暗示的那种现实。

Nor is Meillassoux alone in this (as will be discussed in chapters 3 and 5); a number of New Materialists have made what amounts to the same move insofar as they have formulated a notion of reality that is hugely attenuated—a reality of flux in which we cannot posit most of the things we might want to posit about reality (e.g., William Connolly), or a reality constantly being recreated in a process of entanglement such that every attempt to measure it transforms it (e.g., Karen Barad). In both these cases, the things we have said about Lacan and company we would need to say about these neo--realisms: namely, that their philosophy inadvertently suggests skepticism about the way ordinary linguistic categories represent a mind--independent world. Only the new ontologists presented this instability as a feature of the world, not a limitation of language. In sum, many of the new realisms just make a “realist” ontology out of what in other quarters counts as antirealism.

梅拉苏并不是唯一一个这样做的人(正如我们将在第三章和第五章讨论的那样);许多新唯物主义者已经做出了相当于同样的举动,因为他们已经形成了一个被大大削弱的现实概念——一个我们不能假定我们可能想要假定的关于现实的大部分事物的不断变化的现实(例如威廉·康诺利),或者一个在纠缠过程中不断被重新创造的现实,以至于每一次测量它的尝试都会改变它(例如凯伦·巴拉德)。在这两种情况下,我们所说的关于拉康和公司的事情,我们需要说的关于这些新现实主义:即,他们的哲学不经意间暗示怀疑的方式,普通语言范畴代表一个心灵独立的世界。只有新本体论者把这种不稳定性描述为世界的一个特征,而不是语言的局限性。总而言之,许多新的现实主义只是在其他方面被认为是反现实主义的基础上构建了一个“现实主义”本体论。

I do not want to weigh in on arguments about our capacity to access a mind--independent reality. My main point is that the oppositions that are supposed to define a grand split between realism and antirealism do not line up. Philosophers can be accused of being antirealists for insisting on a mind-independent world beyond that of appearances (like Kantians), but they can also be accused of being antirealists for the opposite claim—denying a mind-independent world beyond appearances (like late Nietzsche and early Carnap). Moreover, one could adopt either broad meta-physical realisms or

antirealism and be either pro- or anti--science. Finally, as noted above, realism and antirealism have sometimes even turned into each other. All this suggests that much of the antagonism between realists and antirealists is incoherent or at least misguided.

我不想在关于我们是否有能力接近一个独立于思维的现实的争论中发表意见。我的主要观点是，那些应该定义现实主义和反现实主义之间巨大分歧的对立面并不一致。哲学家可以被指责为反现实主义者，因为他们坚持一个超越表象的心灵独立的世界(如康德)，但他们也可以被指责为反现实主义者，因为相反的说法——否认一个超越表象的心灵独立的世界(如尼采和卡尔纳普)。此外，一个人既可以采用广义的元物理实在论，也可以采用反实在论，既可以是亲科学的，也可以是反科学的。最后，如上所述，现实主义和反现实主义有时甚至会相互转化。所有这些都表明，现实主义者 and 反现实主义者之间的大部分对立是不连贯的，或者至少是被误导的。

1.4 Apocalyptic Realism and the Human Sciences, or Real as Socially Constructed

1.4 启示录现实主义与人文科学，或真实的社会 建构

I want to begin this section by making a simple observation: metaphysical forms of realism are largely irrelevant to the human sciences because they block out the objects of inquiry from the beginning. Defining realism in opposition to mind--dependence amounts to what we might call *apocalyptic realism*, because to do so presumes a notion of the real as that which would remain if humans vanished.

我想以一个简单的观察来开始这一节：形而上学的现实主义形式在很大程度上与人类科学无关，因为它们从一开始就阻挡了探索的对象。以心灵依赖为对立面来定义现实主义相当于我们所谓的启示录式现实主义，因为这样做假定了一种真实的概念，如果人类消失了，这种概念将会继续存在。

If to be real is to be completely independent of humans, then anything
如果真实就是完全独立于人类，那么任何事情

we might choose to study in the human sciences would not be real from the start. So this notion of realism is already unsuitable. It would be mis-guided to assert that motorcycles, attitudes, dachshunds, or Japanese counting words are not real. This suggest that at minimum, realism in the human sciences cannot be apocalyptic in its basic formation. For that reason, at the very least, we need an account that denies the opposition between real and mind-dependent/socially constructed.

我们可能选择研究人文科学从一开始就是不真实的。所以现实主义的概念已经不适用了。如果断言摩托车、态度、腊肠或日本数字都不是真实的,那将是一种误导。这表明,至少,人类科学中的现实主义在其基本形态上不可能是世界末日。出于这个原因,至少我们需要一个否认真实和思想依赖/社会构建之间对立的解释。

To say that a *social* entity is *socially* constructed might seem to be merely asserting the truism that a social phenomenon is social.⁴⁰ If that were all that was going on, we would have no need of a theory of social construction. But I think the repeated references to social construction across the humanistic disciplines are actually capturing something important.

说一个社会实体是社会建构的,似乎只是断言一个社会现象是社会的这一真理。⁴⁰ 如果只是这样,我们就不需要社会建构理论了。但我认为,跨越人文学科的社会建构的反复提及实际上捕捉到了一些重要的东西。

Certainly, the phrase “social construction” appears most often in the literature to argue that a particular entity is not real. For instance, the British anthropologist Ashley Montagu has argued that “the term ‘race’ is a socially constructed artifact,” adding that “there is no such thing in reality as ‘race.’”⁴¹ Calling something a social construct shifts the entity under discussion from the realm of nature into the realm of culture or mind-dependence. This is often taken as equivalent to the charge of unreality. As discussed in more detail in chapter 2, a standard strategy for demolishing a disciplinary master category is to assert that the category in question is “socially constructed” and by implication that it is unreal. But when thinkers like Montagu argue that “race” is socially constructed, they are suggesting that it is a product of culture not biology. The unstated premise that culture is in some sense illusory is a clue.

当然,“社会建构”这个短语在文学作品中出现得最多,它主张一个特定的实体不是真实的。例如,英国人类学家阿什利·蒙塔古(Ashley Montagu)辩称,“‘种族’一词是一种社会构造的人造物”,并补充说,“现实中并没有‘种族’这种东西。把某种东西称为社会结构会把讨论中的实体从自然领域转移到文化领域或思想依赖领域。这通常被认为等同于对不真实的指责。正如第2章更详细讨论的那样,摧毁一个学科硕士类别的标准策略是断言该类别是“社会建构的”,并暗示它是不真实的。但是

当像 Montagu 这样的思想家认为“种族”是社会建构的时候，他们是在暗示它是文化的产物而不是生物学的产物。文化在某种意义上是虚幻的，这种未言明的前提是一条线索。

Many disciplines are split between constructivists and realists who largely talk past each other. At worst, social construction is even mis-taken by its critics for a kind of idealist voluntarism in which individuals are thought to have the capacity to bring socially constructed things into being by merely believing or speaking them into existence. But these controversies aside, both pro- and anti-constructivists typically agree about the stakes of the conflict for a particular entity in question. As Ian Hack-ing and Sally Haslanger have both noted, social construction functions as a kind of “unmasking” or “debunking,” and as such it works to render entities contingent.⁴²

许多学科在建构主义者和现实主义者之间是分裂的，他们在很大程度上相互对立。在最糟糕的情况下，社会建设甚至被其批评者误认为是一种理想主义的唯意志主义，在这种唯意志主义中，个人被认为有能力仅仅通过相信或说服社会建设的事物成为现实。但是撇开这些争论不谈，支持和反对建构主义者通常都同意某个特定实体的冲突的利害关系。正如 Ian Hack-ing 和 Sally Haslanger 所指出的，社会结构的功能是一种“揭露”或“揭穿”，因此它使实体具有偶然性

That said, on the ground, social scientists have spent a long time grasping at a way of capturing social life and the very concepts we use to interpret it, and have aimed to do so without being caught in the opposition between real and socially constructed. Some, like Peter Berger and Thomas Luckmann, have worked self-consciously toward this end.⁴³ But most scholars do so implicitly, through empirically driven case studies, without articulating or even necessarily being fully aware of their premises.

也就是说，实际上，社会科学家花了很长时间来掌握一种捕捉社会生活的方法，以及我们用来解释社会生活的概念，他们的目标是这样做，而不是陷入现实和社会建构之间的对立中。有些人，如彼得·伯杰和托马斯·勒克曼，已经自觉地朝着这个目标努力了。但是大多数学者是通过经验驱动的案例研究，含蓄地做到了这一点，而没有清晰地阐明甚至没有必要充分意识到他们的前提。

This grasping and striving have been taking place across the academy. But it can be seen especially clearly in the same disciplines—critical race and gender theory—that gave political urgency to the notion of social construction in the first place.⁴⁴ Succinctly put, even if “race” is socially constructed, it nonetheless has a big impact on people’s lives. So, to say that “race” is unreal or illusory would seem to be missing the point. This has engendered, in some cases, a backlash against the notion of social construction within the very subdisciplines that gave it early life. But some critical race theorists have thus concluded that categories like race might be both real and socially constructed. I think this is an intuition many scholars in the human sciences would grant about their own particular subject matter, even if they have never theorized it explicitly.

整个学院都在进行这种争取和奋斗。但是，在批判性种族和性别理论这两个最初给予社会建设概念政治紧迫性的学科中，这种现象尤其明显。简言之，即使“种族”是社会建构的，它仍然对人们的生活产生了巨大的影响。所以，说“种族”是不真实的或者是虚幻的，似乎是没有意义的。在某些情况下，这引起了对社会结构概念的强烈反对，而正是这个概念赋予了它早期的生命。但一些批判性的种族理论家因此得出结论，像种族这样的分类可能既是真实的，也是社会构建的。我认为这是一个直觉，许多人文科学的学者会给予他们自己的特定主题，即使他们从来没有明确的理论化。

Thus, in what follows (not just here but in subsequent chapters), I would like to provide scholars with a vocabulary applicable across numerous disciplines that all too rarely engage with one another—a vocabulary that can bring organization, precision, and clarity to our collective efforts. Moreover, while I am skeptical of “realism” and “antirealism” as broad philosophical banners, I do not wish to abolish references to the “real” as such from our disciplinary vocabularies. It can be useful, for instance, to say that the Satanic ritual abuse panic of the 1980s was both socially constructed and, in some sense, not real, while LaVeyan Satanism is both socially constructed and, in some sense, real (although it was not the source of abuse, as some claimed). If I am belaboring this point, it is because I believe that exploring the tension between socially constructed and real will provide us with a way to reconceptualize our scholarly categories.

因此，在接下来的章节中(不仅仅是这里，在后面的章节中)，我想为学者们提供一个适用于各种学科的词汇，这些学科很少相互交流——一个可以为我们的集体努力带来组织性、精确性和清晰性的词汇。此外，虽然我对“现实主义”和“反现实主义”作为广泛的哲学横幅持怀疑态度，但我不希望从我们的学科词汇中废除对“真实”本身的提及。例如，可以说，20世纪80年代的撒旦宗教仪式滥用恐慌既是社会构建的，在某种意义上，也不是真实的，而勒维撒旦教既是社会构建的，在某种意义

上，也是真实的(尽管它不是滥用的源头，正如一些人声称的那样)。如果我详述这一点，那是因为我相信，探索社会建构与现实之间的紧张关系将为我们提供一种重新概念化我们的学术范畴的方法。

1.5 Metarealism: Modes of the Real

1.5 元现实主义: 真实的模式

Here is where this is all going: the main reason that both partisans of “realism” and blanket statements about the reality of social construction miss the mark is that “real” is primarily a contrastive or negative term that gains most of its ordinary meaning from an opposing concept. By way of explanation, to say of something that it is “real” does not say anything about the entity in question except to the extent that it excludes some particular way of being not--real. For instance, “real” is often distinguished from “illusory,” “fictitious,” or “fraudulent.” But there are as many different ways to be not--real as there are kinds of things.⁴⁵

这就是所有这一切的意义所在: “现实主义”的支持者和关于社会建设现实的一概而论的声明都没有达到目的的主要原因是, “现实主义”主要是一个对比性的或负面的术语, 它从一个相反的概念中获得了大部分的通常意义。通过解释, 说某事物是“真实的”并不意味着有关实体的任何东西, 除非它排除了某种不真实的特殊方式。例如, “真实的”通常与“虚幻的”、“虚构的”或“欺骗的”区分开来但是, 有很多不同的方式来表现不真实, 就像有很多种事物一样

A few examples will make this clear: The phrase “not the real Madonna” could mean a range of things—it could be a hallucination of Madonna, a fictional Madonna, an optical illusion that resembles Madonna; or it could be a statue of Madonna, someone who looks like a mutual friend named Madonna, a Madonna--impersonator, a singer whose voice resembles that

一些例子可以说明这一点: “不是真正的麦当娜”这个短语可能意味着一系列事情——它可能是麦当娜的幻觉, 一个虚构的麦当娜, 一个与麦当娜相似的错视; 或者它可能是一个麦当娜的雕像, 一个看起来像是共同的朋友名叫麦当娜的人, 一个模仿麦当娜的人, 一个声音像麦当娜的歌手

of the pop star, a religious icon misidentified as depicting Madonna, or a forgery of Edvard Munch's famous painting "Madonna," and so on. Each of these hypothetical Madonnas is "not a real Madonna" in certain re-spects, but not in others, and crucially many of these not--real Madonnas are "real" physical objects or even people. The same is true of the positive version of the statement, since to refer to someone or something as "the real Madonna" could be an attempt to rule out a large variety of things, in-cluding visual hallucinations, misidentifications, category errors, fictions, or forgeries. In a nutshell, a bust of Madonna is a real statue, but not a real person.

一个被误认为描绘麦当娜的宗教偶像，或是爱德华·蒙克的名画《麦当娜》的赝品，等等。这些假想的麦当娜在某些方面“不是一个真正的麦当娜”，但在其他方面不是，关键是这些不真实的麦当娜中的许多是“真实的”物体，甚至是人。正面的说法也是如此，因为把某人或某物称为“真正的麦当娜”可能是试图排除各种各样的事情，包括视觉幻觉、误认、分类错误、虚构或伪造。简而言之，麦当娜的半身像是一尊真正的雕像，但不是一个真正的人。

Another example: to say a dream is "not real" doesn't mean that the dream never happened or was never experienced. The dream in question was actually dreamed. To say that a dream is not real means that the events experienced in the dream were not what happened in waking life. We can say that Satanic ritual abuse wasn't real if we mean that no children were actually being abused. We can say that "LeVeyan Satanism" is real if by that we mean it is an organization with actual members and thus is real in contrast to made-up or fictitious organizations. Race is unreal insofar as it is not a consequential biological category, but race is real insofar as it is not imaginary or irrelevant in relation to people's life experiences.

另一个例子：说一个梦“不是真的”并不意味着这个梦从来没有发生过或者从来没有经历过。这个问题中的梦实际上是梦。如果说梦不是真的，那就意味着在梦中经历的事情并不是在现实生活中发生的。我们可以说撒旦的仪式虐待是不真实的，如果我们的意思是没有孩子实际上被虐待。我们可以说，“利维扬撒旦主义”是真实的，如果我们的意思是，它是一个组织与实际成员，因此是真实的对比虚构或虚构的组织。种族是不真实的，因为它不是一个重要的生物学范畴，但种族是真实的，因为它不是想象的或与人们的生活经验无关。

To be clear, this is not meant to be a species of relativism in the old-fashioned sense. Sometimes scholars argue that a given phenomenon is real because the people who believe in it really experience it. But this amounts to the claim that people who are really experiencing something are really experiencing something, which is a tautology. Instead of super-ficial

tautologies of this sort, I want to encourage scholars to specify contrasting classes when using the term *real*. This would have the direct benefit of putting us in a position to be clearer about when we actually agree or disagree.

需要澄清的是，这并不意味着是一种传统意义上的相对主义。有时候学者们会争辩说，一个给定的现象是真实存在的，因为相信它的人确实经历过这种现象。但这等于是说，真正经历某事的人确实在经历某事，这是一个同义反复。我希望鼓励学者们在使用“真实”这个术语时，指定一些相反类别，而不是这种表面上的重复。这样做的直接好处是，我们可以更清楚地知道我们实际上是同意还是不同意。

As argued above, many philosophical accounts of the real use mind-dependence as a contrasting case, but such an apocalyptic realism will not work in the human sciences (to continue the metaphor, we need to be postapocalyptic). Rather than defending or attacking realism as such, what we should be asking is: *if a specific social phenomenon is real, what is it real in respect to?* There is not going to be a one-size-fits-all answer. As I have been arguing here, there are many different modes of being real or unreal depending on what feature of the world we are considering. Indeed, many philosophical conflicts result from scholars holding different presumed but unstated contrastive categories.

如上所述，许多关于真实的哲学解释将心灵依赖作为一个对比案例，但是这种末日现实主义在人类科学中是行不通的(为了继续这个比喻，我们需要后末日论)。我们应该问的不是捍卫或攻击现实主义本身，而是：如果一个特定的社会现象是真实的，那么它在什么方面是真实的？不会有一个一刀切的答案。正如我一直在这里争论的那样，根据我们所考虑的世界的特征，存在许多不同的真实或不真实的模式。事实上，许多哲学上的冲突都是由于学者们持有不同的假定但未说明的对比范畴而引起的。

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To return to the categories outlined above, references to social construction usually amount to the claim that X is either ontological, causal, classificatory, or universally socially dependent, with the added implication that X is somehow not *real*. We now know that we should be skeptical of this latter implication, especially when a contrast--class to real is left unspecified. Moreover, many accounts of social construction turn out to be trivially true. To say that “nations” are socially constructed just means that social factors play a role in the formation of nations, which no one would really dispute. (That said, it is only trivially true if we stop at the issue of social construction itself and don’t continue forward to the question of *how* it has been constructed, which can yield useful and productive insights, as we will see.)

回到上面概述的范畴，提到社会结构通常等于声称 x 是本体论的，因果的，类别化的，或者普遍的社会依赖性的，并附加暗示 x 不知何故是不真实的。我们现在知道，我们应该对后一种暗示持怀疑态度，特别是当一个与真实相反类别没有明确指出的时候。此外，许多关于社会结构的描述被证明是微不足道的真理。说“国家”是社会建构的，只是意味着社会因素在国家的形成过程中发挥了作用，这是没有人会真正争论的。（也就是说，如果我们仅仅停留在社会建设本身的问题上，而不继续探讨社会建设是如何建立起来的问题，那么这只是微不足道的事实，而社会建设是如何建立起来的问题可以产生有益的、富有成效的见解，正如我们将看到的那样。）

But the most intense debates about social construction have been about classifications and whether specific scientific categories map onto the world. Thus, when referencing nonhuman entities, these debates are often really about natural kinds. For instance, debates around the social construction of “quarks” were not about ontological social construction, but about whether or not quarks are a natural kind.⁴⁶ I’ll discuss natural kinds in chapter 3, but that scientific theories are socially constructed is another truism. All theories are classificatorily mind--dependent because they depend at least partially on human minds to think them up in the first place. Theories necessitate theorizers. This means that if there are any true theories, they must be socially constructed. Debating the “social construction” of quarks is a red herring. To foreshadow a claim I develop over the course of several later chapters, social construction is part of how we achieve knowledge of the world in the first place.

但是，关于社会建设最激烈的辩论一直是关于分类和特定的科学类别是否映射到世界上。因此，当提到非人类实体时，这些争论实际上是关于自然种类的。例如，围绕“夸克”的社会结构的争论不是关于本体论的社会结构，而是关于夸克是否是一种自然类型。⁴⁶我将在第三章讨论自

然类型，但是科学理论是社会建构的是另一个不言而喻的事实。所有的理论在分类上都是依赖于思维的，因为它们至少部分地依赖于人类的思维来思考它们。理论需要理论家。这意味着，如果存在任何真正的理论，它们必须是由社会构建的。辩论夸克的“社会结构”是在转移话题。为了预示我在后面几章中提出的一个主张，社会建设是我们如何获得世界知识的一部分。

1.6 Conclusion: Modes of Reality; Modes of Existence

1.6 结论: 现实的模式; 存在的模式

In this chapter I have been suggesting that contemporary realists and antirealists are often closer to agreement than disagreement, and that sometimes different philosophers can be assigned to the same camp for holding completely opposite views. This effectively nullifies the claim that these are two mutually opposed sides. Arguments for or against realism often signal broader ideological stances rather than definite positions about mind--independence. Furthermore, it turns out that most arguments over realism vis--à-vis mind--dependent and --independent phenomena are actually unhelpful for the human sciences. Our scholarship constantly grapples with mind--dependent but nonetheless “real” entities (again depending on contrast class). If realism is paradigmatically modern and antirealism is paradigmatically postmodern, then we can tran-

在这一章中，我一直在暗示，当代现实主义者 and 反现实主义者往往更接近于一致，而不是不同意见，有时不同的哲学家可以被分配到同一阵营，持有完全相反的观点。这有效地否定了这两种观点是相互对立的观点。支持或反对现实主义的论点往往标志着更广泛的意识形态立场，而不是关于思想独立的明确立场。此外，事实证明，大多数关于现实主义与精神依赖和独立现象的争论实际上对人文科学毫无帮助。我们的学术研究不断地与依赖心智的但仍然是“真实的”实体(同样取决于对比类)作斗争。如果现实主义是典型的现代主义，而反现实主义是典型的后现代主义，那么我们就可以跨越

scend both in the name of the metamodern. In this respect, the workaday human scientist who rejects the polar extremes of the social construction debates and instead strives, amidst the fast-moving current of ever-changing social process, to generate knowledge about the world will find a philosophical compass in metamodernism.

都以元现代的名义传播。在这方面，平凡的人类科学家拒绝社会结构的极端争论，而是在不断变化的社会进程的快速变化的潮流中努力创造关于世界的知识，他们将在元现代主义中找到哲学的指南针。

As I will address in greater detail in chapters 4 and 5, conversations about mind-dependence and social construction have historically depicted only humans as minds or constructors. But if we open up to the world of animals and other sentient beings, it will provide a fresh vantage on the whole debate. We worry a lot about whether certain categories are mind-dependent or human-relative. But these concerns could be relativized by comparison to other creatures. For instance, bats could have a category based on sonar ping similarity that groups all objects that ping similarly together. This would almost necessarily be a bat-relative category. But why would that make us doubt it for being “socially constructed”? Or cause us to think of it as necessarily any less “real?”

正如我将在第4章和第5章详细阐述的那样，关于精神依赖和社会结构的对话历史上只将人类描述为精神或建构者。但是，如果我们向动物和其他有知觉的生物的世界开放，这将为整个辩论提供一个新的优势。我们非常担心某些类别是依赖于心智还是人类的相对性。但是这些担忧可以通过与其他生物的比较而被相对化。例如，蝙蝠可能会有一种基于声纳定位相似性的血腥现象，这种相似性将所有定位相似的物体归类在一起。这几乎必然是一个与蝙蝠相关的类别。但是为什么我们会怀疑它是“社会构建的”呢？或者让我们认为它不那么“真实”

To coin a term, philosophy that grants different modes of the real is “metarealism”—a word that both signals the philosophy’s relationship to the broader project of metamodernism and deploys the sense of “meta” as something that is beyond or higher-order relative to other concepts of the real. In this respect, we might say that metarealism refers to any philosophy that grants that the *real* comes in modes. Metarealists recognize that uses of the term “real” necessitate reference to a contrast class. From the vantage of metarealism, deploying “real” without contrast class (e.g., references to “real men” without explicitly articulating the alternative) is generally either confused or merely ideological. Metarealism is thus beyond both realism and antirealism. It rejects the shared terrain of modern and postmodern philosophy alike.

创造一个术语，赋予不同的真实模式的哲学是“元现实主义”——这个词既标志着哲学与更广泛的元现代主义项目的关系，又将“元”的意义部

署为相对于真实的其他概念而言超越或更高阶的东西。在这方面，我们可以说，元现实主义指的是任何哲学，承认真实来自模式。元现实主义者认识到，术语“真实”的使用需要参考对比类。从超现实主义的角度来看，部署“真实”而没有对比类(例如，提到“真实的人”而没有明确表达另一种选择)通常要么是混乱的，要么仅仅是意识形态的。因此，元现实主义超越了现实主义和反现实主义。它同样反对现代哲学和后现代哲学的共同领域。

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There is another fundamental issue these discussions of the reality of so-cial construction have behind them—namely, the question of how it is that social entities can exist at all. To say of a physical object like a rock that it “exists” might at first pass seem to mean merely that it is composed of matter. But what does it mean to say that the Catholic Church *exists*? What does it mean to say that “Satanists” or economic recessions *exist*? These might look like the same question about *real in contrast to what* that I asked above, but I want to suggest that it actually implies something dif-ferent.

这些关于社会建设现实的讨论背后还有另一个根本问题，即社会实体究竟如何存在的问题。如果说像岩石这样的物理对象“存在”，乍一看似乎仅仅意味着它是由物质组成的。但是，说天主教会存在意味着什么呢？说“撒旦教徒”或经济衰退存在意味着什么？这些可能看起来和我上面问的关于真实的问题相同，但是我想说的是，它实际上暗示了一些不同的东西。

Our first clue is that while *real* and *exist* are often taken to be equivalent, there are good reasons we might want to differentiate them. Some not--real

我们的第一条线索是，虽然真实和存在通常被认为是等价的，但我们可能有很好的理由来区分它们。有些是不真实的

Madonnas are materially existing objects, while other not--real Madonnas lack physical instantiation. So the way that the statue is not a real person is not identical to its existence or nonexistence as a material object. Perhaps more importantly, there are classes of entities that are *real*—in various noteworthy senses—yet do not exist.

麦当娜是物质存在的对象，而其他不真实的麦当娜缺乏物理实例化。因此，雕像不是一个真实的人的方式与它作为一个物质对象的存在或不存在是不一样的。或许更重要的是，有一些类别的实体是真实的——在各种值得注意的意义上——但并不存在。

Different philosophers have argued variously that fictional characters, numbers, absences, destroyed objects, or dead people are both real and nonexistent.⁴⁷ Emphasizing the contrastive nature of real as I have above can clarify these debates. For instance, Lord Byron's *Memoirs* were *real* (in-sofar as they were actually written rather than merely imagined), but they no longer exist in physical form because they were burned by his literary executor. Another example: Sherlock Holmes is a *real* fictional character insofar as he can be distinguished from made--up fictional characters, but he too lacks physical existence as a human.⁴⁸ To clarify, I've just made up the character Papaya Dalolo, but she is not a real fictional character inas-much as no one has written any fiction about her (at least not yet). Thus, it would seem that some entities can be real without existing.

不同的哲学家有不同的观点，认为虚构的人物、数字、缺席、被毁坏的物体或者死去的人都是真实的或者不存在的。例如，拜伦勋爵的回忆录是真实的(只要它们是真实写成的，而不仅仅是想象出来的)，但它们不再以实体形式存在，因为它们被他的文学遗嘱保管人烧毁了。另一个例子：夏洛克·福尔摩斯是一个真实的虚构人物，因为他可以从虚构人物中区分出来，但是他也缺乏作为人类的物质存在。澄清一下，我刚刚创造了这个角色 Papaya Dalolo，但是她不是一个真实的虚构人物，因为没有人写过任何关于她的小说(至少现在还没有)。因此，似乎有些实体可以是真实的而不存在。

There are also good reasons to further distinguish between *being* and *existing*. To explain, English is fairly unusual in that “to be” is both a predicating and an existential verb. We use “to be” both to describe the properties of things (the crow is black) and to suggest that something exists (the crow *is*, or there is a crow). But predication and existence do not have to be conjoined, and a number of languages (e.g., German, French, Japanese) have different verbs for the two modes. This is evidence for the position that we can make true predicative “being” statements about nonexistent objects.⁴⁹ “The silver mountain is made out of silver” might seem to be definitionally true, even though no such mountain exists. Similar arguments have been put forward about the properties of mathematical objects. Controversies about philosophy

of mathematics aside, I think this suggests that having properties (*predicative being*) should be distinguished from some bare notion of existence as such.

也有很好的理由进一步区分存在和存在。解释一下，英语相当不寻常，因为“*To be*”既是一个谓语动词，也是一个存在主义动词。我们使用“*to be*”来描述事物的属性(乌鸦是黑色的)和暗示某物存在(乌鸦是，或者有一只乌鸦)。但是谓语和存在并不一定要连接起来，许多语言(如德语、法语、日语)对这两种模式有不同的动词。这证明了我们可以对不存在的帐篷物体做出真正的谓语“存在”陈述。“银山是银做的”可能在定义上似乎是正确的，尽管这样的山并不存在。关于数学对象的性质也提出了类似的论点。撇开关于数学哲学的争论不谈，我认为这表明拥有属性(谓词存在)应该区别于存在本身的一些简单概念。

All this is building toward the observation that, in addition to talking about different modes of the real, it also makes sense to talk about different *modes of existence*. I do not mean anything especially enigmatic by this expression. Events, for instance, exist differently from the way objects exist. Events are often said to be composed of “time--slices,” while objects are typically thought of as existing in terms of their materialization.⁵⁰ The existence or nonexistence of absences (such as shadows, silences, cracks, and holes) has often been seen as paradoxical (does the crack in the Liberty Bell *exist*?), but we might solve this by saying that absences exist in a parasitic or negative mode.⁵¹ Fictional characters *exist* in terms of having been represented (with fictional objects having representational

所有这些都是建立在观察的基础上的，除了讨论不同的实在模式，讨论不同的存在模式也是有意义的。我并不是说这个表达有什么特别神秘的意思。例如，事件的存在方式与物体的存在方式不同。事件通常被认为是由“时间片”组成的，而物体通常被认为是存在的，因为它们具体化了。⁵⁰ 缺失(如阴影、沉默、裂缝和洞)的存在或不存在通常被认为是矛盾的(自由钟的裂缝存在吗?)但是我们可以通过说缺失以寄生或否定的方式存在来解决这个问题。⁵¹ 虚构的人物存在于被表现的方面(虚构的对象具有表现性)

properties just as physical objects have substantial properties).⁵² Indeed, this actually seems to solve problems of how reference to fictional characters is possible. Fictional characters exist in their representation, but their properties are canon--dependent (which of course is why there are so many debates around what counts as canon).⁵³ We might think of biological entities as *existing* in terms of their being presently alive.

实际上，这似乎解决了如何引用虚构角色的问题。虚构的人物存在于他们的表现形式中，但是他们的属性是依赖于经典的(这当然是为什么关于什么算是经典有如此多的争论)。⁵³ 我们可以认为生物实体是存在于他们现在活着的条件下的。

This list is not meant to be exhaustive by any means, but it suggests a line of approach that will become important. If socially constructed things are real, do they also exist? If so, how? Subsequent chapters will explore these issues, and in so doing will answer the question of exactly *how* social construction works.

这份清单无论如何都不是详尽无遗的，但它提出了一条将变得重要的途径。如果社会构建的东西是真实的，它们是否也存在？如果存在，又是如何存在的呢？随后的章节将探讨这些问题，这样做将回答社会结构如何运作的问题。

Part II: Process
Social Ontology
第二部分: 过程
社会本体论

2: Concepts in Disintegration & Strategies for Demolition 解体的概念与拆除的策略

Anthropology is dead. . . . In and through its signal idea, the culture concept, death-bed anthropology appears determined to carry on for some time to come, if only in and through other disciplines and other disciplinary formations. Consequently, we write in the wake of anthropology, haunted by it.

人类学已经死了。在并通过其标志性理念、文化观念、临终人类学似乎决心在未来一段时间内继续进行，如果只是在并通过其他学科和其他学科形态。接下来，我们在人类学之后写作，深受其困扰。

Scott Michaelson & David Johnson, *Anthropology's Wake: Attending to the End of Culture*

科特·迈克尔森和大卫·约翰逊，《人类学的守灵：关注文化的终结》

The specter of “the end of the social,” as such [has been] necessarily accompanied by the end of the social sciences.

“社会终结”的幽灵本身必然伴随着社会科学的终结。

Peter Wagner, *A History and Theory of the Social Sciences*
彼得·瓦格纳，社会科学史与理论

Analytical concepts have been disintegrating throughout the human sciences. Religious Studies used to be able to presume its object of analysis. Our methodological pluralism and global coverage were underwritten by postulating the existence of “religion” as a universal aspect of human experience found in all cultures. It was often taken for granted that there were different “religions” that ostensibly shared a common essence, function, or perhaps even origin. Not only did this position organize religion departments; it was also supported by other disciplines—such as philosophy and political science—that tended to grant the universality of religion even as they distinguished their disciplinary objects from it. For a considerable period, the special task allotted to Religious Studies was to advance the understanding of the nature of religion. But those days are long gone.

分析概念已经在整个人类科学中瓦解。宗教研究过去能够假定其分析对象。我们的方法论多元化和全球覆盖是通过假设“宗教”的存在作为人类

经验的普遍方面在所有文化中发现的。人们常常认为理所当然地存在着不同的“宗教”，它们表面上具有共同的本质、功能，甚至可能具有共同的起源。这一职位不仅组织宗教部门，而且还得到其他学科的支持——例如哲学和政治学——这些学科倾向于赋予宗教的普遍性，即使它们将其学科对象与宗教区分开来。在相当长的一段时间里，分配给宗教研究的特殊任务是促进对宗教本质的理解。但那些日子已经一去不复返了。

For almost sixty years, a host of theorists have challenged the universality of religion and its utility as an analytical category.¹ It may surprise readers coming from other disciplines, but most scholars trained in Religious Studies today now consider it naive to presume “religion” as a concept. Indeed, while American religion departments are still structured the way they were back when we postulated “world religions” with a common essence, a generation of scholars has been formed in the context of claims that “there is no data for religion” and that “religion is solely the creation of the scholar’s study” with “no independent existence apart from

近六十年来，一大批理论家对宗教的普遍性及其作为一个分析范畴的效用提出了质疑。¹ 来自其他学科的读者可能会感到惊讶，但如今大多数受过宗教研究训练的学者认为，把“宗教”假定为一个概念是幼稚的。事实上，当美国的宗教部门仍然按照我们假设具有共同本质的“世界宗教”时的方式组织时，一代学者已经形成，他们声称“没有关于宗教的数据”，“宗教仅仅是学者研究的创造”，“除了宗教之外没有独立的存在”

the academy.”² The issue is still contested, but in many quarters the rejection of “religion” as an analytical object approaches the consensus view.

学院。”这个问题仍然有争议，但在许多方面，拒绝“宗教”作为一个分析对象接近共识的观点。

This poses a special challenge for our discipline. Religious Studies has no distinctive methodology. It has no special approach. It teaches no specific technical skill. It has no core principles. It has no single object language. It has no clearly delimited geography, people, or time period. The only thing we supposedly share is our commitment to a category—*religion*—we no longer believe in.

这对我们的学科提出了一个特殊的挑战。宗教研究没有独特的方法论。它没有特殊的方法。它没有教授特定的技术技能。它没有核心原则。它没有单一的对象语言。它没有明确划分的地理、人物或时间段。我们唯一应该分享的是我们对一个类别的承诺——宗教——我们不再相信。

Like many disciplines, Religious Studies is in crisis. Confronting the dissolution of our object, scholars have attempted to buttress “religion” with references to increasingly faulty underpinnings such as phenomenological experience, evolutionary psychology, and culturally postulated supernatural agents. These efforts, while well-intentioned, seem to me to be like the philosophy professor from Trier University who constructed an elaborate planetarium with a waterwheel and an intricate system of pulleys and screws in an attempt to defend the classical centrality of the earth, tracing the orbit of the sun as a planet with Venus and Mercury as its satellites. In attempting to save the basic framework for the study of religion by supplementing it from within, I fear the discipline is in danger of enacting a similar procedure—charting one Ptolemaic epicycle after another in defense of an illusory center.³

与许多学科一样，宗教研究也处于危机之中。面对我们对象的解体，学者们试图用越来越错误的基础来支撑“宗教”，如现象学经验、进化心理学和文化假设的超自然力量。这些努力，虽然是出于好意，但在我看来，就像特里尔大学的哲学教授一样，他建造了一个精心制作的天文馆，里面有一个水轮和一个复杂的滑轮和螺丝系统，试图捍卫地球的古典中心，追踪太阳作为一个行星的轨道，金星和水星作为它的卫星。在试图通过从内部补充宗教来拯救宗教研究的基本框架时，我担心这个学科有可能制定一个类似的程序——绘制一个又一个托勒密周期来捍卫一个虚幻的中心

In the face of various skepticisms about our central category, it might seem that we have but two choices: either we can endlessly repeat the act of deconstruction or we can continue to add “epicycles” by redefining our

master categories in ways that move further and further from their common usage. Neither of these gets us very far.

面对对我们核心范畴的各种怀疑，我们似乎只有两种选择：要么我们可以无休止地重复解构的行为，要么我们可以继续增加“本轮”，通过重新定义我们的主要范畴，使其越来越远离其常用方法。这两种方法都不能让我们走得太远。

But I have a message for my fellow scholars of religion—our dilemma is less fresh than it first appears. When we aren't bemoaning some generalized "postmodernism," we tend to portray the challenge to the category in Religious Studies as either a novel sign of critical acumen or an unprecedented phase of decay (depending on perspective). But we aren't alone. The disciplinary objects began their disintegration years ago, as I will demonstrate momentarily. Not only have many of the human sciences dissolved their central categories; most have also long since abandoned notions of working toward a shared object of inquiry. This apocalypse—if that's what it is—is old news. We are already postapocalyptic.

但我有一个信息要告诉我的宗教学者们——我们的困境并不像最初看起来那么新鲜。当我们不是在哀叹某种普遍的“后现代主义”时，我们倾向于把宗教研究中对血腥的挑战描绘成一种批判敏锐的新奇迹象，或者是一个前所未有的衰退阶段(取决于视角)。但我们并不孤单。纪律对象几年前就开始瓦解了，我马上就会演示给大家看。许多人文科学不仅解散了它们的核心范畴，而且很久以前就放弃了为共同的研究对象而工作的观念。这个启示——如果是这样的话——已经是过去的新闻了。我们已经是世界末日之后了。

This is important because the critical turn in Religious Studies has inadvertently paralleled similar turns in other disciplines. Crucially, many of the proposed solutions for the challenge to "religion" that are being debated now have already been tried and have failed in other disciplines, in ways we can learn from. To be blunt, tracing these debates shows that many things currently being presented as cutting-edge theory in Religious

这一点很重要，因为宗教研究的关键转折已经不经意间与其他学科的类型转折并驾齐驱。至关重要的是，目前正在辩论的许多针对“宗教”的挑战提出的解决办法已经在其他学科中进行了尝试，并以我们可以借鉴的方式失败。坦率地说，追踪这些争论表明，许多东西目前正被呈现为宗教的尖端理论

Studies are ultimately dead ends. This chapter, then, represents an urgent intervention with serious stakes for the discipline, and the details that follow are essential to making this case.

研究最终都是死胡同。因此，这一章代表了一种紧急干预，对于这个学科来说有着严重的利害关系，以下的细节对于这个案例来说是必不可少的。

To provide some preliminary evidence for the historical disintegration of the categories: already in 1956, Morris Weitz had published a skeptical Wittgensteinian critique of the category *art*. In 1958, Dorothy Emmet had begun the decomposition of *society* as an object of analysis, Raymond Williams had popularized a proto--genealogical analysis of *culture*, and Norwood Russell Hanson had launched a parallel Wittgensteinian investigation of the conceptual foundations of *science*; while 1961 saw Walter Ullmann begin historicizing the notion of the *political* and H.L.A. Hart problematizing the definition of *the law*. While Wilfred Cantwell Smith instigated the process of dissolving *religion* in 1962, Thomas Kuhn was building on Hanson and others to launch a massive critical revolution in the notion of *science*. Rounding out the decade was Hayden White with the challenge to *history* and its narrative tropes in 1966. This was only the beginning.⁴

为了提供一些初步的证据，历史分解的范畴：早在1956年，莫里斯韦茨已经发表了一个怀疑维特根斯坦的批判范畴艺术。1958年，多萝西·埃米特开始将社会分解作为一个分析对象，雷蒙·威廉斯推广了文化的原始谱系分析，诺伍德·罗素·汉森发起了一个类似于维特根斯坦的科学概念基础研究；1961年，沃尔特·乌尔曼开始将政治概念历史化，哈特将法律的定义问题化。1962年，威尔弗雷德·坎特韦尔·史密斯(wilfred cantwell smith)发起了解散宗教的进程，而托马斯·库恩(Thomas Kuhn)则在汉森和其他人的基础上发起了科学概念的大规模批判性革命。1966年，海登·怀特以其对历史及其叙事手法的挑战，完成了这十年。这仅仅是个开始

These skeptical challenges took different forms and the disciplines were mainly unaware of their neighbors' similarly urgent impasses. Some fields were profoundly destabilized by these critiques, while many others marginalized them. Over the ensuing half century, however, new thinkers have often deepened these criticisms and added other disciplinary concepts to their ranks. Many of the academy's key terms have faced dissolution. If I were writing exclusively as an intellectual historian, I could easily spend the whole monograph summarizing these positions, producing a catalog of landmark critical books and articles. But I want to warn you that any disciplinary object not yet criticized is ripe for future attack, so instead of exhaustively charting merely the existing critiques, I intend instead to spell

out the steps many of these critiques have taken and to provide a checklist of sorts that outlines how they produced epistemological disorder. This is no mere sophistry. What I mean to show, rather, is that if we attend properly to these deconstructive strategies, we can get the demolition of the master categories to show us how they were constructed in the first place. The very strategies that have been used to annihilate our disciplines point the way out of both “modern” and “postmodern” philosophical projects and toward new metamodern undertakings.

这些持怀疑态度的挑战采取了不同的形式，学科主要不知道他们的邻居的同样紧迫的僵局。一些领域被这些批评深深地破坏了稳定，而许多其他的边缘化他们。然而，在随后的半个世纪里，新思想家们经常深化这些批评，并在他们的行列中添加其他的学科概念。学术界的许多关键技术都面临解散。如果我只是作为一个知识分子历史学家来写作，我可以很容易地用整个专著来总结这些立场，产生一个具有里程碑意义的批评性书籍和文章的目录。但我想警告你们，任何尚未受到批评的学科对象，都已经成熟，可以在未来受到攻击，因此，我不打算仅仅详尽地列出现有的批评，而是打算阐明这些批评中的许多已经采取的步骤，并提供一个各种各样的清单，概述它们是如何产生认识论混乱的。这不仅仅是诡辩。我想表明的是，如果我们正确地关注这些解构策略，我们就可以拆除大师类别，让我们看到它们最初是如何建造的。被用来消灭我们的学科的策略指出了“现代”和“后现代”哲学项目的出路，并指向新的元现代事业。

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To clarify the larger concerns of this chapter, there has been a fundamental breakdown in the classical view of “concepts” as such. For much of the more than two--thousand--year history of European philosophy, the core 为了澄清本章更大的关注点，对“概念”本身的经典观点已经有了根本性的分解。在欧洲哲学两千多年历史的大部分时间里，

model for philosophical inquiry has been conceptual analysis. The philosopher asks “what is justice?” and then goes in search of justice’s defining features. According to Aristotle, “a definition is an expression indicating the essence of a thing”; so the goal of philosophy was thought to be the pursuit of better definitions, which was supposed to proceed via the discovery of essences.⁵ The organizing presumption was that the meaning of a concept is basically a definition that captures its essence and articulates the necessary and sufficient properties for membership in the category to which the concept refers. But despite a long history of philosophical attempts to refine definitions, this very model of the concept began to collapse in the early twentieth century under pressure from Ludwig Wittgenstein and others.

哲学探究的模式是概念分析。哲学家问“什么是正义？”然后去寻找正义的定义特征。根据亚里士多德的观点，“定义是指明事物本质的表达”；因此，哲学的目标被认为是追求更好的定义，而这应该通过发现本质来实现。但是，尽管历史悠久的哲学家试图完善定义，这一概念的模式开始崩溃在二十世纪初的压力下，路德维希 Wittgenstein 和其他人。

Today many analytic philosophers have come to think of conceptual analysis as a failed methodology that even the turn to “ordinary language” was unable to rescue. Jerry Fodor and William Lycan have argued that “the number of concepts whose analyses have so far been determined continues to hover stubbornly around none” and “no effort of analytic philosophy to provide necessary and sufficient conditions for a philosophically interesting concept has ever succeeded,” respectively.⁶ Perhaps hyperbolically, Paul Elbourne remarked: “Despite 2,400 years or so of trying, it is unclear that anyone has ever come up with an adequate definition of any words whatsoever.”⁷ Although the issue remains controversial, similar claims about the failure of conceptual analysis have been made by many other philosophers.⁸

今天，许多哲学分析哲学家开始认为概念分析是一种失败的方法论，即使转向“普通语言”也无法挽救。Jerry Fodor 和 William Lycan 认为“到目前为止，已经确定的分析概念的数量仍然固执地徘徊在没有任何概念的周围”，“分析哲学为一个哲学上有趣的概念提供必要和充分的条件的努力从来没有成功过”。⁶ 也许是夸张的，Paul Elbourne 评论说：“尽管 2400 年左右的努力，还不清楚是否有人曾经提出过任何词汇的适当定义。”尽管这个问题仍然存在争议，但许多其他哲学家也提出了类似的关于概念分析失败的主张

Readers of continental philosophy are likely already familiar with an alternate set of critiques about the simultaneous limitations and necessity of concepts. For instance, Gilles Deleuze both emphasized the inherent problem

of concepts vis-à-vis life or experience and defined philosophy as the “creation of concepts.”⁹ By way of another example, Jacques Derrida fashioned the neologism *différance* into several distinct critiques of concepts—including problems of deferred presence, infinite meaning deferral, and the relationship between iteration and conceptual change.¹⁰ Likewise, György Lukács and other Marxist theorists have reinterpreted “reification” (*Verdinglichung*) as a political or normative critique of the objectification of concepts as such.¹¹ Concepts are often believed to produce reifying damage and to function as conduits for status quo power. Analytic philosophers and critical theorists frequently think of themselves as fundamentally at odds with one another, but on this one point, at least, they turn out to be surprisingly close: concepts, which we are fated to use, are inherently problematic.

欧洲大陆哲学的读者可能已经熟悉关于概念同时存在的局限性和必要性的另一套批评。例如，德勒兹既强调概念相对于生活或经验的内在问题，又将哲学定义为“创造概念”通过另一个例子，雅克·德里达把新词差异化几个不同的概念批判，包括延迟存在、无限意义延迟以及迭代与概念变化之间的关系等问题。同样，卢卡奇和其他马克思主义理论家重新解释了“物化”(Verdinglichung)，认为它是对概念客观化的政治或规范性批判。分析哲学家和批判理论家经常认为他们自己是有趣的——在本质上彼此不一致，但至少在这一点上，他们惊人地接近：我们注定要使用的概念，本质上是有点问题的。

While I want to begin by basically granting this point, it is not where I
虽然我想从基本上承认这一点开始，但这并不是我想说的

am going with my line of criticism. Instead I want to turn the critique of concepts inside out to see where it takes us. The first part of the chapter takes as a case study Wilfred Cantwell Smith's classical interrogation of the category "religion." The section after that provides an earlier and more paradigmatic version: namely Morris Weitz's criticism of art as a point of departure and a possible blueprint for autocritique. The section that follows demonstrates how the meanings of the key master categories were exploded beyond recognition, leaving disciplines in various states of skeptical crisis or flat-out denial. It does so by exploring a set of techniques that could be remobilized to produce epistemological anarchy in almost any field. Wittgenstein seems to be both the instigator of and an oft-proposed solution to many forms of autocritique. Thus, the penultimate section discusses some of the main attempts to limit conceptual dissolution with reference to Wittgenstein. Mainly these took the form of gestures toward family-resemblance and polythetic concepts, and I will show why these strategies failed. The chapter concludes with a reappraisal of what we have learned about concepts by tracing these modes of criticism.

我坚持我的批评路线。相反，我想把对概念的批判从里到外翻出来，看看它会把我们带到哪里。第一部分以威尔弗雷德·坎特韦尔·史密斯对“宗教”范畴的经典质疑为个案进行研究接下来的部分提供了一个更早和更具范式性的版本：即莫里斯·韦茨的艺术批评作为一个出发点和一个可能的自动批评蓝图。以下一节说明了主要类别的含义是如何被炸得面目全非，使学科处于怀疑危机或完全否认的各种状态。它通过探索一系列技术来达到这一目的，这些技术可以在几乎任何领域产生认识上的无政府状态。维特根斯坦似乎是许多形式的自我批判的发起者和一个经常被提出的解决方案。因此，倒数第二节讨论了一些主要的尝试，以限制与维特根斯坦的概念解散。主要表现为对家族相似性和多元化概念的姿态，我将说明为什么这些策略失败了。本章最后通过追踪这些批评模式，重新评估了我们对概念的认识。

To be clear about my ambitions, I am not here to either mock deconstructive criticisms or throw up my hands at the limits of concepts; rather, I intend to show how the by-now-routinized critique of the disciplinary master categories tells us something fundamental about social kinds. We need to amplify the strategies of demolition before we can move past them. But reconstructing the architecture of critique in a metamodern mode will then allow us to pinpoint the shared structures of the concepts we have been interrogating.

为了弄清楚我的抱负，我在这里既不是要嘲笑非破坏性的批评，也不是要对概念的局限性举手投降；相反，我打算展示如今对学科硕士类别的常规批评是如何告诉我们一些关于社会类型的基本知识的。我们需要

放大拆迁的策略，然后才能超越它们。但是，以元现代模式重建批判的结构，将使我们能够精确地找出我们一直在质疑的概念的共同结构。

2.1 The End of Religion

2.1 宗教的终结

Neither religion in general nor any one of the religions, I will contend, is in itself an intelligible entity, a valid object of inquiry or of concern either for the scholar or for the man of faith.

我认为，无论是一般的宗教，还是任何一种宗教，其本身都不是一个可理解的实体，不论是学者还是有信仰的人，都不是一个有效的调查对象或关注对象。

Wilfred Cantwell Smith, *The Meaning and End of Religion*
威尔弗雷德·坎特韦尔·史密斯，《宗教的意义与终结》

From the very beginning of Religious Studies' formation as an autonomous discipline, scholars have expressed discomfort with *religion* as an analytical category.¹² But the disintegration of the scholarly concept really commenced in earnest with Wilfred Cantwell Smith's *The Meaning and End of Religion* (1962). Smith's early genealogy of the modern concept of religion is in many respects paradigmatic both because of its position within the history of the discipline and because it echoes the critique of other master categories in different fields. In what follows, I want to chart

从宗教研究作为一门独立的学科形成之初，学者们就对宗教作为一个分析范畴表示不满。¹²但学术概念的瓦解真正开始于威尔弗雷德·坎特韦尔·史密斯的《宗教的意义与终结》(1962)。史密斯关于现代宗教概念的早期谱系学在许多方面具有典范性，一方面是因为它在学科历史中的地位，另一方面是因为它呼应了对不同领域其他大师范畴的批判。在接下来的文章中，我想画一张图表

the habits of thought Smith engendered and which, like the symptoms of a trauma, Religious Studies scholars (myself included) have been com-pelled obsessively to reenact.

史密斯形成的思维习惯，就像创伤的症状一样，宗教研究学者(包括我自己)被迫着迷地重现。

Smith begins by tracing the etymology of the word “religion.” The striking similarity of terms for religion in contemporary European languages points to their shared origins in the Latin *religio*.¹³ But as Smith argues, *religio* only entered the mainstream of European vocabularies as part of the Protestant Reformation, at which point the term was basically synonymous with piety. There were not different kinds of *religio* or “religions” in this period, but more or less genuine expressions of piety, the singular *religio*.¹⁴ Smith argues that the modern concept of religion as a general category appeared only over the course of the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries. It is worth underscoring that for Smith neither the Hebrew Bible nor the Greek New Testament contains a term analogous to the contemporary “religion.”¹⁵ So he suggests that the use of “religion” by scholars examining a pre-modern West, even if it appears in their sources, runs the risk of the cardinal sin of the historian—anachronism.

史密斯首先追溯了“宗教”这个词的词源当代欧洲语言中宗教术语的惊人相似性表明，它们都起源于拉丁宗教。但正如史密斯所说，宗教只是作为宗教改革的一部分进入欧洲词汇的主流，在这一点上，宗教这个词基本上是虔诚的同义词。这一时期并没有不同种类的宗教或“宗教”，而是或多或少真正表达了虔诚，即单一的宗教。¹⁴ 史密斯认为，宗教作为一种普遍的血腥的现代概念，只是在十七世纪和十八世纪的过程中才出现。值得强调的是，对于史密斯来说，无论是希伯来圣经还是希腊新约都没有包含一个类似于当代“宗教”的术语¹⁵ 因此，他认为，学者们在研究一个前现代西方时使用“宗教”，即使它出现在其源头，也有可能导致历史学家的主要罪行——时代错误。

Even more strikingly, Smith notes that the ancient Egyptians, Iranians, Aztecs, Chinese, Japanese, Indians, Indonesians, Greeks, or Hebrews did not possess indigenous words for religion in their respective languages.¹⁶ He suggests that it took the efforts of Euro-American scholars or missionaries, either alone or in concert with the locals, to produce new terminology to describe the “religion” of the non-European, in effect conjuring into being through a linguistic act a division between the culture’s religious and political worlds. Likewise Smith observes the historically late, and largely Western, construction of the main terms for specific religions—“Boudhism” (1801), “Hindooism” (1829), “Taouism” (1839), “Zoroastrianism” (1854), “Confucianism” (1862)—none of which precisely corresponds to native categories.¹⁷ Hence Smith argues that “religion” is inextricably tangled with

the history of European expansion. The distinctions captured by the term are not native elsewhere. Thus, he concludes, *religion* is a foreign imposition.

更引人注目的是，史密斯指出，古埃及人、伊朗人、阿兹特克人、中国人、日本人、印度人、印度尼西亚人、希腊人或希伯来人在他们各自的语言中都没有表示宗教的本土词汇。他认为，欧美学者或传教士们，无论是单独还是与当地人合作，都在努力产生新的术语来描述非欧洲人的“宗教”，实际上是通过语言行为将文化的宗教和政治世界分隔开来。同样，史密斯也注意到，具体宗教的主要术语——“佛教”(1801年)、“印度教”(1829年)、“道教”(1839年)、“琐罗亚斯德教”(1854年)、“儒教”(1862年)——在历史上较晚，而且大部分是西方的，它们都没有准确地回应本土的范畴。因此，史密斯认为，“宗教”与欧洲扩张的历史密不可分。这个术语所捕捉到的区别并非来自其他地方。因此，他得出结论，宗教是外国强加的。

Finally, Smith argues, individuals and their social relations disappear behind the concept “religion” as part of a process of “reification.”¹⁸ Religion is produced by means of a double abstraction: first, heterogeneous beliefs, practices, and institutions are subsumed under the concept of a particular religion, which is then imagined to be the repository of a coherence alien to it; second, a set of religions is incorporated into the category “religion” as such to describe what is purported to be universal to humankind. Each phase of this movement results in the loss of resolution, the blurring of distinctions, and the compression of the diversity of elements. Thus, it encourages scholars to blur normative and empirical registers; by

最后，史密斯认为，作为“物化”过程的一部分，个人和他们的社会关系消失在“宗教”概念的背后¹⁸ 宗教信仰是通过双重抽象产生的：首先，不同的信仰、做法和机构被纳入特定宗教的概念，然后被想象为一个与其不相干的一致性的存储库；其次，一套宗教被纳入“宗教”这一类别，以描述据称对人类普遍适用的东西。这种运动的每一个阶段都会导致分辨率的丧失，区别的模糊，以及元素多样性的压缩。因此，它鼓励学者模糊规范和经验的登记册；

listing, for example, the “beliefs of Catholics,” they are in effect obscuring the difference between what Catholics ought to believe and what they do believe. Moreover, this process seems to be asymmetrical since the sup-posed features of “religion” as such (e.g., emphasis on faith, the transcendent, the divine, exclusivity) are largely an abbreviated Protestantism that does not really apply very well to other “religions.” In sum, religion is an abstraction of an abstraction, and each phase in this process results in an un-recouped remainder.

例如，列出“天主教徒的信仰”，实际上是在模糊天主教徒应该相信什么和他们确实相信什么之间的区别。此外，这个过程似乎是不对称的，因为所谓的“宗教”本身的特征(例如，强调信仰，超越性，神圣性，排他性)在很大程度上是一个简化的新教，并不真正适用于其他“宗教”总而言之，宗教是一种抽象的抽象，在这个过程中的每个阶段都会导致一个无法收回的剩余。

So far Smith’s challenge looks like a typical anti-essentialist critique of the sort that can be found in other disciplines. But the particularities of his project are apparent in Smith’s formulation of his core claim as quoted in the heading of this section.¹⁹ What could be glossed over as merely philosophical nominalism, however, betrays itself with the appearance of this “man of faith.” Scratch the surface and Smith turns out to be an odd sort of anti-essentialist, as he argues in a footnote that “apart from the proper names of persons, the only nouns that can stand up to final scrutiny are ‘God’ . . . and ‘man’ All else is either a conceptual abstraction and/or adjectival.”²⁰ In effect, despite his use of the Marxian vocabulary of reification, Smith’s nominalism rests on religious grounds.²¹

到目前为止，史密斯的挑战看起来像是一种典型的反本质主义批判，这种批判可以在其他学科中找到。但是，在本节标题中引用的史密斯对其核心主张的阐述中，他的计划的特殊性是显而易见的。然而，可以被掩饰为仅仅是哲学唯名论的东西，却因为这个“信仰之人”的出现而暴露了自己从表面上看，史密斯其实是一个古怪的反本质主义者，正如他在一个脚注中指出的那样，“除了人的专有名称之外，唯一经得起最终审查的名词是‘上帝’... ..和‘人’... ..其他的一切要么是概念抽象，要么是形容词。”实际上，尽管史密斯使用了马克思主义的物化词汇，他的唯名论却是建立在宗教的基础上的

Smith demonstrates that to describe a given position as originating in religion is to say that it is merely perspectival, that it is merely one way of looking at the world. To call Christianity *a* religion is to deny its status as a universal description of the world; it is to render it thereby implicitly relative, if not false. This is a profound insight and worth dwelling on for a moment. Put in a different way, the abstraction “religion” should not be available to religious people, because the word automatically classifies whatever theology

one holds—or whatever practices one embraces—as merely particular beliefs, and in that sense as optional. It represents the claim that one does not know the world so much as have a narrow per-spective on it. The category “religion” is de--specifying in a manner that any inevitably particularized believer should find unsettling—and when, as is often the case, they *don't* find it odd, this is evidence that secularism has infiltrated the conceptual frameworks of even the pious. The category religion therefore subverts religion.

史密斯证明，把一个特定的立场描述为起源于宗教，就是说它仅仅是一种观点，仅仅是看待世界的一种方式。把基督教称为宗教，就是否认它作为世界的普遍描述的地位；因此，如果它不是虚假的，也是含蓄地相对的。这是一个深刻的见解，值得深思一会儿。换句话说，“宗教”这个抽象概念不应该提供给宗教人士，因为这个词自动地将一个人所持有的任何神学——或一个人所信奉的任何实践——归类为仅仅是特定的信仰，并且在这个意义上是可选的。它代表了这样一种观点，即一个人对世界的了解并不多，只是对世界有一个狭隘的视角。”宗教”这一类别的去具体化方式，是任何不可避免地具体化的信徒都应该感到不安的——当他们经常不觉得奇怪时，这就证明世俗主义甚至已经渗透到了虔诚信徒的概念框架中。因此，宗教这一范畴颠覆了宗教。

To recast this critique, as Smith himself does in a later essay, “‘Religion’ in its modern sense is at heart a secular concept.”²² To express this claim in a Hegelian mode, we might note that to introduce religion as a cate-gory, one needs to introduce its opposite, the secular. To set up an oppo-sition between religion and secular, however, requires that one take up a position outside both categories. One has to be able to take up both as a totality. But this very act is a problem for religion because it means that there is an area into which religion does not extend. An Evangelical Chris-

为了重新审视这一批判，正如史密斯本人在后来的一篇文章中所做的那样，“现代意义上的‘宗教’本质上是一个世俗的概念。”为了用黑格尔的方式来表达这一观点，我们可能会注意到，要把宗教作为一种范式来引入，就需要引入它的对立面，即世俗。然而，要在宗教和世俗之间建立一种对立，就需要在两个范畴之外采取一种立场。一个人必须能够把两者作为一个整体。但是这种行为对于宗教来说是个问题，因为它意味着有一个领域是宗教无法延伸的。福音派克里斯

tian might argue that one's relationship to God is at stake in all activity, in all spheres of life, hence that there is no genuinely secular realm; in this sense, the emplacement of the category religion undermines its referent. At the very least, Smith wants to remind us that in our contemporary epoch, to call something a religion is to set it apart from the "real world" of science and material reality. Imposing religion on a non-European group is relativizing (e.g., when the Parsi became practitioners of the Zoroastrian religion, the *Amesha Spenta* were reduced from a class of supposedly real entities to the components of religious belief); but then, so is imposing the category on European groups. As we'll see momentarily, the situation is different in other disciplines: for instance, to call something "art," while it often removes it from everyday life, tends to make it more available as art, rather than less.

田先生可能会争辩说, 一个人与上帝的关系在生活的各个领域的所有活动中都处于危险之中, 因此没有真正的世俗领域; 在这个意义上, 宗教这一范畴的确立削弱了它的所指。至少, 史密斯想提醒我们, 在我们的当代时代, 把某种东西称为宗教就是把它与科学和物质现实的“真实世界”区分开来。将宗教强加于非欧洲群体是相对的(例如, 当 Parsi 成为琐罗亚斯德教的信徒时, *Amesha Spenta* 从一类所谓的真实实体减少到宗教信仰的组成部分); 但是, 将这一类别强加于欧洲群体也是如此。正如我们即将看到的, 在其他学科的情况是不同的: 例如, 称某种东西为“艺术”, 虽然它经常从日常生活中删除, 往往使它更容易作为艺术, 而不是更少。

In summary, Smith argued that religion was a construction originating late in European thought. There are no native terms for religion in other places or periods. Religion emerges as a concept by subsuming human social relations under a series of increasingly general categories that are subsequently reified. Religion describes a perceived relationship, no matter how disguised, to Euro-American Protestantism. Finally, religion itself is a secularizing concept. These are all claims that the field of religious studies has elaborated and debated over nearly the last sixty years.

总而言之, 史密斯认为宗教起源于欧洲思想的后期。在其他地方或其他时期, 对于宗教没有本土术语。宗教作为一个概念出现, 它将人类社会关系纳入一系列越来越普遍的范畴, 并随后具体化。宗教描述了一种感知的关系, 无论如何伪装, 欧美新教。最后, 宗教本身就是一个世俗化的概念。这些都是宗教研究领域在过去 60 年里详细阐述和辩论的主张。

So what might we do in the face of the concept's disintegration? Smith's crack at a solution was that we should stop writing about *religion* and *religions*, and instead should use the terms *religious*, *faith*, or *cumulative tradition*. As a consolation prize for the dissolution of the discipline's main

terminology, these alternatives are Ptolemizations that do little to address the core issues. The term *faith*, with its heavily Protestant connotations, has just as many problems as *religion*. *Cumulative tradition*, like adding epicycles to an already faulty set of ellipses, is merely a wobbly near-synonym for the discredited “*religions*.” Indeed, it is hard to see how the term *tradition* is any less relativizing than *religion*; if anything, it goes further than *religion* in demoting Judaism or Buddhism to mere customary practices. Hence, while his criticisms were well-founded, Smith’s pro-posed alternatives failed to take hold in the field.

那么，面对这个概念的瓦解，我们能做些什么呢？史密斯提出的解决方案是，我们应该停止写关于宗教和宗教的文章，而应该使用宗教、信仰或累积传统这些术语。作为解散这一学科的主要术语的一个安慰奖，这些替代品是托勒密化，对解决核心问题几乎没有任何帮助。信仰这个术语，由于其严重的新教含义，有着和宗教一样多的问题。累积的传统，就像把本轮加到一组已经有缺陷的省略号上一样，只不过是名誉扫地的“宗教”摇摇欲坠的近义词事实上，很难看出传统这个词的相对性不如宗教；如果说有什么不同的话，那就是它比宗教更进一步，将犹太教或佛教降格为纯粹的习俗实践。因此，虽然史密斯的批评是有根据的，但他提出的替代方案在这个领域并没有站稳脚跟。

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Although there is not space here for a full recap, the disciplinary autocritique of “religion” did not stop with Smith. The most representative version of the subsequent critique was perhaps Jonathan Z. Smith’s, which rested on interrogating scholars’ role in producing religion as a category. This latter Smith was joined by Talal Asad, David Chidester, Daniel

虽然这里没有足够的空间进行全面的回顾，但是对“宗教”的专制批判并没有在史密斯身上停止。随后的批评中最具代表性的版本可能是乔纳森·Z·史密斯(Jonathan Z.Smith)的版本，该版本基于对学者们在将宗教作为美食的血腥产物中所扮演角色的质疑。后者的作者还有塔拉尔·阿萨德，大卫·奇德斯特，丹尼尔

Dubuis-son,- Timothy Fitzgerald, Peter Harrison, Aaron Hughes, Richard King, Tomoko Masuzawa, and Russell McCutcheon, who all deepened or altered the critique in various ways. A number of scholars have called into question the very field of religious studies by arguing that the treatment of “religion” as a putatively *sui generis* category masks the globalization of particular concerns endemic to Christendom and their subsequent presentation as universal aspects of human experience. In response, a further group of scholars—including Isomae Jun’ichi, Hans Martin Krämer, Adrian Hermann, Anna Sun, Tisa Wenger, and myself to name a few—recouped in various ways the voices of non-European actors that were the object of that discourse and showed their agency in the formation of “religion” or religions in their own context (see the note for a more extensive list of key authors).²³ In brief, the criticisms of *religion* that Cantwell Smith connected to his position as a “man of faith” were reworked, further secularized, and refocused on *religion*’s messy history and limited analytical value.

迪布森、菲茨杰拉德、哈里森、休斯、金、增泽友子、麦卡琴等人都以不同的方式深化或改变了这种批判。一些学者对宗教研究这一领域提出了质疑，他们认为，将“宗教”视为一个假定的独特类别，掩盖了 Christendom 特有的特殊关切的全球化及其随后作为人类经验的普遍方面的表现。作为回应，另一批学者——包括 Isomae Jun’ichi、Hans Martin Krämer、Adrian Hermann、Anna Sun、Tisa Wenger，以及我自己——以不同的方式重新获得了非欧洲演员的声音，这些演员是演讲的对象，并且在形成“宗教”或在他们自己的语境中的宗教方面显示了他们的能动性(参见更广泛的关键作者名单的注释)。简而言之，坎特韦尔·史密斯将对宗教的批评与他作为“信仰之人”的地位联系在一起，这些批评被重新改写，进一步安全化，重新聚焦于宗教混乱的历史和有限的分析价值。

Even as these challenges to the category *religion* became increasingly prominent, many scholars felt the need to sidestep the critique. One can imagine why this might be the case. The critique itself threatened a number of important scholarly projects. It seemed to call into question the legitimacy of religious studies as a scholarly discipline and imperil the validity of the research of individual scholars. It also seemed to subvert many of the things that brought scholars to the study of religion in the first place, whether they were aiming to protect their personal faith from secularism, seeking a justification for the liberal principle of “freedom of religion,” or even trying to build a theory of divine revelation. This was also true for those motivated by a desire to undermine the putative irrationality of religious fanatics, to showcase the incompatibility between religion and science, or to underscore religious violence against minoritized populations. All of these competing

scholarly agendas might seem to re-quire a category *religion* to underpin their arguments.

尽管这些对宗教范畴的挑战变得越来越突出，许多学者认为有必要回避这种批评。我们可以想象为什么会这样。评论本身就威胁到了一些重要的学术项目。它似乎对宗教研究作为一门学术学科的合法性提出了质疑，并危及个别学者研究的有效性。它似乎也颠覆了最初促使学者们研究宗教的许多东西，无论他们是为了保护自己的个人信仰不受世俗主义的影响，还是为“宗教自由”的自由原则寻找理由，甚至是试图建立一个神启论。对于那些出于破坏宗教狂热分子假定的不合理性、显示宗教与科学不相容或强调针对少数民族人口的宗教暴力的动机的人来说，情况也是如此。所有这些相互竞争的学术议程似乎都需要一个宗教类别来支撑他们的论点。

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Part of what makes this difficult is that after the publication of *The Meaning and End of Religion*, there has been a sea change in the lexical meaning of “religion” in Euro--American contexts. This attention to definitions, even rejected ones, is important because scholars sometimes suggest that a specific culture does not have *our* definition of religion without trying to reconstruct what *our* definition is supposed to be. Although dictionaries have their limitations, they illustrate what I have referred to elsewhere as the shift from a *theocentric* to a *hierocentric* definition of religion.²⁴ In

部分原因是在《宗教的意义和终结》出版后，“宗教”在欧美语境中的词汇意义发生了巨大的变化。这种对定义的关注，即使是被否定的定义，也是很重要的，因为学者们有时会提出，一种特定的文化并没有我们对宗教的定义，而不是试图重建我们对宗教的定义。尽管词典有其局限性，但它们说明了我其他地方提到的宗教定义从神学中心向等级中心的转变

effect, older (although still “modern”) European--language dictionaries generally defined “religion” in theocentric terms as the worship of God or gods, while the more recent versions of these very same works gener-ally use hierocentric terms such as “the supernatural” or “the sacred” to stand in for the deity. That is to say, the *theocentric* definition of religion implied the reality of God and was rooted in a Christian theological pre-supposition that religion was centered around God’s revelation to differ-ent peoples; while in the *hierocentric* definition references to God were replaced by a vague notion of sacrality or the transcendent that didn’t do much better. It could almost go without saying, but the *hierocentric* defi-

欧洲语言词典通常将“宗教”定义为以神为中心的对上帝或神的崇拜，而这些作品的最新版本通常使用诸如“超自然”或“神圣”等等的等级中心术语来代替神。也就是说，以神为中心的宗教定义暗示了上帝的真实性，并植根于基督教的神学预设，即宗教以上帝对不同民族的启示为中心；而在以等级为中心的定义中，对上帝的提及被神圣性或超然性的模糊概念所取代，这些概念并没有做得更好。这几乎是不言而喻的，但是以等级为中心的定义

nition is still a largely Christian concept—just a quasi-secularized- one. The

theocentric concept of religion was also a genetic one in the clas-
民族主义在很大程度上仍然是一个基督教的概念——只是一个准世俗化的概念。以神为中心的宗教概念也是一个遗传的概念

sical sense, in that it was believed that there was a first religion or divine revelation from which all others descended or departed. That is to say, there was supposed to be a common ancestor to all religions. Further-more, irrespective of whether scholars saw God as the initiator of a reve-lation from which most of mankind had fallen, or the end product of the evolution of Natural Religion that could not help but reason to a Supreme Being, a unitary divinity was believed to be at the beginning and end of this process. The terms “religion,” “religions,” and “the religious” were all understood as directed toward this originary God. In the early uses of the category “religion,” Christianity was understood as the only true member of the category, while Judaism and Islam were portrayed as imitations of religion or not--quite--religions. This reference set expanded to include a list of religions such as Buddhism and Hinduism, but with the assump-tion that each of these religions was a way of worshipping God.²⁵

因为它被认为是第一个宗教或者神圣的启示，其他所有的宗教都是从这个宗教或者神圣的启示中产生或者消失的。也就是说，所有的宗教都应该有一个共同的祖先。此外，无论学者们是否认为上帝是启蒙的始作俑者，也无论他们是否认为上帝是自然宗教进化的最终产物，而自然宗教进化的最终产物不得不向至高无上的存在进行推理，人们都认为在这个过程的开始和结束都有一个统一的神。术语“宗教”、“宗教”和“宗教”都

被理解为指向这个原始的上帝。在”宗教”这一类别的早期使用中，基督教被理解为这一类别中唯一真正的成员，而犹太教和伊斯兰教则被描绘为对宗教或不完全是宗教的模仿。这套参考资料扩大到包括佛教和印度教等宗教的清单，但假定这些宗教都是崇拜上帝的一种方式

Today, all but the most theologically minded scholars have abandoned that view. Nonetheless, it is worth emphasizing that the closest thing scholars have to a commonly accepted list of religions is largely based on a theocentric concept of religion that we have since disowned without re-vising the list of religions itself. Our textbooks and courses thus preserve an archaic taxonomy rooted in an idea that its members shared an essence we have largely repudiated. Hence, no attempt to restore the category of religion according to a new set of organizing principles will recover the classical taxonomy that produces the common contemporary list of religions.

今天，除了最有神学头脑的学者外，所有人都放弃了这种观点。然而，值得强调的是，学者们所拥有的最接近于普遍接受的宗教清单的东西，在很大程度上是基于一种以神为中心的宗教概念，而我们此后在没有重新修订宗教清单本身的情况下就否认了这一概念。因此，我们的教科书和课程保留了一种古老的分类法，它植根于一种观念，即宗教信仰的成员拥有一种我们在很大程度上已经否定的本质。因此，根据一套新的组织原则恢复宗教类别的任何尝试都不会恢复产生当代共同宗教清单的古典分类法。

That the term “religion” has changed so much in the last thirty years suggests that there is no common meaning of the term shared by speakers of English, much less other languages. To clarify this point, Gottlob Frege famously provided an account of meaning in terms of a combination of

“宗教”这个词在过去三十年里发生了如此大的变化，这表明说英语的人对这个词没有共同的意思，更不用说其他语言了。为了澄清这一点，Gottlob Frege 提出了一个著名的解释，即用

1) sense (*Sinn*), that is to say, its description or cognitive significance; and 意义(*Sinn*)，即其描述或认知意义; 及

2) reference (*Bedeutung*), namely, the thing indicated or referred to by 指称(*Bedeutung*)，即由

the concept.²⁶ Religion has had a significantly different sense at different periods even within the history of the English language, and very few languages have shared that sense at any given time. Moreover, religion has referred to a shifting set of extensions—no pre--modern individual and few non--European languages have shared the same list of religions. Does everybody consider Scientology a religion? Evidently not, as some courts in France, Spain, and Germany have ruled that it is actually a profit--making venture only masquerading as a religion.²⁷ According to this account of meaning, *religion* is a problem because across different languages and epochs it lacks both a shared sense and a shared reference.

宗教在不同的时期有着不同的意义，甚至在英语的历史上也是如此，在任何特定的时期，只有极少数的语言拥有这种意义。此外，宗教还涉及到一系列不断变化的延伸——没有一个前现代个体和少数非欧洲语言拥有相同的宗教列表。是不是每个人都认为山达基是一种宗教？显然不是，因为法国、西班牙和德国的一些法院已经裁定，宗教实际上只是一种伪装成宗教的盈利性企业。根据这种对意义的解释，宗教是一个问题，因为不同语言和时代的宗教既缺乏共同的意义，也缺乏共同的参照。

The importance of these shifts goes beyond mere scholarly pedantry. “Religion” has consistently changed in recent times because its definition is a valuable territory for anyone to possess. The pace of change has only intensified. At least since 9/11, much of the globe has been inundated with competing proposals that the boundaries of religion should be adjusted. In the United States, for instance, language from the anti--cult movement, meant to delegitimize claims to the special rights due to *religions*, has been increasingly applied to fundamentalist Christianity by the secular Left, to Islam by the “Judeo--Christian” and secular Right, and to both by ascendant New Atheists. In parallel, religious exemptions have been increasingly weaponized by conservatives to continue to litigate culture war issues that had otherwise been settled by popular will (e.g., contraceptive mandates, same--sex marriage, and so on). Taken together this has meant both raised stakes for redefining religion in a way that suits a particular group’s interests and correspondingly significant shifts in the meaning of the category.

这些转变的重要性不仅仅是学术上的迁腐。近年来，“宗教”一直在变化，因为它的定义是任何人都可以拥有的宝贵领域。变化的步伐越来越快。至少自从 911 事件以来，全球大部分地区都充斥着关于宗教界限应该调整的相互竞争的建议。例如，在美国，反邪教运动旨在使宗教特殊权利要求非法化的措辞，越来越多地被世俗左派用于基督教基要主义，被“犹太-基督教”和世俗右派用于伊斯兰教，并被方兴未艾的新无神论者用于这两个方面。与此同时，宗教豁免也越来越多地被保守派武器化，以继续诉诸文化战争问题，而这些问题本来是通过民意解决的(例如，

避孕规定、同性婚姻等等)。综上所述，这既意味着以符合特定群体利益的方式重新定义宗教的利害关系增加，也意味着这一类别的含义发生了相应的重大变化。

Looked at a little bit differently, because “religion” has a central organizing function in many contemporary categorizations and common object language vocabularies, it won’t work to pretend “religion” is simply a metalanguage term or redescriptive scholarly category and redefine it according to some baroque scholarly criteria. The gap between a scholarly understanding of religion and its function in various cultural lexicons is too great. Nor is it sufficient to merely track its appearance in a set of object language texts, precisely because when English speakers were using the word “religion” even two centuries ago it did not mean either what scholars or what English speakers today understand it to mean—besides which, classical scholars were often imposing the term upon groups of practices that had no analogous categorical terms that applied to them.

从不同的角度来看，因为“宗教”在许多当代的分类和共同的对象语言词汇中具有核心的组织功能，假装“宗教”只是一个元语言术语或重新描述的学术范畴，并根据一些巴洛克式的学术标准重新定义它是行不通的。学术界对宗教的理解与其在各种文化词汇中的作用之间的差距太大了。仅仅追踪宗教在一系列客观语言文本中的出现是不够的，因为即使在两个世纪以前，当英语使用者使用“宗教”一词时，它并不意味着学者们或今天的英语使用者们理解它的意思，除此之外，古典学者们经常把这一术语强加于没有适用于他们的类似绝对术语的一组实践中。

Religion might therefore seem to be nearly untranslatable. Brent Nongbri, for instance, has argued that no pre--modern terms can be de-fensibly translated as “religion” because to do so necessarily excludes important meanings of the older terminology and sneaks in modern as-

因此，宗教似乎几乎是无法翻译的。例如，布伦特·农布里(Brent Nongbri)认为，没有哪个前现代术语可以被辩护性地翻译为“宗教”，因为这样做必然会排除旧术语的重要含义，而现代术语则悄悄地被翻译为“宗教”

sumptions.²⁸ But even seventeenth-century English speakers presumed a different sense of the word than a typical native English speaker does today, and necessarily suggested a different reference set. So that would mean that if the lines “It is religion that doth make vows kept, but thou has sworn against religion” were not written in English, even according to a broadly Fregian account of meaning we could not translate “religion” as religion.²⁹ Even works from thirty years ago or in different contemporary English-speaking communities might suggest the same problem. On these grounds, “religion” in English could not be translated into English if it weren’t already in English. This might seem to be a paradox.

但即使是 17 世纪的英语使用者也假定这个词的含义与今天典型的英语母语使用者不同，因此必然建议使用不同的参照系。因此，这就意味着，如果“宗教使誓言得以遵守，但你发誓反对宗教”这句话不是用英语写的，即使根据广泛的弗吉尼亚语的解释，我们也不能将“宗教”翻译成宗教。即使是 30 年前的作品，或者在不同的当代英语社区，也可能暗示着同样的问题。基于这些理由，如果“宗教”在英语中还没有被翻译成英语，那么它就不能被翻译成英语。这似乎是一个悖论。

I want to note a further issue with the category of religion that is not just a problem of translation. As I have demonstrated elsewhere, the introduction of the category of “religion” into a culture that lacks such a concept produces demonstrable and sweeping changes—intellectual, legal, and cultural.³⁰ In brief, the category has globalized such that discourse about “religion” is now accessible in every corner of the world, co-created by centuries of self-identifying secularists or religionists, as well as colonial administrators, diplomats, missionaries, subalterns, scholars, newspaper editors, and anyone else who joined the conversation in any given language. This has led toward massive institutional changes and legal shifts, and even produced a new discourse on religion. Few can resist holding an opinion on religion; the idea of needing such an opinion, which was largely nonexistent around 1700, has now become nearly universal. Concurrently, the category has also become heterogeneous to the point that any illusion of universal agreement on the boundaries of religion can no longer be maintained.

我想指出一个关于宗教范畴的进一步问题，这不仅仅是翻译的问题。正如我在其他地方已经证明的那样，将“宗教”这一类别引入一种缺乏这一概念的文化，会产生明显和全面的变化——包括知识、法律和文化。简言之，这一类别已经全球化，现在世界各个角落都可以听到关于“宗教”的讨论，这是几个世纪以来自我认同的世俗主义者或宗教主义者，以及殖民地行政人员、外交官、传教士、副官、学者、报纸编辑和任何以任何特定语言参与讨论的其他人共同创造的。这导致了巨大的制度变革和法律转变，甚至产生了一种关于宗教的新话语。很少有人能抗拒对

宗教持有自己的观点;需要这样一种观点的想法,在1700年前后基本上不存在,现在几乎已经变得普遍。目前,这个范畴也变得多样化,以至于任何关于宗教界限的普遍一致的幻想都不能再维持下去了。

To this, I would add that much of the genealogy of the category of “religion” is still unwritten. We have seen that *religion* is a transnational category, intertwined with imperialism, colonialism, and global systems of power. But like many other master categories, scholars have been very invested in placing religion on one side or another of what amounts to an East–West binary (now in the name of anti–Orientalism). Yet, as I have been arguing for some time, most putatively Western concepts were not exclusively Western. Bluntly put, Europeans have had a long history of claiming credit for things that they did not invent. Postcolonial neo–Orientalism rejects too much when it states that the concept of religion is *exclusively* European in its formulation (even if religion is heavily weighted toward a Christian prototype). For this reason, there are ongoing reappraisals of the extent of the “Europeanness” of *religion* (and ancillary concepts like *secularity* and *science*) and the recovery of the voices of non–European actors who helped form all of these concepts.³¹

除此之外,我还要补充一点,关于“宗教”这一类别的许多家谱仍然是不成文的。我们已经看到,宗教是一种跨国的血腥美食,与帝国主义、殖民主义和全球权力体系交织在一起。但是像许多其他的大师范畴一样,学者们一直非常热衷于把宗教放在相当于东西方二元论(现在以反东方主义的名义)的一边或另一边。然而,正如我已经争论了一段时间的那样,大多数假定的西方概念并不完全是西方的。直截了当地说,欧洲人长期以来一直声称他们没有发明的东西是他们的功劳。当后殖民新东方主义声称宗教的概念在其表述中完全是欧洲的(即使宗教在很大程度上倾向于基督教原型)时,它拒绝了太多的东西。因此,目前正在重新评估宗教的“欧洲性”的程度(以及世俗性和科学等辅助概念),并恢复帮助形成所有这些概念的非欧洲行为者的声音



“Religion” has been under attack as a concept since before “postmodernism” is supposed to have appeared. Even so, the architecture of the critique is familiar. Religion is shown to have no essence; it is shown to be a modern, predominantly European concept; and it is shown to be in contradiction to the very thing it claims to study. It then might seem unclear how to move forward if the definition of religion is broken as well as the most commonly identified group of religions—a taxonomy compiled and organized according to a concept of religion we have long since rejected.

在“后现代主义”应该出现之前，“宗教”作为一个概念就一直受到攻击。即便如此，批判的架构还是很熟悉的。宗教被证明是没有本质的；它被证明是一个现代的，主要是欧洲的概念；它被证明是与它声称研究的事物相矛盾的。那么，如果宗教的定义以及最常见的宗教群体——根据我们早已拒绝接受的宗教概念编纂和组织的分类学——被打破，那么如何向前迈进似乎就不清楚了。

Before concluding this section, I want to note that some articulations of “religion” already anticipate a reading of postmodernism in which all positions or forms of knowledge are reduced to belief. As we have already observed, labeling something religion while locating it beyond the reach of reason and therefore marking it as unassailable also reduces it to a relativist position. Quentin Meillassoux describes a central feature of our current moment by coining the term “*enreligement*” (enreligioning), adding that the “modern man is he who, even as he stripped Christianity of the ideological (metaphysical) pretension that its belief system was superior to all others, has delivered himself body and soul to the idea that all belief systems are equally legitimate.”³² He is arguing that what used to be considered conflicting knowledges or intellectual positions are now presented as equally valid beliefs. Accordingly, many of the things Smith says about religion can be said about the other objects in the academy. Instead of ubiquitous secularization, everything has been “enreligioned”—turned into religion, but in the belittling sense in which everything is merely one faith among others. Indeed, have not expressions like “faith in science” and “faith in reason” become widely repeated clichés? Meanwhile, the “beliefs” of professional climate scientists are placed in the public discourse on equal footing with those of amateur global warming skeptics. This is not a new observation, but “religion” has become our preferred idiom for communicating not a dogmatism, but a relativism. It is my intuition therefore that Religious Studies is the key to finding our way forward.

在结束这一部分之前，我想指出，“宗教”的一些表述已经预见到后现代主义的解读，在后现代主义中，所有的立场或知识形式都被归结为信仰。正如我们已经观察到的，给一些事物贴上宗教的标签，同时把它定位在超越理性的范围之外，因此把它标记为无懈可击，这也将它降低到一个相对主义的立场。甘丹·梅亚苏(quentin meillassoux)创造了“宗教化”(enreligement)这个词，描述了我们当前时刻的一个核心特征。他补充说，“现代人就是这样一个人，即使他剥夺了基督教的意识形态(形而上学)的自命不凡，即它的信仰体系优于其他所有体系的自命不凡，但他却将自己的身体和灵魂奉献给了所有信仰体系都同样合法的理念。”他认为，过去被认为是相互冲突的知识或知识立场，现在被提出作为同样有效的信仰。因此，史密斯关于宗教的许多说法可以用来形容学院里的其他对象。非但没有普遍的世俗化，所有事物都被“宗教化”——变成了宗教，但在贬低的意义上，所有事物都只是其他信仰中的一种。事实上，“对科学的信仰”和“对理性的信仰”这样的表达方式不是已经成为广泛重复的陈词滥调了吗？与此同时，专业气候科学家的“信仰”被置于与业余全球变暖怀疑论者同地位的公共话语中。这并不是一个新的观察，但是“宗教”已经成为我们交流的首选用语，不是教条主义，而是相对主义。因此，我的直觉告诉我，宗教研究是找到我们前进道路的关键。

That said, my prescription for Religious Studies is a purgative. We can-not continue to hold onto the innateness or uniqueness of “religion.” All attempts to reaffirm the contours of our discipline by producing alter-nate theories of “religion” or replacing “religion” with near synonyms are doomed to failure. Instead, I think the discipline needs to be reorganized around the suspension of religion as a fundamental object. From the out-set I want to distinguish this suspension from the simple act of rejecting

也就是说，我的宗教研究处方是一剂泻药。我们不能继续坚持“宗教”的先天性或独特性通过提出“宗教”的另类理论或用近似同义词代替“宗教”来重申我们学科的轮廓的所有尝试都注定要失败。相反，我认为这个学科需要重新组织起来，停止将宗教作为一个基本对象。从一开始，我就想区分这种暂停和简单的拒绝行为

the object as such. To completely delete the term *religion*—the ostensible goal of a bare secularism—is self--defeating because to do so would undermine the concept of the secular itself. We need rather simultaneously to recognize the contingency of religion and to track the causal processes that anchor its properties. This will permit us to see how not just “religion,” but all the disciplinary master categories have been produced. Re-stated, I aim to disintegrate the object—to forgo the definition of “religion,” to give such definitions up as unnecessary.

物体本身。完全删除宗教这一术语——赤裸裸的世俗主义的表面目标——是弄巧成拙的，因为这样做会破坏世俗本身的概念。我们需要同时认识到宗教的偶然性，并跟踪锚定其属性的因果过程。这将允许我们看到不仅仅是“宗教”，而且所有的学科大师类别是如何产生的。重申一下，我的目标是分解这个对象——放弃“宗教”的定义，放弃这些不必要的定义。

But first I want to show how the critique of “religion” was but one of a similar set of challenges to different disciplinary objects in the same period. We need to look at these because we haven’t even seen yet all the possible critiques of “religion.” Equally importantly, it will turn out that the way to study “religion” is to locate it among all the other shattered scholarly categories. Standing on the rubble of all the combined categories should put us in a position to avoid the pitfalls of both false essentialism and skeptical historicization. In abstract terms, after the categories have been fractured, we can see what they have been hiding and discover a new basis for a reconstructed humanities and social sciences.

但首先我想展示的是，对“宗教”的批判，只是同一时期对不同学科对象的一系列相似挑战之一。我们需要关注这些问题，因为我们还没有看到所有可能的对“宗教”的批评同样重要的是，研究“宗教”的方法是把它放在所有其他支离破碎的学术类别中。站在所有这些组合类别的废墟上，我们应该能够避免错误的本质主义和怀疑的历史化的陷阱。从抽象的角度来说，在这些范畴被分割之后，我们可以看到它们所隐藏的东西，并为重建人文社会科学找到一个新的基础。

2.2 The End of Art

2.2 艺术的终结

The objects approach zero as their theory approaches infinity, so that virtually all there is at the end is theory, art having finally become vaporized in a dazzle of pure thought about itself, and remaining, as it were, solely as the object of its own theoretical consciousness. . . . Art had come to an end.

当他们的理论接近无穷时，这些物体接近于零，所以实际上所有的最终都是理论，艺术最终在关于自身的纯粹思想的眩晕中蒸发了，并且保持着，可以说，仅仅作为它自己的理论意识的对象。艺术已经走到了尽头。

Art hur Danto, "The End of Art," in *The Philosophical Disenfranchisement of Art*

艺术的终结——《艺术的哲学解放》中的

“艺术的终结”

Art was one of the first scholarly master categories to begin unraveling.³³ At the dawn of the twentieth century, various artists started producing anti--art intended to defy notions of authorship and to attack the category of art itself.³⁴ For instance, in the mid--1910s, Dadaists began buying previously manufactured objects—like coatracks, snow shovels, and urinals— and declaring them “readymade” art.³⁵ As the Dadaists became increasingly famous, it is no surprise that philosophers found themselves forced to respond to these provocations. In this respect the critique of art initiated a tradition of autocritique, setting the terms for many later acts of demolition.

33. 在 20 世纪初，许多艺术家开始创作反艺术作品，意在挑战作者的观念，并攻击艺术这一类别本身。34. 例如，在 1910 年代中期，达达主义者开始购买以前制造的物品，如衣帽架、雪铲和小便池，并宣称它们是“现成的”艺术品。在这方面，艺术批判开创了自我批判的传统，为后来的许多破坏行为设定了条件。

The most influential early work in this line was Morris Weitz’s “The Role of Theory in Aesthetics” (1956); it is worth discussing on its own terms because it provides a critique that scholars in other fields will likely find

这方面最有影响力的早期作品是莫里斯·韦茨的《美学中理论的作用》(1956)，它值得讨论，因为它提供了其他领域的学者可能会发现的批判

eerily familiar. Weitz begins by noting that aesthetics has traditionally been preoccupied with producing different answers to the question “what is art?” He argues that this whole line of approach is misguided because it falsely presumes that works of art share a common essence or a common nature. If one looks at the diversity of works considered to be art—e.g., paintings to ballet to sculptures to piano concertos to signed urinals—it is easy to see that there are no necessary and sufficient conditions for membership in the category. No matter how you define *art*, the definition will end up either too narrow and exclude works commonly recognized as art, or too broad and include things not generally recognized as art. There is no particular set of features or properties that can serve to characterize and distinguish “art” from everything else. There are no clear boundaries to the category. Art cannot be defined. Thus, Weitz concludes, a theory of art is logically impossible.³⁶

奇怪的熟悉。韦茨首先指出，传统上，美学一直致力于为“什么是艺术？”这个问题提供不同的答案他认为，这整条路线是错误的，因为它错误地假定艺术作品具有共同的本质或共同的本质。如果我们看看被认为是艺术的作品多样性——例如，绘画、芭蕾舞、雕塑、钢琴协奏曲、有签名的小便池——很容易看出，没有必要和充分的条件让我们成为这个类别的成员。无论你怎么定义艺术，这个定义最终要么过于狭窄，排除了通常被认为是艺术的作品，要么过于宽泛，包括了通常不被认为是艺术的东西。没有一组特定的特征或属性可以用来描述和区分“艺术”和其他任何东西。这个范畴没有明确的界限。艺术无法被定义。因此，韦茨总结道，艺术理论在逻辑上是不可能的

Instead of asking “what is art?” Weitz suggests that philosophers should be asking: “what kind of a concept is art?” His answer is that art is an “open concept,” by which he primarily means that it is a *family-resemblance* concept in Ludwig Wittgenstein’s sense of the expression. In *Philosophical Investigations* (1953), Wittgenstein had famously argued that many general concepts have a *family-resemblance* quality. Using the example of “games,” he observed that membership in the category is not determined by necessary and sufficient conditions or an exhaustive set of properties common to all games.³⁷ Card games, ball games, and video games do not share a common essence. Rather, games have various asymmetrical strands of similarities, just as my daughter might seem to share certain features with her relatives, such as having green eyes like her mother, black hair like me, a temperament unlike either parent but resembling her paternal grand-mother’s, and so on. All in all, with the benefit of historical hindsight, it is possible to see one whole version of the skeptical critique telegraphed in Wittgenstein’s late writings, and indeed Wittgenstein was a frequent reference in criticisms of the disciplinary objects before his position was usurped by Saussure.

而不是问“什么是艺术?”Weitz 建议哲学家应该问:“什么样的概念是艺术?”他的回答是,艺术是一个“开放的概念”,他的主要意思是,在路德维希·维特根斯坦的表达意义上,它是一个家庭相似的概念。在 1953 年出版的《哲学调查》(Philosophical Investigations)一书中,维特根斯坦提出了一个著名的观点,即许多一般概念都具有家族相似性。以“游戏”为例,他发现该类别的成员资格并不是由必要和充分的条件或所有游戏共有的一套详尽的属性决定的。³⁷纸牌游戏、球类游戏和视频游戏并不具有共同的本质。相反,游戏有各种不对称的相似之处,就像我的女儿似乎与她的亲戚有某些相似之处,比如像她母亲一样有着绿色的眼睛,像我一样有着黑色的头发,性情与父母任何一方都不同,但与她祖母的相似,等等。总而言之,借助于历史的后见之明,我们有可能在维特根斯坦的晚期著作中看到整个版本的怀疑主义批评,事实上,在他的地位被索绪尔篡夺之前,维特根斯坦就是批评学科对象的常用参考。

Weitz argues that *art* is a family--resemblance concept in this respect. It is based in unevenly shared similarities rather than in a definition. By “open concept,” Weitz also means to indicate a distinctive feature of art—namely, that it is continuously evolving. Not only are new works of art constantly being produced, but artists are continually finding new ways to defy the very boundaries of art itself and to transgress the concept’s limits. In this respect, one cannot exhaustively enumerate either works of art or the conditions under which the concept of art is appropriate. As Weitz puts it, “the very expansive, adventurous character of art, its ever--

韦茨认为,在这方面,艺术是一个家庭相似的概念。它是基于不均匀的相似性,而不是一个定义。韦茨所说的“开放的概念”,也意味着艺术的一个区辨特征,即艺术在不断地发展。不仅新的艺术作品不断地被创作出来,而且艺术家们也不断地寻找新的方法来挑战艺术本身的极限,并且超越这个概念的极限。在这方面,我们不能详尽无遗地列举艺术作品或艺术概念适用的条件。正如韦茨所说,“艺术的非常广阔、冒险的特征,它的永恒

present changes and novel creations, makes it logically impossible to ensure any set of defining properties.”³⁸ Trust future artists to disrupt any possible definition of art.

目前的变化和新颖的创造，使得逻辑上不可能确定任何一套定义性质。”³⁸相信未来的艺术家能够颠覆任何可能的艺术定义。

To these standing critiques of the category Weitz adds the observation that art is also an “evaluative” concept. To call something a work of art is often as much an act of praise as it is a description. Defining *art* is therefore also often doing normative work in promoting the particular artistic movements or styles that appeals to the theorist. For instance, to say “this abstract painting is art” or “this signed coatrack is not art” is not so much a neutral description as a statement of aesthetic values or subjective judgment. Accordingly, this means that attempts to define art often serve covertly to justify the critic’s admiration for a particular work. By saying “art is successful harmonization,” what the theorist really means is that they find a particular painting aesthetically appealing. For Weitz, the history of aesthetics has been just an unfolding sequence of subjective evaluative preferences disguised as a philosophical quest for meaning.³⁹

除了这些对艺术这一范畴的长期批评外，韦茨还注意到，艺术也是一个“评价”的概念。称某件作品为艺术品，通常既是一种描述，也是一种赞扬。因此，定义艺术也常常是为了促进特定的艺术运动或风格，以吸引理论家的规范性工作。例如，说“这幅抽象画是艺术”或“这个签名衣架不是艺术”，与其说是一种中立的描述，不如说是一种审美价值或主观判断的陈述。因此，这意味着定义艺术的尝试往往秘密地证明批评家对某一特定作品的赞赏是正当的。通过说“艺术是成功的和谐”，理论家真正的意思是他们发现一幅特定的绘画具有美学上的吸引力。对于韦茨来说，美学的历史只是一系列主观评价偏好的展开序列，伪装成对意义的哲学追求

Weitz’s critique works on an immanent semantic level. He argues that there is no necessary and sufficient conditions for membership in the category *art*, *art* has no real essence, its meaning is always evolving, and objects hitherto classified as *art* have no inherent common features. Thus, he concludes that all attempts to define *art* are hopeless. The whole discipline of aesthetics—insofar as it understands itself to be more than a normative or subjective exploration of personal taste—is fundamentally misguided-.

韦茨的批判工作在一个内在的语义层面。他认为，没有必要和充分的条件，成员的范围血腥艺术，艺术没有真正的本质，它的意义总是演变，和对象迄今归类为艺术没有固有的共同特征。因此，他得出结论，所有定义艺术的尝试都是没有希望的。美学的整个学科——只要它认识到自己不仅仅是对个人品味的规范性或主观性的探索——从根本上就是被误导的。

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Naturally, there were many attempts to suture the wound in the category opened by Weitz and his peers. Following “The Role of Theory in Aesthetics,” a flurry of new ways to anchor the definition of art were proposed and generally refuted.⁴⁰ Scholars of religion might want to know that in the 1960s there was a renewed attempt to ground art in “aesthetic experience” (just as some religion scholars today are returning to notions of “religious experience” as essential). But this project failed, as it was observed that there were no psychological features common to all so-called aesthetic experiences and that it would be equally impossible to anticipate all the preconditions for such experiences in the future.⁴¹ Phenomenology could not be made to ground a category of art. Other attempts to define art (e.g., institutionally) were ultimately no more successful. If anything, the skeptical crisis deepened. It did so in part because in addition to the semantic critique above, theorists began presenting historicist and then cultural relativist challenges to the notion of *art*.

当然，在韦茨和他的同行开辟的范畴中，有很多尝试来缝合伤口。在“理论在美学中的作用”之后，人们提出了一系列新的方法来定义艺术，这些方法被普遍驳斥。⁴⁰宗教学者可能想知道，在 20 世纪 60 年代，人们重新尝试将艺术建立在“审美体验”的基础之上(就像今天的一些宗教学者正在回归“宗教体验”作为基本概念一样)。但是，这个项目失败了，因为有人指出，所有所谓的审美经验都没有共同的心理特征，同样也不可能预见到未来这种经验的所有先决条件。其他定义艺术的尝试(例如，制度上的)最终都没有更成功。如果说有什么区别的话，那就是怀疑论危机加深了。之所以如此，部分原因在于，除了上述的语义批判，理论家们开始向艺术的概念提出历史决定论和文化相对论的挑战。

The historicists' case against art was rooted in the observation that the
历史决定论者反对艺术的根源在于观察到

model for notions of art as an autonomous or *sui generis* category pre-sumed the unity of the collection of classical “fine arts”—painting, sculpture, music, poetry, dance, and architecture—but it was easy to see that this collection of arts was the product of an arbitrary culturally and historically contingent grouping.⁴² According to this line of reasoning, discussions of the meaning of “art” in general were inextricably bound up in an eighteenth-century European shift that repositioned disparate crafts under a common taxonomy as arts, and also produced a new orientation based not on their diverse materials and mode of production but on connoisseurship and notions of the experience of the observer. It was only then that debates around the meaning of art as such became possible. Hence, “art” appeared as a modern European invention.

艺术作为一个独立或自成一类的概念的模式假定了古典“美术”集合的统一性——绘画、雕塑、音乐、诗歌、舞蹈和建筑——但是很容易看出，这种艺术集合是一种武断的文化和他的托利偶然性集合的产物。根据这种推理，关于“艺术”一般意义的讨论不可避免地联系在十八世纪欧洲的一次转变中，这次转变将不同的手工艺重新定位在一个共同的艺术分类下，并且产生了一种新的取向，这种取向不是基于它们不同的材料和生产方式，而是基于对观察者经验的认识和概念。直到那时，围绕艺术本身的意义辩论才成为可能。因此，“艺术”作为现代欧洲的发明出现了。

Having historicized the conceptual category, it did not take long for a range of Euro--American scholars to argue that other cultures “don’t have our concept of art.”⁴³ Although imprecisely phrased, this conclusion followed logically from the Wittgensteinian and historicist critiques described above. When concepts were equated with definitions, it was possible to adjudicate whether definitions in different languages agreed. But having rejected definitions based on necessary and sufficient conditions, it became nearly impossible to figure out whether two family--resemblance categories were identical. Moreover, if *art* was not an autonomous category of human experience but an arbitrary cluster of “arts” that emerged only in a specific period of European history, then it was almost necessarily the case that other cultures would lack identical conceptual edifices.

将概念范畴历史化之后，很快就有一批欧美学者认为其他文化“没有我们的艺术概念”虽然措辞不精确，但这一结论逻辑上遵循了上述维特根斯坦和历史决定论批评的逻辑。当概念与定义等同时，可以判断不同语言的定义是否一致。但是拒绝了基于必要和充分条件的定义之后，要弄清楚两个家族相似性类别是否相同几乎是不可能的。此外，如果艺术不是人类经验的一个独立的范畴，而是仅仅在欧洲历史的一个特定时期出现的一组任意的“艺术”，那么几乎必然——特别是其他文化缺乏相同的概念大厦。

Finally, there was what one might think of as a Weberian or avant-garde critique of art. That critique observed that identifying something as “art” functions to separate it out or intensify the conceptual work that the processes of autonomization and differentiation undertake socially, so that there are now a set of special practices—legal, governmental—that no longer pertain to it.⁴⁴ Recast, to conceptualize something as “art” is to remove it from the everyday—to separate it from every other kind of social practice, to render it independent and in that sense transcendent. Art is supposed to have primarily an aesthetic rather than a functional role. Ordinary objects are considered tools, not art. Art becomes property of the museum and the gallery, something displayed instead of used. In response to this trend, the avant-garde attempted the reunification of *art* and *everyday life*, which meant that both terms had to dissolve.⁴⁵

最后，人们可能会认为这是一种韦伯式或先锋派的艺术批判。这种批评认为，将某种东西确定为“艺术”的作用是将它分离出来，或加强自主化和差异化进程在社会上进行的概念性工作，因此现在有一套不再属于它的特殊做法——法律的、政府的。艺术被认为主要是一种审美而不是一种功能性的角色。普通的物品被认为是工具，而不是艺术。艺术成为博物馆和画廊的财产，展示而不是使用。作为对这一趋势的回应，先锋派试图将艺术与日常生活统一起来，这意味着这两个术语都不得不解体。

The critique of art bears an uncanny resemblance to that of *religion*. Again, we see a pattern in which the concept is exposed as modern, culturally relative, normative, and in fundamental contradiction with its area of study. In the next section I explore the parameters of the autocritique as a genre and explain the strategies behind the destruction of the dis-

对艺术的批判与宗教有着惊人的相似之处。我们再次看到这样一种模式，在这种模式中，这个概念被暴露为现代的、文化上相对的、规范的，并且与其研究领域存在着根本的矛盾。在下一节中，我将探讨自我批判作为一种体裁的参数，并解释其背后的策略。

disciplinary object. After that section, I address the most obvious counter-strategy, which finds scholars appealing to Wittgenstein's notion of family-resemblance to save categories in decay. But this common quick fix is doomed to failure.

普通对象。在这一部分之后，我讨论最明显的反策略，它发现学者们对维特根斯坦的家族相似性概念的吸引力，以保存衰变中的类别。但是这种常见的快速解决办法注定要失败。

2.3 Strategies for Demolition

2.3 拆卸策略

Philosophy is a struggle against the bewitchment of our intellect by means of our language.

哲学是一场通过我们的语言来对抗我们智慧的魔力的斗争。

Ludwig Wittgenstein, *Philosophische Untersuchungen*
路德维希·维特根斯坦，哲学研究

Autocritique has a method. More, it has conventions and teachable poses. Such paradigm--demolishing has paradigms of its own. Like any genre, it follows more or less customary structures, patterns, and schemes. In truth, it is eminently iterable. If autocritique means turning a discipline on itself, in this section I take the next step by turning autocritique itself inward or providing an autocritique of autocritique. Again, art and religion were not the only categories to meet with their putative ends. Indeed, starting in the 1950s, various disciplines went through rounds of autocritique. They were articulated in different academic idioms, even though various critics were often unaware of each other. As a result, dissolving scholarly objects often defaulted haplessly into one another, e.g., religion scholars were rejecting "religion" in favor of "culture" at just the moment when anthropologists were swapping "culture" for "literature," itself increasingly out of favor with English professors, and so on.

自我批判有一种方法。更重要的是，它有惯例和可教的姿势。这样的范式推翻有它自己的范式。和其他任何流派一样，它或多或少遵循了一些习惯性的结构、模式和方案。事实上，它具有明显的可迭代性。如果自我批评意味着将一门学科转向自身，那么在本节中，我将自我批评本身转向内部，或者提供一种自我批评。同样，艺术和宗教并不是唯一符合其假定目的的范畴。事实上，从 20 世纪 50 年代开始，各种学科都经历了一轮又一轮的专制批判。它们被用不同的学术成语表达出来，尽管各种批评家通常并不了解彼此。因此，溶解的学术对象往往不幸地默认为彼此，例如，宗教学者拒绝“宗教”，而赞成“文化”的时刻，正当人类学家交换“文化”的“文学”，本身越来越不受欢迎的英语教授，等等。

These various critiques deployed an overlapping set of intellectual moves, and it is possible to abstract from them a set of strategies for de-destroying disciplinary objects (for the sources from which the following is generalized, see the mother of all endnotes).⁴⁶ To be clear, the epistemo-logical and rhetorical strategies underpinning autocritique, though routinized, are no less valid for that. Do not mistake my tone: I am deadly serious. Despite the intentional provocation of what follows, I do not think these strategies are mere sophistry. Rather, they rest on real philosophical issues, which tell us something fundamental about the way we have been misunderstanding categories and their relationship to the world. In what follows, I will demonstrate how this works—offering what is basically an anarchist cookbook or deconstructive dojo for subversive academics.

这些不同的批评运用了一系列重叠的智力活动，从中可以抽象出一系列摧毁学科对象的策略(对于下面所概括的来源，参见所有尾注之母)。⁴⁶ 需要明确的是，支撑自动批评的认识论和修辞策略，尽管被揉成一团，但对于这一点同样有效。不要误解我的语气：我是非常严肃的。尽管接下来的挑衅是有意的，但我不认为这些策略仅仅是诡辩。相反，它们基于真正的哲学问题，这些哲学问题告诉我们一些基本的东西，关于我们一直误解的范畴及其与世界的关系。在接下来的文章中，我将演示这是如何起作用的——为颠覆性的学者提供一本基本上是无政府主义的食谱或解构主义的道场。

2.3.1 Immanent Critique

2.3.1 内在批判

(I--1) Step one—collect competing definitions. Nearly every scholarly master--object has been defined in multiple and contradictory ways. In

(I-1) 第一步——收集相互矛盾的定义。几乎每一个学术上的主要对象都有多种相互矛盾的定义

some cases, you can list hundreds of rival attempts to pin down the meaning of the object in question. A survey undertaken in 1952 suggested that “culture” had as many as 164 different definitions.⁴⁷ Often, subdisciplines operate under implicitly different or unexamined notions of the disciplinary objects that give shape to their particular subject matter. You can begin the autocritique by calling out these inconsistencies. Do literary scholars study a special class of writing called “literature”? (Forgive the scare quotes; they are indigenous to the mode.) Or do they study the figurative and rhetorical dimensions of all writing, or all language? Do literary scholars write about film? But if so, then in what sense is film “literature”? Many disciplines are divided into distinct camps that represent both conflicting notions of their master--object and rival approaches to the discipline. Disciplines are defined by their shared objects of inquiry; but if no one can agree what that shared object is then perhaps it isn't shared after all.

在某些情况下，你可以列出数以百计的相互竞争的尝试，以确定有关对象的含义。1952年进行的一项调查表明，“文化”有多达164种不同的定义。你可以通过指出这些不一致性来开始自我批判。文学学者是否研究一类特殊的文学作品——“文学”？（请原谅这些惊人的引用，它们是这种模式的土生土长之处或者他们研究的是所有写作或所有语言的比喻和修辞维度？文学学者会写关于电影的文章吗？但如果是这样的话，那么在什么意义上电影是“文学”呢？许多学科被划分为不同的阵营，这些阵营既代表了他们主客体的相互冲突的概念，也代表了该学科相互竞争的方法。规程是由它们共享的查询对象定义的；但是如果没有人能够同意共享对象是什么，那么它可能根本就不是共享的。

(I-2) Step two—expose internal contradictions. Having collected definitions, identify the *inherent contradictions* of the scholarly object. Demonstrate that the object cannot be captured with a classical definition based on necessary and sufficient conditions. You can show that attempting to fix the definition either forces unintended inclusions or excludes commonly accepted members of the category. Every attempt to define “society” seems to leave out some human groupings that in frustratingly inchoate ways one knows to be “societies.” The object will also have vague boundaries and implicit gray areas. Policing the conceptual object will appear fraught. It will be possible to demonstrate that the object's common definition (intension) and its reference (extension) are irreconcilably out of sync. No definition of religion generates the list of commonly accepted religions. “A set of beliefs about God” might sound like a succinct definition of religion until you realize that it forces you to exclude Buddhism, Confucianism, and many other “religions.” The same phenomena will sometimes count as members of the category and sometimes not. Sometimes the coarctate is art and sometimes it is a place to hang your jacket. The taxonomy will be unstable or at least multiple. Many objects will also be shown to contain inherent paradoxes, or

at least dialectical tensions. For all these reasons, it will be possible to argue that there is no single essence common to all generally accepted members of the category. The notion that the disciplinary object is an irreducible *sui generis* phenomenon or a “natural kind” will collapse.

(I-2)第二步——揭露内部矛盾。收集定义后，确定学术对象的内在矛盾。Dem 证明，这个对象不能被一个基于必要和充分条件的经典定义所捕获。你可以证明，尝试修正定义要么迫使意想不到的包含，要么排除普遍接受的类别成员。每一次试图定义“所以社会”的尝试似乎都遗漏了一些人类群体，这些人类群体以令人沮丧的自相矛盾的方式被人们称为“社会”这个对象也会有模糊的界限和隐含的灰色地带。监管概念对象将显得令人担忧。这将有可能证明对象的共同定义(内涵)和它的引用(外延)是不可调和的不同步的。没有一个宗教的定义能够列出普遍接受的宗教。“一套关于上帝的信仰”可能听起来像是对宗教的简洁定义，直到你意识到它迫使你排除佛教、儒家思想和其他许多“宗教”同样的现象有时会被认为是宗教的一部分，有时则不是。有时候衣架是艺术品，有时候衣架是挂外套的地方。分类法是不稳定的，或者至少是多重的。许多对象也会被证明包含固有的悖论，或者至少是辩证的张力。出于所有这些原因，我们可以争辩说，这个范畴中所有被普遍接受的成员都没有一个共同的本质。认为学科对象是不可约的自成一类的现象-非或“自然类型”的概念将会崩溃。

(I-3) Step three—disaggregate the concept. Once you have rejected definitions based on necessary and sufficient conditions, your next move is to say the same things about your disciplinary object that Wittgenstein said about “games.” In other words, you can contend that the conceptual object should be seen as the product of family--resemblance or heteroge-

(I-3)第三步一分解概念。一旦你拒绝了基于必要和充分条件的定义，你的下一步行动就是对你的纪律对象说出与 Wittgenstein 所说的“游戏”相同的事情换句话说，你可以认为概念对象应该被看作是家族相似性或异质性的产物

neous and semi--overlapping networks of similarity.⁴⁸ Once you have rejected, as excluding too little, the definition of “long prose fiction” for “novel,” you can go on to argue that “novels” share *some* but *never all* of the following features: length, fiction, prose form, multiplots, the forgo-ing of supernatural plot devices, an abundance of realistically described detail, multiple voices, and so on. You can leave undertheorized the exact number of features required to be a member of the category.

48. 一旦你因为排除太少而否定了“长篇散文小说”对“小说”的定义，你可以继续争辩说，“小说”具有一些但绝不是所有的以下特征：长度、小说、散文形式、多重情节、放弃超自然的情节设计、大量现实描述的细节、多重声音等等。你可以不去理论化地确定成为这个类别中的一员所需要的特征的确切数量。

Variations on this theme often result in a discipline formulating a new notion of concepts in general, including: an “open concept,” a concept with an “open texture,” an “essentially contested concept,” a “family-- resemblance concept,” a “prototypically centered taxonomy,” or a “poly-thetic category.”⁴⁹ Once an object reaches this state of disaggregation it will be possible to show that self--consciously opening the concept in any of the above modes produces more rather than fewer contradictions. Open concepts expand voraciously, the open texture of language makes it im-possible to bound or adjudicate, essentially contested concepts turn out not to have essences, polythetic categories decompose into competing groupings, family--resemblance presumes the very thing it is trying to ex-plain (discussed below), and so on.

这个主题的变化通常会导致一个学科形成一个新的概念，包括：一个“开放的概念”，一个“开放纹理”的概念，一个“本质上有争议的概念”，一个“家族相似性概念”，一个“原型中心分类法”，或者一个“多学科范畴”⁴⁹。一旦一个物体达到这种分解状态，就有可能表明，以上述任何一种方式自觉地打开概念会产生更多而不是更少的矛盾。开放的概念如饥似渴地扩张，语言的开放结构使得不可能约束或判断，本质上有争议的概念最终没有本质，多元范畴分解成相互竞争的群体，家族相似性假定了它正试图解释的事情(下面讨论)，等等。

(I--4) Step four—collapse the implicit binary. Even without all the preceding steps, it is possible to show that formation of the scholarly object required excluding another term (or terms), and this act of exclusion will turn out to be partial or incomplete. Instead of a Wittgensteinian notion of concepts defined by similarity, an alternate route is to grant a quasi-- Saussurean notion of the concept as differential—but this will introduce its own set of contradictions. The notion of “culture” is predicated on a distinction between “culture” and “nature,” even as numerous examples contravene this very division (the colony of bacteria growing on a petri dish are a “culture”), calling into question the term’s meaning and boundaries. Usually you can

show that the binary tension inherent in the category is loaded and gets its effect from other implicit antagonisms. The notion of “society” rests on an opposition between the “social” and the “individual,” in which the “individual” stands for autonomy, free will, and the blank slate of nature, over and against the “social,” understood as organization, rules, and the civilizing process. It is a value--laden opposition whose core un-ravels under closer examination. Crucially, insofar as one defines concepts differentially, these very distinctions will come to seem unmaintainable.

(I-4)第四步一折叠隐式二进制文件。即使没有前面提到的所有步骤，也有可能表明学术对象的形成需要排除其他术语(或术语)，而这种排除行为将被证明是部分的或不完整的。不同于维特根斯坦的相似性概念，另一种方法是赋予这个概念一个准索绪尔式的微分概念——但这将引入自身的一系列矛盾。”文化”的概念是建立在”文化”和”自然”之间的区别之上的，尽管有许多例子与这种区别相抵触(培养皿中生长的细菌群就是”文化”)，使人们对这个术语的含义和界限产生了质疑。通常情况下，你可以表明这个范畴内固有的二元张力是加载的，并从其他隐含的对抗中获得效果。“社会”的概念建立在“社会”和“个人”之间的对立之上，在这种对立中，“个人”代表自治、自由意志和自然的空白石板，而不是和“社会”相对立，后者被理解为组织、规则和文明化过程。社会主义是一种充满价值观的反对派，其核心在更仔细的考察下被拆散。至关重要的是，只要一个人对概念有不同的定义，这些区别就会变得难以维持。

(I-5) Step five—introduce nominalist skepticism (optional). An alter-nate route to the immanent critique of the category is by way of a nomi-nalist challenge to abstraction. You can always argue that a scholarly mas-ter category subsumes a heterogeneity of individual phenomena under an immaterial concept. Be relentlessly specific. There is no such thing as

(I-5)第五步——引入唯名论怀疑论(可选)。通向对范畴的内在批判的另一条路径是通过唯名论对抽象的挑战。你总是可以争辩说，一个学术硕士范畴包含了一个非物质概念下的个体现象的异质性。要无情地具体。根本就没有

“the economy,” which cannot be studied as such. There are only millions of “irreducibly”—and note that word; the nominalist will use it often—millions of irreducibly distinct instances of production and exchange: country-dwellers in Vermont selling firewood by the roadside; Midwest-ers trading gifts at Christmas; freelance accountants balancing books in their home offices; robot factories making mirrorless cameras in China; and on and endlessly on.

经济，这是不能被研究的。只有数百万个“不可减少的”——注意这个词；唯名论者会经常使用这个词——数百万个不可减少的不同的生产和交换实例：佛蒙特州的乡村居民在路边卖柴火；中西部的人在圣诞节交换礼物；自由会计师在家里的办公室里平衡账目；在中国生产无镜相机的机器人工厂；以及无穷无尽的生产和交换。

Often the analytical object can be unsettled by showing that the abstraction is itself reified or granted an artificial coherence. Nobody lives in “society”; there are no institutions or laws that obtain for societies in the aggregate. We never encounter a “society” in total or as such. We inhabit distinct social formations, on the understanding that this term is itself a placeholder for the specification that the concept demands—an itemized analysis of *this* as opposed to any other social formation. It is possible to argue that the scholarly category is the result of a misplaced concreteness that mistakes an abstraction for a concrete reality.⁵⁰ Quantitative data often masks qualitative differences. What it means to identify as “Hispanic” is not the same in Florida as in Texas. When you say that the “state” is hostile to the dispossessed, what do you mean by “the state”? Is the state a simple or perhaps not-so-simple thing, a concrete, bounded set of institutions—centralized institutions, in the first instance, housed in the government districts of the nation’s capital? Or is it a distributed process and power, and so not a thing at all, present in every locality, coextensive with the national geography, interwoven with the life of all its citizens, themselves its permanent and mutually surveilling deputies?

通常，分析对象可以通过表明抽象本身具体化或赋予人为的一致性而不稳定。没有人生活在“社会”中；没有任何机构或法律为社会总体获得。我们从来没有遇到过一个完整的或者类似的“社会”。我们习惯于不同的社会形态，基于这样一种理解，即这个术语本身就是概念所要求的规范的占位符——一个与其他任何社会形态相反的对这个概念的分项分析。有人可能会说，学术范畴是错位的具体性的结果，将抽象误认为具体的现实。定量数据往往掩盖了质的差异。确定“西班牙裔”的含义在佛罗里达州和德克萨斯州是不一样的。当你说“国家”对一无所有(小说)的人怀有敌意时，“国家”是什么意思？国家是一个简单的或者也许不那么简单的东西，一个具体的、有界限的制度集合吗？首先，中央集权的制度设在国家首都的政府辖区内？或者它是一个分散的过程和权力，因此

根本不是一个东西，存在于每一个地方，与国家地理共存，与所有公民的生活交织在一起，他们自己就是永久和相互监督的代表？

If all else fails, you can always charge other scholars with confounding the model for the thing being modeled, or confusing the map for the territory. Society is only the product of the sociologists' research. Isolated "words" are a fiction of linguistic analysis. Economists, convinced that the market is the "great aggregator of all information," are committed to arguing that no model can match the market in this regard. The model of the market will always know less than the market and should not be mistaken for it. This leads to the charge in a host of disciplines that their own disciplinary objects are merely scholarly projections and not things in the world.⁵¹

如果所有其他方法都失败了，您总是可以指控其他学者混淆了正在建模的事物的模型，或者混淆了领域的映射。社会只是社会学家研究的产物。孤立的“词语”是语言分析的虚构。经济学家们坚信，市场是“所有信息的巨大聚合体”，他们坚持认为，在这方面，没有任何模型能与市场匹敌。市场模型总是比市场知道的少，不应该被误认为是市场模型。这导致许多学科指责他们自己的学科对象仅仅是学术上的预测，而不是世界上的事物

2.3.2 Relativizing Critique

2.3.2 相对化批判

An alternate route to the disintegration of the scholarly object is to relativize it by provincializing it either historically or culturally. Often, though not always, these moves will go hand in hand.

解体学术对象的另一条途径是通过历史或文化地方化来使其重新具体化。通常，虽然并不总是如此，这些举措会齐头并进。

(R-1) Step one—historicize. You can begin by analyzing the object's

(R-1) 第一步——历史化。你可以从分析对象开始

etymology. Show that the general term used in the discipline has had fundamentally different meanings in different historical moments, and that its recurrence in different periods masks fractures, ruptures, and important conceptual differences. The term “science” entered English and French in the twelfth century as a synonym for “knowledge,” but it referred in particular to logically demonstrable truths based on reasoning from first principles. “Science” implied logic in contrast to empirical experimentation. Experimental knowledge was regarded as probabilistic, dependent on imperfect senses, and accordingly uncertain. So, a “scientific experiment” would have been a contradiction. But in the nineteenth century, the meaning and status of philosophy and science switched. The natural sciences, rather than philosophy, were seen as the paragon of certain knowledge.⁵²

词源学。表明在学科中使用的一般术语在不同的历史时期具有根本不同的含义，并且它在不同时期的重复掩盖了断裂、断裂和重要的概念差异。“科学”一词在 12 世纪进入英语和法语，作为“知识”的同义词，但它特别指的是基于第一原则推理的逻辑上可证明的真理。与经验实验相比，“科学”意味着逻辑。实验知识被认为是概率性的，依赖于不完美的感官，因此是不确定的。因此，“科学实验”将是一个矛盾。但在 19 世纪，哲学和科学的意义和地位发生了转变。自然科学，而不是哲学，被视为某些知识的典范

It should also be emphasized that the historicist critique does not have to take the form of intellectual or discourse history. You can formulate it as an account of some combination of material, legal, political, cultural, institutional, and social changes. The birth of a modern notion of “madness” as mental illness produced new places of confinement, caused legal statutes to be written, gave rise to a whole new class of mental health professionals, altered the subjectivity of those who came to understand themselves as mentally ill, and transformed family relationships in demonstrable ways.⁵³

还应该强调的是，历史决定论的批判不一定采取知识分子或话语历史的形式。你可以把它描述成物质、法律、政治、文化、制度和社会变化的某种组合。作为精神疾病的“疯狂”这一现代概念的诞生产生了新的监禁场所，促成了法律法规的制定，产生了一个全新的精神卫生专业人员阶层，改变了那些逐渐认识到自己患有精神疾病的人的主观性，并以不可抗拒的方式改变了家庭关系

Tracing shifts in meaning, often alongside explorations of the manner in which the term has functioned differently in various communities, serves to destabilize the object. It is generally possible to demonstrate that the current scholarly usage of the object is at least in part the product of a semantic

history that is in some sense unavailable to it (diachrony im-pinging on contemporary synchrony).⁵⁴ The current meaning of “religion” emerged partially from an opposition between “religion” and “supersti-tion” that we have mainly forgotten.

追溯意义的变化，往往伴随着对人的探索，这个词在不同的社会中发挥不同的作用，从而破坏对象的稳定。一般可以证明，目前学术界对这一对象的使用至少部分是语义历史的产物，在某种意义上，这一历史对它来说是不可能的(历时性与当代同步性的碰撞)。”宗教”的现在含义部分来自”宗教”和”迷信”之间的对立，我们已经基本上忘记了。

(R--2) Step two—identify the victims (genealogical critique). Having traced the shifting meaning of the object in some particular language or set of languages, you can show the impact of power on these changes (in other words, identify the victims). *Art* constitutes itself by excluding the artisan. Often it will be revealed that certain groups have promoted the concept for their own benefit, to the detriment of others—that the object has served political ends. The identification of different perpetrators and victims will result in Marxist, feminist, postcolonial, or antiracist critiques or some combination. The notion of *culture* served primarily to position anthropology in relation to other disciplines, and to legitimize the Euro-pean colonial project. Anthropologists reinforced the inequalities that

(R-2)第二步-确定受害者(家谱批评)。通过跟踪某种特定语言或语言集合中对象的转换意义，您可以显示权力对这些转换的影响(换句话说，识别受害者)。艺术通过排除工匠来构成自身。人们常常会发现，某些团体为了自己的利益而推行这一概念，而损害了其他团体的利益——这一目标服务于政治目的。鉴别不同的犯罪者和受害者会导致马克思主义者、女权主义者、后殖民主义者或反种族主义者的批评或者某种组合。文化的概念主要用来定位人类学与其他学科的关系，并使欧洲殖民计划合法化。人类学家强化了这种不平等

existed between European elites and the rest of the world by objectifying indigenous peoples under the ahistorical category of the “primitive” and by essentializing “culture” and “cultural difference” as part of the process of legitimizing European expansion and civilizing missions. Discussions of *culture* often just mask racism and legacies of colonial domination. Excavating these issues is intensely valuable, and given the widespread horrors of colonialism, racism, sexism, homophobia, and capitalist exploitation it is almost inevitable that nearly every conceptual object will be found to have some suspect relationship to them.

欧洲精英与世界其他地区之间存在着这种差异，因为他们将土著人民客体化，归入“原住民”这一非历史类别，并将“文化”和“文化差异”作为使欧洲扩张和使命文明合法化进程的一部分。对文化的讨论往往只是掩盖了种族主义和殖民统治遗留下来的问题。排除这些问题是非常有价值的，鉴于殖民主义、种族主义、性别歧视、同性恋恐惧症和资本主义剥削的广泛恐怖，几乎不可避免的是，几乎每一个概念对象都会被发现与它们有某种可疑的关系。

Historicist or genealogical critique sometimes takes the form of a “genetic fallacy”—namely, the assumption that a belief is true or false because of its source. But it needn’t. Indeed, a semantic history of this sort is often a causal narrative. It is possible to demonstrate that current thinking on the subject is a legacy of older debates or conceptual understandings. Moreover, genealogy of this sort is fundamentally destabilizing insofar as it is able to provide a causal account that obviates reference to truth. For instance, it is possible to give a causal explanation of why someone believes in gravity (they were taught about gravity in high school, their teachers were taught a particular version of gravity for specific reasons, and so on) without necessarily needing to reference the truth of any particular theory of gravity.

历史决定论者或家谱学批判有时采取“基因谬误”的形式，即假设一个信仰是真或假，因为它的来源。但是，它不必如此。事实上，这种语义历史通常是一种因果叙述。我们可以证明，当前关于这个主题的思考是旧的争论或概念性理解的遗产。此外，这种谱系学在根本上是不稳定的，因为它能够提供一个因果关系的解释，避免提及真理。例如，对于为什么有人相信重力（他们在高中学到了重力，他们的老师因为特定的原因学到了特定版本的重力，等等），不一定需要引用任何特定的重力理论的真理，给出一个因果解释是可能的。

(R--3) Step three—Relativize the cultural context (optional). Even if you omit steps one and two above, you can still contend that in some non-European culture or cultures, “they don’t have our concept of the object.” In sloppier versions of this argumentative formula, what is meant by “our

concept” is implied but not explored. In more sophisticated formulations, however, after establishing the object’s semantic field, it is possible to show that no term exists or existed in the non-European language equivalent to the European term or covering anything close to the same range of meanings. The Japanese had no indigenous term for “religion.”⁵⁵ Chinese has no native term for “word,” nor do Chinese languages exhibit the divisibility of speech into the easily segmented phonetic and semantic compounds common to European languages. Therefore, “there are no words in Chinese.”⁵⁶ Melanesians have no indigenous concept of “society,” nor do they distinguish the individual from the collective in the same way that European cultures do.⁵⁷

(R-3)第三步: 相对化文化背景(可选)。即使你忽略了上面的第一步和第二步, 你仍然可以认为在一些非欧洲文化或文化中, “他们没有我们对客体的概念。”在这个论证公式的草率版本中, “我们的概念”的含义是隐含的, 而不是探索的。然而, 在更复杂的表述中, 在建立了对对象的语义场之后, 就有可能表明非欧洲语言中不存在或不存在与欧洲语言相当的术语或涵盖任何接近相同范围的意义。日语中没有“宗教”的本土术语⁵⁵ 中文没有“单词”的本土术语, 中文也没有表现出易于分割的语音和语义组合, 这是欧洲语言共有的。因此, “汉语中没有单词。”⁵⁶ 美拉尼西亚人没有土生土长的“社会”概念, 他们也不像欧洲文化那样区分个人和集体

When combined with some version of the immanent critique above, you can argue that the standard non-European translation term is a neologism or that it has a different prototypical center or a different definition, exists in a different theoretical constellation, or relies on different conceptual exclusions. *Alpanā* is not the native word for “art” in Hindi, but origi-

当结合上述内在批判的某些版本时, 你可以认为标准的非欧洲翻译术语是一个新词, 或者它有一个不同的原型中心或不同的定义, 存在于一个不同的理论星座, 或者依赖于不同的概念排除。Alpan 在印地语中不是“艺术”的母语, 而是“起源”

nally described a specific craft produced by groups of women, who, after having been symbolically purified, arose before dawn, chanted mantras, and constructed images of the gods.⁵⁸

58. nally 描述了一种由一群妇女制作的特殊工艺品，这些妇女在象征性地被净化之后，黎明前起床，念诵咒语，并建造神的形象

This kind of critique can be justified in terms of notions of fundamental untranslatability or the incommensurability of different conceptual systems. To really understand why a Trobriander refers to a plot of land as *buyagu* (garden--site), one has to understand not only contrasting terminology like *odila* (bush) and *yosewo* (uncut bush outside the garden--site), but also the whole of the Trobriand Islands' social, cultural, legal, and agri-cultural system.⁵⁹ "Space" fundamentally changed its meaning in physics from Euclid to Einstein. For Euclid space was homogenous, flat, and un-changed by the placement of matter. But for Einstein none of that was true: space could be curved, heterogenous, and shaped by the presence of matter. Moreover, not only did "space" mean something different in relativistic physics, but "time," "force," "matter," and "energy" all changed their meaning and conceptual relationships to each other as well.⁶⁰

这种批判可以从基本的不可译性或不同概念体系的不可通约性的角度来证明。为了真正理解为什么“特罗布里恩群岛人”把一块土地称为“花园-场地”，人们不仅要理解对比鲜明的术语，比如“欧几里得”(odila)和“约瑟沃”(yosewo)，还要理解整个特罗布里恩群岛的社会、文化、法律和农业文化体系。“太空”从根本上改变了它在物理学上的含义，从欧几里得得到了爱因斯坦。因为欧几里德的空间是同质的，平坦的，不会因为物质的位置而改变。但是对于爱因斯坦来说，这一切都不是真的：空间可以是弯曲的、不均匀的，并且可以被物质的存在所塑造。此外，“空间”不仅在相对论物理学中有不同的含义，而且“时间”、“力”、“物质”和“能量”也都改变了它们的含义和相互之间的概念关系

2.3.3 Ethical Critique

2.3.3 伦理批判

(E-1) A Dash of Ethics. In addition to any of the criticisms above, you can also argue that the object is "evaluative" or normative in its usage or construction. To determine the boundaries of the "political" is itself a political decision, benefiting some partisan groups over others. To confer on a particular thing membership in the category is often interpreted as an expression of value or subjective preference. To deny that a John Cage composition is "music" or to deny that a Mondrian square is "art" are both expressions of taste. Values turn out to be inexplicably linked to the object, and attempts to purge them often turn out to be self--defeating. In some cases

the object encodes covert forms of racism, sexism, and/or imperial-ism (see also the genealogical critique above). “Culture” does most of its work by removing something from nature (removing or displacing fixed notions of race or gender, for instance), but then “culture” itself becomes read as a source of essential difference, reinscribing all the things it was meant to displace. We denaturalized race and gender as biological categories only to turn them into cultural prisons. In some modes of criticism, the evaluative nature of the object is merely taken to suggest that scholarly value neutrality or analytical objectivity is impossible. History is impossible to write without a plot: any given historical study must be written as a romance, a comedy, a tragedy, or a satire, and the choice between these is ultimately ideological.⁶¹ In either case, you can excavate the subterranean values of the object to undercut its critical capacity.

(E-1) a Dash of Ethics.除了上面的批评之外，你还可以说这个对象在使用或构造上是“可评价的”或者是规范的。确定“政治”的界限本身就是一个政治决定，有利于某些党派而不利于其他党派。赋予某一特定事物在这个范畴中的成员身份通常被解释为价值或主观偏好的表达。否认约翰·凯奇的作品是“音乐”或者否认蒙德里安广场是“艺术”都是品味的表达。价值观被证明是与物体莫名其妙地联系在一起的，试图清除它们往往会弄巧成拙。在某些情况下，对象编码隐蔽形式的种族主义，性别歧视，和/或帝国主义(参见上面的家谱批评)。“文化”的大部分工作是从自然中移除一些东西(例如，移除或取代固定的种族或性别观念)，但随后“文化”本身被解读为本质差异的来源，重新记录了它本应取代的所有东西。我们将种族和性别变性为生物学上的美食，结果却把它们变成了文化的监狱。在某些批评模式中，客体的评价本质仅仅被用来暗示学术价值中立或分析客观性是不可能的。没有情节的历史是不可能写成的：任何特定的历史研究都必须以浪漫、喜剧、悲剧或讽刺的形式写成，在这些之间做出选择最终是出于意识形态。

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Marshalling some combination of the above criticisms could allow you to deploy a still--topical catchphrase and argue that the object has been “socially constructed.” But here I would suggest caution. The critiques above have led many scholars to argue that their category of analysis does not exist or perhaps need not have existed. They demonstrate that the object in question is mind--dependent or historically conditioned or socially produced. But then they unmask it as such and triumphantly declare that “there is no such thing as race” or that “quarks are not real” or that “homo-sexuality is meaningless,” or (especially when directed toward a putatively natural category such as mental illness, biological species, or even H₂O) they declare that the object in question is not a “natural kind.” My account of metarealism (chapter 1) would caution against this last move. While analyses of social construction are valuable and negativistic gestures are great for attracting controversy, you might want to resist this final assertion that if the object is socially constructed then it is empty, nonexistent, or unreal, as this final flourish tends to undercut the rest.

将上述批评综合起来，可以使您部署一个仍然是热门话题的口号，并争辩该对象是“如此构建的”但在这里，我建议谨慎行事。以上的批评使得许多学者认为，他们的分析范畴并不存在，或者也许根本不需要存在。他们证明了这个问题的对象是依赖于思想的，或者是历史条件的，或者是社会产生的。但随后他们揭开面纱，宣称“没有种族这回事”，或者“夸克不是真的”，或者“同性恋是没有意义的”，或者(尤其是针对假定的自然范畴，如精神疾病、生物物种，甚至 H₂O)，他们宣称所讨论的对象不是“自然类型”我对超现实主义的解释(第一章)会对这最后一步提出警告。虽然对社会结构的分析很有价值，而消极的姿态很容易引起争议，但你可能要抵制这种最后的断言，即如果对象是社会结构的，那么它就是空的、不存在的或不真实的，因为这种最后的繁荣往往会削弱其他的。

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I want to emphasize that the immanent, relativizing, and ethical critiques can be conducted independently. The methods do not need to be actualized in sequence. Critics mix and match. Indeed, different disciplines have already embraced many of these moves to varying degrees. In this respect, some disciplines (e.g., cultural anthropology) have internalized the autocritique more forcefully while others (e.g., economics) have rendered the critical position taboo and largely excluded it from the discipline. One might speculate that some disciplines have resisted these criticisms not on

intellectual grounds, but because they are supported by extra--academic institutions that reinforce their scholarly objects.⁶² For instance, government agencies have a financial investment in pragmatic solutions, and therefore, groups funding research on voter preference do not want to hear there is no such thing as “politics.” Nevertheless, even in fields that have not yet made the critiques manifest, they linger like ticking time bombs, ready to be set off by epistemological anarchists.

我想强调的是，内在的、相对的和伦理的批评可以独立进行。这些方法不需要按照顺序实施。批评家混合搭配。事实上，不同的学科已经在不同程度上接受了许多这样的举措。在这方面，一些学科(例如文化人类学)已经更有力地内化了自我批判，而另一些学科(例如经济学)已经使批判的地位成为禁忌，并在很大程度上将其排除在学科之外。有人可能会推测，一些学科抵制这些批评并不是出于学术上的理由，而是因为它们得到了加强其学术目标的学术外机构的支持。⁶² 例如，政府机构在实用主义解决方案上有财政投资，因此，资助选民偏好研究的团体不想听到“政治”这种东西尽管如此，即使在那些还没有表现出批评意见的领域，它们也像定时炸弹一样徘徊不去，随时准备被认识论上的无政府主义者引爆。

These recipes represent argumentative approaches that can be de--ployed on virtually any conceptual category in the human sciences—not just master categories, but ancillary terms as well. Religious Studies began by dissolving “religion” and then quickly moved on to disintegrating concepts of particular religions (“Hinduism”). The follow--up move is often

这些方法代表了可以应用于人类科学中几乎任何概念范畴的争论性方法——不仅仅是主范畴，还包括辅助术语。宗教研究从消解“宗教”开始，然后迅速转向消解特定宗教的概念(“印度教”)。后续的行动往往是

to digest other lower order conceptual vocabularies (“the sacred”). For the record, these tropes work in part because they exploit genuine epistemological fissures, and being routinized does not make them any less effective.

消化其他低阶概念词汇(“神圣的”)。郑重声明, 这些比喻之所以奏效, 部分原因在于它们利用了真正的词汇层面的裂缝, 而且常规化并不会降低它们的效果。

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I may now have given the impression that all scholarly objects are identical. Plainly, this is not the case—today the category “art” might tend to aestheticize, “religion” to relativize, “culture” to de-naturalize, “science” to universalize, and so on. These master categories clearly do different work.⁶³ My main contention is that many of these categories fell apart in the same period and that similar strategies can be used to disrupt them in the future. But the differences may also be emphasized.

我现在可能给人的印象是, 所有的学术对象都是一样的。显然, 事实并非如此——今天的“艺术”范畴可能倾向于审美化, “宗教”倾向于相对化, “文化”倾向于非自然化, “科学”倾向于普遍化, 等等。⁶³ 我的主要观点是, 这些类别中的许多类别在同一时期分崩离析, 将来可以用类似的策略来破坏它们。但是这些差异也可以被强调。

That said, in much of the academy, two main master categories have come to absorb the deconstructive impetus toward disciplinary decay. Scholars shedding notions of religion, literature, art, etcetera have often turned toward “culture” or “politics” as replacement terms. Even scholars less conscious of the disciplinary critiques above have often suggested that everything is “political” or everything is “cultural.” But the concepts of “culture” and “politics” are themselves vulnerable to the same sort of challenges discussed above. Indeed, there has been a robust critique of “culture” in anthropological circles alongside culture’s rebirth in the rest of the academy. Moreover, while the critique of “politics” in political theory has been somewhat marginalized, most of the critical strategies above apply to “politics” equally well, and the concept is just as susceptible to destabilization. Accordingly, the clearest corollary of the above is that scholars have nowhere to retreat.

也就是说, 在学院的大部分地方, 两个主要的大师类别已经吸收了学科衰退的解构性动力。脱离宗教、文学、艺术等概念的学者们经常转向“文化”或“政治”作为替代词汇。甚至那些对上述学科批评缺乏意识的学者也常常认为, 一切都是“政治”或“文化”的但是“文化”和“政治”这两个概念本身就很容易受到上面所讨论的挑战的影响。事实上, 在人类学界

对“文化”提出了强有力的批评，而在其他学术领域，文化的重生也同样如此。此外，虽然政治理论中对“政治”的批评有些被边缘化，但上述大多数批评策略同样适用于“政治”，而且这一概念也同样容易造成不稳定。因此，上面最明显的推论就是学者们无处可退。

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Before moving on, I want to suggest the implications of these strategies for one more category—namely, *science* itself. If the “end of science” is not normally told according to the tropes discussed above, it is because science is our contemporary synecdoche for knowledge as such. In the age of rising climate change denialism and post-truth politics, it would seem to be if anything even more foolhardy to question the coherence of science. But we cannot protect “science” unless we engage with these skeptical concerns. This is because science is vulnerable to many of the same critiques deployed against the other categories.

在继续讨论之前，我想提出这些策略对另一个范畴——即科学本身——的影响。如果“科学的终结”通常不是按照上面讨论的比喻来说的，那是因为科学是我们当代对知识本身的象征。在气候变化否认论和后真相政治不断抬头的时代，质疑科学的一致性似乎更加鲁莽。但是我们不能保护“科学”，除非我们参与这些怀疑论的关注。这是因为科学容易受到许多针对其他类别的批评的影响。

Science, in other words, can be provincialized according to a now pre-
换句话说，科学可以根据一个现在的前

dictable set of deconstructive strategies.⁶⁴ Although Thomas Kuhn was not a skeptic and did not mean to relativize science, *The Structure of Scientific Revolutions* (1962) epitomizes some of the intellectual moves I have been discussing.⁶⁵ It appeared in the same time period as the other works above, and despite being overlooked by most commentators, Kuhn used Wittgenstein's notion of family--resemblance as a starting point for the project.⁶⁶ Kuhn's argument basically consists of R--1 and R--3 critiques insofar as it is both historicist and rooted in the problem of the limits of translation. Beyond Kuhn, as several philosophers have observed, there is no single scientific method that all the sciences share.⁶⁷ Knowledge is produced differently in different scientific disciplines. It is also not possible to demarcate clearly the boundaries of science. The meaning of science appears today in part through its putative opposition to superstition and pseudosciences.⁶⁸ But this is an opposition that cannot be fully maintained. Every attempt to define science to include astronomy but ex-

虽然托马斯·库恩不是一个怀疑论者，也不是有意将科学相对化，但《科学革命的结构》(1962)集中体现了我一直在讨论的一些知识分子的行动。⁶⁵ 它和上面的其他作品出现在同一时期，尽管被大多数评论家所忽视，库恩还是把维特根斯坦的家族相似性概念作为这个项目的出发点。⁶⁶ 库恩的论点基本上包括 r-1 和 r-3 两种批评，因为它既是历史决定论者，又植根于翻译的限度问题。正如一些哲学家所观察到的，除了库恩之外，没有一种单一的科学方法是所有的科学分支所共有的。也不可能清楚地划分科学的界限。科学的意义在今天部分地通过它假定的对迷信和伪科学的反对而显现出来。但这是一种不能完全维持的反对。每一次试图将科学定义为包括天文学的尝试

clude astrology turns out to either leave out a well-recognized science or include a denigrated pseudo--science.⁶⁹ We could add a dash of the ethical critique. To call something a science is clearly a term of prestige, and in many circles conveys a normative force (e.g., "science says breastfeeding is good"), and so on.

69. 我们可以加上一点伦理批评。称某事物为科学显然是一种声望，在许多领域传达了一种规范的力量(例如，“科学说母乳喂养是好的”)，等等。

I have only touched on some of the critiques; but my argument might already suggest the question "does this critique of science mean knowledge is impossible?" Thankfully, the answer is no. As I argued in chapter 1, many of the debates about "realism" versus "antirealism" are really about confidence in the contemporary scientific cosmology. Yet if science is not a unity, then all these conversations about science's cosmology are mistaken. Instead of a grand problem with "the scientific worldview" we should really

be thinking of the longevity of different localized theories. Whether or not quarks are an artificial projection of a specific set of cul-tural assumptions or an accurate description of some component of the universe is a question for physicists in a field that already has methods for adjudicating such issues. Restated, the social construction of quarks is not a grand issue for science as a whole, because *there is no science as a whole to be attacked or defended*.

我只触及了其中一些批评，但我的论点可能已经提出了这样一个问题：“这种对科学的批评意味着知识边缘是不可能的吗？”谢天谢地，答案是否定的。正如我在第一章中所说的，许多关于“现实主义”和“反现实主义”的争论实际上是关于对当代科学宇宙学的信心。然而，如果科学不是一个整体，那么所有关于科学宇宙学的讨论都是错误的。我们真正应该考虑的不是“科学世界观”的重大问题，而是不同局部化理论的长期性。夸克是否是一组特定文化假设的人为投影，或是否是对宇宙某些组成部分的准确描述，这是一个已经有方法来判断这些问题的物理学家的的问题。重申一下，夸克的社会结构对于整个科学来说并不是一个大问题，因为没有科学作为一个整体可以被攻击或捍卫。

Even if science has often stood in for knowledge, giving up on the unity of science doesn't mean giving up on knowledge; it means we must come to a better understanding of diverse knowledges. In chapter 6, I argue for Zetetic knowledge. Indeed, one straightforward conclusion of that chapter is that there are better and worse justified truth claims. Some of the better justified claims are likely associated with the sciences, but many are not.

即使科学常常代替知识，放弃科学统一论并不意味着放弃知识，而是意味着我们必须更好地理解不同的知识。在第六章中，我支持 Zetetic 知识。事实上，这一章有一个直截了当的结论，那就是有更好的和更坏的正当的真理主张。一些更合理的主张可能与科学有关，但许多并非如此。

To explain, the assertion that “Louis XVI was executed in 1793” is a
为了解释，“路易十六在 1793 年被处决”的断言是一个

well justified statement. We could say we know that it happened insofar as we have many eyewitness testimonies, and it is unlikely (though not impossible) that any future evidence will change historians' minds about that fact. But it is not a scientific claim (as we use the word "science" in English). Some "scientific" claims have lots of robust evidence for them (e.g., anthropogenic climate change), whereas others do not (e.g., string theory). Some claims in the humanities have more or less evidence for them as well, regardless of their pretension to scientific status. All of which is to say that we do not actually need an inflated and universalized category of science to support knowledge. As I argue in chapter 6, we need instead a theory of knowledge. A successful epistemology needs to be found, not abandoned.

有充分理由的陈述。我们可以说我们知道这件事发生在有许多目击者证词的时候，而且未来的任何证据都不太可能(虽然不是不可能)改变历史学家对这一事实的看法。但这不是一个科学的断言(正如我们在英语中使用的“科学”一词)。一些“科学”主张有很多有力的证据(例如，人为的气候变化)，而另一些则没有(例如，弦理论)。人文学科中的一些主张也或多或少有证据支持它们，尽管它们自诩为科学地位。所有这些都说明，我们实际上并不需要一个膨胀的、普遍化的科学类别来支持知识。正如我在第六章中所说的，我们需要的是一种知识理论。一个成功的认识论需要被发现，而不是被抛弃。

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This critique can also be rendered infinitely meta. One could note that if all the things discussed in this chapter are often referred to as "concepts," then the concept of concept could be subject to the same kind of critique. Philosophers have used "concept" as a technical term to mean different things (something that takes a truth value, what translations share, a set of rules for synthesizing experience, a conception of the world as a whole), while outside philosophy the term "concept" primarily refers to mental representations. Meanwhile, empirical work in psychology and cognitive science has produced four different grand, and likely contradictory, theories of mental representation.⁷⁰ Taken together, not all concepts are alike, nor do they belong to the same "kind," and the term *concept* itself can obscure this important difference.

这种批判也可以被赋予无限的元素。我们可以注意到，如果本章讨论的所有事物都经常被称为“概念”，那么概念的概念也可能受到同样的批评。哲学家使用“概念”作为一个技术术语来表示不同的事物(具有真理价值的东西，翻译所共有的东西，综合经验的一套规则，整个世界的概

念)，而在哲学之外的术语“概念”主要是指心理表征。与此同时，心理学和认知科学的实证研究产生了四种不同的、可能相互矛盾的心智表征理论。总的来说，并不是所有的概念都是一样的，也不属于同一个“种类”，而概念这个术语本身可以掩盖这个重要的区别。

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I want to take a step back and say why the proliferation of autocritiques should itself be surprising. In their early formalization in the nineteenth century, scholarly disciplines aimed to define closed planes or systems. The formation of a discipline often rested on the notion that one could at least provisionally apprehend a totality, such that the discipline is in principle capable of basically complete or self-sufficient descriptions of the phenomena it examines.⁷¹ For example, for physics to come into being as an academic specialization, it had to be able to assume experimentally that physical effects have only physical causes. Physics was founded in part on the study of matter and the supposition that the mathematics of material interactions was at least analytically separable from biology, psy-

我想退一步说，为什么独断专行的扩散本身应该是令人惊讶的。在他们19世纪的早期形式化中，学术学科旨在定义封闭的平面或系统。学科的形成往往基于这样一种概念，即一个人至少可以暂时理解一个总体，这样，学科原则上能够基本上完整或自给自足地描述它所研究的现象。例如，物理学作为一门学术专业而出现，它必须能够在实验上假定物理效应只有物理原因。物理学部分建立在对物质的研究和物质相互作用的数学至少在分析上可以与生物学分离的假设之上

chology, and so on, even if physicists often suggested that their results had wider implications.⁷² But in general, fundamental progress in a given field has been identified with the production of a greater understanding of the discipline's particular object.⁷³

即使物理学家经常暗示他们的结果具有更广泛的意义。但是一般来说，一个特定领域的基本进步已经被认为是对该学科的特定对象产生了更深刻的理解

In contrast to their natural scientific siblings, the human sciences often emphasized less complete planes of explanation than putatively autonomous categories of human life or experience; still, the construction of particular analytical objects was similar. To give a concrete example: Anglophone English departments were historically grounded in the assumption that *literature* represented at least a superficially distinctive arena of research and teaching.⁷⁴ The natural sciences have often been conceived in a reductive hierarchy such that explanation at one level is partially based upon another level. Although there have also been a number of explicitly hybrid disciplines (e.g., biophysics) as well as various significant territorial disputes, to the extent that they have maintained their autonomy in the academy each academic discipline has tended to assert priority over a particular investigative horizon and the techniques that go along with its exploration. To be a scholar in a given discipline has historically meant engaging with the discipline's shared object.

与它们的自然科学兄弟相比，人文科学往往强调的解释层次不如人类生活或经验的推定的自主范畴那么完整；然而，特定分析对象的构造是相似的。举个具体的例子：英语系在历史上都是基于这样的假设，即文学至少代表了一个表面上独特的研究和教学领域。⁷⁴ 自然科学往往被设想为一个还原的等级制度，以至于一个层次的解释部分地基于另一个层次。虽然也有一些明显的混合学科(例如生物物理学)以及各种重大的领土争端，但由于这些学科在学院中保持了自主权，每个学科都倾向于优先考虑特定的调查领域以及与其探索相伴随的技术。从历史上看，成为某一学科的学者意味着要与该学科的共同目标打交道。

For the last half century, however, many quarters of the academy have increasingly become preoccupied with autocritique. Instead of just exploring common objects, we have been chipping away at them. In this respect, the academic disciplines have turned inward, thereby undercutting their very notion for being. This critique is not always paralyzing, but it is surprisingly common; and it suggests epistemological instabilities at the very heart of the human sciences. Before I conclude this chapter, I want to turn to one proposed solution—namely, appealing to family--resemblance concepts—and show how this alternative fails.

然而，在过去的半个世纪里，学术界的许多方面越来越专注于自我批判。我们不仅仅是在探索普通的事物，而是在逐渐消除它们。在这方面，学术学科已经转向内部，从而削弱了他们存在的概念。这种批判并不总是令人麻痹，但却出人意料地普遍；它暗示了人类科学核心的认识论不稳定性。在我结束这一章之前，我想转向一个提出的解决方案——即，诉诸家族相似性概念——并展示这种选择是如何失败的。

2.4 Family--Resemblance, Polythetic Concepts, and Other Category Errors

2.4 家族相似性、复合概念和其他范畴错误

Almost from the beginning, philosophers identified more and more problems with Morris Weitz's positive project to ground art in an open or family-resemblance concept. This is important because Weitz's project has been paralleled in other disciplines that also turned to family--resemblance concepts or related schemas when their core conceptual categories ran into trouble. For instance, in religious studies, a modified Wittgensteinian schema known as "polythetic classification" has enjoyed unusual longevity in attempts to define religion. Although I recognize that there is something valuable about understanding categories in terms of

几乎从一开始，哲学家们就在 Morris Weitz 的积极项目中发现了越来越多的问题，这个项目将艺术建立在一个开放的或家庭相似的概念之上。这一点非常重要，因为 Weitz 的项目在其他学科中也是平行的，这些学科在其核心概念范畴遇到麻烦时也会转向家族相似性概念或相关模式。例如，在宗教研究中，一种被称为“多元分类”的维特根斯坦模式在尝试定义宗教方面享有不同寻常的长寿。尽管我意识到从宗教的角度来理解宗教的分类是很有价值的

loose clusters (see chapter 4), here I want to suggest problems with conventional Wittgensteinian strategies when they are used as routes toward the reconstruction of disciplinary objects.

松散的集群(见第4章), 在这里我想提出一些问题, 当传统的维特根斯坦策略被用作重建学科对象的途径时。

Some of the impetus for these recuperative strategies has come from Eleanor Rosch's pioneering research in cognitive linguistics. Inspired by Wittgenstein, Rosch demonstrated that many conceptual categories exhibit *typicality* effects.⁷⁵ Many categories are asymmetrical and tend to center on a prototypical member that comes to stand for the category as a whole; for instance, many English speakers consider a ROBIN a better example of the category BIRD than a PENGUIN, even though by definition both are equally birds.⁷⁶ There is much that is significant in Rosch's insights.

这些康复策略的部分动力来自于埃莉诺·罗施在认知语言学方面的开创性研究。受惠特根斯坦的启发, 罗施证明了许多概念类别表现出典型性效应。⁷⁵ 许多类别是不对称的, 往往集中在一个代表整个类别的原型成员身上; 例如, 许多说英语的人认为 ROBIN 是比企鹅更好的鸟类类别的例子, 尽管从定义上来说, 它们都是同等重要的鸟类。

Despite prototype theory's value for understanding linguistic taxonomies, when theorists have attempted to transform it—or other versions of Wittgenstein's family--resemblance theory—into scholarly or scientific praxis they quickly run into problems. One of the main issues with prototype theory has been compositionality, meaning the problem of the combination of different concepts/categories. As Jerry Fodor has observed: "a goldfish is a poorish example of a fish, and a poorish example of a pet, but it's a prototypical example of a pet fish. So similarity to the prototypic pet and the prototypic fish doesn't predict similarity to the prototypical pet fish. It follows that if meanings were prototypes, then you could know what 'pet' means and know what 'fish' means and still not know what 'pet fish' means."⁷⁷ But there are more difficulties with family--resemblance models than the compositionality issue of prototypes.

尽管原型理论对于理解语言分类学有价值, 但当理论家们试图将它或维特根斯坦家族相似性理论的其他版本转化为学术或科学实践时, 他们很快就遇到了问题。原型理论的一个主要问题是组合性, 这意味着不同概念/范畴的组合问题。正如 Jerry Fodor 所观察到的: “金鱼是鱼的一个糟糕的例子, 也是宠物的一个糟糕的例子, 但它是宠物鱼的一个典型例子。因此, 与原型宠物和原型鱼的相似性并不能预测与原型宠物鱼的相似性。因此, 如果意义是原型, 那么你就可以知道‘宠物’的意思, 知道‘鱼’的意思, 但仍然不知道‘宠物鱼’的意思。”但是家族相似模型比原型的组成性问题更困难。

The first problem is that the extension of open or family--resemblance concepts to include new members requires us to judge similarity. If there were no set of necessary and sufficient conditions to qualify something as a work of art, it might seem that one could decide to classify a new work as art if it were similar to a previously identified work of art. It has been tempting for scholars to take a prototypical or paradigmatic example (e.g., da Vinci's *La Gioconda*) and then go looking for objects that resemble it. The obvious problem with this is that if category membership is determined by resemblance to a certain prototype, then problems of definition are merely deferred to the original, as prototype theory cannot explain how the prototype itself came to be a member of the category.⁷⁸

第一个问题是，开放或家族相似性概念的扩展包括新成员要求我们判断相似性。如果没有一套必要和充分的条件来确定某件作品是否为艺术品，那么，如果一件新作品类似于先前确定的艺术品，人们似乎可以决定将其归类为艺术品。对于学者们来说，拿一个原型或范例(例如达芬奇的 *La Gioconda*)，然后去寻找与之相似的物体是很有诱惑力的。这样做的明显问题是，如果范畴的成员资格是由与某个原型的相似性决定的，那么定义问题只是延迟到原型，因为原型理论无法解释原型本身是如何成为范畴的成员的

More importantly, as Watanabe Satoshi and others have pointed out, everything resembles everything else in some respect.⁷⁹ A skull is like the moon in that they are both material objects, vaguely spherical, appear to be the same shade of gray in certain light, and appear in a particular Octavio Paz poem.⁸⁰ It would be a mistake, however, to conclude anything significant about this resemblance. In any arbitrarily determined

更重要的是，正如渡边聪和其他人指出的那样，在某些方面，一切事物都与其他事物相似。头骨就像月亮，因为它们都是实体物体，模糊地呈球形，在某些光线下呈现相同的灰色阴影，并出现在一首特定的 Octavio Paz 诗歌中。在任何武断的判断中

set, member objects are going to have some properties in common, but this does not mean that they are part of a natural grouping or kind.⁸¹ (I will return to and expand on this point in chapter 4.)

集, 成员对象将有一些共同的属性, 但这并不意味着它们是自然分组或类型的一部分。⁸¹(我将在第 4 章中回到并扩展这一点)

Furthermore, even if all members of a given set share a common quality or property (*tertium comparationis*), that would not imply that this similarity was itself significant or defining. For instance, games are activities, but being an activity captures more than “games.” Even if all games are activities, not all activities are games. Hence games cannot be defined as activities, even if that is a feature they all share. On a sufficiently high level of abstraction one will always be able to find some common denominator to a predetermined list, but that is not sufficient to justify it as the defining feature of a given concept.⁸²

此外, 即使给定集合的所有成员都具有共同的性质或特性(类比), 这也不意味着这种相似性本身就是重要的或可定义的。例如, 游戏是一种活动, 但是作为一种活动不仅仅是“游戏”即使所有的游戏都是活动, 并不是所有的活动都是游戏。因此, 游戏不能被定义为活动, 即使这是一个功能, 他们都共享。在足够高的抽象层次上, 人们总是能够找到一个预先确定的列表的某些共同点, 但这不足以证明它是一个给定概念的拥有属性

Comparative judgments of similarity also vary based on the circumstances and purposes of the comparison. Take sorting luggage at the airport: from a pilot's perspective bags are more similar the closer they are in weight; from a fashionista's perspective the most similar bags might be those that share a color or brand; a baggage handler tasked with stacking bags might emphasize similarity by shape; from a given passenger's perspective the most similar bags are the bags they themselves own, and so on.⁸³ Similarity is not an absolute property of a set of objects, nor is it an innate clustering of qualities.⁸⁴ Perceptions of similarity say more about one's perspective, purpose, and perhaps prior linguistic categories than they do about anything else. This has direct implications for how we construct scholarly objects.

相似性的比较判断也因比较的环境、目的而异。以在机场分拣行李为例: 从飞行员的角度来看, 行李重量越接近, 它们就越相似; 从时尚达人的角度来看, 最相似的行李可能是那些颜色或品牌相同的行李; 负责堆放行李的行李员可能会强调行李形状的相似性; 从给定的乘客的角度来看, 最相似的行李是他们自己拥有的行李, 等等。相似性不是一组物品的绝对属性, 也不是一种与生俱来的品质聚合。这对我们如何构建学术对象有着直接的影响。

Faced with two identical urinals made by the same company, one would be hard--pressed to argue that one is art and the other is not on the basis of similarity as such.⁸⁵ The Dadaist's famous urinal "Fountain" is hardly more similar to da Vinci's *La Gioconda* than it is to its non--art toilet-- sibling. That one can see a resemblance between different artworks does not mean that any two artworks are more similar to each other than they are to other non--art. Moreover, starting from a prototypical example and listing all the things that are similar to it would eventually capture every-thing. While the liberating aspects of universalized resemblance will be discussed in chapter 4, if everything is similar to everything else then one cannot reconstruct a category merely by comparing like objects.

面对同一家公司生产的两个一模一样的小便池，其中一个很难辩称其中一个艺术品，而另一个不是基于相似性。⁸⁵ 达达主义者著名的小便池“喷泉”与达芬奇的拉吉奥康达(*La Gioconda*)几乎没有什么相似之处，就像它与非艺术品的厕所兄弟姐妹一样。一个人可以看到不同艺术作品之间的相似性，并不意味着任何两个艺术作品之间的相似性比它们与其他非艺术作品之间的相似性更大。此外，从一个典型的例子开始，列出所有与它相似的东西，最终会捕捉到所有的东西。虽然普遍相似的解放方面将在第四章讨论，如果一切都是相似的，那么一个人不能仅仅通过比较相似的对象来重建一个范畴。

The *family* in family--resemblance is also doing covert work.⁸⁶ In its non--philosophical usage, "family--resemblance" typically refers to individuals who share common genetic heritage. Literal family similarities are thus the result of a shared genetics or a deeper structure. To refer to "games" or "art" in terms of family--resemblance suggests that they share an under-lying non--manifest connection. But to describe family--resemblance with-out establishing deep connections is to presume the relationship first, and

家族相似性中的家庭也在做着隐蔽的工作。“家族相似性”在其非哲学的用法中，通常是指拥有共同遗传基因的个体。因此，字面上的家庭相似性是共享基因或更深层结构的结果。用家族相似性来指称“游戏”或“艺术”意味着他们共享一个潜在的非显性联系。但是，在描述家族相似性时，如果没有建立深层联系，就是先假定这种关系

only then to interpret different qualities as evidence for shared membership in the category. For instance, the urinal in the restroom seemingly shares a family--resemblance with toilets and other bathroom fixtures, and one could list the qualities these objects have in common; but the same urinal placed in a gallery and taken to be art would seemingly tend to share a family--resemblance with sculpture, bringing other features of the piece to the fore.⁸⁷ In either presumption of family or category, different qualities will seem to predominate. In summary, describing something as a *family-resemblance presupposes* rather than explicates a similarity.⁸⁸

只有这样才能解释不同的质量作为该类别中共享成员资格的证据。例如，卫生间里的小便池看起来与厕所和其他卫生间设备有着家族的相似之处，人们可以列举出这些物品的共同特点；但是放在画廊里并被视为艺术品的同一个小便池看起来似乎与雕塑有着家族的相似之处，从而突出了作品的其他特点。总而言之，将某物描述为家族相似性是以相似性为前提，而不是解释相似性

Taken together, these criticisms suggest serious flaws with using family--resemblance as a way to construct a scholarly category. Polythetic classification is no better. The notion of polythetic definition or classification comes from the American philosopher Morton Beckner, who, inspired by Wittgenstein, described what he called “polytypic concepts.”⁸⁹ Instead of a *monothetic* class with a single set of properties or criteria for membership, Beckner suggested that an aggregation of individuals might share a heterogeneous cluster of properties, such that some members of the group have, say, properties f1 and f2, while others might have properties f2 and f3, and so on. In a polytypic group, no single property is possessed by all members, and generally no single member has all the properties that define group membership. Put in terms of similarity, members of a poly-typic class are not all equally similar to each other.

综上所述，这些批评表明，把家族相似性作为构建学术范畴的一种方法存在严重缺陷。多元化的分类也好不到哪里去。多元化定义或分类的概念来自美国哲学家 Morton Beckner，他受 Wittgenstein 的启发，描述了他所谓的“多元化概念”贝克纳建议，个体的聚合可能共享一个异构的属性集群，例如，群中的某些成员具有属性 f1 和 f2，而其他成员可能具有属性 f2 和 f3，等等，而不是只有一组属性或成员身份标准的单一类。在一个多型群体中，没有一个单一的属性被所有的成员所拥有，并且通常没有一个单一的成员拥有所有定义群体成员的属性。从相似性的角度来看，多型类的成员之间并不是完全相似的。

Subsequent theorists expanded on this model and changed the name to “polythetic classification.”⁹⁰ Scholars have been tempted to use polythetic definitions to ground the category *religion*. For example, a 1967 article listed nine “religion--making characteristics” and then argued that “when enough of

these characteristics are present to a sufficient degree, we have a religion.”⁹¹ But in the philosophy of science (with a few exceptions), poly-thetic classification has largely fallen from popularity because of a set of easily recognizable problems.

后来的理论家扩展了这个模型，并将其名称改为“多元分类”⁹⁰ 位学者试图使用多元化的定义来奠定宗教类别的基础。例如，1967年的一篇文章列举了9个“宗教制造特征”，然后认为“当这些特征足够多时，我们就有了宗教。”但是在科学哲学中(除了少数例外)，由于一系列容易识别的问题，多元化分类已经很大程度上不受欢迎了。

First, polythetic classes are often decomposable into monothetic sub-classes. For instance, one could differentiate a subclass of religions that share characteristics 1 and 2 from one whose members share characteristics 3 and 4 but lack 1, and so on. But the possibility of doing so suggests that one does not need to posit a polythetic grand class. Hence, the very notion of something as a polythetic class instead might seem to suggest that what looked like one category is really a group of different, but self-- consistent monothetic kinds.

首先，多元类通常可以分解为单元子类。例如，我们可以区分具有特征1和2的宗教的一个子类，区分成员具有特征3和4但缺少特征1的宗教，以此类推。但是，这样做的可能性表明，一个人不需要假定一个多元的大类。因此，事物作为一个多元类别的概念本身似乎表明，看起来像一个范畴的东西实际上是一组不同的，但自我一致的单一类别。

Second, if we break down those monothetic subclasses, we often see that they themselves are asymmetrically applied. That is to say, polythetic features are themselves often polythetic. For instance, the listed third religion--making characteristic is “Ritual acts focused on sacred objects.”

其次，如果我们分解这些单一子类，我们通常会发现它们本身是不对称的。也就是说，多元特征本身也是多元的。例如，列出的第三个宗教制造特征是“集中在圣物上的仪式行为”

But “ritual” itself turns out to be a polythetic class: after all, what do a marriage ceremony, hand-shaking, a Homa fire offering, the slaughter of pigs in New Guinea, a toast while taking a drink of beer, and the recitation of the Kaddish have in common, aside from all being called “rituals”? To cover all the properties required for a thing to be called a ritual might call for the production of a further nested polythetic class. The same thing could be said of “the sacred.” Hence, the polythetic definition of religion devolves into further categories requiring even messier polythetic definitions.

但是, “仪式”本身却是一个多元化的类别: 毕竟, 除了所谓的“仪式”之外, 婚礼、握手、霍马斯火祭、新几内亚屠猪、喝啤酒时敬酒以及背诵卡迪什语还有什么共同之处呢? 为了涵盖一个被称为仪式的东西所需要的所有属性, 可能需要产生一个更深层次的嵌套多元化类。同样的事情也可以说是“神圣的”因此, 宗教的多面性定义进一步发展到需要更混乱的多面性定义的范畴。

Third, there is nothing intrinsic to the notion of polythesis to suggest how many different properties one would need to share to be a member of a given category. How many of the nine “religion-making characteristics” are necessary for something to count as a religion?

第三, 多元论的概念没有任何内在的东西来暗示一个人需要分享多少不同的性质才能成为一个给定范畴的成员。9个“宗教制造特征”中有多少是必要的, 才能把某种东西算作一种宗教?

Fourth, most of what we want to do with categories has to do with making generalizations or projecting properties. For example, saying something is a “bird” is supposed to bring with it projectable properties (e.g., that it has feathers, lays eggs, and so on). But there seems to be no rationale for the ability to generalize across polythetic classes. Just because something has properties f_1 and f_2 does not mean that all members of the class have that property. Indeed, the very disconnect or disjunction implied by the necessity of resorting to a polythetic class would seem to undercut notions of a projectable set of properties. Members of a polythetic category by definition do not share any particular necessary properties except category membership. So one might be tempted to say that “religions are ethical,” but if religion is a polythetic class composed of members with clusters of differing properties, there is no reason to suggest that any statement about “religion” is generalizable to all religions. Although I provide a solution in chapter 4, on their own polythetic taxonomies undermine, rather than support, generalizations. In this respect, polythetic classes seem to shed the very thing that was supposed to have made them useful in the first place.

第四, 我们对分类所做的大多数事情都与做出概括或突出属性有关。例如, 说某物是一只“鸟”应该带有可投射的属性(例如, 它有羽毛, 产卵, 等等)。但是似乎没有一个比例可以概括所有多面体类别的能力。

仅仅因为某个东西有属性 f_1 和 f_2 并不意味着类的所有成员都有这个属性。事实上，诉诸多元类的必要性所暗示的断开或分离，似乎削弱了可投影属性集的概念。根据定义，一个多元化范畴的成员除了范畴成员之外，并不共享任何特定的必要属性。因此，人们可能会忍不住说“宗教是伦理的”，但如果宗教是一个由具有不同属性的成员组成的多元类别，那么就没有理由认为任何关于“宗教”的说法可以推广到所有宗教。尽管我在第四章提供了一个解决方案，但是他们自身的多元化税收经济破坏而不是支持普遍化。在这方面，多元化课程似乎摆脱了一开始就应该让它们变得有用的东西。

Finally, and most importantly, formulating a polythetic definition requires a preestablished group. Scholars seem to need to assume that the aggregated individuals are members of the same class before figuring out what properties they heterogeneously share. Again, like family--resemblance concepts, polythesis presupposes the very thing it is trying to explain.

最后，也是最重要的，制定一个多元的定义需要一个预先确定的群体。学者们似乎需要假设这些聚合的个体是同一类别的成员，然后才能弄清楚他们异质地共享哪些属性。同样，就像家族相似性概念一样，多元论假设的前提正是它试图解释的事情。

In summary, while family--resemblance might work as a characterization of linguistic categorization, it will not work to reconstruct the objects of disciplinary inquiry. The notion of similarity is too vague to ground a concept; trying to start with a prototype just pushes back the problem; and even the notion of family--resemblance or a particular “open concept”

总而言之，虽然家族相似性可以作为语言分类的一个特征，但是重建学科研究的对象是行不通的。相似性的概念太模糊，无法建立一个概念；试图从一个原型开始只会把问题推回去；甚至家族相似性的概念或一个特定的“开放概念”

presumes rather than explicates the category in question. Polythetic definitions turn out to be even worse: they postulate rather than explicate themselves; they are inevitably decomposable into further polythetic categories; they fail to answer how many polythetic features are necessary to make up a class; and they provide no justification for generalizations. In-deed, one could restage the same arguments against Hart's notion of an open texture in legal theory and Gallie's notion of essentially contested concepts in political theory, which are both variations on the same Witt-gensteinian insight.

假设而不是解释所讨论的类别。多元性定义结果更糟糕: 它们是假设而不是解释自己; 它们不可避免地被分解成更多的多元性范畴; 它们不能回答组成一个类需要多少多元性特征; 它们不能为概括提供任何理由。事实上, 人们可以重新提出同样的论点, 反对哈特关于法律理论中开放结构的观点, 以及加利关于政治理论中本质上有争议的概念的观点, 这两种观点都是同一个 Witt-gensteinian 洞察力的变体。

All that said, there is something right about the insight that many categories are composed of loose clusters of attributes; the problem is that neither prototypes nor family--resemblance can explain how the relevant categories are anchored (for an alternative, see chapter 4).

尽管如此, 认为许多分类是由松散的属性集群组成的观点是正确的; 问题在于, 无论是原型还是家族相似性都无法解释相关分类是如何锚定的(另一种观点, 参见第 4 章)。

2.5 Conclusion: Legitimation Crisis

2.5 结论: 合法化危机

Broadly speaking, the human sciences are experiencing what Jürgen Habermas calls a “legitimation crisis,” a catastrophe of self--justification that arises when “a social system allows fewer possibilities for problem solving than are necessary [for its] continued existence.”⁹² I think this applies to our subject because almost no matter how you look at it, the human sciences have lost much of their problem--solving capacity, and so have forfeited much of their legitimacy. But here I am most interested in one particular aspect of that legitimation crisis—specifically, the notion many scholars have that their discipline's intellectual projects have run aground. Given how intimately disciplines have been tied to their objects, one might well ask: what might cause a discipline to call into question, challenge, or even abandon its primary object? How did art historians give up on art, anthropologists abandon culture, and so on?

总的来说, 人文科学正在经历一场被于尔根·哈贝马斯称为“合法性危机”的灾难, 这场自我辩护的灾难出现在“一个社会系统允许的解决问题

的可能性比它继续存在所需要的要少。”我认为这适用于我们的课题，因为几乎无论你怎么看待它，人文科学已经失去了解决问题的能力，因此丧失了它们的大部分合法性。但在这里，我最感兴趣的是合法性危机的一个特殊方面——具体而言，许多学者认为他们学科的智力项目搁浅了。考虑到学科与其对象的密切联系，人们很可能会问：什么可能导致一门学科对其主要对象提出质疑、挑战，甚至放弃？艺术史学家如何放弃艺术，人类学家如何放弃文化，等等？

The way the academic disciplines organized themselves around their core disciplinary objects left them vulnerable. There were deep-seated problems with the earlier notions of concepts, both theoretical and pre-theoretical. When skepticism became a promising intellectual or professional path, these liabilities were there to exploit. Put differently, the foundations of the human sciences were faultily constructed. The problem was rooted in the very heart of the disciplines and their focal disciplinary objects.

学术学科围绕其核心学科对象进行组织的方式使他们变得脆弱。早期的概念，无论是理论上的还是理论前的，都存在着根深蒂固的问题。当怀疑论成为一条有前途的知识分子或专业人士的道路时，这些责任就会被利用。换句话说，人类科学的创始时代是错误的。这个问题根源于学科的核心和它们的焦点学科对象。

To be clear, there is a common philosophical substratum to the arguments above: they did not just happen as part of some ill-defined cultural zeitgeist, but rested on the discovery of a set of philosophical issues. 它们不仅仅发生在一些定义模糊的文化时代精神的一部分，而是建立在一系列哲学问题的发现之上。

The evidence of this chapter could itself be historicized as follows:
这一章的证据本身可以历史化如下：

Starting in the early 1930s, Ludwig Wittgenstein began explicitly work-
从 20 世纪 30 年代早期开始，路德维希·维特根斯坦开始了明确的工作

ing to refute a classical theory of concepts.⁹³ Although it had been challenged before, a classical view of concepts had a long history associated with both Platonic and Aristotelian philosophical lineages.⁹⁴ In brief, concepts were supposed to be grounded in definitional structures explicating their essences and describing the necessary and sufficient conditions for their use. The aim of philosophy and then the special sciences was to discover or sharpen the definitions of real concepts, which were supposed to reflect accurately the divisions of nature or culture.

94. 简言之, 概念被认为是建立在定义结构的基础上的, 这些定义结构说明了概念的本质, 并且描述了使用概念的必要和充分条件。哲学以及后来的特殊科学的目的是发现或加深真实概念的定义, 这些概念应该准确地反映自然或文化的划分。

But the early twentieth century propelled all this into chaos. Wittgenstein argued that many general concepts lacked an exhaustive set of properties common to all examples of the category. Concepts do not share common essences and cannot be captured by means of necessary and sufficient conditions. The posthumous publication of his *Philosophical Investigations* in 1953 further disseminated this line of critique. Similarly, critiques of the limits of conceptualization appeared independently in analytic and continental philosophy. Unbeknownst to each other, scholars also began attacking the particular concepts around which various disciplines had been established. They did this as part of these broader philosophical critiques, but mainly they seem to have come to the issue independently by focusing closely on the disciplinary objects.

但是二十世纪早期把这一切推向了混乱。Wittgenstein 认为, 许多一般概念缺乏一套详尽的支持性, 这些支持性对于这个范畴的所有例子都是一样的。概念没有共同的本质, 也不能通过必要和充分的条件来捕捉。他死后于 1953 年出版的《哲学调查》进一步传播了这一批判路线。同样, 对概念化的局限性的批判也独立地出现在分析哲学和大陆哲学中。在彼此不知情的情况下, 学者们也开始攻击特定的概念, 围绕这些概念建立了各种学科。他们这样做, 作为这些更广泛的哲学批判的一部分, 但主要是他们似乎已经来到这个问题的独立-通过密切关注的学科对象。

While often sharpened or perhaps amplified by poststructuralist, postmodernist, and postcolonialist theory, these moves generally preceded such movements. In point of fact, sifting through the secondary literature one can find many of these assaults on the scholarly objects in the 1950s and early 1960s. The citation chain is also interesting, because in many disciplines a whole new round of criticisms emerged in the 1980s that generally omitted reference to the critiques of a generation earlier. These new challenges were often formulated by reference to Derrida or Foucault or Edward Said, and frequently pointed to Saussure where previous thinkers had positioned

Wittgenstein. These critiques became part of the way postmodernism was construed within the disciplines. This is not to say that these later arguments were identical, but they deployed similar moves for similar purposes. The disciplinary critiques are variations on a small number of themes—which suggests that the critiques emerged when they did in part because of a fundamental reappraisal of the meaning of concepts in general.

虽然经常被后结构主义、后现代主义和后殖民主义理论尖锐化或放大，但这些行动通常先于这些运动。事实上，在二次文学中，我们可以发现许多在 20 世纪 50 年代和 60 年代早期对学术对象的攻击。引文链也很有趣，因为在许多学科中，20 世纪 80 年代出现了一轮全新的批评，通常忽略了提及上一代人的批评。这些新的挑战常常参考德里达、福柯或爱德华·赛义德的观点，并且常常指向先前的思想家们对维特根斯坦的定位——索绪尔(Saussure)。这些批评成为后现代主义在学科范围内解释的一部分。这并不是说这些后来的争论是相同的，但他们为了相似的目的采取了类似的行动。学科批评是对少数几个主题的变体——这表明，这些批评之所以出现，部分原因是对其一般概念的含义进行了根本性的重新评估。

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To restate what I want us to carry forward, I have presented the typical strategies for categorical critique. They have been mixed and matched in their applications across the disciplines, but the strategies are generally

为了重申我希望我们继续下去的东西，我提出了绝对批判的典型策略。它们在各个学科的应用中被混合和匹配，但是这些策略通常是

similar. Many disciplines have found their central concepts destabilized. Disciplines that have thus far managed to ward off such critiques are ripe for disintegration. By all the signs, critique seems more likely to spread than to disappear. And so it should. Often we need to know that we are not imprisoned in the categories that have been used to define us. Destructive criticism is therefore necessary—not just for the discipline but for individual scholars—to clear the ground and shatter our old preconceptions, before we can achieve the simultaneous deconstructive vigilance and re-constructive ability our work requires. In this respect, I have been aiming to teach budding scholars a set of strategies for staging further criticisms.

差不多。许多学科发现他们的核心概念不稳定。到目前为止，那些成功地避开了这些批评的学科已经成熟，可以分崩离析了。从所有迹象来看，批评似乎更有可能扩散而不是消失。事实也确实如此。我们常常需要知道，我们并没有被束缚在那些用来定义我们的范畴里。因此，破坏性批评是必要的——不仅对于学科而言，而且对于个别学者而言——以清除基础和打破我们的旧的先入之见，然后我们才能实现我们的工作所需要的同时具有解构性警惕和重建能力。在这方面，我一直致力于教育初出茅庐的学者们一套策略来进行进一步的批评。

But crucially, the *commonalities* of these critiques also tell us something fundamental about the nature of our social categories. If every category is different, the main thing they seem to share is that they can all be challenged in an analogous manner. The concepts in the human sciences fractured in similar ways because they are in some significant sense similar concepts. If this is the case, a new understanding of concepts and even knowledge can be built—not on a defense of the categories, but from the structure of the critiques themselves. Chapter 3 builds off these “postmodern” critiques, turning them inside out, to begin to produce a new meta-modern notion of social kinds.

但至关重要的是，这些批评的共性也告诉我们一些基本的关于我们的社会类别的性质。如果每个类别都是不同的，那么他们最主要的共同点就是他们都可以以类似的方式接受挑战。人类科学中的概念以相似的方式分裂，因为它们在某种重要意义上是相似的概念。如果是这样的话，对概念甚至知识的新理解就可以建立起来——不是建立在对类别的辩护之上，而是建立在批评本身的结构之上。第三章建立在这些“后现代”批判的基础上，把它们反过来，开始产生一个新的社会类型的元现代概念。

3: Process Social Ontology

3: 过程社会本体论

The world is but a perennial movement. All things in it are in constant motion.
世界只是一个永恒的运动，其中的一切都在不断地运动。

... I cannot keep my subject still. ... I do not portray being: I portray passing.
我不能让我的主题保持静止。。。我不描绘存在：我描绘逝去。

Michel de Montaigne, "Repentance"
蒙田的《忏悔》

In perhaps his most influential short story, "Tlön, Uqbar, Orbis Tertius," Jorge Luis Borges imagined an ancient language that lacked nouns and instead used "impersonal verbs, modified by mono-syllabic suffixes (or prefixes) functioning as adverbs. For example, there is no noun that corresponds to our word 'moon,' but there is a verb which in English would be 'to moonate' or 'to enmoon.'"1 Borges would not need to look so far today, since a similar trend occurs in various theory circles which have now spent several decades purging themselves of particular nouns, substituting (for instance) *minoritized* for *minorities*, *enslaved* for *slaves*, *male-identified* for *male*, *racialized* for *race*, *criminalized* for *criminal*, *unhoused* for *homeless*; in linguistics, *standardized English* for *standard English*, and in religious studies *canonized* over *canon*, and so on.2 These word choices are typically explained as an attempt to emphasize actions or choices over fixed or inherent characteristics.

豪尔赫·路易斯·博尔赫斯在他最有影响力的短篇小说《Tlön, Uqbar, Orbis Tertius》中想象了一种没有名词的古代语言，而是使用“非人称动词，由单音节后缀(或前缀)修饰，作为副词。例如，没有一个名词与我们的单词“moon”相对应，但有一个动词在英语中是“to moonate”或“to enmoon”。“1 博尔赫斯今天不需要看到这么远，因为类似的趋势出现在各种理论界，现在已经花了几十年的时间清除自己的特定名词，代替(例如)少数民族，奴役为奴隶，男性认同为男性，种族，刑事定罪，无家可归；在语言学，标准英语的标准英语，和宗教研究经典化，等等。2 这些词的选择通常被解释为试图强调行动或选择，而不是固定或内在的特征。

I mention this terminological shift not to mock it, but to uncover the philosophical commitments behind such changing language. Indeed, in many respects I think it is a positive move, but one in need of further theorization (which this chapter will provide). In brief, much of its origins can be seen in an “anti--essentialism” that became increasingly prominent in the American academy after the 1980s. There were many converging earlier sources of the critique of essences: existentialism, feminism, Marxism, critical race and postcolonial theory all often portrayed anti--essentialism about human categories as emancipative.³ Additionally, the epistemological grounds for anti--essentialism came from the failures of the grand project of definitions in philosophy discussed in chapter 2. But a significant further source for criticisms of essentialism was the construction of postmodernism, which amplified these other critiques and knit them together with various forms of linguistic skepticism.⁴ We can see this epitomized in Roland Barthes’s statement that the “disease of think-

我提到这个术语的转变不是为了嘲笑它，而是为了揭示这种语言变化背后的哲学承诺。事实上，在许多方面，我认为这是一个积极的举动，但需要进一步的理论化(这一章将提供)。简而言之，它的大部分起源可以在“反本质主义”中看到，这种主义在 20 世纪 80 年代之后在美国学术界越来越突出。存在主义、女性主义、马克思主义、批判种族主义、后殖民理论等早期的本质批判有着许多相同的来源，它们往往将人类范畴的反本质主义描述为解放性的。但是，批评本质主义的另一个重要来源是后现代主义的建构，后现代主义扩大了这些批评，并将它们与各种形式的语言怀疑主义结合在一起

ing in essences . . . is at the bottom of every bourgeois mythology of man.”⁵ All that is to say that these intertwined critiques have produced unwitting and default anti--essentialisms in many disciplines in the human sciences.

在本质上... .. 是在每个资产阶级人类神话的底层。”这就是说，这些相互交织的批评已经在人文科学的许多学科中产生了不知不觉和默认的反本质主义。

While anti--essentialisms have been extremely valuable in challenging entrenched notions of all sorts, they have also run into predictable difficulties and dead ends. Anti--essentialism in feminist theory provides an important exemplar. In brief, the critique of essentialism was initially a powerful force against presuppositions about gender and thus facilitated a revolution in critical scholarly inquiry. But according to Naomi Schor, by the 1990s accusing scholars of “essentialism” had become “the prime idiom of intellectual terrorism and the privileged instrument of political orthodoxy . . . the word essentialism has been endowed within the context of feminism with the power to reduce to silence, to excommunicate, to consign to oblivion.”⁶

虽然反本质主义在挑战各种根深蒂固的观念方面极具价值，但它们也遇到了可预见的困难和死胡同。女权主义理论中的反本质主义提供了一个重要的范例。简而言之，对本质主义的批判最初是反对性别预设的强大力量，因此促进了批判性学术研究的革命。但是根据 Naomi Schor 的说法，到 20 世纪 90 年代，指责学者的“本质主义”已经成为“知识恐怖主义的主要习语和政治正统的特权工具。本质主义这个词在女权主义的语境中被赋予了降低到沉默、逐出教会、遗忘的权力。”⁶

Yet anti--essentialist feminism in the same period encountered a political impasse because of the observation that if there was nothing that defined women, then how could one emancipate them? As Diana Fuss has observed, various theorists began asserting that women (or lesbians) were defined by the fact that, in contrast to men (or heterosexuals), their essence was to have no essences.⁷ On these accounts, femininity is defined in terms of its indefinability; lesbianism is the only sexual orientation that is not a sexual orientation; or the one thing all women share is that they have nothing in common. The contradictions of these essentialized anti--essentialisms were only too easy to criticize. Meanwhile, according to Sherene Razack, de--essentializing gender in feminist theory had also resulted in re--essentializing race as the primary source of difference, setting feminism and critical race theory on a collision course.⁸ Moreover, as anti--essentialism became increasingly generalized, it ultimately became a skepticism not just about entrenched notions of gender, but also about all possible generalizations. Altogether, anti--essentialism became a dogmatic orthodoxy in feminist theory in the same period in which it became snarled in various contradictions that came to call the whole scholarly project into question.

Rejecting talk of “essences,” Jane Roland Martin observed, meant that “we followed a course whose logical conclusion all but precludes the use of language.”⁹

然而，同一时期的反本质主义女权主义却遭遇了政治上的僵局，因为人们发现，如果没有什么东西可以定义女性，那么如何解放她们呢？正如戴安娜·福斯(Diana Fuss)所观察到的，各种理论家开始断言，女性(或女同性恋者)的定义是，与男性(或异性恋者)不同，她们的本质是没有本质的。在这些观点中，女性气质的定义是无法定义的；女同性恋者是唯一不是性取向的性取向；或者所有女性都有一个共同点，那就是她们没有任何共同之处。这些本质化的反本质主义的矛盾太容易被批评了。同时，根据谢琳·拉扎克的观点，在女权主义理论中去本质化的性别也导致了种族作为差异的主要根源的重新本质化，使女权主义和批判性的种族理论走上了一条冲击理论的道路。总的来说，反本质主义在女性主义理论中成为一种狗自动的正统观念，在同一时期，它被各种矛盾所纠缠，使得整个学术计划受到质疑。简·罗兰·马丁评论说，拒绝谈论“本质”意味着“我们遵循的是一条逻辑结论几乎排除了语言使用的路线。”⁹

Feminist theory is not alone on this trajectory—many fields seem to have reached a similar impasse. While there are certainly defenders of “scientific essentialism” in analytical philosophy, anti-essentialism has become so entrenched in many disciplines that its most vocal opponents are often “anti-anti-essentialists,” who grant many of anti-essentialism’s main claims while calling for purely pragmatic essentialisms either epistemologically (nominal essences) or politically (strategic essentialism).

并非只有女权主义理论走上了这条道路——许多领域似乎都陷入了类似的僵局。虽然在分析哲学中肯定有“科学本质主义”的捍卫者，但是反本质主义在许多学科中已经根深蒂固，以至于它最强烈的反对者往往是“反本质主义者”，他们承认许多反本质主义的主要观点，同时呼吁纯粹的实用本质主义，无论是在词源上(名义本质)还是在政治上(策略本质主义)。

But each of these has been attacked on anti--essentialist grounds.¹⁰ To be fair, many of these issues persist as merely verbal disputes because scholars have been operating with unrecognized differences in their notions of “essences” (although of course this has been an issue since the beginning).¹¹

公平地说，这些问题中有许多只是口头上的争论，因为学者们在“本质”的概念上一直存在着未被承认的差异(当然，这从一开始就是一个问题)

In this chapter I argue that a process social ontology makes better sense of the evidence that justified the emergence of anti--essentialism in the first place and it can do so without falling into the sinkhole of an ever--expanding “anti--essentialism” that means nothing can be said. Regardless of the status of process thinking as an ontology more generally, social entities are best understood in terms of processes. But if anything (and this is where anti--essentialists are right), ordinary language and “folk psychology” about the social world regularly commit the fallacy of substantializing social kinds, and then (equally importantly) asking of them the wrong sorts of questions based on these assumptions.¹² I touch on the implications of process thought for anti--essentialism later in this chapter, but regardless of the status of anti--essentialism, a process sociology ontology is crucially important for the project of this monograph because it allows us to see the disciplinary master categories in a new light and thereby suggests a novel mode of systematic theorizing for the human sciences.

在这一章中，我认为，过程社会本体论更好地理解证明了反本质主义出现的证据，它可以这样做，而不会陷入一个不断扩大的“反本质主义”的泥潭，这意味着什么也不能说。更广泛地说，过程思维作为本体论的地位越少，社会实体就过程而言被理解得越好。但是，如果有任何东西(这是反本质主义者正确的地方)，关于社会世界的普通语言和“民间心理学”经常犯下使社会种类具体化的谬误，然后(同样重要的)基于这些假设向他们提出错误种类的问题。¹² 我在本章后面谈到过程思维对于反本质主义的影响，但是不管反本质主义的地位如何，过程社会学本体论对于本专著的项目是至关重要的，因为它允许我们从一个新的角度看待学科主体范畴，从而为人类科学提出了一种新的系统化理论化模式。

For those unfamiliar with “process metaphysics” or “process ontology,” it is primarily identified with Alfred North Whitehead’s philosophy of becoming.¹³ But he was not alone in his thinking; a number of philosophers—a handful in the European tradition and many more globally (such as classical Chinese, Indian, and Nahua philosophers)—have argued for the ontological primacy of process over substance, of becoming over being.¹⁴ Process theorists generally reject the notion that everlasting substances are the most basic constituents of existence and argue instead that what appear to be enduring entities are really temporary stabilities in unfolding processes.

They also often reject the grounding assumption of much of analytical philosophy: that what is real is what is pure, in-dependent, or unadulterated. Process thinkers tend instead to describe existence in terms of dynamics, change, transformation, impermanence, creation, destruction, entanglement, emergence, interdependence, and interrelation.¹⁵

对于那些不熟悉“过程形而上学”或“过程本体论”的人来说，它首先被认为是阿尔弗雷德·诺思·怀特黑德的成为哲学。¹³但他并不是唯一一个这样想的人；许多哲学家——欧洲传统中的一小部分和全球更多的哲学家(如中国古典哲学家、印度哲学家和那华哲学家)——都主张过程在本体论上凌驾于物质之上，超越了存在。¹⁴过程理论家通常拒绝永恒的物质是存在的最基本组成部分的观点，而认为看似永恒的实体实际上是展开过程中的暂时稳定性。他们也经常拒绝许多分析哲学的基础假设：什么是真实的就是什么是纯粹的，独立的，或纯粹的。过程思想家倾向于用动态、变化、转变、无常、创造、毁灭、纠缠、出现、相互依存和相互关系来描述存在。¹⁵

As noted above, part of the rationale for the epistemological value of a process social ontology is that it permits us to make sense of various species of anti-essentialism, including the disintegration of our analytical categories. I will argue that once the disciplinary categories are seen as process kinds, we are on our way to understanding (and even granting) the critique of the disciplinary objects. It will turn out that many of the

如上所述，过程社会本体论认识论价值的部分基本原理是，它允许我们理解各种反本质主义，包括我们的分析范畴的解体。我认为，一旦学科类别被视为过程类型，我们就在理解(甚至认可)对学科对象的批判的道路上。事实将证明，许多

things that purportedly rendered impossible a social scientific account of cultural categories are instead the opening suppositions that make such a study possible. Having demolished concepts in the last chapter, in this chapter I begin rebuilding a new, “de--essentialized” notion of social categories from the rubble of the disciplinary objects. Chapter 4 will develop this project in more detail as we populate the social world with specific “social kinds.” But both chapters share a specific way forward—one that understands critique not as precluding the study of the disciplines, but rather as a useful pointer toward the ontology of the social world.

那些据称使文化类别的社会科学解释变得不可能的事情，反而是使这种研究成为可能的开放假设。在摧毁了最后一章中的概念之后，在这一章中，我开始从纪律对象的瓦砾中重建一个新的、“去本质化”的关于社会美食的概念。第四章将更详细地阐述这个项目，因为我们用特定的“社会类型”来填充社会世界但是这两个章节都有一个特定的前进方向——一个不把批判理解为排除对学科的研究，而是把批判理解为指向社会世界本体论的有用指针。

To clarify my intentions here, *ontology* has recently become a buzzword in a range of disciplines, but unbeknownst to many involved, it is regularly used in directly contradictory ways. Some theorists use the term ontology to describe how their ethnographic subjects construct their worlds. To do ontology in this mode requires bracketing out the world as such to focus on the worldviews, ways of living, or world-making practices of the people being studied. A scholar in this mode is not asking whether, say, kachina spirits exist, but studying the way kachinas factor into the “on-tology” of Hopi culture and ritual practice.¹⁶ Following Michael Lynch, we could refer to the first of these projects as “ontography” or writing about world-making practices.¹⁷ In contrast, other theorists are using ontology more in the term’s original meaning, to refer to theorizing about what exists and how things exist. To do ontology in this latter mode is to make claims about the world itself rather than about the worldview of a specific group. Both modes are potentially useful, but using the word *ontology* for what amount to incompatible endeavors means that many scholars are in fact talking past each other—worldview vs. world. I am broadly skeptical of the coherence of the idea of “worldviews.”¹⁸ So here I mean to be doing ontology in the classical sense, but rather than investigating existence as such, I am primarily interested in the basic existents of the social world. (A further metaontology is described in chapter 5.)

为了澄清我在这里的意图，本体论最近已经成为一系列学科中的一个流行词，但是许多涉及到的人不知道，它经常以直接矛盾的方式使用。一些理论家用“本体论”这个术语来描述他们的人种学研究对象如何构建他们的世界。要在这种模式下进行本体论研究，就需要将世界本身包围

起来，将重点放在被研究者的世界观、生活方式或创造世界的实践上。这种模式下的学者不是在问是否存在 *kachina* 精神，而是在研究 *kachina* 精神是如何融入 Hopi 文化和仪式实践的“本体论”的。继 Michael Lynch 之后，我们可以把这些项目中的第一个称为“本体论”，或者是关于创造世界的实践的写作。相比之下，其他理论家更多地使用本体论这个术语的原始含义，指的是关于什么存在和事物如何存在的理论化。在后一种模式中进行本体论就是对世界本身提出要求，而不是对特定群体的世界观提出要求。这两种模式都有潜在的用处，但是使用本体论这个词来表示什么是不相容的努力意味着许多学者实际上是在相互争论——世界观与世界观。我对“世界观”这个概念的一致性普遍持怀疑态度¹⁸ 所以在这里，我的意思是做古典意义上的本体论，但不是研究存在本身，我主要是对社会世界的基本存在感兴趣。(进一步的元论在第 5 章描述)

3.1 A World in Motion

3.1 运动中的世界

Our first hint about the processual nature of social kinds is a broad observation that has often been used as the main evidence for anti--essentialism and has sometimes even been deployed to challenge the possibility of social science as such—namely, that social phenomena are heterogenous and subject to constant variation and transformation.¹⁹ As Charles Taylor argued, the success of “the natural sciences is bound up with the fact that all states of the system, past and future, can be described in the same range of concepts,” but the human sciences address “open system[s]” and

我们对社会种类的过程性质的第一个暗示是一个广泛的观察，这个观察常常被用作反本质主义的主要证据，有时甚至被用来挑战所谓社会科学本身的可能性——即，社会现象是异质的，并且受到不断变化和变化的影响。¹⁹ 正如查尔斯·泰勒所说的，“自然科学的成功与这样一个事实密切相关，即系统的所有状态，过去和未来，都可以用同样范围的概念来描述”，但是人文科学提到了“开放系统”和“开放系统”

“we cannot shield a certain domain of human events” from any other. Hence, the human world consists of constantly chaotic and interlock-ing systems. Moreover, “conceptual innovation . . . in turn alters human reality,” leading to “radically unpredictable events.”²⁰ In brief, Taylor argues that it is hard to produce inductive generalizations about society because it is constantly in flux.

“我们无法保护人类事件的某个领域”不受其他领域的影响。因此，人类世界由不断混乱和相互联系的系统组成。此外，“概念创新... .. 反过来又改变了人类的现实”，导致“完全不可预测的事件”简而言之，泰勒认为很难对社会进行归纳总结，因为社会总是在不断变化。

Coming from a very different disciplinary vantage, the French cognitive scientist Pascal Boyer has argued that cultural representations “undergo mutation, recombination and selection,” and that consequently “the process of [cultural] transmission seems guaranteed to create an extraordinary profusion of baroque variations.”²¹ Indeed, anthropologists have increasingly recognized that cultural transmission is underdetermined, meaning that “tradition”—and culture as a whole—is actually constantly changing.²²

法国认知科学家帕斯卡·博耶(Pascal Boyer)从一个非常不同的学科角度出发，认为文化表征“经历了变异、重组和选择”，因此“(文化)传播的过程似乎注定会创造出异常丰富的巴洛克变体。”²¹ 事实上，人类学家越来越认识到，文化传播是不确定的，这意味着“传统”——以及整个文化——实际上是不断变化的

For a long time, psychologists and linguists have been making similar observations.²³ Despite popular notions of established linguistic meaning, fieldwork in a range of communities has shown significant regional and temporal variation. As historical linguistics has demonstrated, semantic change is frequent and can be quite rapid (e.g., the shift in the meaning of the word “gay” from primarily meaning happy to meaning homosexual in the span of a couple of decades). It is often assumed that speakers in the same linguistic community share common cultural concepts, but except in those rare areas in which we have been explicitly taught and our beliefs have been semi--standardized (such as being coached in specific definitions according to a common educational standard), the acquisition of most concepts comes from inferences based on fragmented material. Most of us have a piecemeal smattering of ideas about the world based on implicit references, stray examples, anecdotes, and stories; therefore, we disagree about more than we realize. For example, according to one study, even native--English--speaking undergraduates disagree over the meanings or categorization of basic terms such as “clothing” and “furniture.”²⁴ All that is to say, a certain amount of variation and change is the norm rather than the exception.

长期以来,心理学家和语言学家一直在做类似的观察。²³ 尽管人们普遍认为语言的含义已经确立,但是在一系列社区的田野调查显示出显著的区域和时间差异。正如历史语言学所证明的那样,语义的变化是频繁的,而且可能相当迅速(例如,在几十年的时间里,“gay”一词的意思从最初的意思是快乐转变为意思是同性恋)。人们常常认为,同一语言群体中的说话者拥有共同的文化概念,但是,除了那些我们明确接受教育和我们的信仰半标准化的少数领域(例如根据共同的教育标准接受具体定义的教育)之外,大多数概念的习得来自基于零碎材料的推论。我们大多数人对这个世界都有一些零星的概念,这些概念都是基于隐含的参考资料、零散的例子、轶事和故事;因此,我们的分歧比我们意识到的要多得多。例如,根据一项研究,即使是以英语为母语的大学生也不同意“衣服”和“家具”等基本术语的含义或分类也就是说,一定数量的变化和变化是常态,而不是例外。

Likewise, the British economist Tony Lawson has argued against economic models privileging stabilities and regularities on the grounds that “social reality” is “highly transient [and constantly] being reproduced and/ or transformed through practice.”²⁵ Roughly similar claims have been made by sociologists and philosophers, as well as many other theorists, about their specific domains.²⁶ For instance, sociologists Michael Omi and Howard Winant observed that “while race is still popularly understood as essence,” it is rather “an unstable and ‘decentered’ complex of social

同样,英国经济学家托尼·劳森(Tony Lawson)反对赋予稳定性和规律性以特权的经济模型,理由是“社会现实”是“高度短暂的(并且不断地)通过实践复制和/或转化”例如,社会学家 Michael Omi 和 Howard Winant 观察到,“虽然种族仍然被普遍理解为本质”,但它实际上是“一种不稳定的、‘分散的’社会情结”

meanings constantly being transformed by political struggle.”²⁷ It would seem that not only are social categories constantly changing, but by some accounts the rate of social change in general is even increasing.²⁸

意义不断被政治斗争所改变。”似乎不仅仅是社会分类在不断变化，而且根据一些统计，整个社会变化的速度甚至还在增加

These various findings are often taken to imply that the systematic study of culture and society is impossible, but this interpretation of their implications is incorrect—we can actually come to understand a social world in motion. In the first instance, we can trace how things have changed in the past without their current dynamics necessarily undermining our analysis. For example, a lot of good work has been done that examines the historical and cross-cultural unfolding of “race” as a category, which is no less useful given the heterogeneity of the category and its tendency to change. In the second instance, all that is necessary to have knowledge of the social world is for the rate of knowledge gain to be larger than the rate of change.²⁹ Difference and variation make prediction hard (and prediction has never been a strength in the human sciences), but they do not preclude analysis of the past or the present. Moreover, understanding the processual nature of the social world would make our investigation of it more accurate.

这些不同的发现经常被认为意味着对文化和社会的系统研究是不可能的，但是这种对其含义的解释是不正确的——我们实际上可以理解一个运动中的社会世界。首先，我们可以追溯事物在过去是如何发生变化的，而不会因为它们当前的动态变化而影响我们的分析。例如，已经做了大量出色的工作，审查了“种族”作为一个类别的历史和跨文化发展情况，鉴于该类别的异质性及其变化趋势，这一工作也同样有用。在第二种情况下，了解社会世界的所有必要条件是知识获得的速度大于变化的速度。²⁹ 差异和变化使预测变得困难(预测在人类科学中从来不是一种优势)，但它们并不排除对过去或现在的分析。此外，了解社会世界的过程性质将使我们对它的调查更加准确。

Indeed, the primary implication of the observations recounted above is that it entails an inversion of the classic social or anthropological account of social change. While older theorists tried to come up with different schemes to explain change and variety, change is ongoing for a host of reasons and heterogeneity is much more typical than homogeneity. So a whole generation of theorists got it exactly backward—the thing that needs to be explained is not social change or cultural differences, but relative *stability* or *similarity*.³⁰ (Basically, I am proposing an anti--universalist universalism, as I argue the default is variety and difference.) Put differently, scholars have spent vast amounts of effort trying to apprehend the roots of social/cultural change and difference as if these were exceptional or at the very least in need of explanation. But what we really need to understand is stability and

homogeneity, which from much of the evidence rehearsed above (as well as from the vantage of a process social ontology) are the actual anomalies in need of explanation. I will return to this in chapter 4.

事实上,上述观察的主要含义是,它涉及到对社会变化的经典社会或人类学账户的倒置。虽然较老的理论家试图提出不同的方案来解释变化和多样性,变化正在进行的原因是多方面的,异质比同质性更典型。因此,整整一代的理论家完全倒退了——需要解释的不是社会变化或文化差异,而是相对的稳定性或相似性。(基本上,我是在提出一种反普遍主义的普遍主义,因为我认为默认是多样性和差异性。)换句话说,学者们花费了大量的精力试图理解社会/文化变化和差异的根源,好像这些变化和差异是例外的,或者至少是需要解释的。但是我们真正需要理解的是稳定性和同质性,从上面的大部分证据(以及从过程社会本体论的角度)来看,它们才是真正需要解释的异常现象。我将在第四章回到这个问题。

But first I want to focus on another implication of the Heraclitean quality of the social world and explore how an account of its processual nature can help clear up some of the category critiques outlined in chapter 2. What does it mean to think of social kinds in terms of processes? In some respects, it will take this chapter and the next to explain. But to get there requires that we first make a brief detour through the notion of “natural kinds” in contemporary philosophy. A discussion of natural kinds is important because many people have a tendency to mistake social categories for natural kinds and then, when they do not function like

但首先,我想集中讨论赫拉克里特式社会世界质量的另一层含义,并探讨对其过程性质的描述如何有助于澄清第二章中概述的一些范畴批评。从过程的角度思考社会类型意味着什么?在某些方面,需要这一章和下一章来解释。但要达到这个目的,我们首先需要简单地绕过当代哲学中的“自然种类”的概念。对自然种类的讨论很重要,因为许多人倾向于把社会类别误认为自然种类,然后,当它们不起作用时

natural kinds after all, to demolish them altogether, rather than pausing to consider how social kinds might function differently.
而不是停下来思考社会性物种如何发挥不同的作用。

3.2 Natural Kinds 3.2 自然种类

For readers unfamiliar with the expression “natural kinds,” the basic idea is that while various conceptual categories divvy up the world in conflict-ing ways, there exist some collections of individuals with common, con-sistently identifiable properties that we can refer to as “kinds.”³¹ Analytic philosophers often refer to these groupings as “natural kinds” or “real kinds” and often describe them by way of a metaphor recouped from Plato (or equally Zhuangzi) as representing the “joints of nature.” At the level of ordinary language and perception, the world would seem to be populated by natural groupings like wolves, oak trees, quartz crystals, and rosebushes. These categories are projectable insofar as, say, the features or properties of one wolf are more or less generalizable to other wolves. Further, it would seem that while some linguistic categories are arbitrary (e.g., “my favorite pets”), others designate these genuine groupings or natural kinds.

对于不熟悉“自然种类”这一表达的读者来说，其基本思想是，虽然各种概念范畴以相互冲突的方式划分世界，但仍然存在一些具有共同的、一致的可识别属性的个体集合，我们可以称之为“种类”分析哲学家经常将这些分类称为“自然类”或“真实类”，并经常用柏拉图(或同样的庄子)的比喻来描述它们，认为它们代表“自然的关节”在普通语言和知觉的层面上，世界似乎是由狼、橡树、石英晶体和玫瑰丛这样的自然群体组成的。这些分类是可以投射的，比如说，一只狼的特征或属性或多或少可以推广到其他狼身上。此外，虽然一些语言类别是任意的(例如，“我最喜欢的宠物”)，其他人指定这些真正的分组或自然种类。

Natural kinds are often described as key to problems in both semantics and philosophy of science and have accordingly been the subject of sig-nificant contemporary debates. Philosophers John Dupré, Ian Hacking, and Muhammad Ali Khalidi all list some subset of the following features as commonly associated with an “essentialist” model of natural kinds.³²

自然类型通常被描述为解决语义学和科学哲学问题的关键，并因此成为当代重大争论的主题。哲学家约翰·杜普雷、伊恩·黑客和穆罕默德·阿里·哈利迪都列出了下列特征的一些子集，这些特征通常与自然类型的“本质主义”模型相关联

1. *Essence*. Natural kinds share a bundle of properties in view of their “essence” and therefore their properties are projectable. In this con-text, saying that natural kinds have *essences* typically means that they are supposed to have “essential” properties that determine mem-bership in the kind, such that a generalization about one individual member of a natural kind in view of their kind--ness is said to hold for all members of the kind.

精华。自然物种因其“本质”而共享一捆属性，因此它们的属性是可投射的。在这种情况下，说自然物种具有本质，通常意味着它们被认为具有决定物种属性的“本质”属性，因此，对自然物种的一个个体成员因其善良而进行的一般化，据说适用于所有这类成员。

2. *Definability*. Natural kinds are supposed to be both definable and clearly delineable. There are no gray areas about membership in a natural kind. Natural kinds are delimited by clear boundaries that can in principle be discovered and demarcated. It is also often sup-posed that a natural kind can be defined by discovering its essence.

可定义性。自然的种类应该是既可定义又可清晰描述的。自然种类的成员资格没有灰色地带。自然种类由清晰的界限划分，原则上可以被发现和划分。人们还经常认为，自然种类可以通过发现其本质来定义。

3. *Necessity and sufficiency*. “Each of the properties associated with a natural kind is possessed by every individual that belongs to that kind, and any individual possessing all of them belongs to the kind in question.”³³ Natural kinds are supposed to be definable based on discovering these necessary and sufficient conditions.

必要性和充分必要条件。与自然种类相关的每一种属性都属于属于自然种类的每一个个体，而拥有所有这些属性的任何个体都属于该种类³³ 自然种类应该在发现这些必要和充分条件的基础上进行定义。

4. *Mind-independence*. Natural kinds exist in nature independent of human minds and the basis for their classification is inherent in the structure of the world itself.
精神独立。自然种类存在于自然界中，独立于人类的思维，其分类的基础是世界本身的结构所固有的。
5. *Intrinsicity*. Members of a natural kinds are supposed to possess the properties they do intrinsically, independent of their connection to anything else.
本质。自然物种的成员应该拥有他们固有的属性，独立于他们与其他任何事物的联系。
6. *Microstructure*. Natural kinds are often supposed to share a common “microstructure” (e.g., the common atomic structure shared by all members of a particular chemical element).
微观结构。天然元素通常被认为具有共同的“微观结构”(例如，某一特定化学元素的所有成员具有共同的原子结构)。
7. *Modal Necessity*. Natural kinds are supposed to have the properties they have in every possible world in which they exist.
模态必然性自然物种应该具有它们在其存在的每一个可能的世界中所具有的特性。
8. *Law of Nature*. There are supposed to be invariant laws of nature that apply to particular kinds; thus natural kinds can be thought of as crucial to theorizing of natural laws.
自然法则。人们认为自然界中存在适用于特定种类的不变规律，因此自然种类可以被认为是自然规律理论化的关键。
9. *No-Crosscutting*. Natural kinds do not crosscut each other. Something cannot be part of multiple natural kinds unless the kinds are part of a consistent, nested hierarchy (e.g., species, genus).
没有横切。自然物种之间不会互相横切。一些东西不可能是多个自然种类的一部分，除非这些种类是一个一致的、嵌套的层次结构的一部分(例如，物种，属)。
10. *Discoverability by Science*. Natural kinds are discoverable by science. It is also often said that natural kinds figure in the formation of natural laws.
科学的可发现性。天然物种可以被科学发现。人们常说，自然物种在自然法则的形成过程中起着重要作用。

An essentialist or “classical theory” of natural kinds tends to assume all or most of these features. The classical theory has something going for it—for instance, chemical elements seem to fit all of these features, and the argument could be made that some other classifications in physics and chemistry do as well.

一个关于自然种类的本质论者或“经典理论”倾向于承担所有或大部分这些特征。经典理论有它的优点——例如，化学元素似乎符合所有这些特征，可以说物理学和化学中的其他一些分类也符合这些特征。

That said, the main thing I want the reader to take away from this list is that *none* of the features associated with classical natural kinds works for the kinds we typically focus on in the human sciences. Indeed, if you take the list of ten features associated with natural kinds and compare it to the critiques of the disciplinary master categories in chapter 2, you will see that they effectively cancel each other out.

也就是说，我希望读者从这个列表中得出的主要结论是，与经典自然物种相关的特征都不适用于我们在人类科学中通常关注的那些物种。事实上，如果你列出与自然种类相关的十个特征，并将其与第二章中对学科大师类别的批评进行比较，你会发现它们实际上是相互抵消的。

By way of illustration: *religion* and the other disciplinary master categories lack “essential properties.” Religion cannot be defined in terms of necessary and sufficient conditions. There would seem to be few if any properties possessed by all members. Religion lacks mind--independence, intrinsicality, and microstructure. It lacks “modal necessity” insofar as we can imagine possible worlds either without “religion” or having “religions” with properties very different from ours. It is not clear if there are any lawlike generalizations that apply distinctively to members of the kind religion. “Religion” is not a *sui generis* category; hence, most examples of religion exhibit cross--cutting. The question of discoverability by science is

通过举例说明：宗教和其他学科的大师美食缺乏“基本属性”宗教不能用必要和充分的条件来定义。如果所有成员都拥有某种属性，那么这种属性似乎很少。宗教缺乏思想独立性、内在性和微观结构。它缺乏“模式必要性”，因为我们可以想象可能的世界，无论是没有“宗教”或有“宗教”的属性与我们的非常不同。目前尚不清楚是否存在任何类似法律的概括，可以独特地适用于这类宗教的成员。宗教并不是一个特殊的范畴，因此，大多数宗教的例子都是横向的。科学的可发现性问题是

rendered messy by debates about the nature of the social sciences. At the very least, “science” itself is a master category of the sort I am interested in investigating. So “discoverable by science” produces recursion. In sum, the disciplinary master categories are not classical natural kinds.

由于对社会科学本质的争论而变得混乱。至少,“科学”本身是我感兴趣研究的主要范畴。所以“可被科学发现”产生递归。总之,学科大师的范畴不是经典的自然类型。

Substances have often been seen as the ideal subject for theories of classical natural kinds. But theorists working on the various life sciences have independently observed that many of the defining features of classical ideas of natural kinds do not apply to various important biological kinds, such as “species” and “disease.”³⁴ While biologists often see their subject in terms of natural groupings, the kinds they work with do not seem to be as invariant, clearly definable, independent, or lacking in gray areas as the natural kinds philosophers have spent their time theorizing. Despite the status of animal species in particular as paradigmatic natural kinds in some philosophical arena, they do not actually fit the classical theory very well. “Wolves,” for example, do not fit many of the defining criteria of natural kinds above (see note).³⁵

物质经常被视为古典自然类理论的理想主题。但是,从事各种生命科学研究的理论家们独立地观察到,自然种类的古典思想的许多定义特征并不适用于各种重要的生物种类,如“物种”和“疾病”³⁴。虽然生物学家经常从自然分类的角度来看待他们的研究对象,但是他们研究的种类似乎并不像哲学家花费时间理论化的自然种类那样具有恒定性、清晰定义、独立性或缺乏灰色地带。尽管在某些哲学领域,动物物种特别是自然物种具有典型的地位,但它们实际上并不十分符合经典理论。例如,“狼”不符合上述自然物种的许多定义标准(见注释)

This has important implications. Anti-essentialists in the humanities and social sciences often see themselves as opposed to biological essentialism, or they stage social categories in opposition to biological natural kinds. Indeed, much of humanistic anti-essentialism has worked by suggesting that the variability and heterogeneity of a particular category means it is not biological. The surprise is that there is a well-established critique of essentialism in biology as well. Most biologists do not think that species (and other biological kinds) have essences, by which they mean that they “have been unable to find an essential trait that occurs in all and only the members of a particular taxon.”³⁶ Biological kinds generally have exceptions.³⁷ Biological kinds and social categories exhibit similar heterogeneity and variation (although social kinds tend to be more varied and are necessarily capable of more rapid changes). Recognizing biological anti-essentialism does not mean that everything reduces to bi-

这具有重要的意义。人文社会科学中的反本质主义者往往认为自己与生物本质主义相对立，或者他们把社会范畴与生物自然类型相对立。事实上，许多人本主义的反本质主义都是通过暗示某一特定类别的多变性和异质性意味着它不是生物学的而起作用的。令人惊讶的是，在生物学中也有一个对本质主义公认的批判。大多数生物学家并不认为物种(以及其他生物种类)具有本质，这意味着他们“无法找到一个特定分类单元的所有成员都具有的本质特征。”³⁷生物种类和社会类别表现出相似的异质性和变异性(尽管社会种类往往更加多样化，并且必然能够发生更快的变化)。认识到生物学的反本质主义并不意味着一切都减少到双

ology or that some of the anti-essentialist critiques of biologizing social categories were unwarranted; rather, it means that repudiating “essences” or critiquing “essentialism” is not the best way to communicate those in-sights. Put differently, many of our social kinds are not biological categories and should not be mistaken for such (e.g., race), but rejecting essentialism isn’t the right way to distinguish between biological and social kinds, because many biologists also reject essentialism about biological categories and some have even argued that there are no natural kinds in biology.

或者一些反本质主义者对生物化社会类别的批评是没有根据的;相反，这意味着否定“本质”或批评“本质主义”不是沟通那些洞察力的最好方式。换句话说，我们的许多社会种类不是生物学的范畴，不应该被误认为是这样的(例如，种族)，但拒绝生物感觉论并不是区分生物学和社会种类的正确方式，因为许多生物学家也拒绝生物学范畴的本质论，有些甚至认为生物学中没有自然种类。

One could respond to this in two ways: either by chipping away at the notion of natural kinds so that it better fits biological kinds more generally, or by suggesting that biological entities do not fit the category of natu-

人们可以通过两种方式对此作出回应: 要么削弱自然种类的概念，使之更适合于更普遍的生物种类，要么暗示生物实体不适合于自然种类

ral kinds. To my mind this issue is largely a matter of semantics, but it is no surprise that there has been a long history of process thinking in the biological sciences, if not elsewhere.

真实的种类。在我看来，这个问题在很大程度上是一个语义学的问题，但毫不奇怪，在生物科学中，过程思维有着悠久的历史，如果不是在其他地方的话。

Strikingly, biologists focusing on such diverse subjects as metabolism, evolution, life cycles, and ecological interdependence have all converged on process--based thinking by working out the details of their own do-mains.³⁸ It is astonishing that the human sciences have thus far (with a few important exceptions) failed to do the same.

引人注目的是，聚焦于新陈代谢、进化、生命周期和生态相互依赖等不同主题的生物学家，通过研究他们自己的主要工作细节，都聚集在基于过程的思维上。令人惊讶的是，迄今为止，人类科学(除了少数重要的例外)未能做到同样的事情。

3.3 *Process Social Kinds: A First Pass*

3.3 过程社会类型: 第一阶段

While few people would deny the processual nature of culture or society, the dominant modes of discussing human affairs are typically oriented in a mode more appropriate to substance thinking than to process thinking. We often talk about “capitalism” or “neo--liberalism” as if they were bounded entities with clear borders and agency of their own, instead of dynamical processes. Our main terms for the disciplinary master categories are still caught up in substance--like language such as *art* and *religion*, and we ask of them such substance--type questions as: “is a given exemplar *a* work of art or *a* religion?” But when approaching social kinds in this manner, our basic questions often amount to category errors. There is a reason Marxist theory, anti--essentialism, and process metaphysics all converge on critiques of the fallacy of “reification” (*Verdinglichung*, literally “making something into a thing”) and “misplaced concreteness.”

虽然很少有人会否认文化或社会的过程性质，但讨论人类事务的主要模式通常更倾向于实体思维，而不是过程思维。我们经常谈论“资本主义”或“新自由主义”，就好像它们是有界限的实体，有明确的边界和自己的能动性，而不是动态过程。我们对于学科硕士类别的主要术语仍然停留在像艺术和宗教这样的实质性语言中，我们问他们这样的实质性问题：“一个给定的范例是一件艺术品还是一个宗教？”但是，当我们用这种方法来研究社会类型时，我们的基本问题往往是类别错误。马克思主义理

论、反本质主义和过程形而上学都聚集在对“物化”(Verdinglichung, 字面意思是“把事物变成事物”)和“错位的具体性”的批判上, 这是有原因的

Beginning with the disciplinary master categories I was deconstructing in chapter 2, we can produce a list of generalizations about their qualities (or lack thereof) that stands in stark contrast to an essentialist account of natural kinds. Doing so should give us a preliminary set of features that the disciplinary objects (or as we'll now refer to them, “process social kinds”) share. They are:

从我在第二章中解构的学科大师类别开始, 我们可以列出一系列关于他们的品质(或缺乏品质)的概括, 这与自然种类的本质论描述形成了鲜明的对比。这样做应该可以给我们提供一组学科对象(或者我们现在称之为“过程社会类型”)共享的初步特性。它们是:

1. *High-Entropic*. As noted above, the term “essence” is the subject of significant controversy. But the critique of essentialism has often amounted to the observation that various social kinds have significant variation (regional and temporal) in their meaning and/or properties. To borrow a notion from thermodynamic systems theory, one could say that the disciplinary master categories are “high-entropic” because they are multi-variant, diverse in their instantiation, consistently changing, and often lacking in equilibrium. Furthermore, it would seem there are few if any properties possessed by all members of a social kind category.

高熵。如上所述, 术语“本质”是一个有重大争议的主题。但是, 对本质主义的批判往往相当于观察到, 各种社会类型在其意义和/或属性方面存在着显著的差异(区域和时间)。借用热力学系统理论的一个概念, 我们可以说学科硕士范畴是“高熵”的, 因为它们是多变的、实例化的多样性、不断变化的、常常缺乏平衡的。此外, 如果一个社会类别的所有成员都具有某种属性的话, 那么这种属性似乎是很少的。

2. *Undefinable*. Definition, especially by necessary and sufficient conditions, is basically a failed project. It might work for a small number of natural kind categories (e.g., defining gold in terms of its atomic number), but it won't work for any social kind. In part this is because humans generally do not base mental representations on definitions. Taken together, 1 and 2 above lead toward critiques I-1, I-2, I-3 and R--3, discussed in chapter 2.

无法定义。*Definition*，特别是在必要和充分的条件下，基本上是一个失败的项目。它可能适用于少数几种自然种类(例如，用原子序数来定义黄金)，但它不适用于任何社会种类。这在一定程度上是因为人类通常不会将心理表征建立在定义之上。综上所述，上面的1和2引出了第2章讨论的批评I-1、I-2、i-3和R-3。

3. *Niḥsvabhāva or Interdependent*. This is a technical term from classical Indian philosophy that can help us clarify something important. The Sanskrit word *svabhāva* can be translated as “own--being” or “intrinsic nature,” and it generally refers to something that is “unconditioned, not dependent on other entities.”³⁹ To be *niḥsvabhāva* is to be lacking in *svabhāva*. I introduce the term here because one of the central features of social kinds is that they are not independent, but interdependent. In other words, their properties emerge from their relationship to other entities. As Bimal Krishna Matilal has observed, an object lacking in *svabhāva* “has no absolute values of its own but has a value only with respect to a position in a system.”⁴⁰ In that respect, the existence and properties of social kinds are causally dependent on their local environment. Moreover, as we have seen in the category critiques, many social kinds come into being by way of an exclusion of a contrasting kind (hence critique I-4).

Ni something svabh va 或相互依赖。这是一个来自印度古典哲学的专业术语，可以帮助我们澄清一些重要的东西。梵语单词 *svabh va* 可以翻译为“自我存在”或“内在本质”，它通常指的是“无条件的，不依赖于其他实体”的东西³⁹ *To be ni something svabh va* 意味着 *svabh va* 中缺乏。我在这里介绍这个术语是因为社会类型的一个核心特征是它们不是独立的，而是相互依存的。换句话说，他们的属性来自于他们与其他实体的关系。正如 Bimal Krishna Matilal 所观察到的，缺少 *svabh va* 的对象本身没有绝对值，只有相对于系统中某个位置的值在这方面，社会类型的存在和属性因果依赖于他们的当地环境。此外，正如我们在范畴批评中所看到的，许多社会类型是通过排斥一种对比的方式形成的(因此批评 I-4)。

4. *Cross-cutting*. Social kinds cut across each other. This is in distinct contrast to natural kinds. It is sometimes supposed that a given entity can only be a member of one (non--nested) natural kind; e.g., something is either gold or silver but not both. Yet social kinds often display just this tendency. The same action can be both religious and political. The same tennis ball may be categorized as a piece of sports equipment, a dog toy, an art installation, or a planet in a child's mobile, depending on the context.⁴¹

交叉切割。社会类型相互交叉。这与自然种类形成鲜明对比。有时，人们假定给定的实体只能是一个(非嵌套的)自然种类的成员；例如，某物要么是金，要么是银，但不能两者都是。然而，社会种类经常表现出这种倾向。同样的行为可以是宗教的也可以是政治的。根据具体情况，同一个网球可以分为运动器材、狗玩具、艺术装置或儿童手机中的行星

5. *Abstractions/Reifications*. Social kinds—like most linguistic categories except personal names—tend to be abstractions or generalizations. There is usually something lost in the process of generalizing. Moreover, there is a strong tendency for people to take social kinds and reify them—that is to say, treat them as though they are entities with their own agency or as though they are natural kinds.⁴² (This leads toward critique I--5.) Part of the work of scholars in the human sciences is to find a balance between over--generalization and over--particularization. This may mean finding a sweet spot in a given work, or it might mean successive works tacking back and forth between the two modes.

抽象/具体化。社会类型——就像除了个人名字以外的大多数语言范畴一样——倾向于抽象化或概括化。通常在泛化的过程中会丢失一些东西。此外，人们还有一种强烈的倾向，就是把社会类型具体化——也就是说，把它们当作有自己能动性的实体，或者当作自然类型来对待人文科学学者的部分工作是在过度概括和过度特殊化之间找到平衡。这可能意味着在给定的工作中找到一个最佳点，也可能意味着连续的工作在两种模式之间来回转换。

6. *Historically/Culturally Contingent*. As discussed in chapter 2, much of the conversation around social construction is about historical contingency. In effect, if history had been different, the entity in question would have been different in some important way. It is hard to do counterfactual history well, but social kinds tend to have properties that have changed over time and in that respect different historical outcomes might have produced social kinds with different properties. (Moreover, these changes can often be reconstructed to expose the function of contingent systems of power.) Further, many social kinds exhibit a high degree of difference between cultures or languages, which often either lack the kind in question or construe it differently (hence critiques R-1, R-2, R-3).

历史/文化因素。正如第二章所讨论的，围绕社会建设的许多对话都是关于历史偶然性的。实际上，如果历史是不同的，那么所讨论的实体就会在某些重要方面有所不同。反事实的历史很难做好，但社会种类往往具有随着时间的推移而变化的属性，在这方面，不同的历史结果可能会产生具有不同属性的社会种类。（此外，这些变化往往可以重建，以暴露权力偶然系统的功能此外，许多社会类型在不同文化或语言之间表现出很大程度的差异，这些文化或语言往往要么缺乏所讨论的类型，要么以不同的方式解释它（因此批评 R-1, R-2, R-3）。

7. *Normative*. Social kinds tend to have normative registers. They suggest values. The normativity inherent in the human sciences has bothered a lot of scholars. But I will argue that it needn't. The final two chapters of this book will be devoted to making the case for bringing our hidden values to the surface in such a way that they help to further intellectual progress (hence critique E-1).

规范。社会类型倾向于有规范的语域。它们暗示着价值观。人文科学固有的规范性困扰着许多学者。但是我认为这没有必要。本书的最后两章将致力于阐述如何将我们隐藏的价值观以有助于进一步智力发展的方式表现出来（因此批判 E-1）。

8. *Mind-dependence*. As I argued in chapter 1, there are different kinds of mind-dependence, including ontological, causal, and classificatory versions. To say that something is mind-dependent could suggest that something exists primarily because of ongoing attitudes and beliefs (e.g., a given dollar bill is money only as long as a group of people believe it is money), or it could be a causal account of how it came into being (e.g., Banksy's mural "The Son of a Migrant from Syria" is mind-dependent because it was envisioned and then created by a human mind, but it is a physical object), or it could just be a description of an *ad hoc* classification (e.g., my daughter's collection of her favorite rocks). In all these senses, it would seem that disciplinary categories are mind-dependent.

精神依赖。正如我在第一章中所论述的，有不同种类的精神依赖，包括本体论、因果论和分类论的版本。如果说某种东西是精神依赖的，可能意味着某种东西的存在主要是因为持续不断的态度和信仰(例如，一张给定的美元钞票只有在一群人相信它是钱的时候才是钱)，或者它可能是它如何产生的因果关系(例如，班克斯的壁画《叙利亚移民的儿子》是精神依赖的，因为它是人类的想象，然后由人类的精神创造出来的，但它是一个物理对象)，或者它可能只是对一个特定分类的描述(例如，我女儿收集的她最喜欢的石头)。在所有这些意义上，似乎学科分类都是依赖于思维的。

This is a very provisional list. In chapter 4 I will articulate and give nuance to these points in greater detail, but even in broad outline they suggest that we need to conceptualize social kinds with features diametrically opposed to those associated with classical notions of natural kinds.

这是一个非常临时的名单。在第四章中，我将更详细地阐述和给出这些观点的细微差别，但是即使在大纲中，它们也表明我们需要对社会类型进行概念化，这些社会类型的特征与那些与自然类型的经典概念相关的特征截然相反。

The most important implication of the above, however, is that thinking of the disciplinary master categories as process kinds allows us to see them in a new way. This is because, at the most basic level, processes have a different grammar than substances—they are verbs rather than nouns. Thus, the scholars who substituted verbs for nouns I mentioned in the opening of this chapter are on the right track. To think of social kinds as processes is to emphasize their function as patterned activity and con-

然而，上述最重要的含义是，将学科主人类别视为过程类别，使我们能够以一种新的方式看待它们。这是因为，在最基本的层面上，过程与物质有着不同的语法——它们是动词而不是名词。因此，我在本章开头提到的用动词代替名词的学者们是在正确的道路上。把社会类型看作过程，就是强调它们作为模式化活动和控制的功能

stant change, rather than as “building blocks,” containers, or shared concepts. As John Searle has observed, for “social objects . . . the grammar of the noun phrases conceals from us the fact that, in such cases, process is prior to product. Social objects are always, in some sense we will need to explain, constituted by social acts; and, in a sense, the object is just the continuous possibility of the activity.”⁴³As he elaborates: “social *ob-jects*, such as governments, money, and universities, are in fact just place-holders for patterns of *activities*.”⁴⁴ I think Searle is basically right (and indeed this assertion complements Judith Butler’s exploration on the role of various discursive processes in the “sedimentation” of sexed and gendered bodies), although unfortunately the rest of Searle’s work largely fails to capitalize on this insight.⁴⁵

即时变化，而不是作为“积木”，容器，或共享的概念。正如约翰·塞尔所观察到的，对于“社会对象……名词短语的语法掩盖了这样一个事实：在这种情况下，过程优先于产品。在某种意义上，我们需要解释的是，社会对象总是由社会行为构成的；在某种意义上，对象只是活动的持续可能性。”正如他解释的那样：“社会对象，如政府、金钱和大学，实际上只是活动模式的占有者。”我认为 Searle 基本上是正确的(事实上，这个断言补充了 Judith Butler 关于各种话语过程在性别和性别身体“沉淀”中的作用的探索)，尽管不幸的是 Searle 的其他工作在很大程度上没有利用这个观点

I will complicate this in chapter 4, but at the very least what makes an object “money” is not what it is made of (metal, paper, computer bits), but the process of its manufacture and the potential activity of its use. More-over, the same material artifact can be used as a weapon, a work of art, or an object of worship. So the real question should not be “is this object art?” but “*when* and *how* is this object art?”⁴⁶

我将在第四章复杂化这个问题，但是至少使一个物体“货币”的不是它是由什么构成的(金属、纸张、计算机比特)，而是它的制造过程和使用它的潜在活动。更重要的是，同样的物质文物可以被用作武器、艺术品或者崇拜的对象。所以真正的问题不应该是“这件物品是艺术吗?”而是“这件物品何时以及如何成为艺术品?”⁴⁶

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Reconceptualizing the social world is not primarily a matter of terminology or metaphor. I am not trying to rid us of our nouns. Rather, I am pointing out that focusing on substances over processes in the human sciences leads toward different modes of investigation. Think of the difference between an analysis of gold (an archetypal substance) and an analysis of a thunderstorm (an archetypal process). Gold has discrete boundaries. It can be identified by

investigating its chemical properties (e.g., a trioxoni-trate acid test). Gold's essence and properties result from the fact that it has seventy-nine protons in the nucleus of its atoms. Hence, its atomic number (79) can be used to define gold insofar as all gold atoms are sup-posed to have the same number of protons. In an analysis of substances, change is often the problem to be explained. So if different samples of gold behaved differently or changed over time, that would necessitate an explanation.

重新概念化社会世界并不主要是一个术语或隐喻的问题。我并不是在试图摆脱我们的名词。相反，我要指出的是，在人类科学的过程中，关注物质会导致不同的研究模式。想想分析黄金(一种原型物质)和分析雷雨(一种原型过程)之间的区别。黄金具有离散的边界。它可以通过研究其化学性质来确定(例如，三氧杂多酸测试)。黄金的本质和性质是由于它的原子核中有 79 个质子。因此，它的原子序数(79)可以用来定义黄金，因为假定所有的金原子都具有相同数量的质子。在物质分析中，变化往往是需要解释的问题。因此，如果不同的黄金样品表现不同或随着时间的推移发生了变化，这就需要一个解释。

Thunderstorms, by contrast, lack discrete boundaries. The edge of a given storm is typically vague. Whether one is studying a single storm or multi-cell clusters can be relatively ambiguous. Thunderstorms have typical properties, not necessary properties. They are usually accompanied by winds, heavy rain, sometimes sleet or hail, but they can have no precipitation at all. Thunderstorms are not autonomous substances; rather, they are assembled from components (e.g., air, water, pollen grains, etcet-

相比之下，雷暴则没有离散的边界。特定风暴的边缘通常是模糊的。研究对象是单个风暴还是多细胞团簇可能相对模糊。雷暴具有典型的特性，而不是必要的特性。它们通常伴随着大风、暴雨，有时还会下雨夹雪或冰雹，但它们可能根本没有降水。雷暴不是自主的物质；相反，它们是由各种成分(如空气、水、花粉颗粒等)组成的

era) and their manifestation is contextual and hence relational (e.g., typically requiring the presence of a combination of moisture, an unstable air mass, and thermals to produce a lifting force). Rather than being static entities, thunderstorms go through stages (from cumulus to mature to dissipating). They produce and are a product of atmospheric conditions (or more precisely, what we call a thunderstorm is a sequence of changes in the atmosphere), and so on. All that is to say, if the logic of substances is based on distinct boundaries and relative stability, the logic of a process is one of components, context, stages, cycles, phases, and conditions.

(例如，通常需要水汽、不稳定的气团和热力的结合才能产生升力)。雷暴不是静态的实体，而是经历阶段(从积云到成熟再到消散)。它们产生并且是大气条件的产物(或者更准确地说，我们所说的雷暴是大气中的一系列变化)，等等。也就是说，如果物质的逻辑是基于不同的边界和相对的稳定性，那么过程的逻辑就是组件、上下文、阶段、循环、阶段和条件之一。

Processes lack sharp boundaries. They have fuzzy edges. Many processes are unowned (e.g., a heatwave) and thus have no inherent substance of their own.⁴⁷ A process has no permanence. It cannot help but change over time, unless it is to be a spent force. The coherence of a process is causal; they are identified by what they do, not where they are. Processes recruit other processes and are recruited in turn. They are conditioned and relational, rather than autonomous and essential. It makes no sense to look only for the pure process, as if it existed on its own or in an uncontaminated form. Change is the rule for processes, and stability or persistence is the exception.

过程缺乏明确的界限。它们有模糊的边缘。许多过程是无主的(例如，热浪)，因此没有自己固有的物质。⁴⁷ 一个过程没有永久性。它不可避免地会随着时间的推移而改变，除非它是一种耗尽的力量。一个过程的连贯性是因果关系；它们是由它们所做的事情而不是它们所处的位置来确定的。过程招募其他过程，并依次招募。它们是有条件的和相互关联的，而不是自主的和必要的。仅仅寻找纯粹的过程是没有意义的，就好像它自己存在或者以未被污染的形式存在一样。变化是过程的规则，稳定性和持久性是例外。

Thinking in terms of processes allows us to break down the distinction between social entities and events. What is called an “entity” or “state” at any given time is revealed to be a slow process, while events are just fast processes.⁴⁸ To treat social kinds as processes is also to emphasize their function as loopings of matter and meaning. This will be explored in greater detail later in this book; for now it will suffice to say that we approach the mental through the material and the material through the mental. That social kinds are process kinds means that while they are the sites of language, they

are not merely language, because they include non-conceptual elements—elements that by themselves resist reduction into language.

从过程的角度思考使我们能够分解社会实体和事件之间的区别。任何时候所谓的“实体”或“状态”都是一个缓慢的过程，而事件只是一个快速的过程。⁴⁸ 把社会种类当作过程也是为了强调它们作为物质和意义的循环的功能。这将在本书后面更详细地探讨；现在只要说我们通过材料接近心智，通过心智接近材料就足够了。社会类型是过程类型，这意味着虽然它们是语言的场所，但它们不仅仅是语言，因为它们包含了非概念性元素——这些元素本身就抵制还原为语言。

A process social ontology has implications for how we understand subjectivity. An older stratum of theory in the social sciences tended to presume that people had stable identities and encountered stable social structures. But the basic structure of human subjectivity (or perhaps the phenomenological ground of experience) is itself processual. As Rowland Stout argues, processes are more salient in consciousness than in events, since “I know what I am doing in a more direct way than the way I know what I did, and this applies similarly to what I am feeling, thinking, see-ing, etc. The subjective perspective . . . is a perspective on their ongoing mental life—their life as a process.”⁴⁹ For this reason, both phenomenology and an explanation of human mental life need to reckon with the importance of experience itself as a dynamical process. Moreover, a pro-

过程社会本体论对我们如何理解主体性具有启示意义。社会科学中一个较老的理论阶层倾向于假设人们有稳定的身份，遇到稳定的社会结构。但是人类主体性的基本结构(或者可能是经验的现象学基础)本身就是过程性的。正如 Rowland Stout 所说，过程在意识中比在事件中更加突出，因为“我知道我在做什么，比我知道我做了什么的方式更直接，这同样适用于我的感觉、思考、看到等等。主观视角... .. 是对他们正在进行的精神生活的一种视角——他们作为一个过程的生活。”基于这个原因，无论是现象学还是对人类精神生活的解释都需要考虑到经验本身作为一个动态过程的重要性。此外，一个支持

cessual view allows us to envisage what we might term (after Édouard Glissant) an “ontology of relationality,” or a sense and function of subjectivity that is more concerned with the unfolding relations (personal, structural, global, political, what--have--you) that constellate as/in subjectivity than with some reified “identity” that emerges from these relations.⁵⁰ Instead of old-fashioned accounts of identity positions, this allows us to emphasize the relational co--emergence of individuals and their environment.

顺从观允许我们设想我们可以称之为(在爱德华·格利斯-桑特之后的)“关系本体论”，或者一种主观性的感觉和功能，这种感觉和功能更多地与展开的关系(个人的、结构的、全局的、政治的、你所拥有的)有关，这些关系作为主观性的星座而不是从这些关系中产生的某种具体化的“身份”。

Strikingly, conceptualizing social kinds as unfolding processes allows us to grant (and even make sense of) much of the critique of the disciplinary objects discussed in chapter 2. Six of the eight main features of the disciplinary master categories revealed by turning the critique inside out include being high--entropic, undefinable, *niḥsvabhāva* or interdependent, cross--cutting, tending toward reification, and being typically historically/culturally--contingent. All of these make sense as critiques of processes that have been misunderstood as substances.

引人注目的是，将社会种类概念化为展开过程允许我们对第二章中讨论的学科对象进行批判(甚至理解)。通过将批判反过来揭示的学科大师范畴的八个主要特征中有六个包括高熵、不可定义、相互依存、交叉、倾向于具体化，以及典型的历史/文化随机性。所有这些作为对被误解为物质的过程的批判是有意义的。

To return to the anti--essentialism with which we began this chapter, several philosophers (DeLanda, Deleuze, Dupré) have observed that process gives us a natural critique of “essence.”⁵¹ Processual kinds are change, definitionally. Furthermore, genealogy, for instance, gets most of its mileage out of demonstrating that a “unity,” previously perceived as universal and transhistorical, turns out to be historically conditioned. But generalizing this basic argument would be admitting that *all unities* are the product of just such contingencies. Paraphrased, all social entities turn out to be formations in the Foucauldian sense. But arguing that a social entity is unreal because it lacks an “essence” or because it changes over time is equally a mistake. When all we were doing was destabilizing essences, we often left ourselves unable to say anything at all for fear of accidentally essentializing. But when we realize that we were really reacting to the perceived opposition of the processual nature of the social to the supposedly fixed and rigid identity of natural kinds, we can relax in the insight that to exist as a social entity is to be conditioned, to be the product of causally unfolding processes. Thus, we can make certain generalizations while also recognizing that we are talking about

processes in flux, and that whatever we say now can and will likely be subject to change in the future. Nevertheless, our observations can be incredibly useful—they can help us to gain a more accurate picture of the stage of unfolding we are in now, as well as those that have come before.

为了回到我们开始这一章的反本质主义，一些哲学家(德兰达、德勒兹、杜普雷)观察到过程给了我们对于“本质”的自然批判从定义上来说，过程类型是变化的。此外，举例来说，宗谱学的大部分成果都来自于它证明了一种“统一”，这种“统一”以前被认为是普遍的和跨越历史的，结果却是受历史条件制约的。但是一般化这个基本论点就是承认所有的统一都是这种偶然性的产物。换句话说，所有的社会实体最终都是福柯意义上的形成。但是，认为一个社会实体是不真实的，因为它缺乏“本质”或者因为它随着时间的推移而改变，同样是一个错误。当我们所做的一切都是不稳定的本质，我们经常让自己无法说任何东西，因为害怕意外地感情用事。但是，当我们意识到，我们实际上是在对人们所认为的社会的过程性质与所谓固定和僵化的自然种类的同一性的对立作出反应时，我们就可以放松下来，认识到作为一个社会实体存在是有条件的，是因果展开过程的产物。因此，我们可以作出某些概括，同时也认识到我们谈论的是不断变化的过程，而且我们现在所说的一切在未来可能而且很可能发生变化。尽管如此，我们的观察还是非常有用的——它们可以帮助我们更准确地了解我们现在所处的发展阶段，以及以前的发展阶段。

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So how do we know we are talking about the “same” processes? In a Heraclitean sense, we never have the “same” process at all. This can be illustrated—那么，我们如何知道我们谈论的是“相同”的过程呢？在 heraclitean 的意义上，我们从来没有“相同”的过程。这可以是微生物

trated with a parable known in classical Indian philosophy as “Menan-der’s Chariot” (which is a similar but better formulation of the famous parable of Theseus’ ship). The *Milinda Pañha* (“Questions of King Menan-der”) portrays a dialogue between King Menander and the monk Nāga-sena. When I teach this to undergraduate students, I refer to Menander’s “racecar” to update the parable. The thought experiment goes like this: Menander is a racecar driver. After each lap his car completes, the pit crew replaces a piece of the racecar with a new part. Say after one lap, one per-cent of the car has been exchanged with new material, and so on. Eventually the pit crew has replaced every single part and the car is made out of one hundred percent new parts. The question is—at what point does it stop being the same car? Students usually reply either that it is always the same car or that it stops being the same car after the first change. But at this point I introduce the further wrinkle that the pit crew has been secretly hiding parts in a warehouse and in boxes, and they have accumulated all the original matter of Menander’s racecar. Which of these is the real car—the original matter or the currently functioning car? What would happen if the pit crew took these components and assembled them into a second vehicle?

以一个在印度古典哲学中被称为“Menan-der’s Chariot”的比喻来处理(这是一个类似于忒修斯的船的著名比喻的更好的表述)。Milinda Pañha (“Menan-der 国王的问题”)描绘了 Menander 国王和 n ga-sena 修道士之间的对话。当我把这个故事教给本科生时,我引用了 Menander 的“赛车”来更新这个比喻。这个思维实验是这样的: Menander 是一个赛车手。在他的赛车完成每一圈后,维修人员会用新的部件替换赛车的一部分。比如说在一圈之后,1% 的车身被换成了新的材料,以此类推。最终,维修人员更换了每一个零件,这辆车是由 100% 的新零件组成的。问题是——从什么时候开始它不再是同一辆车了? 学生们通常会回答,要么它永远是同一辆车,要么它在第一次改变之后就不再是同一辆车了。但在这里,我要介绍一个更深层次的问题维修人员一直在秘密地把零件藏在仓库和盒子里,他们已经积累了 Menander 赛车的所有原始物品。这些东西中哪一个是真正的汽车——原始物质还是目前正在运行的汽车? 如果维修人员把这些零部件组装成第二辆车会发生什么?

The relevance of this parable to biological and social kinds can be made explicit. Like Menander’s racecar/chariot, the cells in the human body turn over roughly every fifteen years (some much faster, some slower).⁵² Similarly, the ontology of corporations (and other social groups) encounters an issue because replacing members can lead toward the same seemingly paradoxical conclusion that the corporation is always different corporations.⁵³ Since attaining canonical form in Plutarch as Theseus’ ship, a

version of this thought experiment has had a long life in European philosophical thought, where it is often used to argue for some version of mereological nihilism.

这个比喻与生物学和社会学的相关性可以被明确表达出来。⁵² 同样，公司(和其他社会团体)的实体论也遇到了一个问题，因为替换成员会导致同样看似矛盾的结论，即公司永远是不同的公司。⁵³ 自从在 Plutarch 作为忒修斯的飞船获得规范形式以来，这种思想实验的一个版本在欧洲哲学思想中有着悠久的历史，在那里它经常被用来争论某种版本的流变学分体虚无主义。

But the *Milinda Pañha* has a different conclusion. First, it suggests that the chariot is only provisionally or conventionally the same chariot. Any entity composed of parts or aggregates lacks a single or essential nature. So in this respect, a process is in some sense always changing, and therefore lacks autonomous or permanent identity (again, think of Heraclitus never stepping in the same river). This seems to be a largely skeptical response. But the *Milinda Pañha* goes one step further, and suggests that the conventional identity of the chariot is similar to a lit torch being used to light another torch. Is it the same flame? No. But Nāgasena argues that the flames share a causal continuity.⁵⁴ Restated, whatever the degree to which Menander's chariot is the same chariot, it is the same because it shares a process or causal continuity. You are not the matter of your body, but to the

但是 *Milinda Pañha* 有不同的结论。首先，它表明这辆战车只是暂时或者按照惯例是同一辆战车。任何由部件或集合体组成的实体都缺乏单一的或本质的性质。因此，在这方面，一个过程在某种意义上总是在变化，因此缺乏自主性或永久性的同一性(再想想赫拉克利特从未踏入同一条河流)。这似乎是一个很大程度上持怀疑态度的回应。但 *Milinda Pañha* 更进一步，认为战车的传统特征类似于点燃另一个火炬的火炬。是同样的火焰吗？不是。但是 n gasena 认为火焰具有因果连续性。⁵⁴ 重申，无论 Menander 的战车在多大程度上是同一辆战车，它都是相同的，因为它具有共同的过程或因果连续性。你不是你身体的问题，而是

extent that you are provisionally you, you are an unfolding process with a particular causal history.

如果你是暂时的你，你就是一个具有特定因果历史的展开过程。

Another key point is that unlike objects, processes can fork (one chariot can become two). To recast this in more contemporary terms, we can use the example of the Tigris River. In some respects, the Tigris is a different river every day, insofar as it contains different matter. The Tigris literally forks, and it is pragmatically relative to a given project whether any given tributary counts as a part of the same river. But rivers with no causal or process continuity to the Tigris are definitely not the same river. So the Tigris and the Mississippi are not the same river in any meaningful sense.

另一个关键点是，不同于物体，过程可以分叉(一辆战车可以变成两辆)。我们可以用底格里斯河(Tigris River)的例子来重新诠释这一点。在某些方面，底格里斯河每天都是一条不同的河流，因为它包含着不同的物质。底格里斯河实际上是分叉的，从实用的角度来说，它是相对于一个给定的项目，是否任何给定的支流算是同一条河流的一部分。但是与底格里斯河没有因果关系或过程连续性的河流肯定不是同一条河流。所以底格里斯河和密西西比河在任何意义上都不是同一条河。

The main upshot of this is that when analyzing processes, as opposed to identities, we describe relations and causal continuities. Social kinds do not exist outside of time. Social kinds mean or function differently at distinctive moments and places and in relationship to other entangled processes. That said, social kinds are not fully unbounded, but result from the partial accumulation of past interactions. Instead of necessary history or arbitrary flux, we have path dependence. Outcomes are partially conditioned by environment and previous outcomes. In this we have recovered the discipline of history, without presumptions about the handing down of essence.

这样做的主要结果是，当分析过程，而不是恒等式，我们描述的关系和因果连续性。社会类型并不存在于时间之外。社会种类在特定的时间和地点，以及与其他纠缠过程的关系中，意味着或功能是不同的。也就是说，社会种类并不是完全无限的，而是过去相互作用的部分积累的结果。我们有路径依赖，而不是必要的历史或任意的变化。结果部分取决于环境和以前的结果。在这一点上，我们已经恢复了历史的规律，没有假设传承的本质。

3.4 Conclusion: Beyond Anti-Essentialism

3.4 结论: 超越反本质主义

The disciplinary categories are vulnerable to the same sorts of critiques because they function similarly. Moreover, as I have been arguing, many of the deconstructive criticisms of the disciplinary master categories amount to identifying errors stemming from reification, atemporality, and mis-placed concreteness—in other words, faults rooted in misidentifying the processual nature of social kinds. Indeed, one could argue that the human sciences have consistently mistaken social kinds for natural kinds. Thus, we have either vainly emulated the *modus operandi* of the natural sciences or, when certain knowledge was not forthcoming, completely rejected the possibility of explanatory knowledge. But as I have been arguing, neither path is necessary if we understand our subjects not as static universals but as historically conditioned unfolding processes. Although we have to be careful about importing “just--so” stories or misguided forms of reduction-ism, the human sciences are more like biology than they are like physics, and we need to approach our subject matter accordingly.

学科类别容易受到同样类型的批评，因为它们的功能相似。此外，正如我一直主张的那样，许多对学科主体类别的解构性批评，相当于确定了源于具体化、非时间性和错误的具体性的错误——换句话说，源于错误确定社会类别的过程性质的错误。事实上，有人可能会争辩说，人类科学一直把社会类型误认为自然类型。因此，我们要么徒劳地模仿自然科学的工作方式，要么在某些知识不能得到的时候，完全拒绝解释性知识的可能性。但正如我一直在争论的那样，如果我们不把我们的主题理解为静态的普遍性，而是把它们理解为历史条件下的展开过程，那么这两条道路都是不必要的。虽然我们不得不小心引入“只是如此”的故事或被误导的还原论，但人文科学更像是生物学而不是物理学，我们需要相应地处理我们的主题。

All this means that we need to stop trying to analyze social kinds as if they were classical natural kinds. A significant thread in the debate around natural kinds, as evidenced by Khalidi and others, is to expand the notion

所有这一切都意味着我们需要停止试图分析社会类型，就好像它们是经典的自然类型一样。正如 Khalidi 和其他人所证明的那样，围绕自然种类的争论中有一个重要的主线，就是扩展这个概念

of natural kind until it is broad enough to include things like social kinds. While I am sympathetic to these efforts, what this approach overlooks is that social kinds have a different basic structure than natural kinds. The preliminary list of process social kinds' features above already suggests that social kinds are better formulated by inverting (rather than extending) the features typically associated with classical notions of natural kinds. My further reservation is the suspicion that "natural kind" is itself probably not a "natural kind term," or at the very least that the abstract structure of "kinds" in physics, mathematics, geology, and sociology differs enough across these disciplines that the respective "kinds" cannot be covered by the same grounding theoretical abstractions.⁵⁵ For this reason, I think trying to come up with a notion of natural kinds that fits all special sciences will almost necessarily fail (or it will become so vague and general in its effort to capture everything that it will ultimately be unhelpful).⁵⁶ It would be a mistake to assume that the term "natural kind" is itself a "natural kind" that would allow us to reconstruct the categories in all the natural sciences, much less include categories in the human sciences. To put a finer point on it, *the world we study in the human sciences is not jointed*. It is not divisible into clearly demarcated kinds. But even so, we can still study the social world.

直到它的范围足够广泛，可以包括社会性的东西。虽然我同情这些努力，但这种方法忽略的是，社会种类有一个不同于自然种类的基本结构。上述过程社会类特征的初步列表已经表明，通过颠倒(而不是扩展)典型的与自然类的经典概念相关的特征，社会类可以得到更好的表述。我进一步的保留是怀疑“自然种类”本身可能不是一个“自然种类术语”，或者至少在物理学、数学、地质学和社会学中“种类”的抽象结构在这些学科之间差异很大，以至于相应的“种类”不能被相同的基础理论抽象所覆盖。⁵⁵ 基于这个原因，我认为试图提出一个适用于所有特殊科学的自然种类的概念几乎必然会失败(或者它会变得如此模糊和笼统，以致于它最终将无济于事)。⁵⁶ 假定“自然种类”一词本身就是一种“自然种类”，使我们能够重建所有自然科学中的类别，更不用说包括人类科学中的类别，这种想法是错误的。为了更好地说明这一点，我们在人文科学领域所研究的世界并不是连在一起的。它不能被分割成明确划分的种类。但即便如此，我们仍然可以研究社会世界。

Sometimes philosophers argue that social kinds are radically different from natural kinds, but they draw from this the conclusion that the human sciences are not real sciences.⁵⁷ While I would agree that the human sciences are not nomological disciplines, I will argue in chapter 4 that one of the things holding back rigorous theorizing in the human sciences is the very lack of a theory of social kinds itself. So I will start from the suspicion that social kinds

are different from classical natural kinds, but that the human sciences also produce genuine knowledge.

有时候哲学家们争辩说, 社会种类与自然种类有着根本的不同, 但是他们从中得出的结论是, 人类科学不是真正的科学。57. 虽然我同意人类科学不是法则学科, 但是我将在第四章论证, 阻碍人类科学严格理论化的原因之一是缺乏社会种类理论本身。因此, 我将从社会种类不同于经典自然种类的怀疑开始, 但是人类科学也产生真正的知识。

The problem is that many of the academic disciplines have taken ideal-ized versions of physics (or in this case perhaps chemistry) to be the proto-typical example of science. There are few things outside minerals and chemical elements that fit the notion of classical natural kinds articulated above. Despite my early argument I do not mean to presume a simple opposition between substance and process. Archetypal natural kinds like atomic elements actually have their properties based on their history (say, in atomic fusions produced in the nuclear furnaces of stars); but that said, from the vantage of the lifespan of the entire human species, their prop-erties seem to be stable. So atomic elements may appear eternal, even if they are the product of particular (albeit long time--scale) processes. Social kinds—like biological kinds—do not exhibit even that stability. Moreover, social institutions, ethical values, nation states, and social movements are continually producing new ethical, political, artistic, and intellectual for-

问题在于, 许多学科已经把理想化的物理学(或者在这种情况下可能是化学)作为科学的典型范例。除了矿物质和化学元素之外, 几乎没有什么东西符合上述经典自然种类的概念。尽管我早些时候提出了这样的观点, 但我并不是想假定物质和过程之间存在简单的对立。典型的自然物种, 如原子元素, 其性质实际上是基于它们的历史(比如说, 在恒星的核熔炉中产生的原子聚变); 但是, 从整个人类物种的寿命来看, 它们的性质似乎是稳定的。因此, 原子元素可能看起来是永恒的, 即使它们是特定过程(尽管是长时间规模的)的产物。社会物种——比如生物物种——甚至没有表现出这种稳定性。此外, 社会制度、伦理价值观、民族国家和社会运动正在不断地产生新的伦理、政治、艺术 and 知识

mations and so on. As I demonstrate in greater detail in chapter 4, social kinds are typically materially instantiated, but that does not guarantee their atemporality. Human artifacts, for instance, generally change and decay even if some do so very slowly. For these reasons, not just the meaning, but even the referents of our scholarship are constantly shifting. Therefore, the human sciences cannot fix or eternalize their concepts. But that should not limit our capacity to carry out research.

等等。正如我在第四章中详细阐述的那样，所以社会类型通常是物质实例化的，但这并不能保证它们的非时间性。例如，人类制品通常会改变和衰变，即使有些改变和衰变非常缓慢。由于这些原因，不仅仅是意义，甚至我们学术的参照物也在不断变化。因此，人文科学不能固定或永恒他们的概念。但这不应该限制我们进行研究的能力。

Research itself is a process. To explain, in chapter 6 I will argue that the very way we come to knowledge about the world is through processes like abduction. In this respect “the method of identifying an object is itself a process. Therefore, things cannot even be recognized as things without some process.”⁵⁸ We wouldn’t know about substances or their properties without process. Thus, there are many reasons we might want to think of processes as an ontological fundamental. At the very least, reorienting ourselves to the processual nature of social kinds, necessarily including knowledge and science, should give us a better vantage on many things, including scholarly praxis itself.

研究本身就是一个过程。为了解释，在第六章中我会说，我们了解世界的方式就是通过绑架这样的过程。在这方面，“识别一个物体的方法本身就是一个过程。因此，没有某种过程，事物甚至不能被认为是事物。”⁵⁸ 没有过程，我们就不会知道物质或它们的性质。因此，我们可能有很多理由认为过程是本体论的基础。至少，重新定位我们自己的社会类型的过程性质，必然包括知识和科学，应该给我们一个更好的优势在许多事情上，包括学术实践本身。

To circle back to the chapter opening one last time, a process social ontology returns to the last chapter, a chapter about... the socialization process

ology also has a distinct advantage beyond mere anti-essentialism-. Many anti-essentialisms lack an account of essence. They often assume that any generalization (or hint of universalism) is itself tantamount to engaging in taboo essentialist thought. As Fuss has observed, many scholars essentialized essentialism and treated it as though every gesture toward similarity or shared properties was equally pernicious.⁵⁹ This was a mistake. Once we started saying that “the essence of X was that it lacked an essence,” we should have realized our critique had become muddled. But an emphasis on processes lets us move past that skeptical impasse. While I think we tend to focus too much on revising preferred terms while letting back-ground assumptions persist unchallenged, this insight has been in front of us all along with the linguistic

trend toward verbs. It is probably the case that the only thing all the “slaves” in different cultures had in com-mon was the process of having been “enslaved,” so rather than treating all generalizations as false, we can say quite a bit about the enslavement process.

在纯粹的反本质主义之外，目的论还有一个明显的优势。许多反本质主义缺乏对本质的解释。他们通常认为任何概括(或普遍主义的暗示)本身就等同于禁忌的本质主义思想。正如 Fuss 所观察到的那样，许多学者认为本质主义是必不可少的，并且认为每一个表现相似性或共同性质的手势都是同样有害的。一旦我们开始说“x 的本质是它缺乏本质”，我们就应该意识到我们的批判已经变得混乱了。但是对过程的强调让我们摆脱了怀疑的僵局。虽然我认为我们倾向于过多地关注修改偏好的术语，同时让背景假设不受质疑地持续存在，但是这种洞察力已经随着动词的语言学趋势一直摆在我们面前。也许不同文化中的所有“奴隶”唯一的共同点就是被“奴役”的过程，因此，与其把所有的概括都看作是错误的，我们还不如对奴役过程多说一些。

There has already been a small turn toward Whitehead in some theory circles. While I'm not as enamored with Whitehead specifically, I am sympathetic to all types of processual thinking. That said, many of the New Materialists and Deleuzians who have evoked process metaphysics do so in order to emphasize flux and arbitrary change. They use processes to smuggle skepticism into their ontology (which parallels the problems with speculative realism discussed in chapter 1). But many of those theo-rists who want to use Whitehead to get to chaos have not done their home-

在一些理论界，怀特黑德的观点已经有了小小的转变。虽然我不是特别迷恋怀特海德，但我对所有类型的过程性思维都很同情。也就是说，许多引发过程形而上学的新唯物主义者和德勒兹主义者这样做是为了强调通量和随意的变化。他们利用过程将怀疑主义偷偷带入他们的本体论(这与第一章中讨论的思辨实在论的问题相似)。但是，许多想要利用 Whitehead 来达到混乱的理论主义者并没有做好他们的本职工作

work on processes. Processes can be highly varied and probabilistic, but if studied they are not generally unpredictable (e.g., chemical reactions). Moreover, most of the turn to Whitehead is about doubling down on his quasi--theistic monism (hence William Connolly's weird catechism).⁶⁰ More importantly, many theorists in the humanities who have thus far turned to processes seem to be using process primarily as a metaphor. They gesture at the processual nature of things without articulating actual specific processes or giving an account of how they might work. Their pro-processual thinking often functions as mere posturing. The process social ontology I have been articulating here is no mere rhetorical stance, and in chapter 4 I chart specific processes and show how studying them could change our research methods.

在流程上工作。过程可以是高度多样化和可能性的，但是如果研究它们，它们通常不是不可预测的(例如，化学反应)。60 更重要的是，许多人文学科的理论家，到目前为止转向过程，似乎主要把过程当作一种隐喻来使用。他们指出事物的过程性本质，却没有阐明实际的具体过程，也没有说明它们是如何工作的。他们的过程性思维通常只是一种姿态。我在这里阐述的社会本体论的过程并不仅仅是修辞学的立场，在第四章我列出了具体的过程，并展示了研究它们如何能够改变我们的研究方法。

I also want to note that all of this also pushes against a common interpretation of Roy Bhaskar's "critical realism" in the social sciences. In *A Realist Theory of Science*, Bhaskar argues for a distinction between an "intransitive, natural world" and a "transitive" domain of human theorizing that aspires to correspond to that world.⁶¹ In *The Possibility of Naturalism*, he further suggested that "the 'social world,' though different than the 'natural world,' can also be thought of as an 'intransitive' realm, to which the 'transitive' theories produced by social research attempt to correspond."⁶² Although critical realists have understood Bhaskar in different ways (not all of them incompatible with my account), it should be clear that the evidence marshalled above argues against thinking of the social world as an intransitive structure that exists behind the shifting appearances of social phenomena. Rather, a process social ontology suggests that the social world, just like theorizing about that world, is in a state of constant change, yet those transformations can be analyzed.

我还想指出，所有这些也推动了对罗伊·巴斯卡尔在社会科学领域的“批判现实主义”的共同解读。在《现实主义科学理论》一书中，巴斯卡尔主张区分“不及物的、自然的世界”和人类理论中渴望与那个世界相对

应的“及物的”领域。在《自然-理性主义的可能性》一书中，他进一步指出，“‘社会世界’虽然不同于‘自然世界’，但也可以被认为是‘不及物的’领域，社会研究产生的‘及物的’理论试图对此作出相应的回应。”⁶² 尽管批判现实主义者以不同的方式理解巴斯卡尔(并非所有方式都与我的说法不符)，但应该清楚的是，上述证据反驳了将社会世界视为存在于社会现象变化表象背后的不及物结构的观点。相反，一个过程社会本体论表明，社会世界就像理论化那个世界一样，处于不断变化的状态，然而这些变化是可以分析的。

To restate what I want us to carry forward to the next chapter: to think of social kinds as fixed objects with essences is a massive error. But brute anti-essentialism is too imprecise a response. Adopting a process ontology instead allows us to understand the objects studied by the human sci-ences as dynamic components of the social world. This does not rule out the possibility of knowledge with respect to the objects of study; rather, it enables new means for both classification and study of social kinds without presupposing them as static categories, permitting us to build a new theory of social kinds on the rubble of “postmodern” critiques.

为了重申我希望我们继续进行下一章节的内容: 把社会类型看作具有本质的固定对象是一个巨大的错误。但是野蛮的反本质主义太不精确了。相反，采用过程本体论使我们能够理解人类科学研究的对象是社会世界的动态组成部分。这并不排除对研究对象进行认识的可能性; 相反，它为社会种类的分类和研究提供了新的手段，而没有把它们假定为静态的范畴，使我们能够在“后现代”批评的废墟上建立一种新的社会种类理论。

4: Social Kinds

4: 社交类型

This is the language of identity, of social kinds or categories, of considerations that are bound up with those kinds or categories.

这是关于身份的语言，关于社会的种类或类别，关于与这些种类或类别相联系考虑。

Kwame Anthony Appiah, *The Ethics of Identity*
奎迈·安东尼·阿皮亚，《身份的伦理学》

What is the social world made of? The obvious answer—individual people—was for a long time dominant in the social sciences. Under the banner of methodological individualism, a number of social scientists argued that there was no such thing as society distinct from individual humans and their intentional actions, often reconstructed in terms of rational choice theory. This mode of theorizing had distinct advantages in terms of simplicity and clarity. But in many sectors of the academy, methodological individualism has fallen out of vogue. At the very least, thoroughgoing versions of methodological individualism have generally collapsed because of their inability to explain group norms, institutions, corporations, and other collectives, including the economy as a whole.¹ That is not to say that explanations at the individual level are necessarily incorrect, but rather that they are often incomplete and that there are many reasons to engage in the study of groups, emergent phenomena, and higher abstractions. It would seem that society is more than an aggregate of the individuals that make it up.

社会世界是由什么构成的？显而易见的答案——个体人——长期以来一直在社会科学中占据主导地位。在方法论的个人主义的旗帜下，一些社会科学家认为，没有社会这种东西区别于个人及其有意的行为，往往是根据理性选择理论重建的。这种理论模式在简单明了方面有着明显的优势。但在学术界的许多领域，方法论的个人主义已经不再流行。至少，彻底的方法论的个人主义已经普遍崩溃，因为它们无法解释群体规范、制度、公司和其他集体，包括整个经济。¹这并不是说在个人层面上的解释一定是不正确的，而是说它们往往是不完整的，而且有许多理由去

研究群体、新兴现象和更高的抽象。看起来，社会不仅仅是组成它的个体的集合体。

So what are the alternatives? For a long time, the main rivals to methodological individualism were various kinds of methodological holism, which generally tended to construe the social in terms of towering and diffuse wholes such as cultures, social forces, social structures, or social facts. While there has been some valuable work on social groups, large-- scale methodological holisms often lead to the errors of reification and misplaced concreteness discussed in chapters 2 and 3. Moreover, most accounts of social structures and social forces have been maddeningly vague, often suggesting a kind of dualism in which a social world that is at once elusive and all-encompassing functions as a parallel realm over-laying the material world. More importantly, there has been significant difficulty in figuring out how to understand the relationship between indi-

那么还有什么其他选择呢？长期以来，方法论个人主义的主要对手是各种方法论整体主义，这些方法论整体主义通常倾向于从文化、社会力量、社会结构或社会事实等高耸而弥漫的整体来解释社会。虽然有一些关于社会群体的有价值的工作，但大规模的整体方法论往往导致第二章和第三章讨论的具体化和错位的具体性的错误。此外，关于社会结构和社会力量的大多数描述都含糊得令人发狂，往往暗示着一种二元论，在这种二元论中，一个既难以捉摸又包罗万象的社会世界作为覆盖物质世界的一个平行领域发挥作用。更重要的是，在弄清楚如何理解印度人之间的关系方面存在着巨大的困难

vidual agents and the production of social wholes, structures, or forces.² While moderate holisms have something going for them, they typically omit the crucial question of how the social world functions and comes into existence.

虽然温和的整体主义有利于它们，但它们通常忽略了社会世界如何运作和产生的关键问题。

So what makes up the social world? I will argue here that the social is not reducible to individuals or amorphous social forces, but consists in a range of different social kinds, best understood as temporary zones of stability in unfolding processes, which are instantiated in their materialization.³ The social world is built not just out of social animals, but also out of their materialized signs (e.g., the no-smoking sign or an ant's semio-chemical trail are social kinds with particular social functions). Let's approach this from a different angle.

那么，什么组成了社会世界呢？我在这里要论证的是，社会不能简化为个人或无定形的社会力量，而是由一系列不同的社会类型组成，最好理解为展开过程中的临时稳定区域，这些稳定区域在物质化过程中得到了实例化。³ 社会世界不仅是由社会动物建立起来的，而且也是由它们的物化标志建立起来的(例如，禁烟标志或蚂蚁的符号化学踪迹是具有特定社会功能的社会类型)。让我们从另一个角度来看待这个问题。

Humans have the capacity to produce new kinds of entities, such as hammers, money, traffic jams, professors, punk rock, Buddhist monks, and, of course, the disciplinary master categories—religion, art, science, politics, and so on. At least provisionally, these things would seem to be “social kinds,” according to the minimal definition provided by the Icelandic philosopher Ásta, since they are collections “of phenomena defined by a property or feature that is a *social* property or feature.”⁴ That said, we will eventually need a more elaborated account of what it means to be a *social* kind (which I supply below). But Ásta usefully highlights the observation that our ordinary world is populated by entities seemingly brought into being socially and about which we make frequent inferences. The term “social kinds” is a fairly high-level abstraction, encapsulating everything from artifacts, social roles, and institutions to norms, events, and the like; but it is my contention that thinking in terms of the *kindhood* of social kinds will allow us to see the social world in a new light.

人类有能力产生新的实体，例如锤子、金钱、交通堵塞、教授、朋克摇滚、佛教僧侣，当然，还有学科硕士类别——宗教、艺术、科学、政治等等。根据冰岛哲学家 ásta 提供的最低限度的定义，至少暂时来说，这些东西似乎是“社会类型”，因为它们是由一种属性或特征定义的现象的集合，这种属性或特征是社会属性或特征。”也就是说，我们最终

将需要一个更加详细的描述，它意味着什么是一种社会类型(我在下面提供)。但是 ásta 有用地强调了这样一个观察：我们的普通世界是由一些看似社会化的实体组成的，我们对这些实体进行了频繁的推论。“社会种类”这个术语是一个相当高层次的抽象概念，囊括了从人工制品、社会角色、制度到规范、事件等等的一切事物；但是我的论点是，以社会种类的善类来思考将使我们以一种新的视角来看待社会世界。

To head off a potential misunderstanding, “process social kinds” are not *social* in contrast to cultural, political, artifactual, economic, or symbolic kinds. My notion of process social kinds is intended to be a higher--order category that would include all those kinds as well. Based in part on the process ontology I argued for in chapter 3, the distinction between social kinds, social roles, and social events is not important to this theory. Moreover, unlike many previous theorists of the social, I will also expand my account of process social kinds to include some sorts of nonhuman agents. This is going to be even more important in the semiotics I articulate in chapter 5. But any naturalized theory of social kinds is going to have to reckon with the social kinds produced by social animals—such as matri-archs of elephant herds, queen bees, worker ants, beaver dams, wasps’ nests, and so on. Social kinds are not the sole provenance of humans; so we are going to have to transcend presumed binary oppositions between

为了避免潜在的误解，“过程社会类型”与文化、政治、人工、经济或象征性的类型相比，并不是社会性的。我对过程社会类型的定义是一个更高层次的范畴，也包括所有这些类型。部分基于我在第3章中提出的过程本体论，社会种类、社会角色和社会事件之间的区别对于这个理论来说并不重要。此外，与许多先前的社会学理论家不同，我还将扩展我对过程社会类型的叙述，以包括一些非人类的代理人。这一点我在第五章阐述的符号学中更为重要。但是，任何关于社会类型的自然化理论都必须考虑到社会动物所产生的社会类型——例如象群的母拱、蜂王、工蚁、海狸坝、黄蜂巢等等。社会种类并不是人类的唯一起源；因此，我们必须超越假定的二元对立

the natural and the social or between nature and culture. But while our purposes require an expansive meaning of the “social,” it would be a mis-take to expand the category infinitely, as do followers of Latour’s ANT.5 Rather, in what follows, my notion of social kinds builds on the account of mind-dependence I articulated in chapter 1 (with the understanding that minds are not exclusive to humans, but also that not all entities have minds). To put it concisely, I mean “social” primarily as a proxy for socially constructed or mind--dependent.

自然与社会或自然与文化之间。但是，虽然我们的目的需要一个“社会”的广泛含义，无限扩大这个范畴将是一个错误，正如拉图尔的 ANT. 5 的追随者所做的那样。相反，在接下来的内容中，我的社会种类的概念建立在我在第一章中阐述的思想依赖的基础上(理解思想不是人类独有的，而且并不是所有的实体都有思想)。简单地说，我的意思是“社会性”主要是作为社会建构或思维依赖的代理。

Both commonplace language and academic scholarship are full of generalizations about social groups, artifacts, institutions, events, and the like. To be sure, not all generalities about social kinds are equally apt. But unless we are going to rule out most research in the human sciences and nearly all commonsense ideas about the social world (that is, dismiss all meaningful discussions of McDonald’s, Republicans, or the Catholic Church), we would seem to be implicitly presuming something like social kinds that anchor those statements. Philosophers often look to notions of emergence to explain some of the gaps between individual agents and their function in groups. But conventional philosophical accounts of emergence will not work for all social kinds because many social kinds are not part/whole relations.⁶

无论是普通语言还是学术研究，都充满了对社会群体、人工制品、机构、事件等的概括。可以肯定的是，并不是所有关于社会类型的概括都同样适用。但是，除非我们排除人文科学的大部分研究，以及几乎所有关于社会世界的常识性观点(也就是说，排除所有关于麦当劳、共和党或天主教会的有意义的讨论)，否则我们似乎就是在含蓄地假定某种类似于社会类型的东西支撑着这些观点。哲学家们经常用涌现的概念来解释个体行为者和他们在群体中的作用之间的差距。但是传统哲学对涌现的解释并不适用于所有的社会类型，因为许多社会类型并不是部分/整体现关系

Crucially, inferences about these social kinds often go beyond inferences about human individuals. This is because hammers and traffic jams, while they are brought into being by humans, do not have the same properties humans do, and generalizations about hammers and traffic jams are not reducible to generalizations about individual people. Bluntly put,

至关重要的是，对这些社会类型的推论往往超越了对人类个体的推论。这是因为锤子和交通堵塞虽然是人类造成的，但却没有人类所具有的特性，而且关于锤子和交通堵塞的概括不能简化为关于个人的概括。坦率地说，

a typical hammer has properties (e.g., a head with a solid, impact-resistant mass useful for delivering a forceful blow) which are not the properties of an average human being. Even social groups composed entirely of humans exhibit this divergence in properties. For instance, the Williamstown Congregational Church (WCC) and the Williamstown Board of Selectmen (WBS) could have completely identical membership, but the same set of people would be capable of doing different things when they constitute the two different groups. The WBS has powers the WCC lacks (e.g., the WBS can approve warrant articles, but the WCC cannot). Moreover, there are true statements about groups that do not reduce to true statements about members (e.g., “the WCC was established in 1765” is a true statement, but “Anne, Bridget, Ed, & Rachel were established in 1765” is false, even assuming that those four individuals constitute an exhaustive list of members of the church). So while groups are ontologically dependent on the people that compose them, to reduce groups to the properties of the individual members is to miss something important.

典型的锤子具有一些特性(例如，头部具有坚固的、抗冲击的质量，有助于发出有力的一击)，这些特性并不是一般人的特性。即使是完全由人组成的社会群体也表现出这种性质上的差异。例如，威廉斯敦公理会(WCC)和威廉斯敦选举委员会(WBS)可以有完全相同的成员，但是同一组人可以做不同的事情，当他们构成两个不同的团体。WBS拥有WCC缺乏的权力(例如，WBS可以批准搜查令条款，但WCC不能)。此外，还有一些关于团体的真实陈述，并没有归结为关于成员的真实陈述(例如，“WCC成立于1765年”是一个真实陈述，但“Anne, Bridget, Ed, & Rachel成立于1765年”是错误的，即使假设这四个人构成了教会成员的详尽名单)。因此，当群体在本体论上依赖于组成群体的人时，将群体归结为个体成员的属性，就会遗漏一些重要的东西。

Another issue is that social kinds are typically multi-realizable. For instance, money can be made out of totally different materials—from gold coins to paper bank notes to digital bits—all while still being money. So it is clear that the properties of money go beyond the properties of any particular type of material. By way of another example, ink's social effects are dependent on its visibility, but that visibility can be achieved by a range of colorants with completely different origins and chemical compositions. While some New Materialist thinkers have attempted to suggest that the meaning of an assemblage is equivalent to the matter that composes it, the ubiquity of multi--realizable social kinds pushes against this kind of reductionism.

另一个问题是，社会类型通常是多种可实现的。例如，货币可以由完全不同的材料制成——从金币到纸币再到数字比特——所有这些材料仍然是货币。因此，很明显，货币的属性超越了任何特定类型材料的属性。通过另一个例子，油墨的社会影响取决于它的可见性，但可见性可以通过一系列完全不同的起源和化学成分的着色剂来实现。尽管一些新唯物主义思想家试图提出，一个集合的意义等同于构成它的物质，但无处不在的多重可实现的社会类型推动了这种还原论。

Still, while there is a long history of treating social and material properties completely separately, social kinds exhibit both in ways that are more entangled than has generally been supposed. Physical properties are part of what give social kinds their social powers, and physical objects are brought into being by social forces. Making a hammer out of wood and steel is the imposition of a function on raw material as well as the creation of a member of a social kind. But most of the properties of something thus constructed are physical. Moreover, looping effects often make the biological and the social difficult to disaggregate (e.g., dog breeds are social kinds which have particular biological characteristics because of the way they have been bred). In brief, many social kinds interweave what could be called social, physical, and even biological properties.

不过，尽管长期以来，人们一直将社会属性和物质属性完全分开对待，但社会类型的表现方式却比人们通常认为的更加纠缠不清。物理属性是赋予社会类社会力量的一部分，物理对象是由社会力量形成的。用木头和钢铁制造一个锤子是对原材料的一种功能的强加，也是一种社会成员的创造。但是这样建造出来的东西的大部分属性都是物理的。此外，循环效应往往使生物学和社会难以分类(例如，狗品种是具有特殊生物学特性的社会种类，因为它们繁殖方式)。简而言之，许多社会性种类交织在一起，可以被称为社会性、物理性，甚至是生物性。

To understand these better, we need to figure out: what is it that brings social kinds or objects into existence? And what is it that gives them their specific powers/identities? I answer these questions in this chapter by

modifying a notion of homeostatic property--cluster kinds that emerged from theorizing about biological species and by drawing on resources from the process social ontology discussed in chapter 3.

为了更好地理解这些，我们需要弄清楚：是什么使得社会类型或对象存在？是什么赋予了它们特定的力量/身份？在本章中，我通过修改一个自稳态属性的概念——从生物物种理论中产生的群集种类，以及从第3章讨论的社会本体论过程中汲取资源，来回答这些问题。

4.1 Homeostatic Property--Cluster Kinds

4.1 稳态属性-群类

To get us started thinking toward an account of social kindhood, I want to repurpose some key insights from the philosophy of biology. The American philosopher Richard Boyd is famous for a series of articles whose aim is to reconstruct a notion of natural kinds centered on biological species (instead of chemical elements) as the paradigmatic example. To summa-rize, in Boyd's account, "natural kinds" have three main features:

为了让我们开始思考关于社会仁爱的问题，我想重新利用生物哲学的一些关键见解。美国哲学家理查德·博伊德(Richard Boyd)因发表了一系列旨在重建以生物物种(而非化学元素)为中心的自然物种概念的文章而闻名。总而言之，在 Boyd 的描述中，“自然种类”有三个主要特征：

1. Natural kinds are homeostatic property--clusters

自然种类是自我平衡的属性——集群

2. determined by the causal mechanism that brings about their shared properties.

由带来它们共同属性的因果机制决定。

3. The accommodation thesis—the naturalness of a kind is determined in relationship to a disciplinary matrix.

调和论点——一种自然性是由一个学科矩阵决定的。

Boyd's account of natural kinds hinges on treating natural kinds as "*homeostatic property--cluster kinds*" whose identities are determined by the mechanisms that bring a cluster of typically co-occurring properties together.⁷ Natural kinds are defined in terms of loose clusters of typically shared properties. Unlike the fixed or static properties associated with classical natural kinds, his account presumes that a kind's properties change over time. He argues that it is shared changes in the property--cluster or the underlying homeostatic mechanism that preserve the cluster's identity.⁸ One implication of this account is that similarity (or common properties) is not a sufficient criterion for membership in a homeostatic property-- cluster kind. This makes his account distinct from theories like that of family--resemblance. A shared *causal mechanism* is required as well. A scientist cannot merely use the criterion of similarity to determine membership in a given kind; there have to be common homeostatic mechanisms. This is a vital insight, to which I will return repeatedly.

Boyd 关于自然物种的解释依赖于将自然物种视为“稳态属性-集群类”，它们的身份是由将典型的共存属性集合在一起的机制决定的。7. 自然物种是根据典型共享属性的松散集群来定义的。与经典自然种类相关的固定或静态属性不同，他的解释假定一个种类的属性随着时间的推移而改变。他认为，正是财产集群中的共同变化或基本的稳态机制保持了集群的特性。8 这种说法的一个含义是，相似性(或共同性质)不是一个充分的标准，成员在稳态财产集群类型。这使得他的说法与家族相似性等理论不同。一个共同的因果机制也是必需的。一个科学家不能仅仅使用相似性的标准来确定某一特定类型的成员关系；必须有共同的稳态机制。这是一个至关重要的见解，我将反复回顾。

In addition to his definition of natural kinds, Boyd also argues for what he calls the "accommodation thesis"—namely, that being a natural kind is a matter of degree and it is specifically relative to a particular "disciplinary matrix."⁹ But as he puts it elsewhere, "successful induction and explanation always require that we accommodate our categories to the causal structure of the world."¹⁰ Natural kinds have to conform at least partially to actual "causal structures," but "the methods by which we learn about them are importantly historically situated, socially and politically constructed, and non--foundational."¹¹ I return to this accommodation thesis and reconfigure it in chapter 5.¹²

除了他对自然种类的定义之外，博伊德还提出了他所谓的“适应性论点”——也就是说，自然种类是一个程度问题，它与一个特定的“学科矩

阵”具体相关但正如他在其他地方所说的那样，“成功的归纳和解释总是要求我们根据世界的因果结构来调整我们的类别。”¹⁰自然的种类必须至少部分地符合实际的“因果结构”，但是“我们了解它们的方法是重要的历史位置，社会和政治建构，和非基础的。”¹¹我回到这个调和论点，并在第 5.12 章重新配置它

To provide an example of what Boyd had in mind, no particular essential properties are necessary and sufficient for membership in the species “jaguar” (*panthera onca*). But he argues that *panthera onca* is a “natural kind” in biology because members of the species tend to share a fairly stable cluster of properties and they do so because of specific causal mechanisms (especially genetic inheritance and environmental pressures), which have tended to select for their typical shared traits. Consequently, if we know that a given individual is a jaguar, we can predict that it will likely have a subset of species-typical properties, such as distinctive black spots, strong jaws, large canine teeth, and so on, as each of these traits has been selected for evolutionarily (although due to mutation and the like there will be exceptions). Once we begin to understand the mechanisms that select for various traits, examining even one jaguar will increasingly permit inductive generalizations about other members of the

为了举例说明 Boyd 的想法，没有特定的基本属性是必要的，也不足以成为“美洲虎”(panthera onca)这一物种的成员。但是他认为，非洲豹在生物学上是一种“自然种类”，因为该物种的成员往往具有相当稳定的一系列性状，他们这样做是因为特定的因果机制(特别是遗传和环境压力)，这些机制倾向于选择他们典型的共有性状。因此，如果我们知道一个给定的个体是美洲虎，我们可以预测，它可能会有一个子集的物种典型特征，如独特的黑色斑点，强壮的下颚，大犬齿，等等，因为每一个这些特征已被选择进化(虽然由于突变和类似的会有例外)。一旦我们开始了解选择各种特征的机制，即使只检查一只美洲虎，也会越来越容易对美洲虎的其他成员进行归纳总结

species and how likely they are to share traits, even if the specific properties of “jaguars” continue to evolve over time.

即使“美洲虎”的特定属性关系随着时间的推移不断进化，它们有多大可能共享特征。

In sum, biological species are determined not by virtue of their shared properties but by the causal structures that hold those shared properties in “imperfect homeostasis,” namely interbreeding, shared ancestry, and environmental pressures. Therefore, in Boyd’s account, biology as a discipline would tend to converge on something like a species concept because “species” is doing some work in biological theorizing and there is at least some kind of causal structure/homeostatic mechanism that “species” picks out, even if imperfectly.

总之，生物物种不是由它们的共同特性决定的，而是由在“不完美的稳态”中拥有这些共同特性的因果结构决定的，即杂交、共同祖先和环境压力。因此，在博伊德看来，生物学作为一门学科，往往会趋向于某种类似于物种概念的东西，因为“物种”正在进行生物学理论方面的一些工作，而且“物种”挑选出来的至少是某种因果结构/稳态机制，即使是不完美的。

As noted in chapter 3, I am fairly suspicious of the classical notion of “natural kinds” and I think there are diminishing returns in trying to fashion a newer notion of natural kinds that would open up to include social kinds, even as I agree with much of what Boyd has to say. There is also something inherently confusing about Boyd’s assertion that the “naturalness” of a natural kind is relative to a particular discipline. Yet Boyd’s account of kinds as homeostatic property--clusters is an especially useful starting place for theorizing about *social* kinds because he is right that any good account of kinds as such will have to weave together the relationship between properties, the mechanisms that cluster those properties, and the role of both in the generalizations we make about them.

正如在第三章中指出的，我对“自然种类”的经典概念相当怀疑，而且我认为，试图推出一个更新的自然种类概念，将包括社会种类，即使我同意博伊德的许多观点，也会有报酬递减的情况。博伊德断言自然种类的“自然性”是相对于一个特定的学科而言的，这种断言本身也有一些令人困惑的地方。然而 Boyd 关于物种是自稳态属性集群的解释，对于社会物种的理论化来说，是一个特别有用的起点，因为他是正确的，任何关于物种的好的解释，都必须编织在属性之间的关系，这些属性集群的机制，以及这两者在我们对它们进行的概括中的作用。

The rest of this chapter is either a sharpening of Boyd or a more or less novel account of social kinds built upon the skeleton of Boyd's theory, depending on how you want to distribute the credit. But it probably resembles a Soviet Era joke about official truths. *Question: Is it true that cars are being given away in Moscow? Answer: Yes, that is true, except for a few small errors—It isn't Moscow, but Leningrad. It isn't cars but bicycles. They are not being given away, they are being stolen. But otherwise, it is a true statement.* In this case, I think the notion of “homeostatic property-- clusters” is, broadly speaking, a good way to think about the kinds used in social scientific discovery. But instead of “properties” I think we would more helpfully speak of “powers,” with properties as a subset of those. In the place of “homeostasis,” I would put “homeostasis and heterostasis.” In the place of “homeostatic mechanisms,” I would put “anchoring pro-cesses” (which I will try to specify and subdivide). I also will limit the dis-cussion to *social* kinds by emphasizing the mind--dependence discussed previously. Some of these are only minor adjustments; others have major implications. The rest of the chapter will present- and then work out in detail an account of social kinds based on these insights.

这一章的其余部分要么是博伊德的尖锐或或多或少建立在博伊德的理论框架上的社会种类的新颖帐户，这取决于你想如何分配信用。但它很可能重现了苏联时代关于官方真相的笑话。提问：莫斯科正在发放汽车，这是真的吗？答：是的，这是真的，除了一些小错误——这里不是莫斯科，而是列宁格勒。不是汽车，而是自行车。它们不是被送出去，而是被偷走。但除此之外，这是一个真实的陈述。在这种情况下，我认为“稳态属性-集群”的概念，广义上来说，是思考社会科学发现中使用的那些类型的好方法。但是，与其说是“特性”，我认为我们还不如说是“权力”，特性是这些权力的一个子集。在“稳态”的地方，我会写“稳态和异质性”在“稳态机制”的地方，我会放“锚定过程”(我将尝试指定和细分)。我还将通过强调前面讨论过的精神依赖来限制对社会类型的讨论。其中一些只是微小的调整，另一些则具有重大意义。本章的其余部分将介绍并详细阐述基于这些见解的社会类型。

4.2 A Process Cluster Account of Social Kinds

4.2 社会类型的过程集群帐户

Here is a succinct description of what I have in mind:

下面是对我的想法的一个简洁的描述:

Social kinds are 1) socially constructed, 2) dynamic clusters of powers,

社会类型: 1) 社会结构, 2) 动态权力集群,

3) which are demarcated by the causal processes that anchor the relevant clusters.

由锚定相关集群的因果过程划分。

(This is not a definition, but a theoretical description intended to guide research.) Also, bear in mind the other features of social kinds discussed in chapter 3: A) social kinds are the products of unfolding processes and thus tend to be high--entropic or varied both temporally and spatially (hence tend to be historically contingent); B) they are *niḥsvabhāva* insofar as their properties emerge via their relationships to other social kinds; C) social kinds crosscut each other so that the same entity can be the intersection of different kinds; and D) what makes them “social” kinds is that they are mind-dependent in a way I will explore further in the following section.

(这不是一个定义, 而是一个旨在指导研究的理论描述。)另外, 请记住第三章中讨论的社会类别的其他特征: a) 社会类别是展开过程的产物, 因此倾向于高熵或在时间和空间上变化(因此倾向于具有历史偶然性); b) 它们是 *ni something svabh va*, 因为它们的属性是通过它们与其他社会类别的关系出现的; c) 社会类别相互交叉, 因此同一个实体可以是不同类别的交叉; d) 它们之所以成为“社会”类别, 是因为它们在某种程度上依赖于思想, 我将在下一节进一步探讨。

We also need to begin with a provisional distinction between concepts and kinds. Concepts, understood in this chapter as *mental representations*, can be differentiated from kinds, understood here as *the entities to which concepts refer*. Concepts enter into the formation of social kinds, but the anchoring processes that produce kinds need not have concepts in them, nor are the properties of kinds reducible to the concepts people have of them. For a concept to play a causal role in an individual's actions they must first have the concept, but a social kind is not merely whatever a given individual conceives it to be.

我们也需要从概念和种类之间的临时区分开始。概念, 在本章中被理解为心理表征, 可以区别于种类, 在这里被理解为概念所指的实体。概念进入社会类的形成过程, 但是产生类的锚定过程不需要在其中包含概念, 类的性质也不能简化为人们对它们的概念。一个概念要在一个人的

行为中扮演因果关系的角色，他们必须首先拥有这个概念，但是一个社会种类不仅仅是一个给定的个人认为它是什么。

To explain: according to many philosophers like Hilary Putnam and Saul Kripke, natural kinds exceed their reference. They have properties that those referring to them often don't know about. For instance, I can competently refer to "gold" without knowing all or even most of gold's properties (solubility, thermal conductivity, tensile strength, etcetera). In-deed, natural sciences are supposed to advance in part by discovering pre-viously unidentified properties of natural kinds.

解释一下: 根据许多哲学家, 如希拉里·普特南和索尔·克里普克的观点, 自然界的种类超出了他们的参考范围。它们具有那些提到它们的人通常不知道的特性。例如, 我可以在不知道全部甚至大部分黄金属性(溶解度、热导率、抗拉强度等)的情况下, 熟练地提到“黄金”。事实上, 自然科学的发展部分是通过发现以前未被识别的自然属性来实现的。

As I argue in more detail below, social kinds also exceed their refer-ence, and research in the human sciences often proceeds by discovering hitherto unknown properties of social kinds. For instance, I can talk about "investment bankers" without knowing exactly all of what being an invest-ment banker entails. Moreover, the *social kind* "investment banker" might have causally relevant properties that none of us know about. To be sure, an individual's *concept* of "investment banker" is normative and part of the social field, and thus the concept helps make the kind what it is, but not generally without a gap. Concretely, this means that there are things

正如我在下面更详细地论述的那样, 社会种类也超出了它们的参考价值, 人类科学的研究往往是通过发现迄今为止未知的社会种类的特性来进行的。例如, 我可以谈论“投资银行家”, 却不知道作为一个投资银行家需要做些什么。此外, 社会类型的“投资银行家”可能有因果关系的属性, 我们没有人知道。可以肯定的是, 个人对“投资银行家”的概念是规范的, 是社会领域的一部分, 因此这个概念有助于使这种概念成为现实, 但一般来说并非没有差距。具体来说, 这意味着有一些事情

even investment bankers don't know about their own profession (as Karen Ho ably demonstrated in *Liquidated: An Ethnography of Wall Street*).¹³ In the human sciences, disciplines frequently refer to what amounts to the same social kind by different names. Moreover, within disciplines, shared terminology can mask significant conceptual divisions. All that is to say, concepts factor into social kinds but are not identical to them. Social kinds are ordinarily enmeshed in evolving social practices. These practices are often in significant tension with common concepts of the kind. Indeed, frequently the gap between the manifest concept and the operative social kind is what sustains the kind's existence.

即使是投资银行家也不了解自己的职业(正如何凯伦(Karen Ho)在《清算: 华尔街人种志》(*Liquidated: An Ethnography of Wall Street*)一书中巧妙地证明的那样)。¹³ 在人文科学领域, 学科通常指的是以不同名称表示相同社会类型的东西。此外, 在学科内部, 共同的术语可以掩盖重要的概念分歧。也就是说, 概念影响到社会类型, 但并不完全相同。社会类型通常与不断发展的社会实践紧密相连。这些实践经常与这种类型的共同概念处于显著的紧张关系中。事实上, 显性概念和社会性类型之间的差距往往是维持这种类型存在的原因。

4.2.1 Socially Constructed

4.2.1 社会建构

In chapter 1, I gave an account of social construction as a broad theoretical intervention. There I suggested that accounts of “social construction” can generally be parsed into ontological, causal, or classificatory accounts of mind-dependence. To briefly recap, for a phenomenon to be socially constructed means that either: (*ontologically*) its existence is dependent on sustained beliefs or social practices; (*causally*) it has been brought into being or been given particular properties by beliefs or social practices; or (*classificatorily*) it exists as a category because it has been classified as such—or some combination of the three. But while in that chapter I explored the meaning of social construction, in this and the next two sections I want to talk about how social construction works in practice. Put differently, the question is—how do social kinds exist? To provide a concrete example: what makes a particular piece of paper a dollar bill?

在第一章中, 我介绍了社会建构作为一种广泛的理论干预。在那里, 我建议, “社会结构”的帐户一般可以解析为本体论, 因果关系, 或分类帐户的心灵依赖。简单地概括一下, 对于一种被社会建构的现象来说, 意味着: (本体论上)它的存在依赖于持续的信仰或社会实践; (因果关系)它是由信仰或社会实践产生或赋予的特殊性质; 或(分类地)它作为一个类别

存在，因为它被归类为这种类别一或三者的某种组合。但是在那一章我探讨了社会建设的意义，在这一章和接下来的两节我想谈谈社会建设在实践中是如何工作的。换句话说，问题是——社会种类是如何存在的？举一个具体的例子：是什么让一张特定的纸变成了一张美元钞票？

In an influential account, John Searle describes social construction in terms of “institutional facts” being imposed on “brute facts”—to trans-late his vocabulary we might say he thinks social kinds are imposed onto physical kinds. Searle focuses on a particular kind of imposition—namely, when people task an object with “meaning” or “standing for or represent-ing something else.”¹⁴ He argues that this proceeds by means of a formula that amounts to “X counts as Y in context C” (e.g., this paper counts as money in the United States).¹⁵ Searle notes this imposition can have un-intentional side effects. The designation of particular pieces of paper as currency with a certain value permits buying and selling—an intentional effect. But once a trade cycle is brought into being, there will be emergent patterns like recessions (even if they are not named as such)—an uninten-tional effect.¹⁶ But “social reality,” Searle summarizes, is created by “the collective intentional imposition of function on entities that cannot per-form these functions without that imposition.”¹⁷

在一篇颇具影响力的文章中，约翰·塞尔(John Searle)用“制度性事实”(institutional facts)来描述社会结构，这些“制度性事实”被强加于“野蛮事实”之上——翻译他的词汇，我们可以说他认为社会性事实被强加于物理性事实之上。Searle 专注于一种特殊的强加——也就是说，当人们赋予一个对象“意义”或“代表或代表其他事物”的任务时¹⁴他认为，这是通过一个公式进行的，这个公式相当于“在 c 语境中 x 算作 y”(例如，这张纸在美国算作货币)。¹⁵ Searle 指出，这种强加可能产生无意的副作用。指定特定的纸张作为具有一定价值的货币允许买卖——一种有影响的影响。但是，一旦贸易周期形成，就会出现诸如衰退这样的突发模式(即使它们不是这样命名的)——这是一种意想不到的影响。但是，塞尔总结说，“社会现实”是由“集体有意识地强加于那些不能履行这些职能的实体，而没有这种强加，这些实体就无法履行这些职能”而产生的¹⁷

Although there is not space here to go into my full disagreement with him, I think Searle is correct that representational meaning is one significant type of property that a social kind can possess. (I provide an alternate and fuller account of meaning in chapter 5.) But Searle's explanation about how collective intentionality takes effect is remarkably conventional (pun intended). In particular, he argues that humans bring new social kinds into existence by means of "declarations" or speech-acts which basically become established social conventions.¹⁸ As a classic example, the declaration of a minister that a couple "is now married" gives the couple the rights of married citizens in the country that recognizes the marriage.¹⁹

虽然这里没有足够的空间来讨论我对他的完全不同意见,但我认为塞尔是正确的,具象意义是一种社会类型可以拥有的重要财产类型。(我在第5章中提供了一个备选的和更全面的意义解释但是 Searle 关于集体意向性如何起作用的解释非常传统(双关)。他特别指出,人类通过"宣言"或言论行为创造了新的社会类型,这些行为基本上成为既定的社会习俗

The problem is that many ways to assign social functions do not take the form of declarations. Race is not produced merely by speech-acts. Blackness does not take hold by someone pointing at someone else and explicitly declaring that they "count as Black in America." Moreover, many of the social statuses Searle thinks are established by means of "collective intentionality" turn out to be contested by at least some sectors of the same society. Sovereign citizens, for instance, do not recognize United States currency; certain fundamentalists reject national laws around same-sex marriage; and so on. One could argue that this just means that the status of the dollar bill and marriage have not yet reached the point of "collective intentionality" for American society as a whole, but it is surprisingly hard to find anything that everyone in a given society agrees about. Searle also misses the contestations involved in the production of so-called collective intentionality. In this respect, he lacks a theory of "power."²⁰ That the US government has a greater say in what counts as marriage than the Westboro Baptist Church is better explained in terms of power rather than in terms of collective intentionality.

问题在于,许多赋予社会功能的方式并不以宣言的形式出现。种族不仅仅由言语行为产生。黑人特质不是通过某人指着别人,明确地宣称他们"在美国算作黑人"而扎根的此外,瑟尔认为是通过"集体意向性"确立的许多社会地位,最终被同一社会的至少一些部门所质疑。例如,主权公民不承认美国货币;某些原教旨主义者反对同性婚姻的国家法律;等等。有人可能会说,这只是意味着美元纸币和婚姻的地位还没有达到美国社会整体的"集体意向性",但令人惊讶的是,很难找到一个特定社会

中的每个人都同意的东西。Searle 也忽略了所谓集体意向性产生过程中的争论。在这方面，他缺乏“权力”的理论。美国政府在什么样的婚姻问题上比西波罗浸信会有更大的发言权，这更好地解释为权力而不是集体意图。

I detail a semiotics in chapter 5, but an insight that unifies both that semiotics and my analysis of social kinds is that *meaning is not restricted to language*. Just as an ant can produce a warning sign for other ants by leaving a chemical trail, humans produce a vast social world by way of not just spoken and written words, but also coffee machines, traffic lights, and paintings.

我在第五章详述了一个符号学，但是一个将符号学和我对社会类型的分析结合起来的洞察力是，意义并不局限于语言。正如蚂蚁可以通过留下化学痕迹为其他蚂蚁发出警告信号一样，人类不仅通过口头和书面语言，还通过咖啡机、交通灯和绘画创造了一个广阔的社会世界。

Social kinds don't just represent. They are better thought of in terms of the imposition of a broad range of properties or capacities. Declarations, speech-acts, and social conventions are insufficient to explain fully the conferral of properties. I do not make a hammer a hammer by declaring the raw materials a hammer. I must forge the hammer into being. So to return to the question that began this subsection, how are social kinds produced if not primarily by convention or declaration? There are multiple ways to produce new kinds, and in the following section I lay

社会种类不仅仅代表。它们更好地被认为是一系列广泛的属性或能力的强加。宣言、言论行为和社会习俗不足以充分解释财产的授予。我不会通过宣称原材料是锤子来使锤子变成锤子。我必须锻造出锤子。所以回到开始这一小节的问题，如果不是主要通过约定或宣言，社会种类是如何产生的？有很多种方法可以产生新的物种，在接下来的章节中我将介绍

bare the mechanisms through which social construction brings new kinds into being by different anchoring/clustering processes that produce social kinds. 揭示了通过不同的锚定/聚类过程产生社会类型的社会建设带来新类型的机制。

Here is what I want you to hold onto from this section. By *social* kind, I mean socially constructed kind. Not all things are socially constructed in any meaningful sense. Stars are not socially constructed (although necessarily our *theories* about stars and *words* for stars are—see chapter 5). By social construction, I mean mind--dependence in either *ontological*, *causal*, or *classificatory* modes. To these, we should now add a further key type of mind--dependence: *representational*. Sometimes to be socially constructed means to be produced as a sign, to be given the power to represent. Again, to anticipate chapter 5's semiotics, there are both voluntary and involuntary signs; the first is causally--socially constructed while the second is typically classificatorily--socially constructed (for a given token to be interpreted as a sign it has to be linked up to other tokens of what is taken to be the same sign).

我希望你们能在这部分坚持下去。我所说的社会善良，是指社会构建的善良。并不是所有的事物都是在任何有意义的意义上被社会构建的。恒星不是社会构建的(尽管我们关于恒星和恒星的词汇的理论必然是——见第五章)。通过社会建构，我指的是在本体论、因果或分类模式中的精神依赖。除此之外，我们现在应该添加一种更进一步的关键类型的思维依赖：代表性。有时，被社会构建意味着被作为一种标志产生，被赋予代表的力量。同样，为了预测第五章的符号学，有自愿和非自愿的符号；第一个符号是因果社会建构的，而第二个符号通常是分类社会建构的(对于一个给定的符号要被解释为一个符号，它必须与被认为是同一符号的其他符号联系起来)。

4.2.2 Dynamic Clusters of Powers

4.2.2 动态的权力集群

Boyd's notion of homeostatic property--cluster kinds needs two broad adjustments to make it work as an account of social kinds. First, we should think in terms of powers rather than merely properties; and second, we should recognize both homeostatic and heterostatic clustering.

Boyd 的内稳态属性集群种类的概念需要进行两个广泛的调整，才能作为社会种类的帐户。首先，我们应该从权力而不仅仅是属性的角度来思考；其次，我们应该认识到稳态集群和异态集群。

In the first case, one consequence of a process view of social kinds is that it necessitates a shift from kinds being demarcated by what they *are* to kinds

being demarcated by what they have the potential *to do* or *have done to them*. There is much disagreement in analytic philosophy about what it means to possess a “property.” But in ordinary language to pos-sess a property is generally understood to mean that something possesses a particular set of characteristics rather than a capability or a pattern of likely activity in given circumstances. For instance, my wooden desk pos-sesses the property of “being brown.” But it gets trickier when we observe that my desk also possesses the property of “being about 150 miles from James Baldwin’s grave.” It seems hard to imagine that this latter property says anything important about my desk, and harder still to imagine this as a meaningful property my desk suddenly gained in virtue of it having been moved from its point of manufacture to my office.

在第一种情况下，社会种类的过程观的一个后果是，它必须从按照种类的本质划分的种类转变为按照它们有可能对它们做或已经对它们做了什么来划分的种类。在分析哲学中，对于拥有“财产”意味着什么，存在着很大的分歧但在普通语言中，拥有一个属性通常被理解为指某物具有一组特定的特征，而不是在特定情况下具有某种能力或某种可能的活动模式。例如，我的木桌具有“变成棕色”的特性但是，当我们观察到我的桌子也具有“距离詹姆斯·鲍德温的坟墓大约 150 英里”的属性时，事情就变得更加棘手了似乎很难想象后一项财产能说明我的办公桌有什么重要的地方，更难想象的是，我的办公桌因为从制作地点搬到了我的办公室而突然获得了一项有意义的财产。

To get around this problem, some philosophers have argued for a theory of actual properties as those which have causal powers.²¹ In this account, what it means to have the property “being brown” is to have the power to reflect light in a certain spectrum under specific conditions. There are no specific causal powers associated with being a particular distance from

为了解决这个问题，一些哲学家提出了一种实际性质的理论，认为这种理论具有因果关系。在这种说法中，具有“褐色”性质的意思是在特定条件下具有在特定光谱中反射光的能力。没有特定的因果力量与距离有关

Baldwin's grave, at least as far as I know, so that would not be a "causal property" in their account.

鲍德温的坟墓, 至少就我所知, 所以在他们的叙述中, 这不会是一个“因果财产”。

Although I have a more expansive notion of social causes than most philosophers (discussed in my next monograph), I think the identification of properties with causal powers is broadly correct. Just do not assume that by "cause" I mean deterministic or mechanistic causation. To avoid confusion, I also want to be clearer about terminology. Some philosophers treat the terms *power*, *disposition*, *capacity*, and *property* as synonyms, while others distinguish the terms according to their own particular technical usage.²² In this book, I generally use "powers" as the higher-order category that includes such subtypes as *dispositions*, *capacities*, and *properties*, which I will discuss in a moment. As my usage of the term "power" might strike the reader as idiosyncratic, I should note that I'm planning a whole follow-up monograph to explain in greater detail the relationship between my account of powers and power.

虽然我有一个比大多数哲学家更广泛的社会原因的概念(在我的下一个专著中讨论), 我认为性质与因果力量的认同大体上是正确的。只是不要假设我所说的“原因”是指确定性或机械性的因果关系。为了避免混淆, 我也希望对术语有更清晰的理解。一些哲学家把权力、性格、能力和财产看作同义词, 而另一些哲学家则根据他们自己特定的技术用法来区分这些术语。在这本书中, 我通常使用“权力”作为高阶范畴, 包括性格、能力和财产等子类, 我将在一会儿讨论这些子类。由于我对“权力”这个词的使用可能会让读者觉得有些特别, 我应该注意, 我正在计划写一部完整的后续专著, 来更详细地解释我对权力和权力的描述之间的关系。

For researchers in the human sciences, it can be especially useful to distinguish between actualized and unactualized powers. So I will often find it useful to use the term *properties* to indicate actualized powers and the terms *capacities* or *dispositions* to indicate potential powers.²³ To explain: the table salt in front of me possesses the *property* (actualized power) of being a white crystalline solid with a low electrical conductivity, but the same object if heated to 801° C has the *capacity* (potential power) to become a liquid known as "molten salt" with a high electrical conductivity. My table salt has this capacity even if it never actually gets that hot.

对于人文科学领域的研究人员来说, 区分已实现和未实现的权力尤其有用。因此, 我经常发现用术语性质来表示实际功率是有用的, 用术语容量或性能来表示势能。解释: 我面前的食盐具有一种性质(实际功率), 即白色晶体固体的电导率较低, 但同一物体如果加热到 801 ° c,

则具有容量(势能)——成为一种具有高电导率的液体，称为“熔盐”。我的食盐具有这种能力，即使它实际上从未达到那么高的温度。

Capacities are especially relevant to social kinds. The framed unspent Thai baht banknote in the local Thai “Sushi” Restaurant has the capacity to be used as money, even if it never has been and never will be used as such. Capacities in turn can be subdivided into those that appear frequently (we’ll call those *tendencies*), those it is advantageous to possess (*abilities* or *privileges*), and those that it is disadvantages to possess (*liabilities*).²⁴ But it is worth observing that the same capacity could be an ability in one context and a liability in another.

容量与社会类型特别相关。当地泰国“寿司”餐厅里镶框的未用过的泰铢钞票有能力被用作货币，即使它从来没有也永远不会被用作货币。能力又可以细分为那些经常出现的(我们称之为倾向)，那些有利于拥有的(能力或特权)和那些不利于拥有的(责任关系)。²⁴但是值得注意的是，同样的能力可以是一种能力在一种情况下和一种责任在另一种情况下。

It is also important to note that the powers of social kinds are necessarily interactive. As Phyllis Illari and Federica Russo have summarized the literature, “powers are a feature of a system, not a particular object.”²⁵ For instance, a heart lacks its signature powers in isolation (e.g., to pump blood it needs the entire circulatory system). Hence, the powers of a heart originate in interconnection with those of other systems in the body. This is equally true for social kinds, which as I have been arguing are *niḥśva-bhāva*. Social kinds do not exist in isolation. By way of another concrete example, in order to actualize or manifest the baht’s capacity as currency someone has to actually spend it, which requires the actualizing of the

同样重要的是要注意到，社会种类的力量必然是相互作用的。正如菲利斯·伊拉里(Phyllis Illari)和费德里卡·罗素(Federica Russo)对文学的总结，“权力是一个系统的特征，而不是一个特定的对象。”例如，一颗心脏在孤立的情况下缺乏它的特征性能力(例如，泵血需要整个循环系统)。因此，心脏的能量起源于与身体其他系统的相互连接。这同样适用于社会类型，正如我一直主张的那样，是 *ni something sva-bh va*。社会类型并不是孤立存在的。通过另一个具体的例子，为了实现或显示泰铢作为货币的能力，有人必须实际使用它，这就需要实现

powers of a range of different people (e.g., buyer and seller). The baht's powers are not solely its own, but are necessarily relational.

不同人(例如买方和卖方)的权力。泰铢的权力不仅仅是它自己的,而且必然是相互关联的。

To prevent a misreading, powers do not have to be positive. Powers can include obligations and opportunities, liabilities and abilities. By way of illustration, contemporary Latinx Americans share the capacity—or more precisely liability—of being more likely to be hassled by US American immigration authorities. In another example, taking a job as a bank teller bestows new capacities—an obligation to attend work regularly and the right to draw a wage from the bank. Social kinds function in ways that confer a mix of effects on their holders. Many social kinds are even transient. For instance, being a customer in a café is participating in a particular social kind, although being a customer is only a weakly anchored (see below) social kind insofar as it only confers a few powers in the form of rights/ obligations.

为了防止误读,权力不一定是积极的。权力可以包括义务和机会,责任和能力。举例来说,当代拉丁裔美国人与美国移民当局有着同样的能力——或者更确切地说是同样的责任——因为他们更有可能受到美国移民当局的骚扰。在另一个例子中,从事银行出纳员的工作带来了新的能力——定期上班的义务和从银行领取工资的权利。社会各阶层以各种各样的方式发挥作用,给持有者带来各种各样的影响。许多社会类型甚至是短暂的。例如,在咖啡馆里做顾客就是参与一种特殊的社会类型,尽管作为顾客只是一种弱锚定的社会类型(见下文),因为它只赋予少数权利/义务形式的权力。

The powers conferred on a given social kind often vary significantly temporally and geographically. Social kinds are varied but not infinitely varied. It is better to think of social kinds in terms of a space of bounded variation about which one can make useful generalizations, rather than in terms of a centering ideal from which individuals depart.²⁶ Restated, a social kind should be seen not in terms of its similarity, with individual variations being seen as departures from the norm; rather, the idea of a typical member is itself an abstraction from the variation built into the kind itself. Further, unlike the Weberian notion of “ideal type” whose re-relationship to the category it exemplifies is generally not part of the theorizing, this theory of social kinds necessitates a description of the constraints on the variation built into the social kind. Accordingly, the next section explains how anchoring processes limit variation.

赋予某一特定社会类型的权力在时间和地理上往往差别很大。社会种类是多种多样的,但不是无限变化的。我们最好从有界变差的空间来考

虑社会种类，以便对其进行有益的概括，而不是从个人背离的心理学理想来考虑。²⁶重申一下，社会种类不应该从其相似性来看待，个人的变化被视为偏离规范；相反，典型成员的概念本身就是从种类本身所固有的变化中抽象出来的。此外，与韦伯的“理想类型”概念不同，韦伯的“理想类型”概念与其所示范的范畴之间的关系通常不是理论的一部分，这种社会类型理论需要描述对社会类型变异的限制。因此，下一节解释锚定过程如何限制变异。

It could almost go without saying that there are no such things as social laws (at least not as many theorists have imagined them).²⁷ Generalizations about social kinds will have exceptions. In this we see another parallel to biology, insofar as biological “laws” are best thought of as descriptions of patterns with more or fewer exceptions. Put differently, social kinds are *cluster kinds*, which means that not all members of the kind have the exact same powers. An albino jaguar with no teeth is still a jaguar. But, as Anjun Chakravartty observes, we can still make *ceteris paribus* qualified generalizations about cluster kinds as long as we recognize that “the number of exceptions will vary according to the extent to which members of kinds figuring in the relevant generalizations share the same causally efficacious properties.”²⁸ Our ability to generalize about the color of jaguars will be dependent on the proportion of jaguars with spots. In sum, descriptions of social kinds are typically limited to delineating what would

不言而喻，根本就没有所谓的社会规律(至少不像许多理论家想象的那样)。在这一点上，我们看到了与生物学的另一个相似之处，因为生物“规律”最好被认为是对模式的描述，或多或少有例外。换句话说，社会类型是群集类型，这意味着不是所有的成员都具有完全相同的权力。一只没有牙齿的白化美洲虎仍然是一只美洲虎。但是，正如 Anjun Chakravartty 所观察到的，只要我们认识到“异常的数量将根据相关概括中的类成员具有相同的因果有效性质的程度而变化。”我们对美洲虎颜色的概括能力取决于有斑点的美洲虎的比例。总之，对社会类型的描述通常局限于描述什么会

normally be their cluster of powers in the absence of other intervening causal factors.

在没有其他干预因素的情况下，通常是他们的权力集群。

Second, in the philosophy of biology there has also been some push-back against Boyd's notion of homeostasis as the defining feature of a property-cluster. It has been argued that an emphasis on similarity or "homeostatic" mechanisms misses an important aspect of biological species—namely, that species exhibit not just similarities but stable differences. For example, mandarin ducks (*aix galericulata*) display prominent sexual dimorphism; during the mating season males and females exhibit very different coloration and plumage, to the point that observers often mistake them for members of different species. The biological world is full of stable differences of this sort, from genetically identical plants that take on totally different morphologies when they grow in different climates to the stable "caste system" of termites. At the minimum, then, Boyd's account of natural kinds should be expanded to include not just homeostatic mechanisms, but also "heterostatic" mechanisms that maintain regularized variation.²⁹

其次，在生物学哲学中，也有一些反对 Boyd 的概念，即稳态是拥有属性集群的定义特征。有人认为，强调相似性或“稳态”机制忽略了生物物种的一个重要方面，即物种不仅表现出相似性，而且表现出稳定的差异。例如，鸳鸯(*aix galericulata*)显示出明显的两性异形；在交配季节，雄性和雌性表现出非常不同的颜色和羽毛，以至于观察者经常将它们误认为不同物种的成员。生物界充满了这种稳定的差异，从在不同气候条件下生长时具有完全不同形态的基因相同的植物，到稳定的白蚁“种姓制度”。至少，Boyd 对自然种类的描述应该扩展到不仅包括稳态机制，而且还包括维持正常变异的“异态”机制

Social kinds too can maintain both relatively stable similarities and differences. For instance, to be a member of the social kind "South African citizen" in apartheid South Africa included not just certain stable shared legal capacities (e.g., drinking age), but also regularized legal differences between White and Black South Africans. I am interested in the enforcement mechanisms that produce semi-stable forms of both similarity *and* difference. It might be helpful therefore to think of the "cluster" in some social kinds as sometimes synonymous with "conflictual space."

社会类型也可以保持相对稳定的相似性和差异性。例如，作为种族隔离制度下的“南非公民”的社会成员，南非不仅包括某些稳定的共同法律能力(例如，饮酒年龄)，而且还规范了南非白人和黑人之间的法律差异。我对强制执行机制感兴趣，这种机制产生了相似性和差异性的半稳

定形式。因此，把某些社会类型中的“集群”看作是“冲突空间”的同义词可能会有所帮助

Social kinds tend to have modestly stable (if ultimately dynamic) clusters of powers or common patterns of similarity and difference. But identifying shared clusters alone is insufficient to determine membership in the “same” social kind. Sometimes totally different kinds have identical powers (e.g., being a police officer and being a soldier apparently both confer the legal right to kill under certain circumstances, but this similarity doesn’t mean that police officers and soldiers are members of the same kind). For multiple entities to be members of the same kind, or for us to be able to ground robust generalizations (see chapter 6), requires that the kind be anchored by the same causal processes.

社会类型往往具有适度稳定的(如果最终是动态的)权力集群或共同的相似和差异模式。但是仅仅识别共享集群并不足以确定“相同”社会类型的成员。有时候，完全不同的种类具有相同的权力(例如，作为警察和作为士兵显然都赋予在某些情况下杀人的合法权利，但这种相似性并不意味着警察和士兵是同一种类型的成员)。对于多个实体成为同一种类的成员，或者对于我们能够建立稳健的一般化(见第 6 章)，要求这种类型被相同的因果过程锚定。

By way of reminder, social kinds are necessarily process kinds, which means that statements about them are *only* going to be true within a specific temporal and geographic horizon. In the language of analytical philosophy, social kinds require locational predicates.³⁰ We can make true statements about social kinds, and we can certainly attribute clusters of powers to them, but these need to be historically and contextual specified.

通过提醒，社会类型必然是过程类型，这意味着关于它们的陈述只有在特定的时间和地理范围内才是真实的。在分析哲学的语言中，社会类型需要位置谓词。我们可以对社会类型做出真实的陈述，我们当然也可以把权力集群归因于它们，但这些需要在历史和上下文中具体说明。

This is less of a liability than you might think. We often make statements whose truth is dependent on explicit (or implicit) designations of time and place. For instance, to say “the population of Boston is 4,875,390” presumes a particular definition of the metropolitan area and a particular time--sample (July 1, 2018). Likewise, there are no true statements about the powers of a social kind without similar kinds of specifications. Recast, any account of a social kind’s cluster of powers is going to necessitate some kind of specification about time and place.

这并不像你想象的那样是一个负担。我们经常发表的声明，其真实性取决于对时间和地点的明确(或隐含)指定。例如，要说“波士顿的人口是 4,875,390”，就要假定城市群的特定定义和特定的时间样本(2018 年 7 月 1 日)。同样，如果没有类似的规范，就没有关于某种社会力量的真实陈述。Recast 认为，任何关于一种社会类型的权力集群的描述都需要某种关于时间和地点的规范。

4.2.3 Causal Processes that Anchor Clusters

4.2.3 锚定群集的因果过程

Another key insight I get from Boyd is that cluster kinds are determined by the causal “mechanisms that bring about their co--occurrence.” In that respect, looking for the causes that produce the co--occurrence of powers (actualized and potential) takes what was most useful about Wittgen--steinian family--resemblance theory (its capacity to explain heterogenous classes with loose clusters of attributes) and solves two of its key prob--lems: namely, infinitely expanding similarity and uncertainty about when generalizations are apt. Put differently, in order for a kind not to yield correct generalizations only by accident, there must be a causal reason that explains why it shares powers with others of its kind.³¹ A couple of examples will help illustrate. The kind “green--colored minerals” is only a weakly generalizable kind because there is not one causal reason that different minerals are green; and knowing that a given crow is black, but not the causal reason why crows are black in general, limits efforts to gen--eralize from one crow to the population as a whole. This means that de--scribing the powers of specific social kinds is only part of the picture; we must also discover the underlying causes that produce clusters of powers.

我从 Boyd 那里得到的另一个重要见解是，集群类型是由“导致它们共同发生的机制”决定的在这方面，寻找产生权力(实现的和潜在的)共现的原因需要 Wittgen--steinian 家族相似性理论最有用的东西(它解释带有松散属性簇的异构类的能力)，并且解决了它的两个关键问题：即无限扩展的相似性和关于何时推广适当的不确定性。换句话说，为了使一种物种不仅仅是偶然地产生正确的概括，必须有一个因果原因来解释为什么它与其他同类物种共享权力。这种“绿色矿物质”只是一种弱概括的种类，因

为不同的矿物质是绿色的并没有一个因果原因;知道某只乌鸦是黑色的,但不知道乌鸦一般为黑色的因果原因,限制了从一只乌鸦概括到整个乌鸦种群的努力。这意味着,描述特定社会类型的权力只是整个图景的一部分;我们还必须发现产生权力集群的根本原因。

As I have argued repeatedly, change and variation are the norm for so-cial kinds. It is persistence, similarity, and stable differences that need to be explained. So the question that should attend research into social kinds is, when is it appropriate to assume that anything discovered about one particular member of a social kind is projectible onto the social kind gen-erally? This turns out to be tantamount to asking what it is that gives so-cial kinds their shared cluster of powers. It is worth emphasizing that both questions are important, even if the generalization at hand still requires temporal and spatial specification. This is less relevant in that smaller number of cases in which one can survey the complete set. But this is especially important if you want to generalize beyond a specific finite sample. If you wanted to expand beyond the subset of nineteenth--century French women about whom you have specific evidence, you would need an account of why French women in that period shared whatever trait you

正如我反复论证的那样,变化和变异是所谓社会类型的规范。需要解释的是持久性、相似性和稳定性的差异。因此,应该参与社会类型研究的问题是,什么时候适合假设,任何关于某一社会类型的某个特定成员发现,通常都会投射到社会类型上?这就等于是在问,是什么赋予了这些社会群体共同的力量。值得强调的是,这两个问题都很重要,即使目前的概括仍然需要时间和空间的规范。这是不太相关的,在少数情况下,一个人可以调查完整的集合。但是,如果你想要超越特定的有限样本进行推广,这一点尤为重要。如果你想扩展到 19 世纪法国女性的子集之外,你需要一个解释,为什么那个时期的法国女性拥有和你一样的特质

are investigating. Or you might ask, does my reading of Éliisa Mercœur's poem apply to other French authors in the period, or was the poem idiosyncratic? If it does apply, why? If not, why not? For research projects, many of us ask ourselves basic questions: How do I start generalizing? Can I generalize further? Are my findings relevant beyond my specific case study? The first step to answering these questions is discovering the causal processes that have produced the power--cluster or specific properties we care about (see below).

正在调查。或者你可能会问，我对艾丽莎·默克尔的诗的解读是否也适用于那个时期的其他法国作家，或者这首诗是独一无二的？如果它确实适用，为什么？如果不是，为什么不是？对于研究项目，我们中的许多人会问自己一些基本的问题：我如何开始概括？我可以进一步概括吗？我的研究结果是否与我的具体案例研究相关？回答这些问题的第一步是发现产生我们所关心的权力集群或特定属性关系的因果过程(见下文)。

The following therefore provides an account of multiple distinctive, causal, anchoring, or stabilization *processes* that give social kinds their shared properties and powers.³² The reduplication of process language here is fully intended. I want to emphasize that social kinds are processes that require other processes as catalysts. In what follows I discuss three broad, if often interwoven, types of processes: *dynamic-nominalist*, *mi-metic*, and *ergonic*. But I do not mean this list to be exhaustive. There is room for future research on the subject. It is also important to note that any given process might be weak or strong depending on the degree to which it works to produce shared powers.

因此，下面提供了多个独特的、因果的、锚定的或稳定的过程，这些过程赋予了社会类别它们共有的属性和权力。我想强调的是，社会类型是需要其他过程作为催化剂的过程。在接下来的文章中，我将讨论三种广泛的(如果经常交织在一起的)过程类型：动态唯名论、拟态和人体工程学。但我并不是说这个列表是详尽无遗的。这个课题还有未来研究的空间。同样重要的是要注意到，任何给定的过程可能是弱的或强的，这取决于它产生共享权力的程度。

Before getting into the typology, I want to clarify what I mean by *anchoring*. In a recent work, the philosopher of social science Brian Epstein makes a distinction between “grounding” and “anchoring.”³³ His notion of each is fairly complicated, but in brief, *grounding* refers to the conditions that make something a particular kind of social object (e.g., what makes a particular screwdriver a screwdriver, or a particular piece of paper a dollar bill). *Anchoring*, by contrast, refers to whatever sets up the grounding conditions or frame principles for membership in the social kind and bestows on it the properties the social kind possesses. In Epstein's metaphor, anchoring is the “glue” that sticks the properties together. I'm less interested in Epstein's account of grounding, but here I am merging his account of

anchoring with what Boyd and his followers in philosophy of biology have described as “homeostatic mechanisms” and then elaborating from these inspirations a typology that should be especially relevant for many kinds of research in the human sciences.

在进入类型学之前，我想澄清一下我所说的家务活是什么意思。在最近的一本书中，社会科学哲学家布莱恩·爱泼斯坦(Brian Epstein)区分了“基础”和“锚定”³³他对每一种的概念都相当复杂，但简而言之，基础是指使某物成为某种特定社会对象的条件(例如，是什么使某把螺丝刀成为一把螺丝刀，或者是某张纸成为一美元钞票)。相比之下，锚定指的是为社会类别的成员资格建立基础条件或框架原则并赋予其社会类别所具有的属性的任何东西。在爱泼斯坦的隐喻中，锚定就是把属性粘在一起的“胶水”。我对爱泼斯坦关于基础的描述不太感兴趣，但在这里，我将他关于锚定的描述与博伊德及其生物学哲学追随者所描述的“稳态机制”结合起来，然后从这些灵感中阐述一种类型学，这种类型学应该与人类科学的许多研究特别相关。

First, *dynamic-nominalist processes*. Ian Hacking describes “interactive kinds” as coming into being via what he calls a “process [of] dynamic nominalism, because it so strongly connects what comes into existence with the historical dynamics of naming and the subsequent use of name [*sic*].”³⁴ To translate Hacking’s insight into the idiom of this chapter, some social kinds share powers because of the way they have been named or classified. Hence, this is a way to be more specific about what I have referred to as classificatory social construction. A lot of the conversation about social construction has assumed that most social kinds come into

首先，动态唯名论过程。伊恩·黑客(Ian Hacking)将“交互式种类”描述为通过他所谓的“动态唯名论过程”(process [of] dynamic nominalism)产生的，因为它将产生的种类与命名的历史动态以及随后的名称使用紧密地联系在一起。为了将黑客的洞察力转化为本章的成语，一些社会类型由于其命名或分类的方式而分享权力。因此，这是一种更具体的方式，关于我所说的分类社会结构。很多关于社会结构的讨论都假设大多数社会类型都包括在内

being via “discourse” or classification. I think this is good as far as it goes, and indeed many social kinds (e.g., citizen) come to share specific proper-ties primarily because of dynamic--nominalist processes.

通过“话语”或分类。我认为就目前而言，这是好的，事实上，许多社会类型(例如，公民)来分享特定的属性关系，主要是因为动态唯名论过程。

But I want to emphasize that it is generally not the act of classifying as such that produces similarities. There has been a critique of taxonomies and classifying in general in certain sectors of critical theory. But it tends to overlook the observation that not all classifying is equally pernicious. We classify things all the time. Choosing what to eat for breakfast requires an act of classification. What I want to emphasize here are the mecha-nisms that enforce or make particular classifications consequential. For the social kind to take hold, there have to be role adoption or enforcement processes to stabilize the cluster of powers.

但是我想强调的是，产生相似性的通常不是这样的分类行为。在批判理论的某些领域，对分类法和分类法有过批判。但它往往忽略了这样一个观察：并非所有的分类都同样有害。我们总是对事物进行分类。选择早餐吃什么需要分类。我想在这里强调的是强制或使特定的分类成为必要的机制。为了让社会类型站稳脚跟，必须有角色采纳或强制执行过程来稳定权力集群。

Hacking thinks that interactive kinds are produced by feedback loops or role adoption in which people can “become aware of how they are clas-sified and modify their behavior accordingly.”³⁵ This is an important in-sight, and it seems to address some of the properties of a particular subset of human social kinds. As Kwame Anthony Appiah observed about social identities: “Once labels are applied to people, ideas about people who fit the label come to have social and psychological effects. In particular these ideas shape the way people conceive of themselves and their projects.”³⁶ There are a number of social kinds that come to share properties in this way, but the notion that it comes from pure feedback between the classifi-cation and the recognition of such suggests a weak anchoring process be-cause it relies on subjects adopting the classification and getting caught in the relevant feedback loop. Role adoption does not explain much if people are capable of rejecting the label or, as is more often the case, redefining what it means. In brief, self-identification requires policing to be stable.

黑客认为，互动类型是由反馈回路或角色采用产生的，在这种情况下，人们可以“意识到他们是如何被分类的，并相应地修改他们的行为。”这是一个重要的观点，它似乎解决了人类社会类型的一个特定子集的一些特性。正如奎迈·安东尼·阿皮亚(kwame anthony appiah)对社会身份的观察：“一旦人们被贴上标签，关于符合标签的人的想法就会产

生社会和心理影响。特别是这些观念塑造了人们对自己和他们的项目的看法。”³⁶ 以这种方式分享属性的社会种类很多，但是，这种属性来自分类和对这种属性的认识之间的纯粹反馈的概念表明，锚定过程很弱，因为这种过程依赖于主体采用分类并陷入相关的反馈循环。如果人们能够拒绝这个标签，或者更常见的情况是，重新定义它的含义，那么角色采用并不能解释太多。简而言之，自我认同需要政策的稳定。

Nevertheless, role adoption does not describe the limit of classificatory processes. Many of the kinds we are most interested in have come to share the powers they do because of specific classificatory enforcement processes (cultural, social, institutional, legal, and so on). Examples are bountiful: legal processes that confer particular capacities on certain groups (e.g., the ability to vote) which have built-in mechanisms to ensure compliance; the boundary policing that goes on in academic disciplines; social norms of shaming or reciprocity that encourage or prevent certain kinds of behaviors; tax codes that provide religious exemptions to organizations that take on certain properties; and so on. As will be explored in greater detail below, I think that many of the disciplinary master categories only share the properties they do because of dynamic--nominalist classificatory processes of this sort.

然而，角色采用并没有描述分类过程的限制。我们最感兴趣的许多类型已经开始分享他们的权力，因为具体的分类执行过程(文化、社会、制度、法律等等)。这方面的例子不胜枚举：赋予某些群体特殊能力的法律程序(例如投票能力)，这些群体拥有确保遵守规定的内在机制；在学术领域进行的边界管理；鼓励或防止某些行为的羞辱或互惠社会规范；为拥有某些财产的组织提供宗教豁免的税法；等等。正如将在下面更详细地探讨，我认为许多学科硕士类别只是共享他们所做的属性，因为这种动态唯名主义分类过程。

This attention to anchoring processes also allows us to flesh out how role adoption functions in greater detail than Hacking theorized. A more

这种对锚定过程的关注也使我们能够更详细地了解角色采用功能是如何发挥作用的，而不是黑客理论。更多信息

formal kind of role adoption happens when people agree to take on jobs or become citizens in a nation. In cases like these, the role adoption can have a stronger clustering effect because there are implementation mechanisms (positive financial incentives or disincentives such as being fired or deported) that reinforce the properties associated with the role. Moreover, often social kinds are produced by overwriting existing differences with new meaningful distinctions. For all these reasons, an analysis of dynamic--nominalist categories typically proceeds not by searching for a broad definition of the category in question, but by trying to figure out whose interests are served by the construction of the category and how those interests have resulted in attempts to constrain the category's meaning.

当人们同意接受工作或成为一个国家的公民时，就会发生正式的角色采纳。在这种情况下，角色采用可以产生更强的集群效应，因为有一些实施机制(积极的财政奖励或者被解雇或驱逐等抑制因素)可以加强与角色相关的属性。此外，通常社会类型是通过用新的有意义的区别覆盖现有的差异而产生的。出于所有这些原因，对动态唯名论范畴的分析通常不是通过寻找有关范畴的广泛定义，而是试图弄清楚构建该范畴符合谁的利益，以及这些利益如何导致试图限制该范畴的含义。

Before we move on to other types of anchoring processes, I want to emphasize that classificatory processes often rest as much on *exclusions* as on *inclusions*. Again, part of the way that “religion” has come to function as a social kind has been through the act of distinguishing it from “superstition” and “science.” To this one might add the notion of “conceptual web” theory drawn from cognitive semantics.³⁷ This theory captures the observation that many concepts are demarcated relationally vis--à-vis neighboring concepts. The meaning of “mutton” does not lie solely in its difference from “sheep,” but also (*contra* Saussure) in other relations of perceived similarity—say, with “pork.” For this reason, when we are looking at dynamic--nominalist anchoring processes, we need to address both articulations of similarity and difference and, necessarily, attempts to police the boundaries of neighboring concepts, loosely defined.

在我们继续讨论其他类型的锚定过程之前，我想强调的是，分类过程通常同样依赖于排除和包含。同样，“宗教”作为一种社会类型发挥作用的部分途径是通过区分它与“迷信”和“科学”的行为除此之外，我们还可以从认知语义学中引入“概念网络”理论的概念。这个理论捕捉到许多概念相对于相邻概念是相互关系划分的观察结果。“羊肉”的意思不仅仅在于它与“绵羊”的区别，还在于它与“猪肉”之间的其他感知相似性关系出于这个原因，当我们研究动态唯名主义锚定过程时，我们需要同时解决相似性和差异性的表达，并且必须尝试监督相邻概念的边界，这些概念定义松散。

In *The Invention of Religion in Japan*, I suggested that dynamic--nominalist processes were the only way to produce social kinds.³⁸ But it turns out that there are other relevant anchoring processes.

在《日本宗教的发明》一书中，我提出动态唯名论过程是产生社会类型的唯一途径。但事实证明，还有其他相关的锚定过程。

Second, *mimetic processes*. By mimetic process I mean the anchoring processes that come from repeated copying under environmental constraint. The inspiration comes from what Ruth Millikan refers to as “historical kinds,” by which she means those natural kinds that have shared properties because of historical copying processes often combined with a consistent environment that tends to stabilize or limit variation.³⁹ Copying alone (whether of genes or “memes”) tends gradually to produce increasing variations unless there are mechanisms to reinforce fidelity to the original.⁴⁰ We might think of biological heredity, which, combined with mutation, produces a limited range of variation with the characteristics of a given species evolving over time, but constrained by a physical environment that tends to render nonviable certain forms of radical mutation.

第二，模仿过程。我所说的模仿过程，是指在环境约束下，通过重复复制而形成的锚定过程。这个灵感来自于 Ruth Millikan 所说的“他的复制类型”，她指的是那些由于历史上的复制过程而具有共同特性的自然类型，这些自然类型通常与趋于稳定或限制变异的一致环境相结合。³⁹ 单独的复制(无论是基因还是“模因”)往往会逐渐产生越来越多的变异，除非有机制来加强对原始基因的保真度。⁴⁰ 我们可能会想到生物遗传，这种遗传与突变相结合，产生一定范围的变异，这些变异随着特定物种的特征随着时间的推移而进化，但受到物理环境的限制，这种物理环境往往使某些形式的基因突变变得不可行。

Mimetic processes are different from dynamic--nominalist processes
模仿过程不同于动态唯名论过程

because they do not require classification. Pre--cultivation plant species shared features not because of any classification system (except perhaps their own), but because of the processes of genetic inheritance. Similarly, many human bodily habits are acquired imitatively and unconsciously. Wittgenstein's disciples, for instance, were famous for imitating his particular way of putting his hand on his forehead.⁴¹ Many infants learn to clap even before they have acquired their first words. Yawns are contagious. Dance moves are copied. To be sure, most human mimetic processes are also dynamic--nominalist insofar as the kind in question is explicitly named, but it is often the mimesis rather than the classification that determines the crucial properties.

因为他们不需要分类。栽培前植物物种的共同特征不是因为任何分类方案(也许除了他们自己), 而是因为遗传遗传的过程。同样, 许多人类的身体习惯是模仿和无意识地获得的。例如, 维特根斯坦的弟子们以模仿他把手放在额头上的特殊方式而闻名。⁴¹ 许多婴儿甚至在学会第一个词之前就学会了鼓掌。哈欠是会传染的。舞蹈动作被复制。可以肯定的是, 大多数人类模仿过程也是动态唯名论的, 因为这种类型的问题是明确命名, 但往往是模仿, 而不是分类, 决定了关键的性质。

A further implication is that mimetic kinds often share more properties than ahistorical kinds because properties that are only contingently associated may be copied together.⁴² For instance, there is no reason that an all-bamboo diet and having bold black and white coloring should have been selected together except that pandas are descended from a common ancestor. In this respect, the features of historical kinds lack "modal necessity" because alternate histories could have resulted in the survival of different species or caused a given species to inherit different properties. For instance, a fortuitous combination of a genetic mutation and climate change happened to pandas about 2.4 million years ago; had it not, pandas likely would have either gone extinct or continued to be omnivores like their closest genetic relatives.⁴³

进一步的暗示是, 模仿物种往往比非历史物种具有更多的特性联系, 因为只有偶然联系的特性才可能被复制到一起。例如, 除了熊猫是共同祖先的后裔之外, 没有理由把全竹饮食和大胆的黑白颜色放在一起选择。在这方面, 历史种类的特征缺乏"模态必要性", 因为交替历史可能导致不同物种的生存, 或导致某一特定物种继承不同的属性。例如, 大约 240 万年前, 一种基因突变和气候变化的巧合结合发生在大熊猫身上; 如果不是这样, 大熊猫可能要么已经灭绝, 要么像它们的近亲一样继续是杂食动物。⁴³

Millikan explicitly argues that many kinds of interest to the human sciences, "such as ethnic, social, economic, and vocational groups," are best understood as sharing traits because of mimetic processes. This is due to the

fact that “Members of these groups are likely to act similarly in certain ways and to have attitudes in common as a result of similar training handed down from person to person (reproduction or copying), as a result of custom (more copying), as a result either of natural human dispositions or social pressures to conform to role models (copying again).”⁴⁴ But a number of philosophers have seen the human predisposition to imitation or mimesis as fundamental to both individual learning and birth of culture more generally.⁴⁵ (One might also think of Pierre Bourdieu’s notion of *habitus* or René Girard’s insight that it is not just behavior, but desires or goals that are often copied.)⁴⁶ In sum, many social kinds share properties because of reduplication processes combined with social pressures toward conformity. Fads and fashion trends are paradigmatic examples.

Millikan 明确指出，人类科学的许多兴趣，“如种族、社会、经济和职业群体”，最好理解为共享特征，因为模仿过程。这是因为“这些群体的成员可能在某些方面表现类似，并且由于人与人之间的类似培训(复制或复制)，由于习俗(更多的复制)，由于自然的人类性情或社会压力要求遵循榜样(再次复制)，他们的态度有共同之处但是，许多哲学家认为，人类对模仿或模仿的倾向是个人学习和文化诞生的基础。(也许有人会想到皮埃尔·布迪厄的习惯概念，或勒内·吉拉德的洞察力，即模仿不仅仅是行为，而是欲望或目标。)⁴⁶ 总之，许多社会种类之所以共享属性，是因为重复的过程加上社会对从众的压力。Fad 和时尚潮流就是典型的例子。

Again, in the case of social kinds, mimetic processes may overlap with dynamic--nominalist ones. But attention to the former allows us to explain the co--occurrence of properties at an even finer--grained level of detail. For instance, all American McDonald’s franchises may share a certain cluster

同样，在社会类型的情况下，模仿过程可能与动态唯名论过程重叠。但是对前者的关注使我们能够在更细致的细节层次上解释属性的共同出现。例如，所有美国麦当劳的特许经营权可能共享一个特定的集群

of properties as part of being jointly classified as fast-food restaurants, but they share even more features in common (e.g., golden arches) because they have all been copied from a shared prototype. There is nothing in the name “fast-food restaurant” or codes around restaurants that specifies a particular décor or the co-occurrence of heat lamps and cartoonish mascots. But these can be explained in part by way of reduplication processes protected by copyright and trademark laws and variation intended to copy the associations while not violating those same laws.

作为共同归类为快餐店的一部分，但它们有更多共同的特征(例如金色拱门)，因为它们都是从共同的原型复制而来。在“快餐店”这个名称或餐馆周围的代码中，并没有特定的装饰或热灯和卡通床的共同出现。但部分原因可以通过受版权和商标法保护的复制过程以及旨在复制协会而又不违反这些法律的变更来解释。

There is a subtype of mimetic processes we might want to call “path-dependency” to suggest the relevant literature in economics, sociology, and political science. There are different ways to define path-dependency, one of which describes “self-reinforcing sequences” rooted in the reproduction of preexisting institutional patterns, often augmented by something that amounts to increasing returns.⁴⁷ The most famous example of path-dependency in economic theory is that of the QWERTY keyboard. To make a long story short, perhaps the best explanation for the arrangement of the keys on anglophone keyboards is because of self-reinforcing sequences that made it more advantageous to duplicate an earlier standard rather than adopt a new one.⁴⁸

有一种模仿过程的亚型，我们可以称之为“路径依赖”，以建议在经济学、社会学和政治科学的相关文献。有不同的方法来定义路径依赖，其中一种方法描述了“自我强化序列”，这种序列植根于对先前存在的制度模式的再生产，往往伴随着一些相当于增加回报的东西。⁴⁷ 经济理论中路径依赖最著名的例子是 QWERTY 键盘。长话短说，对于英语键盘上按键的排列方式，也许最好的解释是因为自我强化的顺序使得复制早期的标准比采用新标准更有利

Finally, *ergonic convergence*. Sometimes kinds share properties through a process of selection or design intended to fulfill a certain function.⁴⁹ Of the three types of anchoring processes discussed in this section, ergonic convergence has the greatest potential for being misleading (in part as it is too easy to define functions retroactively). But when used judiciously, it has value.

最后，人体工程学的融合。⁴⁹ 在本节讨论的三种锚定过程中，人机工程学的收敛最有可能产生误导(部分原因在于追溯性地定义函数太容易了)。但是如果使用得当，它是有价值的。

The inspiration for this notion comes from philosophy of biology. Convergent evolution—namely, the independent evolution of analogous biological structures—is a hallmark of evolutionary theory.⁵⁰ Perhaps the most famous example is the complex eye. The eyes of cephalopods and vertebrates do not have a common origin, but rather have converged on a function.⁵¹ So even though squid eyes and goat eyes have different origins and material constituents (and are both equally creepy), they share common powers because they were selected for similar functions. Similar examples include bird, bat, and insect wings; carcinization or the repeated tendency of crustaceans to evolve into crab-like forms; and seed dispersal in plants, all of which have different origins but are nonetheless usefully understood as common “kinds” with overlapping clusters of power.⁵²

这个概念的灵感来自于生物哲学。趋同进化——即类似生物结构的独立进化——是进化论的一个标志。⁵⁰ 也许最著名的例子是复杂的眼睛。头足类动物和脊椎动物的眼睛并没有共同的起源，而是聚集在一个功能上。⁵¹ 所以，尽管鱿鱼眼睛和山羊眼睛有着不同的起源和物质成分(同样令人毛骨悚然)，但它们有着共同的力量，因为它们被选择用于相似的功能。类似的例子包括鸟类、蝙蝠和昆虫的翅膀；甲壳类动物的癌变或重复进化成类似螃蟹的形态的趋势；以及植物中的种子传播，所有这些都有不同的起源，但仍然被有用地理解为具有重叠力量簇的共同“种类”

Convergence can also explain shared powers in social kinds. Think of an electric hot water heater.⁵³ All such heaters contain a thermostat that switches off the current as the water begins to boil. But there are many different ways of assembling physical components to make a thermostat, from using bimetallic strips to mercury bulbs to expanding gases to

趋同性也可以解释社会类型中的共享权力。想想一个电热水器。所有这样的热水器都有一个恒温器，当水开始沸腾时，它会关闭电流。但是有很多不同的方法可以组装物理部件来制造恒温器，从使用双金属条到水银灯泡，再到将气体膨胀到

thermocouples. Each of these utilizes a different physical mechanism to produce the same result, because they were designed to fulfill a common function. Restated, the fact that hot water heater thermostats share the tendency to shut off the current as the water reaches a preset temperature is because they were selected for that function.

热电偶。它们利用不同的物理机制产生相同的结果，因为它们被设计用来实现一个共同的功能。重申一下，事实上，当水达到预设温度时，热水加热器的恒温器都倾向于关闭电流，因为它们是为这个功能而选择的。

Another example is the spear, which seems to have been developed independently not just by different human societies but by chimpanzees as well.⁵⁴ While types of spears may have been produced by mimetic processes, the parallel convergence on making pointy sticks is an example not of classificatory or mimetic processes, but rather of ergonic convergence. There is a simple physics equation ($P = F/A$; pressure is determined by force over area) that crudely delineates the core of what makes a good spear, and trial and error will lead toward a convergence on a similar object, given similar material limitations.

另一个例子是矛，它似乎不仅依赖于不同的人类社会，而且还依赖于黑猩猩。虽然矛的类型可能是由模仿过程产生的，但制作尖头棍子的平行趋同并不是分类或模仿过程的一个例子，而是人体工程学的趋同。有一个简单的物理方程($p = f/a$; 压力是由面积上的力决定的)，它粗略地勾勒出一支好矛的核心，考虑到相似的材料限制，反复试验和错误将导致在一个相似的物体上产生收敛。

One could add that sometimes ergonic convergences emerge because of the ideological, economic, and institutional functions they fulfill. We could talk about them in that respect as teleological kinds. For example, as (especially Marxist) art historians have noted, different art movements converged on similar forms because they were directed toward fulfilling this intersection of needs or “cultural niches.”⁵⁵ In other words, there may be economic, ideological, or institutional pressures that encourage convergent properties. There is a reason most college application essays follow the same basic formula (and one could say the same thing about much of the fiction produced by MFA programs).

有人可以补充说，有时人体工程学的趋同出现是因为它们实现了意识形态、经济和制度功能。我们可以把它们作为目的论的类型来讨论。例如，正如(特别是马克思主义者)艺术史学家所指出的，不同的艺术运动以相似的形式聚集在一起，因为它们是为了满足这种相互交织的需求或“文化利基”换句话说，可能存在着经济、意识形态或者制度上的压力，这些压力会鼓励趋同的属性。大多数大学申请论文遵循相同的基本公式是有原因的(对于大部分由 MFA 项目产生的小说也可以这么说)。

Social kinds with independent origins can converge because they have been constructed to satisfy similar needs or goals (practical, ideological, economic, etcetera). One might think of armies that tend to share the properties they do because they are teleologically structured organizations directed toward the goal of fighting wars.⁵⁶ In this respect, ergonic processes exhibit what could be described as Weberian rationalization toward specific ends. But we have to be very careful about providing accounts of convergent functions in these respects.

具有独立起源的社会类型之所以能够融合，是因为它们是为了满足相似的需求或目标(实际的，意识形态的，经济的，等等)而构建的。人们可能会认为军队倾向于分享他们的属性，因为他们是目的论结构的组织，直接为了战争的目标。在这方面，人体工程学的过程展示了可以被描述为韦伯理论合理化的特定目的。但是我们必须非常小心地在这些方面提供收敛函数的计数。

Accordingly, before we move off the subject, four qualifications are necessary.

因此，在我们离开这个主题之前，有四个条件是必要的。

First, in biology, convergent evolution is believed to produce analogues, not homologues. In other words, the wings of a butterfly and a bird are similar by analogy, not identity. But social kinds can merge in a way that unrelated biological species cannot. Still, even when ergonic convergence has been demonstrated, it does not mean that one is necessarily talking about an identical kind. For instance, bird wings, bat wings, and insect wings have some aerodynamic similarities, but they are also significantly different: bird and bat wings have bones, insect wings do not; bird wings

首先，在生物学中，趋同演化被认为产生类似物，而不是同源物。换句话说，蝴蝶和鸟类的翅膀是类似的，而不是同一性。但是社会物种可以以一种不相关的生物物种所不能的方式融合在一起。尽管如此，即使人体工程学的趋同性已经被证明，这并不意味着一个人一定要谈论同一个物种。例如，鸟类翅膀、蝙蝠翅膀和昆虫翅膀在空气动力学上有一些相似之处，但它们也有显著的不同：鸟类和蝙蝠翅膀有骨头，昆虫翅膀没有；鸟类翅膀

use feathers, bat wings use flaps of skin, insect wings use modified scales, and so on. This means that ergonic convergence is a limited source of potential generalizations because we don't necessarily know which features are broadly applicable. This is especially true of convergence on economic or ideological niches. That different monarchical societies might converge on similar structures for the legitimization of sovereignty does not mean that these structures are generalizable. They suggest analogy rather than identity.

使用羽毛, 蝙蝠翅膀使用皮瓣, 昆虫翅膀使用改良的鳞片, 等等。这意味着人体工程学的收敛是一个有限的潜在概括来源, 因为我们不一定知道哪些特征是广泛适用的。对于经济或意识形态领域的趋同尤其如此。为了主权的合法化, 不同的君主制社会可能会聚集在相似的结构上, 但这并不意味着这些结构是可以普遍化的。他们建议类比而不是身份。

Second, most social kinds do not fulfill a common function. There is not one single need that motivates all religion or all art. More than a century of scholars searching for one have failed. So we have to be careful to avoid the older pitfalls of heavy-handed functionalist theorizing. There is a long history of functionalism in anthropology, psychology, and sociology. In the hands of some thinkers, sociological functionalism amounted to the claim that an institution or social kind exists because of its benefit to society. Similar arguments have been restaged by evolutionary psychologists who use natural selection to justify the claim that particular social organizations or cultural forms are innate because they contribute to the survival of the species (or did at some imaginary dawn of human origins). Against this mode of theorizing, I share with the neuroscientist Steven Rose the sense that much of evolutionary psychology amounts to little more than a collection of "unprovable just-so stories," formulated after the fact and lacking in any serious evidentiary basis.⁵⁷ As contemporary philosopher of biology Alan Garfinkel has observed, "many of these 'human nature' explanations are like explaining the existence of restaurants by saying that people have to eat. We can grant that it is human nature that people have to eat, but, we want to ask, why should that necessitate restaurants?"⁵⁸ Although eating serves a common biological function, restaurants are underdetermined by this function.

其次, 大多数社交类型不能履行一个共同的功能。没有一种单一的需求可以激励所有的宗教或者艺术。一个多世纪以来, 学者们一直在寻找一种宗教, 但都以失败告终。因此, 我们必须小心, 以避免旧的陷阱, 严厉的功能主义理论。功能主义在人类学、心理学和社会学中有着悠久的历史。在一些思想家手中, 社会学功能主义相当于宣称一种制度或社会类型的存在是因为它对社会有益。进化心理学家重新提出了类似的论点, 他们用自然选择来证明特定的社会组织或文化形式是与生俱来的, 因为它们有助于物种的生存(或者在人类起源的某个想象的黎明时

期)。与这种理论模式相反，我与神经学家史蒂文·罗斯(Steven Rose)分享了这样一种观点：进化心理学的许多解释，不过是一些“无法证明的故事”的集合，这些故事是在事实之后编写的，缺乏任何严肃的证据基础。⁵⁷正如当代生物学哲学家艾伦·加芬克尔(Alan Garfinkel)所观察到的，“许多这种‘人类本性’的解释，就像是通过说人们必须吃饭来解释餐馆的存在。我们可以承认人们不得不吃饭是人类的天性，但是，我们想问的是，为什么这就需要餐馆？”⁵⁸尽管吃是一种共同的生物学功能，但是餐馆并没有被这种功能所决定。

Third, we need to avoid accounts of ergonic convergence that lack explanatory mechanisms for cluster stabilization. Strikingly, the arguments of evolutionary psychologists are often mirrored by “critical” social theorists who assert that an institution or social kind exists precisely because of its detriment to society (e.g., “Crime exists because society needs a scapegoat”).⁵⁹ Indeed, critical theory has its own just--so stories in which the function of certain social structures is supposed to be fostering oppression or benefiting neo--liberalism. Accordingly, limited forms of critical theory and evolutionary psychology can devise similar explanatory narratives. For example, if one finds a correlation between population size and increased male violence, the evolutionary psychologist might try to explain it by saying that increased violence is an evolutionary mechanism for keeping population in check, or a critical theorist might explain

第三，我们需要避免人体工程学趋同的帐户，缺乏解释性的机制来稳定集群。引人注目的是，进化心理学家的论点往往反映在“批判性”社会理论家身上，他们断言，一种制度或社会类型之所以存在，正是因为它对社会的危害(例如，“犯罪之所以存在，是因为社会需要一个替罪羊”)。因此，批判理论和进化心理学的有限形式可以设计出类似的解释性叙事。例如，如果有人发现人口规模和男性暴力行为增加之间存在相关性，进化心理学家可能会试图解释说，暴力行为增加是一种控制人口的进化机制，或者批判性理论家可能会解释说

the same violence by saying that it is because the ruling class encourages worker violence as a means of suppression. These models share a naive sociological error: namely, explaining actions by their consequences in-stead of their causes.⁶⁰ In brief, the problem with these sorts of explanations is that they do not provide a causal mechanism that could affect individual or collective decision-making.⁶¹ Male violence would only be *caused* by the need to limit population size if it turned out men were motivated (albeit unconsciously) to kill out of concerns about overpopulation (which seems generally far-fetched).⁶²

同样的暴力，说这是因为统治阶级鼓励工人用暴力作为镇压的手段。⁶⁰ 简而言之，这些解释的问题在于，它们没有提供一个可能影响个人或集体决策的因果机制。⁶¹ 男性暴力只会由限制人口规模的需要引起，如果事实证明男性出于对人口过剩的担忧(尽管是无意识的)而杀人(这似乎通常是牵强附会的)。⁶²

Finally, functional convergence typically only explains a subset of the powers of a given kind. For instance, the primary function of a heart is to pump blood. We know that this is its primary function, because this is what the heart has been selected for evolutionarily. But the heart has both functional and nonfunctional powers (e.g., making a beating sound is nonfunctional). Thus, we should expect ergonically converged hearts to tend to share the functional powers and not the nonfunctional ones. As one might expect, while vertebrate hearts all share a common ancestor, earthworms have specific muscular areas that function like hearts insofar as they contract to pump blood, but to my knowledge these “hearts” don’t make a beating sound. In sum, we have to be very careful at determining which powers are being functionally selected for.

最后，泛函收敛通常只能解释给定幂的一个子集。例如，心脏的主要功能是泵血。我们知道这是它的主要功能，因为这是心脏在进化过程中被选择的功能。但是心脏同时具有功能性和非功能性的能力(例如，发出跳动的声音是非功能性的)。因此，我们应该期望符合人体工程学的心脏倾向于分享功能性的力量，而不是非功能性的力量。正如人们所料，虽然脊椎动物的心脏都有一个共同的祖先，但蚯蚓有特定的肌肉区域，它们的功能就像心脏一样，只要它们收缩来泵血，但据我所知，这些“心脏”不会发出跳动的声音。总之，我们必须非常小心地确定哪些功能是被选择的。

All told, when identifying ergonic convergence, it is important to identify not just the need, but also the niche or environment that constrains response to the need, as well as the causal mechanism or process that can explain individual or collective decision-making. That said, ergonic convergence is particularly important for an analysis of artifacts. Many (but not all) artifacts are understood primarily based on their common function (e.g., what makes a

calculator is that it calculates, what makes a hammer is that it can be used to hammer). Moreover, non--artifactual social kinds often had original functional purposes which they have lost, and one can do significant work by clarifying, unmasking, or, in a different mode, restoring the functional registers of specific kinds.⁶³

总之，在确定人体工程学趋同时，重要的是不仅要确定需求，而且要确定限制对需求作出反应的利基或环境，以及可以解释个人或集体决策的因果机制或过程。也就是说，人体工程学的趋同对于人工制品的分析尤为重要。许多(但不是全部)工件的理解主要基于它们的共同功能(例如，使计算器的是它计算，使锤子的是它可以用来锤)。此外，非人为的社会种类往往具有它们已经失去的原始功能目的，人们可以通过澄清、揭示或以不同的方式恢复特定种类的功能寄存器来做重要的工作

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To recap, I see three broad types of anchoring processes: *dynamic--nominalist processes*, *mimetic processes*, and *ergonic convergence*. This list might be extended. For instance, a fourth possible anchoring process might be *etiological processes* (causal history), to the degree that there are kinds which gain their membership from point of origin or recognizable descent. (Think of champagne: a wine only officially, though not vernacularly, counts as a champagne if it is grown in the Champagne region.) But

回顾一下，我看到了三种广泛的锚定过程：动态唯名过程，模拟过程和人机工程学收敛。这个列表可以扩展。例如，第四个可能的锚定过程可能是病因过程(因果历史)，在某种程度上，有些种类从起源点或可识别的血统获得其成员资格。(想想香槟吧：只有官方认可的葡萄酒，虽然不是白葡萄酒，但如果是在香槟地区种植的，就算是香槟。)但是

etiology tends to be quite weak as far as anchoring properties are concerned. Despite many scholars' preoccupation with them, origins generally do not tell us very much on their own. The beginnings of a social kind are not usually enough to explain why particular properties have been passed down or stabilized. So I'm hesitant to treat etiology as a significant source of anchoring.

就锚定特性而言, 病因往往是相当微弱的。尽管许多学者都对它们感兴趣, 但它们的起源一般不会告诉我们太多关于它们自身的信息。一种社会类型的起源通常不足以解释为什么特定的属性会被传承下来或者稳定下来。所以我犹豫是否要把病因学作为锚定的重要来源。

A given kind can also be anchored by different processes over time. Likewise, anchoring processes sometimes conflict.⁶⁴ But they function as anchoring processes because they work to produce the social kind and to glue the powers of the social kind in some form of at least provisionally stable homeo- or heterostasis. In a nutshell, anchoring processes describe how social construction happens.

随着时间的推移, 一种给定的类型也可以被不同的过程锚定。同样地, 锚定过程有时也会发生冲突。⁶⁴ 但是它们作为锚定过程发挥作用, 因为它们致力于产生社会类型, 并将社会类型的力量以某种至少暂时稳定的同源或异质的形式粘合在一起。简而言之, 锚定过程描述了社会结构是如何发生的。

The interactivity or looping quality of social kinds need not preclude knowledge of them. Social kinds can be transformed by being analyzed, but, as noted in chapter 3, if we can gain knowledge of them at a faster rate than they are transformed, then studying them is still useful. That said, there is a lot of work that needs to be done on how scholarly inquiry functions to stabilize or undermine its objects of study. Academic disciplines in the human sciences can produce feedback that results in greater coherence in the area that they then study, and in that respect we have to account for the ways that scholarship itself functions as an anchoring process.

社会类型的交互性或循环性质不一定排除对它们的了解。社会类型可以通过分析来转化, 但是, 正如第三章所指出的, 如果我们能够以比它们被转化的速度更快的速度获得它们的知识, 那么研究它们仍然是有用的。也就是说, 在学术探究如何稳定或削弱其研究对象方面, 还有很多工作要做。人文科学的学术领域可以产生反馈, 从而使他们研究的领域更加一致, 在这方面, 我们必须说明学术本身作为锚定过程的方式。

For this reason, I have been calling for a "reflexive human sciences" for some time.⁶⁵ It is important to study how academic disciplines shape the very fields they focus on. For instance, we need to study how sociology as a discipline changes society (e.g., sociological surveys affect their subjects'

manufacturing of new kinds of social identities); how anthropological theory changes the people they study (e.g., creating new tribes and authenticating some forms of indigenous culture over others); how literary theory needs to work to interpret the vast volume of novels and poems that have been written with literary theory in mind. In Religious Studies I have been working on how the academic study of religion—in a range of disciplinary formations—tends to transform the “religions” that it studies.⁶⁶ There is a place for a higher order reflexive philosophy of the human sciences that reckons with the observation that the human sciences are in a sense porous and tend to transmute the areas that they purport to study. All that is to say, increasing awareness of how our scholarship alters its objects, far from precluding research, allows us to be better scholars.

出于这个原因，我已经呼吁“反思性人文科学”有一段时间了。⁶⁵ 研究学科如何塑造它们所关注的领域是很重要的。例如，我们需要研究作为一门学科的社会学如何改变社会(例如，社会学调查影响其研究对象创造新的社会身份);人类学理论如何改变他们所研究的人(例如，创造新的部落和确认某种形式的土著文化优于其他形式);文学理论如何需要工作来解释大量的小说和诗歌，这些小说和诗歌都是以文学理论为基础写成的。在宗教研究方面，我一直致力于研究宗教的学术研究——在一系列学科形式中——如何趋向于改变它所研究的“宗教”。⁶⁶ 人文科学有一个更高层次的反思哲学的位置，它认为人文科学在某种意义上是多孔的，并且趋向于改变它们希望研究的领域。这就是说，我们越来越意识到我们的学术研究如何改变它的对象，而不是排除研究，允许我们成为更好的学者。

It is also worth noting that we can now say something more specific about how and when social construction fails. Social kinds frequently melt away or significantly change their powers over time because of weak

同样值得注意的是，我们现在可以更具体地说明社会建设是如何以及何时失败的。社会阶层经常因为软弱而消失或者随着时间的推移显著改变他们的力量

anchoring mechanisms or changes in the anchoring mechanisms themselves. For instance, Joshua Abraham Norton, despite declaring himself “Emperor Norton of the United States,” failed in his attempt to possess the powers associated with sovereignty because he lacked constitutive anchoring processes to confer those powers on himself. Many social kinds change their creators. You can invent a gun and die by its bullets or domesticate grains and end up changing the structure of your descendants’ mouths.

锚定机构或锚定机构本身的变化。例如，约书亚·亚伯拉罕·诺顿一世，尽管自称为“美利坚合众国的诺顿皇帝”，但由于缺乏将这些权力授予自己的组织性程序，他在试图拥有与主权相关的权力时失败了。许多社会阶层改变了他们的创造者。你可以发明一把枪，然后死于子弹，或者死于混合谷物，最终改变你后代的嘴巴结构。

There is one last hunch I want to mention before moving on. Many kinds, including most of the disciplinary master categories, might be best thought of as “historical individuals.” To explain, the philosopher of biology Michael Ghiselin made the unusual argument that species are “individuals.” From this he concludes that: “1) [species] names are proper,

在继续之前，我还有最后一个预感。许多种类，包括大多数学科硕士类别，可能最好被认为是“历史人物”为了解释这一现象，生物学哲学家迈克尔·吉斯林(Michael Ghiselin)提出了一个不同寻常的观点，即物种是“个体”他由此得出结论：“1)(物种)名称是合适的，

2) there cannot be instances of them,” and “their constituent organisms are parts, not members.”⁶⁷ Individual organisms are not members of a general kind, but parts of a larger whole. Species get their identity from their historical instantiation and they are born and die, as do the individual organisms that make them up. Once all the existing tigers are gone, there will no longer exist any remaining species “tiger.” While I am not persuaded that this works as a theory of species, I have the suspicion that some social kinds are historical individuals in this way. Would “religion” exist if all references to the term “religion,” as well as all the existing religions, were eliminated? Could “religion” be revived with zero knowledge of the original concept? This is doubtless true of the specific “religions” (e.g., Confucianism qua Confucianism could not be rediscovered without reference to a particular historical trajectory). That said, I suspect that the point cannot be generalized. Not all social kinds are historical individuals. This is definitely not true of functional kinds. Spears can be discovered without ever knowing of the existence of previous spears. So perhaps whether a kind is a historical individual likely depends on specifics of the kind as well as the anchoring processes that produced it. All that is to say, I frame this insight as tentative because more work is needed on the subject.

不可能有他们的例子,”和“他们的组成有机体是部分,而不是成员。”⁶⁷个体有机体不是一般类型的成员,而是更大整体的一部分。物种从它们的历史实例中获得它们的身份,它们出生和死亡,就像组成它们的个体有机体一样。一旦所有现存的老虎都消失了,剩下的物种“老虎”将不复存在。虽然我不相信这是一种物种理论,但我怀疑某些社会物种是以这种方式存在的历史个体。如果所有关于“宗教”的提法以及所有现存的宗教都消失了,那么“宗教”还会存在吗?在对原始概念一无所知的情况下,“宗教”能够复活吗?对于特定的“宗教”,这无疑是正确的(例如,儒家思想作为儒家思想,如果没有参照特定的历史轨迹,就不可能被重新发现)。也就是说,我怀疑这一点不能被一概而论。并不是所有的社会类型都是历史个体。这绝对不适用于功能性种类。矛可以在不知道以前矛的存在的情况下被发现。因此,也许一个种类是否是一个历史个体,很可能取决于种类的细节以及产生它的锚定过程。总而言之,我认为这种观点是试探性的,因为在这个问题上还需要做更多的工作。

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To recap the broader argument: *social kinds* are the kinds of entities our terms, concepts, and theories refer to (e.g., a national economy is not identical to any given individual's concept of that economy). But we must also consider the added complexity that because social kinds are typically the product of interactive feedback loops, some social kinds are indeed transformed, differentiated, or even brought into being either intention-

概括一下更广泛的论点: 社会种类是我们的术语、概念和理论所指的实体的种类(例如, 一个国家的经济与任何给定的个人对该经济的概念不完全相同)。但是, 我们也必须考虑到增加的复杂性, 因为社会类型通常是互动反馈循环的产物, 一些社会类型的确是转化的, 区分的, 甚至产生了意图-

ally or unintentionally by concepts of them (e.g., preexisting systems for exchanging goods and services in Madagascar were changed in measurable ways by the introduction and imposition of a notion of the Malagasy “economy”). Furthermore, what makes an entity a member of a kind is both 1) clusters of powers, or what the entity can do, and 2) the causal processes that caused the entity to have that cluster of powers in the first place. Likewise, most entities are members of multiple cross-cutting social kinds. While many of these kinds emerge from dynamic-nominalist processes that specifically designate the kind in question (in other words, they are glued together discursively alongside structures of power that re-inforce the classification), other kinds do not primarily gain their properties due to classification or naming. Some social kinds emerge secondarily from causal processes without being stated or even intentionally formulated as kinds. For instance, recessions came into being (and their particular cluster of powers mainly persist) as a side effect of having capitalist markets, not from being named as “recessions.”

(例如，马达加斯加原有的货物和服务交换制度由于引进和强加马达加斯加“经济”的概念而发生了可衡量的变化)。此外，使一个实体成为一类成员的因素包括：1) 权力集群，或者该实体能够做什么，以及 2) 最初导致该实体拥有这种权力集群的因果过程。同样，大多数实体都是多种交叉所以社会类型的成员。虽然这些类型中的许多来自于动态唯名论过程，这些过程专门指定了所讨论的类型(换句话说，它们随着加强分类的权力结构漫不经心地粘在一起)，但其他类型并不主要由于分类或命名而获得它们的专有关系。一些社会类型次要地出现在因果过程中，而没有被陈述出来，甚至没有被有意地定义为类型。例如，衰退是资本主义市场的一个副作用，而不是被称为“衰退”

4.3 Deconstructing and Reconstructing Social Kinds

4.3 社会类型的解构与重构

People frequently refer to social kinds. Our daily conversations are sprinkled with discussions of bat mitzvahs, migrant workers, Starbucks, and so on. We seem to do so competently enough that, at least on the surface, we have shared topics of discussion even if we do not share concepts or definitions (and indeed, most people when pressed cannot provide definitions for most of their vocabulary).

人们经常提到社会类型。我们的日常谈话中不时会谈到成人礼、外来务工人员、星巴克等等。我们似乎在这方面做得足够出色，以至于即使我们不分享概念或定义，我们至少在表面上分享了讨论的主题(事实上，大多数人在被追问时都不能提供他们大部分词汇的定义)。

We can get by without really sharing concepts in part because the world is doing some of the work for us. This is as true of “social” as it is of “natural” worlds. Although reference is not the whole of meaning, as noted earlier, I do not need to know the properties of copper or migrant worker to refer to either, because both kinds exceed their reference. This is probably uncontroversial in regard to copper, but the term “migrant worker” is also an attempt to capture a kind—that is to say, a power--cluster—that encapsulates more than just the term. Many social kinds exhibit the added complications of being interactive kinds, which means that our collective (as opposed to individual) conceptions of “migrant worker” gradually affect the properties of the kind in question. But as I have been arguing, social kinds do not come into being solely through the act of being named. I can come up with a new term, but that in itself will not work to anchor a stable social category, at least not without a lot more effort from other people. So we don’t have to worry about the subjectivity of my concept of “migrant worker” as long as I am discovering the kind’s properties by way of something empirical rather than merely intuiting what the term means.

我们不需要真正地分享概念就可以过得去，部分原因是这个世界正在为我们做一些工作。无论是“社会”还是“自然”世界，都是如此。虽然参考并不是意义的全部，如前所述，我不需要知道铜或农民工的性质来参考，因为两者都超出了他们的参考。对于铜来说，这可能没有争议，但“农民工”这个词也是一种尝试，意在捕捉一种——也就是说，一种权力集群——不仅仅包含了这个词。许多社会类型表现出作为互动类型的额外的复杂性，这意味着我们对“农民工”的集体(相对于个人)概念逐渐影响这一类型的属性。但是正如我一直在争论的那样，所以社会类型并不仅仅是通过被命名的行为而产生的。我可以想出一个新词，但这个词本身并不能稳定社会类别，至少在没有其他人付出更多努力的情况下是不行的。因此，我们不必担心我的“农民工”概念的主观性，只要我通过经验性的方式发现这种特性，而不仅仅是凭直觉知道这个术语的含义。

This has a significant implication: people—scholars and non--academics alike—have varying degrees of knowledge about specific social kinds and their properties. Moreover, people in general typically tend to have mis-taken assumptions about process kinds (and necessarily also about an-choring processes). There exists a body of psychological research sug-gesting that most people tend to treat some, but not all, social kinds as tantamount to natural kinds.⁶⁸ People tend to treat categories like “reli-gion” or “race” as universals that express fundamental essences and in-volve rigid category membership, whereas they tend to treat other kinds, especially artifacts (e.g., “chairs”), as though membership in the category were subjective, vague, and a matter of context. Likewise, many of the es-sentialized social kinds are highly entropic categories with diverse instan-tiations and quite different properties depending on time period, culture, and so on. Yet people often mistake the features of local social environ-ment for features of the collective (e.g., all of our friends vote for a specific presidential candidate, and thus we assume mistakenly that everyone is voting for her).

这具有重要意义: 人们——学者和非学者——对特定的社会种类及其属性有不同程度的了解。此外, 人们通常倾向于对过程类型(当然也包括繁重的过程)有错误的假设。有一系列心理学研究表明, 大多数人倾向于把一些(但不是全部)社会类型视为等同于自然类型。⁶⁸ 人们倾向于把“宗教”或“种族”等类别视为表达基本本质和僵化的类别成员关系的共性, 而他们倾向于对待其他类型, 尤其是人工制品(如“椅子”), 好像这个类别的成员关系是主观的、模糊的和有一个上下文问题。同样, 许多感性化的社会类型都是高度熵的范畴, 具有不同的实例化, 并且根据时间、文化等因素具有相当不同的性质。然而, 人们常常把当地社会环境的特点误认为是集体的特点(例如, 我们所有的朋友都投票给一个特定的总统候选人, 因此我们错误地认为每个人都投票给她)。

Taken together this suggests that there are two different general kinds of work—deconstructing and reconstructing—that need to be done in re-gard to specific social kinds. Indeed, an ideal project might begin by de-constructing common views of its object and then work on reconstruct-ing the formal properties of the object in question. The following pages explore these two modes and the implications of my account of process social kinds for scholarship and ordinary life.

综上所述, 这表明有两种不同的一般性工作——解构和重建——需要根据具体的社会类型进行。事实上, 一个理想的项目可以从解构其对象的共同视图开始, 然后着手重构该对象的形式属性。接下来的几页将探索这两种模式, 以及我对学术和日常生活的社会类型过程的描述的意义。

The methodology that will be most familiar to scholars in the human sciences is the deconstructing or de--reifying mode. Sally Haslanger has rightly observed that “social construction” is primarily used in “debunk-ing projects,” which attempt to denaturalize specific entities or suggest that something that seems only thinly social has a thick script associated with it.⁶⁹ As noted repeatedly, one of the most common critiques of the disciplinary categories is that the category in question has been reified or treated with misplaced concreteness. As Marx and Engels put it, each new class gives “its ideas the form of universality, and represent them as the only rational, universally valid ones.”⁷⁰ Sometimes we need to point out that this is not the case for a specific category. Indeed, one of the biggest obstacles to cross-cultural research is overgeneralizing based on one’s own cultural categories (I will return to this below). All that is to say that even in its typical form this kind of deconstructive work is valuable.

人文科学学者最熟悉的方法论是解构或去物化模式。Sally Haslanger 正确地指出,“社会结构”主要用于“揭穿项目”, 这些项目试图使特定实体变性, 或者暗示某些看起来只有很少社会性的东西有一个很厚的脚本。正如马克思和恩格斯所说, 每一个新阶级都赋予“其思想以普遍性的形式, 并将其表现为唯一理性的、普遍有效的思想”⁷⁰ 有时我们需要指出, 这不是一个特定范畴的情况。事实上, 跨文化研究的最大障碍之一就是过度概括自己的文化类别(我将在下面回到这一点)。这就是说, 即使在它的典型形式, 这种解构的工作是有价值的。

But to make it better we need to tweak it in five core respects.

但是为了让它变得更好, 我们需要从五个核心方面对它进行调整。

First, debunking strategies are often presented as unique to a specific kind and typically as a way of suggesting that the kind in question is in some sense “unreal.” Scholars often want to say “there is no such thing as X” or that “X is socially constructed” and therefore nonexistent. The argument in question is typically established by way of exploring ruptures or discontinuities, exposing structures of power, or demonstrating tempo-ral or regional variation. But as I argued in chapter 1, “real” is a contrastive term that necessitates a contrast class. Mind-dependence does not mean that a kind in question does not exist, nor does it mean that it is unreal (except in a specific contrast). Moreover, social kinds tend to be highly variable. Change is the norm not the exception. We also now know that anchoring processes (a.k.a. systems of power) are necessary for determining the properties of all social kind terms. If we recognize that all social kinds can be debunked and that their heterogeneity renders them no less “real,” then it undercuts the deconstructive force of much skeptically tinged scholarship. We have to stop acting so surprised when we find out that a social kind is socially constructed. To be socially constructed is to be relational and processual, not nonexistent. So the affective tone of much critical scholarship needs to be reconsidered. Moreover, against many typical scholarly genealogies, a social kind’s history is only relevant to the current case if its effects on the kind’s power--cluster or anchor-ing processes can be demonstrated. Kinds do not automatically inherit essences from their origins (e.g., even if the American Modern Art movement was initially funded by the CIA, it would not mean that modern art is necessarily imperialist). We need to avoid the genetic fallacy.

首先, 揭穿策略通常被认为是某种特定的策略所独有的, 而且通常是作为一种暗示这种策略在某种意义上是“不真实的”的方式学者们经常想说“没有 x 这样的东西”或者“x 是社会构建的”, 因此不存在。有争议的论点通常是通过探索断裂或不连续性、暴露权力结构或证明节奏或地区差异来建立的。但正如我在第一章中所论证的, “真实”是一个反义词, 需要一个对比类。精神依赖并不意味着一个问题中的种类不存在, 也不意味着它是不真实的(除非在一个特定的对比中)。此外, 社会类型往往是高度可变的。改变是常态, 而不是例外。我们现在也知道, 锚定过程(又称权力系统)对于确定所有社会类别的属性是必要的。如果我们认识到所有的社会类型都可以被揭穿, 而且它们的异质性使它们同样“真实”, 那么它就会削弱许多带有怀疑色彩的学术的解构力量。当我们发现一种社会类型是由社会构建的时候, 我们必须停止表现得如此惊讶。被社会构建就是关系和过程, 而不是不存在。因此, 许多批判性学术的情感基调需要重新考虑。此外, 与许多典型的学术谱系相反, 一个社会种类的历史只有在对其对该种类的权力集群或锚定过程的影响能够被证明的情况下才与当前的案例相关。种类不会自动从它们的起源继承本质

(例如，即使美国现代艺术运动最初是由中央情报局资助的，也不意味着现代艺术一定是帝国主义的)。我们需要避免基因谬论。

Second, another implication of the model of social kinds I have been proposing is that there is no “essential” purity to social kinds, and that any claim that there is has merely masked the kind’s origins. Hybridity is more than the typical—it is closer to the rule. This means that the opposition between a given category and its putative opposite can be collapsed. The social world is disjointed, so the category boundaries are necessarily permeable. This licenses creolization or the production of explicit hybrids. We have been producing cross--fertilized categories without realizing it, but have been unnecessarily compelled to justify them. For instance, rejecting the presumed dualism between “religion” and “politics” opens the door to political theology. This works because any given thinker or movement is rarely exclusively religious or exclusively political. We don’t have to choose, for instance, if a work is philosophy or religion or politics, and any of those choices would be an imposition. De--reifying social kinds should open the way to even more crossings, to our ultimate benefit.

其次，我所提出的社会类型模型的另一个含义是，社会类型没有“本质”的纯洁性，任何声称存在纯洁性的说法都只是掩盖了这种类型的起源。杂合性不仅仅是典型的——它更接近于规则。这意味着一个给定的范畴和它假定的对立面之间的对立面可以被瓦解。社会世界是分离的，所以分类的边界必然是可渗透的。这允许克里奥化或生产明显的杂交种。我们在没有意识到的情况下产生了交叉受精的种类，但是却被不必要地强迫去证明它们的合理性。例如，拒绝假定的“宗教”和“政治”之间的二元论打开了政治神学的大门。这是因为任何特定的思想家或运动很少是完全的宗教或完全的政治。例如，我们不必选择一部作品是哲学、宗教还是政治，这些选择中的任何一个都是强加给我们的。去物化社会种类应该为我们打开更多的交叉口，最终获得我们的利益。

Third, genealogy typically confines itself to the tracing of language or discursive power. This is why genealogy tends to reproduce canon. But

第三，宗谱学通常局限于追踪语言或话语权力。这就是为什么宗谱学倾向于重现经典。但是

because we now know that social kinds are not reducible to the terms for them, we can be more sophisticated. We can begin our research into a given social kind by exploding it in order to try to see what it has been hiding. We can go beyond the canon to let voices speak that have other-wise been silenced or ignored. Further, as Theodor Adorno argued, there is a chance, particularly if we proceed dialectically—that is to say self-- consciously and self--critically—to use concepts to get beyond concepts, or in another idiom, to use language to outwit language. The end result of this process for Adorno will be that concepts will lose their seeming transparency and will no longer be confused with the things they repre-sent. 71 This is an insight we need to extend to social kinds. Ordinary ways of speaking about the social world and its categories are typically in error. Hence, we can commence our investigations by incorporating the nega-tion, or we can internalize the critique. This means that we cannot assume the transparency of the central terms of our analysis, but we should not mistake the terms for the things--in--themselves. (We do not have to sus-pend all terms at once, but only one set at a time.)

因为我们现在知道社会种类不能简化为它们的术语，我们可以变得更加复杂。我们可以开始研究一个特定的社会类型，通过炸开它来试图看到它隐藏了什么。我们可以超越经典，让那些被压制或忽视的声音说话。此外，正如奥多·阿多诺所说，有一个机会，特别是如果我们辩证地进行——也就是说自我意识和自我批判地进行——使用概念超越概念，或者用另一个习语，使用语言智胜语言。Adorno 这个过程的最终结果将是，概念将失去它们表面上的透明性，不再与它们所代表的东西混淆。71 这是一个我们需要扩展到社会类型的洞察力。谈论社会世界及其分类的普通方式通常是错误的。因此，我们可以开始我们的调查，通过合并的否定，或者我们可以内化的批评。这意味着我们不能假定我们分析的核心术语是透明的，但是我们不应该把这些术语误认为事物本身。(我们不必一次性中止所有术语，但是一次只能中止一组术语)

Approached differently, if words are like a net used to trap fish, this means not forgetting the net (because if we do so the fish will slip away) or worse, mistaking it for the fish, but instead looking under the net. Let me borrow an example from mathematics. In mathematics it is not un-common to introduce a category by asserting a collection of equivalence classes. This produces a new system. For example, if you assert the equiva-lence of 12 and 0 you get a clock. 17 now corresponds to 5, etcetera. If you reverse it and unbind equivalences of the clock, you suddenly get the inte-gers back. 17 is now autonomous, no longer equal to 5 and closer instead to 16. Designating something as a member of a particular social kind pro-duces equivalence classes. So reversing the process should result in an ex-plosion of variety. Rather than merely terminating in complexity or a re-jection of abstraction, it should allow us to specify the world of differences that the previously

presumed unity had attempted to subsume, or had at the very least partially masked.

用不同的方法，如果文字像用来捕鱼的网，这意味着不要忘记网(因为如果我们这样做，鱼会溜走)或者更糟，错把它当成鱼，而是看看网下面。让我从数学中借用一个例子。在数学中，通过断言一组等价类来引入一个范畴并不罕见。这就产生了一个新的系统。例如，如果你断言等价于 12 和 0，你就得到了一个时钟。17 现在等于 5，等等。如果你把它反过来，解除时钟的等价物，你就会突然得到整数。17 现在是自动的，不再等于 5，而更接近于 16。指定某事物为特定社会类别的成员会产生等价类别。因此，逆转这个过程应该会导致多样性的爆炸。它不应该仅仅终止复杂性或拒绝抽象性，而应该允许我们具体说明先前假定的统一试图包含或至少部分掩盖的差异世界。

Fourth, this account of social kinds should also suggest rebinding or category shifting. A focused analysis of “Star Trek fandom as a religion” could be a worthwhile project. But it would have to do more than just note properties shared by Trekkers and say Southern Baptists; rather, it would have to be able to identify the *same set of underlying anchoring processes* that serve to produce those shared power--clusters. It would have to tell us *why* they are similar rather than simply presuming they share membership in the category “religion” based on their shared properties. We probably do not have a word for the social kind that includes both the shared powers between Trekkers and Southern Baptists and the causal processes

第四，这种对社会种类的描述也应该建议重新约束或类别转移。集中分析《星际迷航》粉丝的宗教信仰可能是一个有价值的项目。但是，它需要做的不仅仅是记录 Trekkers 和 Southern Baptists 共享的属性，它还需要能够识别同样一组底层锚定过程，这些过程用于产生那些共享的权力集群。它必须告诉我们为什么它们是相似的，而不是简单地假定它们根据共同的属性共享“宗教”类别的会员资格。我们可能没有一个词来形容这种社会类型，包括 Trekkers 和南方浸礼会教徒之间的共同力量和因果过程

that anchor those shared powers, but from a certain scale of analysis, a kind like that could exist and explaining the causal mechanisms that produce it would do valuable work.

这些共同的力量，但从某种程度的分析来看，这样的力量可能存在，并解释产生这种力量的因果机制，将会做有价值的工作。

Finally, and most importantly, I need to emphasize that deconstructive methods also require a full knowledge of how the social kind in question has been put together. Sometimes learning how a social kind has been socially constructed makes it look harder to change rather than easier. This can be daunting, but justice projects are not furthered by self-deception. To undermine anti-blackness in America requires a full knowledge of the various anchoring processes (enforcement mechanisms, role filling, economic needs) that are working to produce “race” as a social kind in our contemporary world.

最后，也是最重要的一点，我需要强调的是，解构主义方法也需要充分了解所讨论的社会类型是如何组合在一起的。有时候，了解一种社会类型是如何被如此社会化地构建起来的，会让它看起来更难改变而不是更容易改变。这可能令人望而生畏，但正义项目不会因自欺欺人而进一步发展。为了削弱美国的反黑人运动，我们需要对各种锚定过程(执行机制、角色填补、经济需求)有充分的了解，这些过程正在我们当代世界中产生作为一种社会类型的“种族”。

To recap: from now on, every social kind term should be read as if in quotes (including of course, my use of “social” in social kind). Scholars should not just adopt their metalanguage terms from their culture’s object language and expect the terms to function without remainder. There are times when it is necessary to deploy the de-reifying jujitsu discussed in chapter 2. Sometimes we need to demolish the social kinds we believe are imprisoning us. Even to understand social kinds, we often need to begin with their detonation—pushing them to their limits, bringing unstable antinomies to the surface, and then forcing our conception of the social kind to explode in a flash of new possibilities that reveals what it had previously hidden. We are left with what remains.

总结一下：从现在开始，每一个社会类的术语都应该像引号一样阅读（当然，包括我在社会类中使用的“社会”）。学者们不应该仅仅从他们文化的对象语言中采用元语言术语，并期望这些术语不留余地地发挥作用。有些时候，有必要部署在第二章中讨论的去物化柔术。有时我们需要摧毁那些我们认为正在囚禁我们的社会类型。甚至为了理解社会类型，我们往往需要从它们的爆发开始——将它们推向极限，将不稳定的矛盾表露出来，然后迫使我们对社会类型的概念在一瞬间爆发出新的可能性，揭示它以前隐藏的东西。留给我们的只有剩下的东西。

But demolition is not the only kind of work we might want to do. There is necessarily a need to reconstruct social kinds. Reconstructing social kinds could be empirical, as there is plenty of work to be done discovering the power--clusters of specific social kinds. The theory of social kinds provided in this chapter directs our attention to social kinds in new ways. We need more work that recasts research about kinds into property--clusters, figuring out what process are anchoring those clusters, and so on.

但是拆除并不是我们唯一想做的工作。我们必须重建社会类型。重建社会种类可以是经验性的，因为发现特定社会种类的权力集群还有很多工作要做。本章提供的社会种类理论以新的方式引导我们关注社会种类。我们需要做更多的工作，将种类的研究重新转化为财产集群，找出锚定这些集群的过程，等等。

But reconstructing social kinds could also be normative (e.g., arguing that we *should* use the term “philosophy” to cover the oral traditions of Ghanaian Akan sages).⁷² Progress in both scientific and humanistic disciplines has been by way of “conceptual engineering” or changing the usage of terms.⁷³ Although in practice these arguments often say they are clarifying what a given term “really” means, I think (for reasons I will articulate in greater detail in chapter 7) that normative arguments are clearer when explicated as such. Linguistic advocacy is only going to work insofar as we are capable of putting into place specific anchoring mechanisms that pro-

72 科学和人文学科的进步是通过“概念工程”或改变术语的用法来实现的。73 虽然在实践中，这些论点经常说它们是在澄清一个给定的术语“真正”的含义，但我认为(为了更详细的原因，我将在第7章中阐述)，规范性论点在作出这样的解释时会更清楚。只有当我们能够建立支持语言学的特定锚定机制时，语言学的倡导才能发挥作用

duce the new properties we want in question (e.g., institutional resources) that produce the new properties we want in question.

引出我们想要的有问题的新属性(例如, 机构资源), 从而产生我们想要的有问题的新属性。

But the next couple of pages elaborate another implication of the theory I have been articulating here: namely, that it suggests a new approach to comparison.

但接下来的几页详细阐述了我在这里阐述的理论的另一个含义: 即, 它提出了一种新的比较方法。

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I believe this theory of social kinds solves the problem of comparison that has bedeviled Religious Studies and many other human sciences. Following Aristotle, many philosophers have argued that observed similarities alone do not provide an explanation—in essence, to observe “that some-thing is so” does not tell us “why it is so”—and lacking this “why,” we are limited in the kind of generalizations or knowledge we can produce about a subject.⁷⁴ A project that amounts to the statement that all “red” things are “red” has not contributed much knowledge. Similarity without an underlying cause is not much more than an analogy.

我相信这种社会类型的理论解决了困扰着宗教研究和许多其他人文科学的比较问题。继亚里士多德之后, 许多哲学家认为, 观察到的相似性本身并不能提供解释——从本质上说, 观察到“某些事物是这样的”并不能告诉我们“为什么是这样的”——而缺乏这个“为什么”, 我们对一个主题所能产生的概括或知识就会受到限制。没有根本原因的相似性只不过是——一个类比。

In rejecting comparison, scholars often argued that the problem was that “the issue of difference has been all but forgotten.”⁷⁵ This critique of comparison—when assimilated to Edward Said’s otherwise valuable condemnation of Orientalism—has at times been amplified into the claim that Asia (or, more often, the Middle East) is so radically different that one cannot describe it in terms or concepts drawn from European languages. But despite purporting to be anti--orientalism, this line of argumentation is basically just a neo--orientalist portrayal of an inherently incomprehensible and “mysterious Orient” that Said would have condemned. So, to the partisans of difference, I could add the observation that difference is no more meaningful than similarity. Everything is also different from every-thing else in some respect. For instance, I am a different person than I was this morning insofar as I trimmed my hair and, having heard BewhY’s “가 라사대,” I have now

changed my attitude toward his music. So there is no particular reason to fetishize either similarity or difference.

在拒绝比较时，学者们经常争辩说，问题在于“差异的问题已经被完全遗忘了。”⁷⁵ 这种对比较的批判——当与爱德华·赛义德(Edward Said)对东方主义的有价值的谴责相同时——有时被放大成这样的论断：亚洲(或者更常见的是中东)是如此截然不同，以至于人们无法用从欧洲语言中汲取的术语或概念来描述它。但是，尽管自称是反东方主义，这一论点基本上只是一个新东方主义者对一个内在难以理解和“神秘的东方”的描述，赛义德会予以谴责。所以，对于那些支持差异的人，我可以加上这样的观察：差异并不比相似更有意义。在某些方面，一切事物都与其他事物不同。例如，我是一个不同的人，今天早上我修剪了我的头发，并且，听了 BewhY 的“something something something”，我现在已经改变了我对他的音乐的态度。所以没有特别的理由去盲目崇拜相似或者不同。

Comparisons can be illuminating when they render the familiar strange or the unfamiliar comprehensible, but most comparative scholarship tells us little about the intermediate category of comparison itself. For instance, similarities between Shintō and Haudenosaunee rituals do not mean that they are both examples of the same type of religion (putatively “animism”), nor would comparing their beliefs or practices explain the meaning of “animism.” Comparison can provide information about either of the subjects to be compared, but not the category often supposed to be the axis of comparison. Moreover, as I observed in chapter 2, similarity it-

当比较使熟悉的陌生事物或不熟悉的事物变得易于理解时，它可能会给我们带来启发，但是大多数比较学术研究并没有告诉我们比较本身的中间范畴。例如，shint 和 Haudenosaunee 仪式之间的相似性并不意味着它们都是同一种宗教的例子(推定为“万物有灵论”)，也不会比较它们的信仰或实践来解释“万物有灵论”的含义比较可以提供任何一个被比较对象的信息，但不是通常被认为是比较轴的范畴。此外，正如我在第二章中所观察到的，相似性

self is trivial and task dependent. So the utility of such comparison on its own would be limited.

自我是微不足道的和任务依赖的。所以这种比较本身的效用是有限的。

But now we know that tracing similarity of power--clusters that share the same anchoring process can tell you when generalizations are apt. The better we understand the causal processes that glue the properties together, the better we will be able to predict where these properties will hold and where there will be exceptions. Thus, while apparent similarity or difference might be a good starting place for research, to rise to the level of explanation requires that we specify first that the causal, anchor-ing processes that have produced the kinds are shared; from that basis we can go on to analyze their similarity. This is what I have been trying to do for social kinds.

但是现在我们知道追踪共享相同锚定过程的幂集群的相似性可以告诉你什么时候推广是合适的。我们越了解将这些属性粘合在一起的因果过程，我们就越能够更好地预测这些属性将在何处存在以及在何处会有例外。因此，虽然表面上的相似性或差异可能是研究的良好起点，但要达到解释的水平，我们必须首先明确指出，产生这些类型的因果锚定过程是共享的；在此基础上，我们可以继续分析它们的相似性。这就是我一直试图为社会类型所做的。

Having observed that social kinds are best understood as interwoven complex processes with ambiguous edges and significant variance both temporally and spatially, we might think of them in mathematical terms as high--entropy objects or objects with a high degree of complexity. Social kinds could also be described as possessing high Hausdorff dimension-ality, like fractals.⁷⁶ Indeed, most objects in complex systems are high--dimensional because they are impacted by multiple systems. Accordingly, one could just argue, as F.A. Hayek did, that an overly simple attempt to describe a complex phenomenon is almost necessarily false.⁷⁷ How does one study immensely complex things?

我们已经观察到，社会种类最好理解为具有模糊边缘和时间 and 空间上显著差异的交织复杂过程，我们可以从数学角度把它们看作是高熵对象或高度复杂的对象。实际上，复杂系统中的大多数对象都是高维的，因为它们受到多个系统的影响。因此，人们可以像 f.a. 哈耶克那样认为，过于简单地试图描述一个复杂的现象几乎必然是错误的？

If contemporary work in complexity theory is correct, then the answer is by identifying locally coherent structures within that system, making approximately true statements on different scales, or identifying the relevant impacting system. To explain this last point: even if the object of study is being impacted by multiple systems, for any specific purpose they might

effectively be only part of one system. For instance, a word such as “tire” could be part of a number of different meaning systems (it could refer to feeling fatigue, a loss of interest, a specific part of a car, and so on). But in ordinary conversation we constrain its meaning through con-text to a small number of possible meanings or relevant systems. We can do the same in our theories. A consistent problem is the assumption that all of our theories need to describe universal patterns; but that means the exception always disproves them. Instead we need to be thinking in terms of productive generalizations. As Karl Mannheim observed, our vantage on the social is local and necessarily partial, but recognizing that finitude and attempting to go beyond it can at least partly allow us to ameliorate our limitations.⁷⁸

如果当代复杂性理论的工作是正确的，那么答案就是通过识别系统内部的局部相干结构，在不同尺度上做出近似正确的陈述，或者识别相关的影响系统。为了解释最后一点：即使研究对象受到多个系统的影响，出于任何特定目的，它们实际上可能只是一个系统的一部分。例如，像“tire”这样的单词可以是许多不同意义系统的一部分(它可以指感觉疲劳、失去兴趣、汽车的某个特定部分等等)。但是在日常对话中，我们通过上下文将其意义限制在少数可能的意义或相关系统中。在我们的理论中，我们也可以这样做。一个一致的问题是假设我们所有的理论都需要描述普遍的模式，但这意味着例外总是否定它们。相反，我们需要从生产性概括的角度来思考问题。正如卡尔·曼海姆所观察到的，我们在社会上的优势是局部的，必然是局部的，但是认识到有限性并试图超越它至少可以部分地允许我们改善我们的局限性

Despite some debates in the secondary literature, pragmatism is re-quired at two levels: that of the property--cluster and that of the anchoring

尽管在二级文献中有一些争论，但实用主义在两个层面上是必需的：财产集群和锚定

mechanism. Many of Boyd's followers have been tempted to argue that identifying the homeostatic mechanism alone should allow one to pin-point the boundaries of a given kind.⁷⁹ But the problem is that different levels of abstraction produce different notions of what counts as a *single* causal mechanism.⁸⁰ For example, at one degree of resolution, the center in the brain known as the hippocampus is composed of multiple distinct causal mechanisms such as excitatory and inhibitory neurons, glial cells, and support cells. But looked at from a more abstract vantage, the hippocampus itself is a single causal mechanism involved in the encoding of memory. Yet, as I have repeatedly remarked, the social world is disjointed. Not only do social kinds cross-cut each other, but our vantages on complex social kinds also often cross-cut each other (e.g., the same organization could be analyzed economically, architecturally, symbolically, and so on—with each type of analysis only capturing the vantage of a single complex entity). This means that for those of us working in the human sciences, whether a particular set of entities count as members of “the same” social kind or represent merely related kinds is often going to be a matter of pragmatic stipulation for the purposes of a particular generalization, rather than a simple fact of the matter.

机制。博伊德的许多追随者都试图争辩说，仅仅识别体内平衡机制就可以让人确定某一特定种类的边界。但问题是，不同层次的抽象产生了不同的概念，什么算作单一的因果机制。例如，在一定程度分辨率下，大脑中被称为海马体的中心是由多种不同的因果机制组成的，如兴奋性和抑制性神经元、神经胶质细胞和支持细胞。但是从一个更抽象的角度来看，海马体本身是一个单一的因果机制，参与记忆的编码。然而，正如我反复强调的那样，社会世界是脱节的。社会类型不仅相互交叉，而且我们在复杂社会类型上的优势也经常相互交叉(例如，同一个组织可以在经济上、建筑上、象征意义上进行分析，等等——每种分析只能捕捉到单个复杂实体的优势)。这意味着，对于我们这些从事人文科学工作的人来说，无论一组特定的实体是属于“同一”社会类别的成员，还是仅仅代表相关的类别，往往都是为了特定概括的目的而作出的实际规定，而不是事实的简单事实。

Since there is no essential way to classify a given phenomenon (e.g., as religious or political), different classification schemes will make sense for different projects. But not every classification will turn out to be useful. Not all proposed social kinds describe actual clusters of powers. Our vernacular, and even scholarly, vocabulary about the social world is littered with terms which lack definitive references or which transmit mistaken assumptions. Even terminology with practical utility often misses what gives a particular social kind its properties and therefore fails to explicate when generalizations about it are likely to hold. To repeat an earlier observation, a kind is ultimately worthless if it produces inductive generalizations only by

accident. Even our best terminology rarely depicts in full detail the properties or anchoring processes of a particular kind, but to the extent that our terms pick out actual property--clusters/anchoring processes we can work together to refine our theoretical formulations or accommodate our linguistic practices to better describe the kind in question. So even to be identifiable as worthy of accommodation, a kind has to at least incompletely track both shared power--clusters and shared anchoring processes.

由于没有必要的方法来分类一个特定的现象(例如, 宗教或政治), 不同的分类方案将对不同的项目有意义。但并不是每个分类都有用。并不是所有被提议的社会类型都描述了实际的权力集群。我们关于社会世界的方言词汇, 甚至学术词汇都充斥着缺乏明确参考或传递错误假设的术语。即使是具有实用价值的术语, 也往往忽略了是什么赋予特定的社会类型其属性, 因此无法解释什么时候有关它的概括可能成立。重复一个早期的观察, 如果一种归纳概括只是偶然产生的, 那么它最终是没有价值的。即使是我们最好的术语也很少详细描述某一特定类型的性质或锚定过程, 但只要我们的术语能够挑选出实际的性质——集群/锚定过程, 我们就可以共同努力, 完善我们的理论公式, 或者适应我们的语言实践, 以更好地描述这类问题。因此, 即使被认为是值得调整的, 一种至少不完全跟踪共享的权力集群和共享的约束过程。

This suggests two different kinds of pragmatic strategies toward social kinds, which we might call *aggregating* and *disaggregating*. To aggregate is to look at what examples share across a larger scale, although to do so necessarily ignores some differences; to disaggregate is to increase the resolution and look at a finer--grained scale that has less explanatory utility. Both

这表明了针对社会类型的两种不同的实用策略, 我们可以称之为聚合和分解。聚合是指在更大的范围内查看示例共享的内容, 尽管这样做必然会忽略一些差异; 分解是指提高分辨率, 并查看粒度更细、解释效用更小的范围。两者都有

are useful. To avoid miscommunication, both require that time and place specifications be explicit. The value of both strategies will rest on their ability to describe actual causal processes and power--clusters.

是有用的。为了避免误解,两者都需要明确的时间和地点规范。这两种策略的价值将取决于它们描述实际因果过程和权力集群的能力。

Questions of scale will necessitate pragmatic decisions about whether to consider a particular case to be one or more social kinds, but this does not mean that anything goes or that social kinds are defined by theorists primarily on an *ad hoc* basis. Rather, the necessity of aggregating or disag-

规模问题需要作出务实的决定,决定是否将某一特定情况视为一种或多种社会类型,但这并不意味着任何事情都可以发生,或社会类型主要由理论家在特定的基础上加以界定。相反,聚合或者分解的必要性

gregating a social kind (as well as its power-clusters- and anchoring processes) will tend to be relative to a specific explanatory project, so making a mistake about scale will negatively impact research findings.

聚合一个社会类型(以及它的权力集群和锚定过程)将倾向于相对于一个具体的解释性项目,所以在规模上犯错误将对研究结果产生负面影响。

To harken back to what I said earlier in this chapter, social kinds are not identical to the terms for them. Sometimes the same social kind can be referred to by different words. We can see this, for example, in the succession of expressions for “place to urinate or defecate,” which in American English went from *water closet* to *latrine* to *toilet* to *bathroom*, as new expressions were coined to replace older ones that had become offensive but then became offensive themselves.⁸¹ Most social scientists are not trying to avoid talking about pissing, but our vocabulary exhibits similar redundancies, especially as different disciplines describe what amounts to the same social kind with divergent specialized terms. Whether given expressions are references to the same or similar social kinds is typically going to be task dependent based on the aggregating or disaggregating discussed above (e.g., the change from *latrine* to *bathroom* also roughly coincided with architectural differences that may or may not be relevant to a particular theory, and thus may or may not count as different social kinds).

回顾一下我在本章前面所说的,社会类型与它们的术语并不完全相同。有时候相同的社会类型可以用不同的词来表示。例如,我们可以从“小便或大便的地方”的一系列表达中看到这一点。在美国英语中,“小便或大便的地方”的表达方式从盥洗室到公共厕所再到公共厕所再到公共厕所,随着新的表达方式被创造出来,以取代那些已经具有攻击性但自身也变得具有攻击性的旧的表达方式。⁸¹大多数社会科学家并不试图避免谈论小便,但我们的词汇表现出类似的冗余,特别是当不同的学科用不同的专门术语描述相同的社会类型时。无论给定的表达是指相同或相似的社会类型,通常将取决于任务基于聚合或分解上述讨论(例如,

从厕所到浴室的变化也大致符合建筑的差异，可能是或可能不是相关的特定理论，因此可能或可能不被视为不同的社会类型)。

Even more pernicious than references to the same kind by different expressions is when one term is used to refer to multiple social kinds (e.g., “Viking” as a cultural grouping or a raiding practice). A similar problem is when identical terminology masks divergent notions of the precise property-clusters and anchoring processes of a particular social kind. A disagreement about whether political science is a “science” may rest on unwitting disjunction between two different accounts of what makes something a science.

当一个术语被用来指代多种社会类型(例如，“维京人”作为一个文化群体或一种突袭行为)时，比用不同的表达方式指代同一类型更为有害。一个类似的问题是，当相同的术语掩盖了不同的概念的精确财产-集群和锚定过程的特定社会类型。关于政治科学是否是一门“科学”的分歧，可能源于两种不同的关于什么使某事物成为一门科学的说法之间无意识的分歧。

Verbal disputes about social kinds are ubiquitous because people often do not realize that they have very different notions of shared vocabulary. In chapter 5, I discuss meaning itself in more detail, but I observe that even native speakers of the same language often use terms in overlapping but not identical ways. Moreover, people are often wrong about how social kinds actually function. For these reasons the common practice in much of the human sciences of reducing a subject to what a particular set of interlocutors say about it (e.g., “religion” is whatever people say is religion) is likely to lead to problems.

关于社会类型的言语争论无处不在，因为人们往往没有意识到他们对共享词汇有着非常不同的观念。在第五章中，我更详细地讨论了意义本身，但是我注意到即使是以同一种语言为母语的人也经常使用重叠的术语，而不是完全相同的方式。此外，人们经常弄错社会类型实际上是如何运作的。由于这些原因，许多人文科学中的普遍做法是将一个主题降低到一组特定的对话者所说的话(例如，“宗教”是人们所说的任何宗教)，这可能会导致问题。

Alternatively, the theory of social kinds I have been providing here suggests three *prima facie* responses to disputes of this sort. First, we can specify and then ascertain empirically which power--clusters and anchor-ing processes are determinate for a particular social kind in the relevant context. For instance, a disagreement about whether Islamic occult sci-ence is science might actually turn on the properties of being a “science” in context and what caused those properties to co--occur.⁸² In a related mode, we can explore the gap between the manifest concept (i.e., the over-lap in what people say the term means) and the operative properties of the social kind (i.e., how the kind or kinds referred to by the term actually function in practice).

或者，我在这里提出的社会类型理论提出了对这类争端的三种初步反应。首先，我们可以具体说明，然后通过经验确定，在相关的背景下，哪些权力集群和锚定过程对于特定的社会类型是确定的。⁸² 在一个相关的模式中，我们可以探讨显性概念(即人们所说的术语意思的重叠)与社会类的操作性质(即术语所指的一种或多种实际上如何起作用)之间的差距。

Second, as David Chalmers has suggested, the disputants might sus-pend use of the disputed term and each try to make their argument with-out using it.⁸³ In so doing, they might discover that their disagreement is not about the properties of a particular social kind, but rests on something else. For instance, disputants might exclude the word “science” and dis-cover that the core of the argument is an empirical question about Islami-cate technological discoveries compared to Europe.

第二，正如大卫·查尔莫斯所建议的，争论者可能会暂停使用有争议的术语，并且每个人都试图在不使用该术语的情况下提出自己的论点。例如，争论者可能会排除“科学”这个词，并且发现争论的核心是一个关于伊斯兰教的技术发现与欧洲相比的经验问题。

Finally, we might try an updated version of what Chalmers has called the “subscript gambit”—namely, to introduce multiple new terms distin-guished with subscript (replace X with X1 and X2) to differentiate social kinds covered by the same term. For instance, one might say the social kind I am trying to capture—call it Science1 (specified by a place and time period, a power--cluster, and anchoring mechanisms)—is not what is being discussed by the disputants above; that might be better called Sci-ence2, which refers to a different set of properties and anchoring mecha-nisms. This method can resolve disputes by clarifying when disputants are actually talking about different things—but with the caveat that not all subscript or disaggregated terms are going to be equally valid and dis-aggregating may merely shift the issue onto more kinds that need to be explicated. Many descriptions of social

kinds do not accurately reflect the kind in question (we can be wrong about the properties we ascribe to the referent of a term).

最后，我们可以尝试一个 Chalmers 所谓的“下标策略”的更新版本——即引入多个不同于下标的新术语(用 x_1 和 x_2 代替 x)，以区分同一术语所涵盖的社会类型。例如，有人可能会说，我试图捕捉的社会类型——称为 Science1(由一个地点和时间段、一个权力集群和锚定机制指定)——并不是上述争论者所讨论的那种；或许更好地称为 Sci-ence2，它指的是一组不同的属性和锚定机制。这种方法可以通过澄清争议者何时实际上在谈论不同的事情来解决争议——但需要注意的是，并非所有下标或分类术语都同样有效，分类术语可能只是将问题转移到更多需要解释的类型上。许多对社会类型的描述并不能准确地反映所讨论的类型(我们可能会错误地认为一个术语的指称对象具有某种性质)。

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If the concept of social kinds I put forward in this chapter is taken seriously, it suggests a whole new domain of research in the human sciences. In addition to shifting our orientation toward de--reifying projects, a new paradigmatic kind of reconstructive project would be to take a particular sample, describe its cluster of powers, discover which anchoring pro-
如果我在这一章中提出的社会种类的概念得到认真对待，它就提出了人文科学研究的一个全新领域。除了将我们的方向转向去具体化项目，一种新的范式类型的重建项目将是采取一个特定的样本，描述其权力集群，发现哪个锚定支持

cesses determine the cluster it possesses, and then figure out whether those anchoring processes exist elsewhere.

进程决定了它所拥有的集群，然后计算出这些锚定进程是否存在于其他地方。

One implication of this account of social kinds is that it gets us around one of the problems of research in the human sciences. Older modes of scholarship often proceeded with a universalized definition or regulative concept, which they then used as a lens to interpret their data. The model was either conceptual analysis or stipulated definition. But we know now, that it won't work to just specify a new definition without debunking the term first, because the average reader is going to bring their own particular sense of the kind's reference and properties to bear on the term. Besides, many people will continue to use the word without awareness of the new definition, increasing the possibility of two sides talking past each other without even realizing where they disagree. Indeed, one could evoke the Derridean suspicion that scholars stipulate a new definition of a commonly used term precisely because they want to encourage slippage. But even more importantly, as the account of reference above implies, most stipulated definitions won't work for social kinds because the definition in question is only as good as its capacity to capture the actual cluster of powers associated with the kind referenced. For this reason, unless they begin empirically with an investigation of power-clusters, most stipulated definitions are doomed to failure. Many projects have run aground because, lacking an introspective sense of the fragility of their own concepts, they tended to overstate their universality or they went looking for the wrong things in the first place.

这种关于社会种类的说法的一个含义是，它使我们绕过了人文科学研究中的一个问题。早期的学术模式通常是从一个普遍的定义或规范的概念出发，然后他们用这个概念作为一个镜头来解释他们的数据。这个模型要么是概念哲学分析，要么是规定的定义。但是我们现在知道，如果不首先揭穿这个术语，仅仅指定一个新的定义是行不通的，因为普通读者会把他们自己对这个术语的参考和属性的特殊感觉带到这个术语上。另一方面，许多人将继续使用这个词，而不知道新的定义，增加了双方谈话的可能性，甚至没有意识到他们不同意的地方。事实上，有人可能会引起 Derridean 的怀疑，学者们对一个常用术语规定一个新的定义，正是因为他们想要鼓励疏忽。但更重要的是，正如上述参考文献所暗示的那样，大多数规定的定义不适用于社会类型，因为有关定义的好坏取决于它是否能够捕捉与所参考的类型相关的实际权力集群。出于这个原因，除非他们从实证的角度开始研究权力集群，否则大多数规定的定义注定会失败。许多项目搁浅是因为，它们缺乏对自身概念脆弱性的内省意识，它们往往夸大其普遍性，或者它们一开始就寻找错误的东西。

As noted above, a common response to these failures has been for scholars to conduct their work primarily by restating the language of their sources. If a person says they are a “sovereign citizen,” what ground does the scholar have to challenge their statement? This might seem to make intuitive sense. Repeating the words of one’s sources might seem to avoid the issue of messy definitions. The problem is that there are many reasons why scholars might want to disagree with their sources. Verbal disputes are ubiquitous and our concepts often diverge without our realizing it. Granting the definitions of interlocutors also tend to lead toward majoritarian assumptions that I think many researchers would reject. If you merely relied on the words of your sources, many people would tell you that dolphins are fish and tomatoes are vegetables. Similarly, people are often mistaken in their accounts of gender, race, religion, and a whole host of other social kinds.⁸⁴ There are often significant disconnects between manifest concepts (common shared, or overlapping, meanings of terms) and the operative social kinds in practice. While not ignoring what people say about their social worlds, it is therefore the scholar’s duty to do

如上所述，对于这些失败，学者们的一个共同反应就是主要通过重述其来源的语言来进行他们的工作。如果一个人说自己是“主权公民”，那么学者有什么理由质疑他们的说法呢？这似乎在直觉上是合理的。重复一个人消息来源的话似乎可以避免混乱的定义。问题是，学者们可能有很多理由不同意他们的来源。口头争论无处不在，我们的观念经常在没有意识到的情况下发生分歧。同意对话者的定义也往往导致多数主义的假设，我认为许多研究人员会拒绝。如果你仅仅依靠你的消息来源的话，很多人会告诉你海豚是鱼，西红柿是蔬菜。同样，人们在对性别、种族、宗教和其他一系列社会类型的描述上也经常犯错误。⁸⁴ 在实践中，显性概念(术语的共同或重叠含义)与实际社会类型之间往往存在重大的脱节。在不忽视人们对他们的社会世界所说的话的同时，这也是学者的责任

more than just reiterate what has been said; we must investigate the foundations that underlie the existence of the social kinds being discussed if we want our scholarship to have a meaningful impact.

如果我们希望我们的学术研究产生有意义的影响，我们就必须调查正在讨论的社会类型存在的基础。

Put another way, the view outlined in this chapter suggests that social kinds are not just identical to people's concepts of them—although, again, concepts often play a causal role in kinds' formation. For example, many white US Americans don't know all or many of the properties associated with being Jewish in our current historical moment; hence there is room to enumerate those. This is rendered extra difficult in regard to social kinds because the social world and the kinds that make it up are constantly changing (even many American Jews, myself included, don't know what all the properties associated with being Jews were at different periods or places). Social kinds also typically have properties that emerge in relationship to other social kinds, so a sense of the complex relational ecology is necessary to trace all the relevant properties of a given kind. Also, social kinds tend to vary more by context (time/place) than most people assume. All this means that scholars frequently need to differentiate a term's common usage from the actual social kind (and necessarily power--cluster and anchoring processes) to which the term refers.

换句话说，本章概述的观点表明，所谓的社会种类并不仅仅与人们对它们的概念相同——尽管概念在种类的形成中往往扮演着因果关系的角色。例如，在我们当前的历史时刻，许多美国白人并不知道与犹太人身份相关的所有或许多属性，因此有空间列举这些属性。对于社会类型来说，这是非常困难的，因为社会世界和组成它的类型是不断变化的(甚至包括我在内的许多美国犹太人，也不知道在不同的时期或地点，与犹太人相关的所有属性是什么)。社会种类通常也具有与其他社会种类相关的属性，因此，对于特定种类的所有相关属性来说，复杂的关系生态学是必要的。此外，社会类型往往比大多数人认为的更多地受环境(时间/地点)的影响而变化。所有这些都意味着，学者们经常需要区分一个术语的通用用法与该术语所指的实际社会类型(以及必要的权力集群和锚定过程)。

The closest cousin to analysis of this sort would be a Foucauldian genealogy. But as noted, genealogy gains most of its force by showing discontinuity, rupture, variation, and change. Yet, as I have argued, variation and change are the norm in the social world. Social kinds are process kinds. So we must presume discontinuity and difference. The oddity is any similarity or stability at all. For metamodern process kind analysis to take place, the thing that needs to be explained is not discontinuity, rupture, or change, but why

any properties should stabilize at all. Thus, it is the mirror image of a Foucauldian genealogy.

与这类分析最接近的是福柯式的基因类比。但如前所述，谱系学通过显示不连续性、断裂、变异和变化而获得了大部分力量。然而，正如我所论证的，变异和变化是社会世界的规范。社会类型是过程类型。所以我们必须假设不连续性和差异性。奇怪之处在于任何相似性或者稳定性。要进行元现代过程类分析，需要解释的不是不连续性、断裂或变化，而是为什么任何性质都应该稳定。因此，这是福柯家谱的镜像。

4.4 Conclusion: Changing the Social World

4.4 结论: 改变社会世界

I have been arguing that the social world is not reducible to people or invisible social forces. It exists rather in terms of materialized social kinds. Social kinds are made up of power--clusters and the processes that anchor them. Powers belong to a system of relations, not a specific entity on its own. Focusing on similarities and ignoring the causal processes that have produced those similarities has historically undermined scholarly generalizations and theorizing of all sorts.

我一直认为，社会世界不能简化为人或看不见的社会力量。它存在于物质化的社会类型中。社会类型由权力集群和支撑它们的过程组成。权力属于一个关系系统，而不是一个独立的实体。专注于相似性而忽视产生这些相似性的因果过程在历史上破坏了各种学术概括和理论化。

Many social scientists have also postulated an unhelpful opposition between agent and structure. But now we know that social kinds are produced in feedback loops with sentient beings producing and being produced by them in turn. Instead of presuming a tension between agency

许多社会科学家还假设在代理人和结构之间存在一种无益的对立。但是现在我们知道，社会性的物种是在反馈回路中产生的，有感知的生命反过来又产生和被产生。而不是假设机构之间的紧张关系

and structure, we should think of strength and weakness of anchoring as a continuum in which an individual has less or more capacity to alter (consciously or unconsciously) a specific social kind and its properties.

在结构上, 我们应该把锚定的强弱看作一个连续统一体, 在这个连续统一体中, 一个人或多或少的能力(有意识或无意识地)改变一个特定的社会类型及其属性。

Many scholars also continue regularly to argue from the presumption that the social is not “real”—for instance, that hysteria was somehow not real even to those who experienced it. In response, other scholars often want to say everything people experience is “real” to them without explain-ing what that means. We can be more sophisticated in our account of what it means to be real (see also chapter 1). We can say what a social kind is *real* in relation to and now we know that the usefulness of a given social kind term depends on the purpose to which it is put and its capacity to capture relevant power-clusters. This is true of both ordinary language and scholarly research.

许多学者还经常从社会不是“真实的”这一假设出发提出争论——例如, 歇斯底里症即使对那些经历过它的人来说也不是真实的。作为回应, 其他学者经常说人们所经历的一切对他们来说都是“真实的”, 而不解释这意味着什么。我们可以更复杂地解释什么是真实(参见第一章)。我们可以说什么是真正的社会类型, 现在我们知道, 一个特定的社会类型术语的用途取决于它的目的及其捕获相关权力集群的能力。普通语言和学术研究都是如此。

For all the reasons I’ve been discussing, social kinds do not have necessary and sufficient condition definitions. But neither are they merely the *ad hoc* invention of a particular theorist. To give an account of a social kind would be to elucidate the cluster of powers to which the term refers and then examine the anchoring processes that produce those clusters. In some cases, the terms under which something is classified are likely to have a role in stabilizing its properties (e.g., being hired as a “professor”), but in other cases the terms are going to be largely irrelevant as the kind in question either emerged functionally or describes a cluster of powers produced secondarily by the formation of other kinds (e.g., traffic jams are not dependent on being named as such, but emerge necessarily alongside the history of the automobile). Some social kinds cannot exist without the culture in question having a term for them, while other social kinds require a version of the term to be in place. Part of the duty of scholars is to learn to differentiate between these.

由于我已经讨论过的所有原因, 社会类型没有必要和充分的条件定义。但它们也不仅仅是某个特定理论家的特别发明。描述一种社会类型就是阐明这个术语所指的权力集群, 然后检查产生这些集群的锚定过

程。在某些情况下，某些事物的分类术语可能在稳定其属性方面发挥作用(例如，被聘为“教授”)，但在另一些情况下，这些术语将基本上无关紧要，因为所讨论的这类事物要么在功能上出现，要么描述的是由其他种类事物的形成而产生的次级权力集群(例如，交通堵塞不取决于这样命名，而必然伴随着汽车的历史出现)。有些社会类型的文化如果没有一个专门的术语就无法存在，而其他社会类型的文化则需要一个专门的术语版本。学者的部分职责就是学会区分这两者。

For a social kind to be useful it will have to identify an actual causal process that produces actual property--clusters. A complication is that the social world is fundamentally disjointed. It is woven from overlapping processes that are difficult to disaggregate. Social kinds are heavily crisscrossed, are typically nested, and have vague edges. A given ordinary language term may extend to multiple, competing social kinds. Taken together, I think this suggests a limited conventionalism (or, one might say, pragmatism) in how our kind categories are stipulated.

为了使一种社会类型有用，它必须确定一个产生实际属性的实际因果过程——集群。一个复杂的问题是，社会世界从根本上是脱节的。它是由难以分解的重叠过程编织而成的。社交类型是十分纵横交错的，通常是嵌套的，并且有着模糊的边缘。一个给定的普通语言术语可以延伸到多种相互竞争的社会类型。综上所述，我认为这表明在如何规定我们的类别时，存在一种有限的约定主义(或者说，实用主义)。

A given process or social kind will appear to be the *same kind* or a *different kind* depending on the level of analysis and the purpose of its deployment. Hence, we have absorbed deconstructive criticisms, since we can both fully grant the critiques of the classical master categories and repudiate notions of their essential natures, all while still doing our work. Except for the anchoring processes discussed above, there is nothing that keeps

一个特定的进程或社会类型看起来是同一类型还是不同类型，这取决于分析的水平和部署的目的。因此，我们吸收了解构主义的批评，因为我们既可以完全接受对古典大师范畴的批评，又可以否定它们的本质属性的概念，而且我们仍然在做我们的工作。除了上面讨论的锚定过程，没有什么能够保持

the powers or properties of a given social kind stable. There is no essential or cross-temporal meaning to categories like “religion” or “art.” Nor is it sufficient to just track the uses of the term “art” as we look at different sorts of power--clusters. No definition of a disciplinary master category is possible. There is no definition of religion.

对于“宗教”或“艺术”这样的分类来说，有着暂时或跨时的意义当我们观察不同类型的权力集群时，仅仅追踪术语“艺术”的使用是不够的。学科大师范畴的定义是不可能的。宗教没有定义。

But in detonating the classical notions of concepts, we have gained an insight into what it means to have disjointed and cross--cuttable concepts. Understood in this way, social kinds can function generatively in a host of scholarly projects.

但是，在引爆经典概念的概念，我们已经获得了洞察力，它意味着什么，有脱节和交叉切割的概念。通过这种方式理解，社会类型可以在许多学术项目中发挥作用。

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Another important implication of the theory of social kinds presented here is that it necessitates a heightened reflexivity in regard to our scholarly categories. As noted previously, people consistently mistakenly assume that their particular local categories or social kinds are freely universalizable. Ordinary thought and language typically presume the transparency of our concepts (we think “Hendrix’s ‘All Along the Watchtower’ is a damn fine rock song,” but we don’t spend very much time reflecting on what rock music’s properties are, or how rock may have changed over time, or what we mean by “song,” etcetera). But the research presented in this chapter (and chapters 2 and 5) suggests that terms historically change their meanings and that social kinds vary geographically and alter their properties in ways that might not be immediately available to us. Even kinhood is contextually dependent. We can afford ambiguities and loose talk in much of day--to--day life, but we must hold the primary categories of scholarly analysis differently. We do not generally apprehend a social kind as a totality but rather from a particular vantage. Scholarly methods, although not typically described as such, are basically ways of trying to compensate for the partiality of our viewpoints. But the theory I’ve been outlining here pushes us to do more. We should suspend the object laid open or dis-aggregated while simultaneously rejecting the fallacies of both essential-

这里提出的社会种类理论的另一个重要含义是，它需要在我们的学术范畴方面提高自反性。如前所述，人们总是错误地认为他们特定的本地范畴或社会类别是可以自由普遍化的。普通的思想和语言通常假定我们的

概念是透明的(我们认为“Hendrix 的‘all along the watchtower’是一首非常好的摇滚歌曲,”但是我们没有花太多时间去思考摇滚音乐的特性是什么,或者摇滚随着时间的推移会如何变化,或者我们所说的“歌曲”是什么意思,等等)。但是本章(以及第二章和第五章)的研究表明,术语在历史上改变了它们的含义,社会类型在地理上有所不同,并且改变了它们的属性,而这些方式可能不是我们能够立即得到的。即使是童年也是依赖于上下文的。在日常生活的大部分时间里,我们可以承受模棱两可和随意的谈话,但我们必须以不同的方式把握学校早期分析的主要类别。我们通常不把一种社会类型理解为一个整体,而是从一个特定的角度来理解。学术方法,虽然通常不是这样描述的,但基本上是试图弥补我们观点的偏颇的方法。但是我在这里概述的理论促使我们做得更多。我们应该暂停打开或分解的对象,同时拒绝这两个基本的谬论

ism and brute anti-abstraction-
主义和野蛮的反抽象。

To put this differently, all too often scholarship proceeds without recognizing the contingency of local conceptual categories. For instance, Anglophone scholarship about “science” in Japan often misses the mark because the scholar is not sufficiently versed in the British history of science and therefore aims to explain Japan in ways that are subtly anachronistic; likewise, some American scholarship on American “religion” has little sense of the actual diversity of ways “religion” functions as a social kind in other cultures and periods and therefore imagines exceptionalism where there isn’t any. Errors of similarity and difference can go both

换句话说,学术研究往往没有认识到局部概念范畴的偶然性。例如,在日本,以英语为母语的学者关于“科学”的研究经常失误,因为这位学者对英国科学史不够精通,因此他的目的是以一种微妙的时代错误的方式来解释日本;同样,一些美国学者关于美国“宗教”的研究对于“宗教”在其他文化和时期作为一种社会类型发挥作用的方式的实际多样性几乎没有什么感觉,因此他们想象在没有任何特殊主义的地方存在特殊主义。相似性和差异性的错误可以同时存在

ways. Scholars consistently assume other cultures are either more similar to or more different from their own than is actually the case. Comparison is a nearly unavoidable byproduct of translation (e.g., to translate *imani* as *faith* already implies a comparison). In different circumstances, insider accounts that aim to avoid comparison tend to produce their own blind spots or anachronisms (e.g., presuming Johannes Gutenberg invented the movable-type printing press out of ignorance of the pioneering work of Choe Yun-ui 최윤의). These issues would be partially alleviated if scholars would recognize their categories as historically and culturally conditioned social kinds. Two of the concrete implications of this are that 1) scholars who work on other cultures or periods need to apprehend the contingencies of their own local social kinds; and 2) that scholars who work only on their own culture and period need to know at least some other different historical and cultural contexts.

方式。学者们一贯认为，其他文化要么与自己的文化更相似，要么与自己的文化更不同，而实际情况并非如此。比较是翻译的一个几乎不可避免的副产品(例如，把伊玛尼翻译成信仰已经意味着比较)。在不同的情况下，旨在避免比较的内部人士往往会产生自己的盲点或时代错误(例如，假定约翰内斯·谷登堡(johannes gutenberg)发明了活字印刷机，是因为他对崔允睿(Choe Yun-ui something something something something)的开创性工作一无所知)。如果学者们能够认识到他们的分类是历史和文化条件下的社会类型，这些问题就会得到部分缓解。其中两个具体含义是：1)研究其他文化或时期的学者需要理解本地社会类型的偶然性；2)只研究本地文化和时期的学者至少需要了解其他一些不同的历史和文化背景。

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To illustrate what a social kind theory allows us to see, I would like to gesture at a couple of social kinds.

为了说明社会类型理论允许我们看到什么，我想对几种社会类型进行测试。

To treat “hammers” as a social kind is to recognize that as an artifact kind, people are unlikely to find the “social construction of hammers” to be a useful de-reifying insight. That said, it can be clarifying to see how they are constructed as a kind. The main functional power of a hammer is its capacity to deliver an impact to a small area, usually that of another smaller object. This means that it is constrained by basic physics, including the hardness of available materials and the functional need to direct force effectively. Hammers in general are an ergonic kind, and it should not be surprising that we have recovered evidence of convergence on the production of hammers by proto-*Homo sapiens* at least 3.3. million years ago. Already in the middle Paleolithic period different people hit on the construction of hammers in

terms of a weighted head attached to a handle.⁸⁵ Additionally, the notion of social construction in social kind theory lets us distinguish between a rock found on a beach and a hammer insofar as to be a social kind requires that a sentient being has a causal role in giving it powers. So one might use a rock to hammer, but a rock becomes a hammer only when it has been changed or formed according to that use.

把“锤子”当作一种社会类型，就是承认作为一种人工制品，人们不太可能发现“锤子的社会结构”是一种有用的去具体化的见解。也就是说，我们可以弄清楚它们是如何被构造成一种类型的。锤子的主要功能能力在于它能够将冲击力传递到一个小区域，通常是另一个较小的物体。这意味着它受到基础物理学的限制，包括可用材料的硬度和有效直接施力的功能需求。锤子通常是人体工程学的一种，我们已经找到证据证明原始智人至少生产了 3.3 个锤子，这并不奇怪。100 万年前。早在旧石器时代中期，不同的人就已经开始研究锤子的构造，他们把一个加重的头连在一个把手上。此外，社会类型理论中的社会构造概念让我们能够区分在海滩上发现的石头和锤子，因为社会类型要求有知觉的生物在赋予它力量方面发挥因果作用。因此，人们可能会用一块石头来锤击，但只有当一块石头根据这种用途被改变或形成时，它才会变成锤子。

While hammers are a generic social kind produced by ergonic convergence anchoring, subtypes of hammers then depart from this broader class. The subtype “claw hammer,” for instance, came into being along with the production of forged iron nails by the Romans. Thus, this type of hammer took on further (relational) powers over and beyond those of

虽然锤子是一种通用的社会类型产生的人体工程学收敛锚定，亚型的锤子，然后离开这一更广泛的类。例如，“爪锤”的亚型就是随着罗马人生产锻铁钉而产生的。因此，这种类型的铁锤具有超越和超越古代铁锤的(关系)力量

an ordinary hammer. Subsequent claw hammers were basically produced by mimetic anchoring processes, with the environmental constraint that they were limited by both their capacity to produce focused force and their capacity to pull nails (whose properties were evolving with it). The actual physical composition of hammers changed over time according to developments in other material technologies (including forging techniques, the development of rubber grips, and so on). So as mimetic kinds, claw hammers are descended from a common ancestor. But it is also worth noting that the name for them as tools varies significantly between languages and there are regional variations in specific stylistic features (e.g., German *Zimmermannshammer* means literally “carpenter’s hammer,” a typical German claw hammer which, rather than having two claws of equal length, tends to have one long and one short claw; but most German and English native speakers would recognize both regional variations as claw hammers).

普通的锤子。随后的爪锤基本上是通过模拟锚固过程生产的，由于环境的限制，它们既受制于产生集中力的能力，也受制于拉钉的能力(其性能随之演变)。随着时间的推移，锤子的实际物理成分会随着其他材料技术(包括锻造技术、橡胶手柄的发展等)的发展而发生变化。因此，作为仿制品，爪锤起源于一个共同的祖先。但是值得注意的是，作为工具，它们的名称在不同的语言之间差异很大，在特定的风格特征上也有区域差异(例如，德语 *Zimmermannshammer* 的字面意思是“木匠的锤子”，一种典型的德语爪子锤子，不是有两个等长的爪子，而是倾向于有一个长爪子和一个短爪子；但是大多数以德语和英语为母语的人认为这两种区域差异都是爪子锤子)。

Furthermore, the physical properties of hammers also lend them representational properties. Someone could write a whole book (and probably has) on hammers as metaphors, but it is worth noting that the metaphorical imagery of hammers, while necessarily varied, is partially constrained by its reference to the functional properties of hammers as well as the depiction of hammers in earlier referenced sources. Thus, for instance, Thor’s special weapon *Mjöllnir* is referred to as a *hamarr* (hammer) in Old Norse texts, which play on the weapon’s capacity to deliver a powerful impact like that of a “thunderbolt.” But the meaning and powers of Thor’s hammer are produced by the expanding canon of literary, filmic, and other artistic depictions of Thor’s hammer (which have only minimal consistency).

此外，锤子的物理属性也赋予了它们代表性的属性。有人可以写一整本关于锤子的隐喻的书(可能已经写了)，但是值得注意的是，锤子的隐喻意象虽然必然有所变化，但是部分受到其对锤子功能特性的参考以及早期参考资料中对锤子的描述的限制。因此，例如，托尔的特殊武器

mjlllnir 被称为哈马尔(锤子)在古斯堪的纳维亚文本, 这发挥了武器的能力, 以提供一个强大的冲击力, 如“雷电”但是雷神之锤的意义和力量是由文学、电影和其他对雷神之锤的艺术描述(这些描述只有极小的一致性)不断扩大的经典所产生的。

Finally, before we leave the subject of hammers, a given member of the kind “hammer” might be a functional tool, an art object, a focus of worship, a political symbol, and so on at different times depending on either its creation or different moments of use. All that is to say that the question is not “*is this hammer religious?*” but “*when is this hammer religious?*” and this social kind theory gives us the capacity to answer that. A hammer displayed in an art gallery is going to be read as an art object with some of the attendant attributes of art objects (e.g., people will attribute to it a specific creator, attempt to read it aesthetically or in its broader art historical context, etcetera). If the same hammer is placed on an altar it is then going to take on a different set of attributes (e.g., people will tend to see it in terms of its symbolism, of say Asatru faith, and so on). All that is to say, a specific artifact’s membership in a broader set of kinds is situationally and contextually dependent.

最后, 在我们离开锤子这个主题之前, 这种“锤子”的一个特定成员可能是一个功能性的工具, 一个艺术品, 一个礼拜的焦点, 一个政治象征, 等等, 在不同的时间取决于它的创造或不同的使用时间。这就是说, 问题不在于“这把锤子是宗教的吗?”而是“这把锤子什么时候是宗教的”这种社会善良理论让我们有能力回答这个问题。在艺术画廊展出的 一把锤子将被视为一件艺术品, 带有艺术品的一些附属属性(例如, 人们将把它归为一个特定的创造者, 试图从美学角度或在更广泛的艺术历史背景下阅读它, 等等)。如果把同一把锤子放在祭坛上, 它就会呈现出一系列不同的属性(例如, 人们倾向于从它的象征意义来看待它, 比如 Asatru 信仰, 等等)。也就是说, 一个特定的工艺品在更广泛的种类中的成员身份是依赖于情境和上下文的。



To return to where this all started, we could begin to look at the disciplinary master categories as social kinds. Again, I have written books (and could write more) about the category “religion” alone. First, because “religion” is a kind that is typically essentialized, we need to begin by de--reifying it. To treat religion as a process social kind is first to grant the critique. Religion is a culturally specific category with a troubling history that displays a set of arbitrary presuppositions. Religion has no core, no necessary and sufficient conditions for membership. Instead of the binaries produced by the naive presupposition of essentialism, we can now talk in degrees—that is, things flagged as “religion” can be both colonial and anti--colonial in different measures in different places. To grant the nominalism, we note that religion is not a universal object but an aggregate of particulars. Accordingly, religion functions differently in different cultures, periods, and discourses. Its distinction from other fields, like the secular, is inconsistent and unstable. Religion is historically contingent. The same is true of “religions.”

为了回到这一切开始的地方，我们可以开始把学科主类别看作是社会类别。再说一次，我已经写了关于“宗教”这个类别的书(并且可以写得更多)。首先，因为“宗教”是一种典型的本质化的东西，我们需要从去神化它开始。把宗教作为一个过程来对待，首先是批判。宗教在文化上是一个特定的范畴，有着令人不安的历史，展现出一系列武断的假设。宗教没有核心，没有成为成员的必要和充分条件。我们现在可以在不同的程度上谈论，而不是因为天真的本质主义预设而产生的二元论——也就是说，被标记为“宗教”的东西可以在不同的地方以不同的措施同时具有殖民性和反殖民性。为了承认唯名论，我们注意到宗教不是一个普遍的对象，而是一个特定事物的集合体。因此，宗教在不同的文化、时期和话语中起着不同的作用。它与其他领域(如世俗领域)的区别是不一致和不稳定的。宗教在历史上是偶然的。宗教也是如此

Having granted this critique, we might observe that while conditioned, the formation of religion is non--arbitrary. It has been reified, but the reification process can be studied. Religion is relational but not nonexistent. It may be a mobile signifier, but it has a particular grammar. It is the product of a historical moment, but cannot be reduced to its origin. It exists as discourse but it contains elements that resist assimilation into discourse. It is the product of hegemonic power, but it is also the site of resistance.

批准了这一批判之后，我们可以观察到，尽管有条件，宗教的形成是非任意的。它已经具体化了，但是具体化的过程是可以研究的。宗教是关联的，但并非不存在。它可能是一个移动的能指，但它有一个特殊的语法。它是一个历史时刻的产物，但不能简化为它的起源。它以话语的

形式存在，但它包含着抵制同化为话语的元素。它是霸权力量的产物，但它也是抵抗的场所。

There is a lot more that could be said here. But most things marked as “religions” only share any powers in common with other “religions” because of dynamic--nominalist anchoring processes, which an analysis into this area demonstrates. (They mostly share internal properties in common due to mimetic processes). Various entities become “religions” by being named or classified as such according to internal diplomacy, domestic law, scholars, and so on.⁸⁶ This is not a teleological or transhistorical process, but one that came out of a particular logic at a particular moment in Western Christendom, and its globalization was necessarily selective and to some extent arbitrary. Further, it was negotiated rather than effected by unidirectional imposition or hegemony. And, as I demonstrated in my earlier writing, there have to be various incentives or enforcement mechanisms that encourage the classification to take hold.

这里还有很多可以说的。但是，大多数被标记为“宗教”的事物只能与其他“宗教”共享任何权力，这是由于动态唯名论的锚定过程，这一领域的分析表明。（由于模仿过程，它们大多具有共同的内在属性）。⁸⁶ 这不是一个目的论或跨历史论的过程，而是一个在西方 Christendom 的特定时刻产生的特定逻辑的过程，它的全球化必然是有选择性的，在某种程度上是任意的。此外，它是通过谈判达成的，而不是受到单向强加或霸权的影响。而且，正如我在前面的文章中所阐述的那样，必须有各种各样的激励或执行机制来鼓励这种分类生根发芽。

The goal of religious studies is not to find a better definition for religion. There are no stipulated or otherwise definitions that will capture the category, since the glue that binds it together is that of various dynamic-- nominalist processes (with mimetic processes operating at the level of

宗教研究的目标不是为宗教找到一个更好的定义。没有规定或其他定义来捕获这个类别，因为将它粘合在一起的胶水是各种动态唯名论过程（模拟过程在

individual “religions”). This means that the search for the essence of religion is over. There is no more work to be done analyzing a given “concept” of religion. We cannot merely uncritically repeat what our sources say about “religion” because they often disagree and because they are wrong about how “religion” actually functions as a social kind. But it is not true that nothing can be said about the nature of “religion.” Rather, we can look at and analyze its historical and cross-cultural unfolding, and in so doing we can learn much about the nature of our social world.

个人“宗教”)。这意味着对宗教本质的探索已经结束。分析一个给定的宗教“概念”已经没有什么可做的了。我们不能只是不加批判地重复我们的消息来源关于“宗教”的说法,因为他们经常不同意,而且因为他们对“宗教”实际上如何作为一种社会类型发挥作用的看法是错误的。但是,关于“宗教”的本质,我们什么也不能说,这是不正确的相反,我们可以审视和分析它的历史和跨文化发展,这样我们就可以更多地了解我们社会世界的本质。

Furthermore, if I am right in my hunch that “religion” and most of the other disciplinary master categories are basically “historical individuals,” then we need to tackle them all together. The story of how “art,” “religion,” “science,” and so on came into being as transnational categories is not multiple histories, but one grand (albeit roughly contemporary) history with a large number of local variations. We do not need a bunch of autonomous definitional endeavors or siloed disciplines. What we need instead are more scholars working together to trace the enfolding set of categories, many of which emerged in their current form alongside the diffusion of the current version of the university system itself. My hope is that this monograph will inspire more projects along this line of research. The results could be illuminating.

此外,如果我的直觉是正确的,“宗教”和大多数其他学科硕士类别基本上是“历史个体”,那么我们需要一起解决这些问题。关于“艺术”、“宗教”、“科学”等跨国范畴是如何形成的,这个故事并不是多重的历史,而是一个宏大的(尽管大致是当代的)他的故事,其中有大量的地方变体。我们不需要一大堆自主定义的努力或孤立的学科。相反,我们需要的是更多的学者共同努力,追踪这一整套类别,其中许多类别以当前的形式出现,与当前版本的大学体系本身的传播同时出现。我希望这本专著能够激发更多沿着这条研究路线的项目。结果可能会很有启发性。

By way of postscript, I should note that “social kind” is a social kind term that necessarily captures itself. There is useful work to be done aggregating and disaggregating its usage. We could trace the term’s history and explore the advantages and disadvantages of its utility. If it becomes overly essentialized at any point, it will need to be deconstructed. Eventually, when it has done its work, it will fade. All things have their time. But if we are going to change the social world, we first need to understand it.

通过附言，我应该注意“社会善良”是一个社会善良的术语，必然捕捉自己。有很多有用的工作需要去做，聚合和分解它的用法。我们可以追溯这个术语的历史，探讨其实用性的优缺点。如果它在任何时候变得过于必要，它将需要被解构。最终，当它完成了它的工作，它就会消失。万物皆有其时。但是如果我们想要改变社会世界，我们首先需要理解它。

Part III:
Hylosemiotics
第三部分: 人体
符号学

5: Hylosemiotics:

5: 符号学:

The Discourse of Things

事物的话语

The meaning of the forest is multiplied a thousandfold if one does not limit oneself to its relations to human subjects but also includes animals.

如果一个人不把自我限制在与人类主体的关系上，而是把动物也包括在内，那么森林的意义就会成倍增长。

Jakob von Uexküll, *A Foray into the Worlds of Animals and Humans*

Jakob von Uexküll, 对动物和人类世界的一次尝试

Imagine this: You are out for a hike in the foothills of Kyoto, Japan in order to visit a Shinto--Buddhist shrine venerating Thomas Edison and Heinrich Hertz as the “Divine Patriarchs of Electricity and Electro--Magnetic Waves.”¹ After speaking with some shrine attendants and collecting some pamphlets, you set off into the bamboo forests that border the shrine, where you find yourself on a footpath that curves gradually up Arashiyama Mountain.

想象一下：你正在日本京都的山脚下徒步旅行，为的是参观一个供奉着托马斯·爱迪生和海因里希·赫兹的神社，他们被尊为“电和电磁波的神圣始祖”在与一些神社服务人员交谈并收集了一些小册子之后，你进入了神社周围的竹林，在那里你发现自己走在一条小径上，这条小径沿着 Arashiyama 山逐渐弯曲。

It is a cool spring day, and there is light rain in the forecast, so as you walk you scan the sky for signs of precipitation. The trail markers are all in Japanese, and while you can read the language, you find yourself comparing the signs to the markers on your map to make sure you are in the right place. You take a few photographs with your phone so that you can later compare them to other images from the same spot.

这是一个凉爽的春天，天气预报说有小雨，所以当你走路的时候，你可以扫视天空寻找降水的迹象。路标都是日语的，当你能读懂日语的时候，你会发现自己把路标和地图上的路标进行比较，以确保自己在正确

的地方。你可以用手机拍一些照片，这样以后你就可以把它们和同一地点的其他照片进行比较。

You have been hiking for just a short time when you find yourself face--to-face with a red--faced snow monkey whose bright white fur stands out in stark contrast to the greenery around you. It is surprisingly close: ten feet away, seated on a branch of a tree just above your head.

你刚刚徒步旅行不久，就发现自己面对面地看到了一只红脸雪猴，它亮白色的皮毛与周围的绿色形成了鲜明的对比。它离你非常近：十英尺远，就在你头顶上方的一棵树的树枝上。

The two of you freeze and regard each other. The monkey's eyes meet yours and you glance away to break the gaze, and then back at the monkey surreptitiously to see how it will respond. A light breeze whistles through the bamboo.

你们两个互相凝视着对方。猴子的眼睛与你的眼睛相遇，你瞥向别处以打断它的注视，然后又偷偷地回头看猴子，看它会有什么反应。一阵微风吹过竹林。

All at once the snow monkey looks past you, lets out a high--pitched hooting, and swings off through the branches. You have no trouble recognizing its call as one of distress, and you can hear other unseen monkeys also fleeing the area. No sooner has the monkey vanished than you turn around at the sound of an approaching group of Japanese tourists who are hiking with a small dog, which you assume must be the reason the mon-key sounded its alarm call.

突然间，雪猴从你身边看过去，发出一声尖锐的鸣叫，然后在树枝间荡来荡去。你可以毫不费力地将它的叫声识别为一种痛苦的叫声，你还可以听到其他看不见的猴子也在逃离这片区域。猴子刚一消失，你就听到一群日本游客带着一只小狗走近的声音转过身来，你想这一定是猴子发出警报的原因。



Why does this matter? For reasons I will explore, this case pushes to its limits much of the inherited philosophy of language common to the con-temporary humanities and social sciences. At the very least, if you are steeped in postmodernist philosophy and the attendant poststructuralist account of language (as I had been at the time this happened to me in March 2015), there are several aspects of this encounter that will bother you on closer scrutiny. This is because various features of the account above begin to put pressure on two very different premises about language, which I will explain in greater detail below: namely, 1) the supposition behind much of both analytical and continental philosophy of language that language use is unique to *Homo sapiens*; and 2) the differential account of meaning central to poststructuralism.

为什么这很重要？由于我将要探讨的原因，这个案例将当代人文社会科学所共有的遗传语言哲学推向了极限。至少，如果你沉浸在后现代主义哲学和随之而来的后结构主义对语言的解释中(正如我在 2015 年 3 月遇到这种情况时所做的那样)，这次遭遇的几个方面会让你更仔细地审视一下。这是因为上述说法的各种特点开始对语言的两个非常不同的前提施加压力，我将在下面更详细地解释：1) 语言的分析哲学和大陆哲学都认为语言的使用是智人所独有的；2) 对意义的不同说法是后结构主义的核心。

In the first case, there are many different ways to define language. But many theorists would agree that if humans did not come to language in a single, grand evolutionary leap, then there must be something like a continuum between nonhuman primate communication and human speech. As one contemporary linguist has observed, anyone who accepts “the theory of evolution . . . must accept also that language is no more than an evolutionary adaptation—one of an unusual kind, perhaps, yet formed by the same processes that have formed countless other adaptations. If that is the case, then language cannot be as novel as it seems, for evolutionary adaptations do not emerge out of the blue.”²

在第一种情况下，有许多不同的方法来定义语言。但是许多理论家都同意，如果人类不是在一次巨大的进化飞跃中形成语言，那么在非人类灵长类动物的交流和人类的语言之间一定存在着某种类似于连续统一体的东西。正如一位当代语言学家所观察到的那样，任何接受“进化论的人也必须接受这样一个事实：语言不过是一种进化适应——也许是一种不同寻常的适应，但形成这种适应的过程与形成无数其他适应的过程是一样的。如果是这样的话，那么语言就不可能像它看起来那样新奇，因为进化的适应性并不是突然出现的。”²

In this respect, the monkey's "kuan" alarm call in response to the dog also seems to have been an act of communication—one that was intended not for me, but rather for its unseen group members. Indeed, there have now been more than fifty years of work on the calls of snow monkeys (*Macaca fuscata*) and other primates, most of which suggests that their calls have semantic significance.³ Indeed, a famous set of experiments on vervet monkeys demonstrated that they have different alarm calls for different predators and that when monkeys are exposed to prerecorded calls they respond appropriately.⁴

在这方面，猴子对狗发出的“宽”警报似乎也是一种交流行为——不是针对我，而是针对它看不见的群体成员。事实上，对雪猴(*Macaca fuscata*)和其他灵长类动物的叫声的研究已经进行了 50 多年，其中大部分都表明它们的叫声具有语义意义。事实上，一组著名的黑尾猴实验表明，它们对不同的捕食者有不同的警报叫声，当猴子接触到预先录制好的叫声时，它们会做出适当的反应。

Furthermore, as I later learned, vocalizations are not the primary way monkeys communicate; if anything, gesture (including eye contact) is even more important. Snow monkeys engage in visual co-orientation by tracking each other's eye movements, and staring directly into the eyes of another monkey (or in this case, a human) is a signal of aggression.⁵ So even though I did not fully register it at the time, many animal behavior-ists would agree that the monkey was at least provisionally communicat-ing with me.

此外，正如我后来了解到的，发声并不是猴子交流的主要方式；如果有什么不同的话，手势(包括眼神交流)甚至更为重要。雪猴通过追踪彼此的眼球运动来进行视觉协同定向，直视另一只猴子(或者在这个例子中是人类)的眼睛是一种侵略的信号。所以，即使我当时没有完全注意到，许多动物行为学家也会同意，这只猴子至少暂时在和我交流。

This suggests, as I explore in this chapter, that taking animal communi-
这表明，正如我在本章中所探讨的那样，采用动物交流

cation seriously might provide an innovative vantage on human language. To avoid confusion at the outset, I am not saying that snow monkey communicative signals are identical to human language in their range or flexibility. 阳离子严重地可能提供一个人类语言的创新优势。为了避免一开始的混淆,我并不是说雪猴的交流信号在其范围或灵活性上与人类语言是一样的

bility of producing meaning (especially their capacity for self-reference- or producing hierarchically structured syntax).⁶ More specifically, I want to demonstrate the value of reorienting our notion of discourse to include a continuum of signs, including the chemical signals trees send to each other through their roots, the scent trails of ants, the dances of bees, the hissing of snakes, and the roaring of lions. This will allow us to see human communication in a new way and to answer a number of puzzling conundrums around the nature of meaning.

6 更具体地说,我想证明重新定位我们的话语概念的价值,使之包括一系列连续的符号,包括树木通过它们的根传递给彼此的化学信号、蚂蚁的气味、蜜蜂的舞蹈、蛇的嘶嘶声和狮子的咆哮声。这将允许我们以一种新的方式看待人类交流,并回答一些围绕意义本质的令人费解的难题。

Second, this experience also began to put pressure on the linguistic model I had internalized under the sign of the negative. For reasons I will elaborate momentarily, the nearly hegemonic “poststructuralist” account of meaning was wholly inadequate to explain nonhuman communication (many poststructuralists have assumed humans are uniquely imprisoned in linguistic categories); furthermore, it is equally inadequate to explain key aspects of human communication (as explored below). So the encounter with the snow monkey will be a jumping-off point to reevaluate this background account of meaning.

其次,这种经历也开始对我在否定符号下内化的语言模型施加压力。由于一些原因,我将稍作阐述,近乎霸权主义的“后结构主义”对意义的解释完全不足以解释非人类交流(许多后结构主义者认为人类被独特地囚禁在语言范畴中);此外,它同样不足以解释人类交流的关键方面(如下所述)。因此,与雪猴的交锋将是重新评估这种意义背景解释的起点。

These issues are important because questions of meaning are central to research in the human sciences, even if we do not always recognize them as such. A theory of meaning is vital to translation, as we always have to adjudicate interlinguistic equivalents (e.g., what 神社 means in English). But meaning is also crucial to textual interpretation (e.g., what does “establishment of religion” mean?), the interpretation of actions (why did my Japanese host--father clap twice in front of the statue of the stone fox?), and

even understanding more generally (how did he know to bring an umbrella?). Meaning is also important to how we come to apprehend ourselves—in Charles Taylor’s memorable formulation, we are “self-interpreting animals.”⁷ Questions of meaning are thus at the root of almost everything we do in the human sciences. All of which is to say, while the poststructuralist version was largely a failure, a notion of what meaning itself means could not be more important.

这些问题之所以重要，是因为意义问题是人文科学研究的核心问题，即使我们并不总是认识到这一点。意义理论对翻译至关重要，因为我们总是要判断语际对等物(例如，神社在英语中的意思)。但是意义对于文本解释也是至关重要的(例如，“确立宗教”是什么意思行为的解释(为什么我的日本主人父亲在石狐雕像前鼓掌两次甚至更普遍的理解(他是怎么知道带伞的.意义对于我们如何理解自己也很重要——在查尔斯·泰勒令人难忘的表述中，我们是“自我解释的动物”因此，意义问题是在人类科学中所做的几乎所有事情的根源。所有这些都意味着，尽管后结构主义的版本在很大程度上是失败的，但是对于意义本身意味着什么的概念再重要不过了。

For a range of reasons, then, the inherited semiotics common to much of the human sciences will not do. A new semiotics is in order. In the years since my encounter with the monkeys of Arashiyama, I have been working to formulate such a semiotics in dialogue with my brother, Seth Josephson, whose doctorate is in Animal Studies. We have dubbed it “hylo-semiotics,” drawing the prefix “hylo” from the Greek ὑλη (“matter” or “for-est”).⁸ For reasons that will become clear shortly, hylosemiotics includes much of what is often called hermeneutics, rendering the hermeneutics—

由于一系列的原因，大多数人类科学所共有的遗传符号学并不适用。一种新的符号学正在形成。在我遇到 Arashiyama 的猴子之后的几年里，我一直在和我的兄弟 Seth Josephson 对话，努力构建这样一种符号学，他的博士学位是动物研究。我们称之为“语言符号学”，从希腊语 “λη”(“matter”或“ For-est”)中引出前缀“hylo”。⁸ 语言符号学包括许多常被称为解释学的东西，使得解释学 -

semiotics opposition moot. We hope to publish our more extensive system elsewhere, but this chapter is my version of an outline of our joint project, charting its key commitments and early insights.

符号学的反对意见。我们希望在其他地方发表我们更广泛的系统，但这一章是我对我们联合项目的概述，列出其主要承诺和早期见解。

Hylosemiotics draws on a range of theorists.⁹ It combines their in-sights with recent findings in animal and plant communication to for-mulate a panspecies model of signs and meaning itself. But to toss out some positional jargon as fodder for readers already familiar with vari-ous forms of semiotics and hermeneutics, it might be best to think of hylosemiotics as an expansion of a C.S. Peirce—influenced biosemiotics to include the semiotics of nonbiological symbolic systems (e.g., robots/ computers) combined with an account of meaning drawn from hybrid-izing Ruth Millikan’s teleosemantics, Deirdre Wilson and Dan Sperber’s relevance theory, and a repurposed version of Richard Boyd’s notion of accommodation to explain reference magnetism. Readers from a con-tinental perspective will also see the influence of Martin Heidegger’s hermeneutics, but stripped of its anthropocentrism. After naturalizing philosophy of language around nonhuman models, the project then em-phases the materialized representations that mediate cognitive pro-cesses to produce extended minds.

符号学吸引了一系列的理论家。⁹ 它结合了他们的洞察力和最近在动植物交流中的发现来模拟一个关于符号和意义本身的泛种模型。但是，为了给已经熟悉各种形式的符号学和解释学的读者提供一些位置术语作为素材，也许最好把符号学看作是皮尔斯影响下的生物符号学的扩展，包括非生物符号系统的符号学(例如，机器人/计算机)，结合从混合的露丝·米利肯(Ruth Millikan)的目的语义学、迪尔德丽·威尔逊(Deirdre Wilson)和丹·斯珀伯(Dan Sperber)的关联理论中获得的意义的解释，以及理查德·博伊德(Richard Boyd)用来解释参考磁性的调节概念的再利用版本。从大陆的角度来看，读者也会看到马丁·海德格尔的解释学的影响，但剥夺了其人类中心主义。在围绕非人类模型的语言哲学自然化之后，这个项目强调了物化的表征，这些表征调解了认知过程，从而产生了扩展的思维。

In broad brushstrokes, the following will provide an account of mean-ing and its materialization, a description of the relationship between signs and the world, that should be of instant interest to scholars in a range of disciplines.

在大致的笔触中，下面将提供意义及其物化的说明，描述符号与世界之间的关系，这应该是一系列学科的学者立即感兴趣的。

To provide a little more explicit signposting, section 5.1 will begin by dialectically mediating poststructuralist semiotics and New Materialist

ontology. I argue that these two putatively opposed movements both fail in interesting ways, but by recouping the emphasis on semiotics from the first and the turn to matter from the second they can be sublated into something much more interesting. Readers already ready to reject both poststructuralism and New Materialism can skip directly to section 5.2, which begins theorizing meaning by tacking back and forth between a minimal metaontology and a minimal semantics (more fully articulated in section 5.3). A brief excursion makes the case against the impossibility of translation in section 5.4. Then section 5.5 puts forward a specific hylo-semiotics of specific signs. The rest of the chapter begins exploring the implications of this sign theory for scholarship in the human sciences.

为了提供更明确的路标，第 5.1 节将从辩证地介绍后结构主义符号学和新唯物主义本体论开始。我认为这两个假定的对立运动都以有趣的方式失败了，但是通过重新强调符号学从第一个和转向物质从第二个，他们可以被扬弃成一些更有趣的东西。已经准备好拒绝后结构主义和新唯物主义的读者可以直接跳到第 5.2 节，该节通过在最小的元论和最小的语义学之间来回切换来开始意义的理论化(在第 5.3 节中更详细地阐述)。在第 5.4 节中，一个简短的例子说明了翻译的不可能性。然后第 5.5 节提出了特定符号的特定符号学。本章的其余部分开始探讨这一符号理论对人文科学学术研究的意义。

5.1 Beyond the Linguistic Turn

5.1 超越语言学转向

Postmodernism is consistently identified as part of a broader “linguistic turn.” According to the most common account of this turn, it is as though philosophy, having translated all of its problems into problems of language, has been replaced by linguistics. Postmodernism is consistently identified as part of a broader “linguistic turn.” According to the most common account of this turn, it is as though philosophy, having translated all of its problems into problems of language, has been replaced by linguistics. 后现代主义一直被认为是更广泛的“语言学转向”的一部分根据这种转变最常见的解释，它就好像哲学，已经把它所有的问题都转化成了语言的问题

guage, became nothing more than a language game; or perhaps postmodernism (or poststructuralism) represents the grand finale of an increasing overemphasis on the authority of language that finally abandoned even the notion of linguistic structures and rejected anything outside the free play of unattached linguistic signs.¹⁰

或者也许后现代主义(或后结构主义)代表了对语言权威性越来越强调的最终结果, 最终甚至放弃了语言结构的概念, 拒绝了任何超出独立语言符号自由游戏范围的东西

While there is something to this account, as I noted in the introduction, “poststructuralism” is an American invention largely assembled from a bricolage of French theorists merged with a handful of doctrines drawn from an older stratum of American New Criticism. There was no post-structuralist movement in France and the linguistic turn was much older than the common narrative presumes. Nonetheless, if postmodernism had a specific philosophy of language or semiotics it can be seen in what later Anglo--American scholars canonized as “poststructuralist.” (I’ll use the term “poststructuralist” in what follows to talk about this subset of postmodernism.) Thus, while analytic philosophers and linguists formulated a very different account of language (see note), a crude poststructuralism gained ground throughout much of the human sciences, where it continues to linger, shaping many scholars’ attendant ideas of discourse in general—and, in powerful but often unseen ways, anchoring a set of assumptions about the way language relates to the world.¹¹

正如我在引言中指出的那样, 虽然这种说法有一定道理, 但“后结构主义”是美国人的发明, 它主要是由法国理论家的大杂烩与美国新批评派较早阶层的少数学说合并而成的。在法国没有后结构主义运动, 语言学的转向也比一般的叙事假设要古老得多。尽管如此, 如果后现代主义有一个特定的语言哲学或符号学, 它可以看到后来的英美学者称为“后结构主义”(我将在下文中使用术语“后结构主义者”来讨论后现代主义的这个子集因此, 尽管分析哲学家和语言学家对语言提出了截然不同的解释(见注释), 但粗糙的后结构主义在许多人文科学领域获得了普遍支持, 并且在那里继续存在, 塑造了许多学者对话语的普遍观点——并且以一种强有力但常常看不见的方式, 锚定了一系列关于语言与世界关系方式的假设

In this section, I reconstruct this terrain in grand overview. Then, I gesture at a recent putative opposite, New Materialism. I will argue that taking up both movements together, or more precisely drawing the attention to semiotics from the first and the attention to ontology and matter from the second, permits us to turn the linguistic turn inside out and make it do productive work.

在这一部分，我重建这个地形在宏观的概述。然后，我指向最近假定的对立面，新唯物主义。我认为，把这两个运动放在一起，或者更准确地说，从第一个运动引起对符号学的注意，从第二个运动引起对本体论和事物的注意，允许我们把语言学的转向翻过来，让它做富有成效的工作。

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Many scholars tend to take as given two things about language they inherit from the Swiss linguist Ferdinand de Saussure. First, Saussure is well known for having asserted that “*the linguistic sign is arbitrary*.”¹² This statement has gone on to produce significant amounts of criticism and confusion. Indeed, Saussure immediately qualified this statement, and did so again in greater detail in a generally overlooked later section of the same work.¹³ Despite how it has sometimes been read, Saussure’s doctrine of the arbitrariness of the sign was mainly an attempt to repudiate linguistic theories in which particular sounds were thought to have a natural or organic connection to the thing they represented. But Saussure’s original claim was misread and many later interpreters came to think of language more broadly as fundamentally arbitrary in its construal of meaning.

许多学者倾向于把他们从瑞士语言学家弗迪南·德·索绪尔那里继承来的关于语言的两件事情视为既定事实。首先，索绪尔因断言“语言符号是任意的”而闻名这种说法引发了大量的批评和困惑。事实上，索绪尔立即对这一说法进行了限定，并在同一作品后面一个被普遍忽视的章节中再次进行了更详细的限定。¹³ 尽管有时人们是如何解读这一说法的，索绪尔关于符号任意性的学说主要是试图否定语言学理论，即认为某些特定的声音与它们所代表的事物有着天然或有机的联系。但是，索绪尔最初的主张被误读了，许多后来的解释者开始更广泛地认为语言在解释意义上具有根本的随意性。

Second, following Saussure, signs are habitually characterized as dyadic
第二，在索绪尔之后，符号通常被描述为二进制

in structure. As Saussure put it, “the linguistic sign unites, not a thing and a name, but a concept and a sound--image” or a “signified and signifier.”¹⁴ In this Saussure is intentionally suspending the issue of external reference. For example, the meaning of the English word “frog” would be a particular concept FROG, not a particular thing in the world. This was not a denial that signs referred to external objects (as it has often been taken to be); nor was his emphasis on “arbitrariness” meant to suggest that an individual English speaker might be free to use the word “frog” to refer to any old animal they chose. Actually, Saussure recognized that language had conventions and that reference was one function of linguistic utterances. But rather than debating which languages did a better job of describing the world, he suggested that linguistics should focus primarily on variation in linguistic structures and suspend debates around external reference or correspondence.

在结构上。正如索绪尔所说,“语言符号联合起来,不是一个事物和一个名称,而是一个概念和一个声音形象”或“能指与所指”在这篇文章中, Saussure 有意中止了外部指称的问题。例如,英语单词“FROG”的意思应该是一个特定的概念 FROG,而不是世界上的特定事物。这并不是否认符号指的是外部物体(人们常常这样认为);他对“任意性”的强调也并不意味着说英语的个人可以自由地使用“青蛙”这个词来指他们选择的任何一种老动物。事实上,索绪尔认识到语言是有约定的,指称是语言表达的一个功能。但是,与其争论哪种语言在描述世界方面做得更好,他建议语言学应该主要关注语言结构的变异,并暂停围绕外部指称或对应的争论。

It is less interesting from this perspective whether the English “frog” captures what one might think of as an actual biological genus (it doesn’t) than how it relates to other adjacent concepts such as “toad.” The link-age between signifier and signified is maintained by the relationship a given sign has to the whole system of signs in which it exists. A sign must be distinguishable from others in its sign system; and according to Saussure, the meaning of a sign results from its difference with respect to these others. The meaning of the term “man,” for example, depends on its exclusion of other meanings such as those of “child,” “woman,” “animal,” and so on.

从这个角度来看,英语中的“青蛙”是否捕捉到了人们可能认为的真正的生物属(它没有捕捉到)并不那么有趣,更有趣的是它与其他相邻的概念如“蟾蜍”之间的关系能指与所指之间的联系是通过一个给定的符号与它所存在的整个符号系统之间的关系来维持的。一个符号必须在其符号系统中与其他符号区分开来;而且根据 Saussure, 一个符号的意义是由它相对于其他符号的不同而产生的。例如,“男人”一词的含义取决于它是否排除了其他含义,如“孩子”、“女人”、“动物”等等。

Saussure promoted what amounted to a kind of semantic holism, in which meaning emerged not from isolated signs, but from the sign system as a whole. In oft-quoted lines, “Language is a system of interdependent terms in which the value of each term results solely from the simultaneous presence of the others . . . concepts are purely differential and defined not by their positive content but negatively by their relations with the other terms of the system.”¹⁵ Structuralism explicitly inherited this account of meaning. Claude Lévi-Strauss argued that “the meaning of a word depends on the way in which each language breaks up the realm of meaning to which the word belongs; and it is a function of the presence or absence of other words denoting related meanings.”¹⁶ While not completely excluding reference, Lévi-Strauss’s structuralist methodology presumed this account of linguistic structures.

索绪尔提出了一种语义整体论，意义不是从孤立的符号中产生的，而是从整个符号系统中产生的。在经常被引用的句子中，“语言是一个由相互依存的词语组成的系统，在这个系统中，每个词语的价值完全来自于其他词语的同时存在。概念是完全不同的，不是由它们的正面内容来定义的，而是由它们与系统中其他词语的关系来定义的。”结构主义明确地继承了这种意义的计算。克洛德·列维-斯特劳斯认为，“一个词的意义取决于每种语言打破该词所属意义领域的方式；它是其他表示相关意义的词存在或不存在的函数。”列维-斯特劳斯的结构主义方法论虽然没有完全排除引用，却假定了这种对语言结构的解释。

Saussurean semiotics became as important as it was because various notions of “linguistic relativity” had already come to dominance. Saussure’s inadvertent legacy was therefore an internalist semantics that disconnected words and concepts from anything in the material world. A sign’s meaning was thought not to be rooted in its capacity to refer to

萨丕尔-沃夫假说符号学之所以变得如此重要，是因为各种“语言相对论”的概念已经占据了主导地位。因此，Saussure 无意中留下的遗产是一种内在主义语义学，它将词汇和概念与物质世界中的任何事物分离开来。一个符号的意义被认为不是植根于它的指称能力

things, but instead to be determined by its relative position within a system of signs. This claim was frequently amplified in the hands of later interpreters who transformed Saussure's methodological bracketing into the assertion that the whole idea of meaning in terms of linguistic reference was either misguided or downright impossible.¹⁷ As Catherine Belsey has astutely summarized, the central exhortation that defined much of poststructuralism was "*difference, not reference*."¹⁸

事物,而是由它在符号系统中的相对位置决定的。这种说法在后来的解释者手中经常被放大,他们将索绪尔的方法论归纳为这样的论断,即从语言指称的角度来看,整个意义的概念要么是被误导的,要么是完全不可能的。正如凯瑟琳·贝尔西(Catherine Belsey)敏锐地总结的那样,定义大部分后结构主义的核心箴言是“差异,而不是指称”¹⁸

Here is the thing: this whole account of meaning fails. Its fundamental presuppositions are mistaken. To start with, semantic holism comes in different variants, but it often amounts to some version of the idea that the meaning of a term or sentence is merely its relationship to either a subset of a language or a language as a whole. Analytic philosophers often associated holism with Quine and Wittgenstein, and the latter's statement that "understanding a sentence means understanding a language."¹⁹ In the hands of a poststructuralist, it is either the idea that the meaning of a word comes from the structure of the language as a whole, or (in a more modest formulation) the idea that meaning expresses a relationship between concepts and other concepts without external reference.

事情是这样的:整个关于意义的解释都失败了。它的基本假设是错误的。首先,语义整体论有不同的变体,但它往往相当于一种观点的某种版本,即一个术语或句子的意义仅仅是它与一种语言的子集或一种语言作为一个整体的关系。分析哲学家经常把整体论与奎因和维特根斯坦联系在一起,后者认为“理解一个句子就意味着理解一种语言。”在后结构主义者看来,要么是认为一个词的意义来自于整个语言的结构,要么是(用一种更温和的表述方式)认为意义表达了概念和其他概念之间的关系,而没有外部参照。

While I think there is something to be said for localized semantic holism (a.k.a. contextualism), grand semantic holism as a theory of language runs into obvious problems. To toss out a few: First, if you have to understand a complete language (or a complete linguistic structure) to understand a single sentence, then by implication unless you suddenly gained access to a language as a whole, you could never understand even a single sentence—so learning a language would be impossible. Second, if meaning requires the whole linguistic structure of a language, then it might also suggest that since no one knows the meaning of *all* the words in the English language, then no one actually knows the meaning of *any* of the words in the English language.

虽然我认为局部语义整体主义(又称语境主义)有一定道理,但作为语言理论的宏观语义整体主义却遇到了明显的问题。首先,如果你必须理解一种完整的语言(或一种完整的语言结构)才能理解一个句子,那么通过暗示,除非你突然能够接触到一种语言的整体,否则你永远不可能理解哪怕是一个句子——因此学习一种语言是不可能的。其次,如果意义需要一种语言的整个语言结构,那么它也可能表明,既然没有人知道英语中所有单词的意思,那么就没有人真正知道英语中任何单词的意思。

Third, if semantic holism were true, then the introduction of a single new word into a language should change the meaning of all other terms in the language. But how could the introduction of “youthquake” (Oxford’s 2017 “new word of the year”) alter the meaning of the otherwise unrelated sentence “What is the relative atomic mass of oxygen”?

第三,如果语义整体论是正确的,那么在一种语言中引入一个新单词应该改变语言中所有其他术语的含义。但是,“青年地震”(2017年牛津大学的“年度新词”)的引入,怎么会改变“氧的相对原子质量是多少”这句话的含义呢?

Fourth, semantic holism might suggest that translation was impossible, because to translate one English sentence into Japanese would require translating all of English into Japanese. But to translate the sentence “Please pass the salt” into Japanese “塩を渡してください” clearly does not require the complete translation of the entire English language.

第四,语义整体论可能认为翻译是不可能的,因为把一个英语句子翻译成日语需要把所有的英语翻译成日语。但是要把“请把盐递过来”这句话翻译成日语“を渡してださい”,显然不需要把整个英语翻译成完整的语言。

Fifth, even modest semantic holism often implies the so-called “hermeneutical circle” that is commonly believed to arise from the contention that to understand part of a text a reader needs to understand a whole text,

第五,即使是最温和的语义整体主义,也常常暗示所谓的“她的神经循环”。人们普遍认为,要理解一篇文章的一部分,读者就必须理解整篇文章,

but to understand the whole text a reader needs to understand a part of the text. The hermeneutical circle is supposed to be a paradoxical circularity rendering interpretation impossible, but it is really just a problem with the broader assumptions of linguistic holism.²⁰

但要理解整篇文章，读者需要理解文章的一部分。解释学的循环被认为是一个矛盾的循环，使得解释成为不可能，但它实际上只是一个与语言整体论的更广泛的假设有关的问题

Sixth, if meaning is a relationship between concepts without reference, then any two people's versions of a language would be incommensurable as there would be no way to check if two speakers share the same meaning of even one of their terms (without reference). Finally, if meaning is produced only by differences, then the meaning of every concept might seem to require meaning to be deferred from one concept to the next in an infinite chain of differed relations.²¹

第六，如果意义是没有引用的概念之间的关系，那么任何两个人的语言版本都是不可通约的，因为没有办法检查两个人是否有相同的意义，即使是他们的术语(没有引用)。最后，如果意义仅由差异产生，那么每个概念的意义似乎都需要在一个不同关系的无限链中从一个概念延伸到下一个概念

Observations like these are sometimes used to challenge the notion of meaning as such, but what they actually suggest are disastrous faults in this broader stratum of theories. Indeed, many poststructuralists knew that the received Saussurean account of meaning was flawed. Derrida and company presented numerous critiques of this model—challenging the value of linguistic structures, repudiating logocentrism, emphasizing the places that they saw language breaking down, and the like. But instead of proposing an alternative account of meaning, these theorists have often left readers thinking that *meaning is impossible*, and to some extent they have bequeathed this view to subsequent scholars in a range of disciplines.²²

像这样的观察有时被用来挑战意义本身的概念，但它们实际上暗示的是这个更广泛的理论层面上灾难性的错误。事实上，许多后结构主义者都知道，索绪尔对意义的解释是有缺陷的。德里达和他的同事对这种模式提出了无数的批评——挑战语言结构的价值，否定逻各斯中心主义，强调他们看到语言分解的地方，等等。但是，这些理论家并没有提出另一种对意义的解释，而是经常让读者认为意义是不可能的，在某种程度上，他们把这种观点遗留给了后来的一系列学科领域的学者

To approach this differently, we might ask: what is a theory of meaning for? Or, more specifically, what kind of work should either a semiotics or theory of meaning be able to do for those of us working in the human sciences?²³

为了以不同的方式解决这个问题，我们可能会问：意义理论的目的是什么？或者，更具体地说，符号学或意义理论能够为我们这些从事人类科学工作的人做什么样的工作？²³

You might think that a good theory of meaning would be able to do at least some subset of the following: account for what it means to know a language or understand a specific sentence (e.g., to be able to finish the sentence “the meaning of the word ‘fish’ is . . .” or to be able to explain what a person who understands the meaning of the sentence “that is a fish” is understanding); explain what it is that translations share with the text they purport to be translations of, or provide at least a crude account of when two different terms from different languages mean the same thing; suggest how one might adjudicate different interpretations of a particular linguistic text (e.g., “what Shakespeare really meant by ‘mal-ice’ was . . .”); elucidate what meaning a particular sign communicates; or more fundamentally, explain in some rudimentary sense how communication, the production of meaning, or translation are possible. (Some philosophers also identify meaning with what determines truth conditions, but I do not, see note.)²⁴ It would be an added bonus if such a theory could

你可能认为，一个好的意义理论至少能够做到以下几个方面的某些子集：解释了解一种语言或理解一个特定句子的意义(例如，能够完成一个句子“the meaning of the word ‘fish’ is...”，或者能够解释一个理解句子“that is a fish”含义的人所理解的意义)；解释翻译与他们声称是翻译的文本有什么共同之处，或者至少提供一个粗略的解释，说明来自不同语言的两个不同术语何时意味着同一件事；建议人们如何判断某一特定语言文本的不同解释(例如，“莎士比亚所说的‘mal-ice’的真正意思是...”)；阐明某一特定符号所传达的意思；或者更根本地解释一些基本意义上的交流、意义的产生或翻译是如何可能的。(一些哲学家也将意义与决定真理条件的因素联系起来，但我不这么认为，见注释如果这样的理论能够成立，那将是一个额外的好处

provide some sense of how human language relates to or emerges from animal communication.

提供一些关于人类语言如何与动物交流或从动物交流中产生的感觉。

On these grounds, poststructuralism was a failed theory. Not only could it not answer any of these questions, but as a received model it often denied that many of them had any answers. Any attempt to pinpoint meaning (or arrest its dissemination) was seen as misguided. Translation was thought to be impossible. Every interpretation was taken to be equally valid. Humans were seen as uniquely imprisoned in linguistic mediation. Hermeneutics was seen as an inescapable circle, and so on. The main point I want to make is that these conundrums are not grand insights into the human condition, but rather evidence of an unsuccessful philosophy of language.

基于这些理由, 后结构主义是一个失败的理论。它不仅不能回答这些问题中的任何一个, 而且作为一个公认的模型, 它经常否认其中许多问题有任何答案。任何试图精确定义(或阻止其传播)的尝试都被视为误导。翻译被认为是不可能的。每种解释都被认为是同等有效的。人类被认为是唯一囚禁在语言调解中的人。诠释学被视为一个不可避免的循环, 等等。我想说的主要观点是, 这些难题不是对人类状况的宏大洞察, 而是语言哲学不成功的证据。

To be fair, poststructuralism made a number of positive contributions. It focused attention on rhetoric and rendered the opacity of language suspect. It reminded scholars that the categories through which we view the world are not fully determined by the world. It also emphasized semiotics (even if, from my vantage, the wrong version of it) and the importance of attention to signs, symbols, and discourse. Moreover, I think Derrida in particular was approximately correct in noting that there are problems with treating spoken language as the paradigmatic exemplar of communication.²⁵ Despite being hampered by the legacy of Saussurean semiotics, which he presumed even as he repudiated it, Derrida in his gesture toward “arche--writing” suggested the need for a material semiotics capable of troubling the easy binary between “reality” and “representation” and of saying something substantive about *how the world itself represents*. That is what I aim to do in what follows.

公平地说, 后结构主义做出了一些积极的贡献。它把注意力集中在修辞学上, 使语言的不透明性受到怀疑。它提醒学者们, 我们看待世界的范畴并不完全由世界决定。它还强调了符号学(即使, 从我的角度来看, 是错误的版本)和注意符号、符号和话语的重要性。此外, 我认为德里达特别正确地指出, 把口头语言作为交流的典范存在问题。²⁵ 尽管受到索绪尔符号学遗产的阻碍, 德里达在否定这一遗产的同时也假定了一点, 但他在向“原型写作”致敬的姿态中暗示, 需要一种物质符号

学，能够扰乱“现实”和“表征”之间的简单二元关系，并能够就世界本身的表现形式说出实质性的东西。这就是我接下来要做的。

In summary, many problems in the human sciences are indeed problems of language. But poststructuralism was uniquely unsuited to solve them. There is a reason for this. As I will explore in greater detail in chapter 6, poststructuralism was basically negative dogmatism masquerading as a (failed) semantics. Much of what scholars were getting out of poststructuralism was that their claims about the meaning of texts (broadly construed) could not be adjudicated. If meaning is impossible and every interpretation is equally valid, then you can't be wrong. In practice, of course, this did not work. We went on judging each other's scholarship, meaning, and interpretations (indeed, paradigmatic poststructuralist works are themselves mostly attempts to stake out particular interpretations), but we did so without the benefit of a theory of language to justify our behavior.

总而言之，人文科学中的许多问题确实是语言的问题。但是后结构主义是唯一不适合解决这些问题的。这是有原因的。正如我将在第6章中更详细地探讨的那样，后结构主义基本上是一种消极的教条主义，伪装成一种(失败的)语义。学者们从后结构主义中得到的许多东西是，他们对文本(广义解释)意义的主张不能被裁定。如果意义是不可能的，每种解释都同样有效，那么你就不会错。当然，在实践中，这并不奏效。我们继续评判彼此的学术、意义和解释(事实上，范式后结构主义作品本身大多是试图找出特定的解释)，但我们这样做没有一个语言理论的好处来证明我们的行为。

Poststructuralist theories would also have little to contribute to the simian encounter that began this chapter. To see why, we can find a repre-

后结构主义理论对于本章开头的猿类遭遇也没有什么贡献。为了找出原因，我们可以找到一个代表

sentative example of this kind of theorizing in a book I read as part of the research I was doing in Japan. *The Invented Self: An Anti--Biography, from Documents of Thomas A. Edison*, written by the American historian David Nye on an explicitly poststructuralist model, argues thus:

我在日本做研究的时候读过一本书，里面有一个很好的例子。美国历史学家戴维·奈(David Nye)以一种明确的后结构主义模式撰写的《虚构的自我：反传记》(*The Invented Self: An Anti-Biography*)，摘自托马斯·爱迪生(thomas a. edison)的文献：

This study rejects the existence of its subject, Thomas Alva Edison. . . . He once existed, but neither he nor any other figure can be recreated. The references in these pages lead not to a hero, but to yellowed papers. . . . Only a bumpkin would look for the real Edison in this semiotic shell game.

这项研究否定了其研究对象爱迪生的存在。他曾经存在过，但是和其他任何人物都不可能重新塑造。这些页面中的参考文献不是指向一个英雄，而是指向一张泛黄的纸张。只有土包子才会在这个符号化的骗局中寻找真正的爱迪生。

. . . Such a pattern will avoid the attempt to return to some pre--semantic “reality” behind the documents.²⁶

这种模式将避免试图回到文档背后的某种前语义“现实”

Nye’s anti--biography gets most of its energy by denying Edison’s relevance as a historical figure. Texts about Edison have no source beyond other texts. Images of Edison have no meaning beyond their relationship to other images in general, and so on. For Nye, all linguistic signs are in some sense supposed to be “arbitrary,” by which he mainly seems to have taken to mean that attempts at reference are impossible or at the very least misguided.²⁷

奈的反传记通过否认爱迪生作为一个历史人物的存在而获得了大部分的能量。关于爱迪生的文本除了其他文本没有其他来源。爱迪生的形象除了与其他形象的关系之外，没有任何意义，等等。对奈来说，所有的语言符号在某种意义上都应该是“任意的”，他似乎主要认为这意味着试图引用是不可能的，或者至少是被误导的

To illustrate why this is such a dysfunctional theory of language, we could say about the snow monkey what Nye said about Edison. The encounter in question had no subject. My references were not to a monkey but to other signs. (This is a baffling account of meaning, as it would seem to suggest that where I say “look at that monkey” I would have to be gesturing to other discursive moments, not making reference to a specific creature). Only a “bumpkin” would try to figure out what kind of animal I referred to, or if it

really existed. (Maybe I actually saw a bear or a lemur.) To look to any particular extralinguistic “reality” behind my account would be misguided. (I might as well have imagined it.) There are only arbitrary differences between signs—no similarity, no reference, no fixable meaning. (Why am I even telling you this? Because to write would seem to be a misdirected attempt to assert a particular meaning.)

为了说明为什么这是一个功能失调的语言理论，我们可以用奈对爱迪生的评价来形容雪猴。这个被质疑的柜台没有主题。我提到的不是一把单调的钥匙，而是其他的符号。(这是一个令人费解的含义解释，因为它似乎表明，当我说“看那只猴子”时，我必须指向其他的散漫时刻，而不是指某种特定的生物)。只有“土包子”才会试图弄清楚我指的是哪种动物，或者它是否真的存在。(也许我真的看到了熊或者狐猴在我的账户背后寻找任何特定的超语言的“现实”都是被误导的。(我也可能是想象出来的符号之间只有任意的差异——没有相似性，没有参照物，没有固定的意义。(我为什么要告诉你这些？因为写作似乎是一种试图表达某种特定意义的错误尝试

Further, Nye and his fellow poststructuralists would have rejected the possibility of non-arbitrary, isomorphic aspects of maps or photographs. They would have repudiated the possibility of “translating” between Japanese and English, or at least they would have rejected the idea that certain translations might be more accurate than others. (As a preliminary counter-argument, the existence of *inept translations* pushes against this view. For an example, watch the Monty Python sketch “Dirty Hungarian Phrasebook” [episode 25, 1970], which depicts John Cleese pre-tending to be a Hungarian in a British shop trying to order with the help

进一步说，奈和他的后结构主义同事们可能已经拒绝了地图或照片的非任意、同构方面的可能性。他们会否定在日语和英语之间进行“翻译”的可能性，或者至少他们会否定某些翻译可能比其他翻译更准确的想法。(作为一个初步的反驳观点，蹩脚翻译的存在推翻了这一观点。举个例子，看看蒙提·派森的小品《肮脏的匈牙利语手册》[第 25 集，1970]，其中描绘了约翰·克里斯在一家英国商店假装匈牙利人，试图在帮助下订购

of a perversely inaccurate Hungarian--English phrase book. While trying to request matches and cigarettes, he winds up saying things like "My hovercraft is full of eels" and "you want to come back to my place, bouncy-- bouncy?" This phrasebook is farfetched, but if you grant the existence of inept translation, mistranslation, or bad translation then you have con-ceded the possibility that translations can be more or less accurate.) Ani-mal communication and natural signs would be necessarily beyond these theorists' typical horizon. Poststructuralist accounts of meaning would do nothing to explain my ability to interpret the rain clouds, Japanese texts, or the call of the snow monkey, much less snow monkeys' ability to under-stand each other.

一本不准确的匈牙利英语短语手册。当他试图要火柴和香烟的时候, 他最后说了一些诸如“我的气垫船上全是鳗鱼”和“你想去我家吗, 蹦蹦?”这本常用语手册是牵强附会的, 但如果你承认存在翻译不当、误译或糟糕的翻译, 那么你就承认了翻译或多或少是准确的可能性。)动物间的交流和自然符号必然会超出这些理论家的典型视野。后结构主义对意义的解释无法解释我理解雨云、日语文本或雪猴的叫声的能力, 更不用说雪猴理解彼此的能力了。

One might think that this nonhuman encounter would be ideally suited to analysis by contemporary New Materialism, since New Materialists have often defined their movement in opposition to poststructuralism and they have regularly taken pride in dethroning the human from their ontology. There are many things I like in that movement, but the surprise is that New Materialism would have just as many problems explicating the encounter. Indeed, it will turn out that New Materialists can do nothing to explain the interaction above; they can only describe it. As the following demonstrates, New Materialists have tried to be post--semiotic, but they keep setting up problems that only a semiotics will solve.

有人可能会认为, 这种非人类的遭遇非常适合当代新唯物主义的析, 因为新唯物主义者经常定义他们的运动, 反对后结构主义, 他们经常以把人从他们的存在论中推翻为傲。在这场运动中, 我喜欢很多东西, 但令人惊讶的是, 新唯物主义在解释这场运动时也会遇到同样多的问题。事实上, 新唯物主义者无法解释上述的相互作用, 他们只能描述它。如下所示, 新唯物主义者试图成为后符号学, 但他们不断设置的问题, 只有符号学才能解决。

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If there is one thing the diverse collection of theories grouped under the banner of the New Materialisms seem to share, it is that their turn to ma-

teriality is motivated by a rejection of the “linguistic turn.”²⁸ Rosi Brai-dotti—the feminist philosopher generally credited with devising the expression “new materialism”—summarized the birth of the movement thus: it “emerges as a method, a conceptual frame and a political stand, which *refuses* the linguistic paradigm.”²⁹ Their criticism of the linguistic turn mostly boils down to some version of the assertion that—as Karen Barad put it—“Language has been granted too much power.”³⁰ In brief, they argue that “postmodern” or “poststructuralist” theorists have over-emphasized words and overlooked things. While this critique has merit, New Materialists tend to be unaware of how indebted they are to the very movements they oppose.

如果说新唯物主义旗帜下的各种理论似乎有一个共同点的话，那就是它们转向实在论的动机是对“语言学转向”的拒绝²⁸ Rosi brai-dotti ——女权主义哲学家，被普遍认为创造了“新唯物主义”这一表述——总结了这场运动的诞生：它“作为一种拒绝语言学范式的方法、概念框架和政治立场而出现”他们对语言学转向的批评大多归结于某种版本的断言——正如 Karen Barad 所说的——“语言被赋予了太多的力量。”简而言之，他们认为“后现代”或“后结构主义”理论家过分强调词汇，忽略了事物。虽然这种批判是有道理的，但是新唯物主义者往往没有意识到他们对他们所反对的运动是多么的感激。

New Materialism’s technical vocabulary is largely drawn from post-structuralism and literary theory. The term *actant*, for instance, comes from structuralist literary analysis, where it was used to refer to the “functions or roles occupied by the various characters of a narrative,” and it ap-

新唯物主义的术语集大部分来源于后结构主义和文学理论。例如，“行动者”这个术语来自结构主义文学分析，它指的是“叙事中各种角色所占据的功能或角色”

peared in the writing of canonical poststructuralist thinkers like Roland Barthes and Julia Kristeva.³¹ *Assemblage* is another example of this pattern. Indeed, Saussure uses “assemblage” (*l’agencement*)—the same term that many associate with Giles Deleuze—more times than he uses the word “structure.”³² Moreover, despite claims that Actor--Network--Theory is an alternative to structuralism, Lévi--Strauss treated both “network” (*réseau*) and “assemblage” as near synonyms for the now discredited “structure.” After all, notwithstanding some misleading metaphors of structures as cages or laws, what the structuralist primarily meant by structure was a system of relations or a network of nodes. The irony is that scholars who would probably not be caught dead using terms like “structure” in a positive sense are in the process of reimporting terms like “network” and “assemblage” to do all the work “structure” did in classical structuralism. Almost without skipping a beat, New Materialists exchanged linguistic networks for material assemblages. It was even possible for some of the same theorists to go from paragons of poststructuralism to paragons of New Materialism, merely by saying about matter what they had previously been framing in terms of discourse.³³ That the New Materialists were often translating into ontology what poststructuralists were doing in terms of language does not make them necessarily mistaken, but begins to hint at the limitations of their project.

罗兰·巴特和朱莉娅·克里斯蒂娃等后结构主义思想家的著作中出现过。³¹ 大会是这种模式的另一个例子。事实上，索绪尔使用“集合”这个词的次数比他使用“结构”这个词的次数还要多此外，尽管有人声称“演员网络理论”是结构主义的替代品，列维-斯特劳还是把“网络”和“集合”都当作现在已经名誉扫地的“结构”的近义词来对待毕竟，尽管有一些误导性的隐喻结构作为笼子或法律，什么结构主义者主要意味着结构是一个系统的关系或网络的节点。具有讽刺意味的是，那些很可能不会因使用“结构”这样的积极意义上的术语而丧命的学者，正在重新引入“网络”和“作为集合体”这样的术语，以完成古典结构主义中“结构”所做的所有工作。新唯物主义者几乎毫不犹豫地语言网络转换为材料组合。一些相同的理论家甚至可能从后结构主义的典范变成新唯物主义的典范，仅仅通过谈论他们以前在话语方面所构建的物质。新唯物主义者经常把后结构主义者在语言方面所做的事情翻译成本体论，这并不一定使他们犯错误，而是开始暗示他们的计划的局限性。

Other limitations are clearest in their ordinary operating procedures. A typical scholarly work informed by New Materialism outlines a particular assemblage (or network) that the scholar wants to study and then identifies the actants—both human and nonhuman—that make up that assemblage. There is nothing wrong with this as a first-pass approach. The notion of assemblage is especially useful when it pushes us to consider more than texts

and their authors. But this procedure establishes nothing on its own. Everything can be construed as part of an assemblage. Once a case study has enumerated all the particular things that make up an assemblage (say, the person who signs the mortgage, the person who gave them the mortgage, the paper the mortgage has been made out of, the place the mortgage has referred to, the plastic of the chair they were sitting on when they signed the mortgage, and so on), there is little interpretive work that can be done. All we are left with is a jumble of connections that on their own have very little explanatory value. Assemblage does little more than indicate that something is of interest to a researcher.³⁴

其他的限制在他们的日常操作过程中最为明显。一本受新唯物主义启发的典型学术著作概述了一个特定的集合(或网络)，学者希望研究这个集合，然后确定构成这个集合的行为者——包括人类和非人类。这种首先通过的方法并没有什么错。没有汇编是特别有用的，当它促使我们考虑更多的文本和他们的作者。但是这个过程本身并没有建立任何东西。一切都可以解释为一个集合的一部分。一旦一个案例研究列举了组成一个集合体的所有特定事物(比如，签署抵押贷款的人，给他们抵押贷款的人，抵押贷款所用的纸张，抵押贷款所指的地方，他们签署抵押贷款时所坐的塑料椅子，等等)，就没有什么可以做的解释工作了。我们剩下的只是一堆乱七八糟的联系，这些联系本身并没有什么解释价值。汇编只不过表明研究人员对某些东西感兴趣

New Materialists often claim to speak for nonhuman agents, but they do so without registering their own interpretive procedures. This is clear in the Achilles' heel of much of New Materialism: its unbridled admiration for "agency." The problem is that "agency" is largely a vacuous category that gets most of its mileage by being opposed to a strawman.³⁵ For

新唯物主义者经常声称为非人类代理人说话，但是他们没有注册自己的解释程序。这一点在新唯物主义的致命弱点中显而易见：它对“代理”的无限崇拜问题在于，“代理”在很大程度上是一个空洞的血淋淋的食品，它的大部分利润来自于反对一个稻草人

example, when a New Materialist says that “[a rock] has agency not only in its capacity to excite the human mind, but also in the energy of its atoms that support a mountain overhead,”³⁶ this amounts to the claim that rocks both exist materially and can be perceived by humans—truisms few people would reject. This notion of material “agency” only makes sense in contrast to the view that mind or discourse produces the world and nothing exists to be perceived. But as noted in chapter 1, almost no-body has ever claimed that the world exists exclusively within mind or language. Poststructuralists did suspend the physical world, but they did not deny its existence. In contrast to the New Materialist account, the rock’s “agency” in supporting a mountain could be better elucidated with a theory of causation, while the rock’s ability to inspire suggests its function as a sign.

例如，当一个新唯物主义者说“(一块石头)不仅有能力激发人类的思想，而且还有能力支撑头顶上的一座山的原子，”这就相当于声称石头既存在于物质上，又能被人类感知——这是很少有人会拒绝的真理。这个关于物质“能动性”的概念只有在与思想或话语产生世界的观点相反的情况下才有意义，并且没有什么存在是为了被感知的。但是正如第一章所指出的，几乎没有人声称世界只存在于思想或语言中。后结构主义者确实暂停了物质世界的存在，但他们并不否认它的存在。与新唯物主义的解释相反，岩石支撑山脉的“机构”可以用因果关系理论来更好地解释，而岩石的启发能力暗示了它作为一种标志的功能。

To provide another example: in the opening pages of *Vibrant Matter*, Jane Bennett describes her encounter with an “assemblage” consisting of a glove, some pollen, a dead rat, a bottle cap, and a stick of wood. Instead of seeing these as merely “passive” objects, she is struck by this collection of things and its agency or “ability to make things happen, to produce effects.”³⁷ But Bennett never really tells us what those effects are or what that agency amounts to, nor does she describe any object in detail. They are mere placeholders. There seems to be no interesting way that the “dead rat” is exerting meaningful “agency” on the bottle cap or any of the other artifacts in Bennett’s assemblage.³⁸ But this is typical inasmuch as once the assemblage is traced, there is often no more work that can be done.

再举一个例子：在《活力物质》(*Vibrant Matter*)的开篇，简·贝内特(Jane Bennett)描述了她遇到的一个“集合”，包括一只手套、一些花粉、一只死老鼠、一个瓶盖和一根木棍。她并没有把这些仅仅看作是“被动的”物体，而是被这些事物的集合以及它们的作用力或“使事情发生、产生效果的能力”所打动³⁷但是班尼特从来没有真正告诉我们这些影响是什么，或者这些影响是什么，她也没有详细描述任何物体。它们只是占位符。似乎没有什么有趣的方法可以证明“死老鼠”对瓶盖或班尼特装配

的任何其他艺术品施加了有意义的“影响”。但这是典型的，因为一旦追踪到装配过程，往往就没有更多的工作可以做了。

Before we move on, I want to reiterate a point from chapter 4—namely, that multiple realizability pushes against the claim by Barad and others that “matter” and “meaning” are identical and “cannot be dissociated.”³⁹ You can make a chisel out of steel or wood or stone. It is equally a chisel. Does it make a difference to an analysis of an assemblage if a mortgage was written on paper made from cotton or from wood--pulp? If it was signed with a black pen or a blue one? Although I can imagine unusual case studies with something at stake in either of these distinctions, in general most of the matter in the “assemblage” does not matter for a given analysis. Not all of the matter that instantiates a given social kind is crucial to the social kind. As I argue here, what is crucial is the part of the matter that has semiotic content or function.⁴⁰

在我们继续之前，我想重申第 4 章中的一点，即多重实现推翻了 Barad 和其他人关于“物质”和“意义”相同且“不能分离”的主张³⁹ 你可以用钢铁、木头或石头制作凿子。它同样也是一把凿子。如果抵押贷款是用棉花或木浆做成的纸张来分析一个集合，这会有什么不同吗？是用黑笔还是蓝笔签的？虽然我可以想象不寻常的案例研究与这些区别中的任何一个都有利害关系，但一般来说，“集合”中的大多数问题对于给定的分析来说并不重要。并不是所有的事物都具有某种特定的社会类型，这些事物对于社会类型是至关重要的。正如我在这里所说的，关键在于物质中具有符号内容或功能的那部分

Not to belabor the issue, but New Materialism cannot do much more with the encounter that began this chapter than focus our attention on the nondiscursive features of the environment. If we actually want to understand Bennett's assemblage, or the agency of a rock or even of my snow monkey, we need instead a theory of how things, living and nonliving, act

我不是要详细讨论这个问题，但是新唯物主义对于这一章开始时的遭遇所做的不过是把我们的注意力集中在环境的非话语性特征上。如果我们真的想要理解 Bennett 的组合，或者一块石头的作用，甚至我的雪猴的作用，我们需要的是一个关于事物如何运作的理论，无论是活的还是非活的

on each other—not merely in their material effects, but in how they take on meaning. In a future book I intend to produce a new theory of causality, but here I provide an account of meaning. New Materialists have largely been unaware of the extent to which their work has been limited by the inheritance of the Saussurean semiotic paradigm they share with poststructuralists, and have overlooked the potential of an alternative approach to language. The very linguistic turn they criticize has the potential to solve the problems with their analyses.

不仅在物质效果上，而且在它们如何表达意义上。在未来的一本书中，我打算提出一个关于因果关系的新理论，但在这里，我提供了一个关于意义的解释。新唯物主义者很大程度上没有意识到他们的工作在多大程度上受限于继承索绪尔的符号学范式，他们与后结构主义者共享，并忽视了潜在的替代方法的语言。他们批评的语言学转向有可能通过他们的分析解决问题。

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In summary, the linguistic turn was valuable insofar as many of the problems endemic to the human sciences are indeed issues of language and interpretation; but especially in its poststructuralist variant, the linguistic turn also ushered in a failed theory of meaning. New Materialism, which aspired to repudiate the turn to language in favor of an emphasis on materiality, merely transposed poststructuralist presuppositions about language into ontology. But its emphasis on materiality at least was well directed. Hence, I will argue that taking up the linguistic turn and its putative antidote together is the key to moving forward.

总之，语言学的转向是有价值的，因为许多人文科学特有的问题确实是语言和解释的问题；但是，特别是在其后结构主义变体中，语言学的转向也带来了失败的意义理论。新唯物主义反对转向语言而强调物质性，只是将语言的后结构主义预设转换为本体论。但它对物质性的强调至少是有针对性的。因此，我认为，采取语言学的转向和它的假定的解药在一起是向前发展的关键。

5.2 A Minimal Metaontology

5.2 最小元论

The two initial insights that make hylosemiotics possible are that: 1) semiotics and ontology have to be done side-by-side, as it is a mistake to try to formulate a theory of language by completely bracketing off meaning from the physical world in which meaning occurs; and 2) we need to naturalize any theory of language to see human semiotic behavior on a continuum with at least that of other animal species.

使符号学成为可能的两个最初的见解是: 1)符号学和本体论必须并行进行, 因为试图通过将意义从发生意义的物质世界中完全包围起来来形成语言理论是错误的; 2)我们需要使任何语言理论自然化, 以便看到人类的符号行为至少与其他动物物种的符号行为在一个连续统一体中。

I want to begin my exploration of the first of these insights by doing something that will look very strange from the vantage of much of contemporary philosophy of language, which has generally gotten quite good at compartmentalizing ontology away from theories of meaning.⁴¹ It will lead to perhaps the two most important implications of hylosemiotics—a minimal ontology and an account of meaning.

我想通过做一些从当代语言哲学的角度来看非常奇怪的事情来开始我对这些见解中的第一个的探索, 当代语言哲学通常很擅长把本体论和意义理论区分开来。⁴¹ 它可能会导致形而上学最重要的两个含义——最小的本体论和对意义的描述。

We might begin by asking: what are the things that humans and other animals do more or less successfully? We navigate the world in various ways. We feed ourselves. We reproduce. We have expectations. We communicate with each other. The fact that we can do those things more or less successfully is amazing, and it has direct ontological implications. If the world were really a completely incomprehensible place—if it were the unknowable hyper--chaos or mutually non--overlapping linguistic uni-

我们可以从这样的问题开始: 人类和其他动物成功地或多或少地做了哪些事情? 我们以不同的方式驾驭着世界。我们养活自己。我们繁衍后代。我们有期望。我们彼此交流。事实上, 我们能够或多或少地成功地做到这些事情是令人惊讶的, 而且它具有直接的本体论意义。如果世界真的是一个完全不可理解的地方, 如果它是不可知的超混沌或相互不重叠的语言单位

verses anticipated by various postmodernists and poststructuralists—we couldn't do that.

各种后现代主义者和后结构主义者所期待的诗歌，我们不能这样做。

This suggests that the world must have at minimum two basic features:

这表明世界必须至少有两个基本特征:

1) the world must consist in rough property--clusters (see chapter 4; I'm using *properties* here rather than *powers* to emphasize physical actual-ization); and 2) it must have limited cross--temporal stability or minimal causal regularities. This probably reads as a naturalized version of the basic Kantian question—how must the world be structured such that any kind of sentient being can have any kind of knowledge of it whatsoever? And the answer might appear to be a deflationary restatement of Kant's "forms" of intuition (space, time/causality), but bear with me.

世界必须包含在粗糙的属性集群中(参见第4章;我在这里使用属性而不是强调物理实际化);2)它必须具有有限的跨时间稳定性或最小的因果规律性。这可能被解读为康德基本问题的自然化版本——世界必须如何构造才能使任何有知觉的生物都能对其有任何知识?答案似乎是对康德直觉“形式”(空间、时间、因果关系)的通货紧缩式重述,但请容我说一句。

Physical properties are not evenly distributed across the universe, nor do they exist in an undifferentiated confusion. The local environment—at least from the vantage of planet Earth—consists in things that can be ap-prehended as roughly delineable property--clusters. When I look out my window on a summer's day, I see clusters of green things with a common flexibility and shape that make up the grass; I see a largely undifferenti-ated cluster of blue that makes up the sky; and so on. I am talking in terms of rough appearance, but one could imagine any set of physical proper-ties (e.g., viscosity, luminance, temperature, material constituents, reflec-tivity, shape) and note that these properties tend to cluster, with other sorts of things between them (e.g., air or water or earth or space).⁴²

物理属性在宇宙中并不是均匀分布的,它们也不存在于无差别的混乱之中。本地环境——至少从地球的角度来看——包含的东西可以被理解为大致可描述的性质——星团。夏日里,当我从窗户往外看时,我看到一簇簇绿色的东西,它们具有共同的灵活性和形状,构成了草地;我看到一簇基本上没有什么差别的蓝色,构成了天空;等等。我说的是粗糙的外观,但是人们可以想象任何一组物理属性(例如粘度、亮度、温度、材料成分、反射率、形状),并注意到这些属性往往与它们之间的其他物质(例如空气或水、土壤或空间)聚集在一起

This uneven distribution of property--clusters would need to exist for humans and other animals to navigate the world, because there must be at least something like it to differentiate the world into recognizable units. I am

not saying that these clusters have to exhibit clearly consistent structures, nor do all members of a particular kind have to share all their properties, nor do the clusters have to be definable by necessary and sufficient conditions. We do not need all the metaphysical baggage associated with classical accounts of natural kinds or invariant natural laws.

对于人类和其他动物来说,这种不均衡的财产集群分布是必须存在的,因为至少必须有类似的东西来区分世界,使其成为可识别的单位。我并不是说这些集群必须表现出明确一致的结构,也不是说某一类别的所有成员都必须分享其所有特性,也不是说这些集群必须以必要和充分的条件加以界定。我们不需要与自然种类的经典解释或不变自然法则相关的所有形而上学的包袱。

These property--clusters do not need to have sharp edges. Indeed, granting at least some fundamental vagueness will be important in what follows. It is worth noting that vagueness comes in twice here: first, many physical entities (e.g., clouds and mountains) are vague because they lack precise spatial boundaries; and second, many properties themselves (e.g., gray, bald) are vague because of how they are applied (e.g., whether a particular object like a faded once--black shirt is gray can be vague). Put another way, vagueness is exhibited by most predicates (fast, red) and most nouns (child, toy) whose category membership is full of borderline cases.⁴³ (A third order of vagueness built into linguistic usage will be discussed below.) It does not much matter for my account whether vagueness is ontological, epistemic, or semantic. All I am getting at is that, at mini-

这些属性簇不需要有尖锐的边缘。事实上,至少允许一些基本的模糊性在接下来的事情中是很重要的。值得注意的是,模糊在这里出现了两次:第一,许多物理实体(例如云和山)是模糊的,因为它们缺乏精确的空间边界;第二,许多属性本身(例如灰色,秃头)是模糊的,因为它们是如何应用的(例如,一个特定的对象,例如褪色的黑色衬衫是否是灰色的,可以是模糊的)。换句话说,大多数谓词(快速的,红色的)和大多数名词(儿童,玩具)都表现出模糊性,它们的范畴成员充满了边缘。对我来说,模糊是本体论的、认知的还是语义的并不重要。我所得到的只是,在迷你

mum, the world must consist in rough clusters, which while they often have vague boundaries can nonetheless at least provisionally be roughly distinguished from one another.⁴⁴

妈妈，世界必须由粗糙的星团组成，虽然它们经常有模糊的边界，但至少可以暂时粗略地区分彼此

These clusters may also be continually in the process of changing, but they must exhibit at least some cross--temporal stability and they must interact with each other in at least minimally consistent ways. *Contra* Hume and Meillassoux, all we need is relative, local stability. If the world around us were fluctuating at a dizzying speed in unpredictable ways with things popping in and out of existence, then no animals would be able to interact with it effectively. There would be literally nothing to hold on to. While the processual nature of existence is important to recognize, most of the things we encounter change gradually or in generally predictable ways (at least compared to the fairly rapid changes exhibited by some so-cial kinds).⁴⁵

这些集群也可能在不断变化的过程中，但它们必须至少表现出一定的跨时间稳定性，它们必须以至少最低限度的一致方式相互作用。*Contra* Hume 和 Meillassoux，我们所需要的是相对的局部稳定性。如果我们周围的世界以不可预知的方式以令人眼花缭乱的速度波动着，那么没有任何动物能够与之有效地互动。那就真的没有什么东西可以依靠了。虽然认识到存在的过程性很重要，但我们遇到的大多数事情都是逐渐变化的，或者以一般可预见的方式变化的(至少与某些社会类型所表现出来的相当快的变化相比)

Succinctly put, in order for humans and other animals to have any chance of navigating our environment, the universe must be composed of relatively stable property--clusters, which exhibit local and at least some-what consistent behaviors or causal regularities.

简而言之，为了让人类和其他动物有机会在我们的环境中航行，宇宙必须由相对稳定的性质——星团组成，这些星团表现出局部的，至少是一些——一致的行为或因果规律。

Crucially (and this is my main point), many different cosmologies would support this minimal ontology. The universe could be just as it has been described by contemporary physics or Immanuel Kant. It could equally be described by pre--conquest Nahua thought as having been woven together in the continual unfolding of *teotl* energy. Either classical Charvakas or contemporary Seventh--day Adventists could be right about the world, but it does not matter for our current purposes which one is correct. There are actually few cosmologies that this minimal ontology excludes, and most of those are either purely hypothetical or completely solipsistic. (If you are truly convinced that I am only a figment of your imagination, you are welcome to stop reading.)⁴⁶ Indeed, the main cosmology it excludes is the implicit

ontology of a typical (if exaggerated) poststructuralism that has totally rejected the idea of stable reference and argues instead that we live in completely separate, incommensurable, and linguistically (or cultur-ally) determined worlds.

至关重要是(这是我的主要观点), 许多不同的宇宙学都支持这种最小本体论。宇宙可能正如当代物理学或伊曼努尔·康德所描述的那样。它同样可以被征服前的那华认为是在不断展开的 *teotl* 能量中编织在一起的。无论是古典的 *charvaka* 还是当代的基督复临安息日会信徒对世界的看法都可能是正确的, 但是对于我们当前的目标来说, 哪一个是正确的并不重要。实际上, 这个最小本体论排除的宇宙论很少, 而且大多数要么是纯粹的假设, 要么是完整的唯我论。(如果你真的相信我只是你想象中的虚构人物, 欢迎你停止阅读 46 实际上, 它所排除的主要宇宙学是典型的(如果夸大的话)后结构主义的隐含本体论, 这种本体论完全拒绝了稳定参照的概念, 而认为我们生活在完全独立的、不可比较的、语言(或文化)决定的世界中。

In summary, I am not offering a particular ontology; I'm suggesting a metaontology—that is to say, describing some minimal constraints on any ontology that could be compatible with sentient beings having even limited ability to navigate and have crude knowledge of their environment.

总而言之, 我不是在提供一个特定的本体论, 我是在建议一个元本体论——也就是说, 描述任何本体论上的一些最小限制, 这些限制可以与那些甚至有限的导航能力和对环境有粗略了解的有情众生相容。

Given this minimal *metaontology*, we might say that humans and other animals come to know the property--clusters that make up their environment by interacting with things (material signs and their affordances, explained below), coming to recognize somewhat consistently some of their properties, their peaks or cores, and roughly how to distinguish them from

考虑到这个最小的元论, 我们可以说, 人类和其他动物通过与事物相互作用(物质符号和它们的赋权, 下面解释)来了解构成它们环境的属性——集群, 逐渐在某种程度上一致地认识到它们的一些属性, 它们的峰值或核心, 以及如何粗略地区分它们

one another, even if we are not always able to recognize their indistinct edges. 即使我们不能总是识别出他们模糊的边缘。

This means we have to be provisionally able to do two different kinds of operations: track property--clusters over time/space and distinguish relevant adjacent property--clusters of the functional sortal class. For example, to be able to consistently recognize “cows” when I see them, I need to have some weak, provisional, but fairly dependable way of tracking the cluster of properties that most cows share, and I need some way of being able to remember the relevant non--cow properties that distinguish cows from bulls or horses.

这意味着我们必须暂时能够执行两种不同的操作: 在时间/空间上跟踪属性集群和区分相关的相邻属性集群。例如, 为了能够一致地识别“牛”, 当我看到它们的时候, 我需要有一些弱的, 临时的, 但是相当可靠的方法来跟踪大多数牛共享的属性集群, 我需要有一些方法能够记住相关的非牛属性来区分牛和马。

A key point is that we need not be using the same criteria to identify roughly the same cluster. It is likely that being physically embodied humans with comparable sense--organs, we are similarly constrained in how we interact with our environment and what kind of things we can choose to track.⁴⁷ Our judgments of similarity are, after all and as we have been noting, task dependent. But many, if not all, property--clusters are *robust*—that is to say, independently accessible by different senses.⁴⁸ Accordingly, other kinds of animals with very different senses are likely to be able to pick out roughly similar clusters at least to the extent that they share with us similar forms of embodiment and interest. For instance, I and the cat may have completely different ways of identifying the bat flying around my ceiling. The cat may be primarily using hearing and I might be primarily using sight. But we are still tracking intersecting bat-- property-clusters.⁴⁹

一个关键点是, 我们不需要使用相同的标准来识别大致相同的集群。作为具有类似感官器官的具体人类, 我们在如何与环境互动以及我们可以选择追踪什么样的事物方面可能同样受到限制。毕竟, 正如我们已经注意到的, 我们对相似性的判断是依赖于任务的。但是许多(如果不是全部的话)属性簇是健壮的, 也就是说, 可以被不同的感官独立地接触到。⁴⁸ 相应地, 其他具有非常不同感官的动物可能能够挑选出大致相似的属性簇, 至少在它们与我们具有相似形式的体现和兴趣的程度上是如此。例如, 我和猫可能有完全不同的方法来识别在我天花板上飞来飞去的蝙蝠。猫可能主要使用听觉, 而我可能主要使用视觉。但我们仍在追踪交叉的蝙蝠群

By way of another example, you may know me by sight and identify me best when you see the length of my nose, the shape of my face, and the color

of my hair; but the listeners to my podcast might not be able to pick me out of a lineup and instead recognize me by the timbre of my voice, while my neighbor's dog may recognize me primarily by smell. As I age, my properties will change over time: my hair will gray, my voice will get more gravelly, and even the components of my particular scent will shift. But many people and animals will continue to recognize me because we are collectively pretty good at tracking property--clusters and distinguish-ing them from one another (even if we rarely agree exactly).⁵⁰

再举一个例子，当你看到我的鼻子长度、脸型和头发的颜色时，你可以通过视觉认出我，并且最好地认出我；但是我播客的听众可能不能从一群人中认出我，而是通过我声音的音色来认出我，而我邻居的狗可能主要通过嗅觉来认出我。随着年龄的增长，我的特性会随着时间的推移而改变：我的头发会变白，我的声音会变得更加沙哑，甚至我特殊气味的成分也会发生变化。但是许多人和动物会继续认出我，因为我们大家都擅长追踪财产集群，并区分它们(即使我们很少完全一致)。⁵⁰

Also, to be clear, I am not saying our qualia are identical—your subjective experience of “blue” may be closer to my subjective experience of “red,” and so on. As long as most of us generally agree that strawberries and fresh blood are roughly the same color, for the purposes of this theory it does not matter if our subjective experience of that color differs.

此外，为了澄清，我并不是说我们的感质是相同的——你对“蓝色”的主观体验可能更接近我对“红色”的主观体验，等等。只要我们大多数人一致认为草莓和鲜血是大致相同的颜色，为了这个理论的目的，我们对这种颜色的主观感质是否不同并不重要。

What I mainly mean to suggest is that there is a very small set of—we might say “transcendental”—constraints on the kind of possible world we must be living in.⁵¹ If humans and other animals live in an environment

我的主要意思是，对于我们所生活的这种可能的世界，存在一个非常小的——我们可以说是“先验的”——限制。⁵¹ 如果人类和其他动物生活在一个环境中

we can even crudely navigate fairly successfully, that puts some minimal limitations on what that environment must look like. This implies something about meaning that I will explore in the following section. But the central thing I am getting at is this: *the world being a certain way and its being the thing that our conceptual and linguistic practices need to accommodate* (including the overlapping similarities of these practices across different times and domains) *plays a huge role in our ability to understand one another.*

我们甚至可以相当成功地粗略地导航，这对环境必须是什么样子有一些最小限制。这暗示了一些关于意义的东西，我将在下一节探讨。但我得到的中心结论是：世界是一种特定的方式，它是我们的概念和语言实践需要适应的东西(包括这些实践在不同时期和领域的重叠相似性)，在我们相互理解的能力中扮演着巨大的角色。

I want to highlight a few implications of this metaontology before we proceed:

在我们继续之前，我想强调一下这个元论的一些含义：

First, I need to say something about the relationship between language and thought. On the one hand, the general consensus of most psychologists and cognitive scientists is that not all thought occurs in language.⁵² Even in our day--to--day life, examples of non--linguistic thought includes the common experience of having an idea but not being sure how to put it into words; and the observation that babies and animals seem to exhibit thinking without having the capacity for language.⁵³ But on the other hand, there is also a good amount of evidence that when we are thinking in a specific language that language does tend to have some impact on how we think. For instance, the way that various languages label hues tend to influence our recall and color--sorting. Nouns that are gendered grammatically differently in various languages have an effect on the associations of those objects. Different languages also force people to specify and pay attention to different features of their environment (such as left or right or north or south). Moreover, rhetorical framing and shared conceptual metaphors (e.g., time is money) do tend to unconsciously shape our thoughts and actions in important ways. But most linguistic categories imply emphasis, salience, and influence rather than worldviews or distinct life-worlds.⁵⁴

首先，我需要谈谈语言和思维之间的关系。一方面，大多数心理学家和认知科学家的普遍共识是，并非所有的思维都发生在语言中。⁵² 即使在我们的日常生活中，非语言思维的例子包括有一个想法，但不确定如何将其转换成文字的共同经验；以及婴儿和动物似乎表现出没有语言能力的思维能力的观察。⁵³ 但另一方面，也有大量证据表明，当我们用一种特定的语言思考时，语言确实会对我们的思维方式产生一些影响。例如，各种语言标记色调的方式往往会影响我们的回忆和颜色分类。不同

语言中性别不同的名词会对这些对象的关联产生影响。不同的语言也迫使人们明确并注意他们所处环境的不同特征(如左、右、北、南)。此外,修辞框架和共享的概念隐喻(例如,时间就是金钱)确实会无意识地以重要的方式塑造我们的思想和行为。但是大多数语言分类都暗示着强调、突出和影响,而不是世界观或不同的生活世界

This has concrete implications for the way that meaning is conceptualized. A number of philosophers have thought that sharing linguistic meaning is equivalent to sharing *concepts*, understood as mental representations or psychological states.⁵⁵ For instance, the English “cow” and the Spanish “vaca” are supposed to have the same meaning insofar as they evoke the same COW concept. But this model is mistaken. Even speakers of the same language do not share identical mental representations. As noted in chapter 3, an influential set of studies provided evidence that native English-speakers disagree over the categorization of basic terms. Other research has shown that speakers of the same language typically differ over how to adjudicate color boundaries; and that the same object may be seen as members of different categories depending on the task at hand.⁵⁶ Alternate ways of thinking of concepts as information stores or

这对意义概念化的方式有着具体的影响。许多哲学家认为,共享语言意义等同于共享概念,被理解为心理表征或心理状态。例如,英语中的“COW”和西班牙语中的“vaca”应该具有相同的意义,因为它们唤起了相同的COW概念。但是这个模型是错误的。即使说同一种语言的人也不会有相同的心理表征。正如在第三章中指出的,一系列有影响力的研究提供的证据表明,母语为英语的人在基本术语的分类上存在分歧。其他研究表明,使用同一种语言的人通常在判断颜色界限方面存在差异;同一个物体可能被视为不同类别的成员,这取决于手头的任务

ways of recognizing things would also suggest that people do not have identical concepts. For instance, we probably know different things about *forsythia* (I know very little, aside from the fact that it produces lots of yellow flowers) and we presumably have different ways of recognizing it and distinguishing it from other plants when we encounter it. Hence, taken together, there are many reasons to reject the view that meaning (even within a given linguistic community) is shared mental--representations.

认识事物的方式也表明人们没有相同的概念。例如, 我们可能对连翘有不同的了解(我知道的很少, 除了它能产生许多淡黄色的花朵), 当我们遇到它的时候, 我们可能有不同的方法来识别它, 并且把它和其他植物区分开来。因此, 综上所述, 我们有很多理由拒绝认为意义(即使在一个特定的语言群体中)是共享的心理表征的观点。

Second, because of problems with internalist accounts of meaning, some analytical philosophers—famously Hilary Putnam and Saul Kripke—have gone in the opposite direction from the poststructuralists and rather than rejecting reference argue that (at least for certain classes of words) “meanings just ain’t in the head!”⁵⁷ These philosophers often portray “meaning as a direct connection between language and world by-passing mind.”⁵⁸ In parallel to behaviorism in psychology, the mind was seen as unknowable and basically ignored. Reference at least was supposed to consist in a largely unmediated word--world relationship. In this respect, some analytic philosophers came to a position that was nearly diametric opposed to Saussure’s account of meaning. Poststructuralists were largely bracketing out the world, while analytic externalists were largely bracketing out the mind. But while both of Putnam and Kripke’s externalist accounts of meaning have something to them, they are also flawed for similar reasons.⁵⁹

其次, 由于内在主义对意义的解释存在问题, 一些分析哲学家——著名的希拉里·普特南(Hilary Putnam)和索尔·克里普克(Saul kripke)——与后结构主义走向了相反的方向, 他们没有拒绝参照论(至少对某些类别的词而言), 而是认为“意义不在头脑中!”⁵⁷ 这些哲学家经常将“意义描述为语言和经过思维的世界之间的直接联系”与心理学中的行为主义相似, 心灵被认为是不可知的, 基本上被忽视了。参考至少被认为包含在一个很大程度上未经中介的词语世界关系中。在这方面, 一些分析哲学家的立场与索绪尔对意义的解释几乎完全相反。后结构主义者在很大程度上包围了世界, 而分析外在主义者在很大程度上包围了思想。但是, 尽管普特南和克里普克的外部主义对意义的解释都有一定的意义, 但由于相似的原因, 它们也存在缺陷

For instance, in *Naming and Necessity*, Kripke argued proper names and natural kind terms get their meaning from a “historical chain picture” of how naming works, basically that an initial “baptism” attaches a term to a referent,

which is historically handed down to later speakers.⁶⁰ But there are several arguments against this model, including that there is a tendency for the reference of names to drift (e.g. the name Madagascar for the island comes from a confusion made by European cartographers about references to Mogadishu on the African mainland).⁶¹ More importantly, ostensive reference is often underdetermined.⁶² Even proper names generally have vagueness built into them. For instance, the exact boundaries of Mount Greylock are ambiguous and historically disputed. So if proper names were pure reference without descriptive content then it might seem difficult to ascertain what part of the reference to which the term attaches.⁶³ The types of vagueness I mentioned earlier point us toward the problem: what part of the physical world does Mount Greylock pick out? A particular peak or set of peaks? What are its boundaries? And so on.

例如，在命名与必然性方面，Kripke 认为专有名称和自然类名词的含义来自于命名如何运作的“历史链图”，基本上就是一个最初的“洗礼”将一个术语附加到一个指称物上，而这个指称物在历史上是传给后来的发言者的。但是有几个反对这种模式的论点，包括提及名称有 10 个倾向性(例如，马达加斯加岛的名称来自于欧洲制图师对提及非洲大陆上的摩加迪沙的混淆)。更重要的是，明显的提及往往是不确定的。例如，Mount Greylock 的确切边界模糊不清，历史上也存在争议。因此，如果专有名称是纯粹的指称，而没有描述性的内容，那么似乎很难确定这个术语所指的是哪一部分。⁶³ 我前面提到的模糊类型指出了一个问题：Mount Greylock 选择了物质世界的哪一部分？一个特定的山峰还是一组山峰？它的边界是什么？等等。

Returning to the minimal metaontology above can help us make progress on the issue. It implies that mental--representations do not carve up the world so much as trace property--clusters and learn to recognize their re-occurrence.⁶⁴ Neither words nor concepts categorize or subdivide the

回到上面的最小元论可以帮助我们在这个问题上取得进展。这意味着，心理表征不会分割世界，而是追踪属性集群，并学会识别它们的重复出现

world as much as they tend to track certain aspects of it. Most human and other animal behavior does not necessitate adjudicating vague edges and borderline cases. We tend to target peaks of mountains or cores of clusters and even then, we probably do so at least slightly differently. For most purposes, even when I am going for a hike, the exact boundary of Mount Greylock does not matter very much to me, and to say that I was hiking on Mount Greylock will satisfy most people with a vague and general sense of my whereabouts that day. More precisely formulated, we both track property-clusters and learn to distinguish between them when necessary. *Contra* Kripke, names do not fix references, rather they can help us coordinate attempts to trace overlapping property-clusters. Indeed, reference itself is task dependent and concepts function as intermediaries. 事实上, 引用它本身是任务依赖的, 概念起着中介的作用。

世界, 因为他们倾向于追踪它的某些方面。大多数人类和其他动物的行为并不需要判断模糊的边界和边缘案件。我们倾向于把目标对准山峰或者群集的核心, 即使是那样, 我们也可能至少做得稍有不同。对于大多数人来说, 即使我要去徒步旅行, Greylock 山的确切边界对我来说也不是很重要, 只要说我在 Greylock 山上徒步旅行, 大多数人就会对我那天的行踪有一个模糊而笼统的了解。更准确地说, 我们都跟踪财产集群, 并学会在必要的时候区分它们。Contra Kripke, 名称不会修改参考, 而是可以帮助我们协调

nate attempts to trace overlapping property-clusters-. Indeed, reference it-self is task dependent and concepts function as intermediaries.

事实上, 引用它本身是任务依赖的, 概念起着中介的作用。

Third, that said, learning a new word is generally not memorizing a definition but becoming comfortable fixing a reference. For instance, when I was teaching my daughter the meaning of the word “cat” I did so by pointing, not by defining “cat,” providing a description of cat-relevant properties, or telling her which features distinguish cats from other animals. Teaching her the meaning of “cat” therefore is done by directing her attention to a particular core of a property-cluster and assuming that she will infer from context and my ostensive behavior the things I was trying to indicate. There is no reason to think her and I have identical mental representations of cats, we know different things about cats, and we may adjudicate borderline cases differently. This model of tuition is not just true of household pets or medium size objects. Indeed, most new words enter a language without definitions (e.g., when “hip-hop” was first used to refer to a musical subculture it was done by pointing to a set of DJs and rappers, not by promoting a definition, listing essential features, or articulating a set of differences between hip-hop and neighboring musical styles).⁶⁵

第三, 也就是说, 学习一个新单词通常不是记住一个定义, 而是习惯于固定一个参考。例如, 当我教我女儿“猫”这个词的意思时, 我是通过指向, 而不是定义“猫”, 提供一个与猫相关的性质的描述, 或者告诉她哪些特征使猫区别于其他动物。因此, 教她“猫”的意义是通过引导她的

注意力到一个特定的财产集群的核心，并假设她会从上下文和我的明示行为中推断出我试图表达的东西。没有理由认为她和我对猫有相同的心理表征，我们对猫有不同的了解，我们可能会对边缘案件做出不同的裁决。这种教学模式不仅适用于家庭宠物或中等大小的物体。事实上，大多数新词都是在没有定义的情况下进入语言的(例如，当“hip-hop”第一次被用来指代一种音乐亚文化时，它是通过指向一组dj和饶舌歌手来实现的，而不是通过推广定义、列出基本特征或者阐述hip-hop和相邻音乐风格之间的一系列差异)。65

We learn most of our words in context through reference--fixing practices and without being provided with extensive specification of meaning or use. *Contra* Saussure we do not primarily acquire meanings by learning to map signs onto conceptual differences. Concepts are not ways of dividing up the world. It could almost go without saying but when our fellow primates learn how to communicate, it is not by mastering definitions but rather by coming to associate certain signs (calls, symbols, gestures) with particular references.⁶⁶ Again, these references are not to natural kinds, but to imprecise and often inconsistently demarcated property--clusters.

我们在上下文中通过固定参照物的实践来学习我们的大部分单词，而没有提供广泛的含义或用法的具体说明。*Contra* Saussure 我们不主要通过学习将符号映射到概念差异来获得意义。概念不是划分世界的方法。不言而喻，当我们的灵长类同伴学会如何交流时，并不是通过掌握定义，而是通过将某些特定的符号(叫声、符号、手势)与特定的参照物联系起来。同样，这些参照物并不是指自然种类，而是指不精确且常常不一致的属性簇。

Fourth, because we tend to track and distinguish different things, and because we tend to learn most of our words implicitly via context, rather than as a result of explicit definition, if we think of concepts in terms of mental-representations everyone has their own concepts.⁶⁷ But inasmuch

第四，因为我们倾向于跟踪和区分不同的事物，因为我们倾向于通过上下文隐含地学习我们的大部分词汇，而不是通过明确的定义，如果我们从心理表征的角度来考虑概念，每个人都有自己的概念

as we are capable of tracking overlapping property--clusters, we can coordinate or share what we are talking about. (I will return to this momentarily.) Against much of analytic semantics, reference is necessarily conceptually mediated, but meaning is not reducible to shared concepts. Rather, *utterances are used to guide inferences*. I communicate because I want you to infer something about what I am talking about and ostensive meaning is just one of the possible things I might be expecting you to infer.

因为我们有能力追踪重叠的属性集群，我们可以协调或分享我们所谈论的。(我稍后会回到这个话题与大多数分析语义学相反，引用必然是概念上的介导，但意义不能简化为共享的概念。相反，言外之意被用来指导推理。我交流是因为我希望你能推断出我在说什么，而明示意义只是我希望你能推断出来的可能性之一。

Indeed, one of the direct implications of the metaontology and account of meaning I am providing here is that reference is not something that words do in themselves, but rather reference is something that people do with words (or more precisely, as will be discussed momentarily, reference emerges from the coordinated voluntary--sign making activities of communities of sentient beings).⁶⁸ Talking about “Mount Greylock” is just one way of coordinating attention toward a particular vague property--cluster for a particular task. The boundaries evoked by “Mount Greylock” will depend on the task at hand. Mount Greylock means something different for purposes of Mountain Day festivities, establishing legal property boundaries, geological research, backpacking, etcetera. Nor is reference limited to speech. I could also signal something similar by pointing, showing you a photograph, or just leading you on a hike.

实际上，我在这里提出的元论和意义解释的一个直接含义是，指称不是词语本身所做的事情，而是指称是人们用词语所做的事情(或者更确切地说，指称出现于众生共同体协调的志愿符号制作活动中，稍后我们将讨论这一点)。68 谈论“灰锁山”只是协调注意力的一种方式，将注意力集中在某一特定任务的某一特定模糊属性集群上。由“Mount Greylock”引发的边界将取决于手头的任务。Mount Greylock 的意思与 Mountain Day 的庆祝活动、建立合法的财产界限、地质研究、徒步旅行等不同。参考文献也不仅限于演讲。我也可以发出类似的信号，比如指向你，给你看一张照片，或者只是带你去徒步旅行。

5.3 The Meanings of Meaning

5.3 意义的意义

We can build on the minimal metaontology described above by actually granting one of the defining features of the linguistic turn—namely, that the world is accessed not via unmediated experience, but semiotically or

hermeneutically. This is a crucial insight that oddly enough appears in the writings of theorists from very different backgrounds—including C.S. Peirce, Martin Heidegger, Ruth Millikan, and Jakob von Uexküll (a perhaps lesser known Baltic German biologist whose most influential writings date from the 1920s). I will discuss Peircean semiotics in more detail in the next section, but as Peirce put it, “The entire universe is perfused with signs, if it is not composed exclusively of signs.”⁶⁹ To clarify, this is not the claim that language constructs the world; rather, the core of this insight is that humans—and in the case of Millikan and Uexküll, other biological creatures—encounter the world not as raw sense experience awaiting categorization, but in terms of its functional relevance or meaning.

我们可以在上面描述的最小元论的基础上，实际上赋予语言学转向的一个定义性特征，即世界不是通过未经中介的经验，而是通过符号学或解释学的方式进入的。这是一个至关重要的见解，奇怪的是，它出现在来自不同背景的理论家的著作中，包括 c.s. 皮尔斯、马丁·海德格尔、露丝·米利肯和雅各布·冯·尤克斯库尔(雅各布·冯·尤克斯库尔是一位不太知名的波罗的海德国生物学家，他最有影响力的著作可以追溯到 20 世纪 20 年代)。我将在下一节更详细地讨论皮尔斯的符号学，但正如皮尔斯所说，“如果整个宇宙不是完全由符号组成，那么它就充满了符号。”⁶⁹ 澄清一下，这并不是说语言构建了世界；相反，这种见解的核心是，人类——以 Millikan 和 Uexküll 为例，其他生物生物——与世界的接触不是作为等待归类的原始感官体验，而是根据其功能相关性或意义。

Let me elaborate. You do not see the materialized depths of the book in front of you, nor do you see its constituent atoms. At best you see its surface, and this surface is brought to you via reflected ambient light. The quality of light varies significantly depending on illumination. The pages of the book literally reflect different hues or colors under different lighting

让我来详细说明一下。你看不到你面前这本书的物化深度，也看不到它的组成原子。你最多只能看到它的表面，而这个表面是通过反射的环境光呈现给你的。光的质量取决于照明的不同。书中的页面在不同的光线下反射出不同的色调或颜色

conditions. But your visual processing centers discard information about the illuminant in order to reconstruct a received image of the book as distinct from its background. Your mind is projecting the back of a book as a solid three-dimensional object, even if you have never turned it over in your hands. Your various sensations are being stitched together. We often do not realize this is the case because we are not conscious of our own process of perception. We just think we see a book, when in actuality a varied manifold of visual and tactile sensations are synthesized into a sense of a persistent object.⁷⁰ Even that apprehension of a persistent object is already entangled with “meaning” (discussed and defined in greater detail momentarily).

条件。但是你的视觉处理中心会丢弃有关光源的信息，以便重建接收到的图像，使其与背景区分开来。你的大脑把一本书的背面投射成一个固体的三维物体，即使你从来没有把它放在手里翻过来。你的各种感觉被缝合在一起。我们常常没有意识到这一点，因为我们没有意识到我们自己的感知过程。我们只是认为我们看到的是一本书，而实际上各种各样的视觉和触觉感觉被合成为一种持续存在的对象的感觉。即使对持续存在的对象的理解也已经和“意义”纠缠在一起了(稍后会更详细地讨论和定义)。

The differences between Heidegger’s and Uexküll’s versions of this insight are the most important for our purposes. Heidegger argued that “The lived world is present not as a thing or object, but as meaningfulness.”⁷¹ While I can force myself to see differently, when I glance at my desk I do not see a set of brown or black colored shapes; I see instead my coffee cup, “always already” imbued with “meaning.” For this reason, Heidegger came to see the experience of Being as fundamentally connected to hermeneutics or interpretation. This position contributed to Heidegger’s broader assertion that humanity has “fallen away from itself as an authentic potentiality for Being its Self, and has fallen into the world.”⁷² One common reading of Heidegger is that humans are uniquely exiled into a linguistically, or at least hermeneutically, mediated world. We do not see the fallen branch so much as we see a club with which we might beat our enemies. This exile into linguistic mediation is often taken to be the central claim of the linguistic turn. But while I would agree with Heidegger’s emphasis on the importance of hermeneutics and symbolic mediation, I argue that humans are not exceptions, and the fact that other creatures share this state with us means that it is not exile, but home after all.

对于我们的目的而言，海德格尔和 Uexküll 版本之间的差异是最重要的。海德格尔认为“有生命的世界不是作为一个事物或物体而存在，而是作为一种有意义的存在。”⁷¹ 尽管我可以强迫自己换个角度看问题，但当我瞥一眼我的桌子时，我看到的并不是一组棕色或黑色的形状，而

是我的咖啡杯，“总是已经”充满了“意义”出于这个原因，黑德格尔开始认识到存在的体验与解释学或解释学有着根本的联系。这一立场促成了海德格尔更广泛的断言，即人类已经“脱离了作为自我存在的真实潜能的自我，而落入了这个世界。”⁷²对海德格尔的一个普遍解读是，人类被独特地放逐到一个在心理学上，或者至少在诠释学上，被介导的世界中。与其说我们看到了倒下的树枝，倒不如说我们看到了一个可以打败敌人的俱乐部。这种对语言调解的放逐常常被认为是语言学转向的中心主张。尽管我同意海德格尔强调解释学和象征调解的重要性，但我认为人类并非例外，其他生物与我们共享这种状态的事实意味着它毕竟不是流亡，而是家园。

Here is where Uexküll comes in. His crucial realization was that meaning is vital to all biological organisms, not just humans. Animals do not simply respond to stimuli. Rather, they respond to the *meaning* the stimuli have for them. Animals interpret the data from their senses (e.g., identify-ing food as opposed to a mating partner) according to different “carriers of significance” (*Bedeutungsträger*), or, we might say, according to their functional relevance or meaning.⁷³ When a badger smells a particular pungent aroma, it provides the badger with the meaning (or in contemporary language, information) that a tasty earthworm is nearby. Moreover, animals do not just interpret signs, they also produce them. Deliberately or not, living beings leave a mark of themselves, create a vibration, leave a scent, that others can identify and, through interpretation, use to produce meanings.⁷⁴ In this respect, animals are situated in rich semiotic environments.

这就是 Uexküll 的用武之地。他的重要认识是，意义对所有生物有机体都是至关重要的，而不仅仅是人类。动物不会简单地对刺激做出反应。相反，它们对刺激给它们带来的意义做出反应。动物根据不同的“有意义的载体”(Bedeutungsträger)，或者我们可以说，根据它们的功能相关性或意义，从它们的感官(例如，识别食物而不是交配对象)来解释数据。⁷³当獾闻到一种特别刺鼻的气味时，它向獾提供了美味蚯蚓在附近的意义(或者用当代语言来说，信息)。此外，动物不仅仅是理解信号，它们还产生信号。不管是有意还是无意，生物都会留下自己的印记，产生震动，留下气味，让别人能够识别，并通过解释来产生意义。在这方面，动物处于丰富的符号学环境中。

While Heidegger made his argument by appeals to the human condition, Uexküll's heirs in animal etiology and neurobiology have provided a wide range of empirical evidence about the capacity of animals to interpret evidence from their senses as well as to produce signs.⁷⁵ (Moreover, subsequent research in animal behavior has demonstrated pretty conclusively, *contra* B.F. Skinner, that animals are not mindlessly responding to stimuli but that they acquire knowledge based on their experiences. They learn about and interpret the world.)⁷⁶

尽管海德格尔通过诉诸于人类的条件来阐述他的观点, 但是 Uexküll 在动物病因学和神经生物学方面的继承者们已经提供了大量的经验证明, 说明动物有能力从它们的感官解释证据以及产生迹象。⁷⁵(此外, 随后对动物行为的研究已经相当确凿地证明, 与 b.f. 斯金纳相反, 动物并不是对刺激做出无意识的反应, 而是根据它们的经验获得知识。它们学习和解释这个世界 ⁷⁶

In summary, this broader understanding of signs and meaning suggests that all animals, not only humans, interpret the world.⁷⁷ It comes to us in materialized signs.

总之, 对符号和意义的这种更广泛的理解表明, 所有的动物, 不仅仅是人类, 都能解释世界。

•

This insight, combined with the minimal ontology described above, lets us begin to specify the meaning of meaning. To get there, I'd like to articulate my departures from the semantics proposed by the British philosopher Paul Grice. Many philosophers have seen meaning purely in terms of language, but Grice helpfully distinguished between two types of mean-

这种见解, 结合上面描述的最小本体论, 让我们开始明确意义的含义。

为了达到这个目的, 我想对英国哲学家保罗·格赖斯(Paul Grice)提出的语义学的偏离进行阐述。许多哲学家纯粹从语言的角度来看待意义, 但格赖斯很好地区分了两种类型的意义

ing: "natural meaning" and "non-natural- meaning." As an example of the first, Grice gave "those spots mean measles" (what we refer to as a "symptom" later). In Grice's account, if it turns out that the person in question was not actually sick, then that sentence turns out to be false. The spots did not, in fact, mean that the person in question had measles. In contrast to this type of meaning, we might take the sentence "When Keith uttered *Don es muy inteligente*, he meant that *Don is very smart*" as an example of non-natural meaning.⁷⁸ Notice that this sentence can be true even if Don is not, in fact, very smart.⁷⁹ In the broadest of brushstrokes, Grice argued that the crucial difference between natural and non--natural meaning was that natural meaning expressed a causal law while non--natural meaning was rooted in the

speaker's intentions (combined with linguistic conventions).⁸⁰ Thus, Grice's model was what would later be called "intention-- based semantics."⁸¹

自然意义和非自然意义作为第一个例子，格赖斯给出了“这些斑点意味着麻疹”(我们后来称之为“症状汤姆”)。在格赖斯的描述中，如果这个人实际上并没有生病，那么这个句子就是错误的。事实上，这些斑点并不意味着这个人患有麻疹。与这种意义形成对比的是，我们可以把“当 Keith 说 Don es muy intelligent 时，他的意思是 Don 非常聪明”这句话作为非自然意义的一个例子。注意，即使 Don 实际上并不非常聪明，这句话也可能是正确的。在最广泛的笔触中，Grice 认为自然意义和非自然意义的关键区别在于，自然意义表达了一种因果规律，而非自然意义植根于说话者的意图(结合了语言习惯)。因此，Grice 的模型是后来被称为“基于意图的语义学”⁸¹

Grice's model is an important first step, but his account of meaning can be improved on. In the first instance, what Grice describes as "natural meaning" I would argue is the primary and foundational form of meaning (and it is a shame that Grice focused his attention primarily on the other type). Some of the evidence for its primacy is that sign interpretation is ubiquitous among animals, but various species are more or less social (e.g., adult leopards basically only meet to mate).⁸² Moreover, infants learn to observe the world before they learn to understand language. Even more basically, you have to be able to perceive sights, sounds, or tactile

格赖斯的模型是重要的第一步，但他的意义的解释可以改进。在第一种情况下，我认为格赖斯所描述的“自然意义”是意义的基本形式(格赖斯把他的注意力主要集中在其他类型上，这是一种耻辱)。一些证据表明，符号理解在动物中是普遍存在的，但是各种各样的物种或多或少都是如此(例如，成年豹基本上只是为了交配而相遇)。⁸² 此外，婴儿在学会理解语言之前就学会了观察世界。更基本的是，你必须能够感知视觉、声音或触觉

sensations before you are able to ascertain which ones are intended to be communicative. Hence, natural meaning has to be prior to “non--natural meaning” (a term I don’t much like, for reasons that will become clear).

感觉之前，你能够确定哪些是打算交流。因此，自然意义必须优先于“非自然意义”(我不太喜欢这个术语，原因很明显)。

More importantly, natural meaning and non--natural meaning are more entangled than Grice’s typology would suggest. While Grice usefully theorized about what is implied rather than explicitly stated in a given utterance, his account of implicature does not go far enough because it still identifies meaning in intention. But a significant aspect of the meaning of a sign token (or utterance) is what we normally call context. So when Keith says “*Don es muy inteligente*,” he might be asserting the meaning “Don is intelligent,” in response to someone questioning Don’s intelligence. But if he is taking a Spanish test, he might not be intending to make any particular claim about a person called “Don,” and instead might be communicating that he can accurately recite a sentence in Spanish. These are analyzable by way of implicature. But if Keith slurred his words while saying the phrase, it might also indicate that Keith is drunk—a “natural sign,” but one that might communicate the additional meaning that Keith is not presently clear-headed—a potential negative sign for Don’s intelligence or perhaps Keith’s grade.

更重要的是，自然意义和非自然意义比格赖斯的类型学所暗示的更为纠结。虽然格赖斯有效地理论了什么是隐含的，而不是明确地陈述在一个给定的话语，他的隐含的解释不够远，因为它仍然识别意图的意义。但是符号标记(或话语)意义的一个重要方面就是我们通常所说的上下文。所以当 Keith 说“*Don es muy inteligente*”的时候，他可能是在回答那些质疑 Don 智商的人时，坚持“Don 很聪明”的意思。但是，如果他正在参加西班牙语考试，他可能并不打算对一个叫“Don”的人做出任何特别的声明，相反，他可能是在传达他能准确地用西班牙语背诵一个句子的信息。这些都可以通过隐含的方式进行分析。但是，如果 Keith 在说这句话的时候说话含糊不清，这也可能表明 Keith 喝醉了——这是一种“自然的迹象”，但也可能传达出 Keith 目前头脑不清醒的另一个意思——对 Don 的智力或 Keith 的成绩来说，这是一个潜在的负面迹象。

The problem for Grice is that unintended meanings like these are a huge part of communication and how we reconstruct their intended meanings in the first place. People say things all the time that have the potential to provide insights into their thought processes, background assumptions, or moods, and which they did not intend to convey. As any serious poker player will note, we all have “tells,” or micro--expressions. One of the things that makes email so fraught is the difficulty of reconstructing the emotional cues and

context that provide the necessary background from which the narrow intentional aspect of meaning can be reconstructed.

对于格赖斯来说,问题在于像这样意想不到的意义是沟通的重要组成部分,也是我们如何首先重建它们的意义的方式。人们无时无刻不在说一些他们不想表达的事情,这些事情有可能为他们的思维过程、背景假设或情绪提供见解。正如任何一个严肃的扑克玩家都会注意到的,我们都有“表情”或微表情。电子邮件令人忧心忡忡的原因之一,是难以重建情感线索和上下文,而情感线索和上下文提供了必要的背景,从而可以重建狭隘的意图方面的意义。

Another thing that Grice's limited account overlooks is his assertion that natural signs are always related by causal laws. This has led some subsequent philosophers to think of natural signs or natural information as an "objective commodity." But as discussed in greater detail below, many signs do not reflect causal laws. Most physicians will argue spots only mean that it is likely that the patient has measles, and then only when they appear alongside other relevant symptoms.⁸³ Similarly, despite the ubiquity of the example, smoke doesn't invariably mean fire. Smoke could also mean the presence of a smoke machine, or a combustion source being extinguished; indeed, it might mean something is just hot but not burning, as many materials smoke *before* reaching ignition temperature. Further, a given sign can mean different things to different observers. Two people witnessing the same cloud might infer different information from it (say, wind direction for one and likelihood of rain for the other). Thus, as

格赖斯有限的叙述忽略了另一件事,那就是他断言自然迹象总是由因果法则联系在一起的。这使得后来的一些哲学家认为自然符号或自然信息是一种“客观商品”但正如下面更详细讨论的,许多迹象并不反映因果规律。大多数医生会认为,斑点只意味着病人可能患有麻疹,然后只有当它们与其他相关症状并存时才会出现。⁸³类似地,尽管这个例子无处不在,但烟并不总是意味着火。烟雾也可能意味着烟雾机的存在,或者燃烧源被熄灭;实际上,它可能意味着某物只是热而不燃烧,因为许多材料在达到点火温度之前就开始冒烟。此外,对于不同的观察者来说,一个特定的信号可能意味着不同的事情。两个目睹同一片云的人可能会从中推断出不同的信息(比如,一个人的风向和另一个人的降雨可能性)。因此

Ruth Millikan argues, signs tend to be correlational, and “Nothing will be a natural sign of anything else absolutely. Rather, there will be things that can serve as signs or do serve as signs for a given [individual] or species.”⁸⁴ To

begin to put Grice and the snow monkeys in dialogue, one might ask: are monkey screams merely naturally meaningful—something that they reliably do in the presence of certain kinds of things? Or is this a case of “non-natural” meaning? If a monkey makes the flying--predator sound, but there is a drone rather than a predator, did this monkey scream *mean* flying predator, or does it now mean “drone”? Our first clue is that the behavioral evidence suggests that monkeys can lie.⁸⁵ Moreover, even ani-mal species which seem incapable of intentional deception make choices about whether to produce signals or to remain uncommunicative.⁸⁶ All that is to say, animals (and perhaps other species of living organisms) pro-duce voluntary signs for individual purposes. In this regard monkey cries have what Grice would have called “intentional” meaning. This suggests that Grice’s typology is in error. It also has two further implications: on the one hand, a trained human should be able to interpret monkey cries and access this intentional meaning if they can reconstruct why the monkey was making a call and what range of sensory inputs give range to similar responses; and on the other hand, monkey cries are still meaningful for even untrained humans insofar as they mean that monkeys are nearby.⁸⁷

露丝·米利肯认为, 迹象往往是相关的, “没有什么是其他任何事情绝对的自然迹象。相反, 会有一些事物可以作为一个特定的(个体)或物种的标志或确实作为一个标志。”⁸⁴ 要开始让格赖斯和雪猴对话, 人们可能会问: 猴子的尖叫仅仅是自然意义上的吗? 在某些特定的情况下, 猴子的尖叫是可靠的吗? 或者这是一个“非自然”意义的例子? 如果一只猴子发出捕食者飞行的声音, 但是有一只雄蜂而不是捕食者, 这只猴子的尖叫是指飞行的捕食者, 还是现在的意思是“雄蜂”? 我们的第一条线索是, 行为学证据表明猴子会说谎。⁸⁵ 此外, 即使是似乎不会故意欺骗的动物物种, 也会在是否发出信号或保持沉默方面做出选择。⁸⁶ 这就是说, 动物(或许还有其他生物物种)为了个人目的而产生自愿的信号。在这方面, 猴子的叫声有 Grice 所说的“故意”意思。这表明格赖斯的类型学是错误的。它还有两个进一步的含义: 一方面, 一个受过训练的人应该能够理解猴子的哭声, 并获得这种有意的含义, 如果他们能够重建猴子为什么发出叫声, 以及什么范围的感官输入给予类似的反应范围; 另一方面, 猴子的哭声对于即使没有受过训练的人来说仍然是有意义的,

因为它们意味着猴子就在附近

Instead of a bifurcation between natural and non--natural meaning, we need to think in terms of asymmetries between meaning--making and interpretation, or sign production and sign consumption. More specifically, in the technical vocabulary of hylosemiotics, sentient beings have the capacity to interpret both *voluntary* and *involuntary* signs. (The contrast is scalar rather than binary.)⁸⁸ Here we mean to distinguish between a consciously emitted sign and an accidental sign either emitted unconsciously or produced by the non--sentient world. For instance, the smell given off by my skin, while of semiotic interest to my cat, is involuntary as it is not a sign I am normally intentionally emitting. Voluntary signs have both intentional and unintentional meaning, while involuntary signs typically have only unintentional meaning.⁸⁹

我们需要考虑的不是自然意义和非自然意义之间的分歧，而是意义制造和解释，或符号生产和符号消费之间的不对称。更具体地说，在符号学的术语集中，有知觉的生物有能力同时解释自愿和非自愿的符号。（对比是标量而不是二进制的在这里，我们的意思是区分有意识发出的符号和无意识发出的或由无意识世界产生的意外符号。例如，我的皮肤发出的气味，虽然符号感兴趣，我的猫，是无意识的，因为它不是一个迹象，我通常故意发出。自发的符号有意识的和无意识的含义，而无意识的符号通常只有无意识的含义

Although typically noted only in passing, this asymmetry fits research in animal communication. For instance, the German primatologist Julia Fischer has observed that various “studies [suggest that there is a] deep divide between sound production and sound processing in animals. Genetics strongly determine sound patterns that are susceptible to very small modifications at best. By contrast, acoustic processing is a flexible and

虽然通常只是顺便提到，这种不对称符合动物交流的研究。例如，德国灵长类动物学家茱莉亚·费希尔(Julia Fischer)观察到，各种“研究[表明]动物的声音产生和声音处理之间存在着深刻的分歧。Genetics 强烈地确定了最多可以进行非常小的修改的声音模式。相比之下，声学处理是一种灵活的

open system: almost everything can and must be learned.”⁹⁰ As I would put it, while humans and a few other animal species are capable of extensive modification of our voluntary sign production apparatuses (calls, scents, gestures, etcetera), most animal species lack this control and instead of making totally new signs, typically refunction or modify preexisting sign behaviors in response to novel stimuli.⁹¹ Put differently, many animals adapt their communicative signals to changing environments (e.g., developing warning calls for newly introduced species), but they do so by learning new responses to preexisting or subtly modified signals. For that reason, much of the shifting meaning of animal communications happens in sign interpretation, not sign production.

开放系统: 几乎所有东西都可以而且必须学习。”正如我所说, 虽然人类和其他一些动物物种能够广泛地改变我们自发的符号产生装置(叫声、气味、手势等等), 但大多数动物物种缺乏这种控制, 它们不是制造全新的符号, 而是典型地根据新的刺激重新作用或改变已经存在的符号行为。换句话说, 许多动物使它们的交流信号适应不断变化的环境(例如, 为新引入的物种发出警告信号), 但它们是通过学习对已经存在或微妙改变的信号的新反应来做到这一点的。由于这个原因, 动物交流的大部分转换意义发生在符号解释, 而不是符号产生。

So why do animals produce voluntary signs in the first place? I would argue that broadly speaking, animals typically produce voluntary signs in order to get perceivers to infer something about the animal in question or its environment.⁹² My cat meows because it wants me to infer that it is hungry and to prompt me to get it more kibble. Its meow also communicates to me that it is right next to my head, even if I didn't know it was there before. In that respect, the cat's particular utterance both carries information and communicates intention inasmuch as it is an attempt to influence my behavior.

那么, 为什么动物首先会产生自发的手势呢? 我认为, 一般来说, 动物通常会产生自发的信号, 以便让感知者推断出有关动物或其环境的一些事情。⁹² 我的喵喵叫, 因为它想让我推断出它饿了, 并促使我给它更多的食物。它的喵喵声也告诉我, 它就在我的头旁边, 即使我之前不知道它在那里。在这方面, 猫的特殊语言既传递信息又传达意图, 因为它试图影响我的行为。

I want to emphasize that voluntary sign production is the imposition on a material form of a function that makes it into a representation (e.g., soundwaves, chemical trails, written words). In this respect, voluntary signs are causally mind-dependent, but humans are not the only animals with minds. (Crucially, voluntary signs are social kinds, discussed below.)

我想强调的是, 自愿性标志的产生是对一个函数的物质形式的强加, 使其成为一种表示(例如, 声波, 化学痕迹, 文字)。在这方面, 自愿性

标志是因果的心灵依赖，但人类并不是唯一拥有一心灵心的动物。(至关重要的是，自愿性符号是一种社会类型，将在下面讨论

Differentiating between voluntary and involuntary sign helps us interpret the example of the monkey. Insofar as the monkey was engaged in voluntary communication, the intended meaning of the monkey's voluntary sign was something like "run, there is a flying predator," whether or not there was a flying predator (presuming that was the meaning the monkey was trying to communicate, even if it was either wrong or deceptive). From the vantage of a particular meaning--interpreter, though, the monkey's call carries both its voluntary meaning (as a clue to the monkey's intentions or purpose in producing the sign filtered through the sign's function as a social kind) and its involuntary meaning (which would be more or less accurate depending on how often cries of this sort reliably indicated a flying predator).

区分自愿符号和非自愿符号有助于我们理解猴子的例子。就猴子参与自愿交流而言，猴子的自愿手势的意图是“跑，有一个会飞的捕食者”，不管是否有一个会飞的捕食者(假设这就是猴钥匙试图交流的意思，即使它是错误的或欺骗性的)。然而，从一个特定的意义解释者的角度来看，猴子的叫声既包含了它的自愿意义(作为猴子的意图或目的的线索，通过这个符号的社会功能过滤出这个符号)，也包含了它的非自愿意义(这种意义或多或少是准确的，取决于这种叫声的可靠频率——指明了一个飞行的捕食者)。

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Voluntary signs are social kinds. One of the larger interventions of hylo-semiotics is building on the theory of social kinds elaborated in chapter 4.

自愿的迹象是社会性的。人文符号学的一个较大的干预是建立在第四章阐述的社会种类理论的基础上。

As I argued, “Social kinds are 1) socially constructed, 2) dynamic clusters of powers, 3) which are demarcated by the causal processes that anchor the relevant clusters.” This describes both the kind to which a given voluntary sign (e.g., word) refers and the mechanisms that stabilize the sign itself. Again, a sign is distinct from its reference. Social kinds and their terms are like wheels within wheels. To explain, we might ask what powers (or properties) the English word “house” has as distinct from the social kind to which it typically refers. “House” is spelled in a particular way. English speakers have to be able to distinguish it from orthographically similar words, such as “horse.” It has a characteristic pronunciation (with regional variation). It typically functions as a noun in the grammatical system of the English language. These are not properties of houses as social kinds—houses aren’t spelled in a particular way; the term “house” is. The processes that anchor shared property-clusters in house construction are independent from the processes that anchor the spelling and pronunciation of the word “house” (e.g., similar methods and material constraints have affected house building in contemporary Germany and France despite different words for houses). The social kinds model would draw our attention to all the various anchoring processes that work to standardize spelling, pronunciation, and so on. It would also remind us that negotiation and asymmetries between powers (and differing capacities to recruit anchoring processes) are part and parcel of determining a sign’s properties. And it would encourage us to track the sign’s changing history and regional variation. Voluntary signs are necessarily dynamic and relational rather than fixed and comparatively stable. It could almost go without saying, but as social kinds, voluntary sign meaning is at least partially a product of negotiation and asymmetries of power.

正如我所论证的, “社会类型 1) 是社会构建的, 2) 是动态的权力集群, 3) 是由锚定相关集群的因果过程划分的。”这既描述了一个给定的一元符号(例如, 单词)所指的那种类型, 也描述了稳定符号本身的机制。同样, 一个符号与它的引用是不同的。社会类型和它们的术语就像是车轮中的车轮。为了解释, 我们可以问英语单词“房子”有什么权力(或属性)不同于它通常所指的社会类型。“House”的拼写方式很特殊。说英语的人必须能够区分它和拼写相似的单词, 比如“horse”它有一个独特的发音(地区差异)。在英语语法系统中, 它通常作为名词发挥作用。这些都不是社会类型的房子的属性——房子没有特定的拼写方式; 术语“房子”是。在房屋建造中固定共有财产的过程与固定“房屋”一词的拼写和发音的过程是独立的(例如, 类似的方法和材料限制影响了当代德国和法国的房屋建造, 尽管房屋的词汇不同)。社会类型的模式将提请我们注意所有各种锚定过程, 工作标准化拼写, 发音, 等等。它还将提醒我们, 谈判和权力之间的不对称(以及招募锚定程序的不同能力)是决定一个标

志的适当联系的一部分。它也会鼓励我们跟踪标志的变化历史和地区差异。自愿性标志必须是动态的和相关的，而不是固定的和相对稳定的。它几乎不言而喻，但作为社会类型，自愿手势意义至少部分是协商和权力不对称的产物。

Thinking of voluntary signs as social kinds also reminds us that the question of whether a given token of the sign is the same or different is to some extent task--dependent. For instance, house, HOUSE, and *house* could count as three different tokens of the English word “House,” or as two or three different signs, depending on my purpose and which features of the social kind I am tracking.

将志愿符号视为社会类型也提醒我们，志愿符号的特定表征是相同还是不同的问题在某种程度上取决于任务。例如，HOUSE、HOUSE 和 HOUSE 可以作为英语单词“HOUSE”的三个不同的符号，或者作为两个或三个不同的符号，这取决于我的目的以及我所追踪的社会类型的特征。

Putting Deirdre Wilson and Dan Sperber’s “relevance theory” into the vocabulary of hylosemiotics, I would suggest that voluntary signs do not encode meaning so much as provide clues to a sign--producer’s mean-ing.⁹³ Recast, voluntary signs are “ostensive signals” that function to attract a perceiver’s attention and focus it on a particular meaning. The word “house” can be used to refer to specific houses, to pick them out from the background of the world. But reference use is necessarily weakly anchored, as natural languages tend to be very flexible. So I can see a friend arrive at a pub and say, “Zot Quixote is in the house!” and my friends

把 Deirdre Wilson 和 Dan Sperber 的“关联理论”放到符号学的词汇中，我认为自愿符号并不是对意义进行编码，而是为符号制造者的意义提供线索。⁹³ 重铸，自愿符号是“明示信号”，起到吸引感知者注意力并将其集中在特定意义上的作用。“房子”这个词可以用来指代特定的房子，从世界的背景中挑出它们。但是，由于自然语言往往是非常灵活的，所以参考文献的使用必然是非常软弱无力的。所以我可以看到一个朋友来到一家酒吧，然后说：“Zot Quixote 就在屋子里!”和我的朋友们

can recognize that with “house” I am not suggesting that Zot lives in the pub or that the pub is a house, but rather enthusiastically greeting him. Even when used non-euphemistically, “house” takes the conjunction of other indexicals (that house/this house), possessives (my house), or *ges-tures* to complete the sign and do the work of establishing meaning.

我不是说佐特住在酒吧里，或者酒吧就是一座房子，而是热情地向他打招呼。即使非委婉地使用，“house”也可以与其他索引词(that house/this house)、所有格词(my house)或者 *ges-tures* 连用，以完成符号和确定意义的工作。



Classical philosophers of language have often taken as their model of meaning declarative truth--conditional sentences (e.g., “Socrates is a man”). But if snow--monkey calls are taken as a point of departure for an account of intentional meaning, then it encourages us to see different features of language as paradigmatic (arguably, it encourages us to focus on the pragmatic rather than the semantic features of language). This has several concrete implications.

古典语言哲学家经常把陈述性真理条件句作为他们的意义模型(例如，“苏格拉底是一个人”)。但是，如果把雪猴的叫声看作是意向意义的出发点，那么它就鼓励我们把语言的不同特征看作是范式化的(可以说，它鼓励我们关注语言的语用特征，而不是语义特征)。这有几个具体的含义。

First, voluntary signs, as the snow-monkey example illustrates, are better analyzed in terms of their purpose, function, or “intention” than in terms of binary truth conditions. Restated, when analyzing animal calls, we are dealing not precisely with truth, but with some form of success. The monkey successfully communicated “flying predator!” insofar as it caused other monkeys to run, which presumably was what the monkey emitting the cry was intending to do, but it was inaccurate in its description because the drone was not a flying predator or a threat. It was both a successful example of communication and an inaccurate one. Many human natural language sentences aren’t strictly speaking true or false either. For instance, the sentence “It is raining” is neither true nor false on its own. It requires a context (place/time) in order to be interpreted. Even then, whether it is raining or not can be vague. Are a few drops sufficient to say that it is raining? What if they are infrequent? How many droplets make it count as raining? What if we subtract a droplet? What is the maximum delay between droplets to qualify as rain? Thus, a given utterance is better analyzed in terms of the pragmatic purpose behind the communication (which, of course, is typically related to a state of affairs in the world).

首先，正如雪猴的例子所说明的那样，自愿符号在目的、功能或“意图”方面比在二元真理条件方面得到更好的分析。重申一下，当我们分析动物的叫声时，我们处理的不是真理，而是某种形式的成功。猴子成功地沟通了“会飞的捕食者！”只要它能引起其他猴子逃跑，这大概就是那只发出叫声的猴子想要做的，但它的描述是不准确的，因为无人机不是会飞的捕食者，也不是威胁。它既是一个成功的交流例子，也是一个不准确的例子。许多人类自然语言的句子严格来说也不是正确或错误的。例如，“It is raining”这句话本身既不对也不错。它需要一个上下文(地点/时间)来解释。即使这样，是否下雨也可能是模糊的。几滴水就足以说明下雨了吗？如果它们不经常出现呢？有多少水滴算是下雨？如果我们减去一滴呢？雨滴之间的最大延迟是多少？因此，从交际背后的语用目的(当然，这通常与世界上的事态有关)来分析一个特定的话语是比较好的。

Vagueness is not just fundamental to the world—it is built into language. As noted above, basic predicates like “tall” and “bald” are vague; even the word “borderline” is vague. Our reasons for speaking also have vagueness built in because our interests change over time. When I say I want “some beer,” the meaning of “some” is vague (exactly how much beer) and will likely change over the course of an evening of drinking.⁹⁴ Although not all context-sensitive terms are vague (e.g., “I”), vague terms tend also to be context sensitive (e.g., Keith is tall for an American philosopher, but short for a basketball player). Vagueness is typically all the

模糊性不仅仅是世界的基础，它也是语言的一部分。如上所述，像“tall”和“bald”这样的基本谓词是模糊的；甚至“borderline”这个词也是模糊的。我们说话的理由也是含糊不清的，因为我们的兴趣会随着时间的推移而改变。当我说我想要“一些啤酒”时，“一些”的意思是模糊的(确切地说是多少啤酒)，并且很可能会随着一个晚上的饮酒而改变。⁹⁴ 尽管并非所有上下文敏感的术语都是模糊的(例如“i”)，但是模糊的术语往往也是上下文敏感的(例如 Keith 对于一个美国哲学家来说是高个子，但对于一个篮球运动员来说是短语)。模糊性是典型的

way down, so to speak, as we don't always know ourselves exactly what we mean with a given thought or utterance. What we mean by “tasty” (or “beautiful”) will likely vary over time and can change based on introspection, new experiences, context, etc. All of this variation and vagueness might be more or less consciously available to us. All that is to say, vagueness is endemic, and much of what we think of as context is part of the meaning of a sign.

可以这么说, 因为我们并不总是确切地知道我们自己用给定的思想或话语所表达的意思。我们所说的“美味”(或“美丽”)可能会随着时间的推移而改变, 并且可以根据内省、新体验、环境等而改变。所有这些变化和模糊或多或少都是我们有意识地可以做到的。也就是说, 模糊性是地方性的, 我们认为的上下文大部分都是符号意义的一部分。

To clarify further, the theory of meaning I am outlining here is a broadly inferential one. Sentient beings use inferences to interpret our environment (see chapter 6), including both voluntary and involuntary signs. Communication is inference, not decoding. Part of the evidence for this is that two utterances of the same sentence in the same language can mean different things (e.g., “yeah, right” could mean “yes, correct” or “no way”). Miscommunication typically occurs not from misunderstanding a specific word's typical usages, but from presuming different premises or contexts. Similarly, mistranslation arises not from problems of coding equivalences (e.g., the problem is not finding the equivalent word for “right” in Korean), but from different contextual premises.

为了进一步澄清, 我在这里概述的意义理论是一个广泛的推理理论。有知觉的生物使用推理来解释我们的环境(见第六章), 包括自愿和非自愿的符号。交流是推理, 而不是解码。部分证据是, 同一语言中同一句话的两个句子可能意味着不同的事情(例如, “yeah, right”可能意味着“yes, correct”或“no way”)。错误交流通常不是因为误解了某个词的典型用法, 而是因为假设了不同的前提或上下文。同样, 误译也不是源于编码对等的问题(例如, 在韩语中找不到“right”的对等词), 而是源于不同的语境前提。

Any given utterance could produce a wide range of inferences. Some of these are things the communicator is trying to get the perceiver to infer (a.k.a. intentional meaning), and others are unintended. Moreover, figurative “loose talk” is *the norm* and not the exception.⁹⁵ For instance, we regularly say things like “Iowa is flat” or “John is a monster when he's drunk,” but we do not mean literally that Iowa completely lacks hills or that John changes shape when he drinks. So how does a sign consumer know what the intended meaning is? A lot more could be said about this, but if Wilson and Sperber are correct, “Every utterance conveys a presumption of its own optimal

relevance.”⁹⁶ The perceiver assumes that the utterance is worth communicating and relevant to shared context.

任何给定的话语都可能产生广泛的推论。其中一些是交流者试图让感知者去推断的东西(也就是有意义的意思)，另一些则是无意识的。⁹⁵ 例如，我们经常说“爱荷华州是平的”或者“约翰喝醉了是个怪物”，但是我们并不是真的说爱荷华州完全没有山，或者约翰喝酒时会变形。那么，一个标牌消费者怎么知道标牌的意思是什么呢？关于这一点还有很多可说的，但是如果 Wil-son 和 Sperber 是正确的，“每一个话语都传达了对其自身最佳关联性的推定。”感知者认为话语是值得交流的，并且与共享的语境相关。

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We can supplement our account of how reference is coordinated by returning to Richard Boyd's account of accommodation, described in chapter 4. The core of Boyd's account is his claim that the “naturalness” of a natural kind emerges from an “accommodation” between actual causal structures and the classificatory practices of a specific “disciplinary matrix.” To paraphrase, he claims that what he calls “natural kinds” emerge from a dialectical process in which specific disciplines come to modify their conceptual categories by reference to the actual causal structures of the world. Many attempts at generalizations fail, he says, or succeed only partially. But he goes on to say that “disciplines” attempt to formulate reliable inductive

我们可以通过回到理查德·博伊德在第四章中描述的关于住宿的说明来补充我们关于参考是如何协调的说明。Boyd 叙述的核心是他声称自然类型的“自然性”来自于实际因果结构和特定“学科矩阵”的分类实践之间的“调和”他声称，他所谓的“自然种类”是在一个辩证过程中产生的，在这个辩证过程中，特定学科参照世界的实际因果结构来修改其概念范畴。他说，许多概括的尝试都失败了，或者只是部分成功。但他接着说，“学科”试图形成可靠的归纳法

and explanatory practices, and in the process gradually come to either reject or refine their conceptual categories.

和解释性实践，在这个过程中逐渐地要么拒绝或完善他们的概念范畴。

I'm going to take Boyd's skeleton and hang on it a rather different flesh. I will drop the term "naturalness," as I think it is confusing, and I am in this section interested not so much in "kinds" or the taxonomic processes of scientific disciplines as in reference as such. As I argued above, conceptual categories are less about determining sharp edges around concepts than about focusing attention on particular relevant features of the environment. Accordingly, while Boyd's account of accommodation relies on a correspondence theory of truth, I am more concerned with the success of a voluntary sign in communicating its intended meaning; but as I said above, while both voluntary and involuntary signs may be "inaccurate," only a voluntary sign can be both "successful" and "inaccurate." This is because only a mind can be mistaken or intentionally deceptive (e.g., presumably a dark cloud that only looks like a rain cloud isn't doing so on the basis of having a mind). So what does Boyd's accommodation thesis look like when this work is done? As provisional shorthand, this is what I have in mind:

我要把 Boyd 的骨架，挂在一个完全不同的肉体上。我将去掉“自然性”这个术语，因为我认为它令人困惑，而且我对这一部分的兴趣与其说是“种类”或科学分支的分类过程，不如说是参考资料本身。正如我在上面所论证的，概念范畴与其说是关于确定概念的尖锐边缘，不如说是关于将注意力集中在环境的特定相关特征上。因此，虽然博伊德对调节的解释依赖于真理符应论，但我更关心自愿符号能否成功传达其预期意义；但正如我上面所说，虽然自愿符号和非自愿符号都可能是“不准确的”，但只有自愿符号才能同时是“成功的”和“不准确的”这是因为只有头脑可以被误解或故意欺骗(例如，假设一片只看起来像雨云的乌云并不是基于有头脑才这样做的)。那么，当这项工作完成后，Boyd 的调节论题是什么样子的呢？简单来说，我是这么想的：

1) Voluntary sign reference emerges dialectically from a community of signaling organisms' use of signals to navigate their environment successfully; and 2) the signs' reproduction is motivated by success, here explained in terms of its "accommodation" or accuracy in picking out the relevant features of the world.

自愿性的符号参照来自于信号生物群体使用信号成功地导航它们的环境；2)符号的复制是由成功驱动的，在这里解释为它的“调节”或准确地挑选出世界的相关特征。

By this point, we have roamed so far from the anatomy of Boyd's accommodation that it is likely to look like a different kind of monster completely. 到目前为止, 我们已经从博伊德的住宿解剖漫游到这么远, 它可能看起来像一个完全不同类型的怪物。

The fundamental question is: why is a given voluntary sign (or set of signs) being reproduced in a particular community? In other words, why do monkeys repeat specific calls? The short answer is that it is because they fulfill a function within a particular signaling community.⁹⁷ Signaling suggests a stake in the practical success—that is, success in action. What is important to Boyd is the idea that the practical success is explained in terms of the way practices are accommodated to causal structures. The practices work because the signaling is generally approximately correct. We also need to expand this to consider not just causal structures, but the rough property-clusters discussed in the preceding section. In doing this, however, we should remember that we can reference both social kinds and other property-clusters in the physical world.

根本的问题是: 为什么一个特定的自愿标志(或一组标志)在一个特定的社区被复制? 换句话说, 为什么猴子会重复特定的叫声? 简短的回答是, 这是因为它们在一个特定的信号群体中履行了一个功能。⁹⁷ 信号暗示了实际成功中的一个利害关系——也就是行动中的成功。Boyd 认为重要的是, 实际成功是根据实践适应因果结构的方式来解释的。实践之所以有效, 是因为信号通常是近似正确的。我们还需要扩展这一点, 不仅要考虑因果结构, 还要考虑前面部分讨论的粗糙的属性簇。然而, 在这样做的时候, 我们应该记住, 我们可以同时参考物理世界中的社会类型和其他属性集群。

Again, voluntary signs themselves are social kinds, so their meaning tends to drift, but signs are capable of reference insofar as they are weakly

同样, 自愿符号本身就是社会类型, 所以它们的意义往往是漂移的, 但是只要符号是弱的, 它们就能够被引用

constrained by an accommodation between signaling, their reason for being reproduced, and the relevant features of the world.

受制于信号之间的调节, 他们被复制的原因, 以及世界的相关特征。

To provide a hypothetical example: a monkey using the system of signals that includes what we could call the “flying predator” leads to success because the call is typically used in response to aerial predators and leads to behaviors that do diminish the chance of a monkey getting snatched by hawks. Furthermore, this leads to a notion in which the correctness of “flying predator” is dependent on whether there really is an aerial predator nearby. Thus, we might describe it in terms of the signal system’s accommodation to relevant features of the monkey’s environment.

举一个假设的例子: 一只猴子使用信号系统, 其中包括我们所说的“飞行捕食者”, 这会导致成功, 因为这种叫声通常是用来回应空中捕食者的, 并导致减少猴子被鹰抓住的机会的行为。此外, 这导致了一个概念, 即“飞行捕食者”的正确性取决于附近是否真的有空中捕食者。因此, 我们可以用信号系统对猴子环境相关特征的调节来描述它。

Moreover, to treat monkey calls as metaphysically compromised or *merely* social constructs because they relate to the snow monkey’s needs, desires, and discursive structures would seem to be a grand error. We also seem to be able to figure out what the monkeys have in mind (different predators), even if this discovery does not tell us what features of the predators they are tracking. Nor can we be sure whether all the monkeys in the troop treat the calls in the same way. I doubt it; even native English speakers disagree about the edges of the color blue.

此外, 因为猴子的叫声与雪猴的需求、欲望和话语结构有关, 就把它们看作是形而上学上的妥协或仅仅是社会结构, 这似乎是一个巨大的错误。我们似乎也能够弄清楚猴子的想法(不同的捕食者), 即使这个发现没有告诉我们它们正在追踪的捕食者的特征。我们也不能确定猴群中的所有猴子是否都以同样的方式对待它们的叫声。我对此表示怀疑; 即使是以英语为母语的人也不同意蓝色的边缘。

What does this mean for our theory of meaning? Terms in different languages have different typical extensions, but reference is typically rooted in *task dependent* judgments of similarity and difference (perhaps some-

这对我们的意义理论意味着什么? 不同语言中的术语有不同的典型延伸, 但是引用通常植根于对相似性和差异性的任务依赖性判断

thing like a Neo-Fregian- intension > extension and, perhaps, co-referring expressions). Insofar as we think that meaning is determined by extension, if group A at one time uses a term that has one extension, and group B at another time uses a term that has another extension, then the terms can’t mean the same thing in terms of reference, even if the word used is identical. Nevertheless, we can roughly understand things that were said by earlier

groups, and they can roughly understand us. Why? In part because the aspects of the world that we are using different languages to talk about overlap in a systematic way.⁹⁸ When early Linnaeans use “pisces,” a fish-word that encompasses fish and aquatic mammals, and contemporary English speakers use a fish-word that excludes mammals, the degree to which we can understand each other derives from an overlap in the inductively relevant features of the world that we tracked by using our various terms. Recast, both linguistic communities are getting at overlapping property--clusters and communicating inferences about them. But we can reconstruct differences in meaning (or sources of potential translation error) between linguistic communities by charting the dissimilarities of their background premises. In another historical example, some of Joseph Priestley’s references to dephlogisticated air overlap with what contemporary chemists would call oxygen, and some do not. (From Priestley’s writings on the subject, we can also infer many things about his background

比如 Neo-Fregian 的意义 > 扩展，或许还有共同指称的表达)。在我们认为意义是由外延决定的范围内，如果 a 组一次使用有一个外延的术语，而 b 组另一次使用有另一个外延的术语，那么这些术语在指称方面不能表示相同的东西，即使所用的词是相同的。然而，我们可以粗略地理解早期小组所说的东西，他们也可以粗略地理解我们。为什么？在某种程度上，这是因为我们正在用不同的语言系统地讨论世界的方方面面的重叠。早期的林奈人使用“鱼”，一个包括鱼和水生哺乳动物的鱼词，而当代的英语使用者使用一个排除哺乳动物的鱼词，我们能够相互理解的程度来自于我们使用不同的术语追踪的世界在感性上相关的特征的重叠。Recast 认为，两个语言群体都在处理重叠的属性集群，并交流关于它们的推论。但是我们可以通过绘制背景前提的不同来重建语言群体之间在意义上的差异(或潜在的翻译错误的来源)。在另一个历史例子中，约瑟夫·普里斯特里提到的脱火空气与当代化学家所说的氧气重叠，有些则不然。(从普里斯特利关于这个问题的著作中，我们也可以推断出他的许多背景

beliefs including both those that he intended to communicate and those which he did not.) *Contra* Kuhn, I would argue that to the extent that inter-secting property--clusters are being referenced, these different paradigms are in fact roughly commensurable.⁹⁹

包括那些他打算交流的和那些他没有交流的信念反对库恩,我认为,在某种程度上,相互交叉的财产集群被引用,这些不同的范式实际上是大致可比较的

This is true not just for us, but also for nonhuman animals like the snow monkeys. We can interpret (or translate) the calls of the snow monkey to the extent to which we can discover the features of the world they are tracking and the function of the signals they are producing about those aspects of the world. This highlights one of the main themes of this chapter: namely, that signs are not the sole province of humans. Rather, the distinction between human and nonhuman semiotic behavior has been overdrawn, as I have shown. This suggests a relationship between language and the world that is not the mere imposition of language on a passive nonhuman environment.

这不仅适用于我们,也适用于像雪猴这样的非人类动物。我们可以解释(或翻译)雪猴的叫声,以便我们能够发现它们所追踪的世界的特征,以及它们在这些方面产生的信号的功能。这突出了本章的一个主要主题:即,信号并不是人类的唯一领域。相反,人类和非人类符号行为之间的区别已经被夸大了,正如我所展示的那样。这表明了语言和世界之间的关系,而不仅仅是将语言强加于被动的非人类环境。

In a later section, I will get even more specific about different sign types and other semiotic processes. But before I do so, I want to show how the theory I am promoting here does the work a theory of meaning should do, as discussed earlier. In brief, I think it can account for what it means to understand a specific sentence. It can tell us what (at least in principle) translations share (overlapping property--clusters or power--clusters). It provides a vantage to interpret signs of all sorts in the next section. In sum, it tells us how meaning, communication, and translation are possible.

在后面的章节中,我将更加具体地介绍不同的符号类型和其他符号学过程。但在此之前,我想展示一下我在这里推广的理论是如何完成意义理论应该完成的工作的,就像前面讨论的那样。简而言之,我认为它可以解释理解一个特定句子的意义。它可以告诉我们(至少在原则上)翻译的共同点(重叠的属性集群或权力集群)。在下一节中,它提供了一个解释各种迹象的有利条件。总之,它告诉我们意义、交流和翻译是如何可能的。

To provide an example that will let us explain this efficiently: when someone is trying to understand the meaning of the sentence "that is a fish," part of what they are looking for is the reference. In this case, the reference

is not to a “natural kind” (as Saul Kripke and others have argued), but rather to a fuzzy--edged property--cluster. In abstract terms, the similarity between the Japanese sentence “それは魚です” and “that is a fish” will depend on the overlap between the property--clusters typically captured by “魚” versus “fish” in each language at a particular historical moment. The particular terms are themselves social kinds with their own histories, variations, implicit inferential premises, and anchoring processes. Moreover, part of the meaning of the sentence—the non--voluntary part—depends on inferences extracted from the context in which it is used. When stated in person, the pointing finger is part of the sign and is doing some of the work of identifying the “that” of the sentence, but the fish is also doing part of the work by being the thing referred to. The perceiver assumes that the communicator is typically trying to maximize relevance. The context of expression may also be meaningful to the interpreter in other ways—it may communicate an emotional state, a set of beliefs, an identification of a previously unknown species, and so on.

为了提供一个能让我们有效地解释这个问题的例子: 当有人试图理解 “that is a fish” 这句话的意思时, 他们所寻找的一部分就是参考文献。在这种情况下, 参考不是“自然类型”(如 Saul Kripke 和其他人所说), 而是一个边缘模糊的财产集群。抽象地说, 日语句子“それ魚はです”和“that is a fish”之间的相似性将取决于在特定历史时刻每种语言中通常由“魚”与“fish”所覆盖的财产类别之间的重叠。这些特定的术语本身就是社会类型, 它们有自己的故事、变化、隐含的推理前提和锚定过程。此外, 句子的部分意义——非自愿的部分——依赖于从使用它的上下文中提取的推论。当我们面对面说的时候, 指指点点的手指是符号的一部分, 并且正在做一些工作来识别句子中的“那个”, 但是鱼也在做一部分工作, 因为它是所指的东西。感知者认为交际者通常是在试图最大化相关性。表达的上下文也可能在其他方面对解释者有意义——它可以传达一种情绪状态、一套信念、对先前未知物种的认同等等。

For scholars in the human sciences, the theory of meaning here also
对于人文科学领域的学者来说, 这里的意义理论也是如此

suggests a preliminary response to a particular dilemma about interpretation. One of the things closely associated with poststructuralist (and earlier New Critical) textual criticism was the “death of the author” that rejected the claim that a text could be read in terms of authorial intent, and accordingly sometimes rejected the notion of “valid” interpretations altogether.¹⁰⁰ Barthes and company were right to observe that texts have multiple layers of possible meanings. Texts exceed what their authors intended for them. A careful reader of Barthes’s *L’Empire des signes*, for instance, will learn much more about Barthes’s Orientalism (and his exoticization of Japan) than the author necessarily meant to reveal. To understand a text, a reader typically relies on premises or information that is not explicitly conveyed in the text. The wider the range of “potential implications,” the greater what Wilson and Sperber call the “poetic effect” or breadth of possible meanings.¹⁰¹ There is plenty of room for psychoanalytic readings and unconscious meanings. We are also sometimes inspired by the way a text “speaks to us” to come to ideas that the original author could never have conceived. We often ask of a text questions that are basically normative or extrapolative (e.g., what should “the right to bear arms” mean today, or what does the *Dhammapada* mean to me personally?). There is nothing wrong with that. Reader reception often differs from what an author intended, texts can inspire in different ways, and so on.

暗示了对解释的特殊困境的初步反应。与后结构主义(以及早期的《新批判》)文本批判密切相关的事情之一是“作者之死”，它否定了文本可以从作者意图的角度来解读的说法，因此有时完全否定了“有效”解释的概念。文本超出了作者的初衷。例如，如果你仔细阅读巴特的《*l’empire des signes*》，你就会对巴特的东方主义(以及他对日本的异国情调)有更多的了解，而这并不是作者想要揭示的。为了理解一篇文章，读者通常依赖于前提或信息，而这些信息并没有在文章中明确表达出来。“潜在暗示”的范围越广，威尔逊和斯珀伯所说的“诗意效果”或可能意义的广度就越大。¹⁰¹ 精神分析和无意识意义有很大的空间。我们有时也会受到文本“对我们说话”的方式的启发，产生原作者从未想到过的想法。我们经常问一些基本的规范性或者推断性的文本问题(例如，“携带武器的权利”在今天应该意味着什么，或者 *Dhammapada* 对我个人意味着什么?)。这并没有什么错。读者的接受往往与作者的意图不同，文本可以以不同的方式激发灵感，等等。

I will also argue that we should use abductive inferences to reconstruct meaning/intention (see chapter 6), but even then discovering authorial intentions can be difficult and occasionally impossible. Authors are not necessarily consistent in their word usage.¹⁰² Sometimes authors are also intentionally ambiguous or multivalent. Multiply authored texts suggest authors can miscommunicate or have competing purposes. Meanings can be

obscure for a range of reasons. (Thinking in terms of property--clusters and anchoring processes makes it analytically clear both why there is no "objective" meaning and why there can be really bad subjective readings.) But none of this implies that any reading is equally good, nor does it mean that reconstructing authorial intent is misguided or impossible.

我还认为，我们应该使用溯因推理来重建意义/意图(见第6章)，但即便如此，发现作者的意图也是困难的，有时甚至是不可能的。作者在他们的用词方面不一定是一致的。有时作者也是故意模棱两可或多价的。多重作者的文本表明作者可能会沟通不畅或具有相互竞争的目的。意义可能因为一系列的原因而变得模糊。(从属性集群和锚定过程的角度思考，可以分析清楚为什么没有“客观”含义，以及为什么会有真正糟糕的主观解读。)但这并不意味着任何阅读都同样好，也不意味着重建作者的意图是被误导或不可能的。

Indeed, reading in terms of authorial intent continues to be the main operating procedure today, even by scholars who think they have rejected it. When scholars want to know what Barthes meant by "death of the au-thor," for instance, they look at all the different things he said about "the author," either published or unpublished, and then square the different accounts with each other or show how they changed over time. (Also, if you are tempted to disagree with me by denying that we have the capacity to discover authorial meaning, I want to note that to do so is self-refuting because it already presumes that I am an author whose intended argu-ment you have accurately understood.) Again, we have to recognize that

事实上，就作者意图而言，阅读仍然是今天的主要操作程序，即使是那些认为自己已经否定了它的学者也是如此。例如，当学者们想知道巴特所说的“作者之死”是什么意思时，他们会查看他所说的关于“作者”的所有不同的东西，不管是已发表的还是未发表的，然后将不同的说法相互对比，或者展示它们随着时间的推移是如何变化的。(另外，如果你不同意我的观点，否认我们有能力发现作者的意思，我想指出的是，这样做是自我反驳，因为它已经假定我是一个作者，其论点你已经准确地理解了。)同样，我们必须认识到这一点

language does not *encode* intent so much as provide evidence for it. That is why authorial meaning can be so maddeningly hard to reconstruct.

语言不是编码意图，而是为它提供证据。这就是为什么作者的意思如此难以重建的原因。

All told, a text is not limited to its authorial meaning (though that is one important part of it). Voluntary sign production is only one kind of meaning a text can possess and by which we can analyze it, but there are other kinds of meaning available, and even intentional signs can have un-intended meanings.

总而言之，一篇文章并不局限于它的作者意义(尽管这是其中一个重要部分)。自发性符号的产生只是一种文本可以拥有的意义，我们可以通过这种意义来分析它，但是还有其他意义可以利用，即使是有意识的符号也可以有意外的意义。

•

This is a long chapter so I'd like to summarize what we have established so far. Sign--consumers interpret both voluntary and involuntary signs. We read the world. The meaning of a sign is the inferences (or we might say information) that a sign--consumer draws from it. It necessarily appears in the context of previous background premises. Utterances (or specific sign tokens) have both voluntary and involuntary meaning. Involuntary signs tend to be correlational in different respects; they are not objective information so much as they can produce different kinds of inferences in different contexts. Voluntary signs are ostensive inferential signals intended to influence the behavior of perceivers and to attract attention and fix it on the inferences the sign producer wants to communicate. Sign--consumers both tend to focus on the parts of their environment that are most relevant to them and they tend to assume the interpretation of voluntary signs that maximizes relevance.

这是一个很长的章节，所以我想总结一下到目前为止我们已经建立了什么。Sign ——消费者可以同时理解自愿和非自愿的符号。我们阅读世界。符号的含义是符号消费者从中得到的推论(或者说信息)。它必然出现在以前的背景前提的上下文中。话语(或特定的符号符号)既有自愿的意义，也有非自愿的意义。无意识符号在不同方面往往具有相关性，它们不是客观信息，而是在不同的语境中产生不同的推理。自愿符号是一种明显的推理信号，旨在影响感知者的行为，吸引注意力，并将其固定在符号制造者想要交流的推理上。符号-消费者都倾向于关注他们环境中与他们最相关的部分，并且他们倾向于假设对自愿性符号的解释，以最大限度地发挥相关性。

Voluntary signs are social kinds, which vary and change over time depending on anchoring processes. Part of reconstructing the meaning of a

voluntary sign involves reconstructing the intentions behind its production and reproduction. One of the main things that voluntary signs are used for is reference. Put differently, reference is just one part of intention we might want to figure out. But reference is typically directed toward social kinds or loose property clusters, not clearly demarcated natural kinds. At best reference is overlapping not identical. Co-referring expressions have different anchors even if the result is often the same (e.g. referring to “animals with hearts” or “animals with kidneys” will pick out the same set of animals but the references will be differently focused). Misunderstandings often come from different background premises or assumptions that are being brought to bear on the utterance in question.

自愿符号是一种社会类型，随着时间的推移而变化，这取决于锚定过程。重建自愿符号意义的一部分涉及重建其生产和再生产背后的意图。自愿符号的主要用途之一就是参考。换句话说，指称只是我们可能想要弄清楚的意图的一部分。但是，参考通常指向所谓的社会类型或松散的属性集群，而不是明确划分的自然类型。最好的参考是重叠而不是相同的。即使结果往往相同，共同指称的表达方式也有不同的锚点(例如，指称“有心脏的动物”或“有肾脏的动物”会选择同一组动物，但指称的焦点不同)。误解通常来自于不同的背景前提或假设，这些前提或假设会对有问题的话语产生影响。

Before moving on, I want to underscore (and return to later) one more implication of my semiotics—namely, that communication does not take place in some abstract linguistic horizon. A sign has to be physicalized in order to be interpreted. Signs must become sound waves, scent trails, printed letters, and so on before they can be meaningful. *Meaning is of*

在继续之前，我想强调(并在稍后回到)我的符号学的另一个含义——即，交流不发生在某个抽象的语言视野中。一个符号必须被物理化才能被解释。符号必须变成声波、气味痕迹、打印出来的字母等等，才能变得有意义。意义是

the world, not separate from it. This should not be a surprise, it should be rather obvious, but it has tended to be lost in philosophies of language that are exclusively focused on the arbitrariness of signs or the limitations of words. A later section explores this in greater detail, but here a brief di-gression is in order. Presenting this material in draft form, I have noticed that some scholars get caught up in the idea that translation is impossible. This is important, because if it is, then much of what we do in the human sciences would have to be ruled out as unfeasible. So I want to counter that argument briefly below. (If you already grant the possibility of trans-lation, you are welcome to skip ahead to section 5.5.)

世界，而不是与之分离。这不应该令人惊讶，应该是相当明显的，但它往往迷失在语言哲学，专注于符号的任意性或词汇的局限性。后面的章节会更详细地探讨这个问题，但是这里有一个简短的分歧。以草稿的形式呈现这些材料，我注意到一些学者陷入了翻译是不可能的想法。这很重要，因为如果是这样的话，那么我们在人文科学领域所做的大部分工作就不得不被排除在不可行的范围之外。所以我想在下面简要地反驳一下这个观点。(如果你已经同意了翻译的可能性，欢迎你跳到第 5.5 节

5.4 The Lion's Roar: A Brief Excursion on the Possibilities of Translation

5.4 《狮吼》：翻译可能性简论

If a lion could talk, we could not understand him.
如果狮子会说话，我们就不能理解它。

Ludwig Wittgenstein, *Philosophische Untersuchungen*
(translated by G.E.M. Anscombe)
路德维希·维特根斯坦，哲学研究

In a sense, nothing is untranslatable; but in another sense, everything is untranslatable; translation is another name for the impossible.

从某种意义上说，没有什么是不可译的；但从另一种意义上说，一切都是不可译的；翻译是不可能的另一个名称。

Jacques Derrida, *Le Monolinguisme de l'autre*
(translated by Patrick Mensah)
雅克·德里达，《他者的单一语言》(帕特里
克·门萨翻译)

To declare its impossibility is not an argument against the possible splendor of the translator's task.

宣称它是不可能的，并不是反对译者的工作可能是辉煌的。

José Ortega y Gasset, *La Miseria y el esplendor de la traducción*
(translated by Elizabeth Miller)
何塞·奥特嘉·伊·加塞特,《悲惨世界》,李·米勒译

In 2014, two dictionaries of supposedly “untranslatable” words were published in English. As measured by sales, the more popular of the two was *Lost in Translation: An Illustrated Compendium of Untranslatable Words from Around the World*, by the British author Ella Frances Sanders. Anyone picking up *Lost in Translation* hoping for some discussion of the limits of translation will instead find terminology from diverse languages translated into English and sometimes juxtaposed with small illustrations. For instance, the Tagalog *kilig* is defined as “The feeling of butterflies in your stomach usually when something romantic or cute takes places” and illustrated with a trio of butterflies.¹⁰³ While there seems to be no single-word translation of *kilig*, a single Tagalog term has nonetheless been rendered into English by producing a sentence as an equivalence. Despite the book’s title, this translation by expansion is what professional translators have long been referring to as an “additive translation.” *Kilig* does

2014年,两本被认为是“不可翻译”的词典出版了英文版。以销售量来衡量,两者中较受欢迎的一个在翻译中失去了踪影:英国作家埃拉·弗朗西斯·桑德斯的《世界各地不可翻译单词的插图汇编》。如果有人捡起《迷失在翻译中》,希望对翻译的局限性进行一些讨论,他们会发现各种语言的术语都被翻译成英语,有时还有小插图并列在一起。例如,Tagalog *kilig* 被定义为“当一些浪漫或可爱的事情发生时,你的胃里会有一种蝴蝶的感觉”,并且被三只蝴蝶照亮。¹⁰³ 虽然 *kilig* 似乎没有一个单词的翻译,但是一个单独的 Tagalog 术语已经通过产生一个句子作为对等而被重新翻译成英语。尽管书名如此,这种扩展的翻译方式却是专业译者长期以来所称的“加法翻译”*Kilig* 确实如此

not seem to be an untranslatable word. Rather, Sanders seems to have breezily bypassed the issue of untranslatability and the meaning of the book's subtitle is only explained in the publisher's gloss as referring to "foreign words that have no direct translation into English." Difficult to translate is a far cry from untranslatable.

似乎不是一个不可翻译的词。相反，桑德斯似乎轻而易举地绕过了不可译性的问题，该书副标题的含义只在出版商的说明中解释为指“没有直接翻译成英语的外来词”难以翻译与不可翻译相去甚远。

The parallel *Dictionary of Untranslatables: A Philosophical Lexicon* is itself a translation of *Vocabulaire européen des philosophies: Dictionnaire des intraduisibles*, edited by the French philosopher and classicist Barbara Cassin. While Cassin's work is much longer and includes both a more extensive list of terminology and lengthier definitions, its translation strategy is roughly similar. It selects a term, often lists translations in different languages, and appends an English definition. For example, the Romanian term *Dor* is glossed "ENGLISH: melancholy, homesickness, spleen, loneliness/FRENCH: *désir, douloureux, deuil, tristesse, nostalgie*," and the entry that follows then goes on to explain the meaning of *Dor* in greater detail.¹⁰⁴ Sadly, it lacks illustrations.

平行的不可译词典：哲学词典它本身是欧洲哲学词汇的翻译：不可译词典，由法国哲学家和古典学家芭芭拉·卡辛编辑。虽然卡辛的作品更长，包括更广泛的术语列表和更长的定义，其翻译策略大致相似。它选择一个术语，经常列出不同语言的翻译，并附加一个英语定义。例如，罗马尼亚术语 *Dor* 被注释为“ENGLISH: melancholy, homesickness, spleen, loneliness/FRENCH: desire, douloureux, deuil, tristesse, nostalgia”，接下来的条目更详细地解释了 *Dor* 的含义。

Since any term designated as “untranslatable” is given (if anything) more translations into more languages, a reader might understandably regard this dictionary with suspicion. But Cassin (and her English translators) at least addresses the basic paradox of a dictionary of translated untranslatables. Cassin suggests an alternate definition of “untranslatable”:

由于任何被指定为“不可翻译”的术语都被赋予了(如果有的话)更多的翻译成更多的语言，读者可以理解地对这本词典持怀疑态度。但是卡辛(和她的英语译者)至少解决了一个基本的悖论，那就是一本关于不可翻译译本的字典。Cassin 提出了“不可翻译”的另一个定义：

untranslatables in no way implies that the terms in question, or the expressions, the syntactical or grammatical turns, are not and cannot be translated. . . . It is a sign of the way in which, from one language to another, neither the words nor the conceptual networks can simply be superimposed.¹⁰⁵

不可译绝不意味着有问题的术语，或表达，句法或语法的转折，不是也不能被翻译。这是一种标志，表明从一种语言到另一种语言，无论是词汇还是概念网络都不能简单地叠加起来

Insofar as “untranslatable” has again been redefined as merely “difficult to translate,” one might suspect that something has been lost in translation. But it is my contention that Cassin has been caught in a larger impasse common to many critiques of the impossibility of translation.

由于“不可翻译”再次被重新定义为仅仅是“难以翻译”，人们可能会怀疑在翻译中丢失了某些东西。但我的观点是，卡辛陷入了一个更大的僵局，这种僵局与许多对翻译不可能性的批评相同。

These examples might sound flippant. But they are emblematic of a widespread claim—in many sectors of the academy, translation is said to be “impossible.”¹⁰⁶ This claim matters because it is often taken to threaten ethnography, to undercut comparative religion or literature, to rule out empathy across cultures; and, in one significant reading of Thomas Kuhn, this is what renders scientific paradigms incommensurable.¹⁰⁷ But as this section’s opening examples illustrate, it is far from clear what “the impossibility of translation” actually means. This section, which is an abridged version of a much longer essay, will suggest how many accounts of the im-

这些例子听起来可能有些轻率。但它们象征着一个普遍的主张——在学院的许多部门，翻译被认为是“不可能的”这种说法之所以重要，是因为它经常被用来威胁人种学，削弱宗教比较或文学，排除跨文化的移情作用；在托马斯·库恩的一篇重要文章中，这就是为什么科学范式不可通约的原因。这一部分，是一篇长文的缩略版，将会建议有多少关于im的描述

possibility of translation run aground.¹⁰⁸ Consider it a digression, but an important one for readers who presume that translation is impossible.

翻译的可能性搁浅了。¹⁰⁸ 这是一个题外话, 但对于那些认为翻译是不可能的读者来说, 这是一个重要的题目。

The most straightforward argument against the impossibility of translation is hinted at in the untranslatable dictionaries discussed above. Here is the problem: the impossibility of translation is generally communicated by way of examples that are nothing so much as translations themselves. We could start from the obvious ironies signaled in the section epigraphs above, in which I have juxtaposed some of the most famous texts on the impossibility of translation with their respective translators. Most of the important arguments against translation have been translated into multiple languages; indeed, many Anglophone readers only ever encounter them in translation.

最直接的反对翻译不可能的论点在上面讨论的不可翻译字典中有所暗示。问题在于: 翻译的不可能性通常是通过翻译本身来传达的。我们可以从上面的墓志铭中显而易见的讽刺开始, 在那里, 我把一些最著名的文本放在一起, 说它们不可能与各自的译者进行翻译。大多数反对翻译的重要论据已经被翻译成多种语言; 事实上, 许多英语读者只在翻译中遇到过这些论据。

Not only have all of Jacques Derrida's writings on the impossibility of translation been repeatedly translated; his very justifications for translation's impossibility are themselves translations. The examples Derrida uses to explain untranslatability—such as the Greek word *pharmakon* or the phrases “he war” in James Joyce's *Finnegans Wake* or “mercy seasons justice” from *The Merchant of Venice*—he provides only to translate the supposedly untranslatable aspects of their meaning.¹⁰⁹ Similarly, when Benjamin Whorf wanted to argue that Hopi ideas were impossible to translate into the conceptual apparatus of English, he did so by translating Hopi sentences into English. Again, Whorf was translating the very thing he claimed was impossible to translate.¹¹⁰ These thinkers are far from alone; as the philosopher Donald Davidson observed, this contradiction is rife throughout arguments for the impossibility or incommensurability of translation.¹¹¹ Every attempt to explain an untranslatable word is itself a translation of that word.

德里达所有关于翻译不可能性的著作不仅被反复翻译, 而且他对翻译不可能性的正当理由本身就是翻译。德里达用来解释不可译性的例子——例如希腊词 *pharmakon* 或詹姆斯·乔伊斯(James Joyce)的《芬尼根守灵》(*Finnegans Wake*)中的短语“he war”, 或《威尼斯商人》(*The Merchant of Venice*)中的“mercy seasons justice”——他只提供了意思中据

称不可译的部分的翻译。这些思想家并不孤单，正如哲学家唐纳德·戴维森所观察到的那样，这种矛盾在翻译的不可能性或不可通约性的争论中无处不在。

Here is the heart of the paradox: to give a specific example of untranslatability requires being able to communicate to readers what has been lost in translation; but if you can communicate to readers what has been lost in translation, then the language in question is not in fact untranslatable. One cannot make a clear case for the impossibility of translation without undercutting one's own case. Most of the works arguing for the impossibility of translation are full of translations, and the more evidence they provide, the more it weakens their argument.

这就是悖论的核心：举一个不可翻译能力的具体例子，需要能够向读者传达在翻译中丢失的东西；但如果你能向读者传达在翻译中丢失的东西，那么这种语言实际上并不是不可翻译的。一个人如果不削弱自己的理由，就无法清楚地说明翻译的不可能性。大多数认为翻译不可能的著作都充满了翻译，他们提供的证据越多，他们的论点就越弱。

Space prohibits a full exploration of Derrida's many discussions of translation, which generally exhibit this contradiction. But in "*Qu'est-ce qu'une traduction 'relevante'?*" (1998), however, Derrida tellingly observes:

《太空》禁止对德里达关于翻译的许多讨论进行全面的探讨，而这些讨论通常表现出这种矛盾。但是在“*qu'est-ce qu'une traduction 'relevante'?*”(1998)，然而，德里达生动地观察到：

If you give someone who is competent an entire book, filled with translators' notes, in order to explain everything that a phrase of two or three
如果你给一个有能力的人一整本书，里面都是翻译者的笔记，为了解释每一件事，就用两三个短语

words can mean in its particular form (for example, the *he war* from *Finnegans Wake*) . . . there is really no reason, in principle, for him to fail to render—without any remainder—the intentions, meaning, denotations, connotations and semantic overdeterminations, the formal effects of what is called the original.¹¹²

词语可以以特定的形式表示(例如, 来自 *Finnegans Wake* 的 *he war*)。原则上, 他没有任何理由不能——不留任何余地——表达原文的意图、意义、外延、内涵和语义上的过度决定, 即所谓的原文的形式效果

This pushes against the impossibility of translation, but I think Derrida is right that translation is a question of economy. If you are willing to devote sufficient time and energy to it, anything can be translated.

这推翻了翻译的不可能性, 但我认为德里达是对的, 翻译是一个经济问题。如果你愿意投入足够的时间和精力在翻译上, 任何东西都可以被翻译。

This evokes one of the most common misunderstandings non-- translators have about the enterprise of translation—namely, the assumption that translation is the production of one--to--one lexical equivalence. As noted above, claims that a word is untranslatable often amount to the observation that there is not a *single* equivalent term in another language. But this lack of word-to---word correspondence is trivially true. For instance, in French there is a single word *borgne* meaning “one--eyed,” but no one would seriously argue that *borgne* is untranslatable. Translation often involves more or fewer words in the source or target language.¹¹³

这引起了非译者对翻译事业最常见的误解之一, 即认为翻译是一对一词汇对等的产物。如上所述, 声称一个词是不可翻译的, 往往等于观察到在另一种语言中没有一个单一的对等词。但是, 这种缺乏字对字对应的现象是微不足道的。例如, 在法语中有一个单词 *borgne* 的意思是“独眼”, 但是没有人会认真地争论 *borgne* 是不可译的。翻译通常涉及到源语或目标语中或多或少的单词

In the quotation above, Derrida is referring to a well--known (if inelegant) approach to translation by way of amplification. Particularly complex ideas may take a significant amount of text to explain and translate. For instance, one could easily dedicate a whole book to explaining the Japanese term *wabi-sabi* 侘寂, but that book would amount to a very long amplifying translation.

在上面的引文中, 德里达指的是一种众所周知的(如果不一致的话)通过放大的方式进行翻译的方法。特别复杂的想法可能需要大量的文本来解释和翻译。例如, 一个人可以很容易地用一整本书来解释日本术语 *wabi-sabi* 侘寂, 但这本书相当于一个非常长的放大翻译。

What does it mean for translation and meaning as such?

它对于翻译和意义本身意味着什么?

Languages do focus attention on different features of the world (e.g., different color terms, as discussed above). Part of what makes the search for equivalences so hard is that not only are words social kinds, but they often also refer to social kinds, which are typically exceptionally varied both cross-culturally and temporally. Every metalanguage is also an object language (and grues are endemic).¹¹⁴ Furthermore, whether different languages or periods have the “same” or “different” social kinds is both task dependent and a question of whether they share relevant power-clusters and anchoring processes. But whether a translator bothers to highlight these differences is going to depend on how much is resting on this same-ness and the purposes for which the translation is being produced. We have to be careful not to assume that our particular language’s linguistic terms correspond in a robust way to the structure of the world. This does not mean that we are trapped in “prison houses” of language. If we see the world partially filtered through categories influenced by language and culture, then it should be possible for poets, philosophers, and scientists to let us to see the world in new ways by promoting new concepts and terms.

语言确实把注意力集中在世界的不同特征上(例如, 不同的颜色术语, 如上所述)。寻找对等词之所以如此困难, 部分原因在于, 词语不仅是社会类型, 而且它们通常也指社会类型, 这些社会类型在跨文化和时间上都有着特殊的差异。¹¹⁴ 此外, 不同的语言或时期是否具有“相同”或“不同”的社会类型既取决于任务, 也取决于它们是否共享相关的权力集群和锚定过程。但是, 译者是否愿意强调这些差异, 将取决于译文在多大程度上是基于同一性以及译文产生的目的。我们必须小心谨慎, 不要假设我们特定语言的语言术语与世界的结构以一种强有力的方式对应。这并不意味着我们被困在语言的“监狱”里。如果我们通过受语言和文化影响的分类来看待世界, 那么诗人、哲学家和科学家就有可能通过推广新的概念和术语, 让我们以新的方式来看待世界。

And indeed, this might seem to be one of the functions of translation it-self—not just to expand any given language, but to expand the world that is there to be perceived.¹¹⁵

事实上, 这似乎是翻译本身的功能之一——不仅仅是扩展任何特定的语言, 而是扩展可以感知的世界

Translation is interpretation. That does not mean that it is fully subjective. Rather, it means that translation requires not just knowledge of words, but also knowledge of context, cultural norms, and so on. Translating some particularly rich concepts might require whole books' worth of effort. Similarly, as Kwame Anthony Appiah has observed, to translate meaning fully, such as an Akan proverb into English, often requires a "thick translation" that with annotations and glosses seeks to locate the proverb in its cultural context.¹¹⁶ My hope is that a greater awareness of particular social kinds and their histories will come to inform how things are translated (both encouraging us to be more careful in translating and also presuming more difference in social kinds between periods, cultures, etcetera). Again, these suggest certain translation strategies, not translation's impossibility. As noted above, miscommunication typically originates not in a problem of decoding, but from different shared premises or changing contexts. So Wittgenstein would be right that to formulate a good translation often requires knowledge beyond the language itself.

翻译就是解释。这并不意味着它是完全主观的。相反, 它意味着翻译不仅需要词汇知识, 还需要语境知识、文化规范等等。翻译一些特别丰富的概念可能需要整本书的努力。同样, 正如奎迈·安东尼·阿皮亚所观察到的那样, 要想把意思完全翻译出来, 比如把一句阿肯谚语翻译成英语, 通常需要“厚译”, 通过注释和注释来寻找谚语在其文化背景中的位置。我希望人们能更多地意识到特定的社会类型及其历史, 从而了解事物是如何被翻译的(这既鼓励我们在翻译时更加谨慎, 也假定不同时期、不同文化之间的社会类型有更大的差异, 等等)。同样, 这些都暗示了某些翻译策略, 而不是翻译的不可能性。如上所述, 误解通常不是源于解码问题, 而是源于不同的共享前提或不断变化的上下文。所以维特根斯坦是正确的, 构建一个好的翻译往往需要超越语言本身的知识。

Instead of demonstrating the impossibility of translation, many critiques of translation really imply that translation is difficult and that there are often multiple good ways of translating something. This is because both source and target languages are regularly changing. Not to keep repeating myself, but social kinds tend to be heterogenous both geographically and temporally. Connotation is also highly varied both within a language and between

languages. Even speakers of the same language from the same cultural background often do not precisely share meanings around gray areas and category hierarchies. We often have different associations with particular words or phrases. All this means that linguistic terms are social kinds (as I argued in chapter 4).

许多对翻译的批评并没有证明翻译是不可能的,而是真的暗示翻译是困难的,而且往往有多种好的翻译方法。这是因为源语言和目标语言都在不断变化。我不想重复自己的话,但是社交类型在地理上和时间上都是不同的。内涵在语言内部和语言之间也是高度不同的。即使是来自相同文化背景的同一种语言的使用者,在灰色地带和分类层次上也常常不能准确地分享意义。我们经常对特定的单词或短语有不同的联想。所有这些意味着语言学术语是社会性的(正如我在第四章中所论述的)。

Communication is both vague and fallible. We often have unacknowledged differences in our background assumptions. But while miscommunications are always possible, language mostly gets the job done. If we follow Jakobson and include intralingual translation or rewording as a core example of translation (e.g., an intralingual translation of “bachelor” within English might be “an unmarried man”), then translation itself is less an obstacle than it is central to the metalinguistic signal-checking that facilitates communication. At the least, translation is not any more impossible than communication in general.

交流既模糊又容易出错。在我们的背景假设中,我们经常会有不为人知的边缘差异。但是,虽然误解总是可能的,语言大多能完成工作。如果我们遵循雅各布森的观点,把语内翻译或重新措辞作为翻译的核心例子(例如,英语中“bachelor”的语内翻译可能是“一个未婚男人”),那么翻译本身对于促进交流的元语言信号检查来说就不是一个障碍,而是一个核心。至少,翻译并不比一般的交流更不可能。



By and large the philosophers I have consulted considered human language to be the paradigmatic form of communication. The lion speaks, in the quote from Wittgenstein above, rather than baring its teeth. But one implication of hylosemiotics is that we can reconceptualize translation in semiotic terms. If we think of translation as the transposition of one sign into another, then translation is ubiquitous and frequently ekphrastic. It is often the translation or the transposition of a sign from one medium into another (most conventionally, think of “translating” a novel into a film). Looked at this way, we can see ekphrastic translation everywhere. This is often how we attempt to get around linguistic limitations. It is hard to describe Rodin’s famous “The Thinker” in words alone. A photo-graph can do a better job—and a photo of a sculpture is a form of translation. Moreover, if someone has never tasted one, it can be extremely hard to communicate verbally what a pineapple tastes like. But the pine-apple’s taste can be “translated” by mixing together another set of flavors that approximate its flavor. The synthetic food industry in America provides plenty of examples of attempts to translate or approximate the flavor of some natural ingredient in terms of other flavors. Look at this way, ekphrastic translations are widespread.

总的来说，我咨询过的哲学家认为人类语言是交流的典型形式。上面引用 Wittgenstein 的话，狮子说话，而不是露出它的牙齿。但是符号学的一个含义是，我们可以用符号学的术语重新概念化翻译。如果我们认为翻译是把一个符号转换成另一个符号，那么翻译是无处不在的，而且经常是单词性的。它通常是将一个符号从一种媒介翻译成另一种媒介（最常见的是将一部小说“翻译”成电影）。通过这种方式，我们可以在任何地方看到词汇翻译。这通常是我们试图绕过语言限制的方法。罗丹著名的《思想者》很难单独用语言来描述。一张照片可以做得更好，而一张雕塑的照片就是一种翻译形式。此外，如果一个人从来没有尝过菠萝的味道，那么很难用语言表达菠萝的味道。但是，菠萝苹果的味道可以通过混合另一组与其味道相近的味道来“翻译”。美国的合成食品工业提供了大量的例子，试图将一些天然成分的风味转换成其他味道或近似。从这个角度来看，词汇翻译是普遍存在的。

Before leaving the subject of translation, I want to emphasize that once both the impossibility of translation and notions of simple lexical correspondence are discarded, the question becomes not *how* translation is possible, but *why* a given translation has been produced. For this reason, I find it helpful to turn to what Lydia Liu has referred to as “translingual practices”—viz., “the process by which new words, meanings, discourses, and modes of representation arise, circulate, and acquire legitimacy within the host language due to, or in spite of, the latter’s contact/collision with the guest

language.”¹¹⁷ The enterprise of translation itself needs to be historicized and treated from a higher (might we say meta--?) perspective. Hence, we need to think of words—necessarily including those produced in translation—as social kinds that reflect the systems of power and anchoring processes that give them their meaning.

在离开翻译主题之前，我想强调的是，一旦抛弃了翻译的不可能性和简单词汇对应的概念，问题就不再是翻译如何可能，而是为什么产生了一个给定的翻译。出于这个原因，我认为转向 Lydia Liu 所说的“跨语言实践”是有帮助的，即“由于或者尽管后者与客户语言的接触/碰撞，新词、意义、话语和表达方式在母语中产生、传播和获得合法性的过程。”翻译事业本身需要历史化，需要从更高的层面(我们可以称之为元视角)。因此，我们需要将词语——必然包括翻译中产生的词语——视为反映权力系统和赋予它们意义的锚定过程的社会种类。

My main aims in this section have been modest. I have primarily been focused on shifting the burden of proof. After decades of scholars taking for granted the impossibility of translation (while often reading arguments it in translation), we have come to be rightly suspicious of the limits of translation and to emphasize the ways in which languages differ. Idealized notions of the universality of European linguistic categories and quests for natural equivalences have often run aground. Translation is frequently fraught and misunderstandings are all too common. The im-

我在这一部分的主要目的是谦虚的。我主要关注的是转移举证责任。几十年来，学者们理所当然地认为翻译是不可能的(虽然经常阅读翻译中的论点)，我们开始对翻译的局限性产生怀疑，并强调语言差异的方式。欧洲语言范畴普遍性的理想化概念和对自然对等的追求经常搁浅。翻译经常是充满忧虑的，误解也是很常见的。即时通讯

possibility of translation has thus become a dogmatic position in across many disciplines and it anchors a whole host of theorizing. But translation is not impossible and every piece of evidence marshalled for the impossibility of translation is itself a translation. So what I want to suggest here is that the limits of translation are roughly equivalent to the limits of language itself.

因此, 翻译的可能性已经成为许多学科的教条主义立场, 它锚定了一整套理论。但是翻译并不是不可能的, 每一个证明翻译不可能的证据本身就是一个翻译。因此, 我想在这里提出的是, 翻译的局限性大致等同于语言本身的局限性。

5.5 A Hylosemiotics of Sign--Aspects

5.5 符号方面的符号学

This section is an attempt to provide hylosemiotics with a theory of signs. Building on the notion of meaning above, we can now specify the functions of signs and produce a typology of distinct sign--aspects. Thus, what follows clarifies how various types of signs warrant distinct sorts of inferences or meanings.¹¹⁸

本节试图为符号学提供符号学的理论。基于上述意义的概念, 我们现在可以详细说明符号的功能, 并产生一个独特的符号方面的类型学。因此, 接下来的内容阐明了不同类型的符号如何保证不同类型的推论或意义

As referenced earlier, much of what we think of as postmodernist theory inherited a faulty semantics inspired by Saussure. Usefully, another paradigm for semiotics was developed by Charles Sanders Peirce.¹¹⁹ Peirce's work provides us with three crucial advantages over the Saussurean tradition of semiotics that help connect sign-making- to its material instantiation.

正如前面提到的, 我们所认为的大部分后现代主义理论继承了索绪尔启发的错误语义学。有用的是, 查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士发展了另一个符号学范式。皮尔士的工作为我们提供了三个关键的优势超过了索绪尔传统的符号学, 有助于连接标志制作和它的材料实例。

First, while Saussure saw the sign as composed of two parts, a signifier and a signified, Peirce observed that such a connection is only possible if it is made by an individual or process that operates as an "interpretant." Peirce's understanding of the sign is thus triadic (rather than dyadic). He argued that a sign is not just "something which stands for something," but "something which stands for something to somebody in some respect or capacity."¹²⁰ A Peircean sign is triadic because it consists in a relationship between a signifier, its signified meaning or reference, and its interpretant. It is this

crucial “to somebody” that makes the relationship between the signifier and the signified possible. In this respect, meaning does not exist on its own but is always dependent on an interpreter. In the language of Donna Haraway, meaning is always “situated.”¹²¹ But this does not mean that every sign is equally open to all interpretations; rather, Peirce argued that a sign typically has a definitive meaning within a particular interpretive frame. (Hence my distinction between voluntary and involuntary meaning above.)

首先，虽然索绪尔认为这个符号由两部分组成，一个能指和一个所指，但皮尔斯观察到，这种联系只有在由一个个体或过程作为“解释者”进行的情况下才有可能因此，皮尔斯对这个符号的理解是三元的(而不是二元的)。他认为，符号不仅仅是“代表某事的东西”，而是“在某种程度上代表某人某事的东西”Peircean 符号是三位一体的，因为它存在于一个能指、其所指意义或参照物与其解释者之间的关系中。正是这种至关重要的“对某人”使能指和所指之间的关系成为可能。在这方面，意义本身并不存在，而总是依赖于解释者。在唐娜·哈拉维的语言中，意义总是“位于”¹²¹但这并不意味着每个符号对所有解释都一样开放;相反，皮尔斯认为，一个符号通常在一个特定的解释框架内具有明确的意义。(因此，我在上文中区分了自愿意义和非自愿意义)

Second, Peirce developed his triadic model of semiotics as a rejection of the then prevalent “communication” model. In a communication model, language is best understood in terms of a sender who emits a signal (or sign) with the purpose of communicating a message to a receiver. Communication is successful if an interpreter decodes the intended meaning of the sender.¹²² The communication model makes fidelity between intended

第二，皮尔斯发展了他的符号学三元模型作为一个拒绝当时流行的“沟通”模型。在通信模式中，语言最好理解为发送者发出信号(或符号)，目的是将信息传递给接收者。沟通是成功的，如果一个解释者解码发送者的预期意义。沟通模式使预期之间的保真度

message and interpretation the primary concern, but often (as I have mentioned earlier) unintended meanings are more useful for the purposes of the one doing the interpretation. The striking of the one o'clock bell may help me navigate my way across campus or tell me that the person ringing the bell has shown up for work. Neither of these is an intended meaning, but both are nevertheless examples of semiotic processes.

信息和解释是主要的关注点，但是通常(正如我前面提到的)意想不到的意义对于解释者的目的更有用。敲响一点钟的钟声可能会帮助我在校园里找到路，或者告诉我敲钟的人来上班了。这些都不是故意的意思，但是它们都是符号学过程的例子。

Third, and most importantly, what Saussure took as the entirety of semiosis, Peirce considered one of several overlapping ways for signifier and signified to be linked.¹²³ While Saussure's focus was on linguistic meaning, Peirce had a broader notion of semiotics that included all human communicative activity, from painting to gesture; and from these inspirations he articulated an elaborate and evolving theory of different kinds of signs. Ultimately his systemization implied sixty-six classes of signs (although he never described most of them), but subsequent semioticians have generally emphasized three key sign types drawn from his early writings.¹²⁴

第三，也是最重要的，索绪尔认为符号学是整个符号学的一部分，皮尔斯认为符号学是几种重叠的方式中的一种，并将符号联系起来。索绪尔关注的是语言的意义，而皮尔斯对符号学有更广泛的理解，包括从绘画到手势的所有人类交际活动；从这些灵感中，他阐述了一个关于不同种类符号的复杂而不断发展的理论。最终，他的系统化暗示了 66 类符号(尽管他从来没有描述过其中的大部分)，但后来的半听觉主义者一般都强调了从他早期著作中得到的三种关键符号类型

The three sign types of classical Peircean semiotics are as follows: 1) *The symbol* is a sign in which the relationship between the signifier and the signified is arbitrary. Although Peirce emphasized external reference rather than concept as the source of meaning, this notion of the sign roughly parallels the standard Saussurean version. But his other two sign types are more interesting. 2) *The icon* (or what he called a "likeness") is a sign in which the signifier and the signified share "a mere community in some quality." Hence, an icon's form is non-arbitrary in relation to what it represents. Photos are typically thought to be a sign of this type. 3) *The index* is a sign in which the relationship between the signifier and the signified is "a correspondence of fact" or "thisness." Indices, for Peirce, include both what we may call ostensive reference (indicating its position in space and time) and signs that indicate a causal correlation (smoke is an indexical sign indicating the presence of fire).¹²⁵

经典皮尔斯符号学的三种符号类型如下: 1)符号是能指与所指之间任意关系的符号。虽然皮尔斯强调外部参照而不是概念作为意义的来源, 这个符号的概念大致平行的标准索绪尔版本。但是他的另外两种符号类型更有趣。2)图标(或他所谓的“相似性”)是一个符号, 在这个符号中, 能指和所指分享“某种性质上的纯粹共同体”因此, 一个图标的形式与它所代表的东西是非任意的。照片通常被认为是这种类型的标志。3)索引是一个符号, 在这个符号中, 能指和所指之间的关系是“事实的对应”或“这一点”皮尔斯的指数包括我们所说的明示参考(表明其在时间和空间上的位置)和表明因果关系的标志(烟雾是表明火灾存在的指示标志)

Although we will adapt and alter his model—including refining and suggesting new sign--aspects—Peirce’s theory of semiosis is a starting point for hylosemiotics. The inclusion of the interpretant as an essential element of semiosis indicates how meaning—even knowledge—is always situated. A sign does not indicate anything if it doesn’t enter into the experience of an interpreter. A tree that falls in a forest when no one is around may make sound waves, but those waves would be meaningless without someone (or something sentient) to interpret them.¹²⁶ In this way, the proximity of the interpretant to the sign, the method through which the sign appears, the perceptual system that makes it available, and the conditions that allow for the sign to appear against its background are all essential concerns in understanding any given example of semiosis. Post-

尽管我们将适应和改变他的模型-包括精炼和建议新的符号方面-皮尔斯的符号学理论是符号学的起点。将解释者作为符号学的基本要素包含进来, 表明了意义——甚至是知识——总是处于什么样的位置。如果一个符号没有进入解释者的体验, 那么它就没有任何意义。¹²⁶ 在这种情况下, 解释者与符号的接近程度, 符号出现的方法, 使之可用的感知系统, 以及允许符号在其背景下出现的条件, 都是理解符号的基本关注点。译注:

structuralist theory invited scholars to imagine a system of meaning apart from the conditions of its instantiation. A situated approach reminds us that the “for whom” question cannot be overlooked (even if materialized signs travel and so have the potential to be read differently in different situations).

结构主义理论邀请学者们想象一个除了实例化条件之外的意义系统。一种情景化的方法提醒我们,“为谁”这个问题不能被忽视(即使物化的符号传播,因此有可能在不同的情况下被不同的解读)。

Taken together, this gives us a much better starting point for our semi-otics. It was not that poststructuralists were ignorant of Peirce. They sometimes granted that there were icons and indexes; they were just rarely interested in them. Instead, they were mostly absorbed by the particular ways in which we are “condemned” to communicate in symbolic language. But, as I have been arguing, we are not so condemned. Not that there is a way out of hermeneutic mediation, but symbolic language is not our only interaction with the world, it is not even our only semiotic inter-action with the world, nor are we the only creatures engaged in semiotic communication—the natural world is vibrantly semiotic.

总的来说,这给了我们一个更好的出发点。这并不是因为后结构主义者不了解皮尔士。他们有时承认有图标和索引;他们只是很少对它们感兴趣。取而代之的是,他们大多被我们用象征性语言交流的特殊方式所吸引。但是,正如我一直在争论的那样,我们并没有被如此谴责。并不是说解释中介有出路,但是符号语言并不是我们与世界唯一的互动,它甚至不是我们与世界唯一的符号互动,我们也不是唯一从事符号交流的生物——自然界是充满活力的符号。

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Hylosemiotics reformulates Peirce’s basic insight in terms of “sentient beings,” which we will provisionally describe as beings capable of perceiving and thus capable of acting as interpretants of signs.¹²⁷ Historically, the European philosophical tradition has generally seen humans as the sole entities with sentience or consciousness. But recent work in philosophy, biology, and cognitive science has increasingly provided reasons we might want to think of sentience as a continuum that includes at least all biological entities and perhaps more.¹²⁸ To be clear, we do not want to say that all beings have the same kind of consciousness or degree of subjectivity.

127. 历史上,欧洲哲学传统普遍认为人类是唯一具有知觉或意识的实体。但是最近在哲学、生物学和认知科学方面的工作越来越多地为我们提供了理由,我们可能想把感觉看作是一个连续统一体,至少包括所有的生物实体,也许还有更多。

“Sentient beings” are any beings that have the capacity to respond to signs. This includes not just animals but also plants, bacteria, fungi, enzymes, and perhaps even some information--processing machines like computers. At minimum, I agree with Daniel Dennett’s assertion that it is explanatorily valuable to reconstruct the behavior of certain entities (including, in his account, software) *as if* they had minds capable of making decisions and formulating intentions.¹²⁹ In the metamodernist lingo, this means treating animals and some machines as if they were sign--processing or semiotic entities.¹³⁰ While my brother and I are actually committed to a more robust ontological claim about the diversity of sentience, readers skeptical of nonhuman or animal consciousness are welcome to take our reference to sentient beings as a practical postulate on the level of Dennett’s “intentional stance.” The following pages will show the value of including sentient beings in our discussion of semiotics.

“众生”是任何有能力对征兆作出反应的生物。这不仅包括动物，还包括植物、细菌、真菌、酶，甚至可能还包括一些信息处理机器，比如计算机。至少，我同意丹尼尔·丹尼特的主张，即重建某些实体的行为(包括他所说的软件)具有解释价值，仿佛它们拥有能够做出决定和制定意图的头脑。¹²⁹ 在元现代主义术语中，这意味着把动物和一些机器当作符号处理或符号学实体来对待。¹³⁰ 虽然我和我的兄弟实际上致力于更强有力的关于知觉多样性的本体论主张，但对非人类或动物意识持怀疑态度的读者，欢迎把我们提到有知觉的人当作丹尼特“有意识立场”层面的一个实用假设。接下来的几页将展示在我们对符号学的讨论中包含有意识生物的价值。

To underscore how hylosemiotics is different from New Materialism, 为了强调形而上学与新唯物主义的区别,

I want to make sure that you know the following. Hylosemiotics departs from the New Materialist account of agency. If all that it means for a stone to have “agency” is that it exists, then the statement is empty. Some entities have the capacity to make choices and others do not. We also do not mean semiotics as a metaphor. Not every interaction is an interpretation. To be sure, causation and meaning are related, but they are not identical. The mountain doesn’t interpret the rock if the mountain has no ability to choose how to react.

我想确保你知道以下几点。符号学背离了新唯物主义的代理理论。如果一块石头所具有的“代理”仅仅意味着它的存在，那么这个陈述就是空洞的。一些实体有能力做出选择，而另一些则没有。我们也不认为符号学是一种隐喻。并不是每个互动都是一种解释。可以肯定的是，因果关系和意义是相关的，但它们并不完全相同。如果大山没有选择如何反应的能力，那么大山就无法解释岩石。

Expanding Peirce’s typology to include sentient beings necessitates a fundamental alteration in his basic taxonomy of signs. At the outset, rather than thinking in terms of different classifications or types of signs, it is better to think in terms of “aspects of signs” insofar as a given sign may exhibit more than one aspect.¹³¹ Certain kinds of signs might even be thought of as on a continuum or gradient between different sign-aspects. That said, as a preliminary set of sign-aspects we’d like to propose, on a higher level, voluntary vs. involuntary signs, followed by: 1) *symbol*,

将皮尔斯的类型学扩展到包括有知觉的生物，需要从根本上改变他对符号的基本分类法。从一开始，与其考虑不同的分类或不同类型的符号，不如考虑“符号的各个方面”，因为一个给定的符号可能表现出不止一个方面。也就是说，作为一组初步的符号方面，我们想在更高的层次上提出，自愿与非自愿的符号，其次是：1) 符号，

2) *icon*, 3) *index* (with subtype *self-sign*), and 4) *correlation* (with *symptom* as a subtype). This section explores these different sign-aspects and shows how they are relevant to more than human communication.

图标，3) 指数(亚型自我标志)，4) 相关性(亚型症状)。本节探讨这些不同的符号方面，并显示它们如何与超过人类交流相关。

First, on a higher level (as noted repeatedly above), it is useful to make an initial distinction between *voluntary* and *involuntary* signs. This represents a scalar spectrum between signs consciously emitted by a sentient being and accidental signs either emitted unconsciously by a sentient being or produced by the non-sentient world. Panpsychists, monists, and New Materialists invested in the consciousness of matter might want to think of this as a distinction between consciously and unconsciously sent signs. Even if crystals are conscious (which I doubt), they presumably emit some sparkles by accident. The upshot is that voluntary signs can also be analyzed in terms

of intention. In this respect they are different from in-voluntary signs, but as will be argued, the reception of both voluntary and involuntary signs can be approached in Peircean terms.

首先，在更高的层面上(如上面反复提到的)，对自愿和非自愿的迹象进行初步区分是有用的。这代表了一个标量光谱之间的符号有意识地发出的有知觉的存在和偶然的符号无意识地发出的有知觉的存在或产生的非有知觉的世界。泛心理学家、一元论者和新唯物主义者投资于物质意识，他们可能想把这看作是有意识和无意识发出的信号之间的区别。即使晶体是有意识的(我对此表示怀疑)，它们大概也会偶然发出一些闪光。结果就是，自发信号也可以根据意图进行分析。在这方面，它们不同于非自愿符号，但正如我们将要讨论的那样，可以用 Peircean 的术语来接受自愿和非自愿符号。

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Symbol. Insofar as the symbol, as an arbitrarily embodied sign, is the only sign--aspect shared by both Saussurean and Peircean semiotics, it might be surprising that symbols are not the sole providence of the human world. A cat twitching its tail to communicate hostility is an example of a symbol because, as in a Saussurean sign, the connection between tail movement and emotion is purely conventional.¹³² The motion itself does not bear any direct relationship to the emotion expressed. Likewise, when acacia trees are in the process of being eaten by giraffes, they release a warning blast

符号。由于符号作为一种任意体现的符号，是索绪尔和皮尔斯符号学共有的唯一符号方面，符号不是人类世界的唯一命运，这可能令人惊讶。一只猫扭动尾巴来表达敌意就是一个象征的例子，因为就像索绪尔的符号一样，尾巴运动和情绪之间的联系纯粹是常规的。同样，当金合欢树被长颈鹿吃掉的时候，它们会发出警告信号

of ethylene gas that causes neighboring trees of the same species to push animal-specific toxins into their leaves to deter further grazing, thereby protecting the local tree population.¹³³ Ethylene gas has no specific relationship to foraging herbivores, so its connection is arbitrary. When early automated guided vehicles used red magnetic tape embedded in the floor or attached to objects as location cues, they were translating arbitrary magnetic codes into information about their current position. Japanese snow monkeys issue different alarm calls for different kinds of predators such as snakes or ravens, but the calls themselves are arbitrary and not imitative of those predators.

133 乙烯气体与食草动物没有特定的关系, 因此它们之间的联系是任意的。当早期的自动驾驶车辆使用嵌在地板上或附着在物体上的红色磁带作为定位信号时, 它们是在将任意的磁性代码转换成关于它们当前位置的信息。日本雪猴对不同种类的食肉动物如蛇或乌鸦发出不同的警报声, 但这些警报声本身是随意的, 并不是对这些食肉动物的模仿。

Icon. As noted above, many signs share a likeness with the thing they represent. To be clear, I have been arguing throughout this book that similarity is not absolute but task dependent (e.g., sorting blocks by color the red ones are more similar; sorting blocks by shape the round ones are more similar). Hence, likeness or similarity exists on a sliding scale and according to particular task or interpretive frame. But it is not mere convention.

圣像。如上所述, 许多符号与它们所代表的事物有相似之处。为了明确起见, 我在本书中一直主张相似性不是绝对的, 而是任务相关的(例如, 按颜色分类块红色的块更相似; 按形状分类块圆形的块更相似)。因此, 相似性或相似性存在于一个滑动的尺度上, 并且符合特定的任务或解释框架。但这不仅仅是惯例。

For instance, on one extreme of likeness, a forged copy of van Gogh's "Starry Night" gains its meaning by way of fidelity to the colors and textures of the original. But we could imagine this on a sliding scale leading through poster copies of "Starry Night" to parody sketches of "Starry Night." In each case, the object in question gains some of its meaning by way of specific sorts of similarity as well as specific kinds of difference. Icons suggest problems for a thoroughly arbitrary account of signs. For example, photography, even when highly conventionalized, still suggests that photographs are capable of exhibiting at least some non-arbitrary relationship to the subject they depict. Indeed, research suggests that one need not be socialized to be able to identify particular people from their photographs. Even pigeons recognize photographs of familiar human faces.¹³⁴

例如, 在一个极端的相似性, 一个伪造的梵高的“星夜”获得其意义的方式忠实于原来的颜色和纹理。但是我们可以想象一下, 从《星夜》的海报拷贝到拙劣模仿《星夜》的草图在每一种情况下, 所讨论的对象通

过特定类型的相似性以及特定类型的差异获得了它的一些含义。图标为一个完全随意的符号解释提出了问题。例如，摄影，即使高度传统，仍然表明照片能够展示至少一些非武断的关系，他们所描绘的主题。事实上，研究表明，一个人不需要社会化就能从照片中辨认出特定的人。甚至鸽子也能识别熟悉的人类面孔的照片

Iconic relationships do not have to be visual. A recorded voice bears an iconic relationship to the original utterance. Likewise, we might think of maps, anatomical diagrams, and so on as examples of dominantly iconic signs. By way of another example, think of a continuum between a three-- dimensional photographic and topographic representation of a land-landscape (say, produced by a drone) leading through increasing abstraction or stylization until it becomes a conventional road map. Again, there are aspects of convention or symbolization in maps and diagrams, but they gain much of their meaning from task dependent relations of likeness.

标志性的关系不一定是视觉上的。一个录制好的声音与原来的话语有着标志性的关系。同样地，我们可能会把地图、解剖图等等看作主要标志性符号的例子。通过另一个例子，想象一下三维摄影和地形表现之间的连续性(例如，由无人机产生的)，通过不断增加的抽象或风格化，直到它成为一个传统的路线图。同样，在地图和图表中也有惯例或者符号化的方面，但是它们的大部分意义来自于任务相似性关系。

The human world is not alone in producing icons. A chameleon changing its skin color and patterning to match that of the leaf on which it is perched is an *icon* because it has a non--arbitrary resemblance to the leaf depicted. It is also clearly communicative since chameleons change their

人类世界并不是唯一一个创造图标的世界。变色龙改变它的皮肤颜色和图案以匹配它栖息的叶子是一个图标，因为它有一个非任意的相似性描绘的叶子。由于变色龙改变了自己的生活方式，它也能清晰地传达信息

colors to respond to the visual capabilities of the predator they are worried about at a given moment. As signs go, a chameleon changing its color might be thought of as a type of lie because it is an attempt to mislead predators.¹³⁵ But the lie only works if the chameleon is capable of adopting a similarity vis--à-vis the predator's perceptual sorting process. Much of camouflage functions this way. Think of Batesian mimicry, in which an animal evolves to copy the color patterns of another toxic species, as another example of iconicity. The coloring of *Papilio polytes* butterflies is iconic insofar as they have evolved to copy the aposematic warning coloring of *Byasa alcinous* butterflies in order to deter predators.¹³⁶ Smells can also be iconic. There are orchids that are capable of emitting a fragrance that mimics a female fly's sexual scent in order to attract male flies searching for mates and trick them into coming into contact with the orchid's pollen.¹³⁷ Again, this is an example of iconic or non-arbitrary signage.

颜色来回应在他们在特定时刻所担心的捕食者的视觉能力。正如一些迹象所表明的那样，变色龙改变颜色可能被认为是一种谎言，因为它试图误导捕食者。但是，只有在变色龙能够利用捕食者感知分类过程的相似性时，这种谎言才能起作用。许多伪装都是这样起作用的。想想巴特西亚式的模仿，在这种模仿中，一种动物进化成复制另一种有毒物种的颜色模式，这是另一个象征性的例子。蝴蝶的颜色是标志性的，因为它们已经进化到能够模仿一只褐蝶的警告颜色，以便阻止捕食者。气味也可以是标志性的。有些兰花能够散发出一种香味，这种香味能够模仿雌性苍蝇的性气味，以吸引寻找配偶的雄性苍蝇，并诱使它们接触到兰花的花粉。¹³⁷ 同样，这是一个标志性或非武断的标志。

Peirce's account of index included both signs indicating location and those indicating a causal correlation or conjunction. Although location-- indicating and causally correlated signs often co-occur, there are plenty of reasons we might want to distinguish them, and this has caused subsequent confusion among later semioticians who use the term "index" for both functions. For that reason, we will parse this notion into two different sign-aspects—indexical and correlational.

Peirce 对指数的描述既包括指示位置的符号，也包括指示因果关系或关联的符号。虽然位置指示和因果关联的标志经常同时出现，但是我们可能有很多理由想要区分它们，这在后来的符号学家中引起了混乱，他们使用“索引”这个术语来描述这两种功能。出于这个原因，我们将把这个概念解析为两个不同的符号方面-索引和相关。

Indexical refers to sign-aspects that reference, point to, or indicate location in space and/or time. Already in his famous *Confessions*, Augustine proposed that early childhood language acquisition involved indexical reference, suggesting that we learn the meaning of words when adults make a sound and point to something in the world.¹³⁸ Although that model has been

criticized by some later philosophers, contemporary research in developmental psychology has emphasized the importance of pointing for early language, so perhaps Augustine was on to something.¹³⁹ Looking at all of this from the vantage of hylosemiotics, we want to emphasize that there are ways in which an act of indexical reference includes multiple sign components—the pointing gesture itself and whatever is being pointed at. If I tap your chest and say “you,” then my finger, my words, and your physical body make up the sign insofar as they are all components that need to be observed in order to recognize the sign’s meaning.¹⁴⁰

Indexical 指的是在空间和/或时间中引用、指向或指示位置的符号方面。在他著名的《忏悔录》中，奥古斯丁已经提出，儿童早期的语言习得包括索引参照，建议我们在成年人发出声音并指向世界上的某个东西时学习词汇的意义。¹³⁸ 虽然这种模式受到一些后来的哲学家的批评，但当代发展心理学的研究已经强调了指向早期语言的重要性，所以也许奥古斯丁说到了一些东西。如果我轻拍你的胸膛说“你”，那么我的手指、我的话语和你的身体就构成了这个符号，因为它们都是需要被观察到的组成部分，以便识别这个符号的意义

Other examples of indexical semiosis would include the howl of a wolf, which communicates an animal’s current location to packmates and rivals; and also the “waggle dance” of honeybees, which is used to indicate the direction and distance from the hive to a particular food source.¹⁴¹ Equally, the *beep* of a microwave that indicates that it has finished heating something is an indexical, even though we normally think of its meaning differently. Computer programming languages make use of indexing all

指示符号的其他例子还包括狼的嚎叫，它向同伴和竞争对手传达动物当前的位置；还有蜜蜂的“摇摆舞”，它用来指示从蜂巢到特定食物来源的方向和距离。¹⁴¹ 同样，微波炉发出的声音表明它已经加热完某物，这也是指示符号，尽管我们通常对它的含义有不同的理解。计算机编程语言利用所有的索引

the time.¹⁴² For example, arrays in C store data together under a particular variable name that can be retrieved by a pointer. A stop sign gets some of its meaning by suggesting the location at which one is supposed to stop.

例如, c 中的数组将数据存储在一个特定的变量名下, 这个变量名可以通过指针检索到。一个停止符号通过提示应该停止的位置来获得它的一些含义。

Self-signs (the term comes from Millikan) might be thought of as a subtype of the index. These are aspects of signs whose primary function is self-reference.¹⁴³ Self--signs function like names or identifiers. For instance, the label on a coffee mug that says “coffee mug” or the outside packaging color of a highlighter that indicates the color of the ink are also self--signs. When I introduce myself, especially if you have already heard of me, by saying “I am ‘Professor Storm,’” I am producing a self--sign; or if you humorously reenact how you knocked over my coffee mug, then you are standing in for your previous self as a self--sign. One central component of humpback whale songs seems to be signature information that identifies the individual whale.¹⁴⁴ Male great tit birds (*Parus major*) also seem to emit self-identification information as part of their tunes.¹⁴⁵

自我标志(这个术语来自 Millikan)可能被认为是索引的一个子类型。这些是符号的方面, 其主要功能自我参照。¹⁴³ 自我符号的功能如名称或标识符。例如, 咖啡杯上的标签写着“咖啡杯”, 或者荧光笔的外包装颜色表明墨水的颜色也是自我标记。当我介绍自己的时候, 特别是如果你已经听说过我的话, 说“我是‘暴风教授’”, 我是在做一个自我标记; 或者如果你幽默地重现你打翻我咖啡杯的过程, 那么你就是代替以前的自己做一个自我标记。座头鲸歌曲的一个核心成分似乎是识别独立鲸鱼的标志性信息。雄性大山雀(*Parus major*)似乎也会发出自我识别信息, 作为它们歌曲的一部分

Correlational is meant to capture the aspect of signs which suggest a non-accidental, causal correlation between the signifier and the signified.¹⁴⁶ (Here we are departing from Peirce’s conflation of both cause and reference under index.) Correlational signs have degrees of strength depending on the strength of the correlation they indicate.¹⁴⁷ By way of example, dark clouds are correlated with precipitation because clouds get denser and more opaque the more water and ice droplets they accumulate. When you see a dark cloud, it means that it might rain soon. Knowledge of the actual causal mechanism in question is not necessary for a sign to suggest a correlation, but understanding causation permits a better appraisal of signal strength. Correlational signs do not have to be future--oriented. If you step out of a café and see that the ground is covered in droplets of water, those droplets function as a correlational sign that indicates that it has probably just rained (admittedly with weak strength, however, as a storeowner may just have washed down the sidewalk).

相关性意味着捕捉那些暗示能指和符号之间非偶然的因果关系的符号的方面相关性标志的强弱程度取决于它们所表明的相关性的强弱。例如，乌云与降水有关，因为乌云越密集、越不透明，它们积聚的水和冰滴就越多。当你看到乌云时，意味着可能很快就会下雨。实际的因果机制的知识问题是没有必要的迹象提出一个相关性，但了解因果关系允许更好的评估信号的强度。相关符号不一定是面向未来的。如果你走出一家咖啡馆，看到地面上覆盖着水滴，这些水滴的作用就像一个相关的信号，表明可能刚下过雨(不可否认的是，雨量很小，因为一个店主可能刚刚冲下了人行道)。

Humans are not the only animals that track correlational signs. The odor of butyric acid is a correlational sign ticks use to detect the likely presence of a mammal—information that they use in combination with their sensitivity to temperature as part of how they decide to attach them-selves to a host.¹⁴⁸ As these examples illustrate (and as will be discussed in greater detail in the account in chapter 6 of abductive inference), such correlational signs can reinforce each other, and in that respect can be mutually strengthening.

人类并不是唯一追踪相关信号的动物。丁酸的气味是蜉蝣用来探测哺乳动物可能存在的一种相关标志——它们将这些信息与对温度的敏感性结合起来，作为它们决定如何将自己附着在宿主身上的一部分。¹⁴⁸ 正如这些例子所说明的(将在溯因推理的第6章详细讨论)，这些相关标志可以相互加强，在这方面可以相互加强。

Correlational signs are necessarily situated. Hence, their meaning emerges in relationship to their *indexical* sign--aspects. A certain kind of tracks might be correlated with the presence of gophers in one geo-graphic range, while roughly the same type of tracks might indicate

相关符号必须被定位。因此，它们的意义出现在它们的索引符号方面的关系。某种类型的足迹可能与某一地理范围内地鼠的存在有关，而大致相同类型的足迹可能表明

ground squirrels in another region.¹⁴⁹ In this respect, a correlational sign needs to be interpreted contextually in order to make sense. It will turn out that much of meaning actually includes and requires the specification of context. A friend looking out the window and saying “it’s raining” might be a correlational sign insofar as my friend mostly says it is raining only when it is in fact raining. But crucially, a particular utterance of “it is raining” takes its meaning in part from the physical context of a place and time where it is supposed to be precipitating. To reference another sign--aspect, it should be noted that even conventional symbols like the name “Athena” indicate a particular person only once the proper local context has been specified.

地松鼠在另一个地区。在这方面，一个相关的符号需要解释上下文，以便有意义。事实将证明，大部分意义实际上包含并需要语境的具体化。一个朋友看着窗外说“正在下雨”可能是一个相关的信号，因为我的朋友大多数时候只是在下雨的时候才说正在下雨。但至关重要的是，“正在下雨”这句话的含义部分来自一个地点和时间的物理背景，而这个地点和时间应该是下雨的地方。为了引用另一个符号方面，应该指出的是，即使像“雅典娜”这样的传统符号也只有在指定了适当的当地语境后才能表示某个特定的人。

The *symptom* is a subclass of correlational signs that indicate the presence of a disorder. The inclusion of the symptom is a gesture to the very beginnings of semiotics. The Greek physician Hippocrates first articulated “semeiotics” as a medical specialization focused on uncovering symptoms *sēmeion* (σημεῖον), literally “marks, signs, or tokens” that stand for something other than themselves.¹⁵⁰ For instance, a bull’s-eye rash is a symptom or correlational sign that indicates a likelihood of Lyme disease, while excessive salivation combined with abnormal aggression are signs that together correlate with the presence of rabies. Nor are biological entities the only things that exhibit symptoms. The presence of unexpected pop-up windows and slow performance of a computer are symptoms of a computer virus, while a grinding noise in a vehicle might be evidence of worn brakes.¹⁵¹

这种症状是相关性标志的一个子类，表明存在一种疾病。症状的包含是符号学最初的一个姿态。希腊内科医生希波克拉底首次将“符号学”阐述为一门医学专业，专注于揭示症状的标记(σημεῖον something v)，字面意思是“标记，符号，或代表其他事物的符号”。例如，牛眼皮疹是一种表明可能患莱姆病的症状或相关征象，而过度分泌唾液加上异常攻击性则是与狂犬病存在相关的征象。生物实体也不是唯一表现出症状的东西。出现意想不到的弹出窗口和计算机性能缓慢是计算机病毒的症状，而车辆发出的摩擦噪音可能是刹车磨损的证据

This list of sign--aspects is not meant to be exhaustive. Again I want to remind us, against the partisans of “natural information,” that a given token is only a particular sign for a particular interpretant and for a particular purpose. The same chirping cricket might cause one listener to infer external temperature (correlational sign) while another listener might merely have the idea that there are crickets about (indexical sign). Future work will also expand on the notion of sign--vehicles and trace the way that different sense faculties and media affect the transmission or interpretation of different sign--aspects. But they suggest different ways in which meaning can be inferred from the environment and provide a preliminary set of tools for hylosemiotics.

这个符号方面的列表并不是详尽无遗的。我想再次提醒我们，反对“自然信息”的拥护者，一个给定的标记只是一个特定的符号，对于一个特定的解释者和一个特定的目的。同样的蟋蟀鸣叫可能会导致一个听众传递外部温度(相关符号)，而另一个听众可能只是认为周围有蟋蟀(指数符号)。未来的工作还将扩展标志车辆的概念，并追踪不同的感官官能和媒体影响不同的标志方面的传播或解释的方式。但他们提出了从环境中推断意义的不同方式，并为符号学提供了一套初步的工具。

5.6 The Mind Turned Inside Out

5.6 思想彻底颠覆

The picture of human beings as having . . . both an “inside” and an “outside” is so commonplace, so (as it may seem to us) commonsensical, that we find it hard to realize how strikingly modern it is.

人类既有“内在”又有“外在”的形象是如此的普遍，以至于(在我们看来)我们很难意识到它是多么的现代化。

Gareth Matthews, “Consciousness and Life”

马修斯，《意识与生命》

Richard Rorty argued in *Philosophy and the Mirror of Nature* that much of the history of post--Cartesian philosophy has presumed a binary opposition between an immaterial mind and a material world, which has often been transposed onto a mind--and--body dualism. Rorty suggests that given this presumptive framework, the thinking subject is typically portrayed as a phantasmal homunculus looking outward from inside the cave of the brain toward an external world. Philosophy has hence been trapped in a particular orientation to the problem of knowledge which assumes: "To know is to represent accurately what is outside the mind; so to understand the possibility and nature of knowledge is to understand the way in which the mind is able to construct such representations."¹⁵²

罗蒂(Richard Rorty)在《哲学与自然之镜》(*Philosophy and the Mirror of Nature*)一书中提出, 后笛卡尔哲学的大部分历史都假定了非物质心灵与物质世界之间的二元对立, 这种对立常常被转换成心灵与身体的二元论。Rorty 认为, 考虑到这个假定的框架, 思考主体通常被描绘成一个从大脑洞穴向外看向外部世界的虚幻侏儒。因此, 哲学陷入了对知识问题的一种特殊定位, 这种定位假定: “知道就是准确地表现头脑之外的东西; 因此, 理解知识的可能性和本质就是理解头脑能够构建这种表现的方式。”¹⁵²

Rorty criticizes this philosophical orientation, asking: What makes us think that consciousness, thoughts, emotions, and pains all belong in the mind and not the body? Why do we think that mental events lack extension and are immaterial? For instance, why do we treat a stomach-ache as a physical bodily sensation, while imagining that dreams and beliefs are purely mental phenomena?

罗蒂批评了这种哲学取向, 他问道: 是什么让我们认为意识、思想、情感和痛苦都属于心灵而不是身体? 为什么我们认为心理事件缺乏外延而且是非物质的? 例如, 为什么我们把胃痛当作一种身体上的感觉, 而把梦想和信仰想象成纯粹的精神现象呢?

There is not space here to evaluate Rorty's arguments fully. In general, my sense is that he leaves out numerous counterexamples, and the critique is more worthwhile than the proposed alternatives. But he gets at least one important thing right: many philosophers have taken for granted an opposition between the mental and the physical, and consequently have imagined representation as a product of human minds. Not that these philosophers have historically been ignorant of the representational function of art or language; rather, they have presumed that "aboutness" requires the activity of a conscious human subject. Thus, as discussed in an earlier chapter, they have often given unwarranted weight to half-skeptical thought experiments that sow doubt about an external world without doubting their own presuppositions. Even more significantly, most poststructuralism is

basically a retooling of this dualism in a skeptical key, with language taking the place of thought.

这里没有足够的空间来评估 Rorty 的论点。总的来说，我的感觉是，他遗漏了大量的反例，这种批评比提出的替代方案更有价值。但他至少做对了一件重要的事情：许多哲学家理所当然地认为精神和肉体之间存在对立，因此他们把表象想象成人类思维的产物。这并不是说这些哲学家在历史上对艺术或语言的表象功能一无所知；相反，他们假定“关于”需要一个有意识的人类主体的活动。因此，正如在前面的章节中所讨论的，他们经常毫无根据地给予半信半疑的思想实验以不怀疑他们自己的先决条件的情况下对外部世界播下怀疑的种子。更重要的是，大多数后结构主义基本上是以怀疑的方式重新设计这种二元论，用语言代替思想。

Hylosemiotics has suggested that there is something misleading about a dualism between object and representation, or mind and external world. This section explores some of the implications of overturning this dualism in the latter formulation and inverting standard notions of a mental inside and a physical outside. In brief, we argue that subject and object, mind and body, are interdependent.

符号学认为，对于客体与表象、心灵与外部世界之间的二元论，存在着某种误导。本节探讨了在后一种表述中推翻这种二元论的一些含义，以及颠覆精神内在和物质外在的标准概念。简而言之，我们认为主体和客体，思想和身体，是相互依存的。

At first pass it is worth emphasizing that the universe—or at least the sentient constituents of it—comes to know itself through hermeneutic mediation. Put more personally, we come to know—and even become—ourselves through interacting with the world.¹⁵³ You would not be able to recognize your own face if you had never seen it mirrored in a reflec-

首先，值得强调的是，宇宙——或者至少是宇宙的有意识成分——是通过诠释学的中介来认识自己的。更加个人化地说，我们通过与这个世界的互动来认识——甚至成为——我们自己。¹⁵³ 如果你从来没有见过自己的脸反射在镜子里，你就不能认出自己的脸

tive surface or photographed. We come to self-consciousness in part by being mirrored literally or in the eyes of others.¹⁵⁴ When we clasp our own hands together we experience ourselves as both subject and object. We learn what it is like to both touch and be touched. ¹⁵⁵ Moreover, in very basic ways, we are permeable, such that with every breath and every meal we are constantly exchanging matter with our surroundings.¹⁵⁶ All of this should begin to put pressure on the commonsense bifurcation between mental inside and physical outside.

表面或照片。我们之所以有私我意识，部分原因是因为我们从字面上或从别人的眼睛里看到了自己的影子。¹⁵⁴ 当我们握紧双手时，我们体验到自己既是主体又是客体。我们知道触摸和被触摸是什么感觉。此外，在非常基本的方面，我们是可以渗透的，因此，每一次呼吸和每一顿饭，我们都在不断地与周围的环境交换物质。所有这一切应该开始对精神内在和物质外在之间的常识性分歧施加压力。

To follow this thread further, thinking relies on the physical world. Philosophers, cognitive scientists, and anthropologists working on subfields known variously as extended cognition, active externalism, cognition in the wild, a materialist epidemiology of beliefs, ecological psychology, the embodied mind, or social ontology have in their own respective idioms often converged on a set of three main insights about human thought processes that I'd like to discuss in relationship to the rest of the sentient world.

为了进一步了解这条线索，思考依赖于物质世界。哲学家、认知科学家和人类学家，他们的研究领域包括扩展认知、积极外在主义、野外认知、唯物主义信仰流行病学、生态心理学、具象思维或社会本体论，他们在各自的习语中经常会聚集在一套关于人类思维过程的三个主要见解上，我想在与其他感知世界的关系中讨论这些见解。

First, *knowledge emerges from the exploratory manipulation of the physical world*. We come into being not as disembodied consciousnesses or homunculi looking outward through a window onto existence, but as actively embodied and situated agents.¹⁵⁷ This can be illustrated with a widely repeated anecdote about artificial intelligence research. Early pro-grammers assumed that they could get a computer to model its environment by feeding it data from a video camera. But raw visual data turned out to be nearly impossible for the computer to process usefully. Vision alone was too ambiguous. A model of the world seemed to be required *before* the computer could interpret what it saw. This was known as the “problem of underdetermination.”¹⁵⁸ But humans process exception-ally complex visual data effortlessly. At first, the response to this disconnect was to assume that we come preloaded with something like a world-- model; but research from developmental psychology suggested that while infants are not completely blank slates, most of their early knowledge of the world comes from

dynamically interacting with it.¹⁵⁹ This led a group of cognitive scientists to replace the notion that learning occurs by building models abstracted from sense--data with a model of learning that presupposes a direct connection between sensing and acting. In their metaphor “the brain [functions primarily] as a controller, not as a model-- builder.”¹⁶⁰ In sum, knowledge and action are fundamentally intertwined.

首先，知识来自对物理世界的探索性操纵。我们不是作为无实体的意识或透过存在之窗向外看的侏儒而存在的，而是作为积极的有实体的和定位的代理人。¹⁵⁷ 这可以用一个广泛重复的关于人工智能研究的轶事来说明。早期的程序员认为，他们可以让计算机通过摄像机提供数据来模拟环境。但事实证明，原始的视觉数据几乎不可能被计算机有效地处理。视觉本身就太模糊了。在计算机能够解释它所看到的東西之前，似乎需要一个世界模型。这就是所谓的“不充份决定论问题”¹⁵⁸ 但是人类可以毫不费力地处理复杂的视觉数据。起初，人们对这种脱节的反应是假设我们预先装载了某种类似世界模型的东西；但是发展心理学的研究表明，虽然婴儿并非完全一片空白，但他们对世界的大部分早期知识都来自于与世界的动态互动。¹⁵⁹ 这导致一组认知科学家用一种学习模型取代了学习发生的概念，这种学习模型假定感觉和行为之间存在直接联系。在他们的比喻中“大脑(主要起作用)作为控制器，而不是作为模型建造者。”总之，知识和行动从根本上是相互交织的。

As Rodney Brooks famously put it, “the world is its own best model.”¹⁶¹ We learn by going into the world and interacting with it, rather than passively spectating it. An infant learns about a wooden block by touching it, tasting it, banging it onto the desk to see what sound it makes, and looking at it from all different sides. Through thousands of interactions like

正如罗德尼·布鲁克斯(Rodney Brooks)的名言：“世界是自己最好的模型。”我们通过走进这个世界并与之互动来学习，而不是被动地旁观。婴儿通过触摸木块，品尝它，把它拍在桌子上，看它会发出什么声音，并从不同的角度观察它来学习木块。通过数以千计的互动，比如

these, a child begins to develop a sense of her world and an awareness of herself as part of it. (Much of what we call animal play seems to be exploratory manipulation in a similar sense.)¹⁶²

这些, 孩子开始发展对她的世界的感觉和作为其中一部分的自我意识。(大多数我们称之为动物游戏的东西似乎是类似意义上的探索性操纵¹⁶²

We also do not choose our perceptions. We cannot choose what we see, only how we interpret it. There are myriad limitations on interpretation, too. In the vocabulary of environmental psychology, perception is about producing an agent—world “coupling” with the purpose of discovering “affordances,” namely “the possibilities for action that a particular object permits a particular agent.”¹⁶³ Sometimes this coupling is sufficiently robust that we come to have a phenomenological sense of the object, as if it were part of us. For example: when a skilled surgeon comes to feel that a knife is like a secondary finger; when an expert driver comes to identify with their automobile such that it feels like an extension of their own body; or when a person with a prosthetic limb develops extended proprioception or the ability to perceive what the limb touches.¹⁶⁴ This coupling is a bidirectional, interdependent relationship between agent and object. It functions rather like a feedback loop in which a sentient agent interacts with their environment and is shaped by it in turn.

我们也不能选择我们的感知。我们不能选择我们所看到的, 只能选择我们如何解读它。解释篇也有无数的限制。在环境心理学的词汇中, 知觉是关于产生一个代理世界的“耦合”, 其目的是发现“affordance”, 即“一个特定对象允许一个特定代理的行为的可能性”有时这种耦合足够强烈, 以至于我们对客体产生了一种现象学意义上的感觉, 就好像它是我们的一部分。例如: 当一位技术熟练的外科医生感觉到一把刀就像一根次要的手指; 当一位专业的驾驶员感觉到他们的汽车就像是他们自己身体的延伸; 或者当一个有假肢的人发展出扩展的本体感觉或者感知肢体接触到什么的能力。它的功能更像是一个反馈回路, 在这个回路中, 一个有情感的代理人与他们所处的环境相互作用, 并依次被它所塑造。

In another legendary example from the early days of cybernetics, Herbert Simon suggested that an ant takes a complex path across a sandy beach not because the ant is plotting a complex course in its head, but because the environment it is traversing is itself complicated. In this account the world itself contains complex information.¹⁶⁵ This means that much of the physical world does not have to be modeled inside the cognitive structures of a sentient being because the world is already there to be interacted with.

在控制论早期的另一个传奇例子中, 赫伯特·西蒙提出, 蚂蚁在沙滩上走一条复杂的路线, 并不是因为蚂蚁在头脑中绘制了一条复杂的路线, 而是因为它所穿越的环境本身就很复杂。这意味着物质世界的大部

分不必在有知觉存在的认知结构中建模，因为世界已经存在，可以与之互动。

To put it in terms of meaning, I cannot properly distinguish between beech trees and birch trees, but nonetheless I can have a totally coherent conversation about both species. A sailor could mistakenly think a whale was a coldblooded fish and still have no problem tracking it. As Hilary Putnam observed, this is partially about the way meaning functions indexically.¹⁶⁶ We can refer to things without understanding them. As noted above, I have disagreements with Putnam, but I think he is right that we can get by not really understanding our references because the world is doing some of the work for us. A sailor does not need to know very much about a whale in order to be able to interact with it, because the whale itself necessarily has at least a limited role in that interaction.

从意义上来说，我不能很好地区分山毛榉和桦树，但尽管如此，我可以对这两个物种进行完全连贯的对话。一个水手可能会错误地认为鲸鱼是一种冷血的鱼，但仍然可以毫不费力地追踪它。正如希拉里·普特南所观察到的，这部分是因为意义函数的索引方式。我们可以在不理解事物的情况下参照事物。如上所述，我与普特南有分歧，但我认为他是正确的，我们可以通过不真正理解我们的参考，因为世界正在为我们做一些工作。水手并不需要非常了解鲸鱼才能与其互动，因为鲸鱼本身在这种互动中至少扮演着有限的角色。

Second, matter (and energy) are used to store information and alter cognitive complexity. For our purposes, one of the key insights of early Soviet psychology was that memory is not only stored in our brains, but that humans are capable of extending “the operation of memory beyond the biological dimensions of the human nervous system and permit[ing] it to

第二，物质(和能量)被用来储存信息和改变认知的复杂性。对我们来说，早期苏联心理学的一个重要见解是，记忆不仅存储在我们的大脑中，而且人类能够“将记忆的运作扩展到人类神经系统的生物学维度之外，并允许它扩展到

incorporate artificial, or self-generated, stimuli,” namely in the production of “signs.”¹⁶⁷ Early shepherds made tally marks on sticks to keep track of the number of sheep in their flocks. An older generation tied strings around their fingers as a way to jog memory. Desk calendars help administrators keep track of appointments. Pill boxes remind people to take their medications and help them keep track of how many tablets to take. Ants leave scent trails that they use to find their way back to the nest and to lead others to a food source. All of these are examples of externalized memory produced via material signs.¹⁶⁸

包含人工的，或者说自我产生的刺激，”也就是“符号”的产生¹⁶⁷早期的牧羊人在树枝上做记号来记录羊群中的羊的数量。老一辈的人在他们的手指上系上绳子以唤起他们的记忆。办公桌日历可以帮助管理者记录约会。避孕药盒提醒人们服用药物，并帮助他们记录需要服用多少片剂。蚂蚁会留下气味痕迹，用来找到回巢的路，并引导其他蚂蚁找到食物来源。所有这些都是通过物质符号产生的外化记忆的例子

The most obvious example of this phenomenon is writing itself. More than two thousand years ago, Plato’s *Phaedrus* provided an account of the invention of writing and suggested that people “will not practice using their memory because they will put their trust in writing, which is external and depends on signs that belong to others, instead of trying to remember from the inside, completely on their own.”¹⁶⁹ For Plato it would seem that the externalization of memory is a kind of forgetting or loss of knowledge. He would be disturbed to know that this trend has continued in the age of the machine. We no longer remember telephone numbers; we have our phones remember them for us.¹⁷⁰ We don’t just offload information to objects. Our conscious mind offloads (or perhaps embeds) habits, which then no longer require conscious attention (e.g., playing guitar, learning to walk or drive). That said, however, for as far back as we can reconstruct, humans have been externalizing our memory; and rather than thinking of them exclusively in terms of new forms of cognitive alienation, we might best imagine writing and attendant computer technologies as distinct phases in offloading particular memory functions.

这种现象最明显的例子就是写作本身。两千多年前，柏拉图的《斐德鲁》记录了写作的发明，并建议人们“不要练习使用记忆，因为他们将信任放在写作上，这是外在的，依赖于属于他人的符号，而不是完全依靠自己从内部去记忆。”对柏拉图来说，记忆的外化似乎是一种遗忘或知识边缘的丧失。如果他知道这种趋势在机器时代仍在继续，他会感到不安。我们不再记得电话号码；我们让手机替我们记住它们。我们不仅仅是把信息卸载到物体上。我们有意识的大脑会摆脱(或者嵌入)习惯，这些习惯就不再需要有意识的注意力(比如弹吉他，学习走路或开车)。然而，尽管如此，从我们能够重建的历史来看，人类一直在外化我们的

记忆;与其仅仅从新的认知异化的角度来考虑它们,我们最好把写作和随之而来的计算机技术想象成卸载特定记忆功能的不同阶段。

But it is not merely memory that we externalize; we use our external world to alter the cognitive complexity of specific tasks.¹⁷¹ For instance, to reduce the complexity of a mathematical problem we count on our fin-gers or write out a formula on the blackboard. A nautical slide rule makes navigation easier because much of the computation is actually being done by the artifact itself.¹⁷² Airports have developed intricate physical systems to reduce the cognitive demands of air traffic control.¹⁷³ Submarines are designed to divide cognitive labor by assigning different measurement gauges and controls to different individuals. In this respect, materialized signs can permit solutions to more demanding cognitive problems by facilitating coordinated and distributed cognition.

但是我们不仅仅是将记忆具体化,我们还利用我们的外部世界来改变特定任务的认知复杂性。例如,为了减少数学问题的复杂性,我们依靠手指或者在黑板上写出一个公式。¹⁷² 机场已经开发出复杂的物理系统来减少空中交通管制的认知需求。¹⁷³ 潜艇的设计目的是通过分配不同的测量仪器和控制器给不同的个人来分配认知劳动。在这方面,物化的标志可以通过促进协调和分布式认知来解决更高要求的认知问题。

Third, *public semiosis permits collective representations*. As noted above, perception can be thought of as interactive, dynamical feedback that re-sults in the coupling of agent and environment. But it is not just non-humans we encounter in this manner. By producing public representa-tions—which necessitate their materialization even if only in terms of

第三,公共符号学允许集体表征。如上所述,感知可以被认为是互动的,动态的反馈,导致代理人和环境的耦合。但是我们以这种方式遇到的不仅仅是非人类。通过产生公众代表——这需要他们的物质化,即使只是在方面

sound waves—individuals can engage in “dialogical coupling.”¹⁷⁴ Succinctly put, we learn to “think together” by bouncing ideas off of each other, commenting on each other’s writing, working together on a black-board, or grabbing our guitars and jamming together. For humans, like other social animals, the production and consumption of signs is part of a process of coordination or synchronization between different individuals. Although there are many reasons to be cautious about the interpretation of fMRI data, preliminary neuroscience research suggests that telling stories can produce coupling or mirrored brain activity in speakers and listeners.¹⁷⁵ All that is to say, while we rarely perfectly converge on shared collective representations, much of the anxiety about the impossibility of communication seems overblown.

声波——一个个体可以进行“对话性耦合”简而言之，我们学会了“一起思考”，通过相互交换想法，评论彼此的写作，一起在黑板上工作，或者抓起吉他一起演奏。对于人类来说，就像其他社会动物一样，手势的产生和消费是不同个体之间协调或同步过程的一部分。尽管有很多理由要对功能磁共振成像数据的解释持谨慎态度，但初步的神经科学研究表明，讲故事可以在说话者和听话者身上产生耦合或镜像的大脑活动。也就是说，尽管我们很少完美地聚集在共享的集体表征上，但对于交流可能性的许多焦虑似乎被夸大了。

This has important implications for how we conventionally construe the relationship between private and public concepts. For instance, many scholars tend toward presumptions about the formation of concepts that echo the classical empiricism of John Locke. Basically, they assume that we come to form concepts based on our experiences, and that our experiences of simple objects lead toward our understanding of increasingly complex concepts. We learn what an “orange” is, then we learn what “juice” is, and eventually we can combine them into a reliable concept of “orange juice” and other fruit juices. This contributes to the sense that the most basic level of concepts occurs in the form of private thoughts. This idea has something going for it insofar as thinking seems to precede language and many of our individually experienced memories and ideas are never communicated.¹⁷⁶ But there are reasons to think of public concepts or public representations as the more basic level.¹⁷⁷

这对我们如何按照惯例解释私人 and 公共概念之间的关系具有重要意义。例如，许多学者倾向于假设概念的形成与约翰·洛克的经典经验主义相呼应。基本上，他们认为我们会根据自己的经验形成概念，而我们对简单事物的经验会引导我们理解越来越复杂的概念。我们学习什么是“橙子”，然后我们学习什么是“果汁”，最终我们可以结合他们成为一个可靠的概念“橙汁”和其他果汁。这有助于理解最基本的概念是以私人思

想的形式出现的。176. 这种观点有一定的道理，因为思考似乎先于语言，我们许多个人经历的记忆和想法从来没有被传达过

From the very moment a child is born, she is bombarded with public concepts as materialized signs. An infant's first contact with orange juice is likely to be accompanied by parental explanations, even if she is too young to comprehend them fully. Instead of being isolated thinkers who come to acquire concepts through a process of philosophical meditation, we gain our categories and even our basic understandings of the world through the consumption and interpretation of already materialized signs (both human and nonhuman in origin).

从一个孩子出生的那一刻起，她就被作为物化符号的公共概念轰炸。婴儿与橙汁的第一次接触很可能伴随着父母的解释，即使她还太小，无法完全理解。我们不是孤立的思想家，不是通过哲学冥想的过程来获得概念，而是通过消费和解释已经具体化的符号(包括起源于人类和非人类的符号)来获得我们的范畴，甚至是我们对世界的基本理解。

This has straightforward implications for disciplines in the human sciences, because we are often interested in understanding the homogeneity or heterogeneity of macro--human phenomena—a.k.a. culture or society. One might ask: what is it that members of a given “culture” share? We have to avoid two different extremes. On the one hand, as the example above suggests, our ideas of the world are not formed in isolation and thus are not completely idiosyncratic (insofar as we are both using the expression “orange juice” and we don't mean completely different things).

这对人文科学的学科有着直接的影响，因为我们经常对理解宏观人类现象的同质性或异质性感兴趣。文化或社会。有人可能会问：一个特定的“文化”成员分享的是什麼？我们必须避免两个不同的极端。一方面，正如上面的例子所表明的那样，我们对世界的看法并不是孤立形成的，因此也不是完全独特的(因为我们都使用了“橙汁”这个表达，而且我们并不是指完全不同的东西)。

On the other hand, it would be an equally grave error to become trapped in an immaterial approach to the subject and assume that everyone in a given culture shares identical concepts. A naive version of this is Richard Dawkins's notion of "memes" as idea viruses that copy themselves from mind to mind. As noted in chapter 3, cultural transmission is a process that involves not perfect copying, but rather constant change. The hylo-semiotic approach, on the other hand, permits us to see that members of a "culture" do not share identical concepts, but they often formulate their private concepts in reference to similar or shared materialized signs. This recognition permits much greater specificity for an analysis of cul-ture, which is no longer constructed in terms of diffuse shared represen-tations, but can be reconceived as the result of concrete interactions and material vectors.

另一方面,同样严重的错误是,陷入对这个问题的非物质方法中,并假定某一特定文化中的每个人都有相同的概念。理查德·道金斯(Richard Dawkins)认为,“模因”是一种思想病毒,能够从一个人的头脑复制到另一个人的头脑。正如在第三章中指出的,文化传播是一个过程,它不涉及完美的复制,而是不断的变化。另一方面,人文符号学的方法使我们看到,“文化”的成员并不共享相同的概念,但他们往往参照相似或共享的物化符号来表述他们的私人概念。这种认识使得对文化的分析具有更大的特异性,这种分析不再是按照分散的共享表征来构建的,而是可以通过具体的相互作用和物质载体来重新构建的。

Public representations have more than a communicative function. Ma-terial objects necessarily play a role in mediating social relations, for in-stance by marshalling powerful emotions (think propaganda), inspiring desires (think advertising), enforcing power (think guns), and establish-ing dominance hierarchies (think commodity accumulation).¹⁷⁸ This is true of both human and many nonhuman social worlds. When we think of human collectives, we need to not overlook the material objects that form part of their ligature (e.g., Starbucks is not just a group of people but a collective that includes financial capital, buildings, espresso machines, pounds of roasted coffee, and so on). As discussed in chapter 4, material signs are part of our social life and indeed might be thought of as key com-ponents of the social. ¹⁷⁹ You can find this insight communicated with sophistication and force in the writings of Arjun Appadurai and company, and it can easily come across as one of the key benefits of a New Material-ist analysis.¹⁸⁰ But you can also find it in Marx, where it counted as a cen-tral claim of the old--fashioned dialectical materialism; and indeed, the so-cial function of objects can be found in the classical sociological theorist Emile Durkheim.¹⁸¹ I say this not to knock the broader insight in any way, but merely to locate it in its longer historical trajectory. Also, it is worth underscoring the intervention I made above that

not all matter is relevant to a given social relation—what is relevant is the semiotic component or materialized sign-aspect.

公共表达不仅仅是一种交流功能。物质对象在调解社会关系中必然发挥作用，例如通过调动强大的情感(想想宣传)、激发欲望(想想广告)、强制权力(想想枪支)和建立统治等级制度(想想商品积累)。当我们想到人类的集体时，我们不应该忽视那些构成他们联系的物质对象(例如，星巴克不仅仅是一群人，而是一个包括金融资本、建筑物、咖啡机、烘焙咖啡等等的集体)。正如第四章所讨论的那样，物质符号是我们社会生活的一部分，实际上可能被认为是社会的关键组成部分。你可以在阿尔琼·阿普达赖和他的同事的著作中发现这种洞察力以复杂和有力的方式传达出来，而且它很容易被理解为新唯物主义分析的关键优点之一。但是你也可以在 Marx 中发现它，在 Marx 中它被认为是老式辩证唯物主义的中心主张；事实上，物体的所谓社会功能可以在古典社会学理论家埃米尔·迪尔凯姆身上发现。另外，值得强调的是，我在上面所做的干预，并不是所有的事情都与特定的社会关系相关-什么是相关的是符号成分或物化的符号方面。

In summary, hylosemiotics permits us to turn the mind inside out, and in so doing to see three broad and concrete ways in which what has previously been understood as private mental life is externally realized. First, knowledge does not come primarily from introspection, nor is the mind like some kind of homunculus looking outward from the windows of the eyes; rather, knowledge emerges from the exploratory manipulation of the physical world. Body and mind co-arise interdependently. We learn

总而言之，符号学允许我们把头脑里里外外翻出来，这样做可以看到以前被理解为私人精神生活的三种广泛而具体的方式在外部实现。首先，知识并不主要来自于内省，头脑也不像某种从眼睛的窗户向外看的侏儒，相反，知识来自于对物质世界的探索性操纵。身体和思想是相互依存的。我们学习

by going into the world and interacting with it. This means we can rely on the complexities of the world to do some of the work for us, including (to some extent) problems of reference and complexity. This will be discussed in more detail in chapter 6. Second, we use matter to store information and alter cognitive complexity. We physically encode memory in writing and images. We make marks on objects to keep track of them or to count better. We build tools so that the objects themselves do some of the thinking for us. Digital computers are only the latest phase in a long history of humans offloading different kinds mental processes into our built environment. Third, the public creation of signs is part of what makes collective representations possible. The social world is composed of materialized signs. We share concepts to the extent that we do in good part because of common reference to public representations.

进入这个世界并与之互动。这意味着我们可以依靠世界的复杂性为我们做一些工作, 包括(在某种程度上)参考和复杂性问题。这将在第六章中更详细地讨论。其次, 我们使用物质来储存信息和改变认知的复杂性。我们在书写和图像中对记忆进行物理编码。我们在物体上做记号来记录它们, 或者更好地数数。我们建立工具, 使物体本身为我们做一些思考。数字计算机只是人类将不同的思维过程卸载到我们建造的环境中的漫长历史中的最新阶段。第三, 标志的公共创造是使集体表征成为可能的一部分。社会世界是由物化的符号组成的。我们之所以分享概念, 很大程度上是因为我们共同参考了公共表述。

5.7 Conclusion: A Light in the Abyss

5.7 结论: 深渊中的一束光

If I were as eloquent as Demosthenes I would need to do nothing more than repeat a single phrase three times: reason is language, λόγος. I gnaw at this marrow-bone and I will gnaw myself to death over it. There still remains a darkness over this depth for me. I am still waiting for an apocalyptic angel with a key to this abyss.

如果我像德摩斯梯尼一样雄辩, 我只需要把一句话重复三遍: 理性就是语言, λογος。我会咬碎这根骨髓, 然后把自己咬死。对我来说, 这个深渊仍然笼罩着一片黑暗。我仍然在等待一个拥有通往深渊钥匙的启示天使。

J.G. Hamann, Letter to J.G. Herder, August 6, 1784

哈曼写给赫德的信 1784年8月6日

Reason is language—this was Johann Hamann's provocative and pre-scient suspicion. Although it comes from a letter written by Kant's famous "frenemy" more than two hundred years ago, it seems no less relevant today. According to some accounts, postmodernism, by reducing philosophy to the level of language and then disrupting the old economy of the sign and the

possibility of linguistic structure, has hastened the dis-integration of meaning itself. Knowledge is nothing more than language games and the production of power, while words have been unmoored from their referents and texts have vanished behind a maze of infinite in-terpretations.¹⁸²

原因就是语言——这是约翰·哈曼(Johann Hamann)先入为主的挑衅性怀疑。尽管它来自 200 多年前康德著名的“友敌”所写的一封信，但它在今天似乎并不逊色。有人认为，后现代主义通过将哲学降低到语言层面，进而破坏旧的符号经济和语言结构的可能性，加速了意义本身的解体。

182. 知识不过是语言游戏和力量的产物，而文字已经脱离了它们所指代的事物，文本已经消失在无限解释的迷宫之中

But this chapter has been working to turn inside out the linguistic skepticism that defined much of poststructuralist thought. The problem with the “linguistic turn” was that it did not go far enough. In secondhand formulations, scholars imagined that the world was constructed out of dis-course, but they overlooked the conjoining insight that discourse was con-structed out of the world.

但是这一章一直致力于将定义了许多后结构主义思想的语言怀疑主义反转过来。“语言学转向”的问题在于它走得不够远。在第二手的模拟中，学者们想象世界是由话语构建的，但他们忽视了话语是由世界构建的这一连接的观点。

Hamann too got things backward. It is not that reason is merely lan-guage, but rather that language is “reason.” Or at least language is one of our ways of coming to understand and interpret our environment. Lan-

哈曼也把事情搞反了。并不是说理性仅仅是语言，而是语言就是“理性”或者至少语言是我们理解和解释环境的一种方式。局域网

guage is imperfect, fallible, flawed. Different languages focus attention on different features of the world. We all must cultivate a greater reflexivity about the limitations and biases of linguistic categories. But we are not imprisoned in our grammars. We are capable of nonlinguistic thought. Language is a tool. It is like a net to catch fish. We should not mistake it for the fish, but we do not need to jettison the net. Heidegger was right that Being is hermeneutics, but he was wrong about what that implied. Humans do not possess an inborn lack necessitating a search for meaning and exiling us from nature to a dark abyss. Rather, to be a sentient being is to be interwoven with an environment. We are all part of a cosmos that attempts to know itself.

规范是不完美的，容易出错的，有缺陷的。不同的语言将注意力集中在世界的不同特征上。我们都必须培养对语言范畴的局限性和偏见有更强的反思能力。但是我们并没有被我们的语法所束缚。我们有能力进行非语言的思考。语言是一种工具。语言就像一张捕鱼的网。我们不应该把它误认为是鱼，但是我们不需要抛弃这个网。海德格尔认为“存在”是解释学的观点是正确的，但他对这种观点的含义却是错误的。人类没有天生的缺陷，不需要寻找意义，不需要把我们从自然中放逐到黑暗的深渊。相反，成为一个有知觉的生命就是与一个环境交织在一起。我们都是试图了解自己的宇宙的一部分。

In sum, we live in a world of signs—and humans (and other animals) respond to those signs in manifold ways, semiotically but not just symbolically. We need to move past a postmodern semiotics that sees us imprisoned in our linguistic categories. Instead, I have been arguing, there is significant benefit to be gained from embracing what amounts to a meta-modern semiotics or hylosemiotics.

总之，我们生活在一个充满符号的世界里，人类(和其他动物)以多种方式对这些符号作出反应，符号学而不仅仅是象征性的。我们需要超越一种后现代符号学，这种符号学将我们囚禁在我们的语言范畴中。相反，我一直在争论，拥抱元现代符号学或符号学会带来巨大的好处。

To frame the project differently, in linguistics and philosophy of language there has been a strong incentive to treat meaning as separate from metaphysics or ontology. Disciplinary specialization has often encouraged theorists to bracket out the world when coming up with their theories of language. Although extensional semantics tried to do something different by way of conjoined notions of reference and natural kinds, even philosophers of such were still generally stuck on a notion of the autonomy of language as a specifically human endeavor. While I am sure there is a lot of work to be done by specialists in modifying the insights articulated here, I hope that this chapter demonstrates the value of non-- specialists attempting to take up language, metaphysics, and the findings of biology (especially animal

ethology) together. That humans can read, something we cannot have been selected for evolutionarily, suggests that our ability to apprehend and interpret signs is rooted in something more fundamental. As I have been arguing, sentient beings are semiotic beings.

为了以不同的方式来构建这个项目，在语言学和语言哲学中，有一种强烈的动机要求将意义从形而上学或本体论中分离出来。学科专业化经常鼓励理论家在提出他们的语言理论时将世界排除在外。虽然外延语义学试图通过联合指称概念和自然类型的方式来做一些不同的事情，但即使是这样的哲学家也普遍坚持语言自主性的概念，认为语言自主性是人类特有的努力。虽然我确信专家们在修改这里阐述的见解方面还有很多工作要做，但我希望这一章能够展示非专家们试图将语言、形而上学和生物学(尤其是动物行为学)的发现结合起来的价值。人类可以阅读，这是我们在进化过程中无法被选择的，这表明我们理解和解释符号的能力植根于更基本的东西。正如我一直在争论的那样，有知觉的生物是符号生物。

I have also been arguing that many of the functions classical empiricists suggested were the sole province of the human mind are better thought of as emerging in dynamical relationship to our environment or as a materialized semiotics. We come to know ourselves via interaction with the world. We store memories outside our bodies. Much of our mental capacity, since at least the earliest proto-human began marking its environment, has been aided by our ability to offload cognitive complexity. We come to at least partially share public concepts, sentiments, and social presumptions. Rather than conceiving of epistemology in terms of an iso-

我也一直认为，古典经验主义者提出的许多功能是人类思维的唯一领域，更好地认为它们是在与环境的动态关系中出现的，或者是一种物化的符号学。我们通过与世界的互动来了解自己。我们把记忆储存在身体之外。我们的大脑能力，至少从最早的原始人类开始标记它的环境以来，一直得益于我们摆脱认知复杂性的能力。我们至少部分地分享了公共概念、情感和社会假设。而不是从一个 iso 的角度来构想认识论

lated thinker coming to know the universe, we might instead think of the universe coming to know us.

迟到的思想家开始了解宇宙, 我们可能会想到宇宙开始了解我们。

Thus far I have been aiming to show that there are more productive notions of discourse than those inherited from Saussure. My brother and I agree that a Peircean semiotics is a better starting point for understanding the relationship between discourse and the world. It is possible to formulate a nonhuman semiotics that includes a wider notion of sign--producing and --receiving entities. If we focus on the materialization of the mental, we are able to turn the mind inside out. I hope we have also suggested some productive tools for an analysis of culture and sign relations.

到目前为止, 我一直致力于证明, 与从 Saussure 那里继承来的观念相比, 有更多富有成效的话语观念。我哥哥和我都认为, 皮尔斯符号学是理解话语和世界之间关系的一个更好的起点。我们有可能提出一种非人类符号学, 其中包括一个更广泛的符号产生和接受实体的概念。如果我们专注于精神的物质化, 我们就能够把精神从里到外翻出来。我希望我们也能提供一些有用的工具来分析文化和符号关系。

This directly benefits those of us in the human sciences, because the mind turned inside out is amenable to study. Moreover, although they are often interwoven, we can distinguish between meaning--producing *semiosis* and meaning--receiving *semiotics* or *hermeneutics*. As I argued in chapter 1, while the first is social construction, the second need not be (meaning can come from something that was not produced to provide meaning).

这直接有利于我们在人文科学领域的人, 因为我们的思想是由内而外的, 是可以被研究的。此外, 尽管它们经常交织在一起, 我们还是可以区分产生意义的符号学和接受意义的符号学或解释学。正如我在第一章中所说的, 第一个是社会建构, 第二个不一定是(意义可以来自于不是为了提供意义而产生的东西)。

To reiterate other insights from this chapter, speech is evanescent, and if you think of discourse in terms of the spoken word, then language might seem to be immaterial and perhaps even outside of or separate from the world. But looked at from the vantage of monkey calls and indications of rain, we can see that the world is richly semiotic. We are constantly reading or interpreting the world. Every sign is only available to us because it has been materialized, even if only in the eardrum's vibrations from incoming sound waves. Indeed, even dualists must grant that we can only get to the physical by way of the mental, and we can only get to the mental by way of the physical. Moreover, many of the questions we want to ask in the human sciences are about the beliefs and attitudes of other people, but we only get to access these beliefs when they have been externalized in the physical world.

为了重申本章的其他见解，语言是短暂的，如果你从口头语言的角度来看话语，那么语言可能看起来是无关紧要的，甚至可能超出或独立于世界之外。但是从猴子的叫声和雨的迹象来看，我们可以看到世界是丰富的符号学。我们不断地阅读或解释这个世界。每一个信号之所以对我们来说都是可用的，是因为它已经具体化了，即使它只存在于来自声波的鼓膜振动中。事实上，即使是二元论者也必须承认，我们只能通过精神的方式到达物质，而我们只能通过物质的方式到达精神。此外，我们想在人文科学中提出的许多问题都与其他人的信仰和态度有关，但是我们只有在这些信仰在物质世界中具体化时才能接触到它们。

Translation is possible. Every argument for the impossibility of translation has to either forgo examples or undermine its own ambitions. Although future generations may find it hard to reconstruct why translation was thought to be beyond the bounds of possibility, this self-defeating dogma has underpinned vast swathes of human sciences—from anthropology to literary studies to skeptical philosophy of science. To provide one last example, when Thomas Kuhn wanted to demonstrate the incommensurability of scientific paradigms, he did so by comparing accounts of *phlogiston* and oxygen and in that respect rendering them commensurable.¹⁸³ Kuhn thus undercuts his grand argument that one paradigm cannot be translated either into another one or into a neutral third point of view. Paradigms can be and often are compared, even by the same theo-

翻译是可能的。每一个关于翻译不可能的论点要么放弃例子，要么削弱自己的雄心壮志。尽管后代人可能会发现很难重建为什么翻译被认为是超越可能性的边界，但这种自我挫败的教条支撑了大量的人文科学——从人类学到文学研究，再到怀疑主义的科学哲学。为了提供最后一个例子，当托马斯·库恩想要证明科学范式的不可衡量性时，他通过比较燃素和氧的描述，并在这方面使它们具有共性。因此，库恩削弱了他的宏大论点，即一个范式既不能转化为另一个范式，也不能转化为中立的第三观点。范式可以并且经常被比较，即使是通过相同的理论

rists who reject their commensurability.¹⁸⁴ In summary, while every translation is an interpretation, not every interpretation is equally valid.

184 总而言之, 虽然每一个翻译都是一种解释, 但并不是每一种解释都同样有效。

Meaning is inference. We interpret both voluntary and involuntary signs. To be interpretable, signs have to be physically instantiated. Our ability to process language evolved from our ability to perceive the environment. Sentient beings apprehend the world and each other semiotically. There is no such thing as objective information, because involuntary signs generate different kinds of interferences in different contexts. Words are tools, but they don't function (or mean) on their own. Voluntary signs are ostensive inferential signals meant to affect perceivers' actions and to focus their attention on the inferences the producer of the sign wishes to express. Apprehending the meaning of an utterance often requires reconstructing the purposes behind its creation. Although there is more to meaning than reference, coordinating reference is a crucial part of communication in part because we do not share mental representations, nor do we share ways of tracking property--clusters. In that respect, references are at best functionally overlapping (or co-referring), but are rarely identical. Perceivers tend to assume the interpretation of voluntary signs that maximizes relevance. Voluntary signs are social kinds. Miscommunications often derive from differing background presuppositions and the high entropic nature of social kinds. Intentional meaning is crucial to communication, but we perceive much more than intentional meaning.

意义就是推理。我们同时解释自愿和非自愿的符号。为了能够被解释, 符号必须在物理上被实例化。我们处理语言的能力来源于我们感知环境的能力。有知觉的生物以符号的方式理解世界和彼此。客观信息是不存在的, 因为非自发符号在不同的环境中会产生不同的干扰。词汇是一种工具, 但它们不能自行发挥作用(或意味着什么)。自发性手势是一种明显的推理信号, 意在影响感知者的行为, 并将他们的注意力集中在手势制作者想要表达的推理上。理解一个话语的意义通常需要重建其创造背后的目的。虽然有更多的意义比参照, 协调参照是一个重要的部分, 因为我们没有共享心理表征, 也没有共享的方式跟踪财产-群集。在这方面, 参考文献充其量只是功能上的重叠(或共同参考), 但很少是完全相同的。感知者倾向于假设对自愿标志的解释, 以最大限度地提高相关性。自愿性标志是社会性的。Miscom 交流通常来源于不同的背景预设和社会种类的高熵特性。有意义的意义对于交流是至关重要的, 但是我们感知到的远不止有意义的意义。

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If this were merely a work of social science the whole monograph might have ended here. But it would have left unaddressed the thorniest knot of postmodernism—namely, the relationship between knowledge and value, skepticism and cynicism. It seemed less useful to me to articulate an entire system of social kinds and semiotics, only to have it scoffed at on the grounds that all knowledge itself is merely a mask thrown over domination, or the like. What follows sets us up to explore the value of knowledge and then advance our knowledge of value.

如果这仅仅是一部社会科学著作，那么整个专著可能就此为止了。但是它却没有解决后现代主义最棘手的问题——即知识与价值、怀疑主义与犬儒主义之间的关系。对我来说，阐述一个由社会种类和符号学组成的整个系统似乎没那么有用，结果却遭到嘲笑，理由是知识本身不过是笼罩在统治之上的一张面具，或者类似的东西。接下来的内容让我们开始探索知识的价值，然后提升我们对价值的认识。

Part IV: Knowledge
and Value
第四部分：知识与价值

6: Zetetic Knowledge

6: Zetetic Knowledge 6: Zetetic

知识

The game of doubting itself presupposes certainty. . . . A doubt that doubted everything would not be a doubt.

怀疑的游戏本身是以确定性为前提的怀疑一个怀疑一切的怀疑不会成为怀疑。

Wittgenstein, *On Certainty*
在确定性的基础上

Postmodernism is regularly identified with the claim that nothing can be known.¹ The association between postmodernism and deep-seated skepticism goes back in part to Jean-François Lyotard, who characterized the postmodern condition in terms of “an internal erosion of the legitimacy principle of knowledge.”² But similar views have been expounded by other theorists.³ Indeed, critic after critic has accused postmodernism of being a corrosive form of indiscriminate doubt.⁴ Although occasionally particular types of skepticism heave into view, time and again postmodernism is equated with a generalized “loss of certainty.”⁵ These charges have if anything been amplified in recent years, and one now routinely comes across the assertion that postmodern skeptics ruined the humanities and ushered in post-truth politics.⁶

后现代主义经常被认为是“一无所知”的主张。后现代主义和根深蒂固的怀疑主义之间的联系部分可以追溯到让-弗朗索瓦·利奥塔，他用“知识合法性原则的内在侵蚀”来描述后现代状况事实上，一个又一个的批评家指责后现代主义是一种不加区分的怀疑的腐蚀性形式。尽管偶尔会出现一些特定类型的怀疑主义，但后现代主义一次又一次地等同于普遍的“确定性丧失”如果说这些指控近年来有什么放大的话，那就是现在人们经常听到这样的断言：后现代怀疑论者毁掉了人文学科，迎来了后真理政治

But the actual history is rather different. To sketch its broad trajectory, the first wave of postmodernism was indeed imported into the Anglo-- American academy as a type of skepticism, as various interpreters mobilized the most skeptical elements of the canon of postmodern thinkers to the exclusion of their non--skeptical positions. In the second wave, experts—sometimes including the canonized thinkers themselves— attempted to correct the caricature of a postmodernism that rejected all knowledge. Nonetheless, because it was these very interlocking negative doxa that many scholars and students found most evocative, postmodernism continued to live on precisely as a cognomen for the skepticism and anti--truth cynicism its original authors and importers had repudiated.

但是实际的历史却大不相同。为了勾勒其广泛的发展轨迹，第一波后现代主义确实作为一种怀疑主义被引进了英美学术界，各种各样的解释者调动了后现代思想家经典中最怀疑的元素，将他们的非怀疑主义立场排除在外。在第二次浪潮中，专家们——有时包括被封为圣徒的思想家们自己——试图纠正对后现代主义的讽刺，后现代主义拒绝了所有的知识。尽管如此，正是因为这些相互交织的负面教义，许多学者和学生发现最能引起共鸣的，后现代主义作为怀疑主义和反真理的犬儒主义的代名词继续存在，它的原始作者和进口商已经否定了这一点。

The end result is that while theorist after theorist deploys the most skeptical pieces of Foucault and company, we also have quote after quote of these same theorists explicitly and repeatedly denying that they are skeptics. Let me provide a few examples.

最终的结果是，当一个又一个的理论家展示了 Foucault 和他的公司中最具怀疑精神的部分时，我们也引用了一个又一个同样的理论家的名言，明确且反复地否认他们是怀疑论者。让我举几个例子。

Michel Foucault's critical genealogies and writings on the relationship between power and knowledge were often mobilized toward skeptical ends. Aware of his reputation, Foucault commented that "as far as the general public is concerned, I am the guy who said that knowledge merged with power, that it was no more than a thin mask thrown over the structures of domination," and he has often been read on these grounds.⁷ But Foucault also repudiated this misunderstanding, which he characterized as "so absurd as to be laughable," adding that "if I had said, or meant, that knowledge was power, I would have said so."⁸ At the very least, this suggests Foucault's account of power-knowledge- was not supposed to terminate in the particular skeptical positions with which he is regularly mis-identified.⁹

米歇尔·福柯关于权力和知识之间关系的批判家谱和著作常常被用于怀疑的目的。意识到自己的名声，福柯评论道：“就普通大众而言，我是那个说知识与权力融合的人，知识只不过是笼罩在统治结构上的一张薄薄的面具。”人们经常以这些理由来解读他的观点。但福柯也否认了这种误解，他认为这种误解“荒谬得可笑”，并补充道：“如果我说或者说，知识就是权力，我会这么说的。”⁸ 至少，这表明福柯对权力的解释——知识不应该终止于他经常被误认为的那种特殊的怀疑论立场

Early in Jacques Derrida's Anglo--American reception he was characterized as a "pure enough skeptic to make no positive [truth] claims at all," and thus deconstruction was widely identified with a cynical rejection of the possibility of truth.¹⁰ But Derrida himself also explicitly rejected this view, stating that "deconstruction" does not amount to "skepticism, empiricism, [or] even nihilism" and that "the value of truth . . . is never contested or destroyed in my writings, but only reinscribed in more powerful, larger, more stratified contexts."¹¹ Nonetheless, even today some scholars continue to suggest that Derrida argued that knowledge is impossible because there is always room for potential doubt.¹² Hence, in much of the secondary literature, deconstruction is treated as the universalized skepticism that Derrida would seem to have repudiated.

在雅克·德里达(Jacques Derrida)早期的英美接受中，他被描绘成一个“足够纯粹的怀疑论者，根本不会提出任何积极的[真理]主张”，因此解构主义被广泛认为是对真理可能性的玩世不恭的拒绝。但德里达本人也明确反对这种观点，声称“解构主义”并不等于“怀疑论，经验主义，[或]甚至虚无主义”，而且“真理的价值在我的作品中从未被证实或摧毁，而只是在更强大、更大、更分层的背景下被重新写入。”然而，即使在今天，一些学者仍然认为德里达认为知识是不可能的，因为总有潜在的怀疑空间。因此，在许多次要文学作品中，解构主义被视为德里达似乎已经否定的普遍怀疑主义。

By way of a last example, Bruno Latour's writings have undergone a significant shift in emphasis, if not view. Early in his career, Latour called for a "new skepticism" and argued that "there is no scale of knowledge and, in the end, no knowledge at all."¹³ But starting in the early 2000s, Latour began asking if "critique had run out of steam" and arguing "that a certain form of critical spirit has sent us down the wrong path. . . . The question was never to get *away* from facts but *closer* to them, not fighting empiricism but, on the contrary, renewing empiricism."¹⁴ Thus, one can find in his writings (and among his followers) both skeptical and anti--skeptical positions.

通过最后一个例子，布鲁诺拉图尔的作品经历了一个重要的转变，如果不是观点。在他职业生涯的早期，拉图尔呼吁一种“新的怀疑主义”，并认为“没有知识的规模，最终，根本没有知识。”但是从 21 世纪初开始，拉图尔开始质疑“批评是否已经失去了动力”，并认为“某种形式的批评精神使我们走上了错误的道路。这个问题永远不会偏离事实，而是更接近事实，不是与经验主义作斗争，而是与之相反，更新经验主义。”¹⁴ 因此，人们可以在他的著作中(以及他的追随者中)发现怀疑论和反怀疑论的立场。

All that is to say, if postmodernism was not primarily generalized skepticism, there was nevertheless a reality to the appearance. Rampant forms of cynicism are on display throughout the academy, if often in decontextualized excerpts, the writing of lesser-known scholars, and echoed in class-rooms across the country. Looked at this way, the human sciences include both the partisans of "cynical reason" and their putative enemies, who rarely engage in depth with the actual philosophical problematics of the "postmodernism" they criticize.¹⁵ But Enlightenment--boosters do this at

这就是说，如果后现代主义主要不是广义的怀疑主义，那么它的出现就是一个现实。各种形式的犬儒主义在整个学院中展示得淋漓尽致，甚至常常以脱离语境的摘录、不太知名的学者的著作为形式，在全国各地的教室里回荡。从这个角度来看，人文科学既包括“愤世嫉俗理性”的支持者，也包括他们假定的敌人，这些人很少深入研究他们所批评的“后现代主义”的实际哲学问题

their peril. Unaddressed skepticisms become buried landmines waiting to explode. So here I will aim to defuse them.

他们的危险。未解决的怀疑成为埋在地下等待爆炸的地雷。所以在这里，我将致力于化解他们。

As noted in the introduction to this book, epistemology is often con-flated with ethics and vice versa. This in turn encourages smuggling in value criticisms masked as appraisals of knowledge. While ethics and epistemology are clearly related when they become entangled, the problems they suggest can become knotted together to the point of indecipherability. Accordingly, this chapter begins from the suspicion that we need to provisionally separate purely epistemological issues from their normative variants and address the issues evoked by epistemological concerns independently. Values will return later.

正如在这本书的导言中所指出的，认识论经常与伦理学混为一谈，反之亦然。这反过来又鼓励了以知识评估为掩饰的价值批评的走私。当伦理学和认识论纠缠在一起时，它们显然是相互关联的，但它们所提出的问题却可能纠缠在一起，甚至达到无法解释的地步。因此，本章从我们需要暂时将纯粹的认识论问题从其规范变体中分离出来，并独立地解决由认识论问题引起的问题的怀疑开始。价值观将在稍后返回。

On the epistemological register, I argue that the problem with post-modern (and, as it turns out, “enlightenment”) skepticism is that it is not sufficiently radical. The issue is not that we doubt too much, but that we do not doubt enough. We fail to be skeptical about skepticism itself, when this is exactly where skeptical thought should lead us. The core philosophical confusion that generates both contemporary forms of skepticism and positivism is a mistaken notion of knowledge and an unproductive fixation on certainty. More concretely, in the pages that follow I argue that we should be skeptical of precisely those various forms of negative dogmatism that masquerade as skepticism, and that if we can bring ourselves to doubt the possibility of indubitable certainty and irrefutable epistemic foundations, many of the quandaries of skepticism will melt away, and we will be left with a new form of humble knowledge, which I call “Zeteticism.”

在认识论上，我认为后现代怀疑论的问题在于它不够激进。问题不在于我们怀疑得太多，而在于我们怀疑得不够。我们不能怀疑怀疑论本身，而这正是怀疑论思想应该引导我们的地方。产生当代形式的怀疑主义和实证主义的核心哲学困惑是对知识的错误概念和对确定性的无益的执着。更具体地说，在接下来的几页中，我认为我们应该对那些伪装成怀疑主义的各种形式的消极教条主义持怀疑态度，如果我们能够让自己怀疑无可置疑的确定性和无可辩驳的认知基础的可能性，那么怀疑主义的许多困境将会消失，我们将留下一种新形式的卑微的知识，我称之为“Zeteticism”

But we will go further still. After establishing a foundation in anti-foundationalist Zeteticism, the rest of the chapter takes us one step further and argues that a specific type of inference is particularly well-suited-

但我们会更进一步。在建立了反基础主义的 Zeteticism 的基础之后，本章的其余部分进一步引导我们认为，一种特定类型的推理是特别适合

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to the human sciences. It used to be thought that knowledge had to be produced either on the model of mathematics, by *deductively* reasoning from foundational premises, or by generalizing *inductively* from specific empirical examples, which was often supposed to be the model of the natural sciences. But as grand epistemological strategies, both deduction and induction have run aground in different ways. In contrast, this chapter argues for *abduction*, or inference to the best explanation, which provides a better model for both the human sciences and scientific inquiry in general.

适用于人类科学。过去人们认为，知识必须要么在数学模型上产生，要么从基本前提进行演绎推理，要么从具体的经验例子归纳归纳，这通常被认为是自然科学的模型。但是作为伟大的认识论策略，演绎和归纳都以不同的方式搁浅。相比之下，本章主张溯因推理，或对最佳解释的推论，这为人类科学和一般的科学探究提供了一个更好的模型。

6.1 Doubting Doubt

6.1 怀疑的怀疑

Nothing is completely immune from doubt. Any given sense impression could be distrusted as perhaps being the result of a dream, a mirage, a 没有什么是完全免于怀疑的。任何给定的感官印象都可能被怀疑是梦境、海市蜃楼、

magical trick, a visual distortion, an optical illusion, a hallucination, a digital simulation, or a deception produced by a deceiving deity or an evil spirit.¹⁶ You could even be a brain in a vat experiencing convincing phan-tom perceptions produced by means of cortex stimulations.¹⁷ Thus, the senses can always be doubted.

魔术、错视、幻觉、数字模拟，或者欺骗性的神灵或邪灵所制造的欺骗。¹⁶ 你甚至可以是一个大脑，在大脑皮层的刺激下，体验令人信服的幻觉。¹⁷ 因此，感官总是可以被怀疑的。

Nor is *a priori* knowledge completely immune from skepticism. Your assumptions about basic mathematical statements such as “ $68+57=125$ ” could also be wrong—a deceiving god could have warped your calculation; or you might be mistaken about the concept of addition or the meaning of the “+” sign; or, even if you are correct about the arithmetic, mathematics itself could turn out to be incomplete or inaccurate in some way we have not yet anticipated.¹⁸ Logic itself might be inconsistent. Analytical truths could rest on unjustified presuppositions of synonymy.¹⁹ Every argument for first principles must be based on prior principles, potentially either rendering those principles suspect or leading to infinite regress. Thus, at least in theory, no mathematical proof can be totally and unquestionably certain. In sum, both *a priori* axiomatic deduction and *a posteriori* empirical evidence are susceptible to doubt.

也不是先验知识完全不受怀疑论的影响。你对“ $68 + 57 = 125$ ”等基本数学表达式的假设也可能是错误的——欺骗你的上帝可能扭曲了你的计算；或者你可能对加法的概念或“+”符号的含义有误解；或者，即使你对算术的判断是正确的，数学本身也可能在某种程度上是不完整或不准确的，这是我们尚未预料到的。¹⁸ 逻辑本身可能是不一致的。分析真理可以建立在同义词的不合理假设之上。¹⁹ 第一原则的每一个论据都必须基于先验原则，这可能使这些原则受到怀疑，或导致无穷回归。因此，至少在理论上，没有任何数学证明能够完全和毫无疑问地确定。总之，先验的公理化演绎和后验的经验证据都容易受到怀疑。

Despite his arguments to the contrary, even René Descartes’s famous *cogito* “I think, therefore I am” can be doubted on several different grounds.²⁰ That thoughts necessitate a thinker can be questioned. That there *was* a thought is far from proving that there *will be* future thoughts, much less that there is a unitary mind thinking those thoughts. The existence of the “I” is not guaranteed. The more modest statement, “a thought happened,” could even be doubted insofar as concepts of “thinking” or “occurring” might be muddled.²¹ All in all, if you decided to doubt absolutely everything, you could not be certain about the meaning of the very concepts through which you thought those doubts into existence. As I’ll elaborate, “doubt” itself can be doubted.²²

尽管他的论点与此相反，甚至勒内·笛卡尔著名的思想家“我思故我在”也可以在几个不同的理由上受到质疑。²⁰ 思想需要一个思想家，这一点可以被质疑。有一种思想远远不能证明未来会有思想，更不用说有一个单一的头脑在思考这些思想。“我”的存在是不能保证的。更谦虚的说法，“一个想法发生了”，甚至可以被怀疑，因为“思考”或“发生了”的概念可能是混乱的。总之，如果你决定绝对地怀疑一切，你就不能肯定那些你认为这些怀疑存在的概念的意义。正如我将要阐述的，“怀疑”本身是可以被怀疑的

So how can we avoid paralyzing doubt? It is not uncommon to blame Descartes for his incorrigible skepticism. But the truth is the exact opposite. Descartes was not a skeptic. The problem with his philosophy is *certainty*, not doubt. Although Descartes begins his famous *Meditations* with a discussion of “things that may be called into doubt,” this skepticism was only a preparation for the grand quest for certitude. He was explicit about this. Descartes identified “all knowledge” with “certain and evident cognition” and he explained that “I was not imitating the skeptics, who doubt only for the sake of doubting . . . on the contrary, *my whole aim was towards certainty*.”²³ Descartes’s goal was not to encourage us to distrust our senses, but rather to produce rigorous and undeniable knowledge about an external world.²⁴ Indeed, except for a few brief pages at the start of *Meditations* and *Principles of Philosophy*, the vast bulk of his oeuvre aimed

那么我们怎样才能避免麻痹怀疑呢？指责笛卡尔无可救药的怀疑主义并不罕见。但事实恰恰相反。笛卡尔不是一个怀疑论者。他的哲学的问题在于确定性，而不是怀疑。尽管笛卡尔在他著名的《沉思录》一开始就讨论了“可能会引起怀疑的事情”，但这种怀疑主义仅仅是对确定性的宏大探索的一种准备。他明确地表达了这一点。笛卡尔将“所有知识”与“确定和明显的认知”相提并论，他解释说，“我不是在模仿怀疑论者，他们怀疑只是为了怀疑... ..相反，我的整个目标是向确定性靠拢。”笛卡尔的目标不是鼓励我们不相信自己的感官，而是要产生关于外部世界的严谨而不可否认的知识。实际上，除了《沉思录》和《哲学原理》开头的几页之外，他的大部分作品都是以此为目标的

at describing the composition of the universe.²⁵ Descartes argued that certain knowledge was the only true form of knowledge, and alleged that he had found it in innate ideas. Yet, the more he wrote and dialogued with other philosophers, the more potential doubts Descartes had to address.

笛卡尔认为某些知识是唯一真正的知识形式，并声称他是在先天的观念中发现的。然而，他写得越多，与其他哲学家的对话越多，笛卡尔不得不解决的潜在疑问就越多。

Insofar as they allowed Descartes to equate knowledge with indubitable certainty, subsequent philosophers have been repeatedly drawn back into doubt. Descartes set the standard for knowledge too high. Generations of philosophers' best efforts to ground knowledge only amplified potential doubts. In all fairness, there has been a lot of epistemology since—lots of other skepticisms and quasi--skepticisms: Pascal's, Bayle's, Hume's, Jacobi's, Hamann's, Schlegel's, Kant's unwitting skepticism (according to some), Nietzsche's, and the like. But many of these mobilize their doubt by showing that *certain* knowledge is impossible. This is because the search for irrefutable foundations is a misguided quest, doomed to failure. Many contemporary skepticisms are the inadvertent product of lost Cartesian certainty.

只要他们允许笛卡尔将知识等同于毋庸置疑的确定性，后来的哲学家们就一再陷入怀疑。笛卡尔把知识的标准定得太高了。一代又一代的哲学家们在知识的基础上付出了最大的努力，但这只是放大了潜在的怀疑。公平地说，自那以后，出现了许多认识论——许多其他的怀疑论和准怀疑论：帕斯卡的、贝尔的、休谟的、雅各比的、哈曼的、施莱格尔的、康德的无意中的怀疑论(根据一些人的说法)、尼采的，等等。但是其中许多人通过证明某些知识是不可能的来调动他们的怀疑。这是因为寻找不可辩驳的基础是一种误入歧途的探索，注定要失败。许多当代的怀疑论都是失去笛卡尔确定性的无意产物。

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All that said, “postmodern skepticisms” have had a distinctive profile. For the last several decades, to be a skeptical academic has generally meant agreement with some subset of the following propositions: Essentialism is a kind of violence. Science is illegitimate or suspect. Scientific facts are constructed by extratheoretical interests. Knowledge is just an expression of power. Power is domination. No truth claims can be grounded. There are no facts, only interpretations. Every perspective is equally legitimate. All knowledge is relative to an individual's standpoint. If a term or concept was formulated in a colonial context, it must be false, and deploying it is a kind of violence. Classification is a form of conceptual imperialism. All binaries are violent hierarchies. Every system or structure is established on the grounds of

something that it both excludes and presupposes. Concepts are fundamentally fraught. Every abstraction is a loss. Everything is discourse. Meaning is differential. Meaning is constantly deferred and can never be stabilized. Language determines thought. Being is always already before language. Philosophy is phallogocentric or logocentric. Logic is merely the codification of heteronormative, white, male thinking. There are no more metanarratives. History is over. Knowledge is impossible.

所有这些说法，“后现代怀疑论”有一个独特的侧面。在过去的几十年里，成为一个持怀疑态度的学者通常意味着同意以下命题的一些子集：本质主义是一种暴力。科学是非法的或可疑的。科学事实是由超越理论的兴趣构成的。知识只是权力的一种表达。权力就是统治。没有一个真理的主张是基于事实的。没有事实，只有解释。每个观点都是同样合理的。所有的知识都是相对于个人立场的。如果一个术语或概念是在殖民地的背景下形成的，那么它一定是错误的，而且使用它是一种暴力。分类是概念帝国主义的一种形式。所有的二进制都是暴力的等级制度。每一个系统或结构都是建立在它既排除又预设的基础之上的。概念从根本上来说是充满忧虑的。每一个抽象都是一种损失。一切都是话语。意义是不同的。意义是不断延迟的，永远不会稳定。语言决定思想。存在总是先于语言。哲学是以男性为中心的或以逻各斯为中心的。逻辑仅仅是异性规范、白人、男性思维的编码。没有更多的元叙事。历史已经结束。知识是不可能的。

A lot could be said about these claims. Some of them have more merit, others much less. Many of them are incompatible with each other. Some are in direct contradiction with themselves (“no truth claim can be grounded” is itself a truth claim). Different scholars assent to differing subsets of these claims, more or less self-consciously. Despite their fun-

关于这些说法可以说很多。他们中的一些人有更多的优点，其他人则少得多。他们中的许多人彼此不相容。有些人与他们自己直接矛盾（“没有真理的主张可以根据”本身就是一个真理的主张）。不同的学者或多或少有意识地同意这些主张的不同子集。尽管他们很有趣

damental incongruities, the way they are typically presented together makes them harder rather than easier to challenge. And so on. But my main point is something more basic—namely that, strictly speaking, none of these statements are in fact doubts. They are *declarations*, not uncertainties. This makes a difference because it suggests that the skeptical doxa of postmodernism we have come to believe in are themselves *not actually skepticisms*.

根本的不协调，它们通常一起呈现的方式使它们更难而不是更容易挑战。诸如此类。但我的主要观点是一些更基本的东西——也就是说，严格地说，这些陈述实际上都不是怀疑。它们是宣言，而不是不确定的东西。这之所以有所不同，是因为它表明，我们所信奉的后现代主义怀疑主义信条本身并不是真正的怀疑主义。

To elaborate, Sextus Empiricus begins *Outlines of Pyrrhonism*—the most important surviving work of classical Greek and Roman skepticism—by distinguishing between three groups of philosophers: Dogmatists (like Aristotle) who think they have discovered the truth, Negative Dogmatists (like the Academic Skeptics) who think that knowledge is impossible, and true Skeptics (such as Pyrrho) who suspend judgment and keep on investigating and doubting.²⁶ From Sextus' vantage, the problem with the Academic Skeptics is that those who confidently reject the possibility of knowledge are just as dogmatic as those who confidently assert that they have discovered the truth.²⁷ If a philosopher says that nothing can be known, then we can ask them whether they think they know this. Here is where negative dogmatists and profound doubters part ways. Incomplete skeptics say that the only thing we can know is that we cannot know, while thoroughgoing skeptics doubt even that. Consequently, self-referential skepticism leads not to the impossibility of knowledge, but to doubts about whether knowledge is possible.²⁸ In this respect, postmodern skeptical academics—like the Academic Skeptics Sextus criticized—are devoted to the various doxa of their incomplete skepticisms.

塞克斯图斯·恩丕里柯是古希腊和古罗马怀疑主义最重要的幸存者，他通过区分以下三类哲学家来阐述他们的观点：教条主义者（如亚里士多德）认为他们已经发现了真理；否定教条主义者（如学术怀疑论者）认为知识是不可能的；真正的怀疑论者（如皮罗）暂停判断，继续调查和怀疑。从 Sextus 的角度来看，学术怀疑论者的问题在于，那些自信地拒绝知识的可能性的人，和那些自信地宣称他们已经发现了真相的人一样，都是教条主义者。如果一个哲学家说没有什么是可以知道的，那么我们可以问他们是否认为他们知道这一点。这里是负面教条主义者和深刻怀疑论者分道扬镳的地方。完全怀疑论者说，我们唯一能知道的是我们不能知道，而彻底的怀疑论者甚至怀疑这一点。因此，自我参照的怀疑主义并不导致知识的不可能性，而是导致对知识是否可能的怀疑。²⁸ 在这方

面，后现代怀疑主义学者——如被批评的学术怀疑论者 Sextus ——致力于他们不完整的怀疑主义的各种教义。

Sometimes, however, postmodernist skepticisms are articulated not as dogmas, but rather as methods—e.g., the hermeneutics of suspicion or genealogy.²⁹ These too can be made to double back on themselves. To hint at what this might look like: The hermeneutics of suspicion is directed at exposing a text's hidden agendas or unmasking its political unconscious. The central features of this hermeneutics' self-description are its novel insights and its rejection of easy answers. But as a hermeneutic it relies on rote strategies and prepackaged rhetoric, and its insights are anything but novel insofar as they typically presume the things they are looking to un-

然而，有时候，后现代主义的怀疑论并不是以教条的形式表达出来的，而是以方法的形式表达出来的——例如，怀疑论或家谱学的解释学。为了暗示这可能看起来像什么：怀疑的解释学旨在揭露文本隐藏的议程或揭露其政治无意识。这种解释学自我描述的核心特征是其新颖的洞察力和对简单答案的拒绝。但作为一种解释学，它依赖于死记硬背的策略和预先包装好的修辞，它的洞察力一点也不新奇，因为它们通常假设它们希望反对的东西

mask (racism, sexism, neo-liberalism, etcetera) behind every text. Thus, we should be suspicious that the hermeneutics of suspicion is not sufficiently suspicious of itself.³⁰

面具(种族主义，性别歧视，新自由主义，等等)背后的每一个文本。因此，我们应该怀疑，怀疑的解释学本身并没有足够的怀疑

Similarly, one could perform a genealogy of genealogy (as indeed I do in greater detail elsewhere).³¹ But in a nutshell, the striking thing about Foucault's account of genealogy is that it consistently emphasizes Nietzsche's *Zur Genealogie der Moral* as the source of this "genealogical" method. By privileging the origins of his attack on origins, Foucault might seem to

同样地，人们也可以进行家谱学的研究(事实上，我在其他地方做过更详细的研究)。³¹ 但简而言之，福柯对家谱学的解释最引人注目的地方在于，它始终强调尼采的《道德谱系学》是这种“家谱学”方法的来源。福柯通过特许他攻击起源的起源，似乎可以这样做

be undermining his own efforts. But the real problem is that Foucault is not just giving his method a source, but effacing one insofar as the term “genealogy” itself had a long history of meaning—something like “pedi-gree or descent,” often in the context of family or race, and later evoking Darwinian notions of evolution. Nietzsche himself seemed to have used it in this basically racializing sense. Moreover, as I demonstrate elsewhere, Foucault embraced “genealogy” as a term to obscure his own debt to structuralism, which he concealed by erasing positive references to structuralism in later editions of his own published works. So if by “genealogy” scholars are intending to evoke a kind of historiography specializing in tracing the changing “significations” and meanings of concepts, then in that respect Foucault’s “genealogy” is suppressing its own genealogy.

正在破坏他自己的努力。但真正的问题在于，福柯不仅给他的方法提供了一个源头，而且还抹杀了一个源头，因为“家谱”这个词本身有着悠久的历史意义——类似于“家谱或血统”之类的东西，通常是在家庭或种族的背景下，后来引发了达尔文的进化观念。尼采自己似乎在这个基本的种族主义意义上使用了它。此外，正如我在其他地方展示的那样，福柯接受“谱系学”作为一个术语，以掩盖他自己对结构主义的亏欠，他在自己出版的作品的后期版本中删除了对结构主义的正面提及，从而掩盖了这一点。因此，如果学者们试图通过“谱系学”来唤起一种专门追溯概念变化的“意义”和“意义”的历史学，那么在这方面，福柯的“谱系学”正在压制它自己的谱系学。

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So where does all this leave us? At the outset, we can, and even need to, overcome positive dogmatism and epistemic overconfidence by doubting the certainty of various claims to certain knowledge. This turns out to be easy, as certitude is quite simply an impossibly high bar. Having done that, we can reject the paralyzing cynicism of incomplete skepticisms by either deploying them against each other or turning them onto themselves. Self--referential skepticism doubts itself and becomes something new.

那我们现在怎么办？一开始，我们可以，甚至需要，通过怀疑对某些知识的各种主张的确定性来克服积极的教条主义和认知的过度自信。事实证明这很容易，因为确定性只是一个不可能达到的高标准。做到这一点之后，我们就可以拒绝不完整怀疑论带来的令人瘫痪的犬儒主义，要么利用它们彼此对立，要么让它们自相残杀。自我参照的怀疑主义怀疑自己，并成为新的东西。

We need not become Pyrrhonists like Sextus. The Pyrrhonists proceeded by way of a practice of equipollence, which meant that—like a contemporary television journalist—they would collect arguments for and against any given

position until the matter in question became un-decidable. They thought that by extending this undecidability to every-thing they could achieve tranquility (*ataraxia*).³² This is clearly not what we need today. On an ethical level, many skepticisms have been consistently allied with pragmatic authoritarianisms.³³ Skepticism in practice often leads to the formation of ideologies that don't even have to bother to justify themselves as anything more than ideological (e.g., Mussolini's *Diuturna*).³⁴ On an epistemological level, Pyrrhonic skepticism is not in fact a useful stance for scholars, who after all are professionally required to adjudicate knowledge claims. We need humble, emancipatory knowl-

我们不必成为像 Sextus 那样的皮洛斯主义者。这些挖苦者通过一种同样的做法来进行，这意味着——就像当代的电视记者一样——他们会收集支持和反对任何特定立场的论据，直到有关问题变得无法确定为止。他们认为，通过将这种不确定性扩展到所有事物，他们可以获得平静(共济失调)。这显然不是我们今天需要的。在道德层面上，许多怀疑主义者一直与实用主义的威权主义结盟。³³ 怀疑主义在实践中往往导致意识形态的形成，甚至不必费心去证明自己的意识形态以外的任何东西(如墨索里尼的《迪乌特纳》)。³⁴ 在认识论层面上，皮隆式的怀疑主义实际上对学者来说并不是一个有用的立场，毕竟他们是专业人士，需要对知识主张进行裁决。我们需要谦逊、解放的知识

edge—not all-consuming- doubt. Succinctly put, we need a form of knowledge that has learned the lesson from critiques of both dogmatism and negative dogmatism alike.

边缘——不是全部的怀疑。简而言之，我们需要一种从对教条主义和消极教条主义的批判中吸取教训的知识优势。

Furthermore, today self-described skeptics are often dogmatists, insisting that some particular position or genre of belief is not the case. Many contemporary skeptics are close-minded materialists who are fully committed to rejecting the possibility of anything that would challenge this

此外，今天自我描述的怀疑论者往往是教条主义者，坚持认为某些特定的立场或信仰流派并非如此。许多当代的怀疑论者是封闭的唯物主义者，他们完全致力于拒绝任何挑战这种可能性的东西

outlook. Rather than doubting their own knowledge, they doubt other people's. All this suggests the need for a fresh term for a philosophical orientation that has jettisoned skeptical dogmatism without becoming Pyrrhonism. To refer to this epistemological stance I have revived an archaic English word that had largely fallen out of use: namely, Zeteticism, which was once defined as follows:

展望。他们不是怀疑自己的知识，而是怀疑别人的知识。所有这些都表明，我们需要一个新的术语来形容一种哲学取向，这种取向抛弃了怀疑主义的教条主义，而没有成为 Pyrrhonism。为了提到这种认识论的立场，我重新使用了一个很大程度上已经不再使用的古老的英语单词：Zeteticism，它曾经被定义为：

Zetetic. ze--'tet--ik, adj or n (Greek *zetetikos*, from *zetein* to seek) Proceeding by inquiry; a search or investigation; a skeptical seeker of knowledge . . .

Zetetic.(希腊语 *zetetikos*，来自 *zetein* to seek)通过询问进行；搜索或调查；对知识持怀疑态度的寻求者。

it has come to mean both the process of inquiry and one who so proceeds. A zetetic is thus a sort of intellectual agnostic who, while seeking greater truths, is always wary of falsehood.³⁵

它已经变成意味着调查的过程和一个如此进行的人。因此，怀疑论者是一种智力上的不可知论者，他们在寻求更大的真理的同时，总是对谎言保持警惕

With all that I have said above as its starting point, I also mean Zeteticism as a gesture toward the work of the Norwegian philosopher and founder of “deep ecology” Arne Næss, who uses it to refer to a particular attitude toward knowledge I will explore in the following pages.³⁶ Succinctly put, as an alternative to modernist certainty and postmodern doubt, I offer metamodern Zeteticism.

以上所述为出发点，我还指的是 Zeteticism 作为对挪威哲学家和“深层生态学”创始人 Arne Næss 工作的一种姿态，Arne Næss 用 Zeteticism 来指一种对待知识的特殊态度，我将在下面几页探讨。简单地说，作为对现代确定性和后现代怀疑的替代，我提供元现代 Zeteticism。

6.2 Knowledge without Certainty

6.2 没有确定性的知识

I am one of those lifetime seekers that the ancient Greeks called a zetetic. . . . From my research on scepticism and the foundations of science and logic, it became clear to me that pluralism (every event has many descriptions and possible

outcomes) . . . and a healthy scepticism (always seeking the truth but never claiming it) make up the most consistent approach to respecting the perspectives and experiences of others, human and nonhuman.

我是那种被古希腊人称为“狂热者”的终身追求者之一。从我对怀疑主义和科学与逻辑基础的研究中，我清楚地认识到，多元主义(每个事件都有许多描述和可能的结果)和健康的怀疑主义(总是寻求真理，但从从不主张真理)构成了尊重他人(人类和非人类)的观点和经验的最一致的方法。

Arne Næss, *Scepticism: Wonder and Joy of a Wandering Seeker*

Arne Næss, *skepticism: Wonder and Joy of a Wandering Seeker* Arne Næss, 《怀疑论: 漫游者的奇迹与快乐》

Absolutely certain knowledge is impossible.³⁷ Everything can be doubted. So we must grant the possibility of uncertain knowledge. Many scepticisms can be avoided if we become skeptical of the presumed link between knowledge and unshakable conviction. Comprehensive certainty is an unreasonable standard for epistemology. We can be skeptical of everything, including skepticism itself, *but*, crucially, that does not mean that everything is equally dubious. Some positions are better supported by the evidence than others. Doubt itself is even parasitic on the possibility of true beliefs (it only makes sense to argue that the world is an illusion in contrast to a non-illusory world).³⁸ Our goal is not a rejection of critique, but rather an amplification of critique that necessitates that critique be-

绝对肯定的知识是不可能的。一切都可以怀疑。所以我们必须承认不确定知识的可能性。如果我们怀疑知识和不可动摇的信念之间的假定联系，许多怀疑论是可以避免的。全面的确定性是认识论的一个不合理标准。我们可以怀疑一切事物，包括怀疑本身，但关键的是，这并不意味着一切事物都同样可疑。有些观点比其他观点更能得到证据的支持。怀疑本身甚至寄生在真实信仰的可能性上(认为世界是一个幻想而不是一个非幻想的世界是有道理的)。³⁸ 我们的目标不是拒绝批评，而是放大批评，使批评成为必要

come more discriminating and more fine--tuned. Yet we have to recognize that we often do not know when we know. Just as we do not always doubt the right doubts.

变得更加有辨别力和更加微调。然而，我们不得不承认，我们常常不知道什么时候我们知道。正如我们不总是怀疑正确的怀疑一样。

Næss argued that to be a Zetetic is to grant pluralism (that any given event has multiple possible descriptions), and that we cannot know when we know. Both are important, but I want to focus on the implications of the latter.³⁹ The Zetetic denies the prospect of certain knowledge, but also rejects the claim that we can know when we know something to be the case. Some things we think we know and we are right about, but we are wrong about others, and in many cases we cannot know which is which. One consequence of this skeptical attitude, Næss argues, is that Zetetics should refrain from using the word “true” or asserting that they “know” something, and should say instead, “I believe that x is the case.”⁴⁰

Næss 认为，成为一个 Zetetic 就是给予多元性(任何给定的事件都有多种可能的描述)，我们不能知道什么时候我们知道。两者都很重要，但我想集中讨论后者的含义。³⁹ Zetetic 否定了某些知识的前景，但也反驳了我们可以知道什么时候我们知道什么是事实的说法。有些事情我们认为我们知道，我们是正确的，但我们错了其他人，在许多情况下，我们不能知道哪个是哪个。Næss 认为，这种怀疑态度的一个后果是，Zetetics 应该避免使用“真实”这个词或者断言他们“知道”一些事情，而应该说，“我相信 x 是这样的。”⁴⁰

I do not quite agree with this language reform, but Næss has a point because, as David Lewis has observed, most people do not seem to include the possibility of being incorrect in their conception of *knowledge*. A Zetetic, however, who has granted the possibility of doubt, can tolerate statements like “I *know* there is a pine tree outside my window, but I may be mistaken.” Lewis has maintained that pronouncements like this just seem to “sound wrong,” and on these grounds he has argued for “infallibil-ism.”⁴¹ But many skeptics will argue that all statements Lewis is confident that he knows and has guaranteed to be infallible might also be wrong. So he is always in danger of claiming knowledge for a position that could subsequently be refuted.⁴²

我不完全同意这种语言改革，但 Næss 有一个观点，因为正如大卫刘易斯所观察到的，大多数人似乎不包括在他们的知识概念错误的可能性。然而，一个拥有怀疑的可能性的狂热分子可以容忍诸如“我知道我的窗外有一棵松树，但我可能错了。”刘易斯坚持认为，这样的声明似乎“听起来是错误的”，基于这些理由，他为“绝对正确主义”辩护但许多怀疑论者会争辩说，刘易斯确信自己知道并保证绝对正确的所有言论也

可能是错误的。所以他总是处于这样一种危险之中：他声称自己知道一个可能随后会被反驳的观点

All that is to say, a Zetetic goes forward recognizing that we are using the word “knowledge” in a peculiar way. When a Zetetic says we “know x” or that x is “true,” we are not making statements about absolute knowledge or infallible knowledge; rather, we are saying that we have contingent, situated reasons for provisionally thinking that “x” is the case. Zeteticism represents a humility toward knowledge. On a deep level, as a Zetetic, I recognize that I can know things but that there is always the possibility that I may be wrong. This conception of knowledge has an innate flexibility built in to it. Because I am not attached to certainty, I should be more able to take in new information and to change my mind to incorporate it in productive ways.

这就是说，一个 Zetetic 会继续前进，认识到我们正在以一种特殊的方式使用“知识”这个词。当一个 Zetetic 人说我们“知道 x”或者 x 是“真的”时，我们并不是在陈述绝对的知识或者绝对的知识；相反，我们是在说，我们有一些偶然的、情景中的理由暂时认为“x”是真的。Zeteticism 代表了对知识的谦卑。在深层次上，作为一个狂热分子，我意识到我可以知道一些事情，但是总有可能我是错的。这种知识的概念有一种与生俱来的灵活性。因为我不依赖于确定性，我应该能够更多地接受新的信息，并改变我的想法，以生产性的方式将其纳入考虑。

We can be even more specific about where degrees of confidence are warranted. As the ancient Greek skeptic Carneades observed, “in ordinary life, when we are investigating a small matter we question one witness, when it is a greater matter, several witnesses, and when it is an even more essential matter we examine each of the witnesses on the basis of the mutual agreement among the others.”⁴³ To paraphrase: lacking cer-

我们甚至可以更具体地说明哪些信心程度是有保证的。正如古希腊怀疑论者卡内迪斯所说，“在日常生活中，当我们调查一件小事时，我们会询问一个证人，当它是一件大事时，我们会询问几个证人，当它是一件甚至更重要的事情时，我们会根据其他证人之间的相互协议来审问每一个证人。”⁴³ 解释：缺乏证据

tain knowledge, most of us already tend to adjust our standard of evidence depending on the magnitude of the implications for being right or wrong. This is a good impulse that we can develop further.

我们大多数人已经倾向于根据对错的影响程度调整我们的证据标准。这是一个很好的推动力，我们可以进一步发展。

Zeteticism, then—like American pragmatism—needs to be a pragmatic stance that connects knowledge to its practical stakes for belief and action. A Zetetic can go further than a skeptic in recognizing when she might be wrong. Zeteticism means that a person can be justified in asserting that they “know *x*” (in the provisional sense above) if there is not a *significant* chance they are wrong about it (having evaluated a sufficient amount of evidence prior to making a truth claim). What counts as *significant* is directly tied to the practical consequences of being wrong. More significant consequences lead toward higher practical standards of confidence. This seems to be the way it usually works in scholarship as well, although we tend to be more or less conscious of this.⁴⁴ It makes sense that we get more cautious as the stakes get higher. We should. Ideally, if the entire argument of a monograph rests on a specific claim, then the evidence for that claim should be as solid as it can possibly be. In contrast, the chance that I am being deceived by an evil spirit is unlikely to be a factor in my evaluation of a manuscript, unless I have some further reason to think that I might be haunted. Depending on the risks of a given task, we can determine what degree of doubt is warranted.

因此，就像美国的实用主义一样，Zeteticism 需要成为一种务实的立场，将知识与信仰和行动的实际利害关系联系起来。Zetetic 可以比怀疑论者更进一步地认识到自己何时可能是错误的。Zeteticism 意味着，如果一个人没有很大的可能性错误(在作出真理声明之前已经评估了足够数量的证据)，那么他可以合理地断言他“知道 *x*”(在上面的临时意义上)。什么被认为是重要的直接关系到错误的实际后果。更重要的结果会导致更高的实际自信标准。这似乎也是学术界通常采用的方式，尽管我们或多或少地意识到了这一点。⁴⁴ 随着风险越来越高，我们变得越来越谨慎是有道理的。我们应该这样做。理想情况下，如果一个专著整个论点都基于一个特定的主张，那么这个主张的证据应该尽可能地可靠。相比之下，我被恶灵欺骗的可能性不太可能成为我评价手稿的一个因素，除非我有进一步的理由认为我可能被鬼魂缠身。根据给定任务的风险，我们可以确定什么程度的怀疑是合理的。

Zeteticism is not anti-critique. Rather, it is a deepening of criticism that necessitates more precisely crafted analysis. From the vantage of Zeteticism, many postmodern skeptical doxa are transformed into cautions. It makes sense to be more skeptical of someone's assertions when they seem to coincide cozily with their self-interests. It makes sense to be more cau-tious

about knowledge claims that seem to benefit those in power. Many of the “postmodern” propositions listed above can be rendered less dog-matic and hence more valuable by making them conditional, more fine-grained, or transforming them into operative suspicions and not blanket statements (e.g., classification *can* be conceptual imperialism; we *should* scrutinize concepts formulated in colonial contexts and see if they actu-ally hold when separated from those contexts/interests; language does not fully determine thought but we should continue to explore how and where it shapes it). But all of these can be addressed by altering the stan-dard of evidence rather than rejecting knowledge as such. We need to be able to separate why someone might be telling us something from an evaluation of the claim’s evidence.

Zeteticism 并不是反对批评。相反，它是批评的深化，需要更精确的分析。从 zetetic 主义的优势出发，许多后现代怀疑主义的教条被转化为警告。当某人的主张看起来与他们的自身利益相吻合时，更加怀疑他们的主张是有意义的。对于那些似乎有利于当权者的知识主张，更加谨慎是有道理的。上文所列的许多”后现代”主张可以变得不那么狗血，因此更有价值，办法是使它们更具条件性、更细粒度，或将它们转化为可操作的怀疑，而不是笼统的陈述(例如，分类可以是概念帝国主义;我们应该仔细审查在殖民背景下形成的概念，看它们在脱离这些背景/利益时是否实际上成立;语言不能完全决定思想，但我们应该继续探索它如何以及在哪里塑造思想)。但是所有这些问题都可以通过改变证据的标准来解决，而不是拒绝知识本身。我们需要能够区分为什么有人可能告诉我们某些事情，从评估索赔的证据。

We need to be careful not to conflate knowledge with its source. That means not dismissing or accepting particular claims because of their bearer’s particular race, gender, or sexual orientation. We have to be espe-cially wary of meaning change, blind spots, and Eurocentric presupposi-

我们需要小心，不要把知识和它的来源混为一谈。这意味着不要因为某些人的种族、性别或者性取向而忽视或者接受某些特定的主张。我们必须特别小心意义的改变、盲点和以欧洲为中心的假设

tions (many of these emerge from reifying social kinds—see chapters 2, 3, and 4). We need to be self-critical and reflexive, and to aspire toward an awareness of our own finitude. But we also have to be able to recognize when people we don't like are telling the truth. If an asshole told you your car was being towed, their rude behavior would be of less importance than the veracity of their statement. It's important to be able to recognize when this is the case. Sometimes people in power are actually telling the truth. Zeteticism encourages us to treat our knowledge as always only provisional and approximate. The Zetetic can remind us that knowledge and doubt are not incompatible. Just because we can doubt does not mean that we do not know. This is all very different from rejecting knowledge as such.

它们中的许多来自于具体化的社会类型——见第 2、3、4 章。我们需要自我批判和反思，并渴望意识到我们自己的有限性。但是，当我们不喜欢的人说实话时，我们也必须能够识别出来。如果一个混蛋告诉你你的车被拖走了，他们的粗鲁行为不会比他们陈述的真实性更重要。在这种情况下，能够认识到这一点很重要。有时当权者实际上说的是实话。Zeteticism 鼓励我们总是把我们的知识看成是临时的和近似的。Zetetic 可以提醒我们，知识和怀疑并不矛盾。我们可以怀疑并不意味着我们不知道。这和拒绝知识本身是完全不同的。

Zeteticism also needs to reject the popular assertion that everyone has their own truths. Although the idea that everyone has their own truths sounds positively ecumenical, it leads toward contradictions. If everything that I believe is “true for me,” then saying that something is “true for me” doesn't add anything. It is merely an emphatic restatement that I believe something. Unless we think that mistaken beliefs are impossible, then everything I believe *cannot* be true (even for me). Indeed, the Zetetic is committed to the view that I am probably wrong about some of the things I believe in (I just don't know which ones). The only way to make sense of truth being relative to any individual's standpoint is to allow for the possibility of people being wrong about what is true for them. Commitment to humble knowledge means recognizing that people do not automatically possess their own truths. In precis, we all have the capacity to be wrong and we may even be wrong about ourselves.

Zeteticism 也需要拒绝流行的断言，即每个人都有自己的真理。尽管“每个人都有自己的真理”这种观点听起来非常普世，但它却导致了矛盾。如果我相信的一切都是“对我来说是真的”，那么说一些事情“对我来说是真的”并不能增加任何东西。这仅仅是一个强调我相信某些事情的重申。除非我们认为错误的信念是不可能的，那么我所相信的一切都不可能是真的(即使对我来说)。事实上，Zetetic 坚持认为，我可能错了一些事情，我相信(我只是不知道哪些)。相对于任何个人的立场来说，

理解真理的唯一方法就是允许人们错误判断对他们来说什么是真理的可能性。承诺谦逊的知识意味着承认人们不会自动拥有他们自己的真理。确切地说，我们都有犯错误的能力，我们甚至可能对自己犯错误。

Zeteticism is a position that holds lightly to knowledge itself, knowing that even the very standards of knowledge are in a constant process of change. In effect, Zeteticism recognizes that knowledge itself is an unfolding social kind (albeit an ergonic kind). Many academic practices (e.g., double-blind peer review, replication studies, book reviews) can be thought of as anchoring processes intended to safeguard or verify knowledge claims. Whether they are successful or not, many of these institutional norms were intended to stabilize knowledge or confer specific properties on it. But we also have to recognize the inevitable drift shared by all social kinds. Thus, recognizing it as a social kind means appreciating that knowledge is a process, not a final terminus. Zeteticism is a way of reframing knowing in terms of its impermanence.

Zeteticism 是一种轻视知识本身的立场，知道即使是知识的标准也在不断变化。实际上，Zeteticism 认识到知识本身是一种正在展开的社会类型(尽管是人体工程学类型)。许多学术实践(例如，双盲同行评审，复制研究，书评)可以被认为是锚定过程，旨在保护或验证知识的前沿声明。不管它们是否成功，许多这样的制度规范都旨在稳定知识或赋予其特定的性质。但是我们也必须认识到所有社会阶层共有的不可避免的趋势。因此，承认它是一种社会类型意味着欣赏知识是一个过程，而不是最终的终点。Zeteticism 是根据知识的无常性来重塑知识的一种方式。

Finally, for all his ecological thinking, Næss's vision of the Zetetic project still tends to overemphasize the autonomy of the autonomous thinking subject. As an alternative, I want to take a brief detour through the Japanese philosopher Tanabe Hajime (田辺元)'s crucial work, *Zangedō to*

最后，尽管 Næss 的生态学思想，他对 Zetetic 项目的看法仍然倾向于过分强调自主性思维主体的自主性。作为另一种选择，我想简单介绍一下日本哲学家 Tanabe Hajime 的重要著作，*zangedō to*

shite no tetsugaku (Philosophy as a Method [lit. Way] of Repentance). Our key to unlocking its relevance is in the central term in the title—*Zange* 懺悔—which in Japanese Jōdo Shinshū Buddhism referred to “repen-tance” and even more specifically to the turn or moment in which we recognize that we are an incomplete, limited, finite being who cannot achieve liberation by means of Self--Power (*jiriki* 自力) but instead must proceed by relying on Other--Power (*tariki* 他力). When we apply this method of thinking to the discipline of philosophy itself, it will have illuminating consequences. Tanabe further glosses *zange* as “metanoetics” μετανοησις (“thinking--afterward,” or “repentance”), which he imagines as a pivot to-ward finitude that applies not just to the individual striving toward liberation but to philosophy as a whole.⁴⁵

哲学作为一种方法。忏悔的方式)。我们解开其相关性的关键在于标题中的中心术语——赞格 *something* 悔——在日语中提到“忏悔”，更具体地说是指我们认识到我们是一个不完整的、有限的、有限的存在，我们不能通过自我力量获得解脱，而必须通过依靠他人力量获得解脱。当我们将这种思维方式应用于哲学本身的学科时，它将产生启发性的结果。Tanabe 进一步将 *zange* 粉饰为“后现代学”，即“事后思考”或“忏悔”，他认为这是一个通向有限性的支点，不仅适用于个人争取解放，而且适用于整个哲学。⁴⁵

In broad strokes, Tanabe argues that philosophy is broken, but that it is not enough to repudiate all of the work philosophy has done and can do, since the act of philosophizing is both flawed and necessary. This means that what we need is a philosophy in spite of itself, a philosophy of “other-- power” which can only appear when it relinquishes its own autonomy or investment in “autonomous reason.” This is a philosophy for the “un-knowing.”⁴⁶ These are not people who don’t know (or worse, who are will-fully ignorant), but people who like Socrates recognize that knowledge is limited. This community of the unknowing consists of people who have given up on the autonomy of their individualistic and egotistical forms of reason to work together in pursuit of limited reason and humble knowledge. I think this is an admirable mission that serves to counterbalance the egotistical tendencies of many intellectual projects and to remind us of the importance of humble, collective endeavors.

大致来说，田边认为哲学是破碎的，但是仅仅否定哲学已经做的和能够做的所有工作是不够的，因为哲学化的行为既有缺陷又是必要的。这意味着我们需要的是一种不顾自身的哲学，一种“他者力量”的哲学，只有当它放弃自己的自主权或投资于“自主理性”时才会出现这是一种“无知”的哲学⁴⁶ 这些人并不是不知道(或者更糟，他们是意志完全无知的)，而是像苏格拉底那样的人认识到知识是有限的。这个无知的群体包括那些已经放弃了个人主义和自我主义理性形式的自主性的人们，他们一起工作，追求有限的理性和卑微的知识边缘。我认为这是一个令人

钦佩的使命，它有助于平衡许多智力项目的自我主义倾向，并提醒我们谦逊、集体努力的重要性。

I want to take something from Tanabe that is not found in Næss— namely, the importance of renouncing self--power in the pursuit of knowl-edge. To refashion the phrase typically misattributed to Francis Bacon, *knowledge is other--power*. One of the main upshots of several independent trends in philosophy (including feminist epistemology, science studies, and the sociology of knowledge) has been the recognition that it is a mis-take to conceive of knowledge in terms of the autonomous individual knower.⁴⁷ As noted in chapter 5, the mind is not a solitary ego peering out from our eyes. The classical “liberal subject” is a myth. We come to con-sciousness not through self--reflection, but via a dynamical process of en-gagement with the physical world and with a community of other know-ing subjects. There are no private languages. What makes the discovery of “facts,” limited truths, and even provisional knowledge possible is the disposition of a particular “thought--collective” or epistemic community. This should not be paralyzing. Every scholarly work is an intervention in an ongoing conversation with other people. To make progress is to make

我想从田边那里学到一些在 næss 中找不到的东西，即放弃自我权力以追求知识优势的重要性。用弗朗西斯·培根(Francis Bacon)的话来说，知识就是他者的力量。哲学中几种独立趋势(包括女性主义认识论、科学研究和知识社会学)的主要结果之一是，人们认识到，从自主的个人知识者的角度来看待知识是错误的。正如第五章所指出的，心灵并不是从我们眼中窥视出来的孤独的自我。经典的“自由主义主体”是一个神话。我们不是通过自我反省来达到意识的，而是通过一个与物质世界和其他知识主体共同体接触的动态过程。没有私人语言。是什么使得发现“事实”，有限的真理，甚至临时知识成为可能，是一个特定的“思想集体”或认知共同体的处置。这不应该是瘫痪的。每一本学术著作都是与他人交谈中的干预。取得进步就是取得进步

progress relative to and within our communities. This is not a rejection of knowledge but an acknowledgment that it is always in some sense relational. Part of the value of a community of inquiry is its capacity to check individual biases and blind spots. We often learn best from our mistakes. Knowledge is socially constructed. Theories are social kinds, but their utility is based on accommodation to our community and the relevant causal structures of our environment.

相对于我们的社区和在我们的社区内的进步。这不是对知识的拒绝，而是承认知识在某种意义上总是相互关联的。探究社区的部分价值在于它检查个人偏见和盲点的能力。我们经常从错误中学到最好的东西。知识是社会建构的。理论是社会性的，但是它们的实用性是基于对我们社会的适应和我们环境的相关因果结构。

To take a step-back: “relativism” has a bad reputation and what I’ve just said in this chapter so far may have raised red-flags for some readers. But, contextual relativism is trivially true. “The salt shaker is on my left” is a true statement relative to one’s seat at the table. More importantly, many statements would seem to be true relative to their circumstances (or con-text) of assertion. For example, as noted earlier, the validity of statements like “the population of my town is 7,754 people” is relative to both the con-text (my town is Williamstown, MA) and the time at which the statement is made. So assuming that statements about “the population of my town” are completely non-relative would be a mistake. Similarly, the truth of statements like “Francis Bacon was a scientist” would seem to be relative to which Francis Bacon we are talking about as well as the (changing and) richly contextual meaning of the word “scientist” and the possible social kinds toward which it could refer. In sum, while space prohibits a fuller elaboration, at the very least relativism is not necessarily the bugbear it is often made out to be. Epistemic progress means solving local problems in context, but the context is continually shifting.⁴⁸ What we think of as established facts are in constant flux (e.g., the consensus about how many planets are in the solar system, whether diamonds are nature’s hardest material, the value of Planck’s constant, the total population of Germany, and the exact length of a meter have all changed in recent decades). There are no eternal facts.⁴⁹ Neither are there brute facts.⁵⁰ In a manner of speak-ing, facts have a “half-life” like radioactive materials, giving off flashes of energy before they decay.⁵¹ Some of these facts have changed because of vicissitudes in the property--clusters they track, while others have changed because of shifting meanings.⁵² Even standards for knowledge itself have undergone significant transformations over the *longue durée*. These are all direct consequences of the theory of social kinds I have been outlining in this monograph. A Zetetic recognizes that everything—except perhaps Zeteticism itself—will eventually become obsolete, but that does not render it valueless.⁵³

退一步说:“相对主义”有一个坏名声,我刚才在本章中所说的可能已经引起了一些读者的警惕。但是,上下文相对主义是微不足道的事实。相对于一个人在餐桌上的位置,“盐瓶在我的左边”是一个真实的陈述。更重要的是,许多陈述似乎是真实的相对于他们的环境(或上下文)的断言。例如,如前所述,诸如“我的城镇人口为 7,754 人”这样的说法的有效性与上下文(我的城镇是马萨诸塞州的威廉斯敦)和发表声明的时间有关。因此,假设“我所在城镇的人口”是完全不相关的,那将是一个错误。类似地,“弗朗西斯·培根是一位科学家”这样的陈述的真实性似乎与我们所谈论的弗朗西斯·培根、“科学家”这个词的(变化的和)丰富的上下文意义以及它可能指向的社会类型有关。总而言之,虽然空间禁止更全面的阐述,但至少相对主义并不一定是人们常说的那种令人头疼的东西。认知进步意味着在背景下解决局部问题,但背景在不断变化。⁴⁸ 我们所认为的既定事实在不断变化(例如,关于太阳系中有多少行星的共识,钻石是否是自然界最坚硬的材料,普朗克常数的价值,德国的总人口,以及一米的确切长度在最近几十年都发生了变化)。没有永恒的事实。也没有残酷的事实。⁵⁰ 某种意义上说,事实就像放射性物质一样具有“半衰期”,在衰变之前会发出能量的闪光。⁵¹ 这些事实中的一些因为它们所追踪的属性群的变化而发生了变化,而另一些则因为意义的变化而发生了变化。这些都是我在这本专著中概述的社会类型理论的直接结果。一个 Zetetic 认识到一切——也许除了 Zeteticism 本身——最终都会变得过时,但这并不意味着它毫无价值

Thought that terminates in skepticism and then seeks no further is not liberating. Thought that transcends skeptical dogmatism to achieve Zeteticism is. One might think of it as a dialectical process in the Hegelian sense: limited abstraction is followed by negation, which is then followed

以怀疑主义为终点,然后不再寻求进一步发展的思想是不解放的。超越怀疑主义教条主义实现 Zeteticism 的思想是。有人可能会认为它是黑格尔意义上的辩证过程:有限的抽象之后是否定,然后是否定

by a pivot that suspends them both. The methodology articulated in chapter 4 can be read in this sense. Instead of choosing between false certainty and incomplete skepticism, we need emancipatory, humble, Zetetic knowledge. The next section demonstrates how to put this into practice; how to produce Zetetic knowledge practically. In essence, we are asking: what should we doubt? What should we take to be knowledge? How should a Zetetic seek? How should we hold our minds? What should our practice be as Zetetic scholars in the humanities today?

通过一个支点把它们都悬挂起来。第四章阐述的方法可以从这个意义上解读。我们需要的不是在错误的确定性和不完全的怀疑之间做出选择，而是解放性的、谦逊的、狂热的知识。下一节将演示如何将其付诸实践；如何在实践中产生 Zetetic 知识。本质上，我们在问：我们应该怀疑什么？我们应该把什么当成知识？一个狂热者应该如何寻找？我们应该如何保持我们的思想？作为当今人文学科的狂热学者，我们的实践应该是什么？

6.3 Zetetic Abduction and Prediction:

6.3 Zetetic 的诱导和预测:

Inference beyond Pattern Recognition

超越模式识别的推理

Most of what we do in the human sciences is pattern recognition, and we are very good at it.⁵⁴ We identify the role of religion in the writings of Langston Hughes, chart the figure of the refugee in French philosophy of the 1930s, or trace how nurses preserve forensic evidence in Baltimore hospitals. Occasionally, we make grand pronouncements about secularization, scientific discovery, or imperialism, based on what we have observed. Much of what we think of as theories or scholarly arguments in the human sciences are in fact descriptions of patterns. We are in the habit of making generalizations, hedged or sweeping, based on themes we have extracted from our source material. As I have said before, generalizations are not bad in themselves and are actually necessary in both scholarship and ordinary life. But scholarly generalizations open up a particular problem that has been the bane of many theoretical programs across the disciplines—specifically, that practicing pattern recognition on its own does not tell us how and where patterns apply. Restated, identifying patterns does not help us to anticipate future patterns or understand why patterns arise in the first place.

我们在人文科学领域所做的大多数工作是模式识别，而且我们对此非常擅长。我们在兰斯顿·休斯的著作中确定了宗教的作用，绘制了 20 世纪 30 年代法国哲学中难民的形象，或者追踪了护士如何在巴尔的摩医院保存法医证据。偶尔，我们会根据我们观察到的情况，对世俗化、科学发现或帝国主义做出宏大的声明。我们认为人类科学中的许多理论或

学术论证实际上都是对模式的描述。我们习惯于根据我们从原始材料中提取的主题进行概括、模糊或笼统的归纳。正如我之前所说，概括本身并不坏，实际上在学术研究和日常生活中都是必要的。但是学术上的概括揭示了一个特殊的问题，这个问题已经成为跨学科的许多理论项目的祸根——特别是，实践模式识别本身并不能告诉我们如何以及在哪里应用模式。重申一下，识别模式并不能帮助我们预测未来的模式，也不能帮助我们理解模式最初产生的原因。

Individual case studies are judged mostly on their internal coherence. But without a better metatheory of what makes a good theory or general-ization, we don't have a clue about which generalizations will hold beyond a particular example. We don't know if Hughes's notion of religion was exceptional, if the refugee figured differently in French philosophers a de-cade later, if Baltimore nurses are representative of nurses elsewhere, or if anything we say about secularization, scientific discovery, or imperialism is really generalizable beyond our cherry--picked set of examples. Without a better metatheory of what makes a good theory, we don't know the value or utility of own scholarly efforts.

判断个别案例研究的主要依据是它们的内在一致性。但是，如果没有一个更好的元理论来解释什么构成了一个好的理论或一般化，我们就不知道除了一个特定的例子之外，哪种一般化是成立的。我们不知道休斯关于宗教的概念是否特殊，十年后法国哲学家对难民的看法是否不同，巴尔的摩的护士是否代表其他地方的护士，或者我们所说的关于世俗化，科学发现，或者帝国主义的任何东西是否真的比我们精心挑选的例子更具普遍性。如果没有一个更好的元理论来构成一个好的理论，我们就不知道自己学术努力的价值和效用。

In what follows, I aspire to remedy that. To do so, I show how meta-modern Zeteticism enables us to understand, practically, how we should structure our thought, how we should evaluate evidence, how we should

在接下来的文章中，我渴望纠正这个错误。为了做到这一点，我展示了元现代 Zeteticism 如何使我们理解，实际上，我们应该如何构建我们的思想，我们应该如何评估证据，我们应该如何

formulate generalizations or theories, and what status they should have once they have been produced. I will argue that we should think of our scholarly knowledge production in terms of abduction or inference to the best explanation. Further, I will propose that Zeteticism and abduction can be combined in ways that benefit both. In sum, what follows is the key to the production of Zetetic knowledge.

阐述概括或理论, 以及它们一旦产生应该处于什么地位。我认为, 我们应该从溯因推理的角度来考虑我们的学术知识生产, 并以最好的解释来进行推理。更进一步, 我将提出, Zeteticism 和溯因可以以对双方都有利的方式相结合。总之, 以下是 Zetetic 知识产生的关键。



Many philosophers have followed Aristotle in bifurcating evidential inference into two modes—deduction and induction. *Deduction* is the classical model of logical analysis that starts from an established premise and arrives at what are supposed to be its rationally necessary conclusions. While there is less consensus about *induction*, it is often described as “an inference from the particular to the universal” or “a generalization from a sample to a whole population.” Case in point: after witnessing a large group of black crows, a person might generalize by means of induction that “all crows are black”—or perhaps more modestly, “most crows are black.” Although induction is often presented as the core of the scientific enterprise, it has been severely criticized on a range of grounds.

许多哲学家追随亚里士多德将证据推理分为演绎和归纳两种模式。演绎是逻辑分析的经典模型, 它从一个既定的前提出发, 并得出所谓的合理必要的结论。虽然关于归纳法还没有达成共识, 但它通常被描述为“从特定到普遍的推论”或者“从样本到整个人群的推论”一个恰当的例子是: 在目睹了一大群黑乌鸦之后, 一个人可能会通过归纳法归纳出“所有的乌鸦都是黑色的”——或者更谦虚地说, “大多数乌鸦都是黑色的”虽然归纳法经常被认为是科学事业的核心, 但是它已经在一系列的理由上受到了严厉的批评。

Following David Hume, several philosophers have observed that one of the central problems with induction is that some kinds of inductive inferences are indeed not very well supported and may even be irrational, while others are much more trustworthy.⁵⁵ In an oft-repeated anecdote, a man falls from a fifty-story building. As he passes each floor he says to himself, “so far so good, so far so good . . . so far so good.”⁵⁶ Of course, the joke is that falling forty-nine out of fifty floors without injury does not warrant confidence in a safe landing, and to conclude that a safe landing is likely is thus a bad inference. Not all inductive generalizations from an observation will be reasonable, and why this is the case cannot be established from within the

framework of induction itself. Induction can only be justified circularly; it has trouble distinguishing between good and bad generalizations (or weak versus strong inductions); and it cannot produce knowledge about unobservable entities. We can see part of the problem if we ask ourselves why the inductive inference “my last cat was white, my current cat is white, therefore all cats are white” fails, whereas the inference “my last cat was warm-blooded, my current cat is warm-blooded, therefore all cats are warm-blooded” succeeds.

继大卫·休谟之后，一些哲学家观察到归纳法的一个核心问题是，有些归纳推理的确得不到很好的支持，甚至可能是非理性的，而另一些则更值得信赖。当他走过每一层楼时，他对自己说，“到目前为止还不错，到目前为止还不错... 到目前为止还不错。”当然，这个笑话是说，从 50 层楼中的 49 层摔下来而没有受伤并不能保证安全着陆的信心，因此得出安全着陆很可能是一个不好的推论。并不是所有从观察中归纳出来的概括都是合理的，为什么这种情况不能从归纳本身的框架中建立起来。归纳法只能循环论证；它难以区分好的和坏的概括(或弱的和强的归纳法)；它不能产生关于不可观察实体的知识。如果我们问自己为什么归纳推理“我的上一只猫是白色的，我现在的猫是白色的，因此所有的猫都是白色的”是不成立的，而推理“我的上一只猫是温血动物，我现在的猫是温血动物，因此所有的猫都是温血动物”是成立的。

To use a more relevant example, what makes you think that any generalization about “religion” extracted from a particular case study is going to apply to anything beyond the study itself? This is not just a problem for religious studies—you could substitute almost any other category for

举一个更相关的例子，是什么让你认为任何从特定案例研究中提取的关于“宗教”的概括将适用于研究本身之外的任何事情？这不仅仅是宗教研究的问题——你几乎可以用任何其他类别来代替

“religion.” Most scholarship runs into the same problem. We can see this if we recognize that most academic generalizations can be formalized as the inductive projection “all observed As are Bs,” therefore “all unobserved As will be Bs.” This is a weak induction because it does not express any theory about *why* unobserved As will be Bs. We have no evidence that the pattern will hold beyond the weak reasoning that seeing as how falling forty-nine stories hasn’t hurt us, falling fifty won’t either. The upshot of this is that all the descriptions of observed “religion” don’t tell us anything about unobserved examples of “religion.” We could grant any definition of “religion” and work out an infinite number of case studies and on their own they still won’t help us make generalizations about “religion” as such, given that, either in the past, present, or future, there will always be cases that we haven’t observed.

“宗教”大多数学者都遇到了同样的问题。我们可以看到这一点，如果我们承认，大多数学术概括可以形式化为归纳投影“所有观察到的 As 都是 b”，因此“所有未观察到的 As 都将是 b”这是一个微弱的归纳，因为它没有表达任何关于为什么未被观察到的 As 会是 b 的理论。我们没有证据表明这种模式能够超越弱推理的限度，因为从四十九层楼上摔下来并没有伤害到我们，从五十层楼上摔下来也不会。这样做的结果是，所有关于观察到的“宗教”的描述都没有告诉我们任何关于“宗教”的例子我们可以给出“宗教”的任何定义，然后做出无数的案例研究，但这些案例本身仍然无法帮助我们对“宗教”作出这样的概括，因为无论是在过去、现在还是将来，总会有一些我们没有观察到的案例。

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Fortunately, induction is not the only way to account for patterns or formulate generalizations. There is an alternative account of inference sometimes referred to as *abduction*, *inference to the best explanation*, or, in Classical Indian philosophy, as *arthāpatti*. I will treat all of these terms as synonyms (terminology discussed in note).⁵⁷ At a first order of approximation, an abductive inference is an inference which goes from an observation to a hypothesis that provides the best explanation or account for that observation. Abduction involves what are sometimes considered two steps: 1) generating a hypothesis which works backward from the pre-sented phenomena to their cause (basically a reverse *modus ponens*); and

幸运的是，归纳法并不是解释模式或混合概括的唯一方法。对于溯因推理，还有另一种解释，有时被称为“溯因推理”，即对最佳解释的推理，或者，在古典印度哲学中，称为“阿尔特·帕蒂”。我将把所有这些术语视为同义词(注释中讨论的术语)。在第一级近似中，溯因推理是一种推论，它从观察到提供最佳解释或说明该观察的假设。诱导涉及有时被认

为是两个步骤: 1)产生一个假设, 从提出的现象倒退到它们的原因(基本上是一个逆向的方式);

2) discrediting or ruling out alternate hypotheses.

怀疑或排除其他假设。

Non--philosophers likely associate abductive--style inferences primarily

非哲学家很可能主要将回溯式推理联系在一起

with medical diagnosis or the reasoning of fictional detectives. If you've read a mystery novel, you can imagine how this goes. A detective steps into a room and sees a bloody knife and a dead body. The detective infers that the person whose fingerprints are on the knife is the murderer. The detective's confidence in their conclusion grows the more evidence they find that connects the suspect to the killing (establishing time of death, evidence of motive) and the more they can eliminate alternative suspects. The sleuth's conclusion is fallible and could be revised based on fresh evidence.

医学诊断或者虚构的名侦探的推理。如果你读过一本推理小说, 你可以想象这是怎么回事。一个侦探走进一个房间, 看到一把带血的刀和一具尸体。侦探推断刀上的指纹就是凶手。侦探对他们的结论越有信心, 他们发现越多的证据将嫌疑犯与谋杀联系起来(确定死亡时间, 动机证据), 他们就越多能排除其他嫌疑犯。侦探的结论是错误的, 可以根据新的证据进行修正。

We frequently make use of this mode of reasoning in everyday life. In-deed, psychologists have argued that abduction is cognitively basic, cross-- cultural, and closely connected to how children learn.⁵⁸ To be clear, abduction is not the only kind of reasoning people use, nor are people necessarily rational in all circumstances. Indeed, there are a number of very good rea-

我们在日常生活中经常使用这种推理模式。事实上, 心理学家认为, 诱导是认知的基础, 跨文化, 并与儿童学习密切相关。⁵⁸ 要明确, 诱导并不是人们使用的唯一一种推理, 人们也不一定在所有情况下都是理性的。事实上, 有很多非常好的解释

sons to reject the rational choice model that has dominated sociology and economics.⁵⁹ That said, a mass of psychological evidence has largely refuted the claim that people in different cultures have fundamentally different modes of reasoning.⁶⁰ But there is also evidence that individuals use different cognitive strategies in different circumstances.⁶¹ So it is not the case that we think abductively or even rationally all the time; rather, we are capable of adopting specific inferential modes in diverse contexts. Even in our scholarly disciplines, we often make use of different reasoning styles. Yet scholars and scientists in different disciplines do make abductions all the time, often without realizing it.⁶² This is a good thing.

也就是说,大量的心理学证据在很大程度上驳斥了不同文化背景下的人们有着根本不同的推理模式的说法。但也有证据表明,个体在不同的情况下使用不同的认知策略。即使在我们的学术领域,我们也经常使用不同的推理方式。然而,不同学科的学者和科学家确实总是在不知不觉中进行引用。这是一件好事。

Bluntly put, *induction* has trouble providing any proof that the next time we encounter snow it will also be cold, but we can use *abduction* to discover the causes behind particular patterns of evidence. For instance, the reasoning processes by which scholars came to theorize the Q source gospel were abductive. For those unfamiliar with this, one of the most fasci-

坦率地说,归纳法很难提供任何证据证明我们下次遇到雪的时候也会很冷,但是我们可以利用诱导来发现特定证据模式背后的原因。例如,推理过程中,学者来理论化的 q 来源 gospel 是诱导的。对于那些不熟悉这一点的人来说,最具迷惑性的

nating findings of nineteenth-century biblical scholarship was Christian Hermann Weisse's discovery that the gospels of Matthew and Luke share references to the sayings of Jesus that they could not have gotten from Mark. Moreover, because Weisse was able to rule out (on a range of philological grounds) that the authors of Matthew and Luke read each other, he hypothesized that the two gospels shared a third source, the postulated Quelle or Q sayings gospel.⁶³ While the issue is still considered unproven, Weisse and subsequent scholars discovered Q abductively. Since none of them had encountered Q firsthand, its existence could not be established by direct experience much less inductive generalization. But that it existed can be hypothesized based on the ability of the hypothesis to explain the historical evidence, especially insofar as we can rule out counter-hypotheses.

克里斯丁·赫尔曼·魏塞(christian hermann weisse)发现,马太福音和路加福音都提到了耶稣的话,这是他们不可能从马可福音中得到的。此外,由于 Weisse 能够排除(根据一系列的语言学理由)马太福音和路加福音的作者相互阅读的可能性,他假设这两部福音书共有第三个来源,即假设的 Quelle 或 q 语福音书。⁶³ 尽管这个问题仍被认为是未经证实的,

Weisse 和后来的学者们还是通过溯因的方式发现了 q 。因为他们都没有直接接触过 q ，所以它的存在不能通过直接经验来确定，更不用说归纳推广了。但是，它的存在可以基于假设解释历史证据的能力进行假设，特别是在我们可以排除反假设的情况下。

In summary, just as we use inductive reasoning without realizing it, we also sometimes use abductive inferences regularly without knowing it. But becoming conscious of the role of abduction in our research can produce a better appraisal of its strengths and weaknesses. This is because many scholarly oversights and errors are based on a failure to consider contrastive alternatives.⁶⁴ We fight for or against particular arguments without considering, much less ruling out, alternative explanations for the evidence. Moreover, many basic scholarly generalizations are weak because of overlooked assumptions in their selection of possible theories or unconscious biases in their sampling methods. Consider the ways a sampling method or perspective may be biased even in the basic statistical sense (for example, being non-random or non-representative, rather than merely the result of biases in the sense of dangerous stereotypes or impure motives). Indeed, thinking of the work we do in terms of abductions

总之，就像我们在不知不觉中使用了归纳推理一样，我们有时也在不知不觉中规律地使用归纳推理。但是，在我们的研究中，意识到诱导的作用可以使我们对其优缺点有更好的评价。这是因为许多学术上的疏忽和错误都是基于没有考虑到对比性的替代方法。⁶⁴ 我们为某些论点辩护或反对它们，却没有考虑(更不用说排除)对证据的替代性解释。此外，许多基本的学术概括是薄弱的，因为他们在选择可能的理论时忽略了假设，或者在他们的抽样方法中存在无意识的偏见。考虑甚至在基本的统计意义上(例如，不是随机的或不具代表性的，而不仅仅是危险的陈规定型观念或不纯粹的动机意义上的偏见的结果)抽样方法或观点可能有偏见的方式。事实上，从绑架的角度来考虑我们所做的工作

directs our attention to how we might be wrong. For all these reasons, we need a better sense of abduction and its strengths and weaknesses.

将我们的注意力引向我们可能犯的错误。出于所有这些原因，我们需要一个更好的感觉绑架及其优势和弱点。

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In more formal terms, the pattern of reasoning behind abduction is:
用更正式的术语来说，诱拐背后的推理模式是：

D is a collection of data (evidence, observations, givens)

D 是数据(证据、观察、给定)的集合

Hypothesis *H* explains *D*

假设 *h* 解释 *d*

No other available hypothesis explains *D* as well as *H* does

Therefore, *H* is probably correct.⁶⁵

没有其他可用的假设能像 *h* 那样解释 *d*。因此，*h* 可能是正确的

There are a number of different things to consider when deciding on the probability of a given hypothesis, including: How reliable is the evidence? How well does the hypothesis stand on its own (e.g., is it internally consistent)? How decisively does the leading hypothesis outweigh other contenders (e.g., does it have greater explanatory power, simplicity, plausibility, or productive promise, and so on)? How conclusively have we ruled out the alternatives? How thoroughly have we considered the full range of possible alternative explanations?⁶⁶

在决定给定假设的概率时，有许多不同的事情需要考虑，包括：证据的可靠性如何？假设本身是否站得住脚(例如，它是否内在一致)？主导假设在多大程度上决定性地优于其他竞争者(例如，它是否具有更大的解释力、简单性、合理性或生产性承诺等等)？我们排除了其他可能性有多大？我们有多彻底地考虑了所有可能的替代解释？⁶⁶

Abductive reasoning also has several distinct advantages over classical induction, and in that respect addresses many of the philosophical worries about induction. As the example of “Q” suggests, abduction seems to be able to provide us with information about entities that are not observable directly. A lot of academic philosophy has worried about the status of “unobservables,” as most of our scholarship involves forming hypotheses about things we cannot observe directly, including everything from the existence of black holes to the historical reconstructions of archeological sites.⁶⁷ Sexist attitudes, for example, are not something that can be observed directly, but they are something we can infer abductively from actions or

words when we have eliminated other alternative explanations. All of these examples pose problems for philosophers who presume that enumerative induction is the source of empirical knowledge, but these become less perplexing if we see them in terms of abduction rather than induction. The hunt for explanatory “unobservables” has been incredibly fruitful. All the academic disciplines regularly produce evidence for causes that are not perceivable without mediation. Rather than seeing this as evidence that we know nothing, however, we may more productively conclude that abductive inferential structures are ubiquitous in scholarly re-search.

溯因推理也有几个明显的优势超过经典归纳，并在这方面解决了许多关于归纳的哲学争论。正如“q”的例子所表明的那样，溯因似乎能够为我们提供关于不能直接观察到的实体的信息。许多学术哲学家都担心“不可观测”的地位，因为我们的大部分学术研究涉及对我们无法直接观测到的事物形成假说，包括从黑洞的存在到考古遗址的历史重建。例如，性别歧视态度不是可以直接观测到的，但是当我们排除了其他可能的解释时，我们可以从行为或言语中推断出它们。所有这些例子都对哲学家提出了问题，他们假定列举归纳法是经验知识的来源，但是如果我们从诱导而不是归纳的角度来看，这些问题就不那么令人困惑了。寻找解释性的“不可观察事物”已经取得了令人难以置信的成果。所有的学科都会定期为那些没有中介就无法察觉的原因提供证据。然而，与其把这看作是我们一无所知的证据，我们可以更有成效地得出结论：在学术研究中，溯因推理结构是普遍存在的。

This allows us to see how abduction has a distinct advantage over deduction as well. Deductions are best understood as producing conclusions

这让我们看到，相对于推理，诱导同样具有明显的优势。最好把演绎理解为产生结论

by extracting implicit information from their premises. In that respect, deductions are tautological, or “truth preserving.” But abduction is a type of ampliative inference that transcends its premises to produce new in-formation. The end result of an abduction may actually give us more in-formation than we started with.⁶⁸ For example, we might abduce that the only way to explain the perturbations in the orbit of Uranus is by positing a previously undiscovered planet (Neptune), which was only much later observed using a telescope. In this respect, abduction enables movement from observation to theory and back.

从他们的前提中提取隐含的信息。在这方面，推论是重言式的，或者说是“真理保存”但是，诱导推理是一种扩张性推理，它超越其前提，产生新的信息。绑架的最终结果实际上可能给我们提供了比我们开始时更多的信息。例如，我们可能会推断，解释天王星轨道扰动的唯一方法是假定一颗以前未被发现的行星(海王星)，这颗行星是在很久以后才用望远镜观测到的。从这个角度来看，外展使得观测到理论再到理论的运动成为可能。

Another problem that has long bothered traditional empiricists is that an inductive generalization is generally weaker than the initial sense ex-perience. The observation “all tigers have stripes” is necessarily less re-liable than the claim that “this tiger has stripes.” This has led some phi-losophers to conceive of knowledge as starting out from a relatively solid foundation of basic sense impressions, but getting progressively flimsier as we subsequently abstract or generalize. Taken to extremes, presuming induction from observations as the only source of knowledge about the ex-ternal world can lead toward philosophies—such as a transcendental phe-nomenology or a skeptical empiricism of the sort associated with Hume— in which only raw sense experience is taken as genuine and the existence of the external world is either suspended or regarded as rationally unjustifiable. When all is said and done, inductive generalization seems inescapably to reduce certainty (and worse, as we can always doubt even our preliminary sense impressions).

另一个长期困扰传统经验主义者的问题是归纳概括通常弱于最初的感官经验。观察到的“所有的老虎都有条纹”必然比“这只老虎有条纹”的说法更不可靠这使得一些哲学家认为知识是从基本感觉印象的相对坚实的基础开始的，但是随着我们随后的抽象或概括而变得越来越脆弱。极端地说，假定观察的归纳是关于外部世界的知识的唯一来源，可以导致哲学——例如先验现象学或与休谟相关的怀疑经验主义——在这种哲学中，只有原始的感官经验才被认为是真实的，外部世界的存在要么被暂停，要么被认为是理性上不公正的。当所有的事情都说完做完后，归纳总结似乎就会减少确定性(更糟糕的是，我们甚至可以怀疑我们最初的感官印象)。

Abductions, by contrast, frequently exhibit what has been called *emergent certainty*, namely that “the conclusion of an abduction can have, and be deserving of, more certainty than any of its premises.”⁶⁹ This is because of two different features of abduction. First, abductive inferences can synthesize multiple points of evidence that are not equally robust on their own. We can accumulate clues that make us more confident in our identification of the murderer even if each piece of evidence is inconclusive in isolation. A silhouette or a familiar voice might not mean much on its own, but piecing both of them together might let us to be more confident in identifying Alfred Hitchcock in a particular film. As the saying goes: “If it looks like a duck, swims like a duck, and quacks like a duck, then it probably *is* a duck.” I might not be fully certain about how to interpret an animal’s coloration, movement patterns, or vocalization taken separately, but taken together these data points can provide evidence for the hypothesis “that we have a small aquatic bird of the family Anatidae on our hands.”⁷⁰ In this respect, further investigation can contribute to the verification of a particular hypothesis, increasing our confidence over time.

相比之下，绑架经常表现出所谓的紧急确定性，即“绑架的结论比其前提更具有确定性，也更应该得到确定性。”这是因为绑架有两个不同的特征。首先，诱导推断可以综合多个证据点，这些证据本身并不同样强大。我们可以积累线索，使我们更有信心确定凶手的身份，即使每一个证据是不确定的孤立。一个剪影或者一个熟悉的声音本身可能并不意味着什么，但是把它们放在一起可能会让我们更有信心在一部特定的电影中找到亚弗列·希治阁。俗话说：“如果它看起来像一只鸭子，游泳像一只鸭子，叫起来像一只鸭子，那么它可能就是一只鸭子。”我也许不能完全确定如何分别解释动物的颜色、运动模式或发声，但是把这些数据点放在一起，就可以为“我们手上有一种小型水鸟”的假设提供证据在这方面，进一步的研究有助于验证一个特定的假设，随着时间的推移增加我们的信心。

Second, abductive inferences often increase certainty by eliminating

第二，归纳推理经常通过排除来增加确定性

contrastive alternatives. An abduction is weak if we have only selected from a “bad lot” of possibilities.⁷¹ This is why assembling a good contrastive set that does its best to exhaust the full spectrum of plausible hypotheses is one of the most important and most overlooked aspects of abductive inference. Alternatives in a contrastive set do not need to be mutually exclusive. It may be the case that both the butler *and* the wife committed the murder together. The French Revolution may have been caused by the deregulation of the grain market leading to rising bread prices and food scarcity *as well as* by a political crisis conditioned by Louis XVI’s breakdown of relations with provincial parliamentarians.⁷²

对比的选择。如果我们只是从“很多不好的”可能性中进行选择，那么溯因推理就是很弱的。这就是为什么构建一个好的对比集，尽其所能地用尽所有似是而非的假设，是溯因推理最重要、也是最容易被忽视的一个方面。对比集合中的选择并不需要相互排斥。这可能是管家和妻子共同犯下谋杀罪的情况。法国大革命可能是由于谷物市场放松管制导致面包价格上涨和粮食短缺，也可能是由于路易十六与圆颅党议员关系破裂造成的政治危机

In most cases, however, contrasting explanations are incompatible, and by eliminating alternatives we can arrive at more robust conclusions.⁷³ Identifying negative evidence for one hypothesis can strengthen our evidence for another hypothesis insofar as the two are part of the same contrastive set. If we think only two people were in a position to have murdered Frankie, then discovering Charlie could not have committed the crime makes Sam a more likely suspect. Inductive generalizations can-not gain strength by means of either further investigation or negative evidence, but abductions can. To sum up, while inductive generalizations reduce confidence, abductive inferences can increase confidence.

然而，在大多数情况下，对比性的解释是不相容的，通过排除可能性，我们可以得出更有力的结论。⁷³ 鉴定一个假设的负面证据可以加强我们对另一个假设的证据，因为两个假设是同一对比集合的一部分。如果我们认为只有两个人有能力谋杀 Frankie 那么发现 Charlie 不可能是凶手 Sam 就更有可能成为嫌疑犯。归纳推理不能通过进一步的调查或者负面的证据来获得力量，但是绑架可以。总之，虽然归纳概括会降低信心，但是归纳推理可以增加信心。

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Zeteticism can be combined with abduction to the benefit of both. If we do so it suggests that we need to also attend to a set of pragmatic considerations. A lot of ink has been spilled arguing about what counts as “the best” explanation. Abduction has been accused of being flawed because what is

meant by “best” is not uniformly specified. But this is actually an advantage, as from a Zetetic perspective it makes a lot of sense to maximize epistemic pluralism and consider different possible “best” explanations based on the purposes behind seeking an explanation in the first place.

Zeteticism 可以与绑架相结合，对双方都有好处。如果我们这样做了，那就意味着我们还需要考虑一系列的实用主义因素。关于什么是“最好的”解释，已经有很多争论。绑架被指责是有缺陷的，因为“最好”的定义并不统一。但这实际上是一个优势，因为从 Zetetic 的角度来看，最大限度地发挥认知多元主义，并根据寻求解释背后的目的考虑不同的可能的“最佳”解释，是很有意义的。

Another advantage of combining Zeteticism with abduction is that it allows for the goodness of a hypothesis to be judged by multiple criteria, so that explanatory power, plausibility, simplicity, etcetera may be evaluated separately, and the judgment of a single “best” might be based on a hypothesis standing out in more than one dimension, or trade-offs between dimensions of comparison can be considered explicitly (e.g., likelihood verses generalizability). What counts as the best explanation of the cause of a devastating office fire would be different for a structural engineer who wants to know why the building material ignited than for the fire marshal who might be more interested in whether it was caused by neg-

将 Zeteticism 与溯因相结合的另一个好处是，它允许通过多种标准来判断一个假设的优劣，这样，解释力、合理性、简单性等等就可以单独进行评估，单个“最佳”的判断可以基于一个在多个维度上突出的假设，或者可以明确地考虑比较的两个维度之间的权衡(例如，似然性与概括性)。对于一个想知道建筑材料为什么着火的结构工程师来说，什么才是对一场毁灭性的办公室火灾最好的解释，而对于消防队长来说，什么才是最好的解释呢？消防队长可能更感兴趣的是，这场火灾是否是由阴性物质引起的

ligence or arson. Even in these cases, not all explanations will be equally good and some hypotheses will be rejected by both engineers and fire marshals (e.g., that the blaze was caused by fire--breathing mice). Explanation can happen on different levels and in response to different questions. Thus, alternative explanations need not be incompatible, or even explanatory rivals, and different explanations might simultaneously be accepted as "best" if they explain different aspects or are useful for different purposes.

情报或纵火。即使在这些情况下，并不是所有的解释都同样好，一些假设会被工程师和消防队长拒绝(例如，火灾是由喷火的老鼠引起的)。解释-国家可以发生在不同的层面上，对不同的问题作出不同的回应。因此，不同的解释不一定是相容的，甚至不一定是解释上的竞争对手，如果不同的解释解释了不同的方面或对不同的目的有用，则可能同时被接受为"最佳"解释。

But—and this is important—as scholars we need to be explicit about our criteria. If two explanations seem equally to elucidate the observations, but one is preferable on particular moral or pragmatic grounds, then we need to be clear about that part of our decision--making. You might choose to invest your energies in testing a particular hypothesis because if it is correct it will help more people or because you judge it to be more likely based on other extra-theoretical commitments. This is not necessarily misguided. I am not opposed to norms in scholarship, but I want to emphasize the importance of making norms explicit so as to avoid value-- smuggling and talking past each other.

但是——这很重要——作为学者，我们需要明确我们的标准。如果两种解释似乎同样能够阐明意见，但出于特定的道德或实用理由，一种解释更为可取，那么我们就需要明确我们决策的这一部分。你可能会选择投入精力去验证一个特定的假设，因为如果它是正确的，它将帮助更多的人，或者因为你认为它更可能基于其他额外的理论承诺。这不是必须的——当然是误入歧途。我并不反对学术界的规范，但是我想强调明确规范的重要性，以避免价值走私和相互之间的对话。

It is especially appropriate here to add a set of postmodern skeptical doctrines transformed into cautions; or recast, to make abduction more Zetetic. As numerous thinkers have observed, there has been a long history of skepticism in various prejudicial modes that presumed very limited notions of what kinds of knowledge are possible. There has also been a long history of testimonial injustice in which evidence was dismissed because of the race, gender, sexual orientation, age, religion, or what have you of the person providing the evidence. Abductive inferences are strengthened by enlarging the set of considered hypotheses. Hence, all of these types of pre-

-judgments work to erode the strength of relevant inferences. But we can do better.

这里特别适合添加一套后现代怀疑主义学说，转化为警告；或者重新铸造，使绑架变得更加狂热。正如许多思想家所观察到的那样，他长期以来一直在各种偏见模式中持怀疑态度，这些偏见模式假定对于什么样的知识是可能存在的概念是非常有限的。证词的不公正也有很长的历史，证据被驳回，因为种族，性别，性取向，年龄，宗教，或者你提供证据的人的什么。通过扩大一系列经过深思熟虑的假设，溯因推断得到了加强。因此，所有这些类型的预先判断都会削弱相关推理的力量。但是我们可以做得更好。

As the contemporary postcolonial thinker Boaventura de Sousa Santos argues, the point of decolonizing knowledge “is not to ascribe the same validity to every kind of knowledge but rather to allow for a pragmatic discussion among alternative, valid criteria without immediately disqualifying whatever does not fit the epistemological canon of modern science.”⁷⁴ I agree with de Sousa Santos’s noble aspirations for a broader form of emancipatory knowledge, and I think Zetetic Abduction is the ideal inference model for the decolonized, humble knowledge he is calling for.

正如当代后殖民主义思想家 Boaventura de Sousa Santos 所指出的，非殖民化知识的要点”不是赋予每一种知识同样的有效性，而是允许在不同的有效标准之间进行务实的讨论，而不是立即取消任何不符合现代科学认识论经典的东西的资格我同意 de Sousa Santos 对更广泛形式的解放知识的崇高渴望，我认为 Zetetic Abduction 是他所呼吁的非殖民化、卑微知识的理想推理模式。

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I also want to argue that the widespread philosophical despair over induction can be addressed by changing our basic typology of inference.

我还想说，普遍存在的对归纳法的哲学绝望可以通过改变我们基本的推理类型来解决。

The common bifurcation of inferences into deduction and induction is itself a problem. Instead, I think it is better to understand inference on a spectrum between abduction and prediction (see below). Inductions are really a subtype of abductions, and at the opposite extreme, abductions can become deductions. Restated, abduction should be thought of as the principal inference type.⁷⁵ With this model in hand, we can judge better and worse inductive generalizations on abductive grounds. This is the key to answering the problem of the falling man mentioned above. From the vantage of induction itself there is no principled way to adjudicate *a priori* between better and worse inductive generalizations (all should be equally valid as inductions, hence the weaknesses of induction identified by multiple philosophers above). But we can judge inductions based on the standards of abduction. Good inductive generalizations are really “abductions wherein the frequency in a statistical sample is best explained by a causal story that proposes the frequency in a parent population along with the method of drawing the sample.”⁷⁶ That is, stronger inductive generalizations are those that present a hypothesis about the relationship between the observations and the cause of those observations, which in turn necessitates a theory about the degree to which the sample is representative. Evaluating inductions with abductive principles permits us to reject generalizations promoted by overly optimistic falling men and people who obsessively collect white cats.

推论到演绎和归纳的共同分歧本身就是一个问题。相反，我认为更好的方法是理解推理和预测之间的关系(见下文)。归纳法实际上是诱导的一个亚型，在相反的极端，诱导可以成为推理。重申一下，归纳推理应该被认为是主要的推理类型。⁷⁵有了这个模型，我们可以根据归纳推理的理由来判断归纳推理的好坏。这是回答上面提到的坠落男子问题的关键。从归纳法本身的角度来看，没有原则性的方法来判断更好和更坏的归纳推理之间的先验关系(所有的归纳推理都应该和归纳推理一样有效，因此上面多位哲学家指出了归纳推理的弱点)。但是我们可以根据诱导的标准来判断归纳。好的归纳概括实际上是“一个统计样本中的频率最好用一个因果故事来解释，这个故事提出了在父母种群中的频率以及抽取样本的方法。”⁷⁶也就是说，较强的归纳概括是指对观察结果与观察原因之间的关系提出一种假设，而这种假设又反过来需要提出一种关于样本具有代表性程度的理论。用诱导原理评估归纳使我们能够拒绝过于乐观的下落男子和痴迷于收集白猫的人所推动的概括。

Further, as noted previously, scholars who follow Hume have often argued that induction can only be justified in terms of induction, thus producing a vicious circle. By way of a preliminary counter-argument, deduction itself—or at least the core syllogistic structure of *modus ponens*— can also

only be justified circularly. Given that Hume thought deduction produced valid and certain knowledge, this might suggest either that de-duction is in fact equally useless, or that circularity is not the problem it has been made out to be.⁷⁷ But I'll take another tack. Insofar as abduction allows us to differentiate between better and worse inductions, an abductive justification of a robust induction is not itself circular. The best explanation for the hypothesis that a particular induction is reasonable could be that it is good at discerning actual causal patterns in the world. Although this does not justify all inductions, it suggests that *good* induc-

此外，如前所述，追随休谟的学者们经常争辩说，归纳法只能在归纳法的条件下被证明是正当的，从而产生了一个恶性循环。通过一个初步的反论证，演绎本身——或者至少是 *modus ponens* 的核心三段论结构——也只能循环论证。考虑到休谟的思想演绎产生了有效和确定的知识，这可能意味着，要么演绎事实上同样无用，要么圆形性不是它已经被证明的问题。但我将采取另一种方法。就引导允许我们区分更好和更坏的归纳而言，一个强有力的归纳的引导性辩护本身并不是循环的。对于特定归纳是合理的假设的最佳解释可能是它善于识别世界上的实际因果模式。尽管这并不能证明所有的归纳都是正确的，但它表明好的归纳是正确的

tions, at least, can be justified non-circularly- by means of abduction.⁷⁸ All

that is to say, our basic philosophical typology is inadequate. As we 至少，可以通过诱导的方式来非循环地证明诱导的合理性。所有这些都是说，我们的基本哲学类型是不够的。正如我们

have seen, good inductions are best thought of as a subtype of abductions. This means that classical induction is not in fact central to either perception of the external world, or scientific knowledge. So criticisms about induction are miscalibrated if they are taken to authorize grand skepticisms.

好的诱导最好被认为是绑架的一个亚型。这意味着经典的归纳实际上并不是对外部世界的感知或者科学知识的核心。因此，如果对归纳法的批评被认为是对大怀疑论的授权，那么这些批评就是错误的。

But a further insight is that abductions can be deductive in the limit, because if you can establish all logically possible hypotheses, and completely exclude the alternatives, then an abduction can be put in a deductively valid form as a disjunctive syllogism (*modus tollendo ponens*). Put in more formal terms:

但进一步的见解是，推理可以在极限内进行演绎，因为如果你能建立所有逻辑上可能的假设，并完全排除其他可能性，那么一个推理可以以演绎有效的形式，作为一个析取三段论(modus tollendo ponens)。换句更正式的话说：

Some explanation must be true.

一些解释肯定是正确的。

All possible explanations are considered.

考虑了所有可能的解释。

All except one are ruled out.

除了一个以外，其他的都被排除了。

That one must be true.

那一定是真的。

Although there will only be a very small number of situations in which all possible explanations can be considered, this means that both induction and deduction can be seen as falling under the category of abduction. Thus, it would seem that abduction is more central and provides more insightful terms of analysis for the way we acquire knowledge about the world than induction or deduction.

虽然只有极少数情况可以考虑所有可能的解释，但这意味着归纳和推理都可以被视为属于绑架的范畴。因此，与归纳或演绎相比，诱导似乎更为核心，为我们获取世界知识的方式提供了更为深刻的分析条件。

Instead of seeing inference in terms of the classical induction--deduction split, a better way to conceptualize inference types is on a spectrum between *abduction* and *prediction* (with mixed types in between). In many respects, abduction and prediction are symmetrical inference patterns: abductions go from observation to explanatory hypothesis; predictions go from hypothesis to expected observation.⁷⁹ Fragile predictions are basically weak inductive predictions which lack a theory about why the pattern will hold. To be sure, we often make generalizations of this sort, especially in areas of which we have little knowledge (e.g., why will the sun rise in the east? Because it has always risen in the east). But as we begin to formulate more refined knowledge of the world, predictions can take the form of hypotheses (e.g., why will the sun rise in the east? Because of the direction of the Earth's rotation).

推理类型的概念化更好的方法不是通过经典的归纳-推理分离来看待推理，而是在推理和预测之间的谱上(在两者之间混合类型)。在许多方面，推理和预测是对称的推理模式：推理从观察到解释性假设；预测从假设到预期的观察。脆弱的预测基本上是弱的归纳预测，缺乏关于为什么这种模式会成立的理论。可以肯定的是，我们经常做出这样的概括，尤其是在我们知之甚少的领域(例如，为什么太阳会从东方升起？因为太阳总是在东方升起)。但是，当我们开始形成更精确的世界知识，预测可以采取假设的形式(例如，为什么太阳会从东方升起？因为地球自转的方向)。

Just as an abductive inference attempts to explain a set of observations by means of a hypothesis, a prediction takes a hypothesis and attempts to project- the likely observations into the future. While abductions tend to describe causal relations, predictions tend to project- causal outcomes. Just as abductions can be falsified by counter-evidence, predictions can be falsified by counter-evidence when the anticipated outcome fails to occur. But there are also significant differences between abductions and predictions. Some things you can explain without being able to predict beyond the formulation of a probabilistic hypothesis (I can explain the roll of the dice without being able to predict what a given throw will look like). But we also often make predictions without explanations—for example,

正如溯因推理试图通过假设来解释一组观察结果一样，预测接受一个假设并试图将可能的观察结果投射到未来。推理倾向于描述因果关系，而预测倾向于预测因果结果。正如绑架可以被反证据证伪一样，当预期的结果未能发生时，预测也可以被反证据证伪。但是绑架和预测之间也有显著的区别。有些事情你可以解释，但无法预测——超出概率假设的公式(我可以解释掷骰子的过程，但无法预测给定的掷骰子会是什么样子)。但是我们也经常在没有解释的情况下做出预测——例如，

as a result of reliance on secondhand knowledge. I am predicting it will likely snow later today because my iPhone app tells me that it will likely snow later today. The prediction is fragile insofar as it isn't grounded in a specific hypothesis on my part, but it is likely to be accurate assuming that my weather app is good at its job (i.e., the scientists who created it formulated accurate hypotheses). Abduction and prediction are mirrored yet inferentially distinct patterns. That said, they are often entangled. We often use abductive inference to establish a hypothesis that then authorizes us to predict future outcomes, or we use failed prediction to rule out a rival hypothesis.

由于依赖于二手知识。我预测今天晚些时候可能会下雪，因为我的 iPhone 应用程序告诉我今晚些时候可能会下雪。这个预测是脆弱的，因为它不是基于我的一个特定的假设，但它可能是准确的，假设我的天气应用程序很好地完成了它的工作(例如，创建它的科学家制定了准确的假设)。诱导和预测反映了不同的模式。也就是说，它们经常是纠缠在一起的。我们经常使用溯因推理来建立一个假设，然后授权我们预测未来的结果，或者我们使用失败的预测来排除一个对立的假设。

This points us to a further implication about the way inference to the best explanation works: abduction is best thought of as a dynamical exchange between a sentient being and its environment that complements the hylosemiotics outlined in chapter 5 (some thinkers have argued that even nonhuman animals engage in abduction).⁸⁰ We see patterns in our sense-data. We generate explanations for those patterns. We evaluate those explanations, consider alternatives, and decide where to look for more evidence. Those explanations often lead us to predictions. We test those predictions with new observations, and so on.⁸¹ Further, against a skeptical notion of the mind imposing itself on the world, this process occurs by way of interaction with the external environment. We do not simply look at the world outside through the window. We pick things up. We drop them. We taste them. We chew on them for a little bit. We assemble evidence from multiple senses via a process of interaction. We form hypotheses about the external world from our role as situated and embodied agents.⁸² All of these are part and parcel of abductive inference as a dynamic process. All that is to say, abduction is the core inference type behind hylosemiotics, as it is part of how we extract meaning from signs.

这为我们提供了一个更深层次的启示，即溯因推理的最佳解释的工作方式：诱拐最好被认为是一种有感知生物与其所处环境之间的动态交换，这种交换补充了第五章概述的符号学(一些思想家认为，即使是非人类的动物也参与了诱拐)。我们对这些模式产生解释。我们评估这些解释，考虑替代方案，并决定在哪里寻找更多的证据。这些解释通常会引导我们做出预测。我们用新的观察结果来检验这些预测，如此循环往

复。此外，与心灵强加于世界的怀疑论观点相反，这个过程是通过与外部环境的相互作用而发生的。我们不是简单地透过窗户看外面的世界。我们收集东西。我们扔掉它们。品尝它们。我们嚼了一会儿。我们通过一个互动的过程，把来自多种感官的证据看作是证据。我们从我们所处的位置和体现的代理人的角色来形成关于外部世界的假设。所有这些都是作为一个动态过程的溯因推理的重要组成部分。也就是说，诱导是符号学背后的核心推理类型，因为它是我们如何从符号中提取意义的一部分。

Finally, I want to underscore that abduction suggests the procedures through which we come to discover social kinds, their power--clusters, and their anchoring mechanisms. It shows us that the discovery of patterns is not by itself sufficient for robust generalizations without an emphasis on the causal origins of their similarity. It also suggests how we might want to adjudicate between different accounts of a specific social kind. We should, when possible, formulate contrasting hypotheses and work toward the account that permits the better explanation of the observed pattern.

最后，我想强调的是，诱导意味着我们发现社会类型的过程，它们的权力集群，以及它们的锚定机制。它告诉我们，模式的发现本身并不足以进行强有力的概括，而不强调它们相似性的因果起源。它还提出了我们可能希望如何在特定社会类型的不同叙述之间进行判断。如果可能的话，我们应该提出对比性的假设，并致力于能够更好地解释观察到的模式的账户。

In summary, abductive inference is a better way to understand the reasoning that underlies empirical knowledge of all sorts. Abductions are fallible, but rather than leading to extreme skepticism, they reveal the strengths and weaknesses of arguments from the basis of empirical evidence and invite improvements through, for instance, showing that rival

总之，溯因推理是理解各种经验知识背后的推理的一种更好的方法。绑架是容易出错的，但它们并没有导致极端的怀疑，而是从经验证据的基础上揭示了论证的优势和弱点，并通过例如表明竞争对手来促进改进

hypotheses either have not been considered, or have not been sufficiently ruled out.

假设要么没有被考虑, 要么没有被充分排除。

Finally, conjoining Zeteticism with abduction suggests that pragmatic considerations should also be taken into account when considering the importance of concluding at all.⁸³ It is often the case that we need to suspend our decision between some set of rival hypotheses until we have gathered more evidence. It often makes sense to continue to consider seemingly less likely but still possible explanations. Even if we have identified the fingerprints on the murder weapon, we should not prematurely rule out the possibility that the suspect might have been framed. On the level of disciplines, it can be useful to keep around a range of rival theories rather than throwing all our weight behind a particular one prematurely.⁸⁴ Theories that have fallen out of vogue occasionally turn out to better explain later findings, and sometimes seemingly rival theories turn out to be complementary. Thus, it makes sense to encourage explanatory pluralism, if only to retain alternatives so that they may be argued against, thus strengthening the argument for the leading theory. Even when we have concluded, we have to recognize that our knowledge is provisional and should be held lightly.

最后, 将时髦主义与诱导结合起来, 表明在考虑总结的重要性时, 也应该考虑到实用主义的因素。⁸³ 在我们收集到更多的证据之前, 我们往往需要暂停对一些相互对立的假设作出决定。继续考虑似乎不太可能但仍然可能的解释通常是有意义的。即使我们已经确认了凶器上的指纹, 我们也不应过早地排除嫌疑犯可能是被陷害的可能性。在学科层面上, 保留一系列相互竞争的理论, 而不是过早地将我们的全部力量投向某一个特定的理论, 可能是有用的。⁸⁴ 已经过时的理论偶尔会被证明能更好地解释后来的发现, 有时候看似相互竞争的理论会被证明是互补的。因此, 鼓励解释性多元主义是有意义的, 即使只是为了保留备选方案, 以便它们可能遭到反对, 从而加强主导理论的论据。即使我们已经得出结论, 我们也必须认识到我们的知识是暂时的, 应该被轻视。

6.4 Conclusion: From Skeptical Dogmatism to Emancipatory Zeteticism

6.4 结论: 从怀疑的教条主义到解放的时代主义

“Postmodern” skepticisms grew because many people thought that doubt was liberating and even progressive. This may be the hardest part of the cynical zeitgeist for later generations to reconstruct. While post-modernism was typically situated on the political Left, one of the more interesting

developments of the last few years has been the sense that the old postmodernism now lives on the Right. This should not have been a surprise. A broader view of history shows that philosophical skepticisms have generally been either de-politicizing or used to justify conservatism and authoritarianism.⁸⁵ “Fox News” is not exceptional in this respect. Examples abound. This was no less true in the “postmodern” moment. We spent too long letting our politics determine our epistemology. As a result, we ended up with both an incoherent epistemology and a failed politics. Under the shadow of incomplete skepticisms, speaking truth to power became doubting the power of truth; and often the structures of power were left in place.

“后现代”怀疑主义的增长是因为许多人认为怀疑是解放的，甚至是进步的。对于后人来说，这可能是愤世嫉俗的时代精神中最难重建的部分。尽管后现代主义通常位于政治左翼，但过去几年更有趣的发展之一是，人们感觉到旧的后现代主义现在生活在右翼。这不应该让人感到惊讶。从更广阔的历史视角来看，哲学怀疑主义一般要么是去政治化的，要么是用来为保守主义和威权主义辩护的。例子比比皆是。这在“后现代”时代同样适用。我们花了太长时间让我们的政治决定我们的认识论。结果，我们最终得到了一个不连贯的认识论和一个失败的政治。在不完全怀疑论的阴影下，对权力说真话变成了对真理的力量的怀疑；权力的结构往往留在原地。

Incompatible skepticisms gained purchase because doubt is always possible. But many skepticisms fade once we allow space for uncertainty. Skeptics often gain the most mileage by presenting fairly dubious skeptical arguments (e.g., your senses may be deceptive because of the machi-

不相容的怀疑论获得了支持，因为怀疑总是可能的。但是，一旦我们允许不确定性存在，许多怀疑论就会消失。怀疑论者经常通过提出相当可疑的怀疑论证(例如，你的感官可能因为机器而具有欺骗性)而获得最大的利益

nations of an evil spirit), which, while unlikely, cannot be definitively ruled out. A Zetetic, however, can always doubt these skeptical arguments. The *practical stakes* of the doubt can be reasserted (if you really thought you were being deceived by an evil spirit, then why are you arguing with me, since I'm presumably an illusion?). Indeed, most skepticisms seem to have little practical effect, as the most avowed skeptics typically go about their day in the same manner as their non-skeptical peers.

尽管不太可能，但也不能完全排除这种可能性。然而，一个狂热分子总是可以怀疑这些怀疑论点。怀疑的实际利害关系可以被重申(如果你真的认为你被一个邪恶的灵魂所欺骗，那么你为什么还要和我争论，因为我可能是一个幻觉?)。事实上，大多数怀疑论者似乎没有什么实际效果，因为最公开的怀疑论者通常和他们不怀疑论的同龄人一样过日子。

Inevitably, postmodern skeptical positions suggest latent epistemo-logical commitments; their very uncertainty is motivated by a craving for absent certainties and a resultant investment in their own doxa and dog-mas. When skepticism learns to doubt itself, it ceases to be skepticism and becomes metamodern Zeteticism.

不可避免地，后现代怀疑主义立场暗示了潜在的认识论承诺，他们的不确定性的动机是对缺乏确定性的渴望，以及由此产生的对他们自己的信条和狗的投资。当怀疑主义学会怀疑自己时，它就不再是怀疑主义，而成为元现代的时代主义。

Zeteticism grants that disbelief and doubt are always possible. We might always be wrong. Any given statement might be debunked. But dubitability alone is not particularly noteworthy. The human mind is limited and the world is fundamentally complicated and enigmatic, so uncertainty is endemic and the best we can hope for is a form of knowledge with limited precision and confidence. We can say that we know something even while knowing that we may not know it absolutely. Some claims are rightly judged more dubious than others. We still need to guard against epistemic overconfidence and false presuppositions about the autonomous capacity of our own rationality. People, scholars included, often want to believe comfortable falsehoods. We need to be wary of these. All the same, even provisional knowledge is vastly superior to paralyzing doubt.

Zeteticism 承认怀疑和怀疑总是可能的。我们可能永远都是错的。任何特定的声明都可能被揭穿。但是可疑性本身并不特别值得注意。人类的思维是有限的，世界从根本上来说是复杂和神秘的，因此不确定性是普遍存在的，我们所能期望的最好结果是一种精确性和信心有限的知识形式。我们可以说我们知道一些事情，即使我们知道我们可能并不完全了解它。有些说法被正确地判断为比其他说法更可疑。我们仍然需要警惕认知上的过度自信和对自身理性的自主能力的错误预设。人们，

包括学者，往往愿意相信舒适的谎言。我们需要对此保持警惕。尽管如此，即使是暂时的知识也远远优于麻痹性的怀疑。

In this respect, analytical philosophers might see Zeteticism as a species of pragmatic fallibilism.⁸⁶ This is not an outlandish project since versions of fallibilism have been comparatively common across the globe (including in contemporary analytic philosophy), while claims to produce undeniable knowledge or generalized skepticism have been rare and often self-defeating outliers.⁸⁷ That said, many contemporary self-identified “fallibilists” are too optimistic in their appraisals of the status of current truth and knowledge claims. They often suggest that they basically have everything figured out, but just cannot prove it. Yet many of the things they were confident about have since been overturned.⁸⁸ Thus, from a Zetetic vantage, many optimistic fallibilists are just dogmatists who’ve agreed not to be jerks. In contrast, Zeteticism would remind us that many robust philosophical positions and empirically successful theories have been shown to be false by later theories, thus demonstrating that excessive confidence in the status of current knowledge is unjustified. We need the right admixture of self-assurance and doubt.

在这方面，分析哲学家可能将 Zeteticism 视为一种实用的易谬论。⁸⁶这并不是一个奇怪的项目，因为易谬论的各种版本在全球范围内(包括在当代分析哲学中)相对普遍，而产生不可否认的知识或广义怀疑论的说法则很少见，而且往往是自我挫败的局外人。⁸⁷也就是说，当代许多自我认定的“易谬论者”在评价当前真理和知识主张的地位时过于乐观。他们经常暗示自己基本上已经把一切都弄清楚了，但就是无法证明。然而，他们自信的许多事情后来都被推翻了。因此，从 Zetetic 的角度来看，许多乐观的易谬论者只是同意不做混蛋的教条主义者。相比之下，Zeteticism 会提醒我们，许多强有力的哲学立场和经验上成功的理论已经被后来的理论证明是错误的，从而证明了对当前知识状态过度自信是没有道理的。我们需要自信和怀疑的正确结合。

Metamodern Zeteticism enables us to move past cynical reason and to-
元现代的时髦主义使我们能够超越愤世嫉俗的理性，走向 -

ward emancipatory knowledge. In this chapter, I have been attempting to demonstrate concretely how coming to think of our scholarship in terms of abduction or inference to the best explanation can sharpen our thought and make us better theorists. Zeteticism fused with abduction can help us ascertain where to better apply skepticisms and how better to formulate generalizations. Further, unlike other forms of reasoning, abductive inferences exhibit emergent certainty, since both accumulating evidence and excluding alternate hypotheses make abductive generalizations more robust. While we will never reach complete certainty, Zetetic abduction thus demonstrates that intellectual progress is possible and shows us how we might work to achieve humble knowledge.

病区解放知识。在这一章中，我一直试图具体地说明，用溯因推理或最佳解释来思考我们的学术，是如何使我们的思想更加敏锐，使我们成为更好的理论家的。与溯因相结合的 Zeteticism 可以帮助我们确定在哪里更好地应用怀疑论，以及如何更好地形成概括。此外，与其他形式的推理不同，回溯推理表现出突发的确定性，因为积累的证据和排除替代假设都使回溯推理的普遍性更加突出。虽然我们永远不会达到完全的确定性，Zetetic 绑架因此证明了智力进步是可能的，并向我们展示了我们可能如何工作来获得谦逊的知识。

This chapter does not stand on its own, because for theories in the human sciences to move beyond weak inductive inference to more robust abductive explanation we need to be able to specify the common properties of the entity we are talking about *and* the causal, anchoring processes that have produced those properties. We need to not just identify patterns, but explain why they hold. Yet we have historically been missing the right account of the basic structuring entities addressed by our scholarship. This is a problem my theory of social kinds aims to solve.

这一章并不是独立的，因为人类科学中的理论要超越弱归纳推理，转向更强有力的归纳解释，我们需要能够具体说明我们所讨论的实体的共同属性，以及产生这些属性的因果锚定过程。我们需要的不仅仅是识别模式，而是解释它们为什么成立。然而，在历史上，我们一直错过了我们的学术研究所涉及的基本结构实体的正确描述。这是我的社会类型理论旨在解决的一个问题。

Finally, having provisionally (and perhaps only partially) distinguished epistemology from ethics, I will in chapter 7 look again at different legitimate ways of moving from fact to value and back again. We need a re-evaluation of values, including those concerning knowledge itself.

最后，在暂时(也许只是部分)区分了认识论和伦理学之后，我将在第七章再次探讨从事实到价值再到价值的不同合法途径。我们需要重新评估价值观，包括那些与知识本身有关的价值观。

7: The Revaluation of Values

7: 价值的重新评估

The postmoralist society characterizes an epoch in which duty is watered down and weakened, the idea of self-sacrifice is socially delegitimized, morality does not demand devotion to ends higher than one's self, subjective rights overpower imperative commands, and [what passes for] moral lessons are conveyed by [television] commercials about better living, sunny vacations, and coming entertainments.

后道德主义社会的特点是责任被淡化和削弱，自我牺牲的观念在社会上被非法化，道德不要求对高于个人自我的目的的奉献，主观权利压倒命令性的命令，道德课程通过关于更好生活、阳光假期和即将到来的娱乐的[电视]商业广告传达。

Gil les Lipovetsky, *Le Crépuscule du devoir*
Gil les Lipovetsky, *Le Crépuscule du devoir*

Out of the pressures of plentitude . . . [comes] a revaluation of values by means of which the accumulated forces are shown a path, a direction, so that they ex-plode in lightning and deeds.

在充裕的压力之下，价值的重新估价使积累的力量显示出一条道路，一个方向，以至于它们在闪电和行为中爆炸。

Nietzsche, *Writing from the Late Notebooks*
尼采，《晚期笔记本》

Postmodernism used to be regularly accused of having engineered the demise of collective values and thus having ushered in moral relativism or ethical nihilism.¹ In the writings of influential theorists—like Lipovet-sky, quoted above—postmodernism coincided with a self-centered and postmoral age.² According to this well--worn line of criticism, widespread moral relativism has set people “adrift on an uncharted sea, left to find [their] moral bearings with no compass and no pole star.”³ According to other philosophers, “postmodern emotivism” has won the day, and ethics has been reduced to merely personal preference, perhaps chosen the same way we select our shoes, as a matter of fashion and convenience.⁴ Indeed, one used to frequently hear

remarks to the effect that “Nietzsche’s declaration ‘*Nothing is true; everything is permitted*’—[is] the battle--cry of postmodernism in six words.”⁵ These charges were false.

后现代主义过去常常被指责策划了集体价值观的消亡，从而引发了道德相对主义或伦理虚无主义。¹ 在有影响力的理论家的著作中——如上文引用的 Lipovet-sky ——后现代主义与一个以自我为中心的后道德时代相吻合。² 根据这条老生常谈的批评路线，普遍存在的道德相对主义让人们“在未知的海洋上漂流，在没有指南针和北极星的情况下寻找他们的道德方位。”根据其他哲学家的观点，“后现代情感主义”已经赢得了胜利，而伦理学已经沦为仅仅是个人偏好，或许就像我们选择鞋子一样，只是为了时尚和方便。的确，人们过去常常听到这样的评论：“尼采的宣言‘没有什么是真实的，一切都是允许的’——这是后现代主义在六个字里的战斗口号。”⁵ 这些指控是错误的。

It was often said that postmodernism was a failed politics or a debilitating form of cynicism and political disillusionment.⁶ Unable to justify ethical or political commitments, postmodernism was supposed to have opened the door to global capitalism.⁷ Values were coopted by the financial markets, and the dollar and the stock derivative have pulled down the cross and shattered the picket lines. Perhaps with the advent of post-

人们常说，后现代主义是一种失败的政治，或者是一种令人衰弱的犬儒主义和政治幻灭的形式。⁶ 后现代主义无法证明道德或政治承诺的正当性，它被认为打开了通往全球资本主义的大门。⁷ 价值观被金融市场所吸收，美元和股票衍生品拉下了十字架，粉碎了警戒线。也许随着后美国时代的到来

modernity, we came to find ourselves gasping for air in a deepening moral vacuum.

现代性, 我们发现自己在不断深化的道德真空中喘不过气来。

But if not too long ago a host of thinkers argued that postmodernism was going to destroy ethics, that same scene has produced what its ene-mies, often the same people, now denounce for its overzealous ethical commitments. Postmodernism is today criticized both for being a cyni-cal repudiation of ideals and for being a hotbed of activism.⁸ Postmod-ernism is often taken to be both depoliticizing and politically correct. Anti--postmodernists who have noted the seeming inconsistency of these charges often suggest that it was postmodernism itself that underwent a change of epic proportion. For instance, in the eyes of one scholar, “At the moment postmodern theory lay dying in the academy, it bore a child, namely, ‘social justice.’”⁹ Other theorists similarly argue that “Postmod-ernism has, depending upon your view, either become or given rise to one of the least tolerant and most authoritarian ideologies that the world has had to deal with since the widespread decline of communism. . . .

但是, 如果说不久以前, 许多思想家认为, 后现代主义将摧毁伦理学, 那么同样的场景也产生了它的敌人——往往是同一批人——现在谴责它过于热心的伦理承诺的东西。今天, 后现代主义受到批评, 既因为它是理想的愤世嫉俗的否定, 也因为它是激进主义的温床。后现代主义往往被认为既是非政治化的, 又是政治正确的。反后现代主义者注意到这些指责的矛盾之处, 他们经常暗示, 正是后现代主义本身经历了史诗般的变化。例如, 在一位学者看来, “当后现代理论在学术界奄奄一息时, 它孕育了一个孩子, 即‘社会正义’。”⁹ 其他理论家也同样认为, “后现代主义, 根据你的观点, 要么成为或导致了自从共产主义普遍衰落以来, 世界不得不面对的最不宽容和最专制的意识形态之一。

[It] refers to [this] ideology simply as ‘Social Justice.’”¹⁰ Accounts such as these purport to explain how in the mid--2010s postmodernism suppos-edly exchanged moral relativism for rigid moralism.

它把这种意识形态简单地称为“社会正义”。这些描述旨在解释 2010 年代中期后现代主义是如何将道德相对主义转变为僵化的道德主义的。

Here is the problem: postmodernism, as an academic model, was nearly always moralizing but often also simultaneously either ethically relativist or actively value neutral. This is the contradiction I aim to explain at the outset of this chapter. I show how scholars under the sign of the negative promoted values, but typically values that they themselves did not recog-nize as such. Recast, I explain how value neutrality and moral relativism proliferated alongside negative ethical absolutes. I then turn this seeming contradiction inside out to reevaluate the role of epistemic values in schol-arly inquiry and

to provide a vision of a pluralistic, positive ethical goal for the human sciences.

这就是问题所在: 后现代主义作为一种学术模式, 几乎总是具有道德性, 但同时也常常是伦理相对主义或积极价值中立的。这就是我在本章开头要解释的矛盾。我展示了学者们是如何在负面价值观的符号下提升价值观的, 但通常是他们自己没有意识到的价值观。Recast, 我解释了价值中立和道德相对主义是如何与消极的道德绝对主义一起扩散的。然后, 我把这个看似矛盾的东西翻了出来, 重新评估认知价值观在学校早期探究中的作用, 并为人文科学提供了一个多元的、积极的伦理目标的愿景。

There is a long history of describing various epochs in terms of the radical atomization of ethical norms. But different theorists place the blame differently. In some sectors, the disappearance of values is still believed to have been exacerbated by the advance of science. In Max Weber's paraphrasing of Leo Tolstoy, "Science is meaningless because it gives no answer to our question, the only question important for us: 'What shall we do and how shall we live?'"¹¹ It is widely held that it is a "naturalistic fallacy" to extrapolate from "is" to "ought" or from "fact" to "value." Insofar as facts are understood to be the sole legitimate subject of science, it is often asserted that science cannot legitimately provide values and thus scientific progress is supposed to lead to values being increasingly exiled from the world.

用道德规范的激进原子化来描述各个时代有着悠久的历史。但是不同的理论家对此有不同的指责。在某些领域, 价值观的消失仍然被认为是由于科学的进步而加剧的。马克斯·韦伯(Max Weber)对列夫·托尔斯泰(Leo Tolstoy)的解释是: “科学毫无意义, 因为它不能回答我们的问题, 对我们来说唯一重要的问题是: ‘我们应该做什么, 我们应该怎样生活?’ 人们普遍认为, 从“是”到“应该”或从“事实”到“价值”进行推断是一种“自然主义谬误”由于事实被理解为科学的唯一合法主题, 人们常常断言, 科学不能合法地提供价值, 因此, 科学进步被认为会导致价值越来越远离世界。

The critique of activist or ethically motivated scholarship is not new. Along this line, and again in reference to Weber, scholars regularly hold up value neutrality or value-free science as ideals. Scientific and scholarly objectivity are widely supposed to be incompatible with ethical or political commitments. In Religious Studies in particular, theorists like Donald Wiebe have spent decades ferreting out “crypto--theology” and berating other scholars for importing values into their scholarship and teaching.¹² Ethical ideals are routinely portrayed as obstacles to objectivity and are blamed for Religious Studies’ failure to properly cohere as a secular “scientific discipline.”¹³ Value-driven approaches are often presented as anti-thetical to serious research in the field.¹⁴

对激进主义者或有伦理动机的学者的批评并不新鲜。沿着这条路线，再次提到韦伯，学者们经常把价值中立或无价值的科学作为理想。科学和学术的客观性被广泛认为与伦理或政治承诺不相容。特别是在宗教研究领域，像唐纳德·威伯这样的理论家花了几十年的时间搜寻“隐秘神学”，并斥责其他学者在他们的学术研究和教学中引入价值观。¹² 伦理理想通常被描述为客观性的障碍，并被指责为宗教研究未能作为一个世俗的“科学学科”恰当地结合在一起价值驱动的方法经常被认为是与该领域严肃研究相对立的

Religious Studies is not alone in this respect. For instance, economics was established as a discipline along an internal split between “positive” and “normative” economics, the former associated with “fact” and the latter associated with “values” (although these distinctions have since become controversial).¹⁵ Across the academy there have been many decades’ worth of scholars arguing that social scientific disciplines can only make themselves truly scientific by expunging moral commitments and ban-ishing values. It would seem that attacking social justice as incompatible with scientific objectivity has been going on for a very long time.

在这方面，宗教研究并不是唯一的。例如，经济学是按照“积极”经济学和“规范”经济学之间的内部分裂建立的一门学科，前者与“事实”有关，后者与“价值观”有关(尽管这些区分后来引起了争议)。¹⁵ 几十年来，学术界一直有学者认为，社会科学分支只有通过删除道德承诺和禁止价值观，才能使自己真正科学化。似乎攻击社会正义与科学客观性不相容已经持续了很长时间。

Taken together, it might seem that the diffusion of postmodern skepticism and the advancement of modern science have both contributed to the delegitimization of values. It is as though cultural relativism and value-free science have conspired to produce a vapid and postmoral society. By all rights we should be living in an amoral age—yet (as I argue in this chapter) these commonplace truisms are wrong. But they are wrong in an interesting way.

综上所述，后现代怀疑主义的传播和现代科学的进步似乎都促成了价值观的非合法化。就好像文化相对论和价值自由科学合谋产生了一个乏味的后道德社会。无论如何，我们应该生活在一个不道德的时代——然而(正如我在本章中所论证的那样)这些老生常谈是错误的。但是他们错在一个有趣的方面。

Various forms of ethics have always prospered in the humanities and social sciences. For evidence one has only to look through our journals and other scholarly publications, which have a long history of frequently employing value--laden terminology. That said, much of this moralizing language has been resolutely negative or critical in tone. But we were never lacking in ethics; we just drove ethics underground (though not that far). Indeed, as I argue here, it is the very discourse of value neutrality that has caused us to embrace values that we do not name as such and perhaps do not even know to be values.

各种形式的伦理学在人文社会科学中一直蓬勃发展。为了寻找证据，我们只需查阅我们的期刊和其他学术出版物，这些出版物长期以来经常使用充满价值的术语。也就是说，这些道德化的语言大部分在语调上都是绝对否定或批判性的。但是我们从来不缺乏道德；我们只是把道德推到地下(虽然没有那么远)。事实上，正如我在这里所论述的，正是价值中立的话语使我们拥抱那些我们并不称之为价值，甚至可能不知道是价值的价值。

The central contentions of this chapter are that our aim for value--free human sciences is largely misguided; that to make progress we need to bring our values to the surface and submit them to further scrutiny and refinement; and, crucially, that it is possible to imagine (and I want to call for) an alternate and fully normative purpose for the human sciences. I will make the case in five parts. First, I briefly gesture at the moral climate

这一章的中心论点是，我们追求无价值的人文科学的目标在很大程度上是被误导的；为了取得进展，我们需要将我们的价值观表现出来，并将其提交进一步的审查和完善；至关重要的是，有可能为人文学科设想(我想呼吁)一个替代的、完全规范化的目的。我将分五个部分来阐述这个问题。首先，我简要地指出道德气氛

of peak postmodernism, which, far from being a vacuum, was full of ethical language—but with a peculiar asymmetry: advocacy has historically been rejected as overly moralizing while at the same time scholars continue to castigate immoralities under the guise of doing legitimate factual criticism.

后现代主义的巅峰, 远非真空, 充满了伦理语言——但具有特殊的不对称性: 倡导在历史上被斥为过分道德化, 同时学者们继续在合法的事实批评的幌子下谴责不道德。

Second, I show how the human sciences were at the center of an illusion about the relationship between science and values. Third, I focus in the core of the chapter on a set of legitimate ways philosophers have identified for moving from *is* to *ought*, and touch upon the case for the ubiquity of epistemic norms or values. This section is the analogue to chapter 2's deconstructive dojo. It shows various valid strategies for relating facts to values and vice versa. For fellow scholar-activists, however, it also provides a cautionary note about the limits of normative advocacy as currently undertaken in many sectors of the academy.

其次, 我展示了人文科学是如何处于关于科学与价值观之间关系的错觉的中心。第三, 我集中在本章的核心, 一套合法的方式, 哲学家已确定从是应该, 并触及的情况下, 普遍存在的认识规范或价值。这一部分类似于第二章的解构主义道场。它展示了将事实与价值联系起来的各种有效策略, 反之亦然。然而, 对于学者活动家同行来说, 它也提供了一个关于目前在学术界许多部门开展的规范性倡导的局限性的警示。

Fourth, once we transcend the failed project of value neutrality, I put forth a proposal not about what the humanities and social sciences have been, but about what they should be: a means toward *making us better people*. Restated, I provide a normative argument for human flourishing or well-being (that even goes beyond the human to include multispecies flourishing, for humans, after all, do not exist in a world disconnected from that of other creatures). I'll begin this section by making the case for eudaimonic or virtue ethics, with a weight toward classical Greek, Indian, and Chinese contributions to that topic. Finally, I amend virtue ethics by introducing a little critical theory. I propose a reformulation of the virtue ethical goal away from individual satisfaction or happiness and onto "Revolutionary Happiness," which I argue should be our main collective project in the human sciences; further, I argue that future scholarship should be evaluated at least partly in terms of its contribution toward this shared goal.

第四, 一旦我们超越了失败的价值中立项目, 我提出的建议不是关于人文和社会科学已经是什么, 而是关于它们应该是什么: 一种使我们成为更好的人的手段。重申一下, 我为人类的繁荣或幸福提供了一个规范性的论据(甚至超越了人类, 包括多物种的繁荣, 因为毕竟, 人类并不

存在于一个与其他生物脱节的世界中)。我将在这一部分开始阐述优越论或美德伦理学，重点阐述古典希腊、印度和中国对这一主题的贡献。最后，我通过引入一些批判性理论来修正美德伦理学。我提议将美德伦理目标从个人满足或幸福转向“革命性幸福”，我认为这应该是我们在人文科学领域的主要集体项目；此外，我认为未来的学术应该至少部分地根据它对这一共同目标的贡献进行评估。

7.1 The Values of Postmodernism

7.1 后现代主义的价值

You asked me before if I was not a nihilist who rejected morality. I say: No! . . . In a sense, I am a moralist.

你曾经问过我，我是否是一个拒绝道德的虚无主义者。我说：不！从某种意义上说，我是一个道德家。

Michel Foucault in conversation with Michael Bess, 1980
1980年，福柯与迈克尔·贝斯的对话

“Postmodernism” did not coincide with a departure of values, but rather a proliferation of negative lodestars.¹⁶ Think of the terms—racism, sexism, anti--semitism, homophobia, patriarchy—that proliferated as morally inflected condemnations in the very time period the theorists referenced above described as an ethical vacuum.¹⁷ Of course, this language evoked moral wrongs rather than positive ideals, but it was no less ethically motivating. “后现代主义”与价值观念的背离并不一致，而是与负面信念的扩散相一致。想想这些术语——种族主义、性别歧视、反犹太主义、同性恋恐惧症、父权制——在上述理论家描述为道德真空的那个时期，作为道德上的谴责而扩散开来。当然，这种语言引发了道德上的错误，而不是积极的理想，但它同样是道德上的主题

vated. These terms and their more recent siblings (such as transphobia, ableism, anti-blackness, toxic masculinity, and more) are all a significant part of the public conversation, where they often meet with other morally loaded terms from elsewhere on the political spectrum—like anti-Christian, disrespectful, unpatriotic, un-American, and elitist. To this, scholars have contributed a further set of concepts that signal inter-twined moral and intellectual castigation—such as ethnocentrism, Euro-centrism, logocentrism, anthropocentrism, androcentrism (why do we have a problem with centers?), Otherizing, totalizing, stereotyping, linguistic violence, and so on, as well as adapting terms that originally lacked moral registers, such as privilege, appropriation, essentialism, and problematic, which have now also become foci of ethical censure.

Vated. 这些术语以及它们最近的兄弟姐妹(如跨性别恐惧症、能力歧视、反黑人、有毒的男子气概等等)都是公众谈话的重要组成部分,在这些术语中,他们经常遇到来自政治光谱其他地方的道德负荷术语,如反基督教、无礼、不爱国、非美国人和精英主义者。为此,学者们提出了一系列进一步的概念,这些概念标志着道德和知识上相互交织的谴责——例如种族中心主义、欧洲中心主义、逻各斯中心主义、人类中心主义、男性中心主义(为什么我们会有中心主义的问题?)特权、占有、本质主义、问题批判等原本缺乏道德范畴的术语,现在也成为道德谴责的焦点。

I do not think there is anything wrong with much of this vocabulary, and it is incredibly valuable to draw attention to suffering and deprivation. I merely want to make two simple points: first, it is all moral language; and second, most of this is not new. (It could almost go without mentioning, but almost all of this moralizing language was fully in place long before the period when critics imagine postmodernism shed its moral relativism.) Scholars have a long history of fiercely policing moral wrongs—then as now. We scholars have never been lacking a morality, but we have also been calling out “activist scholars” in the name of objectivity since at least the 1970s and pointing out failures to adhere to “value neutrality” since at least the 1950s.¹⁸ There has been for at least half a century a consistent back-and-forth or perhaps necessary tension between ethically motivated and avowedly ethically neutral scholars. In this respect, the attempt to expunge values might seem both failed and unnecessary. It is often our inherent sense of justice and righteousness or pursuit of things like truth and knowledge, that motivates most of us to enter the academy in the first place. Why, therefore, pretend that our work must be free of ethics, when ethics is often central to our choice to do the work we do?

我不认为这些词汇有什么错误,而且引起人们对苦难和匮乏的关注是非常有价值的。我只想简单地說两点:第一,这些都是道德语言;第二,这些都不是新的。(这几乎不用提,但几乎所有这种道德化的语言在批

评家想象后现代主义摆脱其道德相对主义的时期之前就已经完全存在了。)学者们长期以来一直在严格控制道德错误——当时和现在一样。我们学者从来不缺乏道德,但至少从 20 世纪 70 年代开始,我们就以客观性的名义呼吁“激进学者”,并指出至少从 20 世纪 50 年代开始,我们就未能坚持“价值中立”。18 至少半个世纪以来,在有道德动机的学者和公开的道德中立学者之间一直存在着一种持续的、或许是必要的紧张关系。在这方面,试图抹杀价值观似乎既失败又没有必要。正是我们内在的正义感和正义感,或者对真理和知识的追求,促使我们大多数人最初进入学院学习。为什么,因此,假装我们的工作必须免于道德,而道德往往是我们选择做我们所做的工作的核心?

The postmodern canon is equally full of normative accounts. Already from *L'écriture et la différence* (1967), Derrida had been expounding on an “ethical imperative” of openness to the Other drawn from Levinas. Irigaray had been criticizing phallocentrism and the marginalization of women in psychoanalytic theory since *Speculum de l'autre femme* (1974). Barthes's early essays are full of musings on Marxism and political commentary; as he put it, “Political knowledge is therefore the first object of political action.”¹⁹ I could keep going. Indeed, as the quotation above illustrates, Foucault and company were not immoralists but ethical or political theorists, and they often saw themselves as such. “Postmodern skepticism” gained ground not because it rejected norms, but precisely because

后现代主义的经典同样充满了规范性的叙述。德里达已经从《写作与差异》(1967)中阐述了向他者开放的“伦理必要性”,这种开放来自列维纳斯。自从《另一个女人的窥镜》(1974)以来,伊里加雷一直在批判精神分析理论中的男性中心主义和女性边缘化。巴特早期的散文充满了对马克思主义和政治评论的沉思,正如他所说,“因此,政治知识是政治行动的首要目标。”我可以继续写下去。事实上,正如上面提到的那样,福柯和他的同伴不是道德家,而是伦理或政治理论家,他们常常把自己看成是这样的人。“后现代怀疑主义”之所以获得支持,并不是因为它拒绝规范,而正是因为

people thought it could advance what amounted to a progressive, ethically motivated politics. We did not pass through an epoch where everything was permitted.

人们认为它可以推进进步的、有道德动机的政治。我们并没有经历一个允许任何事情发生的时代。

That said, except for some anodyne references to “diversity,” most of our contemporary moral language is, and has been, *negative*, as if we imagine that if we can merely eradicate the *immoral*, we will be left with what we think of as the moral, but we won’t need to call it such. The hypocrisy of this position ought to be clear. Scholars are trying to sneak ethics in without telling anyone by framing their scholarship in a negative register and by (consciously or not) implying that it is value neutral to anyone who might question the project’s ethics.²⁰ The truth is that we live not in a post-moralist society, but in a richly moralizing one. There is nothing wrong with this; in truth it can become the very thing that helps us to advance our scholarship productively and fruitfully. Once we bring our suppressed morals to the surface and allow them to expand beyond mere negativity, we will be able to communicate more clearly across disciplinary lines.

也就是说, 除了一些关于“多样性”的无伤大雅的提法外, 我们当代的道德语言大多是消极的, 而且一直是消极的, 就好像我们认为如果我们仅仅能够根除不道德的东西, 我们就会留下我们认为是道德的东西, 但是我们不需要这样称呼它。这种立场的虚伪性应该是清楚的。学者们试图在不告诉任何人的情况下偷偷地把伦理学融入其中, 他们将自己的学术成果置于否定的语境之中, 并(有意或无意地)暗示, 对于任何可能质疑该项目伦理学的人来说, 它都是价值中立的。²⁰ 事实是, 我们生活在一个富有道德意义的社会, 而不是一个后道德社会。这并没有什么错; 事实上, 它可以成为帮助我们富有成效地提高我们的学术水平的事物。一旦我们把我们的道德表现出来, 允许它们超越单纯的消极, 我们将能够跨越学科界限进行更清晰的交流。

Again, as noted in chapter 6, a pervasive feature of the academy under the sign of the negative has been a confusion of ethics with epistemology. This results in common but fallacious smuggling operations in which, on the one hand, epistemological assertions are overruled based on ethical or political motives, and on the other, epistemological skepticisms are marshalled against optimistic ethical or political initiatives. This confusion should be ameliorated once we recognize the role ethics plays in our work.

同样, 正如在第六章中所指出的, 学院在消极标志下的一个普遍特征是伦理学与认识论的混淆。这导致了常见但是谬误的走私活动, 一方面, 认识论断言基于道德或政治动机而被推翻, 另一方面, 认识论怀疑论对乐观的道德或政治倡议而言受到损害。一旦我们认识到道德在工作中的作用, 这种混乱就应该得到改善。

Instead of presenting fully articulated epistemological criticisms, scholars regularly invalidate various claims to knowledge on political/ moral grounds (e.g., sexist metaphors can be found in Newtonian physics, therefore we should think twice about accepting a mathematized astro-physics).²¹ We police most strongly the citational practices of those we think of as ethically misguided (e.g., Michael Bellesiles's citations in *Arm-ing America* were intensely criticized by gun enthusiasts who disagreed with its thesis and ultimately forced the press to retract it).²² The phrase "poor scholarship" is often used to signal an ethical rather than an episte-mological failing. We were cancelling each other (left and right) long be-fore cancelling became a buzzword.²³

21. 我们对那些被我们认为是伦理误导的人的引用做了最严格的监督(例如, 迈克尔·贝莱塞尔斯在《*Arm-ing America*》中的引用受到了枪支爱好者的强烈批评, 他们不同意这个论点, 最终迫使媒体撤回了这个论点)。22.“糟糕的学术”这个短语经常被用来表示伦理上的失败, 而不是认识论上的失败。早在“取消”成为一个流行词之前, 我们就已经互相取消了(左右)

Often this form of criticism gets its mileage by conflating the personal character or identity position of the thinker with his or her thought.²⁴ In-deed, it may seem that instead of the death of the author we have become experts in the *ad hominem*. But even when it does not take the form of character assassination, this mode of theorizing often smuggles ethical or political arguments in under the guise of empirical criticism or research. Less frequently, this confusion runs the other way. Positive political or ethical projects are also undercut by skeptical challenges to their episte-

这种形式的批评往往是通过将思想家的个人特征或身份地位与他或她的思想混为一谈而获得成功的。实际上, 我们似乎成为了人身攻击的专家, 而不是作者的死亡。但是, 即使不采取人格暗杀的形式, 这种理论模式也常常以经验批评或研究为幌子, 将伦理或政治论据偷偷带进来。然而, 这种混乱的情况并不常见。积极的政治或伦理项目也会被对其认识论的怀疑性挑战所削弱

mology (e.g., the charge that progressive politics is worthless because it is rooted in a naive essentialism). Even today, when various theorists have exchanged epistemology for ontology, the problem remains, as moralized ontology has taken over from moralized epistemology.

Mology (例如, 指责进步政治毫无价值, 因为它植根于天真的本质主义)。即使在今天, 当各种理论家已经将认识论转换为本体论时, 问题仍然存在, 因为道德化的本体论已经取代了道德化的认识论。

In very broad terms, this smuggling has had two negative consequences: First, by continually denying the role of ethics in a given work, it has largely exempted contemporary ethical positions from serious engagement and direct criticism. Normative ethics is cordoned off in its own specialized subdisciplines; alas readers in other fields are not expected to take it seriously. The majority of scholarship is put into the service of in-consistent value positions and undertheorized ethical norms, and even sophisticated analysis regularly terminates in simplistic Manichean bi-naries.

从广义上讲, 这种走私有两个消极后果: 第一, 它不断否认道德在某一作品中的作用, 从而在很大程度上免除了当代道德立场的严肃参与和直接批评。规范伦理学被封锁在它自己的专门分支学科中; 唉, 其他领域的读者不会认真对待它。大多数的学术研究被用于服务于不一致的价值立场和理论不足的道德规范, 甚至复杂的分析经常终止于简单的摩尼教二元论。

Second, the articulation of these ethical strategies has been largely negative. The main affective modes on which critical scholarship builds are guilt, melancholy, and condemnation.²⁵ The issue is not that we began focusing on “race, gender, and identity” (all of these are important, especially when studied together), but that we have come to do so predominantly in a key of scorn.²⁶ Theorists have become primarily apostles of gloom, despair, and outrage. This pessimism is paralyzing. Rather than promoting positive values or envisioning better worlds, we regularly tear each other down. Everything is “problematic” and little is “praiseworthy” (except perhaps the most abject of suffering).²⁷ We often see ourselves as speakers of difficult truths, but positive cultural or political change can be hard to motivate when almost all we do is critique. Above all, we need to move past our negative line of critique not by abandoning it altogether, but by shifting our focus, acknowledging our own ethics at play, and arguing for what we *do* want to see rather than only for what we want to de-destroy.

其次, 这些伦理策略的阐述在很大程度上是负面的。批判性学术研究的主要情感模式是内疚、忧郁和谴责。问题不在于我们开始关注“种族、性别和身份”(所有这些都很重要, 尤其是在一起研究的时候), 而在于我们开始这样做的主要原因是轻蔑。理论家已经成为忧郁、绝望和

愤怒的主要使徒。这种悲观主义令人麻痹。我们不是提倡积极的价值观或者想象更美好的世界，而是经常互相拆台。任何事情都是“有问题的”，几乎没有什么事情是“值得称赞的”(也许除了最可怜的痛苦)。27 我们常常认为自己是难以理解的真理的发言人，但是当我们几乎所做的一切都是批评的时候，积极的文化或政治变革就很难被激励起来。最重要的是，我们需要超越我们的消极批评路线，不是完全放弃它，而是转移我们的焦点，承认我们自己的道德规范在发挥作用，并为我们确实想看到的東西辩护，而不是仅仅为我们想要摧毁的东西辩护。

Finally, I want to suggest a basic insight: all these negative critiques and scornful moralisms actually presuppose various forms of flourishing, even if these are typically unarticulated. To criticize racism is effectively to hold on to the hope (no matter how fleeting) of racial justice; to call out patriarchy suggests an alternative, no longer male-dominated society; to critique anthropocentrism has often been to encourage, no matter how faintly, the possibility of ecotopia, and so on. Dialectically put, we need to negate the ethical negations of postmodernism and construct a world in which these various negative lodestars have been overcome. All we need to do is recognize what we are arguing for and then argue for it unapologetically and with our ethics in plain view.

最后，我想提出一个基本的见解：所有这些消极的批评和轻蔑的道德观实际上是以各种形式的繁荣为前提的，即使这些形式通常是没有明确表达的。批判种族主义实际上就是抓住种族正义的希望(无论多么短暂)；呼吁父权制意味着另一种不再由男性主导的社会；批判人类中心主义往往就是鼓励(无论多么微弱)生态空间的可能性，等等。辩证地说，我们需要否定后现代主义的伦理否定，并建立一个世界，在这个世界中，这些各种各样的消极指标已经被克服。我们所需要做的就是认识到我们正在争论的东西，然后毫无歉意地争论，并且把我们的道德观摆在显而易见的位置上。

One clue to this positive project is the work of Michel Foucault. If there is one theorist in the postmodern canon who is most resolutely identified

这个积极项目的一个线索是 Michel Foucault 的工作。如果在后现代主义经典中有一个理论家是最坚定的

with a challenge to ethics, it is Foucault. He came to international prominence in good part through his critique of the role of the normative function of discipline, corrective punishment, and bodily control in everyday life. Foucault was interested in tracing, or perhaps exposing, the formation of a notion of “morality as obedience to a system of rules.”²⁸ In his later life, however, Foucault shifted his attention to articulating a positive form of ethics founded not in obedience or rules, but in “care for self, both in order to know one’s self . . . and to improve oneself.”²⁹ Thus in Foucault’s project we can see glimmers of something that looks like a search for philosophy as a way of life or perhaps even virtue ethics. I will explore those in a later section of this chapter.

对道德的挑战，是福柯。他之所以在国际上引人注目，很大程度上是因为他批判了纪律、惩戒和身体控制在日常生活中的规范作用。福柯感兴趣的是追踪，或者也许是揭露，“道德是对规则体系的服从”这一概念的形成。²⁸然而，在他晚年的生活中，福柯把他的注意力转移到阐明一种积极的道德形式上，这种道德形式不是建立在服从或规则之上，而是建立在“照顾自己，既是为了了解自己，也是为了提高自己。”²⁹因此，在傅科的项目中，我们可以看到一些微弱的东西，看起来像是把哲学作为一种方式或生活，甚至是美德伦理学的探索。我将在本章后面的部分探讨这些问题。

But first we need to ask: if scholars frequently engage in value criticism without getting in trouble for promoting values, why do we not recognize our work as ethical? Why have so many scholars simultaneously promoted moral or cultural relativism while also criticizing things like racism and sexism? And why do most scholars seemingly lack positive ethical projects? Perhaps it is because we have internalized a false dichotomy between fact and value.

但是首先我们需要问：如果学者们频繁地进行价值批判而没有因为促进价值而陷入麻烦，为什么我们不承认我们的工作道德的？为什么这么多学者同时提倡道德或文化相对论，同时又批评种族主义和性别歧视？为什么大多数学者似乎缺乏积极的伦理项目？也许是因为我们已经内化了事实和价值之间错误的二分法。

7.2 The Value--Free Social Science

7.2 无价值社会科学的价值

Max Weber is frequently described as the central figure in the call for value-free social science. The famous sociologist is portrayed as having risen above the political partisanship of his day to pave the way for an objective and impartial analysis of society and culture. Indeed, in Weber’s name scholars have been taught to equate “objectivity” and valuelessness, such that the

existence of value--laden concepts might seem to challenge the independence and validity of the human sciences. Elsewhere I have already aimed to clear up a pervasive misreading of his notion of rationalization, but here I want to clarify another pernicious set of confusions around his notion of value neutrality.³⁰

马克斯韦伯经常被描述为呼吁价值中立的社会科学的中心人物。这位著名的社会学家被描绘成已经超越了他那个时代的政治偏见，为对社会和文化进行客观和公正的分析铺平了道路。事实上，以韦伯的名义，学者们被教导要将“客观性”和“无价值性”等同起来，以至于充满价值的概念的存在似乎对人文科学的独立性和有效性提出了挑战。在其他地方，我已经致力于澄清对他的合理化概念的普遍误读，但在这里，我想澄清围绕他的价值中立概念的另一组有害的混乱。³⁰

Weber did indeed argue that *Wertfreiheit*—usually translated “value--freedom” or “value neutrality”—was crucial to the social sciences.³¹ In part this was motivated by his desire to protect professors from being excluded from jobs based on their political convictions.³² But on a philosophical level, Weber explicitly embraced a common reading of Hume (discussed momentarily) in granting a “logical distinction between ‘existential knowledge,’ i.e., knowledge of what ‘is,’ and ‘normative knowledge,’ i.e., knowledge of what ‘should be.’”³³ Weber argued that because science, even social science, could describe only what is and not what should be, researchers needed to make clear the distinction between “empirical factual assertions on the one hand” and political “ethical or philosophical

韦伯的确认为，“价值自由”——通常翻译为“价值自由”或“价值中立”——对社会科学至关重要。³¹ 这在一定程度上是出于他希望保护教授不因政治信念而被排除在工作之外的愿望。³² 但在哲学层面上，韦伯明确地接受了休谟的一种共同解读，即在“存在-潜在知识”(即对“是什么”的知识)和“规范性知识”(即对“应该是什么”的知识)之间进行逻辑上的区分。韦伯认为，由于科学，甚至社会科学，只能描述什么是什么，而不能描述什么应该是什么，研究人员需要明确区分“一方面是经验事实主张”和政治“伦理或哲学”

value--judgments on the other.”³⁴ To this opposition, Weber added a characteristic emphasis on the difference between means and ends in which he presumed that the role of social sciences was to interrogate means, but that the determination of ends was outside the realm of scientific inquiry.³⁵

对另一方的价值判断。”对于这种反对意见，韦伯加上了具有特色的重点，强调手段和目的之间的区别，他认为社会科学的作用是审问手段，但目的确定超出了科学的范围

Later critics have often seen the turn toward value neutrality as part of an attempt to make sociology more like a natural science; while that is probably true of many theorists, Weber's project was actually different.³⁶ Weber argued that value neutrality was important in the human sciences because the disciplines' typical form of knowledge production was different from the natural sciences. Weber granted the conceptual dichotomy, popularized by Wilhelm Dilthey, between two modes of knowledge— *Erklären*, the predictive or reductive explanation associated with the natural sciences; and *Verstehen*, the interpretation or sympathetic understanding associated with the human sciences.³⁷ Weber's sociology was focused on *Verstehen* because he thought that sympathetic understanding of sociological research subjects was crucial to interpreting their motivations and attitudes more generally. Interpretive sociology should provide an interpretation of actions and what makes those actions meaningful. Value neutrality comes in here because Weber argued that this mode of understanding required the researcher to suspend their own beliefs and values so as to be better able to interpret those of the people they are studying.³⁸

后来的批评家们经常把转向价值中立看作是使社会学更像一门自然科学的努力的一部分；尽管许多理论家可能也是这样，但韦伯的项目实际上是不同的。³⁶ 韦伯认为，价值中立在人文科学中很重要，因为学科的典型知识生产形式不同于自然科学。韦伯承认概念上的二分法，由威廉·狄尔泰推广，它介于两种知识模式之间—— *Erklären*，即与自然科学相关的预测性或还原性解释； *Verstehen*，即与人文科学相关的解释或同情理解。韦伯的社会学之所以关注理解，是因为他认为对社会学研究对象的同情理解对于更广泛地解释他们的动机和态度至关重要。解释社会学应该提供对行为的解释，以及是什么使这些行为有意义。价值中立在这里是因为韦伯认为，这种理解模式要求研究人员暂停他们自己的信仰和价值观，以便更好地解释他们正在研究的人的信仰和价值观

But in addition to calling for value neutrality, Weber argued that social sciences should also acknowledge the importance of *Wertbeziehung* or value relevance in the composition of research agendas and their subsequent interpretation. In brief, Weber was acknowledging that evaluative interests and subjective values give scholars the passion for their topics. Moreover, a

research topic's cultural relevance and value produces its broader impact.³⁹ Hence, social scientists need values and they need to be aware of the value relevance of their particular subjects. Some later interpreters have argued that Weber thought values belonged only in the “discovery phase” of scientific research.⁴⁰ But in his methodological writings, Weber actually argued that values are unavoidably entangled in scholarship in the human sciences. The very objects of study are constituted by values, both of researchers and of their subjects.⁴¹ Perhaps the phrase “value agnosticism” or even “empathy” would better capture what Weber meant, because he argued that it was not the researcher's place to either praise or condemn their objects of study as right or wrong, good or bad. But clearly we have fallen far from his intended model.

但是，除了呼吁价值中立之外，韦伯认为，所以社会科学也应该承认在研究议程的构成及其随后的解释中，价值关联的重要性。简而言之，韦伯承认，评价兴趣和主观价值观给予学者们对他们的热门话题的激情。此外，一个研究课题的文化相关性和价值产生了更广泛的影响。因此，社会科学家需要价值观，他们需要意识到他们特定课题的价值相关性。一些后来的解释者认为，韦伯的思想价值观只属于科学研究的“发现阶段”。但在他的方法论著作中，韦伯实际上认为，价值观不可避免地与人文学科的学者身份纠缠在一起。研究对象本身就是由研究者和研究对象的价值观构成的。也许“价值不可知论”或者甚至“同理心”这个短语能更好地理解韦伯的意思，因为他认为，研究者既不应该赞扬也不应该谴责他们的研究对象是对还是错，是好还是坏。但是很明显，我们已经远远偏离了他的预期模型。

Weber's argument was not, as it is often misunderstood to be, that all values should be expunged from social sciences, but instead that social scientists need to clearly distinguish between value judgments and fac-

韦伯的论点并非像人们常常误解的那样，认为所有的价值观都应该从社会科学中删除，而是认为社会科学家需要清楚地区分价值判断和事实

tual statements. Naturally, Weber granted the importance of values in selecting the subject of research, but he also warned scholars against allowing subjective values to determine scholarly conclusions. Nonetheless, being value neutral did not mean being value-less-. Rather, it meant a clarity about one's own values and their role in one's choice of research projects, and this clarity was meant to allow a researcher to look at their subject with an awareness of the factors influencing the scholar's own perception.

实际陈述。当然，韦伯承认价值观在选择研究对象时的重要性，但他也警告学者们不要让主观价值观来决定学术结论。然而，价值中立并不意味着没有价值。相反，这意味着一个人的价值观和他们在选择研究项目中的角色的明确性，这种明确性是为了让研究人员能够在了解影响学者自身感知的因素的情况下看待他们的研究对象。

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In parallel to the construction of value neutrality in sociology, notions of cultural and moral relativism arose as methodological premises in anthropology.⁴² Franz Boas, the so-called “father of anthropology,” is often credited with inventing cultural and moral relativism.⁴³ But when read more closely, Boas's early formulations do not fit the received view. In the influential works in question, he observed that there was a strong tendency for the anthropologists of his day to criticize various cultures on moral grounds (e.g., moral condemnations of nomadic societies for abandoning the elderly and infirm).⁴⁴ Yet, as Boas argued, these criticisms were often rooted in misunderstandings of the motives and contexts of the people being judged (e.g., in nomadic societies it is often the elderly themselves who want to be abandoned, to allow more vigorous people to have the food and other resources they need). Accordingly, Boas cautioned against assuming the inherent superiority of one's own culture and against adjudicating other cultures' ethics before we actually understand them. But he added the proviso that once scholars really understand another culture, they can then criticize it if need be.

在建立社会学价值中立的同时，文化和道德相对主义的概念作为人类学的方法论前提出现了。⁴² Franz Boas，所谓的“人类学之父”，经常被认为是发明了文化和道德相对主义。⁴⁴ 然而，正如美洲人权组织所指出的，这些批评往往源于对被评判者的动机和背景的误解(例如，在游牧社会中，往往是老年人自己希望被抛弃，以便让更有活力的人获得他们所需要的食物和其他资源)。因此，Boas 告诫我们，在我们真正理解其他文化之前，不要假定自己的文化具有内在的优越性，也不要对其他文

化的伦理道德进行评判。但他补充说，一旦学者真正理解了另一种文化，他们就可以在必要时批评它。

Despite being retroactively reconstructed as the promotion of indiscriminate cultural relativism, Boas actually provided something like a plea for tolerance, a rejection of ethnocentrism, and an argument for method-ological suspension of judgment until understanding could be reached.⁴⁵ (Rather than focusing on inter-cultural comparison, some theorists also interpreted ethical relativism historically—observing that moral norms have a tendency to shift over time, such that each generation typically thinks of itself as more moral than its predecessors. This suggested that any attempt to judge historical figures was doomed to failure.) Although space prohibits a full exposition of the philosophical implications of and problems with ethical relativism, my main point is that the original formulations were in many respects analogous to Weber's account of value neutrality as a precondition for social scientific inquiry.

尽管被追溯重建为促进印度犯罪的文化相对论，Boas 实际上提供了某种东西，如呼吁容忍，拒绝种族中心主义，以及方法论上的中止判断，直到可以达到理解为止。⁴⁵(一些理论家没有着重于跨文化比较，而是历史地解释了伦理相对论——观察到道德规范随着时间的推移有变化的趋势，因此每一代人都典型地认为自己比他们的前辈更道德。这表明任何评判历史人物的尝试都注定要失败虽然空间禁止充分阐述伦理相对主义的哲学含义和问题，我的主要观点是，最初的模拟在许多方面类似于韦伯的价值中立作为社会科学探究的前提的说法。



All told, the contemporary ideal of scientific value neutrality largely emerged from a controversy in German sociology in the early twentieth century, but it took hold in the United States in the Cold War era, where it came to meet with and amplify an earlier anthropological emphasis on cultural relativism that originally functioned as a similar suspension of ethics in the service of scholarly detachment.⁴⁶ Hence, scholars across a range of academic disciplines came to assume that ethics and values were incompatible with objective inquiry. In the same Cold War context, US American politicians began accusing social scientists of advocating communism and atheism. Thus, internal calls to depoliticize the human sciences were also an attempt to defend the value of academic endeavor from political pressure by emphasizing its ethical neutrality.⁴⁷

总而言之，当代科学价值中立的理想很大程度上源于二十世纪初德国社会学的一场争论，但它在冷战时期的美国站稳了脚跟，在那里，它遇到并扩大了早期人类学对文化相对论的强调，这种强调最初起到类似于为学术超脱而暂停伦理的作用。因此，一系列学科的学者开始认为伦理和价值观与客观调查不相容。在同样的冷战背景下，美国政客开始指责社会科学家提倡共产主义和无神论。因此，内部要求人文科学非政治化的呼声，也是通过强调其伦理中立性，试图捍卫学术努力免受政治压力的价值

Nonetheless, contemporary philosophers often attribute the main argument for the impartiality of science to one very famous paragraph in David Hume's *A Treatise of Human Nature* (1739). In the passage in question, Hume observes that moralists are quick to make surreptitious movements from "the being of a God" or "observations concerning human affairs" to a series of normative claims, which are generally illustrated by an unexplained transition from "usual copulations of propositions, *is*, and *is not*," to those of "*ought*, or an *ought not*." Yet Hume saw this move as illegitimate: since "this *ought*, or *ought not*, expresses some new relation or affirmation, 'tis necessary that it should be observed and explained; and at the same time that a reason should be given, for what seems altogether inconceivable, how this new relation can be a deduction from others, which are entirely different from it."⁴⁸

尽管如此，当代哲学家经常把科学公正性的主要论点归因于大卫·休谟(David Hume)的一篇关于人性论(1739)中一个非常著名的段落。在问题的段落中，休谟注意到，道德家们很快就会从“上帝的存在”或“关于人类事务的观察”悄悄地转向一系列规范性的主张，这通常表现为一种无法解释的转变，从“通常的命题交织，是或不是”到“应该或不应该”然

而休谟认为这一举动是不合理的: 因为“这应该或不应该表达某种新的关系或肯定, 所以有必要对它进行观察和解释; 同时, 应该给出一个理由, 因为这似乎是完全不可想象的, 这种新的关系怎么可能是从与它完全不同的其他关系中推导出来的。”⁴⁸

Subsequent theorists have assumed that Hume had demonstrated that no ethical or value judgments can be drawn from purely factual premises, thus severing value from fact. For this reason the separation of fact and value is widely taken for granted. By way of example, many people would assume that there is a fundamental difference between stating *the fact* that a Subaru Impreza is a car and making the *value judgment* that a Subaru Impreza is a good car. Seemingly by implication, science can describe the world but not evaluate it. Permitting values in a scholarly discipline would therefore seem to open a Pandora's box of subjective preferences, coloring the results of any research undertaken. Thus, normative claims by scholars are supposed to be examples of “breaking Hume's law” or committing “the naturalistic fallacy” or unreasonably extrapolating “ought” from “is.”⁴⁹

后来的理论家们认为, 休谟已经证明, 任何伦理或价值判断都不能从纯粹的事实前提中得出, 从而将价值与事实分离开来。由于这个原因, 事实和价值的分离被广泛认为是理所当然的。举个例子, 许多人会认为在声明斯巴鲁翼豹是一辆车的事实和做出斯巴鲁翼豹是一辆好车的价值判断之间存在着根本的区别。表面上看来, 科学可以描述世界, 但不能评价它。因此, 允许学术领域的价值观似乎打开了一个主观偏好的潘多拉盒子, 影响了任何研究的结果。因此, 学者们的规范性主张被认为是“违背休谟定律”或犯下“自然主义谬误”或从“是”不合理地推断“应当”的例子⁴⁹

Yet, Hume was not in fact an advocate of “Hume's Law”; and, more importantly, 休谟实际上并不是“休谟定律”的倡导者;

portantly, as several philosophers have argued, the whole bifurcation of “is” and “ought” is actually incoherent.⁵⁰ This is important because many of us who work in the human sciences have been persuaded to engage our work in value--neutral ways. But we have been convinced to do so on what amount to false premises.

重要的是，正如一些哲学家所争论的那样，“是”和“应该”的整个分歧实际上是不一致的。这一点很重要，因为我们许多从事人文科学工作的人都被说服以价值中立的方式从事我们的工作。但是我们被说服这样做的前提是错误的。

The key passages from Hume’s oeuvre have been read out of context. The whole point of the relevant chapter of Hume’s *Treatise* is that traits are virtues if they give rise to certain sentiments. Hume goes on to argue that breaking promises makes us feel bad, hence he himself deduces from an *is* about human nature that we *ought* to keep promises. Indeed, Hume makes is-to--ought generalizations repeatedly in his philosophical writings.⁵¹ It seems likely that in the famous passage in question, Hume was either a) reformulating the implications of his skepticism about inductive inferences; or b) restating a famous eighteenth--century meta--logical principle that logical arguments are by definition tautological because they only restate conclusions that are already built into the premises (hence, a moral conclusion can only be deductively demonstrated from moral premises).⁵² But regardless of the correct interpretation of the original passage, Hume did not follow what is today called “Hume’s Law,” and it is unlikely that he meant to promote anything like it.

休谟全部作品中的关键段落被断章取义地阅读了。休谟论文相关章节的全部意义在于，如果特质能够引起某种情感，那么它就是美德。休谟继续争辩说，违背诺言会让我们感觉很糟糕，因此他自己从一个关于人性的问题中推断出我们应该遵守诺言。事实上，休谟在他的哲学著作中反复地做出应该做到的概括。⁵¹ 看起来，在这个著名的段落中，休谟要么是重新阐述了他对归纳推理的怀疑的含义；要么是重申了一个著名的18世纪元逻辑原理，即逻辑论证从定义上讲是重言式的，因为它们只是重述了已经建立在前提之上的结论（因此，道德结论只能从道德前提中演绎性地证明）。⁵² 但是，无论对原文的正确解释如何，休谟都没有遵循今天所说的“休谟定律”，他也不大可能有意推广类似的东西。

7.3 Illusions of Fact and Value:

7.3 事实和价值的错觉:

Overcoming the Is--Ought- Distinction

克服“应该”的区别

The whole idea that one cannot legitimately move from an “is” to an “ought” is fundamentally mistaken in ways that are easy to reconstruct. Indeed, while in some sectors of the academy the is—ought bifurcation and the call for value neutrality are taken as givens, a number of theorists (many working independently) have either explicitly attacked the fact—value distinction or argued for legitimate ways to move from a descriptive to a prescriptive statement (list in note).⁵³ In what follows, I want to catalog some of the different ways this can work. In that respect, I want to suggest different, potentially successful strategies for producing these kinds of statements.

认为一个人不能合法地从“是”移动到“应该”的整个想法，在根本上是错误的，这种错误的方式很容易重建。事实上，尽管在学术界的某些领域，“应该”的分歧和对价值中立的呼吁被认为是理所当然的，但一些理论家(许多人独立工作)要么明确抨击了事实与价值的区别，要么主张以合法的方式从描述性的陈述转向规定性的陈述(注释中列出)。在这方面，我想建议不同的，潜在成功的策略，以产生这些类型的声明。

But before I do so, I want to emphasize that this does not mean that all attempts to generalize from a fact to a value are equally worthwhile. Scholarship is full of bad is—ought arguments (e.g., “x is natural, so x is good” is erroneous). Many scholars also presume shared but undertheorized values that are worth criticizing. Furthermore, as Weber noted, the distortion of evidence to fit prejudged conclusions makes for sloppy re-search; and Boas would also remind us to practice ethical humility and

但在此之前，我想强调的是，这并不意味着从一个事实概括到一个价值的所有尝试都同样有价值。学术界充满了错误的理由(例如，“x 是自然的，所以 x 是好的”是错误的)。许多学者也假设有共同的但未经证实的价值观，值得批评。此外，正如韦伯所指出的那样，歪曲证据以适应预先判断的结论会导致研究的马虎

not to presume the superiority of our own moral high ground. But with caveats such as these in the background, let me suggest some legitimate moves.

不要妄自尊大，占据道德制高点。但是在这些警告的背景下，让我提出一些合理的建议。

Correct belief. In most cases, it would seem that we *ought* to have accurate beliefs about the world. For instance, the statement “this glass contains arsenic” is the epitome of a non--normative descriptive statement of fact. But if “this glass contains arsenic,” then it would also seem that I *ought* to believe “this glass contains arsenic,” especially if I am feeling thirsty. This could be extended to most correct statements about the world. If “it is snowing,” then I ought to believe it is snowing (especially when picking a jacket); if “smoking causes cancer,” then I ought to believe that smoking causes cancer, and so on. These examples pose problems for the conventional account of the relationship between fact and value because they all represent a direct movement from a description (fact or “is”) to an ought. Restated, they all provide clear evidence that non--normative descriptions can reasonably lead to normative conclusions. Indeed, all this suggests that correct belief itself is a value--laden or normative concept, that we *should* have accurate beliefs about facts or non--normative aspects of the world, and for very functional purposes.⁵⁴

正确的信念。在大多数情况下，我们似乎应该对这个世界有准确的信念。例如，“这杯子里含有砷”这句话就是对事实的非规范性描述的缩影。但如果“这杯子里含有砷”，那么我似乎也应该相信“这杯子里含有砷”，特别是当我感到口渴的时候。这可以扩展到关于世界的最正确的陈述。如果“正在下雪”，那么我应该相信正在下雪(特别是在挑选夹克的时候)；如果“吸烟导致癌症”，那么我应该相信吸烟导致癌症等等。这些例子对事实和价值之间关系的传统解释提出了问题，因为它们都代表了从描述(事实或“是”)到应该的直接运动。重申，他们都提供了明确的证据，非规范性的描述可以合理地导致规范性的结论。事实上，所有这一切都表明，正确的信念本身就是一个价值载体或规范概念，我们应该对世界的事实或非规范方面有准确的信念，并且为了非常实用的目的

Epistemic values. Value judgments or at least is--to--ought statements are also a regular part of how various academic disciplines, including the natural sciences, operate. A lot of basic academic vocabulary is evaluative and even necessitates going from fact to value or description to norm. For instance, the word “valid” itself is clearly evaluative. To say someone “has a valid argument” is a judgment that said argument has a positive value. Moreover, the logical notion of validity is rooted in a set of descriptive criteria (to be valid, the conclusion must follow from the premise, and so on). So in their use of the word “valid” philosophers are moving from a description of the

argument to an evaluation of it, and they seem to do so frequently and with little difficulty. Indeed, philosophers often argue that we ought to make valid arguments and often see their pedagogical mission at least as teaching students how to do so. To assert that committing the naturalistic fallacy of moving from is to ought renders an argument invalid is itself an evaluative judgment that does the very thing it prohibits. To belabor the point, every time a philosopher says that we need to reject value judgments because “Hume’s law is valid,” they are doing the very thing they are criticizing. Hence, as commonly construed, the naturalistic fallacy is itself a fallacy.⁵⁵

认知价值观。价值判断或者至少是应该的陈述也是包括自然科学在内的各种学科如何运作的一个常规部分。许多基本的学术词汇是评价性的，甚至需要从事实到价值或描述再到规范。例如，“有效”这个词本身显然是可评价的。说某人“有一个有效的论点”是一个判断，这个论点有一个积极的价值。此外，有效性的逻辑概念植根于一系列描述性标准（为了有效，结论必须遵循前提，等等）。因此，在使用“有效”这个词时，哲学家们正在从对论点的描述转向对论点的评价，他们似乎经常这样做，而且没有什么困难。事实上，哲学家们经常认为我们应该提出有效的论点，并且经常认为他们的教学任务至少是教学生如何做到这一点。断言犯下自然主义谬误，从而使论点无效，这本身就是一种评价性判断，它做了它所禁止的事情。为了详细阐述这一点，每当一位哲学家说，我们需要拒绝价值判断，因为“休谟定律是有效的”，他们正在做的正是他们所批评的事情。因此，正如人们通常理解的那样，自然主义谬误本身就是一个谬误

But philosophers are not the only ones to routinely deploy evaluative language. Academic disciplines spend significant time and energy appraising the quality of research. To do so, they have historically evoked a set of “epistemic values.”⁵⁶ These can be seen most clearly in book reviews, in

但是哲学家并不是唯一一个经常使用评价语言的人。学术界花费大量的时间和精力来评估研究的质量。为了做到这一点，他们历史性地唤起了一系列“认知价值观”⁵⁶ 这些在书评中可以看得最清楚

synthetic review essays, and during disciplinary controversies, which tend to judge work with reference to such criteria as coherence, plausibility, novelty, significance, accessibility, clarity of organization, thoroughness, and so on. All of these are normative judgments. Moreover, values such as these have often been used to adjudicate between rival theories or re-search programs or to settle theoretical debates.⁵⁷ Calling out plagiarism, praising originality, and emphasizing explanatory breadth are all value judgments. But we should feel good about this. No discipline could function without normative principles to differentiate between good and bad research. These judgments help us to advance the state of scholarship and ourselves, to mutual benefit.

综合评论文章,以及在学科争论中,往往以连贯性、合理性、新颖性、重要性、可及性、组织清晰性、彻底性等标准来评判工作。所有这些都是规范性的判断。此外,诸如此类的价值观经常被用来在对立的理论或研究项目之间进行裁决,或用来解决理论争论。⁵⁷指出剽窃,赞扬原创性,强调解释的广度都是价值判断。但是我们应该对此感到满意。如果没有规范性的原则来区分好的和坏的研究,任何学科都无法发挥作用。这些判断有助于我们提高学术水平和我们自身,从而达到互惠互利的目的。

*The scientific spirit.*⁵⁸ While scholars calling for value neutrality in the human sciences often describe their opponents as forfeiting scientific impartiality, a number of influential philosophers of science have argued that collective norms are the key to the scientific enterprise. Although one could be skeptical about the ubiquity of these ideals, it has been argued that what makes “science” successful as a collaborative project is a commitment to shared values—such as the value of sharing ideas, evaluating truth claims based on impersonal criteria, trust in accurately reporting research, and the virtue of rigorous testing—that govern the professional life of the scientific community. A limited form of value-neutrality appears in this context not as a precondition for “objective” knowledge, but rather as itself an aspirational scientific ideal.⁵⁹

58. 尽管呼吁在人文科学中保持价值中立的学者经常把他们的反对者描述为丧失了科学的公正性,但一些有影响力的科学哲学家却认为,集体规范是科学事业的关键。虽然人们可能对这些理想的普遍性持怀疑态度,但有人认为,使“科学”作为一个合作项目取得成功的是对共同价值观的承诺——如分享想法的价值、根据客观标准评估真理主张、对准确报告研究的信任以及严格测试的优点——这些价值观管理着科学界的职业生活。在这方面,有限形式的价值中立似乎不是“客观”知识的先决条件,而是作为一种渴望的科学理想

More importantly, value judgments about evidence are what produce facts in the first place. For something to be labeled a “scientific fact” it has to have

achieved collective recognition by the scientific community.⁶⁰ This should not make one doubt all facts as metaphysically compromised; rather, we should acknowledge that the collective recognition is necessarily value-laden because it requires judgments according to some of the epistemic values discussed above.

更重要的是，对证据的价值判断首先是产生事实的东西。⁶⁰ 这不应使人怀疑所有事实都是形而上学上的妥协；相反，我们应该承认，集体承认必然具有价值，因为它需要根据上面讨论的一些认识价值作出判断。

Values are based on facts. If the last few paragraphs gestured toward ways that facts are dependent on values, another straightforward breaking of the fact–value dichotomy is based in the parallel observation that many values are dependent on factual evidence (and often relate to “correct beliefs” as mentioned above).⁶¹ The statement “the government should raise the minimum wage to provide a minimal living standard and spur the economy” is a clear expression of a value in the ought sense, but it rests on factual claims about the relationship between the minimum wage and both living standards and economic growth. Many differences between political parties are dissimilarities of particular values, but those values are themselves based on evidential claims. Even if the evidence itself is disputed (e.g., number of deaths in school shootings or whether climate

价值观是以事实为基础的。⁶¹“政府应提高最低工资以提供最低生活标准和刺激经济”的说法明确表达了应有意义上的价值观，但它所依据的是关于最低工资与生活水平和经济增长之间关系的事实主张。政党之间的许多差异在于特定价值观的不同，但这些价值观本身是基于证据主张的。即使证据本身是有争议的(例如，校园枪击事件中的死亡人数或是气候变化

change is anthropogenic), there is factual evidence at stake in such disagreements. Moreover, although value conflicts are often portrayed as intractable, people do change their values based on new understandings of facts. (For example, some Irish Catholics became disillusioned with the Catholic Church when sexual abuse scandals became public knowledge in the 1990s. Factual evidence about the institution's response to the behavior of certain priests led some people to change their fundamental values and even their religious identification.⁶²) In sum, many of the values we hold are based on our assessment of particular evidential claims.

变化是人为的), 在这种分歧中有事实证据处于危险之中。此外, 尽管价值冲突常常被描述为易于处理, 但人们确实会基于对事实的新理解而改变自己的价值观。(例如, 在 20 世纪 90 年代, 当性虐待丑闻成为公众所知时, 一些爱尔兰天主教徒对天主教会失望了。关于该机构对某些神父行为的反应的事实证据, 导致一些人改变了他们的基本价值观, 甚至改变了他们的宗教认同。总之, 我们所持有的许多价值观是基于我们对特定证据主张的评估。

Thick ethical concepts. The human sciences in particular often make use of “thick ethical concepts” (or “normative--descriptive terms”) that include both descriptive and evaluative elements.⁶³ To call an individual a “sexist” is both a normative repudiation and a descriptive evaluation of their attitudes as evidenced in their words or deeds. A scholar's notion of what counts as sexism is likely to be rooted in their sensitivity to gender relations and their judgments about what counts as appropriate behavior in context. The scholar's own values likely have an impact on their assessment of what amounts to sexism or how sexism should be measured. Thus, identifying sexism is value relative, but scholarly (rather than flip-pant) charges of sexism are also a matter of marshalling evidence and can be the subject of reasoned debate based on that evidence. Different scholars may not have the same criteria for judging sexism, but (at least in principle) those criteria can be articulated, and the values behind the judgment can be discussed rationally.

厚重的伦理概念。特别是人文科学往往使用“浓厚的伦理概念”(或“规范-描述性术语”), 其中包括描述性和评价性要素。一个学者关于什么算是性别歧视的概念很可能植根于他们对性别关系的敏感性, 以及他们对什么算是上下文中的适当行为的判断。这位学者自己的价值观很可能会影响他们对性别歧视的评价或者性别歧视应该如何衡量。因此, 确定性别歧视是相对价值的, 但学术上(而不是随便)对性别歧视的指控也是一个收集证据的问题, 可以成为基于这些证据的合理辩论的主题。不同的学者可能没有相同的标准来判断性别歧视, 但(至少在原则上)这些标准可以清晰地表达出来, 而且判断背后的价值可以得到理性的讨论。

Adjudicating sexism might sound especially fraught, but many of our basic concepts—including terms like healthy, egalitarian, oligarchy, tyrannical,

racist, dictator, repressive, terrorist, kind, and authentic—express similar entanglements of description and evaluation.⁶⁴ Again, this means that we can actually evaluate how to apply them even if their application involves both normative and factual elements (and even if scholars often end up disagreeing).

判断性别歧视听起来可能特别令人担忧，但我们的许多基本概念——包括健康的、平等的、寡头政治的、专制的、种族主义的、独裁者的、压迫的、恐怖主义的、善良的和真实的——表达了类似的描述和评价的纠结。⁶⁴ 同样，这意味着我们实际上可以评估如何应用它们，即使它们的应用涉及规范和事实因素(即使学者们常常不同意)。

Bridging notions. There are a number of specific “bridging notions” which allow one to infer an entailment from a description. Basically, a particular subject’s expression of an intention or goal allows for the formulation of both a logical and a normative conclusion from that initial expression. To quote one summary of the general formula of such: “You want to achieve E. Doing M is the one and only way to achieve E. Therefore, ‘you should do M’ must be held to be analytic, in the sense of being guaranteed correct by virtue of the meanings or functions of the terms it contains.”⁶⁵ Norms can be argued for by framing them in terms of their implicit goals, which are also often related to specific facts about the world. Terms like “want” or “need” often function this way. For instance, the statement “if

桥接概念。有一些特定的“桥接概念”，允许人们从描述中推断出一个含义。基本上，一个特定的主体对一个意图或目标的表达允许从最初的表达中模拟出一个逻辑和规范的结论。引用这样一个一般公式的一个概括：“你想达到 e 。做 m 是达到 e 的唯一途径。因此，‘你应该做 m ’必须被认为是分析性的，因为它所包含的术语的含义或功能保证了它的正确性。”⁶⁵ 规范可以通过以隐含目标的形式来构建它们来论证，这些目标通常也与世界上的具体事实有关。像“想要”或者“需要”这样的术语通常是这样起作用的。例如，语句“if

you want to avoid getting cancer, you need to eat fewer processed foods” requires you to agree with the original value (not getting cancer), but then leads to impartial and factual, yet nonetheless normative, recommendations about what you should do. As I argue below, aspirations toward “health,” “happiness,” and “well-being” permit bridges of this sort and indeed even suggest the logical entailment implicit in an Aristotelian or eudaimonic ethics (e.g., formulas such as “if you want to be happy, then you should do x, as x is conducive to happiness” are sufficient grounds on which to build a whole system of ethics).⁶⁶

你想要避免得癌症，你需要少吃加工食品”要求你同意原始价值(不得癌症)，然后导致公正和事实，但仍然规范的建议日期，你应该做什么。正如我在下面所论证的，对“健康”、“幸福”和“幸福”的渴望允许这种桥梁，甚至暗示了亚里士多德或幸福论伦理学(例如，“如果你想幸福，那么你应该做 x，因为 x 有利于幸福”这样的公式是建立整个伦理体系的充分基础)中隐含的逻辑含义

Values masked as facts. There is also a persistent line of criticism especially associated with Marxism, but also found in critical race and gender theory, that there is a problem with the whole framing of the fact-value dichotomy.⁶⁷ This critique takes different forms, but its predominant form is generally to expose the value-laden presuppositions about some set of established “facts.”⁶⁸ Recast, it often amounts to the claim that the values of dominant groups don’t read as values and that “social facts” are often a defense of the status quo. For example, the success of capitalism is presented as an accomplished fact not a value, but success can only be measured according to a set of (presumably already capitalistic) values. Similarly, early primatology was full of sexist presumptions that prevented scientists from even considering possible theories that would have better explained the data they were collecting.⁶⁹ Some supposedly proven or established “facts” are just the conventional assumptions of a discipline at a given moment. For instance, the idea that there is a unitary form of intelligence that can be measured in a numerical “IQ” produced a bunch of “facts” about different IQ measurements for different populations, but this has been criticized as rooted in the racial and social prejudices (or, one might say, values) of the specific researchers who established the grounding assumptions of this whole line of research.⁷⁰

被掩盖成事实的价值观。⁶⁷ 这种批判有不同的形式，但其主要形式通常是揭露关于某些既定“事实”的充满价值的假设⁶⁸ Recast，它往往相当于主流群体的价值观念不被解读为价值观念，而且“社会事实”往往是对现状的一种辩护。例如，资本主义的成功是作为一个已经实现的事实而不是一个价值来呈现的，但是成功只能根据一系列(可能已经是资本主义的)价值来衡量。类似地，早期的灵长类动物学充满了性别歧视的假设，使得科学家们甚至无法考虑可能的理论来更好地解释他们正在

收集的数据。⁶⁹ 一些所谓已经证实或确立的“事实”只是某一学科在某一特定时刻的传统假设。例如，有一种单一形式的智力可以用数字“IQ”来衡量，这种观点产生了一系列关于不同人群的不同IQ测量的“事实”，但这种观点被批评为植根于特定研究人员的种族和社会偏见(或者说价值观)，而这些研究人员建立了整个研究的基本假设

It should be noted that most accounts of this sort *do not reject all facts* because the very unmasking operation of demonstrating that some specific factual claims are covertly values is itself typically rooted in factual claims. Thus, in one influential account, calling out hidden values like these is part of how disciplines become more rather than less “objective” (see problems with the term “objective” below).⁷¹ To reiterate, this does not mean that there are no “facts,” or that facts and values are identical; rather, it means that we have to be able to hold established claims up to careful scrutiny in order to discern biases of different sorts.

应当指出的是，大多数这类说法并不否定所有事实，因为证明某些特定的事实主张是隐蔽的价值的非常明显的操作本身通常植根于事实主张。因此，在一个有影响力的解释中，提出这些隐藏的价值观是学科变得更加“客观”而不是不那么“客观”的一部分(见下文“客观”一词的问题)。重申一下，这并不意味着没有“事实”，或者事实和价值观是相同的；相反，它意味着我们必须能够对已经确立的主张进行仔细的审查，以辨别不同种类的偏见。

It has similarly been argued that the whole fact--value distinction is it-self value--laden, works to frame certain projects as “too subjective,” and is part of policing the boundaries of certain disciplines (often in prejudicial ways). For instance, in Religious Studies, the assertion that theological

同样，也有人认为，整个事实-价值的区别就是它自身的价值，工程框定某些项目为“太主观”，并且是某些学科的边界管理的一部分(通常是以偏见的方式)。例如，在宗教研究中，关于神学的断言

values can be clearly distinguished from non--theological values turns out to be hard to defend because the very distinction often amounts to a theo-logical claim in its own right. Similarly, appeals to scholarly distance and value--free research have historically been used to discourage researchers from minoritized backgrounds from working on the issues that are most valuable to their own communities.⁷² At the very least, calls for value neu-trality are often rooted in naive notions of the fact--value- distinction itself and are regularly applied selectively.

价值观与非神学价值观之间的区别是很难辩护的，因为这种区别本身往往等同于神学主张。同样，对学术距离和无价值研究的呼吁历来被用来阻止来自少数群体背景的研究人员研究对其社区最有价值的问题。



All told, there are many legitimate ways to bridge the fact--value distinc-tion and thus the call to eliminate values from scholarship in the human sciences is destined for failure. This cuts two ways. Theorists only inter-ested in the political or ethical value of their scholarship should know that distorting one's scholarly conclusions in the service of political goals is ultimately self-defeating. It does no one a service to let politics run roughshod over evidence or to reverse-engineer scholarship based on predetermined ethical commitments or according to simplistic moral bi-naries. Part of the function of good scholarship is to unmask those errors. But similarly, scholars who think that they can expel all values from their scholarship are merely hiding their true ambitions and agendas in ways that should equally be available to debunking. Scholarship regularly ap-peals to evidence, but we need to recognize that we all have values inextri-cably entangled with that evidence.

总而言之，有许多合法的方法来弥合事实与价值之间的差异，因此，从人文科学学术中消除价值观的呼吁注定要失败。这有两条路可走。只对自己学术的政治或伦理价值感兴趣的理论家应该知道，为了政治目的而歪曲自己的学术结论，最终只会弄巧成拙。让政治凌驾于证据之上，或者根据预先确定的道德承诺或简单化的道德二元论，对学术进行逆向工程，对任何人都没有好处。良好的学术功能的一部分就是揭露这些错误。但同样，那些认为自己可以将所有价值观从学术研究中驱逐出去的学者们，只不过是在以一种同样可以被揭穿的方式，掩盖自己真正的野心和议程。学术研究经常诉诸于证据，但我们需要认识到，我们都有与证据密不可分的价值观。

To some readers this might sound dire. Part of the problem is that the word “value” covers both subjective preferences and epistemic, political, or ethical evaluations. These subjective preferences are not what I or most of the

philosophers cited above have in mind. Nor am I asserting the naive view that all facts are values (or value--laden) as a way to discredit them. The presence of values does not mean that a discipline is “unscientific” or that it has been contaminated by ideology; even natural sciences use values as a basis for choosing topics, judging the value of research, and so on. Much of the anxiety about “scientific relativism” and extra--theoretical influences on theory adoption is misguided. As I have been arguing, the presumed incompatibility between logical “objectivity” and social values is mistaken.⁷³ Logic encodes epistemic norms. Theory adoption is often determined by scientific values (like internal consistency, ability to make correct predictions, and explanatory power).⁷⁴ None of this, however, means that knowledge has been fundamentally undermined. Again, the goal is not to render all scholarship subservient to values, but rather to

对一些读者来说，这可能听起来很可怕。问题的一部分在于，“价值”这个词既包括主观偏好，也包括认知、政治或道德评价。这些主观偏好并不是我或者上面提到的大多数哲学家所想的。我也没有断言，所有的事实都是价值(或价值载体)，这种天真的观点是一种诋毁它们的方式。价值观的存在并不意味着一门学科是“不科学的”或者它已经被意识形态所污染；甚至自然科学也使用价值观作为选择题目、判断研究价值等的基础。许多关于“科学相对主义”的焦虑和对理论采纳的超理论影响是被误导的。正如我一直在争论的那样，逻辑“客观性”和社会价值观之间假定的不相容性是错误的。逻辑编码认知规范。理论的采用往往取决于科学价值观(如内在一致性、正确预测的能力和解释力)。然而，这些并不意味着知识已经从根本上被削弱了。同样，我们的目标不是让所有的学术都服从于价值观，而是服从于价值观

become more aware of values' guiding role in our research and, more importantly, our lives.

越来越意识到价值观在我们的研究中的指导作用,更重要的是,在我们的生活中。

I also agree with Amartya Sen and others that when values are openly stated, they are more amenable to rational inquiry and debate. In this re-spect, we need to be much more explicit about our values. It might go without saying, but in order for values to have traction, they probably should be justified in broad terms. This is part of what John Rawls re-ferred to as "public reason." Much of mainstream ethical vocabulary is resolutely negative and rests on a set of implicit moral assumptions that have rarely been subjected to serious scrutiny. (Put differently, much of popular ethical discourse across the contemporary political spectrum is anemic and rests on under--analyzed ethical presuppositions.) Focusing more on constructive projects and thinking more deeply about public jus-tifications for values would hopefully have a positive impact on this popu-lar stratum of discourse.

我也同意阿玛蒂亚·森和其他人的观点,当价值观被公开表述时,它们更容易接受理性的探索和辩论。在这方面,我们需要更加明确我们的价值观。这可能不言而喻,但是为了让价值观具有吸引力,它们可能应该在广义上是合理的。这就是约翰·罗尔斯所说的“公共理性”的一部分许多主流的道德词汇都是绝对否定的,并且建立在一系列隐含的道德假设之上,这些假设很少受到严格的审查。(换句话说,在当代政治光谱中,大多数流行的伦理话语都是贫血的,建立在未经充分分析的伦理假设之上。)更多地关注建设性项目,更深入地思考价值观的公共正义理由,有望对这一大众话语阶层产生积极影响。

The academy is not in much better shape. Because ethical arguments across the disciplines have routinely had to mask themselves as criti-cism and to assume only negative lodestars rather than positive goals, a lot of scholarly moralizing has been produced via guilt by association with a widely recognized injustice, such as slavery, colonialism, racism, or Nazism.⁷⁵ Calling out oppression is vital, but there is a tendency for con-demnations to expand indefinitely.⁷⁶ Given the ubiquity of systematic in-justices, it has been only too easy to find a connection between them and any given position or thinker. Nuanced readings are vastly outnumbered by simplistic, sweeping condemnations of various individuals. Naive moral binaries predominate. For all these reasons, many of the negative lodestars associated with postmodernism were under--justified (e.g., logo-centrism became a bad word for academics who had never read a lick of Derrida, much less Ludwig Klages, and had only a vague sense of what it implied).⁷⁷ As several studies have shown, people are often more than willing to adopt (and even internalize)

made--up social rules to join new groups.⁷⁶ Moreover, norms have a tendency to shift and in less than a de-cade behaviors that were once seen as morally neutral can become widely castigated (or the reverse). So it has often been enough to slap an "--ism" on the end of a word to rally people against those associated with it. But weakly grounded ethical norms have a tendency to melt away during gen-erational or cultural shifts.

学院的情况也好不到哪去。由于跨学科的伦理争论通常不得不把自己伪装成批评，只假设负面的指标，而不是积极的目标，许多学术上的道德说教是通过与广泛公认的不公正现象(如奴隶制、殖民主义、种族主义或纳粹主义)联系在一起而产生的。对不同个体的简单的、广泛的谴责远远超过了细致入微的阅读。天真的道德二元论占主导地位。由于所有这些原因，许多与后现代主义相关的负面指标都没有得到充分证明(例如，标志中心主义对那些从未读过德里达的学者来说成了一个坏词，更不用说路德维希·克拉奇斯了，他们对这个词的含义只有一个模糊的感觉)。⁷⁷正如一些研究表明的那样，人们往往更愿意接受(甚至内化)编造的社会规则来加入新的群体。⁷⁸此外，规范有一种转变的趋势，在不到十年的时间里，一度被视为道德中立的行为可能会受到广泛的谴责(或者相反)。因此，在一个词的末尾加上一个“主义”就足以让人们联合起来反对那些与之相关的人。但是，基础薄弱的道德准则往往在代际或文化转变中消失。

It also worth emphasizing that facts are also relevant to most moral issues because values often rest on specific claims of an empirical na-ture. This should be reassuring for scholars because, if a value is part of a theory, then that value can be tested as part of that theory. In summary,

同样值得强调的是，事实也与大多数道德问题相关，因为价值观通常基于经验本性的具体主张。这对学者来说应该是令人放心的，因为如果一个价值观是一个理论的一部分，那么这个价值观就可以作为该理论的一部分进行检验。总而言之，

making values and their justifications explicit allows us to hold the values up for scrutiny and to determine which are most useful for our shared purposes. In the worst case, we can always agree to disagree.

使价值观和它们的理由明确，允许我们举行的价值观审查，并确定哪些是最有用的，我们共同的目的。在最坏的情况下，我们总是可以同意不同意。

There is also a lot more work to be done in discerning the distinctions between epistemic and non-epistemic values. Although some of the philosophers cited above have begun doing this, we need more conversations about specific values and their role (positive and negative) in our teaching and research. Many scholarly negative lodestars could use reappraising or formalizing. We might ask—what epistemic values should we have? And we might join various domain-specific ethicists in asking—what are the ethical commitments or moral hazards of our specific areas of research? I hope this chapter will spur more such conversations.

在辨别认知价值观和非认知价值观之间的区别方面，还有许多工作要做。虽然上面提到的一些哲学家已经开始这样做了，但是我们需要更多关于特定价值观以及它们在我们的教学和研究中的作用(积极的和消极的)的对话。许多学术上的负面指标需要重新评估或者形式化。我们可能会问，我们应该拥有什么样的认知价值观？我们可以加入不同领域的伦理学家的行列，问一问：在我们特定的研究领域，什么是伦理承诺或道德风险？我希望这一章能激发更多这样的讨论。

But I also have something more ambitious in mind. I have been asking scholars to put their cards on the table, and I want to hold myself to the same. Accordingly, in the next section, I begin to argue for not just the goal of my research, but more broadly what I think the goal of research in the human sciences should be.

但是我也有一些更加雄心勃勃的想法。我一直在请求学者们把他们的名片放在桌面上，我也希望自己能做到这一点。因此，在下一节中，我开始争论我的研究目标，但更广泛地说，我认为人类科学研究的目标应该是什么。

7.4 The Human Sciences as a Way of Life

7.4 作为生活方式的人文科学

Philosophy was a mode of existing-in--the--world . . . the goal of which was to transform the whole of the individual's life.

哲学是一种存在于世界上的模式，其目的是改变个人的整个生活。

Pierre Hadot, *Philosophy as a Way of Life*

哲学是一种生活方式

In the current academy, the central mission of many educational institutions seems to be preparing students to enter the job market—albeit one that probably no longer exists. In this context, it might seem hard to ask the question “what does it mean to make progress in the human sciences?” After all, in the era of “big science,” progress in STEM disciplines is routinely depicted as technological advancement and is largely measured in terms of military or capitalist interests, grant money, investments, or quantity of publications. So long as these goals are being met, the idea of “progress” goes more or less unquestioned, and the underlying assumption seems to be that as long as engineers are producing new fighter jets and iPhones and medical researchers are producing more types of pharmaceuticals and therapeutic treatments, the natural sciences are progressing just fine. To be fair, some institutions pay lip service to the importance of pure research for its own sake, but in practice, productivity is increasingly measured in terms of sheer volume rather than quality of publications. Despite these quibbles, it seems to be generally assumed that the natural sciences,

在当前的学术界，许多教育机构的中心任务似乎是为进入就业市场做准备——尽管这个市场可能已不复存在。在这种背景下，似乎很难问出“在人文科学领域取得进步意味着什么？”毕竟，在“大科学”时代，STEM 学科的进步通常被描述为技术进步，主要以军事或资本利益、拨款、投资或出版物数量来衡量。只要这些目标得以实现，“进步”的概念就多多少少不会受到质疑，而潜在的假设似乎是，只要工程师们正在生产新的战斗机和 iPhone，医学研究人员正在生产更多种类的药物和治疗方法，自然科学就会进展得很好。公平地说，一些机构口头上承认纯粹研究本身的重要性，但实际上，衡量生产力的标准越来越多地是单纯的数量，而不是出版物的质量。尽管有这些吹毛求疵，但人们似乎普遍认为自然科学，

at least, are making regular and steady progress.-79

至少，正在取得有规律和稳定的进展

In contrast to uncritical depictions of progress in the natural sciences,
与对自然科学进步的不加批判的描述相反，

the dominant narrative among most of my colleagues in the humanities is (rightly or wrongly) one of decline. Scholars often resist the idea that the humanities could be said to be advancing at all, and even when they grant the possibility of such an idea, they also tend to describe progress merely in terms of quantity of publications.⁸⁰ As one contemporary theorist put it: “Progress in the humanities, one instinctively assumes, must have occurred, as there has been progress in the other areas of culture. . . . The nearly commensurate effort in the humanities—all the books, editions, scholarly journals, research grants, institutes, and symposia—must have accomplished something.”⁸¹ So if it has accomplished something, what is the accomplishment? We often say that a work is “making a contribution” or “advancing the state of the discipline.” But to make progress toward something would seemingly require a goal, even if only so we can know how to evaluate our contributions to a collective scholarly effort. So, I ask you, what should be our shared goal?

在我的大多数人文学科同事中，占主导地位的说法是(无论正确与否)衰落。学者们往往抵制人文学科可以说是在进步的观点，即使他们承认这种观点的可能性，他们也往往只是用出版物的数量来描述进步。人文学科几乎相应的努力——所有的书籍、版本、学术期刊、研究补助金、机构和座谈会——一定取得了一些成就。”那么，如果它已经完成了一些事情，那么成就是什么呢？我们经常说一项工作是“做出贡献”或者“推进学科的发展”但是在某些方面取得进展似乎需要一个目标，即使只是为了让我们知道如何评估我们对集体学术努力的贡献。所以，我问你们，我们共同的目标应该是什么？

In the last two sections of this chapter, I put forth a proposal not about what the human sciences have been, but about what they should be: a way of life directed *toward human flourishing*. What would this mean? I have a sense of what it might entail, which I describe as the pursuit of Revolutionary Happiness. Having said that, my broadest ambition is to encourage openness and reflection about our goals. I envision a space in which there is room for new ideas, debate, and also pure research for its own sake. Moreover, I think both ontological and teleological differences are valuable. Yet it is important to note that scholarship in the human sciences is going to have normative implications and motivations whether we acknowledge them or not. The very thing driving the negative tone of much of scholarly moralizing is the suppression of positive values in the name of objectivity. So, it is time to move past the era that necessitates that scholars hide or defer a discussion of their deepest commitments.

在这一章的最后两节，我提出了一个建议，不是关于人类科学已经是什么，而是关于它们应该是什么：一种导向人类繁荣的生活方式。这意味着什么？我知道它可能意味着什么，我把它描述为对革命幸福的追求。话虽如此，我最大的抱负是鼓励开放和反思我们的目标。我设想有

一个空间，在那里有新思想、辩论和纯粹研究的空间。此外，我认为本体论和目的论的差异都是有价值的。然而，重要的是要注意，人文科学的学术研究将有规范的含义和动机，无论我们是否承认它们。推动许多学术道德化的消极基调的正是以客观性的名义对积极价值观的压制。因此，现在是时候跨过那个需要学者隐藏或推迟讨论他们最深层承诺的时代了。

In what follows, I bring some of my own most deeply held convictions to the surface and allow them to attract critical scrutiny in the hope that this will shape them into something better and stronger. In the world of scholarship, we have gotten very good at a hermeneutic of suspicion— so good that even works calling for an end to such critique (such as Rita Felski's *Limits of Critique*) often refrain from advocating detailed positive projects out of, I can only imagine, a fear of the resultant critique. This whole book has been an attempt to argue for a positive project, and I want to begin to resolve it with an exploration of the project's ethical and political aims. That said, in many respects, these next two sections are a gesture toward what I imagine will be a future monograph. So consider this part of the chapter on the order of a promissory note, a first pass at what may be expanded to become a fuller work of normative ethics and political theory.

在接下来的文章中，我将一些自己最深刻的信念表露出来，并允许它们吸引批判性的审视，希望这将把它们塑造成更好、更强大的东西。在学术界，我们非常善于对怀疑进行解释，甚至那些呼吁停止这种批判的著作（比如丽塔·费尔斯基(Rita Felski)的《批判的极限》(Limits of Critique))也常常因为害怕随之而来的批判而避免提倡具体的积极项目。这整本书一直试图争取一个积极的项目，我想开始解决它与探索的项目的道德和政治目的。也就是说，在许多方面，接下来的两个部分是一个姿态，我想这将是一个未来的专著。因此，考虑一下本章关于期票顺序的这一部分，这是第一次通过可以扩展为规范伦理学和政治理论的更全面的工作。

And I want to note that if you have been reading this with a mind turned only toward critique and without a conscious and thought-out alternative, I would like you to think about the following question: if not this, then what?

我想指出的是，如果你在阅读这篇文章的时候只是带着一种批判的心态，而没有一种有意识和深思熟虑的选择，我希望你们思考下面这个问题：如果不是这个，那么是什么？

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Here we go. As the French philosopher Pierre Hadot accurately observed, before the contemporary disciplining process, philosophy was understood as a way of life. Philosophy was not the mere accumulation of facts, abstract theorizing, or a merely scholarly career, but a pursuit of knowledge that was supposed to be transformative on a personal and cultural level. Philosophy was a method for learning how to live and how to die well.⁸² It is time we brought this purpose back, not just for philosophy—for the human sciences as such.

开始了。正如法国哲学家皮埃尔·哈多精确地观察到的那样，在当代的训练过程之前，哲学被理解为一种生活方式。哲学不仅仅是事实的积累，抽象的理论，或者仅仅是一种学术生涯，而是一种对知识的追求，这种追求本应在个人和文化层面上具有变革性。哲学是学习如何生存和如何死得其所的一种方法。⁸² 现在是我们把这个目的带回来的时候了，不仅仅是为了哲学，也是为了人文科学本身。

To get us there, we can take inspiration from what I think is the single most exciting movement in philosophy of ethics in the last hundred years: namely, the revival of “virtue ethics,” inaugurated by the British philosopher Elizabeth Anscombe.⁸³ Although virtue ethics is a diverse movement, it aims to recover a way of life or account of moral character with the potential to return ethics from the heights of abstract speculation to the realm of practice.⁸⁴ Moreover, proponents of virtue ethics claim to have re-naturalized moral theorizing in such a way that it can be held up for social scientific scrutiny. They argue that the good life, if there is such a thing, can be studied empirically. Furthermore, while the other dominant approaches in normative ethics—deontological ethics and utilitarianism—have few analogues to “ethics” outside of modern Europe, efforts to characterize a life well lived (and its attendant virtues) are evident throughout the ancient world, and can be seen prominently in South and East Asian thought.⁸⁵

为了实现这一目标，我们可以从我认为是过去一百年来伦理哲学中最激动人心的一次运动中获得灵感：即由英国哲学家伊莉莎白·安斯康姆发起的“德性伦理学”的复兴。虽然德性伦理学是一个多样化的运动，但它

旨在恢复一种生活方式或对道德品格的描述，并有可能使伦理学从抽象思维的高度回归到实践的领域。他们认为，美好的生活，如果存在这样的东西，可以通过实证来研究。此外，虽然规范伦理学的其他主要方法——道义伦理学和功利主义——与现代欧洲以外的“伦理学”几乎没有相似之处，但在整个古代世界，刻画美好生活(及其伴随的美德)特征的努力是显而易见的，在南亚和东亚思想中可以突出地看到

Those who are already familiar with the philosophical subdiscipline of virtue ethics will observe that in the rest of this section I depict an inclusive version of the field, leaving many of its internal debates unresolved. This is intentional because I mainly want to promote the value of virtue ethics in general, so the particular version of virtue ethics matters less. Readers familiar with Classical Greek, Indian, and Chinese philosophy will also recognize many of the moves made here. The sources in this case are less relevant than the argument itself, since many of the moves being made are shared, or blended, and I am favoring no particular tradition over any other. But I want to put the argument not in terms of authority, but in a normative key. I want to persuade you.

那些已经熟悉美德伦理学哲学分支学科的人会注意到，在本节的其余部分，我描述了该领域的一个包容性版本，留下了许多内部争论没有得到解决。这是有意为之的，因为我主要是想在一般意义上提升美德伦理学的价值，所以特定版本的美德伦理学不那么重要。熟悉古希腊、印度和中国哲学的读者也会认识到这里的许多举措。在这种情况下，资料来源与论证本身的相关性较小，因为许多行动是共享的，或者混合的，我不赞成任何特定的传统。但是我想把这个论点放在一个规范的关键点上，而不是权威的角度。我想说服你们。

My primary aim in this section is to convince you that *it is possible to live a life worth having lived* and to begin to build from that a set of ethical/political norms. As noted above, a movement from a descriptive *is* to a normative *ought* is justified once a goal has been identified. For example, “If your goal is to win the chess game, and the board is set so that only one checkmate is possible (queen f1 to a6), then you should move your queen from f1 to a6” is a rather straightforward assertion. Thus, goals allow legitimate, objective transitions from fact to value. In what follows, I am not so much advocating one particular goal as suggesting that if you haven’t already, you should find a goal that permits a discussion of the quality of your life as well as the introduction of various prescriptions toward bettering it.

我在这一部分的主要目的是让你们相信，有可能过上有价值的生活，并开始建立一套道德/政治规范。如上所述，一旦目标确定，从描述性到规范性应该的转变就是合理的。例如，“如果你的目标是赢得国际象棋比赛，并且棋盘设置为只有一个将军是可能的(女王 f1 到 a6)，那么你应该将你的女王从 f1 移动到 a6”是一个相当直接的断言。因此，目标允许合法的、客观的从事实到价值的转变。在接下来的文章中，我并不是主张一个特定的目标，而是建议如果你还没有找到一个目标，那么你应该找到一个可以讨论你生活质量的目标，并且可以引入各种处方来赌一把。

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I think there is a common set of fundamental reasons we get up every morning. I do not mean the proximate causes, such as alarm clocks, crying toddlers, or overly impatient canines. Nor do I mean the short-term goals, like getting to work or class. I mean the ultimate reasons. Succinctly put, we do a lot of things as means, not ends. We work as a means to earn money. We earn money to pay rent, buy food, and for various luxuries. We pay rent so as to have a place to live, and so on. But there is a basic end or goal behind all these daily ambitions, even if we have forgotten it. There is at least one thing we do for its own sake, not because it fills other goals but because it is the thing that is behind them. Aristotle referred to that goal as *Eudaimonia* εὐδαιμονία (literally to be in good spirits, happy, prosperous, or flourishing), but we might translate it as “Happiness.”⁸⁶ There are other ways that this goal could be described. To make the case differently:

我认为我们每天早上起床都有一系列共同的基本原因。我指的不是直接原因，比如闹钟，蹒跚学步的孩子哭闹，或者过于不耐烦的狗。我也不是指短期目标，比如上班或上课。我指的是最终的原因。简而言之，我

ent ways: *eudaimonia*, *nirvana*, *lekil kuxlejal*, flourishing, meaningful existence, happiness, or well-being. I'm not saying these goals are identical; but for my grander purposes here, the differences are less important than the similarities.

幸福的方式: 幸福, 涅槃, 乐克斯勒, 繁荣, 有意义的存在, 幸福, 或幸福。我并不是说这些目标是相同的; 但是对于我在这这里的宏伟目标来说, 这些差异并不比相似之处重要。

I am committed only to the modest claim that it is possible to live a life worth having lived. Everything else follows from that. If someone chooses consciously to embrace this goal, then we can move from *is* to *ought* and begin to establish a normative system for them. To take this on will require an assent to at least *one* of four claims—either that you want to be fundamentally happy, that you want to live a meaningful life, that you want to minimize suffering, or that you want to achieve psychological and physical well-being. Even if you are aspiring toward salvation in heaven or some other postmortem existence, I suspect you'll want to have lived a meaningful life on earth. It is enough for current purposes for the reader to embrace some combination of the four, but I'll call the intersection of some measure of these goals “Happiness” with a capital “H.” (For reasons of simplicity, I am using capitalization here rather than subscript—see chapter 4. But happiness₁ might be thought of as an emotional state characterized by a hedonistic if typically transient feeling of joy that is likely partially anchored by neurological responses to pleasure. Happiness₂ or Happiness is a thicker ethical concept, which the following pages will illuminate.)⁸⁸

我只是致力于一个谦虚的主张, 那就是过一种有价值的生活是可能的。其他一切都随之而来。如果有人选择有意识地接受这个目标, 那么我们就可以从“是”转向“应该”, 并开始为他们建立一个规范的体系。承担这个责任需要你至少同意以下四种说法中的一种: 要么你想从根本上获得幸福, 要么你想过有意义的生活, 要么你想尽量减少痛苦, 要么你想获得身心健康。即使你渴望在天堂得到救赎或者其他死后的存在, 我怀疑你想要在地球上过有意义的生活。对于目前的读者来说, 拥抱这四个目标的某种组合就足够了, 但是我将把这些目标的某种度量的交集称为“幸福”, 大写字母“h”(为了简单起见, 我在这里使用大写字母而不是下标——见第4章)。但是, 快乐可以被认为是一种情绪状态, 其特征是一种享乐主义的, 如果典型的是短暂的快乐感, 那么这种快乐感很可能在一定程度上是由对快乐的神经反应锚定的。幸福或者说幸福是一个更深层次的伦理概念, 下面几页将阐明这一点⁸⁸

There are many ways that Happiness needs to be distinguished from its lowercase sibling. First, Happiness is not something that one achieves *in totum*, like being perfected or saved; rather, it is something one achieves by

working toward it over the span of a whole life. Flourishing is a process, not a product. Happiness is impossible to attain as a fixed state. Indeed, it has been argued that flourishing is incompatible with stasis or even being only one thing.⁸⁹ Flourishing is rather the ability to change or to become something else. To be Happy on this account would seem to necessitate at least the possibility of personal growth.

有许多方法可以将幸福与它的小写同胞区分开来。首先，幸福不是一个人全部获得的东西，比如被完善或被拯救；相反，它是一个人在一生中通过努力获得的东西。繁荣是一个过程，而不是一个产品。作为一种固定的状态，幸福是不可能获得的。事实上，有人认为，繁荣与停滞不前甚至只是一种东西是不相容的。繁荣是一种改变或变成其他东西的能力。从这个角度来看，要想快乐，似乎至少需要个人成长的可能性。

Second, “Happiness” is not primarily an emotion. It is not sensual pleasure, the chemical numbness of Prozac, a feeling of merely physical satiation, or passing euphoria. Rather, it represents a more robust (and pluralistic) conception of flourishing. Unlike an emotion, Happiness is something you can be wrong about. You can think you are “Happy” when you are just fleetingly “happy” (happy1). If Happiness is experiential or empirical (with a range of significant variations and definitions), how to live your life is a question of practical knowledge.

其次，“幸福”并不主要是一种情感。它不是感官上的愉悦，不是百忧解的化学麻木，也不是仅仅是身体上的满足，或者是一时的欣快。相反，它代表了一个更强大(和多元化)的繁荣概念。与情感不同，幸福是一种你可能会犯错的东西。你可以认为你是“快乐的”，当你只是短暂的“快乐”(快乐)。如果幸福是经验性的或经验性的(有一系列重要的变化和定义)，那么如何生活就是一个实践知识的问题。

Third, embracing Happiness does not mean constantly being cheer-ful, much less never being unhappy or discontented. I’m not asking you to lighten up. Happiness means that suffering when encountered can be

第三，拥抱幸福并不意味着一直快乐，更不用说从不快乐或不满足。我不是要你放松。幸福意味着当遭遇苦难时

learned from or surmounted, and it means that negative emotions can be fully experienced without our also feeling broken, bitter, or despairing, because we know that we are working toward a fulfilled life. As I elaborate below, in contrast to how we ordinarily use the word happiness, capital-ized “Happiness” is a political and ethical demand to have lived a good life.

这意味着我们可以充分体验负面情绪，而不会感到破碎、痛苦或绝望，因为我们知道我们正在努力实现充实的生活。正如我在下面详细说明的，与我们通常使用的“幸福”这个词不同，大写的“幸福”是一种政治和伦理上的要求，要求我们过上好的生活。

Fourth, I find it helpful to interpret this goal alongside the injunction attributed to Solon the Wise: “I count no man happy until his death.”⁹⁰ I take this to mean that we need to be able to ask ourselves at regular intervals, what kind of life would you like to have lived? This is to imagine ourselves in the future at the end of our life reflecting back on the course of our life (hence the convoluted verb tense). We should aspire to live the kind of life our future selves can regard positively and affirm.⁹¹ This way of seeing our-selves can facilitate self-judgment in the present moment. Most of us will want to be able to say that we were good people. But this also requires the capacity and maturity to be able to imagine your future self, looking back-ward. We also have to be conscious that we could be entirely wrong about who we will become and what we will value (see chapter 6). But humility about the limits of foresight should not deter us in our aspirations to live a life our future selves could regard highly; rather, it should remind us of the need for changes in direction and help us illuminate a fuller picture of our life choices. We need to practice imagining our obituaries before our lives have passed us by. This looking backward is part of what differentiates Happiness from chemically induced euphoria. We might in a given moment feel happy on some bliss-inducing substance, but I think if we looked back on a life spent in a narcotic coma, most of us would not think of that as a life well lived. It would not be a Happy life in the sense that I am discussing here.

第四，我发现解释这个目标和向智者梭伦致敬的禁令是有帮助的：“我认为人到死都不会快乐。”我认为这意味着我们需要能够定期问自己，你希望过什么样的生活？这是想象我们自己在未来，在我们生命的尽头反思我们生命的进程(因此使用复杂的动词时态)。我们应该渴望过一种未来的自己可以积极看待和肯定的生活。这种看待自己的方式可以促进当下的自我判断。我们大多数人都希望能够说自己是好人。但是这也需要你能力和成熟度去想象你未来的自己，回顾过去。我们还必须意识到，我们可能完全错误地认识到我们将成为什么样的人，我们将看重什么(见第六章)。但是，对于远见的局限性的谦卑，不应该阻止我们追求未来自己可以高度重视的生活；相反，它应该提醒我们需要改变方向，

帮助我们更全面地了解我们的生活选择。我们需要练习在我们的生命逝去之前想象我们的讣告。这种回顾是区分快乐和化学诱导的欣快感的一部分。我们可能会在某个特定的时刻因为某种能带来幸福的物质而感到快乐，但我认为如果我们回顾一下在麻醉性昏迷中度过的一生，我们大多数人不会认为那是一种美好的生活。就我在这里讨论的意义而言，它不会是一种幸福的生活。

Finally, Happiness is an aspiration to develop fully as a human being. Aristotle described *Eudaimonia* as the telos or purpose of all human existence. We could debate whether humans have a species--wide common purpose or type of flourishing, and I would caution us against universal-izing this notion of humanness at the expense of the diversity of human experience.⁹² But many thinkers have framed their projects in similar terms. As Molefi Asante argues (building on Afrocentric thought): “One must understand that to become human, to realize the promise of be-coming human, is the only important task of the person.”⁹³ Similarly, Tu Weiming 杜维明 observes that in the Confucian philosophical tradition, “from childhood to old age learning to be human never ceases.”⁹⁴ We find analogous sentiments in everything from Classical Greek philosophy to Renaissance humanism to Ojibwa folk traditions. All of which is to say, numerous thinkers from diverse cultural backgrounds have evoked the

最后，幸福是作为一个人充分发展的愿望。亚里士多德将 *Eudaimonia* 描述为所有人类存在的目的或目的。我们可以讨论人类是否有一个全物种范围的共同目标或一种繁荣的类型，我要警告我们不要以牺牲人类经验的多样性为代价来普遍化这个人性的概念。正如 Molefi Asante (以非洲为中心的思想为基础)所说：“一个人必须明白，成为人类，实现成为人类的承诺，是个人唯一重要的任务。”⁹³ 同样，杜维明观察到，在儒家哲学传统中，“从童年到老年，学习做人从未停止。”我们在从古希腊哲学到文艺复兴人文主义再到 Ojibwa 民间传统的一切事物中都发现了类似的情感。所有这些都意味着，许多来自不同文化背景的思想家唤起了

praxis of working to maximize humanness or full human potential as a grand goal.⁹⁵

把最大限度地发挥人性或充分发挥人的潜能作为一个宏伟目标的工作实践

So the question becomes, how can we achieve Happiness? The first thing to note is that it is different for different people. We aspire to and imagine different things. We have disparate aspirations. But that does not mean Happiness is fully subjective or reducible to what each person imagines Happiness to be. If Happiness is actually possible (with a range of significant variations), how you should live your life becomes a practical question. Happiness won't be exactly the same for everyone, but it will share common features and there are common mistakes insofar as there are many things that people imagine will make them happy that, when attained, will not do so. Part of the point of education should be to facilitate

所以问题变成了, 我们如何才能获得幸福? 首先要注意的是, 幸福对于不同的人来说是不同的。我们渴望和想象不同的事物。我们有不同的抱负。但这并不意味着幸福完全是主观的, 或者可以简化为每个人对幸福的想象。如果幸福实际上是可能的(有一系列重大的变化), 你应该如何生活成为一个实际的问题。幸福对每个人来说不会完全一样, 但是它会有共同的特征和共同的错误, 因为有很多事情是人们想象中会让他们幸福的, 但是当它们获得幸福的时候却不会这样做。教育的一部分重点应该是促进幸福

tate self-discovery,- to focus on people finding for themselves their idea of a meaningful life.

泰特自我发现,-专注于人们发现自己的想法, 有意义的生活。

We can make some generalizations about what probably will not be sufficient for Happiness. Happiness does not come from fortune (within certain limiting cases), because some people can be happy or unhappy no matter what happens to them. Likewise, pursuit of fame itself does not lead to Happiness because fame is fragile, fleeting, and easily taken away. Succinctly put, meaningfulness should not depend on things out of your control.

我们可以对那些可能不足以带来幸福的东西做一些概括。幸福不是来自于财富(在某些限制性的情况下), 因为有些人可以幸福或不幸福, 不管他们发生什么。同样, 追求名声本身也不会带来幸福, 因为名声是脆弱的, 转瞬即逝的, 而且很容易被夺走。简而言之, 意义不应该依赖于你无法控制的事情。

Happiness also cannot be found in the pursuit of mere sensual pleasure. Some kinds of sensual pleasure might contribute to Happiness, but sensual pleasure alone cannot be the sum of a meaningful life because pleasure is

transitory and easily lost. The more we attach to sensual pleasure, the more painfully we feel its removal. Again, this does not mean pleasure should be avoided, but that it is insufficient for Happiness. There is also a common Aristotelian and Confucian argument that a key function of education is learning to take pleasure in healthy things. Some of the things people ultimately find the most pleasurable and life-affirming are acquired tastes (Sun Ra's cosmic jazz, modern art, whiskey, or even coffee), and one might think that part of the educational process should involve learning to differentiate between healthy and unhealthy (or we might say self-destructive) pleasures or learning how to have certain pleasures in appropriately moderate measure. But while some pleasures might contribute to Happiness, pleasure itself is not sufficient.

幸福也不能仅仅在追求感官上的快乐中找到。一些感官上的快乐可能有助于幸福，但是感官上的快乐本身并不能构成一个有意义的人生的总和，因为恳求肯定是短暂的，而且很容易失去。我们越是依附于感官愉悦，就越痛苦地感受到它的消失。再次强调，这并不意味着恳求当然应该被避免，但是它对幸福来说是不够的。亚里士多德和儒家也有一个共同的观点，认为教育的一个关键功能是学会享受健康的事物。人们最终发现最令人愉悦和肯定生活的一些东西是后天习得的品味(太阳拉斯的宇宙爵士乐，现代艺术，威士忌，甚至咖啡)，有人可能认为教育过程的一部分应该包括学会区分健康和不健康的快乐(或者我们可以说是自我毁灭的)，或者学会如何以适当的适度的方式获得某些快乐。但是，尽管有些快乐可能有助于幸福，但是快乐本身是不够的。

Likewise, the pursuit of wealth or power can be means, but they should not be ends in themselves. That said, poverty and deprivation make Happiness harder to achieve (hence the need for Revolutionary versions of Happiness, discussed below), but being wealthy or powerful does not make people happier. Many of the wealthiest and most powerful people

同样，对财富或权力的追求可以是手段，但它们本身不应该是目的。也就是说，贫穷和匮乏使幸福更难实现(因此需要革命性版本的幸福，如下所述)，但是富有或者有权力并不能使人们更幸福。许多最富有和最有权势的人

in the world are profoundly unhappy. Indeed, the pursuit of wealth is a significant source of malaise in contemporary capitalist society.

在这个世界上是非常不幸福的。事实上,对财富的追求是当代资本主义社会不安的一个重要根源。

All told, Happiness must be something that happens in and over the course of a person's life. It is not found in many of the things contemporary consumerist societies tend to describe as sources of happiness (sensual pleasure, fame, wealth). Happiness is possible without these ephemera, and even if these are attained, they usually leave unhappiness in their wake. Again, there was a significant debate among Aristotle's students and the Stoics about whether there were minimal amounts of health and wealth required for a person to flourish. But contemporary cross-cultural research into happiness (with the limitations of its focus on the emotional category) also provides evidence that beyond a certain minimum level of material comfort, wealth does not make people happier.⁹⁶ I will return to this minimum below.

总而言之,幸福必须发生在一个人的一生中。当代消费主义社会倾向于把它描述为幸福的源泉(感官愉悦、名誉、财富),但它在许多东西中并不存在。没有这些时代的快乐是可能的,即使达到了这些,它们通常也会留下不快乐。再一次,亚里士多德的学生和斯多葛学派对于一个人是否只需要最少的健康和财富就能茁壮成长展开了激烈的辩论。但是,当代对幸福的跨文化研究(由于其对情感类别的关注存在局限性)也提供了证据表明,除了某种最低限度的物质舒适,财富并不能使人们更幸福。

Most people do not find Happiness in their jobs. Many people all over the globe spend their lives engaged in what the anthropologist David Graeber called "bullshit jobs," jobs that even the employee knows are basically meaningless.⁹⁷ Whether it is working at a call center, a fast-food restaurant, a law office, or a bank, or managing a hedge fund, many people secretly feel their careers are pointless. Moreover, we live in an era of precarious labor and declining workers' protections. While an older generation often felt trapped in a particular job for life, the lack of professional stability actually makes us more vulnerable, more fragile, and forces us to make greater compromises in order to cling to temporary employment. (We can see this in the adjunctification crisis in higher education.)

大多数人在他们的工作中找不到幸福。世界各地的许多人一生都从事着人类学家大卫·格雷伯(David Graeber)所说的“狗屁工作”,即使是员工也知道这些工作基本上毫无意义。⁹⁷无论是在呼叫中心、快餐店、律师事务所、银行还是对冲基金管理部门工作,许多人都暗自觉得自己的职业生涯毫无意义。此外,我们生活在这样一个时代,工人的保护越来越

少，劳动力也越来越不安全。虽然老一辈人常常觉得一辈子都困在某个特定的工作中，但缺乏职业稳定性实际上使我们更加脆弱，更加脆弱，迫使我们做出更大的妥协，以便抓住临时工作不放。(我们可以在高等教育的辅助危机中看到这一点)

A confounding effect is that turning an activity into a profession tends to make it unpleasant. Whatever it is we love most (e.g., playing guitar), we do not want to do that every minute of every workday or it would become boring and disagreeable. We typically want to do more than one thing with ourselves, or at least maintain the freedom of choice. This is part of what Marx and Engels meant by “alienation” (*Entfremdung*).⁹⁸ But you don’t have to be a Marxist or a Weberian to see how professional specialization transforms potentially well-rounded people—who might want to, for instance, hike sometimes, do carpentry sometimes, play guitar sometimes, and maybe even write the occasional critical criticism—into specialized workers whose basic way of being and self-expression has been narrowed to a small range of activities from which they are increasingly alienated. This is not universally the case, and there are those lucky few who find their chosen career to be fully rewarding, but they seem to be the exception rather than the rule. Hence, against some threads in virtue ethics, I do not think most of us will be lucky enough to find meaningful professional

一个令人困惑的效果是，把一项活动变成一种职业往往会让它变得不愉快。无论我们最喜欢的是什么(比如弹吉他)，我们都不想在每个工作日的每一分钟都做这件事，否则就会变得无聊和不愉快。我们通常想和自己一起做不止一件事，或者至少保持选择的自由。这就是马克思和恩格斯所说的“异化”(Entfremdung)的一部分。但是，你不必是马克思主义者或韦伯主义者，就能看出专业化如何将潜在的全面发展的人——例如，有时想徒步旅行，有时想做木工，有时想弹吉他，甚至偶尔写一些批评性的评论——转变为专业化的工作者，他们的基本存在方式和自我表达已经被缩小到一小部分活动范围，他们与这些活动越来越疏远。这并不是普遍的情况，有一些幸运的少数人发现他们选择的职业是完全有回报的，但他们似乎是例外，而不是规则。因此，我不认为我们中的大多数人能够幸运地找到有意义的职业

employment. This might suggest that either we need to find Happiness elsewhere or we ought to make demands to change the system.

工作。这可能意味着，要么我们需要在其他地方寻找幸福，要么我们应该提出要求来改变这个体系。



The core insight of virtue ethics is that morality is not primarily about conformity to a set of preestablished rules, but about becoming a better person. Many ethical systems tend to overemphasize individual, rational choices. Normative depictions in both popular and scholarly forums all too frequently sort people into innately good or evil, law-abiding or criminal, saint or sinner—as though individual human nature was fixed or immutable. Virtue ethics by contrast is a broad moral theory rooted in the importance of good habits and self-cultivation.

道德伦理学的核心观点是，道德主要不是遵守一套既定的规则，而是成为一个更好的人。许多道德体系倾向于过分强调个人的、理性的选择。通俗论坛和学术论坛上的规范性描述经常把人们分为天生的善或恶、守法或犯罪、圣人或罪人——好像个人的人性是固定的或不可改变的。相比之下，美德伦理学是一个广泛的道德理论，它植根于良好习惯和自我修养的重要性。

Most virtue ethicists agree that there are certain character traits or dispositional capacities that will help us fulfill our human potential.⁹⁹ Aristotle referred to these traits as *arete* ἀρετή, “forms of excellence.” We will call them “virtues.” Virtues are the qualities that make up a good (or Happy) person’s character, such as perhaps wisdom, courage, honesty, generosity, fairness, and so on. There is significant cultural and historical variation in what traits count as virtues.¹⁰⁰ But a crucial point is that virtues are not something that one possesses full stop—rather, they represent a propensity to act in a certain way when one encounters a particular set of circumstances. Brave people are those that act with bravery. Some people might have a natural tendency to be brave, but even then, this tendency has to be nurtured. This means that virtues are not held so much as cultivated, practiced, and exercised.

大多数美德伦理学家一致认为，有一些特定的性格特征或性情能力将帮助我们发挥人类的潜能我们称之为“美德”美德是构成一个好人(或快乐的人)性格的品质，比如智慧、勇气、诚实、慷慨、公平等等。什么样的品质算得上美德，在文化和历史上都有很大的差异。但关键的一点是，美德并不是一个人拥有的全部品质——相反，它们代表了一个人在遇到特定环境时会以某种特定方式行事的倾向。勇敢的人是那些行动勇

敢的人。有些人可能天生就有勇敢的倾向，但即便如此，这种十进制也需要培养。这意味着美德不是被培养、实践和锻炼而拥有的。

This leads toward the predictable follow--up question—how do you learn virtues? There are a few different ways to cultivate virtue. First, virtues can be learned explicitly from the teachings of parents, educators, pastoral counselors, and the like. Second, another way to cultivate virtues is through critical self-reflection. For instance, Marcus Aurelius' *Meditations* often amounted to spiritual exercises intended to keep track of his successes and failings in following a virtuous life.¹⁰¹ (I keep a diary for the same purposes.) A third route toward the cultivation of virtue is meditative practices intended to develop particular character traits (e.g., *Mettā* or loving-kindness meditation).¹⁰² For this latter reason, I see various contemplative practices as important to Revolutionary Happiness insofar as they permit the cultivation of greater reflexivity and particular virtues.

这就引出了一个可预见的后续问题——你如何学习美德？培养美德有几种不同的方法。首先，美德可以明确地从父母、教育者、牧师等人的教导中学习。第二，培养美德的另一种方法是通过批判性的自我反省。例如，马库斯·奥勒留的冥想经常是一种精神上的练习，旨在追踪他在追求美德生活中的成功和失败。培养美德的第三条途径是冥想练习，旨在培养特定的性格特征(例如，*mett* 或慈爱冥想)。¹⁰² 由于后一个原因，我认为各种冥想练习对于革命性的幸福很重要，因为它们允许培养更大的反身性和特定的美德。

But one of the most significant ways to learn virtues and flourishing more broadly is to model oneself on the behavior of others. Consider for example the statement attributed to Confucius in the *Analects* 論語 “When walking with two other people, I will always find a teacher among them.

但是学习美德和更广泛发展的最重要的方法之一就是以他人的行为为榜样。以孔子在《论语》论文中的一句话为例：“当我和其他两个人走在一起时，我总能在他们中间找到一位老师。

I focus on those who are good and seek to emulate them, and focus on those who are bad in order to be reminded of what needs to be changed in myself.”¹⁰³ In this respect, *Imitatio Christi* or “WWJD” is on the right track. Many influential Confucian theorists argued for the importance of emulating the positive behaviors of other people, and believed that even outwardly imitating various traits can cause them to become internalized responses.¹⁰⁴ You perform a role until you become the role. You act brave until bravery becomes second nature to you.

我关注那些善良的人，寻求效仿他们，关注那些不好的人，以便提醒自己需要改变什么。”¹⁰³ 在这方面，模仿克里斯蒂或“WWJD”是正确的。许多有影响力的儒家理论家认为模仿他人积极行为的重要性，他们认为即使是外在模仿他人的各种特点，也可以使他们成为内在的反应。直到勇敢成为你的第二天性。

A lot more could be said about this, but I want to call those that we aspire to emulate “heroes” (with a non-gendered use of the term). Heroes can be good models in spite of their flaws and regardless of whether they exist or not. For instance, someone could take inspiration for bravery from the example of Wonder Woman just as easily as they could model their bravery on Mother Teresa. This modeling is possible even when we recognize the flaws of our heroes. Indeed, knowing how Mother Teresa’s particular egoism got in the way of her ability to help others makes her a better model of a hero, because we can learn from her failings what we need to watch out for even as we emulate her.

关于这一点可以说得更多，但我想把那些我们渴望效仿的人称为“英雄”(不带性别色彩地使用这个词)。英雄可以是很好的榜样，尽管他们有缺点，不管他们是否存在。例如，有些人可以从神奇女侠的例子中获得勇敢的灵感，就像他们可以在特蕾莎修女身上建立勇敢的模型一样简单。这种模式是可能的，即使我们认识到我们的英雄的缺点。事实上，了解特蕾莎修女特别的利己主义是如何妨碍她帮助他人的能力，使她成为一个更好的英雄榜样，因为我们可以从她的失败中学到我们需要注意的东西，即使我们效仿她。

Thus far I have been articulating a fairly generic form of virtue ethics (with perhaps a little bit more East Asian influence than typical). A point of departure is that many of the classical theorists of virtue ethics imagined that there was a single model for the good life. Aristotle basically encouraged his followers to become philosophers; Confucius urged people to become civil servants (君子, *junzi* or “exemplary persons”); the Buddha suggested that they be monks and nuns, and so on. But I think there are many possible ways to live the good life. For some people it is contemplation, for others it is political action, for others it is devotion to their family, etcetera. Again, we can make the wrong choice if we fail to understand ourselves. Moreover,

when combined with the epistemology I discussed in chapter 6, the challenge becomes how to live a good life when we can't be certain we know what the good life is. This means that pursuit of the good cannot be handed to us and takes personal experimentation, practice, and growth. Simply put, I am suggesting a pluralistic account of virtue ethics.

到目前为止,我一直在阐述一种相当普遍的道德伦理形式(可能受东亚的影响比较大)。一个出发点是,许多经典的道德伦理理论家想象美好生活有一个单一的模型。亚里士多德基本上鼓励他的追随者成为哲学家;孔子鼓励人们成为公务员(君子、君子或“模范人”);佛陀建议他们成为僧尼等等。但是我认为有很多可能的方法可以过上好的生活。对一些人来说,这是一种思考,对另一些人来说,这是一种政治行动,对另一些人来说,这是对家庭的奉献,等等。同样,如果我们不了解自己,我们可能会做出错误的选择。此外,结合我在第六章中讨论的认识论,当我们不能确定我们知道什么是好的生活时,挑战变成了如何过好的生活。这意味着对美好的追求不能交给我们,而是需要个人的实验、练习和成长。简而言之,我建议对美德伦理进行多元化的解释。

But a more significant point of departure from mainstream virtue ethics is that I agree with the Indian philosopher Śāntideva (and others) that compassion is the central and most important virtue.¹⁰⁵ Part of this amounts to the claim that even people who cultivate other virtues (e.g., bravery, wisdom) will not be ultimately Happy if those character traits are held selfishly or if they are expressed without care for others. Moreover, the activities that cause us to feel the most deeply happy are those that benefit other people. Again, with all the necessary caveats, empirical happiness research also suggests that people often report feeling happier if

但与主流美德伦理学更重要的一点是,我同意印度哲学家 Śāntideva (以及其他人的观点,即同情心是最核心和最重要的美德。部分原因在于,即使培养其他美德(如勇敢、智慧)的人,如果这些性格特征是自私的,或者表现得不关心他人,最终也不会幸福。此外,那些让我们感到最幸福的活动是那些有益于他人的活动。再一次,尽管有所有必要的警告,经验性的幸福感研究也表明,人们经常报告说,如果

they have been helping others.¹⁰⁶ The Happiness I get from eating even a very tasty bowl of soup is likely to be minor and fleeting at best, but helping serve soup at a soup kitchen can be profoundly moving. Working for the benefit of others also lessens the experience of our own suffering. If I inadvertently hurt my back helping my daughter climb a tree, her pleasure in her accomplishment renders my minor suffering insignificant. (But note that compassion is not excessive altruism or self-martyrdom. It is not intentionally harming ourselves or allowing ourselves to be harmed merely for others' benefit.)¹⁰⁷ Our lives are deeply intertwined with others; so helping out in our community benefits not just our own life but those who are entangled with us.

他们一直在帮助别人。¹⁰⁶ 吃一碗非常美味的汤给我带来的快乐可能微乎其微，充其量也只是昙花一现，但是在施粥场帮忙端汤却可以让我深受感动。为他人的利益而工作也会减少我们自己的痛苦经历。如果我在帮女儿爬树的时候不小心弄伤了背部，她的恳求——她的成就让我的小痛苦变得微不足道。(但请注意，同情并不是过度的利他主义或自我牺牲。它不是为了别人的利益而故意伤害自己或允许自己受到伤害¹⁰⁷ 我们的生活与他人紧密相连，所以在我们的社区中帮助他人不仅有益于我们自己的生活，也有益于那些与我们纠缠不清的人。

One of the persistent critiques of virtue ethics in general is that it has often provided self-centered models for the ethical path; but there is a long history, especially in Buddhist philosophical circles, of emphasizing compassion as a core component of a fulfilled and meaningful life. This is not a claim located exclusively in Buddhism. Significant theorists in feminist ethics such as Annette Baier and Patricia Hill Collins have come to similar conclusions, although their preferred terminology often refers to empathy and “an ethics of care.”¹⁰⁸ All that is to say, an emphasis on the importance of compassion, solidarity, and mutualism in a life well lived appears in a number of very different ethical systems.

一般对美德伦理的持续批评之一是，它往往为道德道路提供了以自我为中心的模式；但是，特别是在佛教哲学界，强调同情心是圆满和有意义的生活的核心组成部分的做法有着悠久的历史。这并不是佛教独有的观点。女权主义伦理学的重要理论家，比如安妮特·贝尔和帕特里克·希尔·柯林斯，也得出了类似的结论，尽管他们更喜欢的术语通常是同理心和“关怀伦理学”总而言之，强调同情、团结和互助在美好生活的重要性，出现在许多截然不同的道德体系中。

Compassion in this account cannot be mere sympathy. As will be elaborated in the next section, it too is not just an emotion; rather, it means a mindset dedicated towards working for the benefit of others. The argument for the centrality of this virtue is that our lives are relational. In some

significant sense we thrive or fail to thrive together. If you want yourself to flourish, you have to focus on the flourishing of others as well.

在这种情况下，同情不能仅仅是同情。正如我们将在下一节详细阐述的那样，它也不仅仅是一种情感，而是一种致力于造福他人的心态。这种美德的中心论点是我们的生活是相互关联的。在某种重要的意义上，我们共同成长或失败。如果你想让自己蓬勃发展，你也必须关注其他人的蓬勃发展。

Human flourishing as a goal is in many respects a recovery of the early roots of the humanistic disciplines. I am not saying that studying the human sciences inherently makes people more ethical; rather, I see the potential within each discipline for the recovery of specific goals or functions that would be directed toward different aspects of human flourishing. While I aim to smash disciplinary silos in favor of a broader human sciences, we can imagine existing disciplines recovering the value of their objects (perhaps now held more fragily, given the critique I made in earlier chapters) for the purposes of Happiness.

人的繁荣作为一个目标，在许多方面是人文学科早期根基的复苏。我并不是说，研究人文科学本身就会使人们更加道德；相反，我看到了每个学科内部的潜力，可以恢复人类繁荣的不同方面的具体目标或功能。虽然我的目标是打破学科的藩篱，以支持更广泛的人文科学，我们可以想象，现有的学科为了追求幸福的目的，恢复了它们对象的价值（考虑到我在前几章中提出的批评，它们现在的价值可能更加脆弱了）。

To reiterate, once a collective (even polyvalent) goal is embraced, it permits fully objective discussions of what it would take to reach those goals. This would mean, for instance, sociology about building a better society, political theory about formulating more equitable politics, literary studies and aesthetics about both teaching enjoyment and recovering representation as a font of ethical models, religious studies as recuperating spe-

重申一下，一旦接受了集体（甚至多价）目标，就必须充分客观地讨论如何才能实现这些目标。这将意味着，例如，社会学关于建设一个更美好的社会，政治理论关于制定更公平的政治，文学研究和美学关于教学享受和恢复代表性作为一种伦理模式的字体，宗教研究作为恢复特性

cific sources for ethically motivated ways of life, and history for how these various projects have succeeded or failed. Psychology has already begun making some promising steps in this regard in the subfield of happiness studies (even if researchers in this domain as it currently exists often lack a sufficiently thick account of Happiness); and if other disciplines followed suit, philosophy of human sciences might be reimagined as an attempt to explore how these fit together to generate a fully flourishing life. Part of pedagogy would be about teaching students how to put into practice in their own lives the discoveries of the various disciplines. Again, this would not be a return to a particular political project or a regression toward an idealized golden age, but a recovery of some of the concerns that motivated early humanists and social theorists. Taken together, the effect of this would be to refocus the human sciences as a way of life.

道德激励的生活方式, 以及这些不同项目的成功或失败的历史。在这方面, 心理学已经开始在幸福研究的子领域取得一些有希望的进展(尽管目前这个领域的研究人员往往缺乏对幸福的足够深入的描述); 如果其他学科也效仿这种做法, 人文科学哲学可能会被重新设想为一种尝试, 以探索这些学科如何结合在一起, 从而产生充分繁荣的生活。教育学的一部分就是教会学生如何在自己的生活中实践不同学科的发现。同样, 这不是回到某个特定的政治项目, 也不是退回到一个理想化的黄金时代, 而是恢复了早期人文主义者和社会理论家的一些关切。综上所述, 这将使人类科学重新成为一种生活方式。

To clarify, just as I believe there needs to be room for some hyper-specialized research, there is also value in projects undertaken as ends in themselves. Not every research program automatically needs an answer to how it would make the world a better place. For instance, a scholar may just want to excel at reading Akkadian for its own sake. There is nothing wrong with that. Moreover, for some people Happiness might mean striving to be the best scholar of Akkadian they can be. This is even praise-worthy, and especially so if it emerges from personal introspection on the meaning of life. Nonetheless, because scholarship for scholarship's sake and scholarship for reasons of professional advancement are probably the dominant modes of the current moment, I want to encourage us instead to reflect more fundamentally on grand purposes and to reappraise the broader value of our collective endeavor for promoting flourishing.

澄清一下, 正如我认为需要为一些高度专业化的研究留出空间一样, 项目本身作为目的也是有价值的。并不是每个研究项目都自动地需要一个答案, 告诉我们它将如何让世界变得更美好。例如, 一个学者可能只是为了自身的利益而想在阅读阿卡德语方面做得更好。这并没有什么

错。此外，对于一些人来说，幸福可能意味着努力成为最好的阿卡德学者。这甚至是值得称赞的，尤其是当它出现在个人对生命意义的反省中时。尽管如此，由于为了学术而学术和为了职业发展而学术可能是目前的主要模式，我想鼓励我们从根本上反思宏伟目标，并重新评估我们促进繁荣的集体努力的更广泛价值。

Finally, if it has not already been made clear, I imagine the human sciences as a study of not just humans but also the multispecies environment in which we live. The Vietnamese thinker Thích Nhất Hạnh argues that *tiếp hien* 接現 or “interbeing” is the heart of compassion. Interbeing suggests that because we are profoundly entangled not just with other people, but also with our nonhuman environment; our Happiness is dependent on not just ourselves doing well, but our human and nonhuman community all doing well together.¹⁰⁹ Although space prohibits a full argument, I think Thích Nhất Hạnh is correct, and indeed I believe we need a commitment to not just human flourishing, but multispecies flourishing. This takes on greater urgency in the face of anthropogenic climate change and global pandemics. The hylosemiotics articulated in chapter 5 is part of a contribution to that broader panspecies project. All that is to say, Happiness depends on compassion not just for other people, but for all sentient beings.

最后，如果还没有弄清楚的话，我想象人类科学不仅是对人类的研究，也是对我们生活的多物种环境的研究。越南思想家 Thích Nhất Hạnh 认为，*tiếp hien* 接現 或“内在存在”是同情心的核心。我们的幸福不仅取决于我们自己做得好，而且取决于我们的人类和非人类社区能否一起做得好。虽然空间禁止充分的争论，但我认为这是正确的，而且事实上我认为我们需要一个承诺，不仅仅是人类的繁荣，而是多种族的繁荣。面对人为的气候变化和全球流行病，这一点显得更为紧迫。第五章阐述的符号学是对更广泛的泛种计划的贡献的一部分。这就是说，幸福不仅取决于对他人的同情，而且取决于对所有有情众生的同情。

7.5 Revolutionary Happiness: Critical Virtue Ethics

7.5 革命性的幸福: 批判性的美德伦理

The goal of the revolution had become the happiness of the people.
革命的目标已经成为人民的幸福。

Hannah Arendt, *On Revolution*
汉娜·阿伦特, 《革命论》

In this short section, I want to put the *revolutionary* in Revolutionary Happiness. In the preceding section, I imagined what it would look like if the human sciences were reoriented toward human flourishing. This alone would be a massive step forward, but working toward Happiness alone is not sufficient. Virtue Ethics itself needs to be modified. Why?

在这短短的一节里,我想把革命者放在革命的幸福里。在前面的章节中,我想象了如果人类科学朝着人类繁荣的方向重新定位会是什么样子。这本身就是一个巨大的进步,但仅仅朝着幸福的方向努力是不够的。美德道德本身需要修改。为什么?

The feminist theorist Sara Ahmed provides an influential critique of happiness. Ahmed is responding to a range of psychological studies that suggested that being a feminist does not necessarily make individual women happier. As a rebuttal, Ahmed criticizes the pursuit of happiness in general, which she sees as contributing to an environment in which minoritized groups are asked to make due with less, stop complaining, and just cheer up. I find her critique useful, especially because it shows us that psychological studies about “happiness” can potentially lead to a ridiculous conclusion if their concept of happiness is not sufficiently interrogated. It additionally highlights something I have to clarify. What I am referring to by Happiness is human flourishing, which is no *mere* feeling of something like pleasure or satisfaction, but something much more. Revolutionary Happiness arises from the feeling of living a life worth having lived. As noted above, Happiness is thus not incompatible with other basic sense feelings, like outrage, fear, or sadness, so long as our actions continue to be motivated by a desire to pursue a life worth having lived. To merely pretend to be happy and sit down and shut up when we are suffering as part of minoritized, subjugated communities would be an egregious mistake, and not something for which Revolutionary Happiness is advocating.

女权主义理论家萨拉·艾哈迈德(Sara Ahmed)对幸福提出了一个颇具影响力的批判。艾哈迈德对一系列心理学研究做出了回应,这些研究表明,作为一名女权主义者并不一定会让个体女性更快乐。作为反驳,艾哈迈德批评了总体上追求幸福的做法,她认为这种做法有助于营造一种环境,在这种环境中,弱势群体被要求少花钱,停止抱怨,只要振作起来。我发现她的批评很有用,特别是因为它告诉我们,如果对“幸福”的

概念没有进行充分的调查，那么关于“幸福”的心理学研究可能会导致一个荒谬的结论。它还强调了一些我必须澄清的事情。我所说的幸福是指人类的繁荣，它不仅仅是一种快乐或满足的感觉，而是更多的东西。革命性的快乐源于过着有价值的生活的感觉。如上所述，只要我们的行为继续被追求值得活下去的生活的愿望所驱使，幸福就不会与其他基本的感觉不相容，比如愤怒、恐惧或悲伤。作为少数民族、被征服社区的一部分，当我们遭受苦难时，仅仅假装幸福，坐下来，闭上嘴巴，这将是一个极大的错误，而不是《革命幸福》所倡导的。

I am not saying that we should be content with the current state of things—in fact, quite the opposite. We should pursue that which brings us Happiness, or perhaps we should pursue a meaningful life itself, doing everything we can in order to bring about a world in which the minori-tized people who share our form of suffering can be Happy. In addition to this, I argue that we can enlarge our sphere of consideration to include all of humanity and more—all sentient beings. So if someone argues that you can't pursue Revolutionary Happiness if you are a feminist “killjoy,” they've got it wrong. Sometimes being a “killjoy” is a way of claiming Hap-piness for yourself and for others, not rejecting it.¹¹⁰

我并不是说我们应该满足于目前的状况——事实上，恰恰相反。我们应该追求那些能给我们带来幸福的东西，或者也许我们应该追求一种有意义的生活本身，尽我们所能创造一个世界，在这个世界里，与我们一样遭受苦难的少数民族人民能够幸福。除此之外，我认为我们可以扩大我们的考虑范围，包括所有的人类和更多的——所有的有情众生。因此，如果有人认为，如果你是一个女权主义的“扫兴者”，你就不能追求革命性的幸福，那么他们就错了。有时候，成为一个“扫兴者”是一种为自己和他人声称快乐的方式，而不是拒绝它

This brings us to an exploration of collective flourishing as a politics. The call for Happiness itself and on its own is clearly no good if it be-

这将我们带到一个集体繁荣作为一种政治的探索。对幸福本身和幸福本身的呼吁显然是没有好处的，如果它是

comes a pacifying demand to accommodate to the status quo. Moreover, if carelessly formulated, the focus on Happiness would not necessarily address the negative lodestars and vices scorned by postmodernism that I discussed at the outset of this chapter.

为了适应现状,人们提出了一种安抚的要求。此外,如果粗心地表述,对幸福的关注不一定会触及我在本章开头讨论过的后现代主义所鄙视的消极命运和恶习。

By way of reminder, our current moment has been a font of well-intentioned moralizing in a mode that is both melancholy and out-raged—two feelings which, again, are not necessarily incompatible with Revolutionary Happiness. They bring our attention to the realities of victimization and suffering, and as such they are helpful. Now, however, I'd like to ask: what would it look like if we inverted this mode of critique? What would it look like to embrace positive rather than negative lodestars? What if we negate negative moralizing?

顺便提醒一下,我们目前的时刻是一种善意的道德说教的形式,既悲伤又愤怒——这两种情感,再一次,并不一定与革命的幸福不相容。它们使我们注意到受害者和痛苦的现实,因此它们是有帮助的。然而,现在我想问:如果我们颠倒这种批判模式,会是什么样子?拥抱积极的而不是消极的矿脉星会是什么样子?如果我们否定消极的道德说教呢?

I need to clear up a potential misreading: this is not an attempt to distract from the real suffering of victimhood! Do not make the mistake of thinking I am saying that we must only focus on the positive aspects of subjugation. What I am arguing for is a better and stronger method for transforming victimhood into empowerment and for broadening scholarship beyond merely tallying various forms of suppression to include promoting liberation. If we allow our wounds to fester, they weaken us, but once healed, they can make us stronger. So let me ask again: what would it look like if, instead of focusing the majority of our scholarship on the critique of negative models, we turned more of our attention toward actively promoting various kinds of liberating, compassionate thinking?

我需要澄清一个潜在的误解:这不是试图分散真正的受害者的痛苦!不要误以为我说的是我们必须只关注征服的积极方面。我所主张的是一种更好、更有力的方法,将受害转化为赋权,扩大学术研究范围,而不仅仅是统计各种形式的压制,包括促进解放。如果我们允许我们的伤口溃烂,它们会削弱我们,但一旦痊愈,它们会让我们变得更强大。因此,让我再问一次:如果我们不把我们的大部分学术研究集中在批判消极模式上,而是把更多的注意力转向积极地促进各种自由的、富有同情心的思考,那会是什么样子?

If one of the main things many of us see ourselves dedicated to in the human sciences is overcoming various intersectional forms of oppression,

including necessarily racism, sexism, homophobia, anti--Semitism, and religious prejudice, then we might start by reorienting ourselves to-ward the goal of Happiness. But we can't stop there. In order for this move to be as transformative as I want it to be, we need both critical theory and virtue ethics. A new normative ethics implies at least the *possibility* of a new normative politics, which could dramatically transform our current social sphere.

如果我们许多人认为自己致力于人文科学的主要事情之一是克服各种交叉形式的压迫，包括必然的种族主义、性别歧视、仇视同性恋、反犹太主义和宗教偏见，那么我们可以开始重新定位自己，朝着幸福的目标前进。但是我们不能就此止步。为了让这一举动像我希望的那样具有变革性，我们需要批判理论和美德伦理学。一种新的规范伦理学至少意味着一种新的规范政治的可能性，这种政治可以戏剧性地改变我们当前的社会领域。

Integrating critical theory into virtue ethics has two concrete implications. First, to be fully actualized, Happiness needs to become capable of making demands on the existing political order (hence Revolutionary); and second, the thing that holds everything together is the fundamentally important turn toward compassion. Remember that you can be compassionate and still be angry about injustices—and you should be. Anyone who tells you that you need to let go of your anger as a means of calming you down before your needs have been addressed is operating out of self-- interest rather than compassion. Nevertheless, we can extend compassion even to those people by recognizing that they are suffering individuals like

将批判理论整合到道德伦理学中有两个具体的含义。首先，为了完全实现，幸福需要变得能够对现有的政治秩序提出要求(因此是革命性的)；其次，将一切联系在一起的东西是从根本上重要的转向同情。记住，你可以同情他人，但仍然会对不公平感到愤怒——你也应该如此。任何人告诉你，在你的需求得到满足之前，你需要放下你的愤怒作为一种让你平静下来的手段，这是出于自身利益而不是同情。尽管如此，我们可以通过认识到他们正在遭受像

ourselves, even if they are unable to understand fully the extent of our particular suffering. We need to center compassion in our account of Happiness because it is to our ultimate benefit. Succinctly put, if flourishing is truly interconnected, *none of us* can completely thrive in an unjust society. That includes the oppressors, though they may not know it yet. So when we are fighting for justice, it is for their sake as well. Therefore, when we fight for justice for all, it is necessarily motivated by compassion for those who are different from ourselves, although we don't often think about it that way. We have to recognize the radicalness of a politics of compassion, because it goes against many of the dominant political discourses of our current moment.

我们自己，即使他们不能完全理解我们特别痛苦的程度。我们需要把同情心集中在我们对幸福的看法上，因为这对我们最终的利益是有益的。简而言之，如果繁荣真的是相互关联的，那么在一个不公平的社会里，我们都不可能完全繁荣。这包括那些压迫者，尽管他们可能还不知道。所以当我们为正义而战时，也是为了他们。因此，当我们为所有人争取正义时，必然是出于对那些与我们不同的人的同情，尽管我们通常不这样认为。我们必须认识到同情心政治的激进性，因为它违背了我们当下许多占主导地位的政治话语。

To explain further, the choice of the term “revolution” in “Revolutionary Happiness” was primarily inspired by Hannah Arendt's *On Revolution*.¹¹¹ Although I think as an explanatory model her account of the French and American revolutions is not terribly persuasive, Arendt does recover a key insight from the Declaration of Independence and its famous evocation of “Life, Liberty, and the Pursuit of Happiness”—namely, “that no one could be called happy without his share in public happiness, that no one could be called free without his experience in public freedom, and that no one could be called either happy or free without participating, and having a share, in public power.”¹¹² She argues that public happiness is a higher goal than personal happiness. It necessitates a public freedom to create lasting community with others.

为了进一步解释，《革命的幸福》中“革命”一词的选择主要是受到汉娜·阿伦特的《论革命》的启发。尽管我认为作为一个解释模型，她对法国和美国革命的描述并不十分具有说服力，但阿伦特确实从《独立宣言》及其著名的“生命、自由和追求幸福”中得到了一个关键的见解——即“没有他在公共幸福中的份额，任何人都不能被称为幸福；没有他在公共自由中的经验，任何人都不能被称为自由；没有参与公共权力，任何人都不能被称为幸福或自由。”她认为公众幸福是比个人幸福更高的目标。它需要一个公共自由来与他人建立持久的社区。

We can see a similar impetus in the writings of Max Horkheimer. In his famous “Postscript” to *Critical Theory*, Horkheimer argued against the merely individual or egoistic happiness of bourgeois society, adding that “critical theory, on the contrary, having the happiness of all individuals as its goal, does not compromise with continued misery.”¹¹³ To paraphrase: like Ahmed and Arendt, Horkheimer reminds us that aspiring toward atomized individual happiness is insufficient. We need to work toward the Happiness of the society as a whole, and doing so necessitates work-ing to alleviate collective misery.

我们可以在马克斯·霍克海默的著作中看到类似的推动力。霍克海默在他著名的《批判理论后记》中反对资产阶级社会的个人幸福或利己主义幸福，并补充说：“相反，以所有个人的幸福为目标的批判理论，并不妥协于持续的痛苦。”解释一下：像艾哈迈德和阿伦特一样，霍克海默提醒我们，追求原子化的个人幸福是不够的。我们需要努力实现整个社会的幸福，这样做需要努力减轻集体的痛苦。

Building on Arendt and Horkheimer, I suggest that we should aspire toward Revolutionary Happiness, which would be the capacity to lead a meaningful life with others, which requires the recognition of your voice and status as an agent (not a mere thing). It is hard for people to find Happiness when their basic humanity or dignity is being systematically de-nied or when they are prevented from having input on the political fate of their social worlds. Flourishing typically requires the capacity to be able to make decisions about one’s own community and to be heard. In other words, to make history. We need to work to abolish financial exploitation,

在阿伦特和霍克海默的基础上，我建议我们应该追求革命性的幸福，这是一种能够与他人一起过有意义的生活的能力，这需要承认你的声音和作为一个代理人的地位(而不仅仅是一件事)。当人们的基本人性或尊严被有系统地剥夺，或当他们被阻止对其社会世界的政治命运发表意见时，人们很难找到幸福。繁荣通常需要有能力对自己的社区做出决定并被倾听。换句话说，创造历史。我们需要努力消除金融剥削，

human trafficking, debt bondage, incarcerated labor, and other forms of contemporary enslavement and injustice. But even this is not enough.

人口贩卖, 债务奴役, 监禁劳工, 以及其他形式的当代奴役和不公正。

There has already been significant political theorizing about the importance of recognition, political agency, and various forms of communal dis-alienation. These are all worthy goals and, as Arendt notes, important minimal foundations for a meaningful life. But here is where putting political theory in dialogue with the account of Happiness above can push us further to the benefit of both. The word *Happiness* asks for more. It calls our attention to the possibility that people can be recognized and exercise agency *and still be unhappy*.

关于承认、政治代理以及各种形式的社会异化的重要性, 已经有了重要的政治理论。这些都是有价值的目标, 正如阿伦特指出的那样, 是意义生活的最基本的重要基础。但是, 在这里, 将政治理论与上述幸福的解释对话, 可以推动我们更进一步, 使两者都受益。幸福这个词要求更多。它让我们注意到一种可能性, 那就是人们可以被认出来, 可以锻炼身体, 但仍然不快乐。

To explain: neo-liberal theorists often suggest that basic democratic reforms combined with free markets are equivalent to freedom and even the good life.¹¹⁴ This amounts to suggesting that if they could get rid of the world's poorest slums and produce a lifestyle equivalent to that in the metropolitan middle class, we would all be living in paradise.¹¹⁵ I do not want to undercut the importance of working to overcome global poverty and other inequalities, but I think this whole line of theorizing is mis-guided. In many countries the middle class seems to be dwindling; and before we eulogize this vanishing bourgeois world and invest it with nostalgia, I want to suggest that (in its current form, at least) it may not be something toward which we all want to aspire. Bluntly put, a lot of rich white people are profoundly unhappy.

解释: 新自由主义理论家经常提出, 基本的民主改革与自由市场相结合等同于自由, 甚至等同于美好的生活。这相当于提出, 如果他们能够摆脱世界上最贫穷的贫民窟, 创造出一种与大都市中产阶级相当的生活方式, 我们就会生活在天堂里。我不想削弱努力克服全球贫困和其他不平等现象的重要性, 但我认为这整条理论线是被误导的。在许多国家, 中产阶级似乎正在减少; 在我们颂扬这个正在消失的资产阶级世界, 并对它进行“无痛苦”投资之前, 我想说的是, (至少以目前的形式)它可能不是我们所有人都想追求的东西。坦率地说, 许多富有的白人非常不快乐。

This all has concrete implications for the kind of state or community we need to call into being. We are used to thinking of the state in terms of its

capacity to monopolize violence or to secure a set of rights or to facilitate a particular kind of economic growth. Classical liberal economics is famous for arguing that human nature is basically selfish, but that the greater good emerges from selfish pursuits. Yet not only is a policy of selfishness self-sabotaging, but the evidence pushes against egoism as an account of human motivations.¹¹⁶ So I want to try to imagine a nation dedicated not toward GDP, but toward national Happiness and toward facilitating its citizens' pursuit of meaningful lives. I want to imagine a form of good government that works for the people instead of commanding them and that not only functions as a guarantor of democratic self-governance and collective autonomy, but also works for the promotion of virtue and deeper psychological flourishing. I want to call for a politics dedicated toward compassion, so that injustice can truly be overcome.

这一切都对我们需要建立的国家或社区有着具体的影响。我们习惯于从国家垄断暴力、确保一系列权利或促进某种特定经济增长的能力的角度来考虑国家。古典自由主义经济学的著名之处在于，它认为人类的本性基本上是自私的，但更大的利益来自于自私的追求。然而，自私的政策不仅自我破坏，而且证据推翻了利己主义作为人类动机的解释。¹¹⁶ 所以，我想试着想象一个国家不是致力于 GDP，而是致力于国民幸福和促进其公民追求有意义的生活。我想设想一种为人民服务而不是指挥人民的良好政府形式，它不仅起到民主自治和集体自治的保障作用，而且还有助于促进美德和更深层次的心理繁荣。我想呼吁一种致力于同情的政治，这样不公正才能真正被克服。

I have some significant points of disagreement with “Hanzi Freinacht” and what he refers to as “political metamodernism.” But I agree with the central mission of his metamodern politics, which is a call for a “deeper kind of welfare system that includes the psychological, social and emo-

我对“汉子法兰克特”和他所说的“政治元现代主义”有一些重要的不同意见但我同意他的元现代政治的核心使命，即呼吁建立一种“更深层次的福利制度，包括心理、社会和情感”

tional aspects of human beings, so that the average person, over the length of her lifespan, becomes much more secure, authentic and happy (in a deep, meaningful sense of the word).”¹¹⁷ The quest for Happiness therefore serves the common good. In other words, a metamodern politics calls for a political order dedicated not to material comforts, democratic reform, or free labor rights, but toward human (and multispecies) flourishing.

这样，一个普通人，在她的一生中，就会变得更加安全、真实和快乐(从一个更深刻、更有意义的角度来说)。”因此，对幸福的追求服务于公共利益。换句话说，元现代政治呼吁建立一种政治秩序，这种秩序不是致力于物质享受、民主改革或自由劳动权利，而是致力于人类(和多种族)的繁荣。

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All this illustrates the importance of compassion as the foundation of Revolutionary Happiness. The realization that compassion is key to human flourishing is what directs us outward from selfish pursuit of personal gain toward engagement with those around us. This is not mere posturing. A life dedicated to helping of others is ultimately going to be more fulfilling. Moreover, once we take seriously the claim that true compassion necessitates not just feeling the pain of others but working to alleviate it, compassion becomes a politics dedicated toward producing a just society.

所有这些都说明了同情心作为革命幸福的基础的重要性。认识到同情心是人类繁荣的关键是什么引导我们从自私的追求个人收益走向与我们周围的人接触。这不仅仅是一种姿态。一个致力于帮助他人的生活最终会变得更加充实。此外，一旦我们认真对待“真正的同情不仅需要感受他人的痛苦，而且需要努力减轻他人的痛苦”这一主张，同情就会成为一种致力于创造一个公正社会的政治。

To further develop something mentioned above, a politics of compassion is particularly radical in our current historical moment. This is because many sectors of the society have rejected the very possibility of empathy. There are good reasons for this. There have now been several decades of work wrestling with what kinds of voices, bodies, and subjectivities emerge as capable of being seen or heard.¹¹⁸ The French political theorist Jacques Rancière argued in *Dissensus* that those who speak substantial difference into the reigning distribution of the logical and sensible are literally not heard: they register as babble. Similarly, the Black critical theorists Saidiya Hartman, Fred Moten, and George Yancy write that Black bodies are created to be invisible, that the end of slavery is *not* freedom but a life of being refused the rights of the subject.¹¹⁹ Even though there is a rudimentary

commitment to the belief that everyone must be allowed to speak and be heard in most democratic societies, this has not always been the case. The problem is that even today all are *not* seen and heard.

为了进一步发展上述的东西，同情政治在我们当前的历史时刻是特别激进的。这是因为社会的许多部门已经拒绝了移情的可能性。这是有充分理由的。118. 法国政治理论家雅克·朗西埃(jacques rancière)在《Dissensus》一书中指出，那些对逻辑和理性的统治分布发表实质性不同看法的人，实际上并没有被听到：他们只是在胡言乱语。同样地，黑人批判理论家说，哈特曼、莫滕和杨西写道，黑人的身体是被创造出来让人看不见的，奴隶制的结束不是自由，而是一种被剥夺主体权利的生活。问题在于，即使在今天，所有人都没有被看到和听到。

This line of argumentation is valuable. A lot of people are suffering today and they feel that no one can understand their pain. It might seem hubristic after centuries of ignored or silenced voices to say that com-compassion is possible; yet a lot of people are in fact empathizing with those who are denying the possibility of empathy, and in so doing are agreeing that empathy is impossible. This is a version of the paradox of untranslat-ability that I discussed in chapter 5. Rancière, for instance, translates the political demands that cannot be heard into ten theses on politics, and in

这种论证方式是有价值的。今天很多人都很痛苦，他们觉得没有人能理解他们的痛苦。在几个世纪被忽视或压制的声音之后，说同情是可能的，似乎显得傲慢；然而，事实上，许多人同情那些否认同情可能性的人，这样做就同意同情是不可能的。这就是我在第五章中讨论的不可翻译能力悖论的一个版本。例如，Rancière 将无法被听到的政治诉求翻译成 10 篇关于政治的论文

so doing makes them heard (if not acted on). Similarly, Hartman, Moten, and Yancy make the case that Black bodies are impossible to see by rendering them visible in their prose. Similarly, Gayatri Spivak argues that the subaltern cannot speak basically by speaking for the subaltern.¹²⁰ In summary, arguments that empathy is impossible generally rely on appeals to the empathetic capacity of their readers. They work insofar as they can communicate the suffering of those who have not historically received empathy. This whole literature assumes empathy even as it denies it. All this is to say, the critics are right and even righteous to point us to those places in which subjectivities are being denied and voices are being silenced. But they overstate their case when they suggest that compassion or pluralistic solidarity are impossible.

这样做可以让他们听到(如果不采取行动的话)。同样地, Hartman, Moten 和 Yancy 通过在他们的散文中重塑他们的形象来证明黑人的身体是不可能被看到的。同样, Gayatri Spivak 认为, 下级不能代表下级说话。总而言之, 认为移情不可能的论点通常依赖于对读者移情能力的吸引力。只要他们能够传达那些历史上没有得到同理心的人的痛苦, 他们就能发挥作用。整个文学作品都假设同理心, 即使它否认同理心。所有这一切都是在说, 批评家把我们指向那些主观性被否定、声音被压制的地方是正确的, 甚至是正义的。但是, 当他们认为同情或多元团结是不可能的时候, 他们夸大了自己的观点。

The other point I want to make before moving on is that (*contra* Plato) similarity does not beget friendship. Indeed, I have written two monographs already providing evidence that the most intense animosity is frequently directed toward the proximate other, not the truly other. Of course, people can be callously indifferent to the needs of those they perceive as radically different. Many tragedies have resulted from treating other humans as nonhuman or ignoring the capacity of other sentient beings to suffer. But as Howard Adelman has argued, “Genocide is always and only committed against the proximate other.”¹²¹ While Adelman’s claim is perhaps an overstatement, the Nazis, for example, often saw more assimilated German Jews as more threatening and more dangerous than their unassimilated peers. The problem was not radical alterity or fundamental incomprehension, but hatred directed toward proximate others and perceived competition over supposedly similar desires.

在继续前进之前, 我想说的另一点是(与柏拉图相反)相似性不会产生友谊。事实上, 我已经写了两本单行本, 它们已经提供了证据, 证明最强烈的敌意往往是针对近亲, 而不是真正的另一半。当然, 人们可以对那些他们认为截然不同的人的需求漠不关心。许多悲剧都是因为将其他人视为非人或者忽视了其他有情感的生物承受痛苦的能力而导致的。但

正如霍华德·阿德尔曼(Howard Adelman)所说,“种族灭绝总是并且只是针对近亲而犯下的。”¹²¹ 尽管阿德尔曼的说法可能有些夸大其词,但纳粹经常认为,与未被同化的德国犹太人相比,被同化的德国犹太人更具威胁性和危险性。问题不在于激进的改变或根本的不理解,而在于仇恨直接指向其他亲近的人,以及在所谓的相似欲望上的每个假想的竞争。

Furthermore, as historians of Germany have observed, architects of the Holocaust like Himmler and Rudolf Höss regularly “stressed that de-destroying human lives was an unpleasant task that ran contrary to their ‘humane’ instincts. But . . . unpleasant acts were necessary and [it was] the will to carry out those acts *in defiance* of feelings of human sympathy” that made genocide possible.¹²² Paraphrased, the Nazis were able to carry out horrific atrocities in part because they were able to persuade themselves to overcome innate feelings of empathy for their victims. Similar arguments have been made about the genocide in Rwanda.¹²³ At the very least, the tragic history of genocides, witchcraft persecutions, heresy trials, and civil wars demonstrates how quickly and savagely people can turn on their neighbors.¹²⁴ We can come up with plenty of examples where the victims were seen and their suffering was registered, but in which their persecutions nonetheless continued.

此外,正如德国历史学家所观察到的那样,大屠杀的策划者,如希姆莱和鲁道夫·霍斯,经常“强调毁灭人类生命是一项不愉快的任务,违背了他们的‘人道’本能。但是,令人不快的行为是必要的,而且是无视人类同情心而实施这些行为的意愿”使种族灭绝成为可能。译文:纳粹之所以能够实施可怕的暴行,部分原因在于他们能够说服自己克服对受害者固有的同情心。¹²³ 至少,种族灭绝、巫术迫害、异端审判和内战的悲惨历史表明,人们可以多么迅速和野蛮地背叛他们的邻居。

That said, while compassion is not impossible, it can be exceedingly difficult. 也就是说,虽然同情并非不可能,但它可能是极其困难的

difficult. On a personal level, as someone who has experienced racist physical violence firsthand, I know that one of the hardest forms of compassion to mobilize is compassion for those who have done us harm. Compassion is not the same thing as forgiveness. To feel compassion for the oppressor is not to ignore oppression or even to work less hard to overturn it; rather, it is to recognize that oppression originates in damaged mind--states like greed, hatred, and ignorance. Compassion in this context means working to overcome systemic injustice without hating people; it means working to educate the ignorant and to seek reconciliation. We can hate racism but not the racist who we must work to educate and transform. It is a harder path than merely abhorring and otherizing one's oppressors. Thus, we should take as its inspiration figures like Nelson Mandela, who remarked: "Our human compassion binds us to one another—not in pity or patronizingly, but as human beings who have learned how to turn our common suffering into hope for the future."¹²⁵ Moreover, for the reasons noted above I think we need compassion not only for our fellow human beings, but for all sentient beings. We need to become aware of how much ordinary activities rest on environmental degradation as well as exploitation and cruelty toward our fellow nonhuman animals.

很难相处。在个人层面上，作为一个亲身经历过种族主义肉体暴力的人，我知道最难动员的同情形式之一是对那些伤害过我们的人的同情。同情和宽恕不是一回事。对压迫者表示同情并不意味着忽视压迫，甚至并不意味着减少推翻压迫的努力；相反，它意味着承认压迫源于受损的精神状态，如贪婪、仇恨和无知。在这种情况下，同情意味着努力克服系统性的不公正，而不是憎恨人民；它意味着努力教育无知者，并寻求和解。我们可以憎恨种族主义，但不能憎恨我们必须努力教育和改造的种族主义者。比起仅仅憎恨和排斥压迫者，这是一条更艰难的道路。因此，我们应该把纳尔逊·曼德拉这样的人物作为其灵感来源，他说：“我们人类的同情心把我们彼此联系在一起——不是出于怜悯或庇护，而是作为已经学会如何将我们共同的苦难转化为对未来的希望的人。”此外，基于上述原因，我认为我们不仅需要同情我们的人类同胞，而且需要同情所有有情感的人。我们需要意识到，生物可分解添加物在多大程度上依赖于环境退化以及对非人类动物的剥削和虐待。

Finally, to avoid becoming paternalizing or patronizing, we need to combine Revolutionary Happiness with the Zeteticism or humble knowledge I discussed in chapter 6. Part of Tanabe Hajime's "philosophy as meta-noetics" was an ethical commitment to finitude he referred to as "great compassion" through "great negation" (*daihi daihi* 大否大悲).¹²⁶ He argued that recognizing that we are all limited, damaged, and blameworthy permits us to connect with the finitude in others. The problem is not that we condemn others, but that we fail to condemn ourselves and thus moralize without

humility. We are all “problematic.” It is the nature of finite beings to mess up. We must, therefore, set out from the mutual recognition of our all too human faults and failings. It is our shared weaknesses that serve as the source for our mutual compassion. We are united in our shared failings and shared suffering. Some people are suffering more, some less; some people are more or less damaged; and we could fight about who is worse off or who is suffering most until we all die. But everyone is imperfect and everyone is suffering. Part of the way we achieve compassion is by recognizing our own limitations and our own suffering, and from that place coming to respond to the suffering of others. This mutual recognition, Tanabe argued, is what permits us to work together to coproduce a better world.

最后，为了避免成为父权主义或者高人一等的人，我们需要将革命的快乐与我在第六章中讨论的 Zeteticism 或者谦逊的知识结合起来。¹²⁶他认为，认识到我们都是有限的、受到伤害的、受责备的，允许我们与他人的有限联系起来。问题不在于我们谴责他人，而在于我们没有谴责自己，因此没有谦卑地进行道德教化。我们都是“有问题的”混乱是有限生命的天性。因此，我们必须从相互承认我们所有人类的错误和失败出发。正是我们共同的弱点成为了我们相互同情的源泉。我们在共同的失败和共同的痛苦中团结一致。有些人遭受的痛苦越来越多，有些人则越来越少；有些人或多或少受到了伤害；我们可以为谁的处境更糟或谁遭受的痛苦最大而斗争，直到我们都死去。但是每个人都是不完美的，每个人都在受苦。我们获得同情心的一部分方式是承认我们自己的局限性和我们自己的痛苦，并从那个地方来回应他人的痛苦。田边认为，正是这种相互认同使我们能够共同努力，共同创造一个更美好的世界。

There is no more fundamental task. As Cornel West memorably paraphrased Theodor Adorno, “The quest for truth, the quest for the good, the quest for the beautiful, all require us to let suffering speak.”¹²⁷

没有更基本的任务了。正如康奈尔·韦斯特(cornell West)引用奥多·阿多诺(Theodor Adorno)的话一样，“对真理的追求、对善的追求、对美的追求，都要求我们让苦难说话。”¹²⁷

7.6 Conclusion

7.6 结论

In general, I have been using this chapter as a way to begin a preliminary revaluation of the role of values in the human sciences. Its most straightforward conclusion is that the call to banish values from our research is misguided. Neither stressing the fact--value dichotomy nor emphasizing ethical relativism actually gets rid of values. For instance, even the appeal to expunge theology from Religious Studies itself relies on values—such as secularism or *laïcité*. But I want to reiterate that this is not singular to Religious Studies. It reflects in microcosm the problems with putatively value--free social sciences. Most research relies on epistemic values or thick ethical concepts. So the call for value freedom is not going to be sustainable. 总的来说, 我一直在使用这一章作为开始对价值观在人类科学中的作用进行初步重新评估的一种方式。它最直接的结论是, 从我们的研究中驱逐价值观的呼吁是错误的。无论是强调事实-价值二分法, 还是强调伦理相对主义, 实际上都没有摆脱价值观。例如, 即使是要求从宗教研究中删除神学的呼吁本身也依赖于价值观——比如世俗主义或者俗套。但是我想重申的是, 这并不是宗教研究的特例。它从微观上反映了推定的无价值社会科学的问题。大多数研究依赖于认知价值观或浓厚的伦理概念。因此, 对价值自由的呼吁是不可持续的。

This need not be the threat to “objectivity” that it appears. My sense is that “objectivity” is an unhelpful term caught in too many phantom oppositions. As several theorists have observed, “objectivity” has very different senses, including: impartiality or lack of personal attachment; non-- subjectivity; or being directed at producing reliable evidence.¹²⁸ Complete lack of personal attachments can be incompatible with values (epistemic and otherwise), but values do not threaten other forms of objectivity. Just because values are being brought to bear on framing research does not mean the result is just the scholar’s personal subjective opinion. An intense interest in climate change might lead someone to study a rain forecast, but that interest does not render the rainfall information they collect invalid. A personal experience of racism, poverty, or sexism can inspire a scholar’s research project, but this should not call its results into question. The same may be said about most research in the human sciences.

这不一定是它所显示的对“客观性”的威胁。我的感觉是, “客观性”是一个没有帮助的术语, 陷入了太多虚幻的对立面。正如一些理论家所观察到的, “客观性”具有非常不同的含义, 包括: 公正性或缺乏个人依恋; 非主观性; 或旨在提供可靠的证据。仅仅因为价值观正在影响框架研究, 并不意味着结果只是学者个人的主观意见。人们对气候变化的浓厚兴趣

可能会促使他们研究降雨，但这种兴趣并不会使他们收集的降雨信息失效。种族主义、贫困或性别歧视的个人经历可以激发一个学者的研究项目，但是这不应该对其结果提出质疑。人文科学领域的大多数研究也是如此。

But against those who do think primarily in terms of value and have largely abandoned notions of “facts,” I want to reiterate that it does no one a service when scholars misrepresent evidence in terms of predetermined political or ethical goals. In this respect, proponents of value neutrality have a point—scholars are sometimes guilty of distorting their source material in the service of unstated values. The critical work of uncovering these biases should continue. But it is not the presence of values themselves that is a problem; the problem is the falsification of evidence. In-deed, a key consequence of appeals to value-free social science in general is that they drive various motivations underground. It is the very assertion that social science should be apolitical that causes scholars to disguise their politics as factual claims, scornful condemnations, or disguised moral judgments. It is the notion that social scientific scholarship should be value-free or ethically relativistic that pressures scholars into hiding their ethical ideals, political interests, and theological commitments. In

但是，对于那些主要从价值角度思考问题，并且基本上放弃了“事实”概念的人，我想重申的是，当学者们根据预定的政治或道德目标歪曲证据时，对任何人都没有好处。在这方面，价值中立的支持者有一个观点——学者们有时会为了服务于未陈述的价值而歪曲他们的原始材料。揭示这些偏见的关键工作应该继续下去。但问题不在于价值本身的存在，而在于证据的伪造。事实上，一般来说，呼吁无价值的社会科学的一个关键后果是，他们把各种动机驱使到地下。正是这种社会科学应该与政治无关的主张，导致学者们将他们的政治伪装成事实主张、轻蔑的谴责或伪装的道德判断。社会科学学术应该是价值中立或伦理相对主义的概念迫使学者隐藏他们的伦理理想、政治利益和神学承诺。他说

summary, it is these selfsame appeals to value neutrality that produce crypto-theologies and crypto-ethics.

总之，正是这些对价值中立性的同样呼吁产生了密码神学和密码伦理学。

As an alternative, scholars should work to become conscious of their own values and to make their motivations explicit. The problem is not that we make normative or value judgments, but we still need to excavate the unstated or undertheorized normative commitments that undergird specific subfields. I agree with Max Weber that values are of vital importance in setting research agendas, and that we also need prevent our hopes and fears from warping our conclusions. Likewise, I agree with Franz Boas that we need to reject notions of cultural superiority and, in that sense, make sure that we have comprehended another culture or historical epoch before we claim to judge it. (It can be a useful exercise in humility to imagine what moral failings past or future generations might condemn us for.) We need to be humbler and less judgmental of others.

作为另一种选择，学者们应该努力意识到自己的价值观，并使他们的动机明确。问题不在于我们做出规范性或价值判断，而是我们仍然需要挖掘那些支撑特定子领域的未说明或未理论化的规范性承诺。我同意马克斯·韦伯的观点，即价值观在制定研究议程方面至关重要，我们还需要防止我们的希望和恐惧扭曲我们的结论。同样，我同意博阿斯的观点，即我们需要摒弃文化优越性的观念，并在这个意义上，确保我们已经理解了另一个文化或历史时代，然后我们声称对它进行评判。（想象一下过去或者未来的几代人可能会因为什么样的道德缺陷而谴责我们，这可能是一个有益的谦卑的练习我们需要变得更加谦卑，少对别人评头论足。

I have also been arguing against the smuggling of values disguised as epistemological criticisms. But I have also tried to demonstrate some of the many possible legitimate ways to move from a fact to a value and vice versa. To reiterate, the problem is not the combination of ethics and epistemology but muddled accounts of their relationship, which can be clarified once we stop trying to ban ethics altogether and allow for the free and unrestrained analysis of its role in our work. Once they are brought to the surface ethical norms can be subject to scrutiny and debate. (Although the best way to change people's minds is probably through stories, accounts of personal experience, and especially sympathetic anecdotes.)

我也一直反对以认识论批评为幌子的价值观走私。但我也试图证明一些可能的合法方式，从一个事实到价值，反之亦然。重申一下，问题不是伦理学和情节学的结合，而是对它们之间关系的混乱描述，一旦我们停止试图完全禁止伦理学，允许对其在我们工作中的作用进行自由和不受限制的分析，就可以澄清这一点。一旦道德规范浮出水面，它们就会

受到审查和辩论。(尽管改变人们思想的最好方法可能是通过故事, 个人经历的叙述, 特别是同情的轶事

Along those lines, I have been arguing that the human sciences should embrace a particular value goal—human flourishing. The call for Revolutionary Happiness has concrete implications for scholars. The humanities should be about helping us to flourish as human beings. This is in many respects a return to an early notion of the purpose of the humanities, and of liberal arts more specifically. That said, part of the revolutionary nature of the goal commits us to recognizing that many people on this planet are not in a position to work toward their own full flourishing because they literally are not seen or heard, or because their economic straits pin them to a series of very bad “choices.”

按照这些思路, 我一直主张人文科学应该拥有一个特定的价值目标——人类的繁荣。对革命性幸福的呼吁对学者们有着具体的启示。人文学科应该帮助我们作为人类蓬勃发展。在许多方面, 这是对早期人文学科目标的回归, 更具体地说, 是对人文学科目标的回归。尽管如此, 这一目标的部分革命性质使我们承认, 这个星球上的许多人无法为自己的全面繁荣而努力, 因为他们确实没有被看到或听到, 或者因为他们的经济困境使他们陷入一系列非常糟糕的”选择”

For this reason, we need a politics of compassion and uplift. Critical virtue ethics has resonances with what Paulo Freire referred to in *Pedagogy of the Oppressed* as liberating pedagogy directed toward critical consciousness, which enables one to see social and economic contradictions and hence to overturn obstacles to becoming more fully human.¹²⁹ It also evokes some of what Horkheimer took as the distinctive feature of the difference between “traditional” and “critical” theory—namely, that traditional theory primarily understands itself as merely describing society,

出于这个原因, 我们需要一种富有同情心和振奋精神的政治。批判美德伦理学与保罗·弗莱雷(Paulo Freire)在《被压迫者的教育学》(*Pedagogy of the oppressed*)一书中提到的解放教育学有共鸣, 即指向批判意识的解放教育学, 它使人们能够看到社会和经济的矛盾, 从而克服障碍, 成为更完整的人。¹²⁹它还引发了霍克海默(Horkheimer)所认为的“传统”与“批判”理论区别的一些区辨特征——即传统理论主要将自己理解为仅仅描述社会,

while critical theory is about changing it. Although space prohibits a fuller exposition of the concrete political projects this might suggest, I personally have in mind an emphasis on dignity, egalitarian direct democracy, disalienated government, and finally, what indigenous Tzotzil activists have called *ichbail ta muk'* or to help one another to greatness in service of *lekil kuxlejal* or a "life that is good for everyone" founded in a "communal connection to the earth" and our non-human environment.¹³⁰ My account of Revolutionary Happiness is a preliminary gesture toward what this might look like.

而批判理论是关于改变它。虽然太空禁止更全面地阐述这可能暗示的具体政治项目，但我个人的想法是强调尊严、平等主义的直接民主、异化的政府，最后是土著 Tzotzil 激进分子所称的 *ichbail ta muk'*，或者为了服务 *lekil kuxlejal* 而互相帮助，或者建立在“与地球的共同联系”和我们的非人类环境中的“对每个人都有益的生活”。

This also leads directly into the work I have been promoting in this book. We keep trying (and failing) to solve systematic problems by targeting individuals or by policing terms. Yet, in order to actually produce meaningful change, we need to know how social kinds come into being and how their properties are glued together. A common refrain of contemporary cultural criticism is that we often feel trapped in social categories or unjust classifications. We often mistake historically contingent and variable categories for universal or unchanging realities—in effect confusing social for natural kinds. Given that we live in a perpetually unfolding, processual social order, we need to embrace subjectivities that facilitate continual self-transformation. For these reasons, I have been trying to work out a human science that allows us clear-eyed insights into how the social world is currently being produced, but also into how we might produce it otherwise.

这也直接导致了我在本书中推广的工作。我们一直试图(但是失败了)通过针对个人或者警察条款来解决系统性问题。然而，为了真正产生有意义的变化，我们需要知道社会类型是如何形成的，它们的属性是如何粘合在一起的。当代文化批评的一个常见问题是，我们常常觉得自己被困在社会分类或不公正的分类中。我们经常把历史上偶然的和可变的范畴错当成普遍的或不变的现实——实际上混淆了社会 and 自然的范畴。鉴于我们生活在一个不断展开的、过程性的社会秩序中，我们需要拥抱主观性，以促进持续的自我转变。出于这些原因，我一直试图找出一种人类科学，让我们能够清晰地洞察社会世界目前是如何产生的，也能够洞察我们如何以其他方式产生社会世界。

8: Conclusion:

Becoming Metamodern

结论: 成为元现代

Once a [person] travelled far and wide to learn fear. In the time that has just passed, it came easier and closer, the art was mastered in a terrible fashion. But now that the creators of fear have been dealt with, a feeling that suits us better is overdue. It is a question of learning hope.

有一次，一个人为了学习恐惧，走了很远很远的路。在刚刚过去的这段时间里，恐惧变得越来越容易，这种艺术被以一种可怕的方式掌握。但是现在恐惧的创造者已经被解决了，一种更适合我们的感觉早就应该出现了。这是一个学习希望的问题。

Ernst Bloch, *The Principle of Hope*, Vol. 1
恩斯特·布洛赫，《希望的原则》，第一卷

There were no metamodernist philosophers, so it became necessary to become one. I have been conceiving of this whole monograph as an intimate philosophical exercise of sorts, over the course of which the reader learns how to disintegrate concepts, how to practice deconstructive vigilance, and then how to achieve a new kind of reconstructive capability. This grants partial freedom from social kinds, allowing for the construction of new, as yet unimagined conceptual building blocks for theory and for society as a whole. In this sense, metamodernism is a kind of Wittgensteinian therapy. But while Wittgenstein was trying to cure the pathologies of philosophy in order to return us to the everyday, everyday ways of being also exhibit their own pathologies. So metamodernism differentiates itself from various anti-philosophies by ameliorating ordinary conceptions as well, making metamodernism a kind of “existential therapy” that applies both to the philosophical realm and to the everyday.

没有元现代主义哲学家，所以成为一个元现代主义哲学家是必要的。我一直把这个专著想象成某种亲密的哲学练习，在这个过程中，读者学会了如何瓦解概念，如何实践解构主义的警觉，以及如何获得一种新的重建能力。这给予了部分免于社会种类的自由，允许为理论和整个社会构建新的、尚未想象到的概念基石。从这个意义上说，元现代主义是一种 Wittgensteinian 疗法。但是，当维特根斯坦试图治愈哲学的病理学，

以便让我们回到日常生活的时候，日常生活的方式也表现出它们自己的病理学。因此，元现代主义不同于各种反哲学，它 also 通过改进普通概念，使元现代主义成为一种既适用于哲学领域又适用于日常生活的“存在主义心理学”。

Let us say that having undergone this therapeutic, having thoroughly apprehended this movement of thought, one becomes metamodern. Again, the “meta” prefix primarily indicates a higher position of abstraction, a view from above—or, to use a different metaphor, a self-awareness-

让我们说，经历了这种治疗，完全理解了这种思想的运动，一个人变成了元现代。同样，“元”前缀主要表示一种更高的抽象位置，一种来自上面的观点，或者，用另一种比喻来说，一种自我意识

of how we are entangled in the temporal horizon of our research. As an immanent critique, this has necessarily been a critique of myself and my own philosophical formations. But, having taken this journey together, dear reader, if you are with me, we can now both be *metamodernistas*; which is to say allies in the collective project of advancement. Metamodernism is not fixed. It is growing and evolving. And because it is aware of its own position and limitations, it is capable of expanding beyond those limits.

我们是如何在研究的时间范围内纠缠不清的。作为一种内在的批判，这必然是对我自己和我自己的哲学形态的批判。但是，亲爱的读者，既然我们一起走过了这段旅程，如果你和我在一起，我们现在都可以成为元现代主义者，也就是说，我们在共同的进步计划中结成了同盟。元现代主义是不固定的。它正在成长和演变。因为它意识到自己的位置和局限性，它有能力超越这些局限性。

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From the vantage of modernism, metamodernism may look like postmodernism: because it rejects table--slapping appeals to objectivity; because it rejects the purifying of values from facts; because it undermines Eurocentrism; because it is so skeptical that it has even become skeptical of skepticism. It may also look like postmodernism because it grants anti-essentialism, discards realism, radicalizes doubt, and deepens the linguistic turn. And most fundamentally, it may look like postmodernism because it actually takes postmodernism seriously, trying to articulate and work through postmodern philosophical claims instead of rejecting them as mere obscurantism. This practice is a necessary first step to working through postmodernism's failings.

从现代主义的角度来看, 元现代主义可能看起来像是后现代主义: 因为它拒绝客观性的呼吁; 因为它拒绝从事实中净化价值观; 因为它破坏了欧洲中心主义; 因为它是如此的怀疑以至于它甚至变得怀疑主义。它也可能看起来像后现代主义, 因为它赋予反本质主义, 抛弃现实主义, 激进怀疑, 并加深语言学的转向。最根本的是, 它看起来像是后现代主义, 因为它实际上是严肃对待后现代主义的, 试图通过后现代哲学主张来阐述和工作, 而不是仅仅把它们当作蒙昧主义来拒绝。这种实践是解决后现代主义缺陷的必要的的第一步。

From the vantage of postmodernism, metamodernism may look like modernism: because it doubts the skeptical doxa and negative dogmatisms of postmodernism; because it returns evidence to the appraisal of values; because it undermines Eurocentrist universalism without altogether rejecting generalizations. It may look like modernism because of its attempt to articulate a system, grant the possibility of translation, and provide productive theories, and because of its call for compassion and emancipatory (if humble) knowledge. Most fundamentally, it may look like modernism because it articulates itself clearly and with a minimum of jargon—a communication style that is necessary for cutting through bullshit and finding a path forward out of the trap of the endless, eternal (re)turns and superficial re--brandings.

从后现代主义的角度来看, 元现代主义可能看起来像现代主义: 因为它怀疑后现代主义的怀疑主义教条和消极的教条主义; 因为它将证据返还给价值评估; 因为它削弱了欧洲中心主义的普遍主义, 而没有一起拒绝概括。它可能看起来像现代主义, 因为它试图阐明一个系统, 赋予翻译的可能性, 并提供富有成效的理论, 因为它呼吁同情心和解放性知识(如果谦逊的话)。最根本的是, 它可能看起来像现代主义, 因为它清晰地表达了自己, 并且最少使用行话——这种沟通方式对于打破胡说八道, 找到一条走出无休止的、永恒的(回归)和肤浅的重塑品牌陷阱的道路是必要的。

As we should know now, however, metamodernism works through both postmodernism and modernism and is in fact reducible to neither. In-deed, postmodernism was primarily apprehended as a negation of modernism. These limits inhered in its basic formulation. This past is *merely* prologue. Going forward, metamodernism stands on its own.

然而，正如我们现在应该知道的，元现代主义通过后现代主义和现代主义都起作用，事实上两者都不能简化。事实上，后现代主义最初被理解为对现代主义的否定。这些限制固有于其基本的表述。这个过去仅仅是序幕。展望未来，元现代主义独立存在。

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This book opened with a postmortem of postmodernism, and I would like to take a moment to make sure we are clear about what this means. There was a general turn toward negation that was condensed for a generation into a quasi--movement its enemies called “postmodernism” but whose trajectories and timelines were rather longer than those usually ascribed to that movement. Most of the positions associated with postmodernism were articulated by theorists who saw themselves as antagonists with in-compatible philosophical commitments. Indeed, many of the theorists most strongly associated with postmodernism were themselves criticizing postmodernism. While it would not be hard to argue that “real post-modernism” has never been tried, there was nevertheless a reality to the

这本书以对后现代主义的剖析开篇，我想花一点时间来确定我们清楚这意味着什么。一代人的时间里，人们普遍转向否定主义，这种否定主义被浓缩成一种准运动，它的敌人称之为“后现代主义”，但这种运动的轨迹和时间线比通常认为的那种运动要长得多。大多数与后现代主义相关的立场都是由那些视自己为对立面的理论家阐述的，他们的哲学承诺与后现代主义相矛盾。事实上，许多与后现代主义联系最紧密的理论家自己也在批评后现代主义。虽然不难说“真正的后现代主义”从来没有被尝试过，但仍然有一个现实

appearance. Scholars in a range of fields treated postmodernism as a coherent movement, and they either adopted some of the insights popularly attributed to it or they defined their work in polemical opposition to what they imagined postmodernism to be. It was this which actually gave birth to postmodernism as a scholarly paradigm.

外观。一系列领域的学者将后现代主义视为一个连贯的运动，他们要么接受了一些普遍认为是后现代主义的见解，要么将他们的作品定义为与他们想象中的后现代主义相对立的论战。正是这一点实际上催生了后现代主义作为一种学术范式。

The theory of social kinds lets us be more specific. If postmodernism₁ was a mimetically grounded architectural movement, postmodernism₂ was a loose cluster of skeptical doxa in a specific set of humanistic and social scientific disciplines, which was weakly anchored by a combination of dynamic nominalist and mimetic processes. Its shared properties were produced by being classified together, edited, and compiled under the heading “postmodernism,” especially in a set of Anglo--American secondary literature. It then developed by imitation of the bricolage thus provided. Postmodernism₂ was primarily an academic paradigm that fulfilled the needs of a university in the process of refashioning itself, and it found purchase by reframing various skeptical conundrums and yoking them to a liberatory politics. Its properties were stable only insofar as the negative doxa attributed to it were policed by scholars in a range of disciplines.

社会种类理论使我们更具体。如果说后现代主义是一种基于模仿的建筑运动，那么后现代主义则是一套特定的人文主义和社会科学分支中的一个松散的怀疑主义教义集团，这些学科由动态唯名论和模仿过程的结合所弱化。它的共同属性是在“后现代主义”的标题下，特别是在一系列英美二流文学中被归类、编辑和编纂而成的。然后它通过模仿这样提供的拼贴画而发展起来。后现代主义 m₂ 主要是一种学术范式，满足了大学在自我改造过程中的需要，它通过重新构建各种怀疑主义的难题，并将它们与自由主义政治联系起来，从而获得了认同。它的属性是稳定的，只有在消极的教条归因于它是由一系列学科的学者监督。

It is also worth remarking that many of the key thinkers whose writings were reassembled into what amounted to the postmodern canon—such as Baudrillard, Deleuze, Derrida, Foucault, Irigaray, and Rorty—were born in the 1920s and 1930s. They weren’t even Boomers, but the generation of Elvis Presley and James Dean. To be fair, there has been a somewhat desperate attempt to find the last living European philosophers who remember May ’68 and to make either a trend or a strawman out of them, but these thinkers nevertheless represent the intellectual struggles of an older generation. The scholarly model they provided was useful, but it is now outdated. It is time we consolidated their insights, identified their failings, and moved on.

同样值得注意的是，许多重要思想家的著作被重新组合成后现代经典——如鲍德里亚(Baudrillard)、德勒兹(Deleuze)、德里达(Derrida)、福柯(Foucault)、Irigaray 和罗蒂(rorty)——都出生于 20 世纪 20 年代和 30 年代。他们甚至不是婴儿潮一代，而是埃尔维斯·普雷斯利和詹姆斯·迪恩的一代。公平地说，人们一直在不顾一切地试图找到最后一位还记得 1968 年 5 月的欧洲哲学家，并把他们变成一种趋势或一个稻草人，但这些思想家仍然代表了老一代人的思想斗争。他们提供的学术模式是有用的，但现在已经过时了。是时候巩固他们的见解，找出他们的缺点，然后继续前进了。

Put differently, there are various possible ways of defining postmodernism or scholarship under the sign of the negative. But from the heterogeneous array of phenomena referred to as postmodern, I unearthed a particular strand—the auto-critique of philosophy itself as expressed in a small set of fundamental quandaries. Accordingly, this book set out from five “postmodern” problematics: 1) *antirealism*; 2) *disciplinary auto-critiques*; 3) *the linguistic turn*; 4) *a broad climate of skepticism*; and 5) *ethical nihilism*; and by working through each of them seriously and dialectically, we produced something new which has value regardless of its inspirations. The surprise is that the result is a new model for scholarship in the humanities and social sciences that works by granting or inverting all the things that are supposed to make such scholarship impossible. By starting out from a place of not just “postmodern skepticisms,” but fre-

换句话说，在否定的符号下，有各种可能的方式来定义后现代主义或学术。但是，从被称为后现代的一系列异质现象中，我发现了一条特殊的线索——对哲学本身的自我批判，表现在一小组基本的困境中。因此，本书从五个“后现代”问题出发：1)反现实主义；2)学科自动批评；3)语言学转向；4)广泛的怀疑主义气氛；5)伦理虚无主义；通过认真和辩证地研究每一个问题，我们产生了一些新的东西，不管它的灵感如何，它都是有价值的。令人惊讶的是，其结果是人文和社会科学领域的学术研究出现了一种新的模式，这种模式通过授予或颠覆所有本应使这种学术研究成为不可能的东西而发挥作用。从一个不仅仅是“后现代怀疑论”，而且是自由主义的地方出发

quently their most virulent formulations, and by accepting them or turn-ing them inside out, we have transformed them into the groundwork for a new path forward.

通过接受它们或者把它们反过来, 我们已经把它们变成了一条新的前进道路的基础。

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This has been a prolegomenon toward any future metamodernism. This is a hard book to summarize. I have often felt that each chapter could be its own monograph. (It could almost go without saying, but to get the most out of this project requires actually reading the chapters themselves not just the provided summaries.) Yet, the following will retread its compo-nents *in reverse order*. To get us there, I will prepare the ground by doing a final bit of scene--setting. 这是迈向未来元现代主义的前奏。这是一本很难总结的书。我常常觉得每一章都可以成为自己的专著。(这几乎不用说, 但要从这个项目中获得最大的收益, 实际上需要阅读的章节本身, 而不仅仅是提供的摘要。)然而, 下面将按照相反的顺序重新修改其组成部分。为了让我们到达那里, 我将做最后一点场景设置准备。

Metamodernism is a postapocalyptic philosophy of the human sciences and it was conceived in the long shadow of many a disciplinary eulogy. But if the humanities are dying, it has been a slow--progressing illness and long anticipated. Indeed, scholars have been lamenting a “crisis” in the humanities and forecasting their demise for over eighty years.¹ The con-temporary structure of the humanistic and social--scientific disciplines seems to have been barely established before there were predictions of immanent collapse. These jeremiads were both right and wrong insofar as by some measures (such as undergraduate enrollments) suggest only a modest decline, but others imply the humanities and social sciences have experienced a massive loss of cultural prestige.² Nor are enrollments the best measure of health. We should also not ignore all the economic fac-tors—the defunding of public education, the assault on tenure and rise of adjunct faculty, the corporatization of the university, the ascent of a new administrative middle management, the prioritization of STEM and busi-ness degrees—that has led to understandable distress.

元现代主义是一种人文科学的后启示录哲学, 它是在许多学科颂词的长期阴影下构思出来的。但是, 如果人文学科正在消亡, 那么它就是一种进展缓慢的疾病, 也是一种长期预期的疾病。事实上, 80 多年来, 学者们一直在哀叹人文学科的“危机”, 并预测人文学科的灭亡。人文学科和社会科学学科的当代结构似乎在人们预测人文学科即将崩溃之前才刚刚建立起来。从某些方面来看(例如本科生入学人数), 这些悲观的看法

是正确的，也是错误的，因为这些看法表明，人文学科和社会科学的入学人数只是略有下降，但其他看法则暗示，人文学科和社会科学的文化声望已经大幅下降。2. 入学人数也不是衡量健康的最佳标准。我们也不应忽视所有的经济因素——公共教育经费的削减、对终身教职的攻击和兼职教师的增加、大学的公司化、新的行政中层管理的上升、科学、技术、工程和数学的优先考虑以及商业学位——这些都导致了可以理解的痛苦。

Yet, as I have observed several times, the plight of the human sciences has been made worse inasmuch as we have experienced a particular legitimation crisis brought on by the dominance of postmodern *affect* as manifested in paradigmatic forms of theorizing across a range of disciplines. Many of us exchanged solving problems for problematizing. Turned critical thinking inward until it became a circular firing squad. Rejected the possibility of intellectual progress for narratives of decline. Mastered suspicion until suspicion mastered us. Many professors became experts at souring students on the very enthusiasms that drew them to the humanities and social sciences in the first place. Some of these were necessary correctives, but many were corrosive. Sadly, even as this intellectual climate wanes, it threatens to entrench some of its most unproductive habits of thought. We can imagine why postmodern--influenced academic de-

然而，正如我多次观察到的那样，人文科学的困境已经变得更加严重，因为我们经历了一场特殊的合法性危机，这场危机是由后现代情感的主导造成的，这种情感在一系列学科的理论化的范式形式中得到了充分体现。我们中的许多人用解决问题来交换问题。把批判性思维转向内心，直到它变成了一个循环的行刑队。拒绝接受智力进步的可能性，以此来叙述衰落。掌握怀疑，直到怀疑掌握了我们。许多教授成为了专家，他们专注于让学生对人文关系和社会科学产生反感的热情。其中一些是必要的纠正，但很多是腐蚀性的。令人遗憾的是，即使这种知识氛围正在减弱，它也可能使一些最没有效率的思维习惯根深蒂固。我们可以想象，为什么后现代主义影响了学术界

departments found it difficult to justify their positions in the university as a whole (e.g., why fund poststructuralist literary analysis over engineering, especially if the former tells us that every interpretation is equally valid). There are reasons that after a generation of autocritique, the typical privilege of a humanities professor is to be ignored by the society at large. Although there were many good things about the academy under the sign of the negative, it contributed to the caricature of navel-gazing, ivory tower intellectuals endlessly deconstructing themselves.

部门发现很难证明他们在整个大学的立场(例如,为什么要资助后结构主义文学分析而不是工程学,特别是如果前者告诉我们每种解释都是同样有效的)。在经历了一代人的自我批判之后,人文学科教授典型的特权学说被整个社会所忽视是有原因的。尽管在负面的标志下,学院有许多好的方面,但它也促成了对自我的盲目崇拜,象牙塔知识分子无休止地解构自己的讽刺。

In response to this legitimization crisis, this book has been an attempt to provide an ambitious defense and systematic reappraisal of the human sciences. I have argued that we must decolonize and dismantle our academic silos because the conventional structure of the disciplines and their domains of inquiry is outdated, redundant, and produces various unnecessary deadlocks. We must also improve on the best parts of postmodernism without succumbing to its pitfalls. We cannot solve everything at the level of scholarly abstractions. Organizing too will be important in the days ahead. But engaging in this collaborative labor could see a plethora of beneficial results.

为了回应这种合法性危机,这本书一直试图提供一个雄心勃勃的辩护和系统的重新评价人文科学。我认为,我们必须实现非殖民化,拆除我们的学术孤岛,因为学科及其研究领域的传统结构已经过时、多余,并产生各种不必要的僵局。我们还必须在不屈服于后现代主义陷阱的情况下,改进后现代主义最好的部分。我们不能在学术抽象的层面上解决所有问题。在未来的日子里,组织也是非常重要的。但是参与这种协作劳动可以看到许多有益的结果。

I have thus provided a new scholarly model we can take to the streets and refurbished a vision of the human sciences as a way of life directed toward pluralistic forms of human, and necessarily multispecies, flourishing. One thing that the classical humanists and contemporary anti-humanists actually shared was a notion that to be human is in a certain sense to be essence-less. We are in fundamental respects self-fashioning entities. Our brains are "plastic." Our bodies can be trained. Our minds expanded. Our virtues can be cultivated. We can become better people. We can learn to live more meaningful lives. We can build more just societies and more cohesive communities. We are always evolving, and thus our work is never done. We

can make progress toward humble knowledge of ourselves and others. The human sciences can help us get there. Let me try one final time to tell you how.

因此，我提供了一种新的学术模式，我们可以走上街头，重塑人类科学的愿景，将其作为一种生活方式，指向多种形式的人类，必然也是多种形式的面粉加工。古典人文主义者和当代反人文主义者实际上有一个共同点，那就是人类在某种意义上是没有本质的。从根本上说，我们是自我塑造的实体。我们的大脑是“可塑的”我们的身体可以被训练。我们的思想得到了扩展。我们的美德可以被培养。我们可以成为更好的人。我们可以学会过更有意义的生活。我们可以建立更公正的社会和更有凝聚力的社区。我们一直在进化，因此我们的工作永远不会完成。我们可以在对自己和他人谦逊的认识上取得进步。人文科学可以帮助我们实现这一目标。让我最后一次告诉你怎么做。

Metamodern Ethics: Revolutionary Happiness. Postmodernism took hold in the academy primarily as a species of moralizing yoked to a set of skeptical doxa. Under the sign of negative lodestars like logocentrism, essentialism, racism, phallocentrism, and the like, it provided a powerful set of ethical norms. But these were typically not recognized as ethics because they were articulated in a negative key. Proponents of value neutrality and ethical relativism shamed scholars into the notion that displaying commitments was akin to confessing failings. So scholars forced their values underground, only to have them emerge in simplistic condemnations or as ethical judgments smuggled in as epistemological critique.

元现代伦理学：革命的幸福。后现代主义主要作为一种道德说教与一套怀疑主义的教义相结合而在学术界扎根。在诸如逻各斯中心主义、本质现实主义、种族主义、男性中心主义等消极主义的标志下，它提供了一套强有力的伦理规范。但是这些通常不被认为是伦理，因为它们是以消极的方式表达的。价值中立和伦理相对主义的支持者羞辱了学者们，让他们认为展示承诺就等于承认失败。因此，学者们强迫他们的价值观转入地下，只是为了让它们简单的谴责中出现，或者作为道德判断偷偷地作为认识论批判而出现。

Preaching a scornful version of value neutrality only perpetuates the
宣扬一种轻蔑的价值中立只会让价值观永存

problem it is trying to address. What we need—rather than suppressing our values—is to bring them to the surface and make them work for us, because only if they are acknowledged can we address them honestly and openly. Besides, our fear of values is unnecessary. There are many ways to move from an “is” to an “ought.” Indeed, once these moves are recognized, we can see various legitimate means through which facts and values can be related. This does not mean that only values are important, but instead that empirical evidence turns out to bear a relation to some value claims, just as some value claims turn out to bear a relation to how we present- em-pirical evidence. Furthermore, one of the most important ways to move from fact to value follows from the recognition of a stated goal. This per-mits impartial judgments vis--à-vis that goal.

它试图解决的问题。我们所需要的——而不是压制我们的价值观——是把它们表现出来，让它们为我们服务，因为只有承认它们，我们才能诚实和公开地处理它们。此外，我们对价值观的恐惧是没有必要的。从“是”到“应该”有很多方式事实上，一旦这些转变被认识到，我们就可以看到各种合法的方法，通过这些方法，事实和价值观可以被联系起来。这并不意味着只有价值才是重要的，相反，经验证明与某些价值主张有关联，正如某些价值主张与我们如何呈现经验证明有关联一样。此外，从事实到价值转换的最重要的方式之一就是既定目标的认可。这允许对目标做出公正的判断。

I therefore proposed as a goal for the human sciences negating the negative ethics of postmodern criticism, and in so doing, unearthing a critical virtue ethics directed toward human and multispecies flourishing. Revolutionary Happiness says that if you want to live a life worth having lived, and if you can recognize that others want to do the same, this will transform your view of not only your personal habits, but the whole schol-arly enterprise. There are pluralistic ways in which one might conceive eudaimonia, but I argued for engaged compassion as the central virtue. So one of our starting points—postmodernism’s putative “ethical nihil-ism”—has given way to the more productive form of Revolutionary Hap-piness, which requires not only a reorientation toward ethics, but also a reorientation toward knowledge. For the human sciences to fulfill their potential, they need an epistemological stance that does not default into epistemological overconfidence or immature skepticism.

因此，我提出以否定后现代批判的否定伦理作为人文科学的目标，并在此过程中发掘出一种面向人类和多物种繁荣的批判美德伦理。革命性的幸福说，如果你想过有价值的生活，如果你能认识到其他人也想这样做，这将不仅改变你对个人习惯的看法，而且改变你对整个学校事业的看法。人们可以通过多元化的方式来构想幸福感，但我主张把参与式的同情心作为核心美德。因此，我们的出发点之一——后现代主义假定的

“伦理虚无主义”——已经让位于革命幸福的更具生产力的形式，这不仅需要重新定位于伦理，而且还需要重新定位于知识。为了实现人文科学的潜力，他们需要一种认识论的立场，这种立场不会默认为认识论的过度自信或不成熟的怀疑主义。

Metamodern Epistemology: Zeteticism. Postmodernism is identified with universal skepticism, but as we have seen, its skepticism didn't go far enough. It remained attached to the negative dogmas that drove its distrust into prejudged areas. We needed to be skeptical of such prepack-aged skepticism. By universalizing doubt, we learned to doubt our own doubts. This led to a revised epistemological stance—Zeteticism—which represents a commitment to non--dogmatic, humble knowledge. Zetetic knowledge is knowledge as a social kind or process, not a final terminus.

元现代认识论: *Zeteticism*。后现代主义被认为是普遍的怀疑主义，但正如我们所看到的，它的怀疑主义走得还不够远。它依然依附于消极的教条，这些教条将它的不信任推向了预先判断的领域。我们需要对这种预先包装好的怀疑态度持怀疑态度。通过普及怀疑，我们学会了怀疑自己的怀疑。这导致了一种修正的认识论立场——*zeteticism*——它代表了对非教条的、谦逊的知识的承诺。*Zetetic* 知识是作为社会类型或过程的知识，而不是最终的终点。

Politicized skepticism has failed as both politics and epistemology, and it is now time for emancipatory knowledge. Metamodern Zeteticism combined with abduction helps us to understand, concretely, how theories (and other scholarly generalizations) should be constructed and evaluated. It shows us how we can make *progress* in both positive and negative knowledge (increasing evidence and refuting alternative hypotheses). Rejecting the search for certainty and simultaneously avoiding the philosophical neuroses that come from imagining ourselves to be disembodied

政治化的怀疑主义作为政治学和认识论都失败了，现在是解放性知识的时候了。元现代泽特主义与诱导相结合，帮助我们具体地理解理论(和其他学术概括)应该如何构建和评估。它向我们展示了我们如何在积极和消极的知识方面取得进步(增加证据和驳斥替代性假设)。重新抛弃对确定性的追求，同时避免来自于想象自己脱离实体的哲学神经症

consciousnesses, Zeteticism suggests that we can make more philosophical progress by (tentatively) postulating the interdependent co-arising of body and mind. With abductive inference in hand, we also now know how the world serves as its own model and how abduction directs our attention toward discovering its correlations and signs. For this we need a semi-otics.

泽提主义认为, 我们可以通过(试验性地)假设身心相互依存共同产生来取得更多的哲学进步。有了溯因推理, 我们现在也知道了世界是如何充当自己的模型的, 以及溯因如何引导我们的注意力去发现它的相关性和迹象。为此, 我们需要一个符号学理论。

Metamodern Semiotics: Hylosemiotics. Postmodernism is regularly associated with the linguistic turn. The way to untangle the linguistic turn is in certain respects to intensify it rather than reject it. We approach the world semiotically, but like our fellow animals we are not imprisoned in language. Hylosemiotics—a naturalized, material semiotics—explores not only how the world functions in signs but also how sign--making and interpreting activities function across the animal and plant world.

元现代符号学: 符号学。后现代主义经常与语言学的转向联系在一起。解开语言学转向的方法是在某些方面强化它而不是拒绝它。我们以符号学的方式接近这个世界, 但是就像我们的同类动物一样, 我们并没有被语言所束缚。符号学是一种自然化的物质符号学, 它不仅探索世界如何在符号中起作用, 而且探索符号制作和解释活动如何在动植物世界中起作用。

Beyond addressing a number of philosophical problems, hylosemiotics has practical significance on its own. Faced with the unfolding crises of climate change, mass extinction, economic upheaval, and the potential end of the Anthropocene Era of human ascendancy, there have been numerous calls to embrace multispecies coexistence. As valuable as these calls are, they frequently run into trouble when pushing an ill--defined notion of “agency” out of the realm of humans and uncritically onto animals or objects. Hylosemiotics addresses the need to better interpret agency by providing a philosophical framework for cross--species communication that engages with ongoing research in animal ethology and related fields. Thus, hylosemiotics is only the first step, but it has implications for multi-species flourishing.

形而上学除了解决许多哲学问题之外, 还有其自身的现实意义。面对气候变化、大规模物种灭绝、经济动荡以及人类统治时代可能结束的危机, 人们呼吁接受多物种共存。尽管这些呼吁很有价值, 但当它们将一个不明确的“代理”概念推出人类的领域, 并不加批判地转移到动物或物体上时, 它们常常会遇到麻烦。符号学通过提供一个跨物种交流的哲学框架来解释代理的需要, 这个哲学框架涉及到动物行为学和相关领域的研究。因此, 符号学只是第一步, 但它对多物种繁荣有影响。

Hylosemiotics also provides an account of meaning that will be valuable to research across the disciplines. Meaning is inference. We need to think in terms of an asymmetry between sign production and sign consumption, voluntary and involuntary signs, or meaning-making and interpretation. We need to lift up a minimal ontology and a basic semantics together; to show how sentient beings interpret their environment and how communities of signaling organisms accommodate their sign systems to it. This account of meaning thus permits us to see the way in which humans have woven a rich semiosphere around ourselves in terms of social kinds.

符号学还提供了一个意义的帐户，这将是具有价值的跨学科研究。意义是推理。我们需要从符号产生与符号消费、自愿与非自愿符号、意义制造与解释之间的不对称性的角度来思考。我们需要把最小的本体论和基本的语义学放在一起，来展示有情众生如何解释他们的环境，以及信号生物群落如何适应他们的符号系统。因此，这种对意义的解释允许我们看到人类是如何以社会类型的方式在我们周围编织了一个丰富的符号圈。

Metamodern Social Ontology: Social Kinds. This monograph began with the recognition that many academic disciplines have been in crisis about their disciplinary objects. The answer offered here is not to reject the critique, but to grant it. This was for two reasons. First, we need to accept these strategies for demolition because the disintegration of concepts is in itself a valuable corrective to the reification and misplaced concreteness of the ordinary modes of approach in the human sciences. We have

元现代社会本体论：社会种类。这本专著开始于认识到许多学科已经在他们的学科对象的危机。这里给出的答案不是拒绝批评，而是认可它。这有两个原因。首先，我们需要接受这些拆除战略，因为概念的瓦解本身就是对人文科学中普通方法的具体化和错位的具体性的一种有价值的纠正。我们做到了

built our scholarship on shaky foundations. Often, we need to know that we are not imprisoned in the categories that have been used to define us. Destructive criticism is therefore necessary—not just for the discipline but for individual scholars—to clear the ground and shatter our old pre-conceptions, before we can achieve the simultaneous deconstructive vigi-lance and reconstructive ability our work requires.

把我们的奖学金建立在摇摇欲坠的基础上。通常，我们需要知道，我们并没有被束缚在那些曾经定义我们的范畴里。因此，破坏性批评是必要的——不仅对于学科而言，而且对于个别学者而言——在我们能够获得我们的工作所需要的同时具有解构性的警觉性和重建能力之前，我们必须清理基础，打破我们旧有的先入为主的观念。

Second, granting these deconstructive critiques enabled us to uncover the fundamental nature of the categories themselves as well as the mechanisms that produce and maintain them. In place of fixed and reified notions of our disciplinary objects, we can now see the social world in terms of a process social ontology with temporary zones of stability I have been calling “social kinds.”

第二，给予这些解构性批评使我们能够揭示范畴本身的基本性质以及产生和维持它们的机制。代替我们的学科对象的固定和具体化的概念，我们现在可以看到社会世界的过程社会本体论与暂时的稳定区域，我一直称之为“社会种类”

I described social kinds as 1) *socially constructed* 2) *dynamic clusters of powers*, 3) *which are demarcated by the causal processes that anchor the relevant clusters*. Social kinds tend to be high-entropic and *niḥsvabhāva* (inter-dependent), and to cross-cut each other. Moreover, I argued against the standard oppositions between socially constructed and real, culture and nature, and social and physical properties. The core of this monograph has been an attempt to articulate the implications of this social ontology for scholarship in the humanities and social sciences.

我把社会类型描述为: 1)社会构建的 2)动态权力集群, 3)由锚定相关集群的因果过程划分的。社会类型倾向于高熵和 *ni something svabh va* (相互依赖), 并且相互交叉。此外, 我反对社会结构与现实、文化与自然、社会与物质属性之间的标准对立。这本专著的核心是试图阐明这种社会本体论对人文学科和社会科学学术的影响。

This process social ontology provides new models for comparison, a focus on anchoring processes as opposed to pattern recognition, and an attention to how social kinds populate the worlds of humans and other creatures. It suggests a new research paradigm that, by granting diversity and change, focuses attention on stabilization and homogenization processes. It bifurcates language and social kinds so that we can study both. It also implies that we should give up on conceptual analysis as a scholarly mode. We should

instead investigate the disciplinary master categories as historically entangled, unfolding power--clusters with a finite set of anchoring processes. From the rubble of the disciplinary objects I have aimed to build a new model for inquiry, but this social kinds theory necessitates, if anything, a heightened reflexivity toward our categories of analysis. Follow--up volumes by myself and (I hope) others will demonstrate the value of this mode of analysis.

这一过程的社会本体论提供了新的比较模型，关注锚定过程，而不是模式识别，并关注社会种类如何填充人类和其他生物的世界。它提出了一种新的研究范式，通过赋予多样性和变化，关注稳定化和同质化过程。它将语言和社会类型分开，这样我们就可以同时研究两者。这也意味着我们应该放弃作为学校早期模式的概念哲学分析。相反，我们应该把学科大师的范畴看作是历史上纠缠不清的，以有限的锚定过程集合展开的权力集群。我的目标是从学科对象的碎片中建立一个新的探究模型，但是这种社会类型理论需要——如果有的话——对我们的分析类别有一种高度的反身性。我自己和(我希望)其他人的后续研究将证明这种分析模式的价值。

My emphasis on power--clusters and the causal processes anchoring social kinds points toward important (and intertwined) issues about causation and power that I cut from the manuscript, not because I had nothing to say, but because I had too much. To explain: much academic theorizing and moralizing presumes asymmetries of power. But there has been remarkably little consensus as to what power is or how it should be theorized. To the extent that there is any consensus across disciplines, power is either conceived in terms of domination/subjectation (à la Foucault plus

我强调的权力集群和因果过程锚定如此社会的种类指向重要(和交织)的因果关系和权力的问题，我从手稿中删除，不是因为我没有可说的，而是因为我有太多。解释一下：大量的学术理论化和道德化假设了权力的不对称性。但是，关于什么是权力，或者应该如何理论化，却鲜有共识。在某种程度上，各个学科之间存在着共识，权力要么是根据支配/臣服来构想的(福柯加上)

or minus Gramsci) or it is presumed to be something like a causal relation—an individual's power is supposed to equal their capacity to produce a change in someone else's behavior.³ Although much in need of refinement, this suggests that the better we can understand the nature of cause and effect, the better we can understand power, and vice versa. Meanwhile, in recent decades, there has been a set of fundamental re-- theorizations of causation in the natural sciences. Standing in the way of anything comparable in the human sciences is the lack of a fundamental theory of causation appropriate to our subject matter. (The human sciences aren't physics, but there is much that could be learned from philosophy of medicine.) What I am imagining as the next project will address this on both fronts—providing a new theory of causation for the human sciences (that necessarily builds on the process social ontology articulated in this manuscript) and exploring its implications for a new theory of power.

或者减去 Gramsci)，或者假定它是某种类似因果关系的东西——一个人的力量应该等于他们改变他人行为的能力。³ 尽管这很需要改进，但这表明我们越能理解因果关系的本质，我们就越能理解力量，反之亦然。与此同时，最近几十年，自然科学中出现了一系列关于因果关系的基本重新理论化。阻碍人类科学发展的是缺乏与我们的研究对象相适应的因果关系的基本理论。(人类科学不是物理学，但是可以从医学哲学中学到很多东西我所设想的下一个项目将从两个方面解决这个问题——为人类科学提供一个新的因果关系理论(必然建立在本手稿阐述的社会本体论过程的基础上)，并探索其对一个新的权力理论的影响。

Metarealism. Finally, I began this book by arguing that the conflict between realism and antirealism is primarily a phantom opposition—just as is the putative dualism between real and socially constructed. Real is a contrastive term that requires the specification of a particular converse to be useful (e.g., references to “the real Napoleon” are misleading without further specification about which other possible Napoleons are being excluded). To be “real” is often taken to mean mind--independent, but social kinds are mind--dependent and also real. This led to a theory of various kinds of mind--dependence and different modes of being real that allows us to transcend the unhelpful opposition between realists and antirealists and cures us of that particular philosophical neurosis.

元现实主义。最后，我开始写这本书的论点是，现实主义和反现实主义之间的冲突主要是一种虚幻的对立——正如假定的现实主义和社会建构之间的二元论一样。Real 是一个对比性的术语，它要求对某个特定的反面进行详细说明才是有用的(例如，提到“真正的拿破仑”是具有误导性的，没有进一步详细说明哪些其他可能的拿破仑被排除在外)。To be “real”通常被认为是精神独立的意思，但是社会类型是精神依赖的，

也是真实的。这导致了各种心灵依赖和不同的真实模式的理论，使我们能够超越现实主义者和反现实主义者之间无益的对立，并治愈我们的特殊的哲学神经症。

Many controversies between realism and antirealism are about degrees of confidence in whatever the philosopher in question takes to be the current “scientific paradigm.” But now that we know that science is itself a social kind, we can demystify ourselves of the idea that it holds to a single paradigm or that its theories and postulated entities rise and fall together. This is not “anti-science.” We can take pride in scientific discoveries, embrace various scientific methods, and praise individual scientists without portraying a false coherence or reifying “science” as such. Denying the unity of science as a category means that many debates about the social construction of specific scientific “facts” (e.g., discussion of the “social construction” of the peptide TRF) are local problems primarily of importance to the scientific fields in which they arise, which have empirical ways of trying to answer questions of that sort.

现实主义和反现实主义之间的许多争论都是关于哲学家对当前“科学范式”的信任程度但既然我们知道科学本身就是一种社会类型，我们就可以揭开自己的神秘面纱，不再认为科学坚持一种单一的范式，或者它的理论和假定的实体一起起起落落。这不是“反科学”我们可以为科学发现感到骄傲，拥抱各种各样的科学方法，赞扬个别科学家，而不是描绘虚假的一致性或具体化“科学”本身。否定科学作为一个范畴的统一性意味着许多关于具体科学“事实”的社会结构的辩论(例如，关于肽 TRF 的“社会结构”的讨论)主要是对产生这些问题的科学领域具有重要意义的局部问题，这些领域有试图回答这类问题的经验方法。

Rejecting scientism--masquerading--as--realism implies the need for a better epistemology and social metaphysics, which metamodernism aimed to provide. In sum, to do so required formulating a post--Kuhnian

拒绝伪装成现实主义的科学主义意味着需要一个更好的认识论和社会形而上学，元现代主义旨在提供。总而言之，要做到这一点，就需要形成一种后库恩主义

philosophy of the human sciences grounded in a process social ontology that is capable of tracing the unfolding of de--essentialized master categories in their full complexity. It provides a set of tangible methods for producing a humble, emancipatory knowledge. This is Zetetic knowledge within the horizon of finitude. I neither expect nor want to be the last word on any of these subjects, and some of my ideas will evolve. Metamodern-ism is not a dogmatism. It neither desires nor imagines an orthodoxy. The problem with systems arises when they present- themselves as being com-

人文科学哲学建立在一个过程社会本体论的基础上，能够追溯去本质化的主食血统在其全部复杂性中的展开。它提供了一套有形的方法来产生谦逊的，解放的知识。这就是有限视野中的 Zetetic 知识。我既不期望也不想成为这些主题中任何一个的最终定论，我的一些想法将会发展。元现代主义不是教条主义。它既不渴望也不想象一种正统观念。当系统将自己表现为 com 时，系统的问题就出现了

pletely self-sufficient- or all--inclusive. Metamodernism has pretensions to neither.

元现代主义既不自负也不自负。

Metamodernism aspires to be a flash of illumination on a cloudy night. It is the beginning of a conversation, not an end to one. It encapsulates potent forces both destructive and ameliorative that will need to be worked through. This entire project represents a scattering of seeds. If metamodernism is to come to fruition, a few people must choose to grow some of these seeds into something I cannot imagine.

元现代主义渴望成为阴云密布的夜晚的一道闪光。这是对话的开始，而不是结束。它封闭了强大的力量，既有破坏性的，也有改善性的，这些都需要解决。整个项目代表了种子的分散。如果元现代主义要开花结果，少数人必须选择将这些种子培育成我无法想象的东西。

Notes

注释

Opening 英文版

1. I use “deconstruction” throughout to refer to a form of scholarly praxis that has long since escaped Jacques Derrida’s more technical usage. For deconstruction beyond Derrida, see Mark Currie, *The Invention of Deconstruction* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2013).

我始终使用“解构”来指一种学术实践形式，这种形式早已逃脱了雅克·德里达 (Jacques Derrida) 更为技术性的用法。关于德里达之外的解构，请参阅马克·柯里的《解构的发明》(纽约：帕尔格雷夫·麦克米兰出版社，2013年)。

2. To clarify, I find intersectionality useful, but both class and race reductionisms are typically misguided. For a critique of the latter, see Touré Reed, *Toward Freedom: The Case Against Race Reductionism* (New York: Verso Books, 2020).

澄清一下，我发现交叉性是有用的，但是阶级和种族缩减主义都是典型的误导。对于后者的批评，请参阅 Touré Reed, *Toward Freedom: The Case Against Race Reductionism* (New York: Verso Books, 2020)。

3. Examples, in order: James Daniel Collins, *Interpreting Modern Philosophy* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1972); Fredric Jameson, *The Cultural Turn: Selected Writings on the Postmodern 1983–1998* (London: Verso, 2009); Victoria E. Bonnell and Lynn Avery Hunt, eds., *Beyond the Cultural Turn: New Directions in the Study of Society and Culture* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1999); Paul Rabinow and William M. Sullivan, eds., *Interpretive Social Sciences* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1987); Jürgen Habermas, *Moralbewußtsein und kommunikatives Handeln* (Frankfurt am Main: Suhrkamp, 1983); and David R. Hiley, James Bohman, and Richard Shusterman, *The Interpretive Turn: Philosophy, Science, Culture* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1991).

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姆斯·博曼和理查德·舒斯特曼,《解释性转向:哲学,科学,文化》(伊萨卡,纽约:康乃尔大学出版社,1991年)。

4. Steve Fuller, Marc de Mey, Terry Shinn, and Steve Woolgar, *The Cognitive Turn: Sociological and Psychological Perspectives on Science* (Dordrecht: Springer Netherlands, 1989).

Steve Fuller, Marc de Mey, Terry Shinn, and Steve Woolgar, *The Cognitive Turn: Sociological and Psychological Perspectives on Science* (Dordrecht: Springer Netherlands, 1989).

5. Steven Seidman, ed., *The Postmodern Turn: New Perspectives on Social Theory* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1995); and Steven Best and Douglas Kellner, *The Postmodern Turn* (New York: Guilford Press, 1997).

《后现代转向:社会理论的新视角》(剑桥:剑桥大学出版社,1995年);《后现代转向》(纽约:吉尔福德出版社,1997年)。

6. Terrence McDonald, *The Historic Turn in the Human Sciences* (Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 1996).

特伦斯·麦克唐纳,《人类科学的历史性转折》(安娜堡:密歇根大学出版社,1996)。

7. For various turns to religion, see Hent de Vries, *Philosophy and the Turn to Religion* (Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1999); Dominique Jani-caud, *Phenomenology and the "Theological Turn"* (New York: Fordham University Press, 2000); Ken Jackson and Arthur Marotti. "The Turn to Religion in Early Modern English Studies," *Criticism* 46, no. 1 (2004): 167-90; Bruce Holsinger, "Literary History and the Religious Turn," *English Language Notes* 44, no. 1 (2006): 1-3; and Philip Gorski et al., eds., *The Post-secular in Question* (New York: New York University Press, 2012). For the corporeal turn, see John Tambornino, *The Corporeal Turn*

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Corporeal Turn (Exeter: Imprint Academic, 2009).

Physical Turn (Exeter: Imprint Academic, 2009).

8. Manuel DeLanda, *Intensive Science and Virtual Philosophy*, 3rd ed. (New York: Bloomsbury Academic, 2013), vi; Angela Dalle Vacche, *The Visual Turn: Classical Film Theory and Art History* (New Brunswick, NJ: Rutgers University Press, 2002); Jorge Ferrer and Jacob Sherman, eds., *The Participatory Turn: Spirituality, Mysticism, Religious Studies* (Albany, NY: SUNY Press, 2008); Patricia Ticineto Clough and Jean Halley, eds., *The Affective Turn: Theorizing the Social* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2008); Tony Bennett and Patrick Joyce, eds., *Material Powers Cultural Studies, History and the Material Turn* (London: Routledge, 2010); Paul Jay, *Global Matters: The Transnational Turn in Literary Studies* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2010); Richard Bernstein, *The Pragmatic Turn* (Cambridge: Polity,

曼努埃尔·德兰达,《强化科学与虚拟哲学》,第3版。《视觉转向:古典电影理论与艺术史》(新泽西州新不伦瑞克市:罗格斯大学出版社,2002);。参与性转向:灵性,神秘主义,宗教研究(奥尔巴尼,纽约:纽约州立大学出版社,2008);。情感转向:社会理论化(Durham, NC: Duke 大学出版社,2008); Tony Bennett 和 Patrick Joyce, 编辑。保罗·杰,《全球事务:文学研究的跨国转向》(纽约伊萨卡:康奈尔大学出版社,2010);理查德·伯恩斯坦,《务实的转向》(剑桥:政治,

2010); Samson Okoth Opondo and Michael Shapiro, *The New Violent Cartography: Geo--Analysis After the Aesthetic Turn* (Milton Park, Abingdon, Oxon: Routledge,

Samson Okoth Opondo and Michael Shapiro, *The New Violent Cartography: Geo-Analysis After The Aesthetic Turn* (Milton Park, Abingdon, Oxon: Routledge,

2012); Nikolas Kompridis, ed., *The Aesthetic Turn in Political Thought* (New York: Bloomsbury Academic, 2014); David Howes, "The Social Life of the Senses" *Ars Vivendi Journal* 3 (February 2013): 4-23; Sheryl N. Hamilton et al., *Sensing Law* (New York: Routledge, 2017); Erich Reck, *The Historical Turn in Analytic Philosophy* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2013); Thomas Faist, "The Mobility Turn: A New Paradigm for the Social Sciences?," *Ethnic and Racial Studies* 36, no. 11 (2013), 1637-46; Fujii Hikaru,

Outside, America: The Temporal Turn in Contemporary American Fiction (New York: Bloomsbury, 2013); Christine Ross, *The Past Is the Present, It's the Future Too: The Temporal Turn in Contemporary Art* (New York: Bloomsbury, 2014); Barney Warf and Santa Arias, eds., *The Spatial Turn: Interdisciplinary Perspectives* (London: Routledge,

2014); Robyn Wiegman, "The Times We're In: Queer Feminist Criticism and the Reparative 'Turn,'" *Feminist Theory* 15, no. 1 (2014): 4-25; Erika Andersson Cederholm,

ed., *Exploring the Animal Turn: Human--Animal Relations in Science, Society and Culture* (Lund, Sweden: Pufendorf institutet, 2014); Richard Arthur Grusin, *The Nonhuman Turn* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2015); Sverre Raffnsøe, *Philosophy of the Anthropocene: The Human Turn* (Basingstoke, Hampshire: Palgrave Macmillan, 2016);

Martin Holbraad and Morten Axel Pedersen, *The Ontological Turn: An Anthropological Exposition* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2017). For a meta--study of some of these, see Hester Blum, ed., *Turns of Event: Nineteenth--Century American Literary Studies in Motion* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016).

2012) ; Nikolas Kompridis 编辑, 《政治思想的审美转向》(纽约: Bloomsbury Academic, 2014) ; David hows, 《感官的社会生活》 *Ars Vivendi Journal* 3(2013 年 2 月) : 4-23; Sheryl n. Hamilton 等, 《感知法》(纽约: Routledge, 2017) ; Erich Reck, 《分析哲学的历史转向》(纽约: palgrave macmillan, 2013) ; Thomas Faist, 《流动性转向: 社会科学的新范式? 民族和种族研究 36, no. 11(2013), 1637-46; Fujii Hikaru, *Outside, America: The Temporal Turn in Contemporary american-can Fiction* (New York: Bloomsbury, 2013) ; Christine Ross, *The Past Is The Present, It's The Future Too: The Temporal Turn in Contemporary Art* (New York: Bloomsbury, 2014) ; Barney Warf and Santa Arias, eds. *空间转向: 跨学科视角* (伦敦: Routledge, 2014) ; Robyn Wiegman, “ The Times We're In: Queer Feminist Criticism and The repair' Turn,” *Feminist Theory* 15, no. 埃里卡·安德森·塞德霍尔姆编辑, 《探索动物转向: 科学、社会和文化中的人与动物关系》(瑞典隆德: pufendorfinstitutet, 2014) ; 理查德·阿瑟·格鲁森, 《非人类转向》(明尼阿波利斯: 明尼苏达大学出版社, 2015) ; 斯维尔·拉夫斯塞, 《人类世的哲学: 人类转向》(英国汉普郡贝辛斯托克: 帕尔格雷夫·麦克米兰出版社, 2016) ; 马丁·霍尔布拉德和莫滕·阿克塞尔·彼得森, 《本体论转向: 人类学展览》(纽约: 剑桥大学出版社, 2017). 有关其中一些的元素研究, 请参阅 Hester Blum 编辑的《事件的转折: 19 世纪美国文学研究的运动》(费城: 宾夕法尼亚大学出版社, 2016)。

9. Nadine Kalin, “(de)Fending Art Education through the Pedagogical Turn,” *Journal of Social Theory in Art Education* 32 (2012): 42–55; Léna Soler et al., *Science after the Practice Turn in the Philosophy, History, and Social Studies of Science* (London: Routledge, 2014); Thomas A. Tweed, “After the Quotidian Turn: Interpretive Categories and Scholarly Trajectories in the Study of Religion since the 1960s,” *Journal of Religion* 95, no. 3 (July 2015): 361–85; and Maarten Franssen et al., *Philosophy of Technology after the Empirical Turn* (Cham, Switzerland: Springer, 2016).

Nadine Kalin, “(de) Fending Art Education through the educational Turn”, *Journal of Social Theory in Art Education* 32(2012) : 42-55; lena Soler et A.。 , *Science After the Practice Turn in the Philosophy, History, and Social Studies of Science* (Lon-don: Routledge, 2014) ; Thomas a. Tweed, “ After the everyday Turn: interpretation Categories and academic trajectory in the Study of Religion since the 1960,” *Journal of Religion* 95, no. 3(2015 年 7 月) : 361-85; Maarten Franssen 等, *phi-philosophy of Technology after the Empirical Turn* (Cham , Switzerland: Springer, 2016)。

10. Isomae Jun'ichi and Kawamura Satofumi, eds., *Tasharonteki Tenkai: Shūkyō to Kōkyō Kūkan* (Kyoto: Nakanishiya Shuppan, 2016); Mark Seltzer, *Official World* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2016).

Isomae Jun'ichi and Kawamura Satofumi, eds. *Tasharonteki Tenkai: shky to k ky kan* (Kyoto: Nakanishiya Shuppan, 2016) ; Mark Seltzer, *Official World* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2016)。

11. For example, William Connolly provides page after page of complexity theory only to tell the reader that we should eat local and buy a Prius. William Connolly, *A World of Becoming* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010), 91.

例如，威廉·康诺利(williamconnolly)提供了一页又一页的复杂性理论，只是告诉读者我们应该在当地吃饭，买一辆普锐斯(Prius)。William Connolly, *A World of Becoming* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010), 91.

12. I critique New Materialism in chapter 5 and speculative realism in chapter 1. For the critique of affect theory, see Ruth Leys, *The Ascent of Affect: Genealogy and Critique* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2017).

我在第五章批判新唯物主义，在第一章批判思辨现实主义。关于对情感理论的批判，参见露丝·莱斯的《情感的崛起：谱系与批判》(芝加哥：芝加哥大学出版社，2017)。

13. Why lightning? Lightning illuminates while shattering or destroying that which it strikes; it is both a force of destruction and an energizing source of clarifying radiance. To take a leaf from the Indian philosopher Śāntideva: on a dark night a sudden flash of lightning illuminates everything, likewise this project aspires to be a brief and transient spark of illumination. I also have a love-hate relationship with Nietzsche. But for part of why I, and others in groups Nietzsche might have had problems with (such as the Black Panther Party) have been drawn to his work, see Huey P. Newton, *Revolutionary Suicide* (London: Penguin Classics, 2009), 319–23.

为什么是闪电？闪电在击碎或摧毁它所击中的东西的同时发出光亮；它既是一种破坏力量，也是一种澄清光辉的能量来源。借鉴印度哲学家 Śāntideva 的经验：在一个漆黑的夜晚，一道突如其来的闪电照亮了一切，同样，这个项目也渴望成为一个短暂而短暂的照明火花。我也有一个爱恨交加的关系与尼采。但是为什么我和其他尼采可能有问题的团体(比如黑豹党)会被他的工作吸引，参见 Huey p. Newton, *Revolutionary Suicide* (London: Penguin Classics, 2009), 319–23。

14. I wanted an inspirational project name, and I also wanted to avoid being ideological or promoting another new “-ism.” But, in sharing this work with colleagues, people kept referring to the project as an example of “post-postmodernism,” which frankly made me nauseous.

我想要一个鼓舞人心的项目名称，我也想避免意识形态或推动另一种新的“主义”但是，在与同事分享这项工作时，人们不断提到这个项目作为“后现代主义”的一个例子，坦率地说，这让我感到恶心。

15. Michael Harris and Moyo Okediji, *Transatlantic Dialogue: Contemporary Art in and out of Africa* (Seattle: University of Washington Press, 1999); and Moyo Okediji, “Black Skin, White Kins: Metamodern Masks, Multiple Mimesis,” in *Diaspora and Visual Culture: Representing Africans and Jews*, ed. Nicholas Mirzoeff (London: Routledge, 1999), 143–62.

Michael Harris and Moyo Okediji, *Transatlantic Dialogue: Contemporary Art in and out of Africa* (Seattle: University of Washington Press, 1999); 和 Moyo Okediji, “Black Skin, White Kins: metamodern Masks, Multiple Mimesis”, in

Di-aspora and Visual Culture: Representing african and Jews, ed. Nicholas Mirzoeff (London: Routledge, 1999), 143-62.

16. “Metamodernism” appeared first in the 1970s as a near synonym to postmodernism. See Mas’ud Zavarzadeh, “The Apocalyptic Fact and the Eclipse of Fiction in Recent American Prose Narratives,” *Journal of American Studies* 9, no. 1 (1975): 69–83.

20 世纪 70 年代, “元现代主义”作为后现代主义的近似同义词首次出现。参见《美国研究杂志》第 9 期第 1 期(1975): 69-83 页, “美国近代散文叙事中的启示事实和虚构性的消失”。

In 2010 Timotheus Vermeulen and Robin van den Akker began using metamodernism to refer to “a range of aesthetic and cultural predilections and as a notion to periodise these preferences.” Timotheus Vermeulen and Robin van den Akker, “Notes on Metamodernism,” *Journal of Aesthetics & Culture* 2, no. 1 (2010): 5677; and Robin van den Akker, Alison Gibbons, and Timotheus Vermeulen, *Meta-modernism: Historicity, Affect, Depth, after Postmodernism* (New York: Rowman and Littlefield, 2017). The British artist Luke Turner authored a “Metamodernist Mani-festo” in 2011. My account has certain affective resonances with theirs. But I do not mean metamodernism in that way. (Nor do I mean “metamodern” as a kind of oscillation between modern and postmodern.) I am not trying to describe cul-tural modes or similarities across our current cultural moment; and for reasons that this book will make clear I am not trying to describe a new zeitgeist or peri-odization.

2010 年, timothy Vermeulen 和 Robin van den Akker 开始使用元现代主义来描述“一系列的审美和文化偏好, 并将其作为一个概念来周期化这些偏好。”Timotheus Vermeulen 和 Robin van den Akker, “关于元现代主义的笔记”, 美学与文化杂志 2, 第 1 期(2010): 5677; Robin van den Akker, Alison Gibbons, 和 Timotheus Vermeulen, 元现代主义: 后现代主义的历史性, 影响, 深度(纽约: Rowman 和 Littlefield, 2017)。英国艺术家卢克·特纳(Luke Turner)在 2011 年创作了《元现代主义者马尼-费斯托》(Metamodernist Mani-festo)。我的描述与他们的描述有某种情感共鸣。但是我不是那个意思的元现代主义。(我也不是说“元现代”是现代和后现代之间的一种振荡我并不是试图描述我们当前文化时代的文化模式或相似之处, 由于本书将阐明的原因, 我并不是试图描述一种新的时代精神或过时。

Postmodernism, as I use the term, is not a periodization or a cultural episteme but a particular scholarly model or paradigm. I am using metamodernism simi-larly to propose a new one.

后现代主义, 正如我使用的术语, 不是一个时期或文化认识论, 而是一个特定的学术模型或范式。我使用元现代主义类似地提出了一个新的。

Linda Ceriello uses the term “metamodern” to describe an epistemic and aes-

Linda Ceriello 使用术语“元现代”来描述认知和 aes

thetic shift she locates in the 2000s and connects to secular spiritualities and mystical experiences. See especially Linda C. Ceriello, “Toward a Metamodern Reading of Spiritual but not Religious Mysticism,” in *Being Spiritual but not Religious* (New York: Routledge, 2018), 200–218; and “Metamodern Mysticism: Narrative Encounters with Contemporary Western Secular Spiritualities” (PhD diss, Rice University, 2018). Although not necessarily incompatible with my account, this is not what I am trying to do. Similarly, Seth Abramson has called for an American metamodernism that “reconstructs that which was deconstructed while also acknowledging all that we learned by deconstructing.” (Seth Abramson, “Metamodernism in Five Terrible Diagrams,” Medium.com (blog), July 26, 2017, http://medium.com/@Seth_Abramson/metamodernism-in-five-terrible-diagrams-5b430d681f7c). I broadly agree with Abramson’s call but my way of bringing it about is very different.

她定位于 2000 年代的审美转变，并与世俗的精神和神秘的经验联系在一起。特别参见 Linda c. Ceriello 的《走向对精神而非宗教神秘主义的元现代阅读》，《精神而非宗教》(*Being Spiritual but not Religious*, New York: Routledge, 2018)，200-218; 《元现代神秘主义：与当代西方世俗精神的叙事遭遇》(*metmodern mysticism: Narrative Encounters with Contemporary Western Secular Spiritualities*, PhD diss, Rice University, 2018)。虽然这并不一定与我的叙述相矛盾，但这并不是我想要做的。同样的，Seth Abramson 呼吁一种美国式的元现代主义，“重建被解构的东西，同时承认我们通过解构学到的东西。”(Seth Abramson, “五幅可怕的图中的元现代主义”，medium.com (blog)，2017 年 7 月 26 日，http://medium.com/@Seth_Abramson/metamodernism-in-Five-Terrible-Diagrams-5b430d681f7c)。我大体上同意 Abramson 的呼吁，但我实现它的方式是非常不同的。

Finally, a pair of Danish activists have been promoting a kind of metamodern politics under the name Hanzi Freinacht. This political metamodernism will be discussed in chapter 7.

最后，一对丹麦激进分子以 Hanzi Freinacht 的名义推动了一种元现代政治。这种政治元现代主义将在第七章讨论。

In brief, if the thinkers above are the first significant theorists about meta-modernist culture and art, I aspire to be the first significant metamodern philosopher. The scholars listed in this note are doing incredibly important work describing what they see as our current cultural episteme, and I have found their discussions of metamodernism useful inspiration. But they are mostly doing scholarship according to older models; I aim to provide a new one.

简而言之，如果上面的思想家是第一个关于元现代主义文化艺术的重要理论家，那么我渴望成为第一个重要的元现代主义哲学家。本文中列出的学者们正在做一些非常重要的工作，描述他们所认为的我们当前的文化认知，我发现他们关于元现代主义的讨论有益的启示。但是他们大多数是根据旧的模式进行学术研究；我的目标是提供一个新的模式。

17. See Slavoj Žižek, *The Sublime Object of Ideology* (New York: Verso, 2008), 199.

参见 Slavoj Žižek, 意识形态的崇高客体(纽约: Verso, 2008)，199。

18. Hegel argued: “philosophy returns into itself and reaches the point with which it began. In this manner philosophy exhibits the appearance of a circle which closes with itself.” Georg Wilhelm Friedrich Hegel, *Hegel's Logic: Being Part One of the Encyclopaedia of the Philosophical Sciences* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1975), 27–28.

黑格尔认为:“哲学回归自身,回到它开始的地方。以这种方式,哲学展示了一个与其自身关闭的循环的外观。”格奥尔格·威廉·弗里德里希·黑格尔《黑格尔的逻辑:成为哲学科学百科全书的一部分》(纽约:牛津大学出版社,1975年),27-28页。

19. Sinan Kadir Çelik, “Postmodernism,” in *Encyclopedia of Activism and Social Justice*, ed. Gary Anderson and Kathryn Herr (London: Sage Publications, 2007), 1155.

Sinan Kadir Çelik, “后现代主义”,《行动主义和社会正义百科全书》,编辑。加里·安德森和凯瑟琳·赫尔(伦敦:赛吉出版公司,2007),1155。

20. Çelik, “Postmodernism,” 1154.

Çelik, “后现代主义”, 1154。

21. See Marc Orlitzky, “Ethical Nihilism,” in *The Sage Encyclopedia of Business Ethics and Society*, ed. Robert Kolb (London: Sage, 2018), esp. 1233.

参见马克·奥利茨基《商业伦理与社会圣人百科全书》中的“伦理虚无主义”。Robert Kolb (London: Sage, 2018), 特别是。1233年。

22. See David Foster Wallace, *A Supposedly Fun Thing I'll Never Do Again* (New York: Back Bay Books, 1998), 140; Charlene Spretnak, *The Resurgence of the Real* (London: Routledge, 1999), 64–65; Ken Wilber, *The Marriage of Sense and Soul: Integrating Science and Religion* (New York: Broadway Books, 1999); and Ian Aitken, “European Film Scholarship,” in *The Sage Handbook of Film Studies*, ed. James Donald and Michael Renov (London: Sage, 2008), 25–53.

大卫·福斯特·华莱士,《我再也不会做的一件有趣的事》(纽约:Back Bay Books, 1998), 140;沙琳·斯普雷特纳克,《真实的复兴》(伦敦:Routledge, 1999), 64-65;肯·威尔伯,《理智与灵魂的结合:科学与宗教的融合》(纽约:Broadway Books, 1999);伊恩·艾特肯,《欧洲电影奖学金》(Ian Ait-Ken, “European Film Scholarship”),《圣人电影研究手册》(The Sage Handbook of Film Studies, ed)。詹姆斯·唐纳德和迈克尔·雷诺夫(伦敦:Sage, 2008), 25-53。

23. For invasion, Camille Paglia, *Sex, Art, and American Culture: Essays* (New

作者: Camille Paglia, *Sex, Art, and American Culture: Essays* (New

York: Vintage Books, 1992), 210. For deconstruction, see François Cusset, *French* 约克: Vintage Books 出版社, 1992), 210。关于解构, 参见弗朗索瓦·库塞特, 法国

theory: Foucault, Derrida, Deleuze & Cie et les mutations de la vie intellectuelle 理论: 福柯(Foucault), 德里达(Derrida), Deleuze & Cie

aux États-Unis (Paris: Éditions la Découverte, 2003), 131–32; Mark Currie, *The In-* (巴黎: 发现版, 2003), 131-32;

vention of Deconstruction (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2013); Susanne Lüde- 《解构主义宣言》(纽约: 帕尔格雷夫·麦克米兰, 2013);

mann, *Jacques Derrida zur Einführung* (Hamburg: Junius-Verl, 2011); James K.A. 德里达(Jacques Derrida)(汉堡: Junius-Verl, 2011); James k.a.

Smith, *Jacques Derrida: Live Theory* (New York: Continuum, 2005); and especially 史密斯, 雅克德里达: 生活理论(纽约: 连续统一体, 2005); 特别是

Rodolphe Gasché, *The Tain of the Mirror: Derrida and the Philosophy of Reflection* Rodolphe Gasché, *The Tain of The Mirror: Derrida and The Philosophy of Reflection* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1997), 2–3. For poststructuralism or French (剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1997), 2-3. 为后结构主义或法国

theory, see Slavoj Žižek, *Looking Awry* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1991), 142; Johannes 理论, 参见 Slavoj i ek, *Looking Awry* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1991), 142; Johannes

Angermuller, *Why There is No Poststructuralism in France: The Making of an Intel-* 为什么法国没有后结构主义: 英特尔的形成

lectual Generation (London: Bloomsbury Academic, 2015); Joëlle Bahloul, “France-- (London: Bloomsbury Academic, 2015); Joëlle Bahloul, “france -

USA: Ethnographie d’une migration intellectuelle,” *Ethnologie Française* 21, no. 1 美国: 知识分子移民民族志, 《法国民族学》, 第 21 期, 第 1 名

(1991): 49–55; Cusset, *French Theory*; and François Dosse, *Histoire du Structura-* Angermuller, *Why There Is No Poststructuralism in France*, 5–6.

(1991 年): 49-55; Cusset, 法国理论; 和 François Dosse, 结构主义史(巴黎: 发现 版, 1991 年)。安格穆勒通过跟踪引用表明, 包括福柯、德里达、克里斯蒂瓦和 伊里加雷在内的一系列理论家的声誉在很大程度上是英语学术研究的产物。 Angermuller, *Why There Is No poststrucalism in France*, 5-6 Angermuller, 为什么 法国没有后结构主义, 5-6。

24. For further examples, see Claire Goldberg Moses, “Made in America: ‘French Feminism’ in Academia,” *Feminist Studies* 24, no. 2 (1998): 241–74; and Antoine Compagnon, *The Five Paradoxes of Modernity* (New York: Columbia Uni-versity Press, 1994), ix--x.

更进一步的例子, 见克莱尔·戈德堡·摩西的《美国制造: 学术界的法国女权主义》, 女权主义妇女研究 24, 第 2 期(1998): 241-74; 安东尼·康帕尼翁的《现代性的五个悖论》(纽约: 哥伦比亚大学出版社, 1994), ix-x。

25. Kerwin Lee Klein, *From History to Theory* (Berkeley: University of Califor-nia Press, 2011).

Kerwin Lee Klein, *From History to Theory* (伯克利: 加州大学出版社, 2011)。

26. Cusset, *French Theory*.
Cusset, 法国理论。

27. John Watkins Chapman is typically identified as the first person to use “*post-modern*.” For this, scholars usually cite Steven Best and Douglas Kellner, *Postmodern Theory* (New York: Guilford Press, 1991), 5. But the source they cite is Dick Higgins, *A Dialectic of Centuries* (New York: Printed Editions, 1978), 7, which only refers to “Chapman” and provides no reference. So barring further evidence, I think this attribution is likely specious. The first Anglophone source I’ve verified is: J.M. Thompson, “Post--Modernism,” *Hibbert Journal* 12, no. 4 (1914): 733–45. In the

Spanish-speaking world, Federico de Onís is often credited with coining “postmodernismo” in 1934. See Michael Köhler, “Postmodernismus: ein begriffsgeschichtlicher Überblick,” *Amerikastudien* 22, no. 1 (1977): 8–18. But there are provocative appearances of *postmodernista* in the Uruguayan poetry scene in 1931. Carlos Reyles, *Historia sintética de la literatura Uruguaya*, vol. 2 (Montevideo: A. Vila, 1931), 1.

约翰·沃特金斯·查普曼(John Watkins Chapman)通常被认为是第一个使用“后现代”的人为此, 学者们通常引用 Steven Best 和 Douglas Kellner, 《后现代理论》(纽约: 吉尔福德出版社, 1991), 5。但他们引用的资料来源是迪克·希金斯的《世纪辩证法》(纽约: 印刷版, 1978), 7, 它只提到“查普曼”, 没有提供参考。因此, 除非有进一步的证据, 我认为这个归因可能是似是而非的。我核实的第一个英语资料来源是: j.m. 汤普森, 《后现代主义》, 希伯特期刊第 12 期, 第 4 期(1914): 733–45。在西班牙语世界, 费德里科·德奥尼斯经常被认为在 1934 年创造了“后现代主义”。参见迈克尔·克勒的《后现代主义: 一个概念-历史概述》, 《美国研究》22, no. 1(1977): 8–18。但是在 1931 年的乌拉圭诗歌舞台上出现了一些后现代主义者的煽动性表现。Carlos Reyles, *Historia sintética de la literatura*, vol. 2(Montevideo: a. Vila, 1931), 1。

28. Rudolf Pannwitz, *Die Krisis der europäischen Kultur* (Nuremberg: Hans Carl, 1917), 64, 226. Also discussed in Jason Ā. Josephson-Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment: Magic, Modernity, and the Birth of the Human Sciences* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2017), 307.

鲁道夫·潘维茨, 《欧洲文化危机》(纽伦堡: 汉斯·卡尔, 1917), 64, 226。也在杰森中讨论过。《魔法、现代性与人文科学的诞生》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2017), 307。

29. Bernard Bell, *Postmodernism, and Other Essays* (Milwaukee: Morehouse, 伯纳德·贝尔, 后现代主义和其他散文(密尔沃基: 莫尔豪斯, 1926). 1926).

30. Jean-François Lyotard, *La condition postmoderne* (Paris: Minuit, 1979); Charles Jencks, *The Language of Post-Modern Architecture* (New York: Rizzoli, 1977); David Harvey, *The Condition of Postmodernity: An Enquiry into the Origins of Cultural Change* (Oxford: Blackwell, 1989); and Fredric Jameson, *Postmodernism, or, The Cultural Logic of Late Capitalism* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1991).

让-弗朗索瓦·利奥塔, 《后现代条件》(巴黎: Minuit, 1979); 查尔斯·詹克斯, 《后现代建筑的语言》(纽约: 里佐利, 1977); 大卫·哈维, 《后现代条件: 对文化变迁起源的探究》(牛津: 布莱克威尔, 1989); 弗雷德里克·詹姆斯, 《后现代主义, 或晚期资本主义的文化逻辑》(达勒姆, NC: 杜克大学出版社, 1991)。

31. See Dan Schiller, *Digital Capitalism* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 2000); Rich-参见 Dan Schiller, 《数字资本主义》(剑桥: 麻省理工学院出版社, 2000);

ard Sennett, *The Culture of the New Capitalism* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 新资本主义的文化(纽黑文: 耶鲁大学出版社,

2007); Guy Standing, *The Precariat* (London: Bloomsbury, 2011); and Shoshana Zuy Standing, *The Precariat* (London: Bloomsbury, 2011);

boff, *The Age of Surveillance Capitalism* (New York: Profile Books, 2019).

Boff, *The Age of Surveillance Capitalism* (New York: Profile Books, 2019).

32. For examples, see Adeshina Afolayan, “We Are All Postmodernists Now! African Philosophy and the Postmodern Agenda,” in *Ka Osi Sọ Onye: African Philosophy in the Postmodern Era*, ed. Jonathan Chimakonam and Edwin Etieyibo (Malaga, Spain: Vernon Press, 2018), 207–27; and Arif Dirlik and Zhang Xudong, eds., *Postmodernism & China* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2000).

例如, 见 Adeshina Afolayan, “我们现在都是后现代主义者! 非洲哲学和后现代议程”, 在卡洛斯的《论非洲哲学在后现代时代》一书中。Jonathan Chimakonam 和 Edwin Etieyibo (马拉加, 西班牙: Vernon 出版社, 2018), 207-27; Arif Dirlik 和 Zhang Xudong 编辑, 后现代主义与中国 (Durham, NC: Duke University 出版社, 2000)。

33. bell hooks, “Postmodern blackness,” in *Yearning: Race, Gender, and Cultural Politics* (Boston: South End, 1990), 23–31; and Cornel West, “Postmodernism and Black America,” *Zeta Magazine* 1, no. 6 (1987): 27–29.

《向往: 种族、性别和文化政治》(波士顿: 南区, 1990), 23-31; 《康奈尔·韦斯特》, 《后现代主义与黑人美国》, *Zeta* 杂志第一期, 第 6 期(1987): 27-29。

34. See Josephson--Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment*.

见约瑟夫森-风暴, 幻灭的神话。

35. Charles Jencks, *What Is Post-modernism?* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1986), 6 (omitted from later editions); Ben Agger, “Critical Theory, Poststructuralism, Postmodernism: Their Sociological Relevance,” *Annual Review of Sociology* 17 (1991): 105–31; Richard Kearney, “Introduction,” in *Continental Philosophy in the 20th Century*, ed. Richard Kearney (London: Routledge, 2003), 2; and Dominick LaCapra, “Criticism Today,” in *Jean François Lyotard: Critical Evaluations in Cultural Theory*, vol. 2, ed. Victor E. Taylor and Gregg Lambert (London: Routledge, 2006), 279. See also Michael LeMahieu, *Fictions of Fact and Value: The Erasure of Logical Positivism in American Literature, 1945–1975* (London: Oxford University Press, 2013), 195. For more on logical positivism, see Josephson--Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment*, 240–68.

什么是后现代主义? 《批判理论, 后结构主义, 后现代主义: 它们的社会学意义》, 《社会学年鉴》17(1991): 105-31; 理查德·科尔尼, 《20 世纪大陆哲学导论》, 编辑。让-弗朗索瓦·利奥塔: 文化理论中的批判性评价, 第 2 卷, 编辑。维克多·e·泰勒和格雷格·兰伯特(伦敦: Routledge, 2006), 279 页。另见《事实与价值的小说: 1945-1975 年美国文学中逻辑实证主义的消失》(伦敦: 牛津大学出版社, 2013), 195。欲了解更多关于逻辑实证主义, 请参阅约瑟夫森-斯托姆, 《幻灭的神话》, 240-68。

36. Jean--François Lyotard, *The Inhuman: Reflections on Time* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1991), 71.

让-弗朗索瓦·利奥塔,《异人:对时间的反思》(斯坦福,加州:斯坦福大学出版社,1991年),71页。

37. For example, Jacques Derrida, *Limited Inc.* (Evanston, IL: Northwestern University Press, 1988), 137. Admittedly, Baudrillard might be productively classed as an anti-realist.

例如,雅克德里达有限公司(埃文斯顿,伊利诺伊州:西北大学出版社,1988年),137。不可否认的是,鲍德里亚可能被划分为反现实主义者。

38. Rudolf Carnap, *The Logical Structure of the World; and Pseudoproblems in Philosophy* (Chicago: Open Court, 2003), x—xi.

Rudolf Carnap, *The Logical Structure of The World; and Pseudoproblems in philosophy* (Chicago: Open Court, 2003), x-xi.

39. For examples: Gerard Delanty, *Social Science: Beyond Constructivism and Realism* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1997), 99; Christine Jones, “Postmodernism’s Linguistic Turn,” in *Modern Criticism*, ed. Christopher Rollason and Mittapalli Rajeshwar (New Delhi: Atlantic, 2002), 1–10; Daniel Punday, *Narrative after Deconstruction* (Albany, NY: SUNY Press, 2003), 1–2. See also John E. Toews, “Intellectual History after the Linguistic Turn,” *The American Historical Review* 92, no. 4 (1987), 879–907, 881–82, 889; Gabrielle Spiegel, *Practicing History: New Directions in Historical Writing after the Linguistic Turn* (New York: Routledge,

《社会科学:超越建构主义和现实主义》(明尼苏达大学出版社,1997),99; 克里斯汀·琼斯,《后现代主义的语言转向》,现代批评,编辑。Christopher Rollason and Mittapalli Rajeshwar (New Delhi: Atlantic, 2002), 1-10; Daniel Punday, *narrative after Deconstruction* (Albany, NY: SUNY Press, 2003), 1-2.另见约翰·e·陶斯,《语言转向后的思想史》,《美国历史回顾》92,第4期(1987年),879-907,881-82,889;加布里埃尔·斯皮格尔,《实践历史:语言转向后历史写作的新方向》,

2005), 2; Georg Iggers, *Historiography in the Twentieth Century* (Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press), 1997.

2005), 2; 乔治·伊格尔斯,《二十世纪史学》(中城,CT:卫斯理大学出版社),1997。

40. Gustav Bergmann, “Logical Positivism, Language, and the Reconstruction of Metaphysics,” *Rivista critica di storia della filosofia* 8 (1953): 453–81, reprinted in Gustav Bergmann, *The Metaphysics of Logical Positivism* (New York: Longmans Green, 1954), 30–77. In some sectors of analytical philosophy, the linguistic turn

古斯塔夫·伯格曼,“逻辑实证主义,语言和形而上学的重建”,里维斯塔评论家德拉·费罗索菲亚 8(1953):453-81,转载于古斯塔夫·伯格曼,《逻辑实证主义的形而上学》(纽约:朗曼·格林,1954),30-77。在分析哲学的某些领域,语言学的转向

is taken back to Russell's famous essay "On Denoting," *Mind* (New Series) 14, no. 14, no. 56 (October 1905): 479–93.

56 (October 1905): 479–93.

56 (1905 年 10 月): 479–93.

41. New Criticism got its name from John Crow Ransom, *The New Criticism* (New York: New Directions, 1941). See Donald J. Childs, *The Birth of New Criticism* (London: McGill–Queen's University Press, 2014). To be fair, we could go back to C.S. Peirce, Wittgenstein, Wilhelm von Humboldt, J.G. Hamann, or Friedrich Nietzsche (or even Plato's Cratylus) for comparable insights.

《新批评》的名字来自约翰·克罗·兰塞姆的《新批评》(纽约:新方向, 1941)。参见唐纳德·j·蔡尔兹的《新批评主义的诞生》(伦敦:麦吉尔-皇后大学出版社, 2014)。公平地说, 我们可以追溯到 c.s. 皮尔斯, 维特根斯坦, 威廉·冯·洪堡, j.g. 哈曼, 或弗里德里希·尼采(甚至柏拉图的克拉特鲁斯), 以获得类似的见解。

42. Northrop Frye, *Fearful Symmetry: A Study of William Blake* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1947); and William Wimsatt and Monroe Beardsley, "The Intentional Fallacy," *The Sewanee Review* 54, no. 3 (1946): 468–88. T.S. Elliot was also crucial in this movement. Eric Hirsch, *Validity in Interpretation* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1967).

诺斯洛普·弗莱, 《可怕的对称: 威廉·布莱克研究》(普林斯顿: 普林斯顿大学出版社, 1947); 威廉·威姆萨特和门罗·比尔兹利, 《故意谬论》, 塞瓦尼评论 54, 第 3 期(1946): 468–88。艾略特(t.s. Elliot)在这场运动中也起到了关键作用。Eric Hirsch, *Validity in Interpretation* (纽黑文: 耶鲁大学出版社, 1967)。

43. C.K. Ogden and I.A. Richards, *The Meaning of Meaning*, 8th ed. (London: Kegan Paul, 1946), 1, 26. I do not mean to overplay the importance of *The Meaning of Meaning*. The 1920s–1940s saw multiple works addressing thought and language: e.g., Edward Sapir "The Status of Linguistics as a Science" *Language* 5, no. 4 (1929): 207–14; Alfred Korzybski, *Science and Sanity* (Lancaster, PA: International Non-Aristotelian Library Publishing Company, 1933); I.A. Richards, *The Philosophy of Rhetoric* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1936); Samuel Ichiye Hayakawa, *Language in Thought and Action* (New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1939); and Susanne Langer, *Philosophy in a New Key: A Study in the Symbolism of Reason, Rite and Art* (New York: New American Library, 1941). For why Nietzsche's "prison--house of language" was a mistranslation, see Storm, "Language, Mind, Cosmos," forthcoming.

C.k. 奥格登和 I.A. Richards, 《意义的意义》, 第 8 版。(伦敦: 凯根·保罗, 1946), 1, 26。我无意夸大意义的意义的重要性。20 世纪 20–40 年代, 我们看到了许多关于思想和语言的著作。爱德华·萨皮尔《语言学作为一门科学的地位》。《科学与理智》(宾夕法尼亚州兰开斯特: 国际非亚里士多德图书馆出版公司, 1933)。理查兹:《修辞哲学》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 1936 年); 早川一会:《思想和行动中的语言》(纽约: 哈考特, 布雷斯, 1939 年); 苏珊娜·兰格:《哲学的新调: 理性、礼仪和艺术的象征主义研究》(纽约: 新美国图书馆, 1941 年)。为什么尼采的“语言的监狱”是一个错误的翻译, 参见 Storm, “语言, 思想, 宇宙”即将出版。

44. Tobin Siebers, *Cold War Criticism and the Politics of Skepticism* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1993), 3, 29.

Tobin Siebers, 《冷战批评与怀疑主义的政治》(New York: Oxford University Press, 1993), 3, 29。

45. Karl Popper, *The Open Society and Its Enemies*, vol. 1 (London: Routledge, 1947), 60.

卡尔·波普尔,《开放社会及其敌人》,第1卷(伦敦:路边,1947),第60页。

46. See Ayn Rand, *Capitalism: The Unknown Ideal* (New York: Signet, 1967), 281; and Cyril Joad, *A Critique of Logical Positivism* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1950), 152. For a fuller exposition, see LeMahieu, *Fictions of Fact and Value*.

参见 Ayn Rand,《资本主义:未知的理想》(纽约:Signet, 1967), 281; 和 Cyril Joad,《逻辑实证主义批判》(芝加哥:芝加哥大学出版社, 1950), 152。欲了解更全面的解释,请参阅 LeMahieu, *fiction of Fact and Value*。

47. Thomas Kuhn, *The Structure of Scientific Revolutions* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1996), 43.

托马斯·库恩,《科学革命的结构》(芝加哥:芝加哥大学出版社, 1996), 43页。

48. Josephson-Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment*, 306–7.

约瑟夫森-斯托姆,《幻灭的神话》, 306-7。

49. For example, see Robert Pippin, “Nietzsche and the Origin of the Idea of Modernism,” *Inquiry* 26 (1983): 151–80, esp. 151.

例如, 参见罗伯特·皮聘的《尼采与现代主义思想的起源》,《探究》26(1983): 151-80, 特别是。151。

50. Donald Campbell, “Ethnocentrism of Disciplines and the Fish--Scale Model of Omniscience,” in Muzafer Sherif and Carolyn W. Sherif, eds., *Interdisciplinary Relationships in the Social Sciences* (Chicago: Aldine Press, 1969), 328–48; Juan Gilbert, “Silos of Academe Thwart Diversity on Campuses,” *Chronicle of Higher Education* 55, no. 5 (2008): 45; Lewis Gordon, *Disciplinary Decadence: Living Thought in Trying Times* (New York: Routledge, 2015), 4–5; and Mark Taylor, *Crisis on Campus: A Bold Plan for Reforming Our Colleges and Universities* (New York: Knopf, 2010). For early research on the subject, see Tony Becher and Paul Trowler, *Academic Tribes and Territories* (London: McGraw--Hill Education, 2001).

唐纳德·坎贝尔,“学科的种族中心主义和全知的鱼鳞模型,”在 Muzafer Sherif 和 Carolyn w. Sherif, eds.《社会科学中的跨学科关系》(芝加哥:奥尔丁出版社, 1969年), 328-48; 胡安·吉尔伯特,《学术孤岛阻碍校园多样性》,高等教育编年史,第55页。刘易斯·戈登(Lewis Gordon),《纪律的堕落:艰难时代的生活思想》(*Disciplinary Decadence: Living Thought in Trying Times*), 2015年4月5日; 马克·泰勒(Mark Taylor),《校园危机:改革我们的大胆计划》(*Crisis on Campus: a Bold Plan for reform Our Colleges and Universities*), 2010年, 纽约:Knopf 出版社。关于这个主题的早期研究, 见托尼·贝歇尔和保罗·特罗勒, 学术部落和地区(伦敦:麦格劳-希尔教育集团, 2001)。

51. Rogers Brubaker, “The Uproar Over ‘Transracialism,’” *New York Times*, May 18, 2017.

罗杰斯·布鲁贝克, 《跨种族主义的喧嚣》, 纽约时报, 2017 年 5 月 18 日。

52. Religious studies has long been split over whether scholarly distance requires outsider status or only insiders can really understand the essences of specific religions. Both positions are fraught. See José Cabezon and Sheila Greeve Davaney, eds., *Identity and the Politics of Scholarship in the Study of Religion* (London: Routledge, 2004).

长期以来, 关于学术距离是否需要局外人的身份, 或者只有局内人才能真正理解特定宗教的本质, 宗教研究一直存在分歧。这两种观点都令人担忧。参见 José cabezon 和 Sheila Greeve Davaney 编著的《宗教研究中的身份与学术政治》(london-don: Routledge, 2004)。

53. For repudiations of this, all too common, misreading of standpoint theory, see: Sandra Harding, “Rethinking Standpoint Epistemology: What Is Strong Objectivity?” *The Centennial Review* 36, no. 3 (1992): 437–70; Donna Haraway, “Situ-ated Knowledges: The Science Question in Feminism and the Privilege of Partial Perspective,” *Feminist Studies* 14, no. 3 (1988): 575–99; Miranda Fricker, *Epistemic Injustice: Power and the Ethics of Knowing* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011); and Alison Wylie, “Why Standpoint Matters,” in *Science and Other Cultures*, ed. Robert Figueroa and Sandra Harding (New York: Routledge, 2003), 26–48.

对于这一点的否定, 太普遍了, 对立场理论的误读, 见: 桑德拉·哈丁, “重新思考立场认识论: 什么是强客观性?”《百年回顾》, 第 36 期, 第 3 期(1992): 437-70; 唐娜·哈拉韦, 《原位知识: 女权主义中的科学问题和局部透视的特权》, 女权主义妇女研究 14 期, 第 3 期(1988): 575-99; 米兰达·弗里克, 《认知的不公正: 权力和知识的伦理》(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 2011); 艾莉森·威利, 《为什么立场很重要》, 科学和其他文化版,。Robert Figueroa and Sandra Harding (New York: Routledge, 2003), 26-48.

54. See George Yancy, ed., *Philosophy in Multiple Voices* (Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield, 2007), esp. 14. I would add, however, that appeals to the universal are ubiquitous in not just Euro--American philosophy, but also classical philosophy in East Asia and South Asia, as well as in the Islamic world more broadly. Indeed, much of what we have preserved of “pre--modern” sub--Saharan African philosophy also makes claims to the universal. For famously universalizing African philosophers, think Zera Yacob and Anton Wilhelm Amo.

利特尔菲尔德, 2007), 特别是。14.然而, 我要补充的是, 对普遍性的诉求不仅在欧美哲学中无处不在, 而且在东亚和南亚以及更广泛的伊斯兰世界的古典哲学中也无处不在。事实上, 我们所保留的“前现代”撒哈拉以南非洲哲学的大部分内容也宣称具有普遍性。对于那些著名的普遍化非洲哲学家来说, 想想 Zera Yacob 和 Anton Wilhelm Amo。

55. Kwasi Wiredu, *Cultural Universals and Particulars: An African Perspective* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1997), 5.

《文化共性与细节: 非洲的视角》(布卢明顿: 印第安纳大学出版社, 1997 年), 5。

56. Gesturing toward Harding and Haraway above, but epistemology is explored in greater detail in chapter 6.

指向上的 Harding 和 Haraway，但是在第六章中对认识论进行了更详细的探讨。

57. Many people seem to abhor ambiguities of gender and “race,” so in this autobiographical note, I want to be more specific for those who are curious.

许多人似乎厌恶模棱两可的性别和“种族”，所以在这个自传性的笔记，我想更具体的为那些好奇。

By “queer” I mean that I am a bisexual man enacting a nonconforming masculinity. I am also married to a bisexual woman.

说到“酷儿”，我的意思是我是一个双性恋男人，表现出一种不合常理的男子气概。我还娶了一个双性恋女人。

By “mixed race” I do not mean to imply that there are any pure or unmixed “races,” much less that race is a useful biological category. For a critique of the former, see Karen Fields and Barbara Fields, *Racecraft: The Soul of Inequality in American Life* (New York: Verso, 2014). But “race” is a relevant cultural construct, and on a personal level I have been consistently racialized in different respects.

我所说的“混合种族”并不意味着存在任何纯种或纯种的“种族”，更不用说种族是一个有用的生物学范畴。对于前者的批评，请参阅 Karen Fields 和 Barbara Fields 的《Racecraft: 美国生活中不平等的灵魂》(纽约: Verso, 2014)。但是“种族”是一个相关的文化概念，在个人层面上，我一直在不同的方面被种族化。

Specifically, I am most identified with my Sephardic (Portuguese/Spanish) Jew-ish and Hispanic heritages, and in different contexts I code as (and have encountered discrimination for being) Jewish, Hispanic, or ambiguously “ethnic.” I have other heritages as well that are significant to me personally. For instance, if family tradition is correct, we are also Romani or gypsy (and I grew up thinking of myself as such), and in the unlikely event that 23andme is correct, we are also one drop West African (which, if that’s true, I’m proud of, though I would certainly never claim to be Black, as I do not code that way and did not grow up with that self-understanding). All of these are variously racialized such that at times I have personally experienced anti-Semitism or generalized “not-quite-white” racism while

具体来说，我与我的西班牙语(葡萄牙语/西班牙语)犹太人和西班牙裔血统最为相似，在不同的环境中，我被编码为(并遭遇了歧视)犹太人，西班牙人，或者模棱两可的“种族”我还有其他对我个人来说意义重大的血统。例如，如果家庭传统是正确的，我们也是吉普赛人或吉普赛人(我从小就认为自己是吉普赛人)，如果 23andme 是正确的，我们也是一个西非人(如果这是真的，我为此感到骄傲，尽管我肯定不会声称自己是黑人，因为我不是那样编程的，也不是在自我理解的环境中长大的)。所有这些都是各种各样的种族主义，有时我个人经历过反犹太主义或普遍的“不太白”的种族主义

in other settings I have passed for “White.” (As the child of an immigrant, I also have a complicated sense of my “Americanness” or lack thereof.)

在其他情况下，我认为是“白色”(作为一个移民的孩子，我也有一个复杂的感觉，我的“美国性”或缺乏

The reasons I prefer “mixed race” to “mixed ethnicity” are: First, although there are exceptions, like many US American Hispanics, I experience my Hispanic heritage as racialized and hence non-white in certain contexts. Romani too are typically construed as “brown” or Asian in both the US and Europe. So, I think reading these heritages as non-white is probably not controversial.

我更喜欢“混血儿”而不是“混血儿”的原因是：首先，尽管也有例外，就像许多美国的拉美裔美国人一样，我体验到我的西班牙裔血统是种族化的，因此在某些情况下不是白人。在美国和欧洲，吉普赛人通常被解释为“棕色人种”或亚洲人。因此，我认为将这些文化遗产解读为非白人可能不会引起争议。

But second, and perhaps more controversially, I also think it is a mistake for us Jews to identify as “white.” As Michael Lerner has argued, “calling Jews ‘white’” is often “in effect denying the history of oppression” and overlooking the long and ongoing history of anti-Semitism in the United States. Basically, contemporary anti-Semitism is functionally a type of racism. See Michael Lerner and Cornel West, *Jews and Blacks: Let the Healing Begin* (New York: G.P. Putnam’s Sons, 1995), 67 and also Melanie Kaye/Kantrowitz, *The Colors of Jews* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2007), esp. 1–32. For a more recent discussion in light of rising anti-Semitic hate crimes, see Micha Danzig, “Anti-Semitism in America Is Nothing New. Don’t Deny Jewish History and Culture by Calling Us ‘White,’” *The Forward*, December 1, 2016. For a rejection of the claim that Jews can or should be understood within the narrow white/black dichotomy, see Jeffrey Israel, *Living with Hate in American Politics and Religion* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2019).

其次，也许更具争议性的是，我也认为我们犹太人认为“白人”是错误的正如 Michael Lerner 所说，“称犹太人为‘白人’实际上往往是在否认压迫的历史”，并且忽视了美国长期持续的反犹太主义的历史。基本上，当代反犹太主义在功能上是一种种族主义。参见迈克尔·勒纳和康奈尔·韦斯特的《犹太人和黑人：让治愈开始》(纽约：g.p. 普特南的儿子们，1995年)，67和梅兰妮·凯伊/坎特罗维茨的《犹太人的颜色》(布卢明顿：印第安纳大学出版社，2007年)。1-32.最近关于反犹太人仇恨犯罪的讨论越来越多，见 Micha Danzig, “反犹太主义在美国并不新鲜。不要通过称呼我们为‘白人’来否定犹太人的历史和文化，” *The Forward*，2016年12月1日。关于反对那种认为犹太人可以或者应该在狭隘的白人和黑人的二分法中被理解的说法，参见 Jeffrey Israel, *Living with Hate in American Politics and Religion* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2019)。

Further, as specifically a Sephardic Jew it is probably harder for me to pass for “White” than some, and for that (and other reasons) I have experienced second-ary othering even within Ashkenazi Jewish communities. See Sergio DellaPergola, “‘Sephardic and Oriental’: Jews in Israel and Western Countries: Migration, Social Change, and Identification,” *Studies in Contemporary Jewry* 22 (2007), 3–44.

此外，作为一个具体的西班牙裔犹太人，我可能比一些人更难被当作“白人”，因为这个原因(以及其他原因)，我甚至在德系犹太人社区中也经历了次要

的他者。见 Sergio DellaPergola, “‘西班牙人和东方人’: 以色列和西方国家的犹太人: 移民、社会变革和身份认同”, 《当代犹太人研究》22(2007), 3-44。

58. Boaventura de Sousa Santos, *Another Knowledge Is Possible: Beyond Northern Epistemologies* (London: Verso, 2008), xiv.

Boaventura de Sousa Santos, *Another Knowledge Is Possible: Beyond Northern Epistemologies* (London: Verso, 2008), xiv.

Chapter One 第一章

1. See: Caleb Miller, “Realism, Antirealism, and Common Sense,” in William Alston, *Realism & Antirealism* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2002), 13–25, 14; Silvia López, Jenaro Taléns, and Darío Villanueva, eds., *Critical Practices in Post-Franco Spain* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1994), 161; George Shields, “A Logical Analysis of Relational Realism,” in Timothy Eastman, Michael Epperson, and David Griffin, *Physics and Speculative Philosophy: Potentiality in Modern Science* (Boston: De Gruyter, 2016), 127–40, 129; Susan Napier, *The Fantastic in Modern Japanese Literature* (New York: Routledge, 1996), 58.

参见: Caleb Miller, 《现实主义, 反现实主义, 和常识》, William Alston, 《现实主义与反现实主义》(伊萨卡, 纽约: 康乃尔大学出版社, 2002), 13-25,14; Silvia López, Jenaro Taléns, and Darío Villanueva, eds. 《后弗朗哥时代西班牙的批判实践》(明尼苏达大学出版社, 1994), 161; 乔治·希尔兹, 《关系现实主义的逻辑分析》, 蒂莫西·伊斯曼, 迈克尔·埃普森和大卫·格里芬, 《物理与思辨哲学: 现代科学的潜力》(波士顿: 德·格鲁伊特, 2016), 127-40,129; 苏珊·纳皮尔, 《现代日本文学中的幻想曲》(纽约: 路德里奇, 1996), 58。

2. Kuhn, *The Structure of Scientific Revolutions*, 88.
库恩, 科学革命的结构, 88。

3. See Edward Slingerland, *What Science Offers the Humanities* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2008).

参见 Edward Slingerland, *What Science Offers the Humanities* (剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2008)。

4. One way to detect whether the encounter with science is superficial is if the humanist in question is citing not scholarly articles but popular summaries.

判断与科学的接触是否肤浅的一种方法是, 这位人文主义者是否引用的不是学术文章, 而是流行的总结。

5. One of my few points of agreement with Alan Sokal. Alan Sokal and Jean Bricmont, *Impostures intellectuelles* (Paris: Odile Jacob, 1997).

这是我与 Alan Sokal 为数不多的共识之一。Alan Sokal 和 Jean Bricmont, *Impostures intellectual* (Paris: Odile Jacob, 1997)。

6. For example, see R. Andrew Sayer, *Method in Social Science: A Realist Approach* (London: Routledge, 1992). Some critical realists, especially in sociology, are more sophisticated, e.g., Douglas Porpora, *Reconstructing Sociology: The Critical Realist Approach* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2015). But space prohibits full engagement.

例如，参见 R. Andrew Sayer, *Method in Social Science: a Realist approach* (London: Routledge, 1992)。一些批判现实主义者，尤其是社会学领域的批判现实主义者，更为复杂，如道格拉斯·波波拉的《重建社会学：批判现实主义的方法》(纽约：剑桥大学出版社，2015 年)。但是太空支持者反对全面参与。

7. Kevin Schilbrack, “A Realist Social Ontology of Religion,” *Religion* 47, no. 2 (2017): 161–78. To be clear, some of Schilbrack’s criticisms of other theorists are on point. See also Kevin Schilbrack, “After We Deconstruct ‘Religion,’ Then What? A Case for Critical Realism,” *Method & Theory in the Study of Religion* 25, no. 1 (2013): 107–12.

凯文·席尔布拉克，“宗教的现实主义社会本体论”，《宗教》，第 47 期，第 2 期(2017)：第 161-78 页。需要澄清的是，希尔布拉克对其他理论家的一些批评是正确的。参见 Kevin Schilbrack, “在我们解构了‘宗教’之后，然后呢？批判现实主义的一个案例，“宗教研究中的方法与理论 25，第 1 期(2013)：107-12。

8. K. Brad Wray, *Resisting Scientific Realism* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2018). See also: Jerrold Aronson, Rom Harré, and Eileen Cornell Way, *Real-ism Rescued: How Scientific Progress Is Possible* (Chicago: Open Court Publishing, 1995); Anjan Chakravartty, *A Metaphysics for Scientific Realism* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2007); Stathis Psillos, *Scientific Realism: How Science Tracks Truth* (New York: Routledge, 2005).

布拉德·雷，《抵制科学实在论》(纽约：剑桥大学出版社，2018)。参见：Jerrold Aronson, Rom Harré, and Eileen Cornell Way, *Real-ism Rescued: How Scientific Progress Is Possible* (Chicago: Open Court Publishing, 1995) ; Anjan Chakravartty, *a Metaphysics for Scientific realism* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2007) ; Stathis Psillos, *Scientific realism: How Science Tracks Truth* (New York: Routledge, 2005)。

9. Ray Brassier, “I Am a Nihilist Because I Still Believe in Truth,” blog post, <https://xylem.aegean.gr/~modestos/mo.blog/i-am-a-nihilist-because-i-still-believe-in-truth/>; and Quentin Meillassoux, *Après la finitude: Essai sur la nécessité de la contingence* (Paris: Seuil, 2006).

Ray Brassier, “我是一个虚无主义者，因为我仍然相信真理”，博客文章，<https://xylem.aegean.gr/~modestos/mo.blog/i-Am-a-Nihilist-Because-i-Still-believe-in-Truth/>; 以及 quentin meillassoux, 《有限之后：偶然性的必要性》(Paris: Seuil, 2006)。

10. See Arthur Fine, *The Shaky Game: Einstein, Realism and the Quantum Theory* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1996), 128; Gary Gutting, *Michel Foucault’s Archaeology of Scientific Reason* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1999); and Christopher Johnson, “Derrida and Science,” *Revue Internationale de Philosophie* 52, no. 205 (3) (1998): 477–93.

参见 Arthur Fine, *The Shaky Game: Einstein, Realism and The Quantum Theory* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1996), 128; Gary Gutting, *Michel*

Foucault's *Archaeology of Scientific Reason* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1999); Christopher Johnson, "Derrida and Science", *Revue Internationale de philosophie*-phie 52, no. 205(3)(1998): 477-93.

11. Simon Blackburn, "Realism: Deconstructing the Debate," *Ratio* 15, no. 2 西蒙布莱克本, "现实主义: 解构的辩论," 比率 15, 第 2 号 (2002): 111-33, 112. (2002): 111-33, 112.

12. See also Fine, *The Shaky Game*; Wray, *Resisting Scientific Realism*; and Paul Magnus and Craig Callender, "Realist Ennui and the Base Rate Fallacy," *Philosophy of Science* 71, no. 3 (2004): 320-38.

参见《不稳定的游戏》, 雷, 抵制科学实在论, 保罗·马格纳斯和克雷格·卡兰德, 《现实主义者的倦怠和基本比率谬误》, 《科学哲学》71, 第3期(2004): 320-38 页。

13. The other main difference between putative antirealists and realists is whether they hold an optimistic or a pessimistic attitude about whether our current scientific findings will eventually be overturned by a paradigm shift. See Wray, *Resisting Scientific Realism*.

假定的反现实主义者和现实主义者之间的另一个主要区别是, 对于我们当前的科学发现是否最终会被范式转变所推翻, 他们是持乐观还是悲观的态度。参见雷, 抵制科学实在论。

14. Jason Ānanda Josephson [Storm], *The Invention of Religion in Japan* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2012), 143-47, 241.

Jason nanda Josephson [Storm], 《宗教在日本的发明》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2012), 143-47, 241。

15. William Alston, ed., *Realism & Antirealism* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2002), 1. See also Nicholas Rescher, *Scientific Realism: A Critical Reappraisal* (Dordrecht: D. Reidel, 1987), 149.

现实主义与反现实主义(伊萨卡, 纽约: 康乃尔大学出版社, 2002), 1。参见尼古拉斯雷谢尔, 《科学实在论: 批判性的重新评价》(多德雷克特: d. 雷德尔, 1987), 149。

16. Michael Devitt, *Realism and Truth* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1997), 15-16. See also Lee Braver, *A Thing of This World: A History of Continental Anti-realism* (Chicago: Northwestern University Press, 2007), 15.

《现实主义与真理》(普林斯顿, 新泽西州: 普林斯顿大学出版社, 1997年), 15-16 页。另见李·布雷弗, 《这个世界的一件事: 大陆反现实主义的历史》(芝加哥: 西北大学出版社, 2007), 15。

17. Bimal Krishna Matilal, "A Realist View of Perception," In *The Philosophy of P.F. Strawson*, ed. Pranab Kumar Sen and Roop Rekha Verma (New Delhi: Indian Council of Philosophical Research, 1995), 305-27.

Bimal Krishna Matilal, "知觉的现实主义观点", 《斯特劳森的哲学》, ed. 普拉纳布·库马尔森(Pranab Kumar Sen)和罗普·雷卡·维尔马(Roop Rekha Verma)(新德里: 印度哲学研究委员会, 1995), 305-27。

18. Hilary Putnam, *Representation and Reality* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1988), Hilary Putnam, *Representation and Reality* (剑桥: 麻省理工出版社, 1988),
107. See also Catherine Kendig, ed., *Natural Kinds and Classification in Scientific Practice* (New York: Routledge, 2015), esp. 2.
另见《科学实践中的自然种类和分类》(纽约: Routledge, 2015), 特别是第2版。
19. For the first two, see Gideon Rosen, “Objectivity and Modern Idealism: What Is the question?” in *Philosophy in Mind*, ed. Michaelis Michael and John Hawthorne (Dordrecht: Kluwer, 1994), 277–319.
对于前两个问题, 参见 Gideon Rosen, “客观性与现代理想主义: 问题是什么?”在《心中的哲学》一书中。Michaelis Michael and John Hawthorne (Dordrecht: Kluwer, 1994), 277–319.
20. Sally Haslanger, *Resisting Reality: Social Construction and Social Critique* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2012), esp. 87, 131.
《抵制现实: 社会建构与社会批判》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2012), 特别是87, 131页。
21. One can also find precedents for global forms of mind--dependence in Buddhist thought (e.g., the Dhammapada 1:1, “All experience is preceded by mind, led by mind, made by mind”) and elsewhere in classical Indian philosophy.
我们也可以在巴德·达特思想(例如, Dhammapada 1:1, “一切经验都是由思想领先, 由思想引导, 由思想决定”)和印度古典哲学的其他地方找到全球形式的思想依赖的先例。
22. Italics in original. James Boswell, *The Life of Samuel Johnson* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1953), 333.
《约翰逊传》(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 1953), 333页。
23. Bruno Latour, “Clothing the Naked Truth,” In *Dismantling Truth: Reality in the Post--Modern World*, ed. Hilary Lawson and Lisa Appignanesi (New York: St. Martin’s Press, 1989), 101–28.
Bruno Latour, “Clothing the Naked Truth,” In *Dismantling Truth: Reality In the Post-Modern World*, ed 布鲁诺·拉图尔, “披上赤裸裸的真相”, 《拆解真相: 后现代世界的现实》, 编辑。希拉里·劳森和丽莎·艾比娜妮西(纽约: 圣马丁出版社, 1989), 101–28。
24. Derek Edwards, Malcolm Ashmore, and Jonathan Potter, “Death and Furniture: The Rhetoric, Politics and Theology of Bottom Line Arguments against Relativism,” *History of the Human Sciences* 8, no. 2 (1995): 25–49.
德里克·爱德华兹, 马尔科姆·阿什莫尔和乔纳森·波特, 《死亡与家具: 反对关系主义的底线论点的修辞、政治和神学》, 《人类科学史》8, 第2期(1995): 25–49页。
25. Karl Marx and Friedrich Engels, *The German Ideology* (London: Lawrence, 1970), 37.
卡尔·马克思和弗里德里希·恩格斯, 《德意志意识形态》(伦敦: 劳伦斯出版社, 1970), 37页。
26. For example, Quentin Meillassoux’s odd assertion that Kantians would have a problem explaining fossils.

例如，昆汀·梅亚苏(quentin meillassoux)奇怪地断言，康德人在解释化石时会遇到困难。

27. Manuel Vásquez, *More than Belief: A Materialist Theory of Religion* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011), 13.

曼努埃尔·瓦斯奎兹，《超越信仰：唯物主义的宗教理论》(牛津：牛津大学出版社，2011)，13。

28. Andrew Collier, *Critical Realism: An Introduction to Roy Bhaskar's Philosophy* (London: Verso, 1994), 8.

《批判现实主义：罗伊·巴斯卡哲学导论》(伦敦：Verso，1994)，8。

29. George Berkeley, *Principles of Human Knowledge and Three Dialogues* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1996), 38.

乔治·伯克利，《人类知识的原则与三次对话》(纽约：牛津大学出版社，1996)，38页。

30. See Howard Robinson's introduction to Berkeley, *Principles of Human Knowledge*, xiv.

参见霍华德·罗宾逊对伯克利的介绍，《人类知识的原理》，十四。

31. Schopenhauer cited in Bryan Magee, *The Philosophy of Schopenhauer* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1997), 82.

叔本华引自布莱恩·马吉的《叔本华的哲学》(牛津：克拉伦登出版社，1997)，82页。

32. Friedrich Nietzsche, *Sämtliche Werke*, vol. 6, ed. Giorgio Colli and Mazzino Montinari (Munich: Deutscher Taschenbuch--Verlag, 1999), 79.

弗里德里希·尼采(friedrich nietzsche)，《萨姆特里希作品集》，第6卷，乔治·科利(Giorgio Colli)和马兹诺·蒙蒂纳里(Mazzino Montinari)(慕尼黑：德国袋装书出版社，1999)，79。

33. This was basically a variation on Edmund Husserl's phenomenological "bracketing" (*Einklammerung*) or epoché, but reformulated in terms of language instead of bare perception. See Edmund Husserl, *Cartesian Meditations: An Introduction to Phenomenology* (Boston: Martinus Nijhoff, 1960), esp. 20–27.

这本书基本上是对埃德蒙·胡塞尔的现象学“括号”(Einklammerung)或“时代”的变体，但是在语言方面重新表述，而不是单纯的感知。参见埃德蒙·胡塞尔《笛卡尔的沉思：现象学导论》(波士顿：马丁努斯·奈霍夫，1960)。20-27。

34. See Jacques Derrida, "Hospitality, Justice and Responsibility," in *Questioning Ethics: Contemporary Debates in Continental Philosophy*, ed. Mark Dooley and Richard Kearney (New York: Routledge, 2002), 77.

参见雅克·德里达《好客、正义和责任》，《伦理问题：大陆哲学中的当代辩论》，。Mark Dooley and Richard Kearney (New York: Routledge, 2002)，77。

35. Jacques Lacan, *The Seminar of Jacques Lacan*, vol. 1 (London: Norton, 1988), 66.

雅克·拉康，《雅克·拉康研讨会》，第1卷(伦敦：诺顿出版社，1988年)，66页。

36. Arjun Appadurai, "The Thing Itself," *Public Culture* 18, no. 1 (2006): 15–22.

阿琼·阿帕杜拉，《事物本身》，《公共文化》第18期，第1期(2006)：第15-22页。

37. Richard Rorty, *Objectivity, Relativism, and Truth* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1991), 2, 148; and Rorty, "Beyond Realism and Anti--Realism," in *Wo steht die Analytische Philosophie heute?* ed. Ludwig Nagl and Richard Heinrich (Vienna: Oldenbourg, 1986), 103-15.

理查德·罗蒂,《客观性,相对主义与真理》(纽约:剑桥大学出版社,1991年),2,148;罗蒂,《超越现实主义与反现实主义》,在《今日分析哲学》一书中?爱德华·路德维希·纳格尔和理查德·海因里希(维也纳:奥尔登堡,1986),103-15。

38. Fine, *The Shaky Game*, 112.

好吧,《摇摆的游戏》,112。

39. Meillassoux, *Après la finitude*.

梅拉苏,在有限之后。

40. Lewis Gordon, *Fanon and the Crisis of European Man* (New York: Routledge, 1995), esp. 47-48.

刘易斯·戈登,《法农与欧洲人的危机》(纽约:路德里奇,1995),特别是47-48。

41. Ashley Montagu, *Man's Most Dangerous Myth: The Fallacy of Race* (Walmart Creek: Altamira Press, 1998), 31.

阿什利·蒙塔古,《人类最危险的神话:种族谬论》(Walmart Creek: Altamira出版社,1998),31页。

42. Ian Hacking, *The Social Construction of What?* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1999); and Haslanger, *Resisting Reality*.

Ian Hacking, *The Social Construction of What?* (剑桥:哈佛大学出版社,1999); 和 Haslanger, *resist Reality*。

43. The deceptively simple Thomas theorem (formulated by William Thomas and Dorothy Thomas) that "If men define situations as real, they are real in their consequences" has underwritten a lot of good empirical work, but it has often been interpreted to claim that meaning is constructed anew with each fresh micro-interaction (see Robert Merton, "The Thomas Theorem and the Matthew Effect," *Social Forces* 74, no. 2 [1995]: 379-422). Peter Berger and Thomas Luckmann, *The Social Construction of Reality* (New York: Penguin, 1966) posit some-thing akin to the process social ontology that I advocate in chapter 3, in part by giving an account of how "definitions of the situation" via "institutionalization" take on a relative degree of stability. I think of my project as allied with Berger and Luckmann but providing a more sophisticated account of how social processes function.

看似简单的托马斯定理(由威廉·托马斯和多萝西·托马斯提出)“如果人们把情况定义为真实的,那么他们的结果就是真实的”,这个定理已经为许多优秀的实证工作提供了支持,但是它经常被解释为声称意义是通过每一个新鲜的微观相互作用重新构建的(参见罗伯特·默顿的《托马斯定理和马太效应》,《社会力量》74,第2号[1995]:379-422)。Peter Berger and Thomas Luckmann, *The Social Construction of Reality* (纽约:企鹅出版社,1966)提出了一些类似于我在第三章中提倡的过程社会本体论的东西,部分是通过描述“情境的定义”如何通过

“制度化”获得相对程度的稳定性。我认为我的项目与伯杰和拉克曼结盟，但提供了一个更复杂的社会过程如何运作的帐户。

44. See Gordon, *Fanon and the Crisis of European Man*; and Charles Mills, *Blackness Visible: Essays on Philosophy and Race* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1998), esp. 41–66.

参见 Gordon, *Fanon and the Crisis of European Man*; and Charles Mills, *Blackness Visible: Essays on Philosophy and Race* (Ithaca, NY: cornell university press, 1998)。41-66。

45. As has been pointed out to me by a reader, there is a similar argument about *real* as a contrastive term in J.L. Austin, *Sense and Sensibilia* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1964).

正如一位读者向我指出的那样，在《感觉与可感物》(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 1964 年)一书中，有一个类似的关于真实的对比术语的争论。

46. Andrew Pickering, *Constructing Quarks: A Sociological History of Particle Physics* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1999).

Andrew Pickering, *building Quarks: a Sociological History of Particle Physics* (芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1999)。

47. See Jody Azzouni, *Talking about Nothing* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2010); John Bigelow, *The Reality of Numbers* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1988); Tim Crane, *The Objects of Thought* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2013); and Boris Kukso, “The Reality of Absences,” *Australasian Journal of Philosophy* 84, no. 1 (2006): 21–37.

见 Jody Azzouni, *Talking about Nothing* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2010) ; John Bigelow, *The Reality of Numbers* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1988) ; Tim Crane, *The Objects of Thought* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2013) ; Boris Kukso, *The Reality of absence*, *Australasian Journal of Philosophy* 84, no. 1(2006): 21-37。

48. As a real fictional character Sherlock Holmes has properties such as being more famous than any actual living detective. See Crane, *Objects of Thought*, 13.

作为一个真实的虚构人物，夏洛克·福尔摩斯比任何现实生活中的侦探都要出名。参见 Crane, *Objects of Thought*, 13。

49. Alexius Meinong, “The Theory of Objects,” in *Realism and the Background of Phenomenology*, ed. Roderick Chisholm (Atascadero, CA: Ridgeview, 1981).

梅农, “对象理论”, 现实主义和现象学背景, 罗德里克奇泽姆主编(阿斯卡德罗, 加利福尼亚州: 里奇维尤, 1981)。

50. Crane, *Objects of Thought*, 25–26.

Crane, *Objects of Thought*, 25-26 克兰, 《思想的对象》, 25-26。

51. See Roy Sorensen, *Seeing Dark Things: The Philosophy of Shadows* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2008), 19; and Nirmalya Guha. “No Black Scorpion Is Fall-

参见罗伊·索伦森, 《看见黑暗的东西: 阴影的哲学》(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 2008 年), 19 页;。没有黑蝎子是秋天

ing: An Onto--Epistemic Analysis of Absence,” *Journal of Indian Philosophy* 41, no. 2
《对缺席的认知分析》，《印度哲学杂志》第41期，第2期
(2013): 111–131.
(2013): 111–131.

52. Crane, *Objects of Thought*, 69.
灵鹤，思想之物，第69页。

53. See Stacie Friend, “Fictional Characters,” *Philosophy Compass* 2, no. 2 (2007):
141–56; and Bryan Lowe, “Contingent and Contested: Preliminary Remarks on
Buddhist Catalogs and Canons in Early Japan,” *Japanese Journal of Religious Studies*
41, no. 2 (2014): 221–53.

参见 Stacie Friend, “虚构人物”，*Philosophy Compass* 2, no. 2(2007): 141–56;
和 Bryan Lowe, “偶然和有争议的: 关于早期日本佛教目录和经典的初步评论”，
Japan Journal of Religious Studies 41, no. 2(2014): 221–53。

Chapter Two 第二章

1. Dating from Wilfred Cantwell Smith, *The Meaning and End of Religion*, which
was originally published in 1962.

源自威尔弗雷德·坎特韦尔·史密斯，《宗教的意义与终结》，最初于1962
年出版。

2. Jonathan Z. Smith, *Imagining Religion: From Babylon to Jonestown* (Chicago:
University of Chicago Press, 1982), xi.

想象宗教: 从巴比伦到琼斯敦(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1982)。

3. See Slavoj Žižek, *The Sublime Object of Ideology* (New York: Verso, 2008), vii.
参见 Slavoj Žižek, 意识形态的崇高客体(纽约: Verso, 2008)。

4. For a more exhaustive list of deconstructive works, see extended notes 23 and 46
below.

有关更详尽的解构工程清单，请参阅下文附注 23 和 46。

5. Marguerite Deslauriers, *Aristotle on Definition* (Leiden: Brill, 2007).

Marguerite Deslauriers, *Aristotle on Definition* (Leiden: Brill, 2007) 玛格丽
特·德洛里耶，亚里士多德《定义》(Leiden: Brill, 2007)。

6. Jerry Fodor, *Hume Variations* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2003), 6; and
William Lycan, “On the Gettier Problem Problem,” in *Epistemology Futures*, ed.
Stephen Hetherington (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 2006), 148–68, 150. Both cited in
Michael Hannon, *What’s the Point of Knowledge? A Function--First Epistemology*
(Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018), 17–18.

Jerry Fodor, *Hume Variations* (牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 2003), 6; William
Lycan, “On the Gettier Problem Problem,” in *Epistemology Futures*, ed. Stephen
Hetherington (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 2006), 148–68, 150. 两者都被 Michael
Hannon 引用，知识的意义是什么？函数第一认识论(牛津: 牛津大学出版社，
2018)，17–18。

7. Paul Elbourne, *Meaning* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011), 1.

Paul Elbourne, *Meaning* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011), 1.

8. Edward Craig, *Knowledge and the State of Nature* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1990), esp. 2; Michael Huemer, "The Failure of Analysis and the Nature of Concepts," in *The Palgrave Handbook of Philosophical Method*, ed. Christopher Daly (London: Palgrave Macmillan, 2015), 51–76; Stephen Laurence and Eric Margolis, "Concepts and Conceptual Analysis," *Philosophy and Phenomenological Research* 67, no. 2 (2003): 253–82; Stephen Stich, "What Is a Theory of Mental Representation," *Mind* 101, no. 402 (1992): 243–61; Timothy Williamson, *Knowledge and Its Limits* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2000).

爱德华·克雷格,《知识与自然状态》(牛津:克拉伦登,1990)。迈克尔·休默(Michael Huemer),《分析的失败与概念的本质》(*The Failure of Analysis and The Nature of Concepts*),《帕尔格雷夫哲学方法手册》(*Palgrave Handbook of Philosophical Method*, ed)。克里斯托弗·戴利(伦敦:帕尔格雷夫·麦克米兰,2015),51-76;斯蒂芬·劳伦斯和埃里克·马戈利斯,“概念和概念分析”,《哲学与现象学研究》67,第2期(2003):253-82;斯蒂芬·斯蒂奇,“什么是心智表征理论”,《心智表征》,第101期,第402期(1992):243-61;蒂莫西·威廉姆森,《知识及其局限》(牛津:牛津大学出版社,2000)。

9. Gilles Deleuze, *Différence et répétition* (Paris: Presses Universitaires de France, 德勒兹,《差异与重复》(巴黎:法国大学出版社,1968), esp. 20–22; and Gilles Deleuze and Félix Guattari, *Qu'est-ce que la philosophie?* (Paris: Éditions de Minuit, 2005). 1968), 尤其是20-22;以及吉勒·德勒兹和费利克斯·瓜塔里,《哲学是什么?》(巴黎:午夜出版社,2005)。

10. Jacques Derrida, *Margins of Philosophy* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1982), 3.

雅克·德里达,《哲学边缘》(芝加哥:芝加哥大学出版社,1982),3。

11. See Axel Honneth, *Reification: A New Look at an Old Idea* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2012) and Tairako Tomonaga, "Versachlichung and Verdinglichung," *Hitotsubashi Journal of Social Studies* 48, no. 1 (2017): 1–26.

参见 Axel Honneth, *Reification: a New Look at a Old Idea* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2012) 和 Tairako Tomonaga, "Versachlichung and Verdinglichung", *Hitotsubashi Journal of Social Studies* 48, no. 1(2017): 1-26。

12. See F. Max Müller, *Lectures on the Origin and Growth of Religion* (London: Longmans, 1878), 8–10, 20.

马克斯·穆勒,《关于宗教起源和成长的讲座》(London: Longmans, 1878), 8-10,20。

13. Wilfred Cantwell Smith, *The Meaning and End of Religion* (Minneapolis: Fortress Press, 1991), 21–22.

威尔弗雷德·坎特韦尔·史密斯,《宗教的意义和终结》(明尼阿波利斯:为特雷斯出版社,1991年),第21-22页。

14. Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 37.
史密斯, 《宗教的意义与终结》, 37页。

15. There was not even a Hebrew word for “Judaism” until the Middle Ages.
直到中世纪, “犹太教”才有了一个希伯来单词。

16. Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 53–60.
史密斯, 《宗教的意义与终结》, 53-60。

17. Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 61–62.

Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 61-62 史密斯, 《宗教的意义与终结》, 61-62。

18. Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 51.
史密斯, 《宗教的意义与终结》, 51页。

19. Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 12.

Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 12 史密斯, 宗教的意义和终结, 12。

20. Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 327.
史密斯, 《宗教的意义与终结》, 327页。

21. Smith’s theological critique of the concept of “religion” has parallels in the work of Dietrich Bonhoeffer, Franz Rosenzweig, and Ernst Feil.

史密斯对“宗教”概念的神学批判与迪特里希·潘霍华、弗朗茨·罗森茨威格和恩斯特·菲尔的著作有相似之处。

22. Wilfred Cantwell Smith, “Retrospective Thoughts on the Meaning and End of Religion,” in *Religion in History the Word, the Idea, the Reality*, ed. Michel Despland and Gérard Vallée (Waterloo, Ontario: Wilfrid Laurier University Press, 1992), 13–22, 15. See also Smith, *Meaning and End of Religion*, 19.

威尔弗雷德·坎特韦尔·史密斯, 《宗教在历史中的意义和终结的回顾性思考》, 《世界, 观念, 现实》, 编辑。米歇尔·德普兰和杰拉德·瓦莱(滑铁卢, 安大略: 威尔弗里德·劳雷尔大学出版社, 1992年), 13-22, 15。参见史密斯, 《宗教的意义与终结》, 19。

23. An incomplete list of representative works in the critical turn in religion include the following: Philip Almond, *The British Discovery of Buddhism* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1988); Talal Asad, *Genealogies of Religion: Discipline and Reasons of Power in Christianity and Islam* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1993); Talal Asad, *Formations of the Secular: Christianity, Islam, Modernity* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2003); S.N. Balagangadhara, “The Heathen in His Blindness . . .”: *Asia, the West, and the Dynamic of Religion* (Leiden: Brill, 1994); Leora Batnitzky, *How Judaism Became a Religion* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2013); Michael Bergunder, “‘Religion’ and ‘Science’ within a Global Religious History,” *Aries* 16, no. 1 (2016), 86–141; Daniel Boyarin, *Border Lines: The Partition of Judaeo-Christianity* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2004); Robert Campney, “On the Very Idea of Religions (in the Modern West and in Early Medieval China),” *History of Religions* 42, no. 4 (2003): 287–319; David Chidester, *Savage Systems: Colonialism and Comparative Religion in Southern Africa* (Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1996); Vasudha Dalmia and Heinrich von Stietencron, eds., *Representing Hinduism: The Construction of Religious Traditions and National Identity* (New Delhi: Sage Publications, 1995); Jacques Derrida and Gianni Vattimo, *La Religion: Séminaire de Capri sous la direction de Jacques Derrida et Gianni Vattimo* (Paris: Éditions du Seuil, 1996); Michel Despland, *Le Religion en occident: Evolution des idées et du vécu* (Montreal: Fides, 1979); Michel Despland, *L’Emergence des*

sciences de la religion (Paris: L'Harmattan, 1999); Markus Dressler- and Arvind-pal Mandair, *Secularism and Religion--Making* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2011); Daniel Dubuisson, *L'Occident et la religion: Mythes, science et idéologie* (Brussels: Complexe, 1998); Ernst Feil, *Religio: die Geschichte eines neuzeitlichen Grundbegriffs vom Frühchristentum bis zur Reformation* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck

《宗教谱系: 基督教和伊斯兰教中的纪律和权力原因》(巴尔的摩: 约翰霍普金斯大学出版社, 1993); 《世俗的形成: 基督教, 伊斯兰教, 现代性》(斯坦福, 加利福尼亚: 斯坦福大学出版社, 2003); Balagangadhara, “盲目中的异教徒。”: 《亚洲, 西方与宗教的动态》(Leiden: Brill, 1994); Leora Batnitzky, 《犹太教如何成为一种宗教》(Princeton, NJ: Princeton university Press, 2013); Michael Bergunder, “全球宗教史中的宗教和科学”, *Aries* 16, no. 丹尼尔·博亚林, 《边界线: 犹太教与基督教的划分》(费城: 宾夕法尼亚大学出版社, 2004年); 罗伯特·坎帕尼, 《关于宗教的思想(在现代西方和中世纪早期中国)》, 《宗教史》, 42页, 第10页。《野蛮制度: 南部非洲的殖民主义和宗教比较》(Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1996); Vasudha Dalmia and Heinrich von Stietencron, eds. 代表印度教: 宗教传统和国家认同的建构(新德里: 圣人出版社, 1995); 雅克·德里达和詹尼·瓦蒂莫, 《宗教: 雅克·德里达和詹尼·瓦蒂莫指导下的卡普里研讨会》(巴黎: 赛吉出版社, 1996); 米歇尔·德斯普兰, 《西方宗教: 思想和血统的演变》(蒙特利尔: 信仰出版社, 1979); 米歇尔·德斯普兰, 《宗教科学的出现》(Paris: l'harmattan, 1999); Markus Dressler 和 Arvind-pal Mandair, 《世俗主义与宗教制造》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2011); Daniel Dubuisson, 《西方与宗教: 神话, 科学与意识形态》(布鲁塞尔: 综合出版社, 1998); Ernst Feil, 《宗教: 从早期基督教到宗教改革的新时代基本概念的历史》(哥廷根: Vandenhoeck)

& Ruprecht, 1986); Timothy Fitzgerald, *The Ideology of Religious Studies* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2000); Vincent Goosaert, “Le concept de religion en Chine et l'Occident,” *Diogenes* 1, no. 2005 (2004): 11–21; Jeffrey Guhin, “Religion as Site rather than Religion as Category: On the Sociology of Religion's Export Problem,” *Sociology of Religion* 75, no. 4 (2014): 579–93; Peter Harrison, “Religion” and the Religions in the English Enlightenment (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1990); Peter Harrison, *The Territories of Science and Religion* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1986); 蒂莫西·菲茨杰拉德, 《宗教研究的意识形态》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2000); 文森特·古萨特, 《中国和西方的宗教概念》, 第一卷。2005(2004): 11-21; Jeffrey Guhin, “宗教作为场所而不是宗教作为类别: 关于宗教输出问题的社会学”, 宗教社会学, 第75号。4(2014): 579-93; 彼得·哈里森, 《宗教与英国启蒙运动中的宗教》(纽约: 剑桥大学出版社, 1990); 彼得·哈里森, 《科学与宗教的领域》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学)

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Adrian Hermann (Adrian Hermann), 《宗教的区别》(Göttingen: Van -
denhoeck & Ruprecht, 2015); Hoshino Seiji, *Kindai Nihon no shūkyō gainen: Shū-*
Denhoeck & Ruprecht, 2015); Hoshino Seiji, *Kindai Nihon no shūkyō gain: Shū-*
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Religion: Postcolonial Theory, India and "the Mystic East" (London: Routledge, 1999);
Hans Martin Krämer, *Shimaji Mokurai and the Reconceptation of Religion and the Secular in*
Modern Japan (Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press, 2015); Craig Martin, *Capitalizing*
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Manufacturing Religion: The Discourse on Sui Generis Religion and the Politics of
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日本(檀香山: 夏威夷大学出版社, 2015 年); 克雷格·马丁, 资本化宗教(纽约: 布鲁姆
斯伯里出版社, 2014 年); Tomoko Masuzawa, 《世界宗教的发明》, 或《欧洲普遍主

义如何在多元主义的语言中得以保存》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2005 年); Russell McCutcheon, 《制造宗教: 关于自成一体的宗教与怀旧政治的论述》(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 1997 年); Russell McCutcheon, 《宗教的学科: 结构, 意义, 修辞学》(伦敦: Routledge, 2003 年); “近期出版物中的‘宗教’类别: 20 年后,” *Numen* 62, 没有。1(2015): 119-41; Rebecca Nedostup, *superstitious Regimes: Religion and The Politics of Chinese Modern* (Cambridge: Harvard University Asia Center, 2009); Brent Nongbri, *Before Religion: a History of a Modern Concept* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 2013); Harjot Oberoi, *The Construction of Religious Boundaries: Culture, Identity*, 以及锡克教传统的多样性(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1994); 杰弗里·a·奥迪, 《想象中的印度教: 英国新教传教士对印度教的建构》(新德里: Sage, 2006); 德里克·彼得森和达伦·沃尔霍夫, 编辑。《宗教的发明: 重新思考政治和历史中的信仰》(伦敦: 罗格斯大学出版社, 2001 年); 《想象印度教: 后殖民视角》(伦敦: Routledge, 2003 年); 《罗莎琳德·肖: “非洲传统宗教的发明”》《宗教》, 20, no. 乔纳森·斯密斯, 《想象宗教: 从巴比伦到琼斯敦》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1982); 乔纳森·斯密斯, 《关于宗教: 宗教研究论文集》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2004); 孙安娜, 《儒学作为世界宗教: 有争议的历史和当代现实关系》(新泽西州普林斯顿大学出版社, 2013); “‘虚构的宗教’范畴: 研究‘宗教’话语的新机遇”文化与宗教 14, 否。第 4 期(2013): 477-93; 乔里昂·巴拉卡·托马斯, 《伪装自由关系: 美国占领下的日本的宗教自由》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2019); 朱迪思·韦森菲尔德, 《新世界即将来临: 大迁徙期间的黑人宗教和种族认同》(纽约: 纽约大学出版社, 2019); 蒂萨·温格, 《我们有一种宗教: 20 世纪 20 年代普韦布洛印第安人舞蹈争论与美国宗教自由》教堂山: 北卡罗来纳大学出版社, 2009。

24. Josephson [Storm], *Invention of Religion in Japan*, 8-11.

约瑟夫森[风暴], 发明宗教在日本, 8-11。

25. Josephson [Storm], *Invention of Religion in Japan*.

Josephson [Storm], 日本宗教的发明。

26. Gottlob Frege, “Sense and Reference,” *The Philosophical Review* 57, no. 3

Gottlob Frege, 《意义与参照》, 《哲学评论》57, 第 3 期

(1948): 209-230. I provide an alternative account of meaning in chapter 5.

(1948): 209-230. 我在第五章提供了另一种关于意义的解释。

27. See Benjamin Beit-Hallahmi, “Scientology: Religion or Racket?” *Marburg Journal of Religion* 8, no. 1 (2003): 1-56.

参见本杰明·贝特·郝拉米, “山达基: 宗教还是敲诈?”《马尔堡宗教杂志》第 8 期, 第 1 期(2003): 1-56 页。

28. Nongbri, *Before Religion*, 8. A valuable work, but one with an undertheorized account of meaning.

农布里,《宗教之前》,8。一部有价值的作品,但是对意义的解释还不够理论化。

29. William Shakespeare, *King John: The Arden Shakespeare*, ed. John Tobin and Jesse Lander (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 230.

威廉·莎士比亚《国王约翰:雅顿莎士比亚》,约翰·托宾和杰西·兰德(伦敦:布鲁姆斯伯里,2018),230页。

30. See Josephson [--Storm], *Invention of Religion in Japan*.

参见约瑟夫森[--风暴],《日本宗教的发明》。

31. See Adrian Hermann, “Distinctions of Religion: The Search for Equivalents of ‘Religion’ and the Challenge of Theorizing a ‘Global Discourse of Religion.’” in *Making Religion* (Leiden: Brill, 2016).

参见阿德里安·赫尔曼,“宗教的区别:寻找‘宗教’的等价物以及将‘宗教’的全球话语理论化的挑战。(Leiden: Brill, 2016).

32. Meillassoux, *Après la finitude*, 48.

Meillassoux, 经过限制,48。

33. For repeated laments about the end of art, Eva Geulen, *Das Ende der Kunst: Lesarten eines Gerüchts nach Hegel* (Frankfurt: Suhrkamp, 2002).

对于对艺术终结的反复哀叹, Eva Geulen, 《艺术的终结:向黑格尔传达的一个消息》(法兰克福: Suhrkamp, 2002)。

34. For a firsthand account of Dada see Hans Richter, *Dada, Kunst und Anti-kunst: Der Beitrag Dadas zur Kunst Des 20. Jahrhunderts* (Cologne: M. DuMont Schauberg, 1973). Dada anti--art was foreshadowed by lesser--known movements like *Les Arts Incohérents* (established 1882).

要了解达达的第一手资料,请参阅《汉斯·里希特,达达,艺术与反艺术:达达对20世纪艺术的贡献》。世纪(科隆: m. DuMont Schauberg, 1973)。达达的反艺术预示着一一些鲜为人知的运动,比如1882年成立的《连贯艺术》(*Les Arts Incohérents*)。

35. There is an ongoing debate about whether Marcel Duchamp or Elsa von Freytag--Loringhoven created the “Fountain” and ready--made art in general.

关于是否是马塞尔·杜尚还是艾莎·冯·费莱塔格-萝玲霍芙创造了“不老泉”和一般的现成艺术,一直存在着争论。

36. Morris Weitz, “The Role of Theory in Aesthetics,” *The Journal of Aesthetics and Art Criticism* 15, no. 1 (1956): 27–35. He expanded this argument in Morris Weitz, *The Opening Mind: A Philosophical Study of Humanistic Concepts* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1977). For other contemporary works in this line of approach, see William Kennick, “Does Traditional Aesthetics Rest on a Mistake?” *Mind* 67, no. 267 (1958): 317–34, 319; Haig Khatchadourian, “Common Names and ‘Family Resemblances,’” *Philosophy and Phenomenological Research* 18, no. 3 (1958): 341–58, and “Art--Names and Aesthetic Judgments,” *Philosophy* 36, no. 136 (1961): 30–48.

莫里斯·韦茨,“美学理论的作用”,《美学与艺术批评杂志》15,第1期(1956):第27-35页。他在莫里斯·韦茨的《开放的心灵:人文主义概念的哲学研

究》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1977)中扩展了这一论点。对于这条路线上的其他当代作品, 参见威廉·肯尼克的《传统美学是否建立在错误的基础上》(欢乐家庭晚餐》(1958年), 第67页, 第267页, 第317-34页, 第319页;《普通名字和‘家庭相似性’》, 《哲学和现象学研究》, 第18页, 第3页(1958年), 第341-58页;《艺术——名字和审美判断》, 第36页, 第136页(1961年), 第30-48页。

37. Ludwig Wittgenstein, *Philosophical Investigations* (Oxford: Blackwell, 2009), 27e (I:66). See also Michael Forster, “Wittgenstein on Family Resemblance Concepts,” in *Wittgenstein’s Philosophical Investigations: A Critical Guide*, ed. Arif Ahmed (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2010), 66–87. For a fascinating if ultimately flawed attempt to recover the category of games, see Bernard Suits, *The Grasshopper: Games, Life and Utopia* (Peterborough, Ontario: Broadview Press, 2014).

路德维希·维特根斯坦, 哲学研究(牛津: 布莱克威尔, 2009), 27e (i: 66)。另见迈克尔·福斯特, 《维特根斯坦关于家庭相似性概念》, 维特根斯坦的《哲学调查: 批判性指南》, 编辑。阿里夫·艾哈迈德(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2010), 66-87。对于一个迷人的, 但最终有缺陷的尝试, 以恢复类别的游戏, 见伯纳德诉讼, 蚱蜢: 游戏, 生活和乌托邦(彼得伯勒, 安大略省: 布罗德观点出版社, 2014年)。

38. Weitz, “Role of Theory in Aesthetics,” 32.

韦茨, “理论在美学中的作用”, 32。

39. Weitz, “Role of Theory in Aesthetics,” 34–35.

韦茨, “理论在美学中的作用”, 34-35。

40. For different accounts of these debates, see Tiziana Andina, *The Philosophy of Art: The Question of Definition—From Hegel to Post-Dantian Theories* (New York: Bloomsbury, 2013); Noël Carroll, ed., *Theories of Art Today* (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 2000); and Stephen Davies, *Definitions of Art* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1991). Perhaps the most influential attempt to recoup the category was George Dickie’s “institutional theory of art.” George Dickie, *Art and the Aesthetic: An Institutional Analysis* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1974), 34.

关于这些争论的不同说法, 见 Tiziana 和 ina 的《艺术哲学: 定义问题——从黑格尔到后丹田理论》(纽约: Bloomsbury, 2013); Noël Carroll 编辑的《今日艺术理论》(Madison: 威斯康星大学出版社, 2000); 以及 Stephen Davies 的《艺术定义》(Ithaca, 纽约: 康乃尔大学出版社, 1991)。也许最有影响力的尝试, 以弥补美食的血腥是乔治迪基的“制度理论的艺术。”乔治·迪基, 《艺术与美学: 制度分析》(伊萨卡, 纽约: 康乃尔大学出版社, 1974年), 34页。

41. See Harold Osborne, “Definition and Evaluation in Aesthetics,” *The Philosophical Quarterly* 23, no. 90 (1973): 15–27, esp. 16.

参见哈罗德·奥斯本的《美学的定义与评价》, 哲学季刊第23期, 第90期(1973): 第15-27页, 特别是第16页。

42. M.H. Abrams, “Art--as--Such: The Sociology of Modern Aesthetics,” *Bulletin* M.h. 艾布拉姆斯, “艺术本身: 现代美学社会学”, 公告

of the *American Academy of Arts and Sciences* 38, no. 6 (1985): 8–33. Foreshadowed in some respects by Osborne, “Definition and Evaluation.”

美国艺术与科学学院第 38 期, 第 6 期(1985): 第 8-33 页。奥斯本的《定义与评价》在某些方面预示了这一点

43. For a survey, see Denis Dutton, “But They Don’t Have Our Concept of Art,” in *Theories of Art Today*, ed. Noël Carroll (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 2000), 217–38. For a significant example, see David Novitz, “Art by Another Name,” *British Journal of Aesthetics* 38, no. 1 (1998): 19–32.

一项调查, 参见丹尼斯达顿, “但他们没有我们的艺术概念,” 今日艺术理论, 编辑。Noël Carroll (威斯康星大学麦迪逊分校出版社, 2000), 217-38。一个重要的例子, 见大卫诺维兹, “艺术的另一个名字,” 英国美学杂志 38, 第 1 期 (1998): 19-32。

44. For instance, something labeled as art comes to be governed by copyright rather than patent law.

例如, 被贴上艺术标签的东西开始受到版权而不是专利法的管辖。

45. Similarly, the category of “religious art” becomes doubly problematic: the difference between an object in a context of worship versus the historical appreciation of it. Think of a ritual mask that has become a museum piece. This was often referred to by way of Walter Benjamin as a disintegration of the aura.

同样, “宗教艺术”这一类别也产生了双重问题: 崇拜背景下的物体与历史上对其的欣赏之间的区别。想想一个已经成为博物馆展品的仪式面具。这通常被沃尔特·本杰明称为光环的瓦解。

46. For significant critiques (especially early formulations), see:
关于重要的批评(特别是早期的公式), 请参阅:

For Law: H.L.A. Hart, *The Concept of Law* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1961); Brian Bix, “H.L.A. Hart and the ‘Open Texture’ of Language,” *Law and Philosophy* 10, no. 1 (1991): 51–72.

法律奖: h.l.a. 哈特, 《法律的概念》(牛津: Clarendon 出版社, 1961 年); 布莱恩·比克斯, 《h.l.a. 哈特与语言的“开放纹理”》, 《法律与哲学》10, 第 1 期(1991 年): 51-72。

The POLITICAL: Walter Ullmann, *Principles of Government and Politics in the Middle Ages* (New York: Barnes & Noble, 1961), and *A History of Political Thought* (Baltimore: Penguin Books, 1965); see also Quentin Skinner, *The Foundations of Modern Political Thought* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1978); J.P. Canning, “Introduction: Politics, Institutions and Ideas,” in *The Cambridge History of Medieval Political Thought c. 350–1450*, ed. J.H. Burns (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1988), 341–66; Maurizio Viroli, *From Politics to Reason of State: The Acquisition and Transformation of the Language of Politics, 1250–1600* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1992); Jens Bartelson, *The Critique of the State* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2001).

政治: 沃尔特·乌尔曼, 《中世纪政府和政治的原则》(纽约: 巴恩斯和诺布尔出版社, 1961 年)和《政治思想史》(巴尔的摩: 企鹅出版社, 1965 年); 另见昆汀·斯金纳, 《现代政治思想的基础》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1978 年); j.p. 坎宁, 《剑桥中世纪政治思想史》, “引言: 政治、制度和思想”。彭斯(剑桥: 剑桥

大学出版社, 1988), 341-66; 毛里齐奥·维罗利, 《从政治到国家理性: 政治语言的获得和转换》, 1250-1600(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1992); 延斯·巴特爾森, 《国家批判》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2001)。

For History: Much of the debate around history and its narrative tropes has been related to the reception of Hayden White. But there were earlier debates around the “scientific” nature of historical scholarship, including Edward Hallett Carr, *What Is History?* (New York: Knopf, 1961) and David Cannadine, ed., *What Is History Now?* (Houndmills: Palgrave Macmillan, 2002). See also Hayden White, “The Burden of History,” *History and Theory* 5, no 2 (1966): 111–34. Elaborated in Hayden White, *Metahistory: The Historical Imagination in Nineteenth-Century Europe* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1973); White, *Tropics of Dis-course: Essays in Cultural Criticism* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1978); White, *The Content of the Form: Narrative Discourse and Historical Representation* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1987). See also Kuisma Kor-honen, ed., *Tropes for the Past: Hayden White and the History/Literature Debate* (Amsterdam: Rodopi, 2006); and Robert Doran, ed., *Philosophy of History after Hayden White* (New York: Bloomsbury Academic, 2013). Critical studies fields (e.g., critical race and critical gender studies) tend to gain their coherence by challenging rather than establishing their primary objects of analysis. In that respect, these subfields are predisposed toward some of the discursive strategies outlined in this chapter.

历史: 围绕历史及其叙事修辞的许多争论都与海登·怀特的接受有关。但是早些时候, 关于历史学术的“科学”性质的争论, 包括爱德华·霍列特·卡尔的《什么是历史?》(New York: Knopf, 1961)和 David Cannadine, ed. *What Is History Now?* (猎犬磨坊: 帕尔格雷夫·麦克米兰, 2002)。另见海登·怀特, 《历史的负担》, 《历史与理论》5, 第2卷(1966): 111-34页。《元历史: 十九世纪欧洲的历史想象》(巴尔的摩: 约翰霍普金斯大学出版社, 1973年); 《怀特, 热带话题: 文化批评论文集》(巴尔的摩: 约翰霍普金斯大学出版社, 1978年); 《怀特, 形式的内容: 叙事话语和历史再现》(巴尔的摩: 约翰霍普金斯大学出版社, 1987年)。参见 Kuisma Kor-honen 编辑, 《过去的比喻: 海登·怀特和历史/文学辩论》(阿姆斯特丹: Rodopi, 2006); 罗伯特·多兰编辑, 《海登·怀特之后的历史哲学》(纽约: Bloomsbury Academic, 2013)。批判性研究领域(例如, 批判性种族和批判性性别研究)往往通过挑战而不是建立其主要的分析对象来获得其一致性。在这方面, 这些子领域倾向于本章概述的一些话语策略。

For Gender: The notion of “gender” as a cultural category is often dated to 性别: “性别”作为一个文化范畴的概念往往可以追溯到

Robert J. Stoller, *Sex and Gender: The Development of Masculinity and Femininity* 《性与性别: 男性气质与女性气质的发展》, 罗伯特·斯托勒著

(London: Karnac, 1968). See Jemima Repo, *The Biopolitics of Gender* (New York: (伦敦: Karnac, 1968) 参见 Jemima Repo, 《性别的生物政治学》(纽约:

Oxford University Press, 2016).

牛津大学出版社, 2016)。

For RACE: Race was attacked much earlier—see Jacques Barzun, *Race: A Study in Modern Superstition* (New York: Harcourt Brace, 1937), although we might see the roots of this critique in the work of W.E.B. Du Bois and Franz Boas, among others. Other influential early examples include Frantz Fanon, *Peau noire, masques blancs* (Paris: Éditions du Seuil, 1952); and Thomas Gossett, *Race: The History of an Idea in America* (Dallas, TX: Southern Methodist University Press, 1963).

《种族: 种族: 现代迷信研究》(纽约: Harcourt Brace, 1937), 尽管我们可以在 w.e.b. Du Bois 和 Franz Boas 等人的著作中看到这种批判的根源。其他有影响力早期例子包括 Frantz Fanon, *Peau noire, masques blancs* (巴黎: 门槛出版社, 1952) 和 Thomas Gossett, *Race: The History of an Idea in America* (达拉斯: 南方卫理公会大学出版社, 1963)。

For SCIENCE: Norwood Russell Hanson, *Patterns of Discovery* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1958); and Kuhn, *The Structure of Scientific Revolutions*.

科学: 诺伍德·罗素·汉森, 《发现的模式》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1958); 库恩, 《科学革命的结构》。

For CULTURE: Alfred Kroeber and Clyde Kluckhohn, *Culture: A Critical Re-view of Concepts and Definitions* (Cambridge: The Museum, 1952); Alfred Kroeber and Talcott Parsons, “The Concepts of Culture and of Social System” *The American Sociological Review* 23, no. 5 (1958): 582–83; Raymond Williams, *Culture and Society, 1780–1950* (London: Chatto & Windus, 1958); Marc Manganaro, *Culture, 1922: The Emergence of a Concept* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2002); Leon Goldstein, “On Defining Culture,” *American Anthropologist*, New Series, 59, no. 6 (1957): 1075–81; George Peter Murdock, “Anthropology’s Mythology,” *Proceedings of the Royal Anthropological Institute* (1971): 17–24 (Murdock also laid similar charges on the notion of the social); Sherry B. Ortner, “Is Female to Male as Nature Is to Culture?” *Feminist Studies* 1, no. 2 (1972): 5–31; John H. Moore, “The Culture Concept as Ideology,” *American Ethnologist* 1, no. 3 (1974): 537–49; Carol MacCormack and Marilyn Strathern, *Nature, Culture, and Gender* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1980); György Márkus, “Culture: The Making and the Make-Up of a Concept,” *Dialectical Anthropology* 18, no. 1 (1993): 3–29; Robert Borofsky, “Rethinking the Cultural,” in *Assessing Cultural Anthropology*, ed. Robert Borofsky (New York: McGraw-Hill, 1994), 243–49; Jonathan Friedman, *Cultural Identity and Global Process* (London: Sage, 1994), esp. 206–207; and Arjun Appadurai, *Modernity at Large: Cultural Dimensions of Globalization* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1996), esp. 12; George W. Stocking Jr., “Franz Boas and the Culture Concept in Historical Perspective,” *American Anthropologist*, New Series, 68, no. 4 (1966): 867–82. See also James Clifford and George Marcus, eds., *Writing Culture: The Poetics and Politics of Ethnography* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1986); James Clifford, *The Predicament of Culture* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1988); Lila Abu-Lughod, “Writing against Culture,” in *Recapturing*

Anthropology: Working in the Present, ed. Richard Fox (Santa Fe, NM: American Research Press, 1991), 137–62; Adam Kuper, *Culture: The Anthropologists' Account* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1999); Scott Michaelsen and David Johnson. *Anthropology's Wake: Attending to the End of Culture* (New York: Fordham University Press, 2008). In this respect, Latour was a latecomer in his challenge to the nature–culture binary—see Bruno Latour, *Nous n'avons jamais été modernes* (Paris: La Découverte, 1991).

文化: Alfred Kroeber 和 Clyde Kluckhohn, 《文化: 概念和定义的批判性重新审视》(剑桥: 博物馆, 1952); Alfred Kroeber 和 Talcott Parsons, 《文化和社会系统的概念》。5(1958): 582-83; 雷蒙·威廉斯, 《文化与社会》, 1780-1950(伦敦: Chatto & Windus, 1958); 马克·曼加纳罗, 《文化》, 1922: 概念的出现(普林斯顿, 新泽西州: 普林斯顿大学出版社, 2002); 里昂·戈尔茨坦, 《文化定义》, 美国人类学家, 新系列, 59, 第二版。6(1957): 1075-81; 乔治·彼得·默多克, 《人类学的神话学》, 支持皇家人类学研究所(1971): 17-24(默多克也对社会的概念提出了类似的指控); 雪莉·B·奥特纳, 《女人对男人就像自然对文化一样吗?》妇女研究 1,2 号(1972): 5-31; 约翰·H·摩尔, “作为意识形态的文化概念”, 美国民族学家 1,3 号(1974): 537-49; 卡罗尔·麦考马克和玛丽莲·史翠山, 《自然、文化和性别》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1980); 约尔吉·马尔库斯, “文化: 概念的形成和组成”, 辩证人类学 18,1 号(1993): 3-29; 罗伯特·波洛夫斯基, “重新思考文化”, 评价文化人类学, 编辑。罗伯特·波洛夫斯基(纽约: 麦格劳-希尔出版社, 1994), 243-49; 乔纳森·弗里德曼, 《文化身份与全球进程》(伦敦: 圣人出版社, 1994)。《现代性: 全球化的文化维度》(明尼阿波利斯: 明尼苏达大学出版社, 1996)。《弗朗茨·博阿斯与历史视角下的文化观》, 美国人类学家, 新丛书, 第 68 卷, 第 4 期(1966): 第 867-82 页。另见詹姆斯·克利福德和乔治·马库斯编著的《文化写作: 民族志的诗学和政治学》(伯克利: 加州大学尼亚分校出版社, 1986 年); 詹姆斯·克利福德的《文化的困境》(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1988 年); 莱拉·阿布·拉霍德的《反对文化的写作》, 收录于《人类学: 当下的工作》, 编著。Richard Fox (Santa Fe, NM: American Research Press, 1991), 137-62; Adam Kuper, *Culture: The Anthropologists' Account* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1999); Scott Michaelsen and David Johnson. 人类学的觉醒: 关注文化的终结(纽约: 福特汉姆大学出版社, 2008)。在这方面, 拉图尔在挑战自然-文化二元论方面是一个后来者——参见布鲁诺·拉图尔的《我们从来没有现代化》(Paris: La Découverte, 1991)。

For postcolonial critiques, see also Peter Worsley, “The End of Anthropology,” 关于后殖民批评, 请参阅彼得·沃斯里利的《人类学的终结》

in *Transactions of the Sixth World Congress of Sociology* (Belgium: International Sociological Association, 1966), 121–29; David Goddard, “Limits of British Anthropology,” *New Left Review* 1, no. 58 (1969): 79–89; Gérard Leclerc, *Anthropologie et colonialisme: Essai sur l’histoire de l’africanisme* (Paris: Fayard, 1972); Talal Asad, ed., *Anthropology & the Colonial Encounter* (New York: Humanities Press, 1973); Diane Lewis, “Anthropology and Colonialism,” *Current Anthropology* 14, no. 5 (1973): 581–602, esp. 585; Johannes Fabian, *Time and the Other: How Anthropology Makes Its Object* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1983); George Stocking Jr., *Victorian Anthropology* (New York: Free Press, 1987); V.Y. Mudimbe, *The Invention of Africa* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1988); Henrika Kuklick, *The Savage Within: The Social History of British Anthropology* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1991); Nicholas Dirks, ed., *Colonialism and Culture* (Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 1992); Nicholas Thomas, *Colonialism’s Culture: Anthropology, Travel, and Government* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1994); Peter Pels, “The Anthropology of Colonialism: Culture, History, and the Emergence of Western Governmentality,” *Annual Review of Anthropology* 26 (1997): 163–83; Helen Tilley, ed., *Ordering Africa: Anthropology, European Imperialism and the Politics of Knowledge* (Manchester: Manchester University Press, 2010). For critiques of the construction of the primitive, see especially Eric R. Wolf, *Europe and the People without History* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1997), and Adam Kuper, *The Reinvention of Primitive Society* (New York: Routledge, 2005).

《第六届世界社会学大会汇刊》(比利时: 国际社会学协会, 1966 年), 121-29; 大卫·戈达德, “英国人类学的局限性”, 《新左翼评论》, 第 1 期。《人类学与殖民主义: 论非洲主义的历史》(巴黎: 法亚尔, 1972); 塔拉尔·阿萨德, 编辑。

《人类学与殖民地遭遇》(纽约: 人文出版社, 1973 年); 黛安·刘易斯, 《人类学与殖民主义》, 《当代人类学》, 第 14 页, 第 14 页。5(1973): 581-602, esp. Johannes Fabian, *Time and the Other: How Anthropology Makes Its Object* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1983); 维多利亚时代的人类学(纽约: 自由出版社, 1987); 。Mudimbe, 《非洲的发明》(布卢明顿: 印第安纳大学出版社, 1988); Henrika Kuklick, 《内心的野蛮: 英国人类学的社会历史》(纽约: 剑桥大学出版社, 1991); Nicholas Dirks, ed. 《殖民主义与文化》(安娜堡: 密西根大学出版社, 1992 年); 尼古拉斯·托马斯, 《殖民主义的文化: 人类学、旅行与政府》(普林斯顿大学出版社, 1994 年); 彼得·佩尔斯, 《殖民主义的人类学: 文化、历史与西方政府的出现》, 《人类学年鉴》26(1997): 163-83; 海伦·蒂利, 编辑。订购非洲: 人类学, 欧洲帝国主义和知识的政治学(曼彻斯特: 曼彻斯特大学出版社, 2010)。关于原始社会建构的评论, 特别参见埃里克·r·沃尔夫的《欧洲和没有历史的人们》(伯克利: 加利福尼亚大学出版社, 1997 年)和亚当·库珀的《原始社会的再造》(纽约: 劳特里奇, 2005 年)。

For SOCIETy: Dorothy Emmet, *Function, Purpose and Powers* (London: Macmillan, 1958). Her work in this regard was arguably foreshadowed by John Mabbott, *The State and the Citizen* (London: Hutchinson’s University Library, 1948). Michael Mann also largely rejected notions of *society* in favor of multiple overlapping and intersecting networks of power, noting that if he could he “would abolish the concept of ‘society’ altogether.” Michael Mann, *The Sources of Social Power: Volume I* (New

York: Cambridge University Press, 1986), esp. 1–2; Tim Ingold, *Key Debates in Anthropology* (London: Routledge, 1996); John Bowers and Kate Iwi, “The Discursive Construction of Society,” *Discourse & Society* 4, no. 3 (1993): 357–93; Christina Toren, *Mind, Materiality and History: Explorations in Fijian Ethnography* (London: Routledge, 2006), esp. 3–6; and Bruno Latour, *Reassembling the Social* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2007).

For SOCIETY: Dorothy Emmet, *Function, Purpose and Powers* (London: macmillan, 1958) 社会: Dorothy Emmet, *Function, Purpose and Powers* (London: macmillan, 1958)。约翰·马博特(John Mabbott)的《国家与公民》(*The State and The Citizen*, London: Hutchinson’s University Library, 1948)可以说预示了她在这方面的作品。迈克尔·曼也在很大程度上拒绝了社会的概念,而是支持多重重叠和交叉的权力网络,他指出,如果可以的话,他“将彻底废除‘社会’的概念。”迈克尔·曼,《社会权力的来源:第一卷》(纽约:剑桥大学出版社,1986)。《人类学的重要辩论》(伦敦:Routledge, 1996);约翰·鲍尔斯(John Bowers)和凯特·二世(Kate Iwi),《社会的话语和社会》,第4卷,第3期(1993): 357-93;克里斯蒂娜·托伦(Christina Toren),《心灵,物质和历史:斐济民族志探索》(London: Routledge, 2006),特别是。布鲁诺·拉图尔,《重组社会》(纽约:牛津大学出版社,2007)。

For WOrd: Tadeusz Milewski, “The Conception of the Word in the Languages of North American Natives,” *Lingua Posnaniensis* 3 (1951): 248–68; Paul L. Garvin, “On the Relative Tractability of Morphological Data,” *WORD* 13, no. 1 (1957): 12–22; Charles Bally, *Linguistique générale et linguistique française* (Berne: Francke, 1965), 287–89; Robert Dixon and Alexandra Aikhenvald, *Word: A Cross-Linguistic Typology* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2007); Martin Haspelmath, “The Indeterminacy of Word Segmentation and the Nature of Morphology and Syntax,” *Folia Linguistica* 45, no. 1(2011): 31–80. Perhaps the critique of the “word” as a unit of analysis has the longest pedigree since criticisms of the “word” as an analytical fiction appear in the *Vākyapadīya* (On Words and Sentences) by the fifth century Indian grammarian Bhartṛhari. See John Brough, “Some Indian Theories of Meaning,” *Philological Society* 52, no. 1 (1953): 161–76.

参考文献: Tadeusz Milewski, 《北美土著语言中的词的概念》, *Lingua Posnaniensis* 3(1951): 248-68; Paul L. Garvin, 《论形态数据的相对易处理性》, *WOrd* 13, no. 第一卷(1957): 12-22; Charles Bally, *Linguistique générale et Linguistique française* (Berne: Francke, 1965), 287-89; Robert Dixon and Alexandra Aikhenvald, *Word: a Cross-Linguistic Typology* (剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2007); Martin Haspelmath, “分词的不确定性与形态学和句法的本质”, *Folia Linguistica* 45, no. 1(2011): 31-80. 也许, 自从五世纪印度语法学家 bhart something hari 在《关于词语和句子》一书中批评“词语”作为分析单位以来, 对“词语”作为分析单位的批评源远流长。参见 John Brough, “Some Indian Theories of Meaning”, *Philological Society* 52, no. 1(1953): 161-76。

For ECONOMY: Louis Dumont articulated a critique of economy in 1977 that was almost completely ignored by economists. See Louis Dumont, *Homo aequalis 1, Genèse et épanouissement de l'idéologie économique* (Paris: Gallimard, 1977).

为了经济: 路易斯·杜蒙特在 1977 年阐述了一个几乎被经济学家完全忽视的对经济的批判。参见 Louis Dumont, *Homo aequalis 1, Genèse et épanouissement de l'idéologie économiques* (Paris: Gallimard, 1977)。

47. Alfred Kroeber and Clyde Kluckhohn, *Culture: A Critical Review of Concepts and Definitions* (Cambridge: The Museum, 1952).

Alfred Kroeber and Clyde Kluckhohn, *Culture: a Critical Review of Concepts and Definitions* (Cambridge: The Museum, 1952) Alfred Kroeber and Clyde Kluckhohn, *Culture: a Critical Review of Concepts and Definitions* (Cambridge: The Museum, 1952).

48. See Charles Bazell, *Linguistic Typology* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1958), esp. 6.

参见《语言类型学》(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 1958), 特别是第 6 卷。

49. For “open concept” see Weitz, “Role of Theory in Aesthetics.” For “open texture” see Hart, *Concept of Law*. For “essentially contested concept” see W.B. Gallie, *Philosophy and the Historical Understanding* (New York: Schocken Books, 1964).

关于“开放概念”, 参见 Weitz, “理论在美学中的作用”关于“开放的文本”, 参见哈特的《法律概念》。关于“本质上争议的概念”参见 w.b. Gallie, 哲学和历史理解(纽约: Schocken Books, 1964)。

50. For an early 1905 challenge to “society” as a misplaced abstraction, see W.E.B. Du Bois, “Sociology Hesitant,” *Boundary 2* 27, no. 3 (2000): 37–44.

关于 1905 年初对“社会”作为一个错位的抽象概念的挑战, 参见 w.e.b. 杜波依斯的《社会学犹豫不决》, 边界 227, 第 3 期(2000): 37-44。

51. See John Beattie, “Understanding and Explanation in Social Anthropology,” *The British Journal of Sociology* 10, no. 1 (1959): 45–60, esp. 55; Bronisław Malinowski, *The Language of Magic and Gardening* (London: Unwin Ltd., 1935), 11; Jonathan Z. Smith, *Map Is Not Territory* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1993); and Matthew Watson, *Uneconomic Economics and the Crisis of the Model World* (Basingstoke: Palgrave, 2014).

参见约翰·贝蒂的《社会人类学的理解与解释》, 英国社会学期刊第 10 期, 第 1 期(1959): 45-60 页, 特别是。55; bronis ow Malinowski, *The Language of Magic and Gardening* (London: Unwin ltd., 1935), 11; Jonathan Z.Smith, *Map Is Not Territory* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1993); Matthew Watson, *Uneconomic Economics and The Crisis of The Model World* (Basingstoke: Palgrave, 2014).

52. See Josephson--Storm, *Myth of Disenchantment*, 59–60.

见约瑟夫森-风暴, 幻灭的神话, 59-60。

53. Michel Foucault, *Folie et déraison, histoire de la folie à l'âge classique* (Paris: Librairie Plon, 1961).

米歇尔·福柯, 《疯狂与毁灭》, 《古典时代的疯狂史》(巴黎: 普朗图书馆, 1961)。

54. Frequently, the current usage of the key term is the product of the eighteenth or nineteenth century. Therefore, the disciplinary object can usually be presented as both European and “modern.”

通常，这个关键词的当前用法是十八或十九世纪的产物。因此，学科对象通常可以同时表示为欧洲和“现代”

55. Josephson [Storm], *Invention of Religion in Japan*.

Josephson [Storm], 日本宗教的发明。

56. Charles Hockett, “*Linguistic Interludes Reviewed*,” *Language* 20, no. 4 (1944): 252–55, emphasis in original. A similar claim is made about polysynthetic languages such as Mapudungung in Balthasar Bickel and Fernando Zúñiga, “The ‘Word’ in Polysynthetic Languages: Phonological and Syntactic Challenges,” in *The Oxford Handbook of Polysynthesis*, ed. Michael Fortescue, Marianne Mithun, and Nicholas Evans (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2017), 158–85.

查尔斯霍克特，“语言间歇回顾”，语言 20，第 4 号(1944)：252-55，强调原文。关于多合成语言，也有类似的说法，如 Balthasar Bickel 的 Mapudungung 和 Fernando Zúñiga 的《多合成语言中的‘词’：语音和句法上的挑战》(The ‘Word’ in Polysynthesis Languages: Phonological and syntax Challenges)，见《牛津多合成手册》(Oxford Handbook of Polysynthesis，ed)。迈克尔·福蒂斯丘，玛丽安·米松，尼古拉斯·埃文斯(牛津：牛津大学出版社，2017)，158-85。

57. Marilyn Strathern, *The Gender of the Gift* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1988).

玛丽莲·史翠山，《礼物的性别》(伯克利：加州大学出版社，1988)。

58. Lynn Hart. “Three Walls: Regional Aesthetics and the International Art World,” in *The Traffic in Culture: Refiguring Art and Anthropology*, ed. George Marcus and Fred Myers (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1995), 127–50.

Lynn Hart. 《文化交通：重塑艺术与人类学》中的“三面墙：地域美学与国际艺术世界”。乔治·马库斯和弗雷德·迈尔斯(伯克利：加州大学出版社，1995)，127-50。

59. Malinowski, *Language of Magic*, esp. 15–17, 70.

Malinowski, *Language of Magic*, esp. 15-17,70 马林诺夫斯基，《魔法的语言》，特别是 15-17,70。

60. Kuhn, *Structure of Scientific Revolutions*, 149.

《科学革命的结构》，149 页。

61. Think Hayden White.

想想海登·怀特。

62. There is little financial support available for literature departments. Scholars advancing the critique are mostly talking to themselves.

文学系几乎没有经济支持，提出批评的学者大多是在自言自语。

63. See Pierre Bourdieu and Loïc Wacquant, *An Invitation to Reflexive Sociology* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1992).

参见 Pierre Bourdieu 和 Loïc Wacquant，《反思社会学的邀请》(芝加哥：芝加哥大学出版社，1992)。

64. See Sandra Harding, “Is Modern Science an Ethno--Science? Rethinking Epistemological Assumptions,” in *Science and Technology in a Developing World*,

参见《发展中国家的科学与技术》，“现代科学是民族科学吗？重新思考认识论假设”，

ed. Terry Shinn, Jack Spaapen, and Venni Krishna (Dordrecht: Springer, 1997), 37–64.
特里·希恩, 杰克·斯帕潘, 文尼·克里希纳(多德雷克特: 斯普林格, 1997),
37-64。

65. For a non--skeptical Kuhn, see Bojana Mladenović, *Kuhn's Legacy: Epistemology, Metaphilosophy, and Pragmatism* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2017).

对于一个不持怀疑态度的库恩, 参见 Bojana mladenovi, 库恩的遗产: 认识论, 形而上学, 和实用主义(纽约: 哥伦比亚大学出版社, 2017)。

66. Kuhn, *Structure of Scientific Revolutions*, 44–45. Indeed, it would be only a slight exaggeration to say that Kuhn's paradigm of paradigms was Wittgenstein's notion of family--resemblance.

库恩, 《科学革命的结构》, 44-45。事实上, 如果说库恩的范式是维特根斯坦的家庭相似性概念, 这只是稍微有点夸张。

67. Paul Feyerabend, *Against Method* (London: Verso, 2010).

Paul Feyerabend, *Against Method* (London: Verso, 2010).

68. See Josephson [Storm], *Invention of Religion in Japan*, and Josephson--Storm, 参见约瑟夫森, 日本宗教的发明,

Myth of Disenchantment.
醒悟的神话。

69. See Larry Laudan, "A Confutation of Convergent Realism," *Philosophy of Science* 48, no. 1 (1981): 19–49; and "The Demise of the Demarcation Problem," in

参见拉里·劳丹的《趋同现实主义的混淆》, 《科学哲学》48卷, 第1期(1981): 19-49页; 以及《画界问题的终结》

Physics, Philosophy and Psychoanalysis (Dordrecht: Springer, 1983), 111–27.

物理, 哲学和精神分析(Dordrecht: Springer, 1983), 111-27。

70. Edouard Machery, *Doing Without Concepts* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2009).

爱德华·马歇尔, 《没有概念的行动》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2009年)。

71. For disciplines to function, they have had to consistently shunt complexities into areas that exceeded the planes of their own system. As I discuss in chapter 3, it is especially hard for the human sciences to produce analytically closed systems, as one is constantly confronted by open systems that interact with each other in magnified orders of complexity.

为了让学科发挥作用, 他们必须不断地将复杂的关系分流到超出他们自身系统平面的领域。正如我在第三章中讨论的那样, 人文科学特别难以产生分析封闭的系统, 因为一个人不断面临开放的系统, 这些系统相互作用的复杂程度被放大了。

72. For histories of the disciplining process of physics, see Daniel J. Kevles, *The Physicists: The History of a Scientific Community in Modern America* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1987); Elizabeth Garber, *The Language of Physics: The Calculus and the Development of Theoretical Physics in Europe, 1750–1914* (Boston: Birkhäuser, 1999); Iwan Rhys Morus, *When Physics Became King* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2005).

《物理学家：现代美国科学界的历史》(剑桥：哈佛大学出版社，1987年)；《物理学的语言：1750-1914年欧洲的微积分和理论物理学的发展》(波士顿：伯克豪泽，1999年)；《当物理学成为国王》(芝加哥：芝加哥大学出版社，2005年)。

73. Nonetheless, disciplines often spar with each other over territory and some have multiple, competing objects.

尽管如此，学科之间经常在领域问题上争论不休，有些学科还有多个相互竞争的对象。

74. Gerald Graff, *Professing Literature: An Institutional History* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1987).

杰拉尔德·格拉夫，《教授文学：制度史》(芝加哥：芝加哥大学出版社，1987年)。

75. Eleanor Rosch. "Natural Categories," *Cognitive Psychology* 4 (1973):328-50; Eleanor Rosch, C.B. Mervis, W.D. Gray, D.M. Johnson, and P. Boyes--Braem, "Basic Objects in Natural Categories," *Cognitive Psychology* 8 (1976):382-439.

埃莉诺·罗施。《自然范畴》，*认知心理学* 4(1973)：328-50; Eleanor Rosch, c.b. Mervis, w.d. Gray, d.m. Johnson, P.Boyes-Braem, 《自然范畴中的基本对象》，*认知心理学* 8(1976)：382-439。

76. George Lakoff, *Women, Fire, and Dangerous Things: What Categories Reveal about the Mind* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1987), 41.

乔治·拉科夫，《女人，火与危险事物：心灵的哪些类别揭示》(芝加哥：芝加哥大学出版社，1987年)，41页。

77. Jerry A. Fodor, *Concepts: Where Cognitive Science Went Wrong* (New York: Clarendon Press, 1998), 102.

Fodor, *Concepts: Where Cognitive Science Went Wrong* (New York: Clarendon Press, 1998)，102.

78. Davies, *Definitions of Art*, 12.

戴维斯，《艺术的定义》，12。

79. Watanabe Satoshi, *Knowing and Guessing* (New York: Wiley, 1969), 376. See also Nelson Goodman, *Problems and Projects* (Indianapolis, IN: Bobbs--Merrill, 1972); and W.V.O. Quine, "Natural Kinds," in *Essays in Honor of Carl G. Hempel*, ed. Nicholas Rescher (Dordrecht: Springer Netherlands, 1969), 5-23.

渡边聪，《知与猜》(纽约：威利，1969)，376。参见纳尔逊·古德曼，《问题与计划》(印第安纳波利斯，IN：鲍勃斯-美林，1972)；和 w.v.o. 奎因，《自然种类》，在纪念卡尔·g·亨佩尔的散文集中。尼古拉斯雷谢尔(多德雷克特：斯普林格荷兰，1969)，5-23。

80. Octavio Paz, *The Collected Poems of Octavio Paz, 1957-1987* (New York: New Directions, 1991), 429.

Octaviopaz, 《octaviopaz 诗集，1957-1987》(纽约：新方向出版社，1991)，429页。

81. Quine, “Natural Kinds”; Watanabe, *Knowing and Guessing*.
奎因, “自然的种类”; 渡边, 知道和猜测。
82. See Forster, “Wittgenstein on Family Resemblance,” 69.
参见福斯特, 《维特根斯坦论家族相似》, 69。
83. Example adapted from Goodman, *Problems and Projects*, 445.
范例改编自古德曼, 问题和项目, 445。
84. See also Quine, “Natural Kinds,” esp. 46–47.
参见 Quine, “Natural Kinds,” esp. 46–47。
85. Example comes from Davies, *Definitions of Art*, 14.
例子来自戴维斯, 《艺术的定义》, 14。
86. Maurice Mandelbaum, “Family Resemblances and Generalization concerning the Arts,” *American Philosophical Quarterly* 2, no. 3 (1965): 219–28.
《欢乐家庭晚餐》, 美国哲学季刊第2期, 第3期(1965), 第219–28页。
87. See Nelson Goodman, “When is Art,” in Nelson Goodman, *Ways of World-making* (Indianapolis, IN: Hackett, 1978), 57–70.
参见纳尔逊·古德曼, 《艺术何时存在》, 纳尔逊·古德曼, 《创造世界的方法》(印第安纳波利斯, 1978), 57–70。
88. See Davies, *Definitions of Art*, 11.
参见戴维斯, 《艺术的定义》, 11。
89. Morton Beckner, *The Biological Way of Thought* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1959), 22–23.
《生物学的思维方式》(纽约: 哥伦比亚大学出版社, 1959年), 22–23。
90. Robert Sokal and Peter Sneath, *Principles of Numerical Taxonomy* (San Francisco: W.H. Freeman, 1963); and Rodney Needham, “Polythetic Classification: Convergence and Consequences,” *Man* 10, no. 3 (1975): 349–69.
罗伯特·索卡尔和彼得·斯尼斯, 《数值分类学原理》(旧金山: w.h. 弗里曼, 1963); 罗德尼·尼德汉姆, 《多元分类: 收敛和结果》, *Man* 10, no. 3(1975): 349–69。
91. Alston, cited in Benson Saler, “Cultural Anthropology and the Definition of Religion,” in *The Notion of “Religion” in Comparative Research*, ed. Ugo Bianchi (Rome: Bretschneider, 1994), 832–33.
《文化人类学与宗教的定义》, 《比较研究中的“宗教”概念》, 引用奥尔斯顿的文章。Ugo Bianchi (罗马: Bretschneider, 1994), 832–33。
92. Jürgen Habermas, *Legitimation Crisis* (Cambridge: Polity Edition, 1988), 2. Habermas was talking about societies and governments as a whole, but his notion can be extended to other kinds of organizations.
于尔根·哈贝马斯, 《合法性危机》(剑桥: 政治版, 1988), 2。哈贝马斯谈论的是社会和政府作为一个整体, 但他的概念可以扩展到其他类型的组织。
93. The challenge would have happened much earlier if more philosophers were familiar with the classical Indian philosopher Śrīharṣa. See Śrīharṣa, *The Sweets of Refutation: An English Translation of the Khaṇḍanakhāṇḍakhāḍya of Śhrīharṣa*
如果更多的哲学家熟悉印度古典哲学家 r har something a, 那么这个挑战可能会发生得更早。参见《反驳的甜蜜: shr har something a 的 kha something danakha something dakh something ya 的英译本》

(Allahabad: Indian Thought, 1913). For a survey starting with European thought, see Forster, "Wittgenstein on Family Resemblance," 72. For another survey see Herbert Blumer, "Science without Concepts," *American Journal of Sociology* 36, no. 4 (1931): 515–33. An early critique of concepts also appears in Benedetto Croce, *Logic as the Science of the Pure Concept* (London: Macmillan, 1917), although Croce tries to preserve "pure concepts."

(Allahabad: Indian Thought, 1913).从欧洲思想开始的一项调查, 见福斯特, 《维特根斯坦论家族相似性》, 72。另一项调查参见赫伯特·布鲁默的《没有概念的科学》, 美国社会学期刊第36期, 第4期(1931): 515-33。一个早期的概念批判也出现在贝内代托·克罗齐的《逻辑作为纯粹概念的科学》(伦敦: 麦克米伦, 1917)中, 尽管克罗齐试图保留“纯粹概念”

94. For the classical notion of the concept, see Edward Smith and Douglas Medin, *Categories and Concepts* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1981).

关于这个概念的经典概念, 参见爱德华·史密斯和道格拉斯·麦金的《范畴和概念》(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1981)。

Chapter Three

第三章

1. Jorge Luis Borges, *Collected Fictions* (New York: Penguin Books, 1999), 73.

豪尔赫·路易斯·博尔赫斯, 《小说集》(纽约: 企鹅出版社, 1999), 73页。

2. Thanks to Facebook friends for helping me with this list.

感谢 Facebook 上的朋友们帮助我完成这份清单。

3. See Alison Assiter, *Enlightened Women: Modernist Feminism in a Postmodern Age* (London: Routledge, 2005); Alastair Bonnett, *Anti-Racism* (London: Routledge, 2000), 137–42; Diana Fuss, *Essentially Speaking* (London: Routledge, 1990); Liao Ping-hui, "Postcolonial studies in Taiwan," *Postcolonial Studies* 2, no. 2 (1999), 199–211; Andrew Sayer, "Essentialism, Social Constructionism, and Beyond," *Sociological Review* 45, no. 3 (1997): 453–87; Naomi Schor and Elizabeth Weed, eds., *The Essential Difference* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1994); and Charlotte

参见《开明女性: 后现代时代的现代女权主义》(伦敦: Routledge, 2005); 《反种族主义》(Alastair Bonnett, 伦敦: Routledge, 2000), 137-42; 《从本质上讲》(Diana Fuss, *Essentially Speaking*, 伦敦: Routledge, 1990); 廖萍慧, 《台湾的后殖民主义理论研究》, 后殖民研究 2, no. 2(1999), 199-211; Andrew Sayer, "本质主义, 社会建构主义及其他", 社会学评论 45, no. 3(1997): 453-87; Naomi Schor and Elizabeth Weed, eds. 《本质区别》(布卢明顿: 印第安纳大学出版社, 1994); 《夏洛特》(Charlotte)

Witt, “Anti--Essentialism in Feminist Theory,” *Philosophical Topics* 23, no. 2 (1995): 《女性主义理论中的反本质主义》，哲学主题 23，第 2 期(1995):

321–44.

321–44.

4. Kenan Malik, “Universalism and Difference: Race and the Postmodernists,” *Race & Class* 37, no. 3 (January 1996): 1–17.

《普遍主义与差异: 种族与后现代主义》，《种族与阶级 37》，第 3 期(1996 年 1 月): 1-17 页。

5. Roland Barthes, *Mythologies* (New York: Noonday Press, 1991), 75.

罗兰·巴特，《神话学》(New York: noon day Press, 1991)，75 页。

6. Schor and Weed, *Essential Difference*, vii.

Schor 和 Weed，本质区别，vii。

7. Fuss, *Essentially Speaking*. She notes that one finds this discourse in both feminist theorists and poststructuralist thinkers like Lacan and Derrida, in whose hands the essential essence--less woman seemed to be almost a sexist notion.

Fuss，本质上讲。她指出，人们在女权主义理论家和后结构主义思想家如拉康和德里达身上都发现了这种话语，在他们的手中，没有本质的女性似乎几乎是一种性别歧视的概念。

8. Sherene Razack, *Looking White People in the Eye* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1998), esp. 162. Think also of Crenshaw’s famous account of intersectionality: Kimberlé Crenshaw, “Demarginalizing the Intersection of Race and Sex,” *University of Chicago Legal Forum* 1, no. 8 (1989), 139–67.

《看着白人的眼睛》(多伦多: 多伦多大学出版社, 1998)。162.还可以想想克伦肖关于跨部门性的著名论述: 金伯利·克伦肖,《消除种族与性别交叉的边缘化》，芝加哥大学法律论坛 1，第 8 期(1989)，139-67。

9. Jane Roland Martin, “Methodological Essentialism, False Difference, and Other Dangerous Traps,” *Signs* 19, no. 3 (1994): 630–57.

简·罗兰·马丁，《方法论本质主义，错误的差异和其他危险的陷阱》，标志 19，第 3 号(1994): 630-57。

10. For scientific essentialism, see Brian Ellis, *Scientific Essentialism* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2001). For attempts to use Locke’s nominal essences and other anti--anti--essentialisms, see Fuss, *Essentially Speaking*. To be fair, Gayatri Spivak ultimately repudiated the “strategic essentialism” for which she was famous. See Gayatri Spivak, *Other Asias* (London: Blackwell, 2008), 260.

关于科学本质主义，见布莱恩·埃利斯，《科学本质主义》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2001)。试图使用洛克的名义本质和其他反本质主义，见 Fuss，本质上讲。为了公平起见，加亚特里·斯皮瓦克(Gayatri Spivak)最终否定了她著名的“策略本质主义”。参见 Gayatri Spivak, *Other asia* (London: Blackwell, 2008)，260。

11. Aristotle’s phrase *ti ên einai* “the what it was to be” was sufficiently unclear that Roman translators had to coin a neologism, *essentia*, which became the English “essence.” There has been regular disagreement about what it meant to possess an *essence* basically ever since (including whether essences are transhistorical and unchanging, causal patterns, or “nominal” linguistic fictions).

亚里士多德的短语 *ti ên einai* “the what it was to be” 非常不清楚，以至于罗马译者不得不创造一个新词 “essence”，成为英语中的 “essence” 从那时起，关于拥有本质意味着什么(包括本质是跨历史的、不变的、因果模式还是“名义的”语言小说)就经常出现分歧。

12. For the psychological evidence about essentialism about kinds, see Susan Gelman, *The Essential Child: Origins of Essentialism in Everyday Thought* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2003).

关于关于种类的本质主义的心理证据，参见苏珊·格尔曼的《必要的孩子：日常思维中的本质主义的起源》(牛津：牛津大学出版社，2003)。

13. See Alfred North Whitehead, *Process and Reality* (New York: Macmillan, 1957); Nicholas Rescher, *Process Metaphysics* (Syracuse: SUNY Press, 1996); Isabelle Stengers, *Thinking with Whitehead: A Free and Wild Creation of Concepts* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2014).

参见阿尔弗雷德·诺思·怀特黑德的《过程与现实》(纽约：麦克米伦出版社，1957年)；尼古拉斯·雷谢尔的《过程形而上学》(锡拉丘兹：纽约州立大学出版社，1996年)；《与怀特黑德一起思考：概念的自由与野性创造》(剑桥：哈佛大学出版社，2014年)。

14. Heraclitus of Ephesus is perhaps the paradigmatic process thinker. Other process thinkers include: Hegel, Marx, Henri Bergson, C.S. Peirce, William James, John Dewey, and more recently Derrida, Deleuze, Manuel DeLanda, Dorothy Emmet, Édouard Glissant, Isabelle Stengers, Michel Weber, Nicholas Rescher, and Ilya Prigogine, among others. One can also find examples of process thought in both classical Indian and Chinese philosophy (esp. Buddhism and Daoism). For the role of process-thinking in Chinese philosophy, see John Berthrong, *Expand-ing Process: Exploring Philosophical and Theological Transformations in China and the West* (Albany, NY: State University of New York Press, 2008). Moreover, according to James Maffie process-thinking was crucial to Nahua or “Aztec philosophy,” see James Maffie, *Aztec Philosophy: Understanding a World in Motion* (Denver: University Press of Colorado, 2014).

以弗所的赫拉克利特或许是范式过程思想家。其他过程思想家包括：黑格尔，马克思，亨利伯格森，c.s. 皮尔斯，威廉詹姆斯，约翰杜威，以及最近的德里达，德勒兹，曼努埃尔德兰达，多萝西埃米特，爱德华格利桑特，伊莎贝尔斯坦格尔，迈克尔韦伯，尼古拉斯雷谢尔，和伊利亚普里戈因等。我们也可以在古典印度哲学和中国哲学中找到过程思维的例子(特别是。佛教(Buddhism)和道教(Daoism)。关于过程思维在中国哲学中的作用，参见约翰·伯塞隆的《拓展过程：探索中国和西方的哲学和神学变革》(纽约州立大学奥尔巴尼出版社，2008年)。此外，根据詹姆斯·马菲的观点，过程思维对于那华或“阿兹特克哲学”至关重要，见詹姆斯·马菲的《阿兹特克哲学：理解运动中的世界》(丹佛：科罗拉多大学出版社，2014)。

15. Maffie, *Aztec Philosophy*, 27.

玛菲, 阿兹特克哲学, 27。

16. For an account of how Kachina spirit beings, masks, and dolls function in Hopi ritual life, see George List, “Hopi Kachina Dance Songs: Concepts and Con-text,” *Ethnomusicology* 41, no. 3 (1997): 413–32.

关于克族神灵、面具和娃娃在霍皮族仪式生活中的作用, 参见乔治·李斯特的《霍皮族克族舞曲: 概念和背景》, 《民族音乐学》41, 第3期(1997): 413–32。

17. Michael Lynch, “Ontography: Investigating the Production of Things, Deflating Ontology,” *Social Studies of Science* 43, no. 3 (2013): 444–62.

迈克尔·林奇, 《本体论: 调查事物的生产, 去平面化本体论》, 《科学社会研究》43, 第3期(2013): 444–62。

18. People are often supposed to organize their experience into something called “worldviews” or “ontologies,” which are believed to represent the “subjective” part of experience in contrast to an “objective” world. In part I’m skeptical of “worldviews” (or “conceptual schemes”) because, like Donald Davidson, I see the distinction between subjective and objective contributions to experience to be incoherent. How could one have a coherent system for subjective experience before experiencing the world?

人们通常被认为应该把自己的经验组织成所谓的“世界观”或“本体论”, 这些被认为代表了经验的“主观”部分, 而不是“客观”世界。在某种程度上, 我对“世界观”(或“概念方案”)持怀疑态度, 因为像唐纳德·戴维森一样, 我认为对经验的主观和客观贡献之间的区别是不一致的。在体验世界之前, 一个人如何才能拥有一个连贯的主观感质系统?

Furthermore, “worldview” seems to be an incoherent concept. It is hard for me to know what it would mean to share a worldview (how many concepts must two people hold in common? How similar would they have to be? What about changing views? Does a worldview only track a subset of concepts, and if so which ones?). As I note repeatedly in this book, even speakers of the same language regularly disagree about what their “shared” terms mean and how to understand them. On these grounds, it would seem that no two people share a worldview. Worldviews are also often supposed to correlate with languages or general outlooks. But which is it? If there were such a thing as worldviews, it would seem that people can have different worldviews and speak the same language (e.g., American Mormon versus American Neo-Dawkins atheist) or speak different languages and hold basically identical worldviews (American Mormon and German Mormon). Do two quantum physicists—one a native French speaker and the other a native Akan speaker—share a worldview? How could we tell? More recent attempts to suggest that different minoritized populations share worldviews seems to me condescending and dangerously essentializing. There is no unitary “world-view” or “ontology” that all Black Americans share. To say otherwise would be to dismiss the diversity within the Black community itself. See Keeanga-Yamahatta Taylor, *From #BlackLivesMatter to Black Liberation* (New York: Haymarket Books, 2016). Similarly, as Olúfẹ́mi Táíwò has argued, “elite capture” within minoritized populations means that the people who are often tasked with speaking for disadvantaged groups are often those who most share their outlook with people in

power. In his example, Black elites who set the political agenda sometimes at the expense of working class Black folk. (See Olúfemi O. Táíwò, “Being-in-the-Room Privilege: Elite Capture and Epistemic Deference.” *The Philosopher* 108, no. 4 [2020]: 61–68.) Reframed, a bunch of Ivy League—educated economists all from the same prep schools are likely going to share more relevant features of their out-look than a superficial assessment of their “ethnic backgrounds” might suggest. In sum, demographic diversity, while incredibly important on its own, does not *necessarily* mean conceptual diversity.

此外,“世界观”似乎是一个不连贯的概念。我很难理解分享一种世界观意味着什么(两个人有多少共同的概念?它们有多相似?改变观点怎么样?一个世界观是否只追踪概念的一个子集,如果是,是哪个子集?).正如我在本书中反复提到的,即使是使用同一种语言的人也经常对他们“共享”的术语的含义和如何理解它们存在分歧。基于这些理由,似乎没有两个人有共同的世界观。世界观也经常被认为与语言或总体外观有关。但究竟是什么呢?如果世界观真的存在,那么人们似乎可以有不同的世界观,说同一种语言(例如,美国的摩门教徒和美国的新道金斯无神论者),或者说不同的语言,拥有基本相同的世界观(美国的摩门教徒和德国的摩门教徒)。两个量子物理学家——一个说法语,另一个说阿肯语——有共同的世界观吗?我们怎么知道?最近有人试图暗示,不同的少数民族人口拥有共同的世界观,在我看来,这似乎是居高临下和危险的本质化。没有所有美国黑人共有的单一的“世界观”或“本体论”。否认这一点就等于否定了黑人社区本身的多样性。参见 keega-yamahtta Taylor, *From # blacklivesmatter to Black Liberation* (New York: Haymarket Books, 2016)黑人的命也是命。同样,正如 olúf 的父母 mi Táíwò 所指出的,少数群体中的“精英俘虏”意味着,那些经常被赋予为弱势群体说话的任务的人,往往是那些最能与当权者分享自己观点的人。在他的例子中,制定政治议程的黑人精英有时以牺牲黑人工人阶级为代价。(参见 olúf parents mi o. Táíwò, “Being-in-the-Room Privilege: Elite Capture and Epistemic respect.” *The Philosopher* 108, no. 4[2020]: 61-68 经过重新定义,一群受过常春藤盟校教育的经济学家可能会分享更多与他们前景相关的特征,而不是肤浅地评估他们的“种族背景”。总而言之,人口多样性虽然本身非常重要,但并不一定意味着概念多样性。

19. Ron Mallon, *The Construction of Human Kinds* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2016), 162.

Ron Mallon, 《人类的建构》(纽约:牛津大学出版社,2016), 162 页。

20. Charles Taylor, “Interpretation and the Sciences of Man,” *Review of Metaphysics* 25, no. 1 (1971): 3–51, 49–50.

查尔斯泰勒, “解释和人类科学”, 元物理评论 25, 第1期(1971): 3-51, 49-50。

21. Pascal Boyer, *Religion Explained: The Evolutionary Origins of Religious Thought* (New York: Basic Books, 2007), 38–39.

宗教解说: 宗教思想的进化起源(纽约: 基础书籍, 2007), 38-39。

22. See Pascal Boyer, *Tradition as Truth and Communication* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1990); and Lauri Honko and Pekka Laaksonen, eds., *Trends in Nordic Tradition Research* (Helsinki: Suomalaisen Kirjallisuuden Seura, 1983), 236.

参见 Pascal Boyer, 传统即真理和交流(纽约: Cam-bridge 大学出版社, 1990); 和 Lauri Honko 和 Pekka Laaksonen, eds., 北欧传统研究趋势(赫尔辛基: Suomalaisen kirjallisuuden Seura, 1983), 236。

23. See Brian Joseph and Richard Janda, *The Handbook of Historical Linguistics* (Malden, UK: Blackwell, 2003).

参见《历史语言学手册》(英国马尔登: 布莱克威尔出版社, 2003年)。

24. Michael McCloskey and Sam Glucksberg, “Natural Categories: Well Defined or Fuzzy Sets?” *Memory & Cognition* 6, no. 4 (1978): 462–72.

Michael McCloskey 和 Sam Glucksberg, 《自然分类: 定义良好还是模糊集?》记忆与认知 6, no. 4(1978): 462-72。

25. Tony Lawson, “What is this ‘School’ called Neoclassical Economics?” *Cambridge Journal of Economics* 37, no. 5 (2013): 947–83. See also Tony Lawson, “Ontology and the Study of Social Reality,” *Cambridge Journal of Economics* 36, no. 2 (2012): 345–85.

托尼·劳森, “什么是新古典主义经济学的‘学派’?” *Cam-bridge Journal of Economics* 37, no. 5(2013): 947-83. 参见托尼·劳森的《论目的论与社会现实研究》, 《剑桥经济学杂志》, 第36期, 第2期(2012): 345-85页。

26. Andrew Abbott, *Processual Sociology* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2012); Ellis, *Scientific Essentialism*, esp. 179–94; Ruth Groff, *Critical Realism, Post-positivism and the Possibility of Knowledge* (New York: Routledge, 2004); Hacking, *Social Construction of What?*, 108; Mallon, *Human Kinds*.

Andrew Abbott, *Processual Sociology* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2012); Ellis, *Scientific essentialism*, esp. 鲁思·格罗夫, 批判现实主义, 后实证主义和知识的可能性(纽约: 路特利奇, 2004); 黑客, 什么的社会建构?, 108; Mallon, 人类。

27. Michael Omi and Howard Winant, *Racial Formation in the United States* (New York: Routledge, 2014), 110. Also cited in Mallon, *Human Kinds*.

Michael Omi 和 Howard Winant, 《美国的种族形成》(纽约: Routledge, 2014), 第110页。同样引用于 Mallon, *Human Kinds*。

28. Margaret Archer, ed., *Social Morphogenesis* (Dordrecht: Springer, 2013); and Marshall Berman, *All that Is Solid Melts into Air: The Experience of Modernity* (New York: Verso, 1983).

玛格丽特·阿切爾主编,《社会形态发生》(多德雷克特:斯普林格出版社,2013年);马歇尔·伯曼,《一切固体化为空气:现代性的体验》(纽约:弗索,1983年)。

29. Mallon, *Human Kinds*.

马龙,人类。

30. See Talcott Parsons, *The Social System* (New York: Free Press, 1951).

参见 Talcott Parsons, *The Social System* (New York: Free Press, 1951)。

31. For history of debates about natural kinds, see Ian Hacking, “A Tradition of Natural Kinds,” *Philosophical Studies* 61, no. 1 (1991): 109–26; and Muhammad Ali Khalidi, “Natural Kinds,” in *The Oxford Handbook of Philosophy of Science*, ed. Paul Humphreys (New York: Oxford University Press, 2016), 397–416.

关于关于自然物种的争论史,参见 Ian Hacking 的《自然物种的传统》,哲学研究 61, 第 1 期(1991): 109-26; 以及 Muhammad Ali Khalidi 的《自然物种》,《牛津科学哲学手册》。保罗·汉弗莱斯(纽约:牛津大学出版社,2016), 397-416。

32. John Dupré, “Is ‘Natural Kind’ a Natural Kind Term?” *The Monist* 85, no. 1

约翰·杜普雷(John Dupré), “‘自然善良’是一个自然善良的术语吗?”

(2002): 29–49; Hacking, “Tradition of Natural Kinds”; and Muhammad Ali Khalidi, *Natural Categories and Human Kinds Classification in the Natural and Social Sciences* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2015).

(2002): 29–49; Hacking, “自然种类的传统”; Muhammad Ali Khalidi, 《自然和社会科学中的自然种类和人类分类》(纽约:剑桥大学出版社,2015)。

33. Khalidi, *Natural Categories*, 12.

Khalidi, 自然分类, 12。

34. Lisa Barrett, “Are Emotions Natural Kinds?” *Perspectives on Psychological Science* 1, no. 1 (2006): 28–58; Lawrie Reznek, *The Nature of Disease* (London: Routledge & Kegan Paul, 1987); Daniel Sulmasy, “Diseases and Natural Kinds,” *Theoretical Medicine and Bioethics* 26, no. 6 (2005): 487–513; and Peter Zachar, “Psychiatric Disorders Are Not Natural Kinds,” *Philosophy, Psychiatry, & Psychology* 7, no. 3 (2000): 167–82. Although to be fair, there has been some critique of natural kinds in both physics and chemistry. See Holly VandeWalla, “Why Water Is not H₂O, and Other Critiques of Essentialist Ontology from the Philosophy of Chemistry,” *Philosophy of Science* 74, no. 5 (2007): 906–19. For debates about the *species concept*,

Lisa Barrett“情感是自然的吗?”心理科学展望 1, 第 1 期(2006): 28-58; Lawrie Reznek, 《疾病的本质》(伦敦: Routledge & Kegan Paul, 1987); Daniel Sulmasy, 《疾病与自然种类》,《理论医学与生物伦理学》,第 26 期,第 6 期(2005): 487-513; Peter Zachar, 《精神疾病不是自然种类》,《哲学,精神病学与心理学》,第 7 期,第 3 期(2000): 167-82。虽然公平地说,在物理学和化学领域都有一些对自然类型的批判。参见 Holly VandeWalla, “为什么水不是 H₂O, 以及化学哲学对本质主义本体论的其他批判”, *phi-Philosophy of Science* 74, no. 5(2007): 906-19。关于物种概念的辩论,

see: Benjamin H. Burma, “The Species Concept: A Semantic Review,” *Evolution* 3, 见: 本杰明 h. 缅甸, “物种概念: 语义回顾”, 进化 3, no. 4 (1949): 369–70; Ernst Mayr, “The Species Concept: Semantics versus Semantics,” *Evolution* 3, no. 4 (1949): 371–72; Robert Sokal and Theodore Crovello, “The 罗伯特·索卡尔和西奥多·克罗维洛, 《进化论》3, 第4卷(1949): 371-72 页 Biological Species Concept: A Critical Evaluation,” *The American Naturalist* 104, 生物物种概念: 一个批判性的评价,”美国博物学家 104, no. 936 (1970): 127–53; Michael Ghiselin, “A Radical Solution to the Species Problem,” *Systematic Zoology* 23, no. 4 (1974): 536–44; Marc Ereshefsky, “Species Pluralism,” *Systematic Zoology* 23, no. 4 (1974): 536–44; Marc Ereshefsky, “物种复数-ism and Anti--realism,” *Philosophy of Science* 65, no. 1 (1998): 103–20; John Dupré, 《科学哲学》, 第65期, 第1期(1998): 第103-20页; “On the Impossibility of a Monistic Account of Species,” in *Species: New Interdisciplinary Essays*, ed. Robert Wilson (New York: Bradford Books, 1999), 3–22; David 罗伯特·威尔逊(纽约: 布拉德福德出版社, 1999), 3-22; 大卫 Stamos, *The Species Problem: Biological Species, Ontology, and the Metaphysics of* 斯塔莫斯, 《物种问题: 生物物种, 本体论和形而上学》 *Biology* (Lexington, KY: Lexington Books, 2003); and Jody Hey, “On the Failure of 《生物学》(Lexington, KY: Lexington Books, 2003); Jody Hey, 《关于 Modern Species Concepts,” *Trends in Ecology & Evolution* 21, no. 8 (2006): 447–50. 现代物种概念》, 《生态与进化趋势》21, 第8期(2006): 447-50.

35. Biological species are not generally thought to have “essences.” Members of the same species do not always have the same properties (e.g., wolves born with-out eyes are still wolves). The species boundary between wolves and other related canines (such as dogs or ancestral species such as *canis chihliensis*) permits gray areas. You cannot define wolves based on necessary and sufficient conditions. We can imagine possible worlds in which wolves never evolved. There are no specific laws of nature that apply to wolves and only wolves. So it would seem wolves at least do not fit criteria 1, 3, 5, 6, 7, and 8.

生物物种通常不被认为具有“本质”同一物种的成员并不总是具有相同的属性(例如, 出生时没有眼睛的狼仍然是狼)。狼和其他相关犬科动物(如狗或犬科动物)之间的物种界限允许存在灰色地带。你不能根据必要和充分的条件来定义狼。我们可以想象狼从未进化的可能世界。没有特定的自然法则适用于狼, 而且只适用于狼。所以看起来狼至少不符合标准 1,3,5,6,7 和 8。

36. See Marc Ereshefsky, “Philosophy of Biological Classification,” in *Handbook of Plant Science*, ed. Keith Roberts (London: Wiley, 2007), 8–12.

参见 Marc Ereshefsky, “生物分类法哲学”, 植物科学手册, 编辑. Keith Roberts (London: Wiley, 2007), 8-12.

37. Philosophers of biology have spent a long time theorizing about when an exception necessitates a theory change and when it does not. Lindley Darden, *Reasoning in Biological Discoveries* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2006).

生物学哲学家花了很长时间来理论化一个例外何时需要改变理论, 何时不需要。Lindley Darden, 《生物学发现》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2006)。

38. Daniel Nicholson and John Dupré, eds., *Everything Flows: Towards a Processual Philosophy of Biology* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2018).

丹尼尔·尼克尔森和约翰·杜普雷编辑,《一切都在流动:走向生物哲学的过程》(纽约:牛津大学出版社,2018)。

39. For more on *svabhāva*, see Richard Robinson, “Some Logical Aspects of Nāgārjuna’s System,” *Philosophy East and West* (1957): 291–308.

欲了解更多关于 *svabhāva*, 请参阅理查德罗宾逊,“一些逻辑方面的 *svabhāva* 的系统,”哲学东方和西方(1957): 291-308。

40. Bimal Krishna Matilal, *Epistemology, Logic and Grammar in Indian Philosophical Analysis* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2015), 118.

Bimal Krishna Matilal,《印度哲学中的认识论,逻辑和语法》哲学分析(牛津:牛津大学出版社,2015),118。

41. For psychological evidence about cross-cutting in artifactual kinds, see Barbara Malt and Steven Sloman, “Artifact Categorization,” in *Creations of the Mind: Theories of Artifacts and their Representation*, ed. Eric Margolis and Stephen Laurence (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2007), 85–123. For the art instillation example, see *Causa-Efecto* by the Spanish artist Ana Soler.

有关人工制品种类交叉的心理学证据,请参阅芭芭拉·麦尔特和史蒂文·斯洛曼的《心灵的创造:人工制品及其表现的理论》一书中的“人工制品分类”。Eric Margolis 和 Stephen Laurence (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2007), 85-123。关于艺术灌输的例子,参见西班牙艺术家 Ana Soler 的 *Causa-Efecto*。

42. See Nick Haslam, Louis Rothschild, and Donald Ernst, “Essentialist Beliefs about Social Categories,” *British Journal of Social Psychology* 39, no. 1 (2000): 113–27.

参见尼克·哈斯拉姆,路易斯·罗斯柴尔德和唐纳德·恩斯特,《关于社会类别的本质主义信念》,《英国社会心理学杂志》,第39期,第1期(2000): 113-27页。

43. John Searle, *The Construction of Social Reality* (New York: The Free Press, 1997), 57.

《社会现实的建构》(纽约:自由出版社,1997年),57页。

44. Searle, *Social Reality*.

瑟尔,社会现实。

45. See Judith Butler, “Performative Acts and Gender Constitution: An Essay in Phenomenology and Feminist Theory,” *Theatre Journal* 40, no. 4 (1988): 519–31.

见朱迪斯·巴特勒,“行为与性别构成:现象学与女性主义理论中的一篇文章”,《戏剧杂志》40,第4期(1988): 519-31。

46. See Nelson Goodman, “When is Art?” in Goodman, *Ways of Worldmaking* (Indianapolis, IN: Hackett, 1978), 57–70.

参见纳尔逊古德曼,“艺术是什么时候?”在古德曼,《世界制造的方式》(印第安纳波利斯,IN: Hackett, 1978), 57-70。

47. Nicholas Rescher distinguishes between processes that are owned by a specific agent (e.g., a particular wolf's digestion) and those that are unowned or distributed across many different agents (e.g., climate change). Rescher, *Process Metaphysics*, 42.

雷谢尔(nicholas rescher)区分了由特定因素(例如，特定的狼的消化)所拥有的过程和那些无主的或分布在许多不同因素(例如，气候变化)中的过程。Rescher, *Process Metaphysics*, 42 雷谢尔，《进程形而上学》，42。

48. While in other ways I agree with Andrew Abbott, a processual sociology should not reduce everything to events, because events are themselves better understood as brief processes.

尽管在其他方面，我同意安德鲁·艾伯特(Andrew Abbott)的观点，但过程社会学不应该把一切都归结为事件，因为事件本身更容易理解为短暂的过程。

49. Rowland Stout, ed., *Process, Action, and Experience* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018), 2.

Rowland Stout 编辑，《过程，行动和经验》(Oxford: Oxford university Press, 2018)，2。

50. Édouard Glissant, *Poetics of Relation* (Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 1997). See also Alexandre Leupin, *Édouard Glissant: Héraclite et Hegel dans le Tout-Monde* (Paris: Hermann, 2016).

爱德华·格里桑，《关系诗学》(安娜堡: 密西根大学出版社，1997年)。另见亚历山大·勒平，爱德华·格里森：《全世界》中的赫拉克莱特和黑格尔(巴黎: 赫尔曼，2016)。

51. Manuel DeLanda, *Intensive Science and Virtual Philosophy* (New York: Bloomsbury Publishing, 2013); see also Nicholson and Dupré, *Everything Flows*. Some philosophers have promoted essentialisms that make room for processes. See Ellis, *Scientific Essentialism*.

Manuel DeLanda, *Intensive Science and Virtual Philosophy* (纽约: 布鲁姆斯伯里出版社，2013); 参见 Nicholson and Dupré, *Everything Flows*。一些哲学家提倡为过程腾出空间的本质主义。参见埃利斯，科学本质主义。

52. Kirsty Spalding, Ratan Bhardwaj, Bruce Buchholz, Henrik Druid, and Jonas Frisén, “Retrospective Birth Dating of Cells in Humans,” *Cell* 122 (2005): 133–42.

Kirsty Spalding, Ratan Bhardwaj, Bruce Buchholz, Henrik Druid, and Jonas Frisén, “人类细胞的回顾性出生日期”，*Cell* 122(2005) : 133-42。

53. See Amie Thomasson, “The Ontology of Social Groups,” *Synthèse* (2016): 1–17.

参见 Amie Thomasson, “社会群体的本体论”，*synthesis* (2016) : 1-17。

54. *The Questions of King Milinda*, vol. 1 (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1890), 34–57. *The Questions of King Milinda*, vol. 1 (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1890), 34–57
《米林达国王的问题》，第一卷(牛津: 克拉伦登出版社，1890)。

55. Dupré, “Natural Kind.”
杜普雷，《自然善良》。

56. Dupré, “Natural Kind.”
杜普雷，《自然善良》。

57. See Paul Griffiths, "Emotions as Natural and Normative kinds," *Philosophy of Science* 71, no. 5 (2004): 901–11.

参见保罗格里菲斯, “情感作为自然和规范的种类”, 《科学哲学》71, 第5期(2004): 901-11。

58. See John Sowa, "Signs, Processes, and Language Games: Foundations for Ontology," in *Proceedings of the 9th International Conference on Conceptual Structures* (Berlin: Springer, 2001), 1–44, 6.

参见 John Sowa, “符号、过程和语言游戏: 本体论的基础”, 刊于《第九届国际概念结构会议汇编》(柏林: Springer, 2001), 1-44,6。

59. See Fuss, *Essentially Speaking*.

看看大惊小怪, 本质上来说。

60. One of the problems is that networks and assemblages are precisely not processes. Connolly, *A World of Becoming*.

其中一个问题是, 网络和组装完全不是过程。Connolly, *a World of Becoming*。

61. Roy Bhaskar, *A Realist Theory of Science* (London: Routledge, 2008), xvi.

罗伊·巴斯卡, 《现实主义科学理论》(伦敦: 路特利奇出版社, 2008), 第十六页。

62. Bhaskar, cited in Isaac Reed, *Interpretation and Social Knowledge* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2011), 57.

巴斯卡, 引自艾萨克里德, 解释和社会知识(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2011), 57。

Chapter Four 第四章

1. See Mark Blaug, *The Methodology of Economics* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1992) 46; Margaret Gilbert, "Walking Together: A Paradigmatic Social Phenomenon," *Midwest Studies in Philosophy* 15, no. 1 (1990): 1–14; Alan Kirman, "The Intrinsic Limits of Modern Economic Theory: The Emperor Has No Clothes," *The Economic Journal* 99, no. 395 (1989): 126–39; Katherine Ritchie, "The Metaphysics of Social Groups," *Philosophy Compass* 10, no. 5 (2015): 310–21; and Lars Udehn, "The Changing Face of Methodological Individualism," *Annual Review of Sociology* 28, no. 1 (2002): 479–507.

参见马克·布劳《经济学方法论》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1992)46; 玛格丽特·吉尔伯特《走在一起: 一种典型的社会现象》, 《中西部哲学研究》, 第15页。1(1990): 1-14; Alan Kirman, “现代经济理论的内在局限: 皇帝没有衣服”, 《经济学杂志》99, No. 凯瑟琳·里奇(Katherine Ritchie), 《社会群体的形而上学》(The Metaphysics of Social Groups), 《哲学罗盘》(Philosophy Compass)10, no. 5(2015): 310-21; Lars Udehn, “方法论的个人主义的变化面孔”, 《社会学年度回顾》, 第28期。1(2002): 479-507。

2. Dave Elder-Vass, *Causal Power of Social Structures: Emergence, Structure and Agency* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2011) asks the right questions, although I find more persuasive the answers in Lawson, “Study of Social Reality.”

戴夫·埃尔德-瓦斯,《社会结构的因果力量:涌现,结构和代理》(剑桥:剑桥大学出版社,2011)提出了正确的问题,尽管我发现劳森的《社会现实研究》中的答案更有说服力

3. Brian Epstein, *The Ant Trap: Rebuilding the Foundations of the Social Sciences* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2015), discussed below.

布莱恩·爱泼斯坦,《蚂蚁陷阱:重建社会科学的基础》(纽约:牛津大学出版社,2015),讨论如下。

4. Ásta, “Social Kinds,” in *The Routledge Handbook of Collective Intentionality*, ed. Marija Jankovic and Kirk Ludwig (New York: Routledge, 2017), 290–99.

Ásta, “社会类型”,在集体意向性的 Routledge 手册, ed. Marija Jankovic and Kirk Ludwig (New York: Routledge, 2017), 290–99.

5. Bruno Latour defines the “social” as a “trail of *associations* between heterogeneous elements” from “chemical bonds to legal ties, from atomic forces to corporate bodies, from physiological to political assemblies.” This is so broad that it includes every kind of connection. That means it is basically meaningless as a descriptor and cannot do any analytical work. Latour, *Reassembling the Social*, 5.

布鲁诺·拉图尔将“社会”定义为“异质元素之间联系的轨迹”,从“化学键到法律关系,从原子力到公司机构,从生理到政治集会。”这是如此广泛,它包括每一种联系。这意味着它作为一个描述词基本上是没有意义的,不能做任何分析工作。拉图尔,重组社会,5。

6. I tend to be suspicious when philosophers toss around “emergence,” as it is often undertheorized. Most references to emergence are more evidence of a theory’s limits than a theory itself. But there are some bright exceptions, such as William Wimsatt, “The Ontology of Complex Systems,” *Canadian Journal of Philosophy* 24, no. 1 (1994): 207–74.

当哲学家们在“涌现”这个词上来回折腾的时候,我往往会产生怀疑,因为这个词通常是不合理的。大多数关于涌现的提法更多地是一个理论局限性的证据,而不是一个理论本身。但也有一些明显的例外,例如 William Wimsatt, “复杂系统的本体论”,《加拿大哲学期刊》24,第1期(1994):207–74。

7. Richard Boyd, “Realism, Anti-Foundationalism and the Enthusiasm for Natural Kinds,” *Philosophical Studies* 61, nos. 1/2 (1991): 127–48.

理查德·博伊德,《现实主义,反基础主义和对自然种类的热情》,《哲学研究》61,第1/2卷(1991):127–48页。

8. Richard Boyd, “Kinds as the ‘Workmanship of Men’: Realism, Constructivism, and Natural Kinds,” in *Rationalität, Realismus, Revision*, ed. Julian Nida-Rümelin (Berlin: De Gruyter, 2000), 52–89, 68.

理查德·博伊德,“作为‘人的工艺’的种类:现实主义,建构主义,和自然的种类”,在 *Rationalität, Realismus, Revision*, 修订,编辑。朱利安·尼达-吕梅林(柏林:De Gruyter, 2000), 52–89,68。

9. Boyd, “Kinds,” 57–58.

Boyd“种类”57–58。

10. Boyd, "Realism," 139.
博伊德,《现实主义》, 139。

11. Boyd, "Kinds," 54.
Boyd"种类"54号。

12. After I finished the initial draft of this chapter, Richard Boyd was kind enough to point me to a new paper in which he more fully articulates his semantics. But, alas, I didn't have time to assimilate it fully. So the differences between it and what I propose here and in chapter 5 will have to be ironed out later. See Richard Boyd, "Rethinking Natural Kinds, Reference and Truth: Towards More Correspondence with Reality, Not Less," *Synthese* (2019): 1–41.

在我完成了这一章的初稿之后,理查德·博伊德(Richard Boyd)好心地给我指出了一篇新论文,在这篇论文中,他更加清晰地阐述了他的语义学思想。但是,唉,我没有时间完全吸收它。因此,它与我在这里和第五章中提出的建议之间的差异将不得不在以后解决。参见理查德·博伊德的《重新思考自然的种类、参照物和真理:朝着更符合现实而不是更少的方向发展》,综合(2019): 1–41。

13. Karen Ho, *Liquidated: An Ethnography of Wall Street* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2009). Haslanger also makes a distinction between the *manifest* concepts ("the concept that users of the term typically take [or took] themselves to be applying") and *operative* concepts (basically how the term actually functions) and she accurately observes that genealogical critique often works by unearthing the gap between the two in practice. See Haslanger, *Resisting Reality*, esp. 92. I find this helpful but for reasons this chapter will make clear, I prefer to distinguish between manifest concepts (the shared terrain of popular usage) and operative social kinds (which track how the things to which the concepts refer actually function).

Karen Ho, *Liquidated: An Ethnography of Wall Street* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2009). Haslanger 还区分了 *manifest* 概念("这个术语的使用者通常接受(或接受)他们自己来应用的概念") and 可操作的概念(基本上这个术语实际上是如何运作的),她准确地观察到,宗谱批判通常通过发现两者之间的差距来发挥作用。参见 Haslanger,《抵制现实》,特别是。92.我发现这很有帮助,但由于本章将阐明的原因,我倾向于区分清晰的概念(流行用法的共同领域) and 可操作的社会类型(跟踪概念所指的事物实际上是如何起作用的)。

14. Searle, *Social Reality*, 21.
Searle, *Social Reality*, 21.

15. Searle, *Social Reality*.
瑟尔,社会现实。

16. John Searle, *Making the Social World* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2010), 22.

John Searle, *Making the Social World* (纽约:牛津大学出版社, 2010), 22。

17. Searle, *Making the Social World*, 41.

Searle, *Making the Social World*, 41 瑟尔, 创造社会世界, 41。

18. This claim is rehearsed in Searle, *Making the Social World*, which complicates the view of “collective intentionality.”

这一观点在 Searle, *Making the Social World* 一书中被重新阐述, 这使得“集体意向性”的观点变得复杂

19. Think also of J.L. Austin’s account of performative utterances.

也可以想想 J.L. 奥斯汀关于表演性话语的解释。

20. Searle begins to address this in *Making the Social World*. My theory of power has been deferred to a follow-up manuscript.

Searle 在《创造社交世界》一书中开始解决这个问题。我的权力理论已经被推迟到了后续的手稿中。

21. Sydney Shoemaker, *Identity, Cause, and Mind* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2003), 207.

Sydney Shoemaker, *Identity, Cause, and Mind* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2003), 207.

22. See Tim Crane, ed., *Dispositions: A Debate* (London: Routledge, 2014); Ruth Groff, ed., *Revitalizing Causality* (London: Routledge, 2007); and Phyllis Illari and Federica Russo, *Causality: Philosophical Theory Meets Scientific Practice* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2014).

参见蒂姆·克兰主编的《性格: 辩论》(伦敦: 路特里奇出版社, 2014); 鲁思·格罗夫主编的《重振因果关系》(伦敦: 路特里奇出版社, 2007); 以及菲利斯·伊拉里和费德里卡·鲁索的《因果关系: 哲学理论与科学实践》(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 2014)。

23. DeLanda, *Intensive Science*, vii.

DeLanda, *Intensive Science*, vii.

24. Stephen Mumford and Rani Lill Anjum, *Getting Causes from Powers* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011), 5.

Stephen Mumford and Rani Lill Anjum, *Getting Causes from Powers* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011), 5.

25. Illari and Russo, *Causality*, 159. See also Anjan Chakravartty, *A Metaphysics for Scientific Realism* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2007).

Illari and Russo, 因果关系, 159. 参见 Anjan Chakravartty, 《科学实在论的形而上学》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2007)。

26. I mean to evoke what biologists call “population thinking.” Ernst Mayr, “Typological Versus Population Thinking,” in *Conceptual Issues in Evolutionary Biology*, ed. Elliott Sober (Cambridge: MIT Press, 2006), 325–28.

我的意思是唤起生物学家所谓的“群体思维”恩斯特·迈尔(Ernst Mayr), 《进化生物学概念问题》, “类型学与群体思维”, 编辑。Elliott Sober (剑桥: 麻省理工出版社, 2006), 325-28。

27. See Carl Hempel and Paul Oppenheim, “Studies in the Logic of Explanation,” *Philosophy of Science* 15, no. 2 (1948): 135–75.

参见卡尔·亨佩尔和保罗·奥本海姆的《解释逻辑的研究》, 《科学哲学》15, 第2卷(1948): 135-75。

28. Anjan Chakravartty, “Inessential Aristotle: Powers without Essences,” in *Re-vitalizing Causality*, ed. Ruth Groff (London: Routledge, 2007), 160–61.

安扬·查克拉瓦蒂,《不可或缺的亚里士多德:没有本质的权力》,载于《重振因果关系》,爱德华·格罗夫主编(伦敦:路德里奇出版社,2007),160-61。

29. Marc Ereshefsky and Mohan Matthen, “Taxonomy, Polymorphism, and History: An Introduction to Population Structure Theory,” *Philosophy of Science* 72, no. 1 (2005): 1–21; and Manolo Martínez, “Informationally--Connected Property Clusters, and Polymorphism,” *Biology & Philosophy* 30, no. 1 (2015): 99–117.

Marc Ereshefsky and Mohan Matthen, “Taxonomy, Polymorphism, and History: An Introduction to Population Structure Theory,” *Philosophy of Science* 72, no. 1 (2005): 1–21; Manolo Martínez, “Informationally-Connected Property Clusters, and Polymorphism,” *Biology & Philosophy* 30, no. 1 (2015): 99–117.

30. See R. G. Swinburne, “Grue,” *Analysis* 28, no. 4 (1968): 123–28.

参见 R.G.Swinburne, “Grue”, *Analysis* 28, no. 4(1968): 123-28。

31. Ruth Garrett Millikan, *On Clear and Confused Ideas: An Essay About Substance Concepts* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2006), 17.

Ruth Garrett Millikan, *On Clear and Confused Ideas: An Essay About substance Concepts* (剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2006), 17。

32. Machamer, Darden, and Craver discuss causal mechanisms, which they define as “entities and activities organized such that they are productive of regular changes from start or set-up to finish or termination conditions.” Peter Machamer, Lindley Darden, and Carl Craver, “Thinking about Mechanisms,” *Philosophy of Science* 67, no. 1 (2000): 1–25. This definition is a good starting point for the kind of foundational causal relations I am interested in exploring. But I agree with John Dupré that the term “mechanism” is less useful to a process ontology insofar as it seems to suggest stable structures rather than regular sources of changes (see Nicholson and Dupré, *Everything Flows*). So, my preference will be for the term “process.” For an alternate account of stabilizing processes, see Mallon, *Human Kinds*, 162–181.

Machamer, Darden 和 Craver 讨论了因果机制, 他们把因果机制定义为“实体和活动组织起来, 使它们能够开始或设置到结束或终止条件产生有规律的变化。”Peter Machamer, Lindley Darden, and Carl Craver, “Thinking about Mechanisms”, *Philosophy of Science* 67, no. 1(2000): 1-25. 这个定义是我感兴趣探索的基本因果关系的一个很好的起点。但是我同意 John Dupré 的观点, “机制”这个术语对于流程本体论来说没有那么有用, 因为它似乎暗示了稳定的结构, 而不是常规的变化源(参见 Nicholson 和 Dupré, *Everything Flows*)。所以, 我更喜欢“过程”这个术语关于稳定过程的另一种说法, 参见 Mallon, *Human Kinds*, 162-181。

33. Epstein, *The Ant Trap*.

爱泼斯坦, 蚂蚁陷阱。

34. Ian Hacking, *Historical Ontology* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2002),

26. See also Hacking, *Social Construction of What?*

伊恩·黑客, 历史本体论(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 2002), 26?

35. Hacking, *Social Construction of What?*, 32.

黑客，什么的社会建设？，32。

36. Kwame Anthony Appiah, *The Ethics of Identity* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2005), 66.

奎迈·安东尼·阿皮亚，《身份的伦理学》(普林斯顿，新泽西州：普林斯顿大学出版社，2005)，66页。

37. Josephson [Storm], *Invention of Religion in Japan*, 76–77. See also Robert Goldstone and Brian Rogosky, “Using Relations within Conceptual Systems to Translate across Conceptual Systems,” *Cognition* 84 (2002): 295–320.

约瑟夫森[风暴]，《宗教在日本的发明》，76–77。参见 Robert Goldstone 和 Brian Rogosky，“使用概念系统中的关系来翻译概念系统”，*Cognition* 84(2002)：295–320。

38. See Josephson [--Storm], *The Invention of Religion in Japan*, 257–59. But I wasn’t yet using the technical terms “dynamic--nominalist” or “social kind.”

参见 Josephson [-Storm]，《宗教在日本的发明》，257–59。但我还没有使用技术术语“动态唯名论”或“社会类型”

39. Ruth Millikan, *Beyond Concepts: Unicepts, Language, and Natural Information* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2017), 17.

Ruth Millikan, *Beyond Concepts: Unicepts, Language, and Natural information-tion* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2017)，17。

40. We can see this in internet memes, which are both imitative and regularly changing, and in the evolving meanings of the term “meme” itself—see Limor Shifman, *Memes in Digital Culture* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 2014).

我们可以在互联网模因中看到这一点，它们既是模仿的，又是定期变化的，在“模因”这个术语本身不断变化的含义中也可以看到这一点——参见 Limor Shifman, *Memes in Digital Culture* (剑桥：麻省理工学院出版社，2014)。

41. David Edmonds and John Eidinow, *Wittgenstein’s Poker* (London: Faber & Faber, 2002), 33.

David Edmonds 和 John Eidinow, *Wittgenstein’s Poker* (伦敦：Faber & Faber, 2002)，33。

42. Cited in Millikan, *On Clear and Confused Ideas*, 26.

引自 Millikan, *On Clear and Confused Ideas*, 26。

43. Shancen Zhao et al., “Whole--Genome Sequencing of Giant Pandas Provides Insights into Demographic History and Local Adaptation,” *Nature Genetics* 45 (16 December 2012): 67.

赵善岑等，“大熊猫全基因组测序提供了人口统计学历史和地方适应性的见解”，《自然遗传学》，第45期(2012年12月16日)：第67页。

44. Millikan, *On Clear and Confused Ideas*, 22.

Millikan, *On Clear and Confused Ideas*, 22 Millikan, *On Clear and Confused Ideas*, 22.

45. The term “mimesis” has proliferated in theory circles to mean a dozen incompatible things, but the basic meaning of Greek μίμησις was to imitate or copy.

“模仿”这个词在理论界已经泛滥成灾，意味着十几种不相容的东西，但是希腊语的基本意思是模仿或复制。

46. René Girard, “Mimesis and Violence: Perspectives in Cultural Criticism,”

勒内·吉拉德，《模仿与暴力：文化批评的视角》
Berkshire Review 14 (1979): 9–19.

47. See James Mahoney, “Path Dependence in Historical Sociology,” *Theory and Society* 29, no. 4 (2000): 507–48; see also Paul David, “Path Dependence, Its Critics and the Quest for ‘Historical Economics,’” in *The Evolution of Economic Institutions*, ed. Geoffrey Martin Hodgson (Northampton: Edward Elgar, 2007), 120–42; and Paul Pierson, “Increasing Returns, Path Dependence, and the Study of Politics,” *The American Political Science Review* 94, no. 2 (2000): 251–67.

48. Although the issue is still debated, see Paul David, “Clio and the Economics of QWERTY,” *The American Economic Review* 75, no. 2 (1985): 332–37.

尽管这个问题仍然存在争议，参见保罗·大卫的《克里奥与 QWERTY 的经济学》，《美国经济评论》75，第 2 期(1985)：332-37。

49. Ergonic, from the Greek ἔργον (érgon) “work” or “function.” The term is mainly an attempt to avoid the negative associations of functionalism in anthropology and the implausible account of functionalism in evolutionary psychology.

Ergonic，来自希腊语 something ἔργον (ergon)“工作”或“功能”这个术语主要是为了避免功能主义在人类学中的负面关联，以及进化心理学中对功能主义的难以置信的解释。

50. C. Tristan Stayton, “The Definition, Recognition, and Interpretation of Convergent Evolution, and Two New Measures for Quantifying and Assessing the Significance of Convergence,” *Evolution* 69, no. 8 (2015): 2140–53.

C. Tristan Stayton, “收敛进化的定义、识别和解释，以及量化和评估收敛的 sig 意义的两种新方法”，*Evolution* 69, no. 8(2015)：2140-53。

51. Ogura Atsushi, Ikeo Kazuho, and Gojobori Takashi, “Comparative Analysis of Gene Expression for Convergent Evolution of Camera Eye between Octopus and Human,” *Genome Research* 14, no. 8 (2004): 1555–61. Khalidi, *Natural Categories*, 132–33.

Ogura Atsushi, Ikeo Kazuho, 和 Gojobori Takashi, “章鱼和人类摄像眼趋同演化的基因表达比较分析”，《基因组研究》14，第 8 期(2004)：1555-61。Khalidi, *Natural Categories*, 132-33.

52. I find carcinization to be especially striking as at least six independent groups of crustaceans seem to have independently converged on crab-like body plans. So I guess: *viva la crustacean!*

我发现癌变特别引人注目，因为至少有六个独立的甲壳类动物群体似乎已经独立地聚集在类似螃蟹的身体计划上。所以我想：甲壳动物万岁！

53. Example from David Papineau, "Can Any Sciences Be Special?" In *Emergence in Mind*, ed. Graham Macdonald and Cynthia Macdonald (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2010), 179-97.

大卫·帕皮诺的例子：“任何科学都是特殊的吗？”在《思维中的紧急情况》，ed. 格雷厄姆·麦克唐纳和辛西娅·麦克唐纳(牛津：牛津大学出版社，2010)，179-97。

54. Jill Pruetz and Paco Bertolani, "Savanna Chimpanzees, *Pan Troglodytes Verus*, Hunt with Tools," *Current Biology* 17, no. 5 (2007): 412-17.

吉尔·普鲁兹和帕科·贝托拉尼，“热带草原黑猩猩，泛穴居动物对抗，用工具狩猎”，《当代生物学》第17期，第5期(2007)：412-17页。

55. Susan G. Josephson, *From Idolatry to Advertising: Visual Art and Contemporary Culture* (New York: Routledge, 1996).

从偶像崇拜到广告：视觉艺术和当代文化(纽约：Routledge，1996)。

56. Bread is another good example of ergonic convergence. A range of different cultures have converged on parallel ways of producing similar foodstuffs from wheat.

面包是人体工程学融合的另一好例子。一系列不同的文化已经汇聚在平行的方式生产类似的食物从小麦。

57. Steven Rose, *The 21st Century Brain: Explaining, Mending and Manipulating the Mind* (London: Vintage, 2006), 83. I also reject the notion that humans are a blank slate with zero innate cognitive predispositions.

史蒂文·罗斯，《21世纪的大脑：解释、修补和操纵大脑》(伦敦：2006年出版)，83页。我也反对认为人类是一张白纸，没有任何先天的认知倾向的观点。

58. Alan Garfinkel, *Forms of Explanation: Structures of Inquiry in Social Science* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1981), 129.

《解释的形式：社会科学的探究结构》(纽黑文：耶鲁大学出版社，1981年)，129页。

59. See Jon Elster, "Snobs," *London Review of Books* (1981): 10-12.

参见乔恩·厄斯特《势利小人》，《伦敦书评》(1981)：10-12。

60. Jon Elster, *Explaining Social Behavior: More Nuts and Bolts for the Social Sciences* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2007), 5.

乔恩·厄斯特，《解释社会行为：社会科学的更多细节》(纽约：剑桥大学出版社，2007)，5。

61. A social formation can be explained in terms of its consequences only if there is something that amounts to a feedback loop that relates a choice to the consequences involved.

只有当存在某种相当于反馈回路的东西，将选择与所涉及的后果联系在一起时，才能用其后果来解释社会形态。

62. Anthony Giddens has persuasively argued that it is a mistake to think about institutions originating in broad societal functions; rather, he says they typically emerge from individual actors and their concrete needs. See Anthony Giddens, *A Contemporary Critique of Historical Materialism* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1981).

安东尼·吉登斯(Anthony Giddens)令人信服地指出,认为机构起源于广泛的社会功能是错误的;相反,他表示,这些机构通常来自个体行为者及其具体需求。参见安东尼·吉登斯,《历史唯物主义的当代批判》(伯克利:加利福尼亚大学出版社,1981)。

63. For the latter, I have in mind work like Michael Hannon, *What's the Point of Knowledge: A Function--First Epistemology* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018).

对于后者,我想到了 Michael Hannon 的著作《知识的意义是什么:函数优先的认识论》(牛津:牛津大学出版社,2018)。

64. See Mills, *Blackness Visible*, 51–54 for different contradictory ways racial identities are anchored or constructed in the United States.

参见米尔斯,《可见的黑暗》,51-54,关于种族身份在美国固定或构建的不同矛盾方式。

65. For my call for reflexive religious studies, see Josephson--Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment*, 11–16. I model this on the reflexive sociology promoted by theorists such as Ulrich Beck, Pierre Bourdieu, Anthony Giddens, Alvin Gouldner, and others.

关于我对反思性宗教研究的呼吁,请参见约瑟夫森-斯托姆,《幻灭的神话》,11-16。我以理论家 Ulrich Beck, Pierre Bourdieu, Anthony Giddens, Alvin Gouldner 等人提倡的自反社会学为模型。

66. Space prohibits a fuller explanation of how “reflexive religious studies” re-lates to the forms of critical religion spearheaded by Russell McCutcheon. Suffice it to say, I think of these as allied projects but with different points of emphasis and techniques. Moreover, my broader end goal is to expand this reflexivity beyond the confines of religious studies (or sociology) and toward the human sciences in general.

Space 禁止对“反身性宗教研究”如何与由 Russell McCutcheon 带头的批判性宗教形式联系起来进行更全面的解释。简而言之,我认为这些都是联合项目,但是有着不同的重点和技术。此外,我更广泛的最终目标是扩展这种反身性-超越宗教研究(或社会学)的范围,并向一般的人文科学。

67. Michael Ghiselin, “A Radical Solution to the Species Problem,” *Systematic Biology* 23, no. 4 (1974): 536–44. See also Ghiselin, *Metaphysics and the Origin of Species* (Ithaca, NY: SUNY Press, 1997).

迈克尔·吉斯林,“物种问题的根本解决方案”,《系统生物学》23,第4期(1974):536-44。参见Ghiselin的《形而上学与物种起源》(Ithaca, NY: SUNY 出版社,1997)。

68. See Myron Rothbart and Marjorie Taylor, “Category Labels and Social Reality: Do We View Social Categories as Natural Kinds?” in *Language, Interaction*

参见 Myron Rothbart 和 Marjorie Taylor, “分类标签和社会现实:我们是否将社会分类视为自然种类?”语言,互动

and *Social Cognition*, ed. Klaus Fiedler and Gün Semin (London: Sage, 1992), 以及社会认知, 克劳斯·菲德勒和贡森敏(伦敦: Sage, 1992), 11–36; and Susan Gelman, *The Essential Child: Origins of Essentialism in Everyday* 苏珊·格尔曼, 《基本的孩子: 日常生活中基本主义的起源》

Thought (New York: Oxford University Press, 2003).

思想(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2003)。

69. Haslanger, *Resisting Reality*.

Haslanger 反抗现实。

70. Karl Marx and Friedrich Engels, *The German Ideology* (New York: International Publishers, 1970), 65–66.

卡尔·马克思和弗里德里希·恩格斯, 《德意志意识形态》(纽约: 国际出版社, 1970年), 65–66 页。

71. Theodor Adorno, *Negative Dialektik* (Frankfurt: Suhrkamp, 1966), 21–22.

西奥多·阿多诺, 《否定方言》(法兰克福: 苏尔坎普, 1966), 第21–22页。

72. Kwame Gyekye, *An Essay on African Philosophical Thought* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1995).

Kwame Gyekye, 《论非洲哲学思想》(费城: 天普大学出版社, 1995)。

73. See Herman Cappelen, *Fixing language: An Essay on Conceptual Engineering* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018).

见 hermancappelen, 《固定语言: 概念工程论》(Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018)。

74. “Taxonomy, Polymorphism, and History,” 3.

分类学, 多态性和历史, 3。

75. Jonathan Z. Smith, *Imagining Religion* (Chicago: The University of Chicago Press, 1988), 21.

《想象宗教》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1988年), 21 页。

76. Except lacking in the scalar self-similarity that define fractals.

除了缺乏定义分形的标量自相似性。

77. F.A. Hayek, “The Theory of Complex Phenomena,” in *Critical Approaches to Science & Philosophy*, ed. Mario Augusto Bunge (New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Publishers, 1999), 332–49.

哈耶克, “复杂现象的理论”, 科学与哲学批判方法, 主编。Mario Augusto Bunge (New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Publishers, 1999), 332–49.

78. Karl Mannheim, *Ideology and Utopia: An Introduction to the Sociology of Knowledge* (London: Routledge, 201).

卡尔·曼海姆, 《意识形态与乌托邦: 知识社会学导论》(London: Routledge, 201)。

79. An outgrowth of Boyd’s theory has been the “simple causal theory of natural kinds” proposed as a thought experiment by Carl Craver and developed by Muhammad Ali Khalidi. It drops the notion of property clusters and instead identifies natural kinds solely with causal processes. See Khalidi, *Natural Categories*; and Carl Craver, “Mechanisms and Natural Kinds,” *Philosophical Psychology* 22, no. 5 (2009): 575–94. But this is a mistake for social kinds because it misses the distinction between properties and the processes that anchor those properties.

博伊德理论的一个产物是“自然类型的简单因果理论”，由卡尔·克雷弗提出，并由穆罕默德·阿里·哈立迪发展为一个思想实验。它抛弃了属性集群的概念，而是仅仅通过因果过程来识别自然种类。参见《自然分类》，卡尔·克雷弗，《机制与自然分类》，《哲学心理学》22期，第5期(2009): 575-94页。但是，这是一个错误的社会类型，因为它忽略了属性和锚定这些属性的过程之间的区别。

80. Craver, “Mechanisms.”

Craver, 《机制》

81. This is what Steven Pinker has called a “euphemism treadmill.” Steven Pinker, *The Blank Slate* (New York: Penguin, 2003), 212. See also Matthew Mc-Glone, Gary Beck, and Abigail Pfister, “Contamination and Camouflage in Euphemisms,” *Communication Monographs* 73, no. 3 (2006): 261–82.

这就是史蒂文·平克(Steven Pinker)所说的“委婉语跑步机”Steven Pinker, *The Blank Slate* (纽约: 企鹅出版社, 2003), 212页。参见 Matthew Mc-Glone, Gary Beck, and Abigail Pfister, “欧盟假说中的污染和伪装”, 沟通专著 73, no. 3(2006): 261-82。

82. See Matthew Melvin-Koushki, “Is (Islamic) Occult Science Science?” *Theology and Science* 18, no. 2 (2020): 303–24.

参见 Matthew Melvin-Koushki, “Is (Islamic) Occult Science Science?” *Theology and Science* 18, no. 2(2020): 303-24。

83. David Chalmers, “Verbal Disputes,” *Philosophical Review* 120, no. 4 (2011): 515–66.

大卫·查尔莫斯, 《口头争论》, 哲学评论 120, 第4期(2011): 515-66。

84. It is not uncommon for ethnographic subjects to tell researchers that some particular cultural feature has always been the way it is, when archival research reveals otherwise.

人种学的研究对象告诉研究人员, 一些特定的文化特征一直以来都是如此, 这种情况并不少见, 而档案研究却揭示了其他情况。

85. Sonia Harmand et al., “3.3--Million--Year--Old Stone Tools from Lomekwi 3, West Turkana, Kenya,” *Nature* 521, no. 7552 (2015): 310–15.

Sonia harm and et al. , “来自肯尼亚西图尔卡纳洛美奎 3 号的 330 万年前的石器”, *Nature* 521, no. 7552(2015): 310-15。

86. See Josephson [Storm], *Invention of Religion in Japan*. I hope to revisit this (and other case studies) in subsequent research with a more careful eye to a range of anchoring processes (and I hope others will join me). So please look to my professional blog for follow--ups.

见约瑟夫森[风暴], 《发明宗教在日本》。我希望在随后的研究中能够更仔细地关注一系列锚定过程(我希望其他人也能加入我的行列), 重新审视这一点(以及其他案例研究)。所以, 请关注我的专业博客以获得后续信息。

Chapter Five 第五章

1. For a fuller account, see Jason Ānanda Josephson Storm, “Dark Gods in the Age of Light: The Lightbulb, the Japanese ‘Deification’ of Thomas Edison, and the Entangled Constructions of Religion and Science,” in *Critical Approaches to Science and Religion* ed. Myrna Perez Sheldon, Ahmed Ragab, and Terence Keel (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, forthcoming).

更详细的描述见 Jason Ānanda Josephson Storm, “光明时代的黑暗之神: 灯泡, 日本对托马斯·爱迪生的神化, 以及宗教和科学的纠缠结构”, 在科学和宗教教育的批判性方法中。Myrna Perez Sheldon, Ahmed Ragab, and Terence Keel (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, forthcoming).

2. Derek Bickerton, *Language and Species* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1990), 7.
Derek Bickerton, 《语言与物种》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1990), 7。

3. Masataka Nobuo, “Psycholinguistic Analyses of Alarm Calls of Japanese Monkeys (*Macaca fuscata fuscata*),” *American Journal of Primatology* 5, no. 2 (1983): 111–25; Jean-Baptiste Leca, Michael Huffman, and Paul Vasey, eds., *The Monkeys of Stormy Mountain: 60 Years of Primatological Research on the Japanese Macaques of Arashiyama* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2012); and Julia Fischer, *Monkeytalk: Inside the Worlds and Minds of Primates* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2017).

Masataka Nobuo, “日本猴子警报叫声的心理语言学分析”, 《美国灵长类动物学杂志》第5期, 第2期(1983): 111-25; Jean-Baptiste Leca, Michael Huffman, Paul Vasey, 编辑。《暴风山的猴子: 关于日本猴子的 Arashiyama 的灵长类动物学研究 60 年》(纽约: 剑桥大学出版社, 2012); 和 Julia Fischer, 《猴子对话: 灵长类动物的世界和思想内幕》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2017)。

4. Robert Seyfarth, Dorothy Cheney, and Peter Marler, “Vervet Monkey Alarm Calls: Semantic Communication in a Free-Ranging Primate,” *Animal Behavior* 28, no. 4 (1980): 1070–94.

罗伯特·塞法斯, 多萝西·切尼和彼得·马勒, 《黑猩猩的警报: 灵长类自由活动中的语义交流》, 《动物行为》, 第28卷, 第4期(1980): 1070-94页。

5. J.R. Anderson and R.W. Mitchell, “Macaques but Not Lemurs Co-Orient Visually with Humans,” *Folia Primatologica* 70, no. 1 (1999): 17–22.

J·R·安德森和R·W·米切尔, 《猕猴而非狐猴与人类的共同东方联盟》, 《灵长类动物学》70卷第1期(1999年): 第17-22页。

6. If one insists on defining language in anthropocentric terms—e.g., Angela Friederici, *Language In Our Brain* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 2017)—then this chapter could be thought of as exploring the shared protolinguistic basis of human and animal communication.

如果一个人坚持用以人类为中心的术语来定义语言——例如, Angela Friederici, *Language In Our Brain* (剑桥: 麻省理工学院出版社, 2017)——那么这一章可以被认为是在探索人类和动物交流的共同原语言基础。

7. Taylor, "Interpretation and the Sciences of Man."

泰勒，《解释与人类科学》

8. The phrase "material semiotics" is sometimes treated as a synonym for actor--network--theory. We do not mean it in that sense.

短语“材料符号学”有时被视为演员-网络理论的同义词。我们不是这个意思。

9. Theorists referred to include centrally Richard Boyd, Ruth Millikan, Donna Haraway, and Jakob von Uexküll. But also Stacy Alaimo, Arjun Appadurai, Karen Barad, David Chalmers, Andy Clark, Marcel Danesi, Daniel Dennett, Umberto Eco, Brian Epstein, Donald Griffin, Martin Heidegger, Edmund Husserl, Edwin Hutchins, Ichikawa Hiroshi, Eduardo Kohn, John McGraw, Thomas Nagel, Thomas Sebeok, David Skrbina, Daniel Sperber, Bernard Steigler, Tanaka-Ishii Kumiko, Kristian Tylén, Lev Vygotsky, and Robert Yelle. All are cited in the relevant notes.

被提及的理论家中心包括理查德·博伊德，露丝·米利肯，唐娜·哈拉维和雅各布·冯·尤克斯库尔。还有 Stacy Alaimo Arjun Appadurai Karen Barad David Chalmers Andy Clark Marcel Danesi Daniel Dennett Umberto Eco Brian Epstein Donald Griffin martin heidegger Edmund Husserl Edwin Hutchins Ichikawa Hiroshi Eduardo Kohn John McGraw Thomas Nagel Thomas Sebeok David skrina Daniel Sperber Bernard Steigler Tanaka-Ishii Kumiko Kristian tylen Lev Vygotsky 和 Robert Yelle。所有这些都引用在相关的笔记中。

10. See Claire Colebrook, "The Linguistic Turn in Continental Philosophy," in *Poststructuralism and Critical Theory's Second Generation*, ed. Alan Schrift (London: Routledge, 2014), 279–309; for the others see below.

参见克莱尔科尔布鲁克，“大陆哲学的语言学转向”，在后结构主义和批判理论的第二代，编辑。Alan Schrift (London: Routledge, 2014)，279-309; 其他人见下文。

11. I am assuming most of my readers are not analytical philosophers. So for space reasons, I have had to cut my fuller reconstruction and arguments against Quine, Wittgenstein, Putnam, and Kripke. I hope to publish them elsewhere. For further details, see my professional website: <http://absolute--disruption.com>.

我假设我的大多数读者不是分析哲学家。因此，由于篇幅的原因，我不得不停止对奎因、维特根斯坦、普特南和克里普克进行更全面的重构和反驳。我希望在其他地方发表它们。欲了解更多细节，请访问我的专业网站: <http://absolute-disruption.com>。

12. Ferdinand de Saussure, *Course in General Linguistics* (New York: Philosophical Library, 1959), 67, emphasis in original. [Hereafter cited as *CGL*.]

弗迪南·德·索绪尔，《普通语言学教程》(纽约: 哲学图书馆, 1959年)，67页，原文重点

13. Saussure made it clear that he was not suggesting that a given sign is up to索绪尔明确表示，他并不是在暗示某个特定的符号取决于

individual choice; and later, in less read passages, he observed that once a language had committed to particular phonetic conventions this served to constrain possible signifiers. Saussure also qualified this arbitrariness of the sign with reference to onomatopoeias. *CGL*, 69.

后来, 在阅读较少的段落中, 他观察到, 一旦一种语言遵循了特定的语音习惯, 就会限制可能的能指。索绪尔也用拟声词来限定符号的任意性。CGL, 69.

14. *CGL*, 66–67.

CGL 66–67.

15. *CGL*, 114–17.

CGL, 114–17.

16. Claude Lévi-Strauss, *Structural Anthropology* (New York: Basic Books, 1974), 93.

克洛德·列维-斯特劳斯, 结构人类学(纽约: 基础图书, 1974), 93。

17. Derrida explicitly rejects this as a common misreading of his work in Richard Kearney, ed., *Dialogues with Contemporary Continental Thinkers* (Manchester: Manchester University Press, 1984), 123–24.

德里达明确反对这一点, 认为这是对他《与当代大陆思想家的对话》(曼彻斯特: 曼彻斯特大学出版社, 1984年), 123–24中的著作的普遍误读。

18. Emphasis in original. Catherine Belsey, *Poststructuralism* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2002), 10.

凯瑟琳·贝尔西, 后结构主义(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 2002), 10。

19. W.V.O. Quine, *Word & Object*, 2nd ed. (Cambridge: MIT Press, 2013), 69, quoting Wittgenstein's *Blue and Brown Books*.

(剑桥: 麻省理工出版社, 2013), 69, 引用维特根斯坦的蓝皮书和棕皮书。

20. Taylor, “Interpretation and the Sciences of Man.” But the problem is far from insoluble. Texts can be read more than once. All we need to know is local context, not the text as a whole. Moreover, we can grant uncertainty in meaning.

泰勒, “解释与人类科学”但这个问题远非无法解决。文本可以阅读不止一次。我们需要知道的只是当地的环境, 而不是文本的整体。此外, 我们可以赋予意义上的不确定性。

21. Here I am recasting part of Derrida's critique. See for example Jacques Derrida, *Margins of Philosophy*, trans. Alan Bass (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1982), 3. Although to be fair, Saussure also described meaning in terms of similarity and not just difference.

在这里, 我重新诠释了德里达的部分批判。例如, 雅克·德里达, 《哲学边缘》, 翻译。阿兰·巴斯(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1982), 3。虽然公平地说, 索绪尔也描述了意义的相似性, 而不仅仅是差异。

22. Geoffrey Bennington, *Not Half No End* (Edinburgh: Edinburgh University Press, 2011), 133.

Geoffrey Bennington, *Not Half No End* (Edinburgh: Edinburgh university press, 2011), 133.

23. For one account of the value of semiotics for Religious Studies specifically, see Robert Yelle, *Semiotics of Religion* (London: Bloomsbury, 2013).

关于符号学在宗教研究中的价值，请参阅罗伯特·耶尔的《宗教符号学》(伦敦: 布鲁姆斯伯里出版社, 2013)。

24. For some of these, see Michael Dummett, “What Is a Theory of Meaning?” in *Mind and Language*, ed. Samuel Guttenplan (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1975). While many linguists have produced theories of meaning in terms of the above, most analytic philosophers identify meaning with what determines truth conditions; but while my account is not incompatible with such, for reasons the next section will make clear I do not aim to provide a theory of truth. From the vantage of analytic philosophy what follows is closer to pragmatics than to semantics.

对于其中的一些，请看迈克尔·达米特的《什么是意义理论》在《思想与语言》一书中。塞缪尔·古腾计划(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 1975)。虽然许多语言学家已经提出了上述的意义理论，但大多数分析哲学家认为意义与决定真理条件的东西是一致的; 但是，虽然我的说法与此并不矛盾，由于种种原因，下一节将明确指出，我并不打算提供一个真理理论。从分析哲学的角度来看，接下来的内容更接近于语用学而不是语义学。

25. Jacques Derrida, *De la Grammatologie* (Paris: Éditions de Minuit, 1967).

Jacques Derrida, *De la Grammatologie* (Paris: éditions De Minuit, 1967).

26. David Nye, *The Invented Self: An Anti--Biography from Documents of Thomas A. Edison* (Odense: Odense University Press, 1983), 16–17, 118, 198.

戴维·奈，《虚构的自我: 来自托马斯·爱迪生文献的反传记》(欧登塞大学出版社, 1983)，16-17, 118, 198。

27. Nye, *Invented Self*, 118.

奈，《发明自我》，118 页。

28. For example, Stacy Alaimo and Susan J. Hekman, *Material Feminisms* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2008), 1.

例如，Stacy Alaimo 和 Susan j. Hekman，《材料女性主义》(Bloomington: indiana university press, 2008)，1。

29. Emphasis added. Rick Dolphijn and Iris van der Tuin, eds., *New Materialism: Interviews & Cartographies* (Ann Arbor, MI: Open Humanities Press, 2012), 21. *Ism: 访谈与制图*(安娜堡, 密歇根州: 开放人文出版社, 2012)，21。

30. Karen Barad, “Posthumanist Performativity: Toward an Understanding of How Matter Comes to Matter,” *Signs* 28, no. 3 (2003): 801–31. For other examples,

Karen Barad, “后人类主义的表演能力: 走向对物质如何变成物质的理解”，标志 28, no. 3(2003): 801-31。其他的例子，

see Diana H. Coole and Samantha Frost, *New Materialisms: Ontology, Agency, and* 见戴安娜·h·库尔和萨曼莎·弗罗斯特，《新唯物主义：本体论、代理理论和
Politics (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010), 6; Tamsin Jones, “Introduction -
政治 (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010), 6; Tamsin Jones,
“introduction -

tion: New Materialism and the Study of Religion,” in *Religious Experience and New*
书名：《新唯物主义与宗教研究》，宗教经验与新

Materialism: Movement Matters, ed. Joerg Rieger and Edward Waggoner (Basing-
唯物主义：运动至关重要，约尔格·里格尔和爱德华·瓦格纳

stoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2016), 8; and Sarah Ellen Zweig and John H. Zammito, eds.,
The New Politics of Materialism: History, Philosophy, Science (New York: Routledge,
2017), 2.

帕尔格雷夫·麦克米兰(palgrave macmillan), 2016), 8; 莎拉·埃伦茨威格(Sarah
Ellen Zweig)和约翰·h·赞米托(John h. Zammito)编著，《唯物主义的新政治：历
史，哲学，科学》(The New Politics of Materialism: History, Philosophy,
Science), 2。

31. Irena Makaryk, ed., *Encyclopedia of Contemporary Literary Theory* (Toronto:
University of Toronto Press, 1997), 505.

《当代文学理论百科全书》(多伦多: 多伦多大学出版社, 1997年), 505。

32. Jason Ānanda Josephson Storm, “Derrida on the Network,” unpublished
manuscript, last revised 2014. (Hopefully, I’ll polish it and put a version on my
professional website). Saussure uses “structure” three times and “assemblage” five
times in *Cours de linguistique générale*.

杰森·南达·约瑟夫森·斯托姆(Jason nanda Josephson Storm), 《网络上的德
里达》(Derrida on the Network), 未出版手稿, 最后修订于2014年。(希望我能
把它润色一下, 放到我的专业网站上)。Saussure 在普通语言学教程中使用了三
次“结构”和五次“组合”。

33. For example, Judith Butler and her theory of performativity shifted from
discourse and speech acts to mattering. Although to be fair, I find her work highly
useful.

例如, 朱迪思·巴特勒和她的表演性理论从话语和言语行为转向了重要性。
虽然公平地说, 我发现她的工作非常有用。

34. I have not yet said anything that Latour would disagree with given his own
recent repudiation of ANT in Bruno Latour, *An Inquiry into Modes of Existence*
(Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2013).

考虑到拉图尔最近在《布鲁诺·拉图尔: 对存在模式的探究》(Bruno Latour,
An Inquiry into Modes of Existence, Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2013)一
书中对 ANT 的否定, 我还没有说过任何拉图尔不同意的话。

35. Sometimes material agency is contrasted with a strawman Cartesian
mechanism that ignores the history of twentieth-century physics.

有时, 材料的作用机制与忽视二十世纪物理学历史的笛卡尔机制形成对比。

36. David Tagnani, “Toward a Material Jeffers: Mysticism and the New Materi-
alism,” In *Ecopoetics and the Global Landscape: Critical Essays*, ed. Isabel Sobral
Campos (Lanham, MD: Lexington Books, 2019), 218.

David Tagnani, “朝向物质的杰弗斯: 神秘主义和新物质主义”, In *Ecopoetics and the Global Landscape: Critical Essays*, ed. Isabel Sobral Campos (Lanham, MD: Lexington Books, 2019), 218.

37. Jane Bennett, *Vibrant Matter: A Political Ecology of Things* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010), 5–6.

Jane Bennett, *Vibrant Matter: a political ecology of Things* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010), 5-6.

38. For a parallel critique of New Materialism, see Christian Thorne, “To the Political Ontologists,” in Thorne, “Commonplace Book” (blog), posted May 10, 2012. <https://sites.williams.edu/cthorne/articles/to-the-political-ontologists/>

关于对新唯物主义的类似批判, 参见克里斯蒂安·索恩的《致政治本体论者》, 发表于2012年5月10日的《常识之书》(博客)。 <https://sites.williams.edu/cthorne/articles/to-the-political-ontologists/>

39. Karen Barad, *Meeting the Universe Halfway* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2007), 3.

Karen Barad, *Meeting the Universe Halfway* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2007), 3.

40. See John Sowa, “Signs, Processes, and Language Games: Foundations for Ontology,” in *ICCS '01: Proceedings of the 9th International Conference on Conceptual Structures, ICCS'01*, ed. Harry S. Delugach and Gerd Stumme (Berlin: Springer Verlag, 2001), 1–44.

参见约翰索瓦, “符号, 过程和语言游戏: 本体论的基础”, 在 ICCS'01: 第九届国际概念结构会议记录, ICCS'01, 编辑。Delugach and Gerd Stumme (Berlin: Springer Verlag, 2001), 1-44.

41. The main exceptions being, of course, the discussion of natural kinds in the semantics of Putnam, Kripke, and company.

当然, 主要的例外是在帕特南、克里普克和公司的语义中对自然种的讨论。

42. Here I am departing from Millikan's articulation of a “clumpy world,” although I'm trying to get even more minimal. Ruth Garrett Millikan, *Beyond Concepts: Unicepts, Language, and Natural Information* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2017). In this respect, I am trying to describe what Subcomandante Marcos poetically referred to as “a world in which many worlds fit.” See Subcomandante Marcos, *Our Word Is Our Weapon: Selected Writings*, ed. Juana Ponce de León (New York: Seven Stories Press, 2002), 80.

在这里, 我偏离了 Millikan 关于“块状世界”的阐述, 尽管我试图把它变得更小。Ruth Garrett Millikan, *Beyond concepts: Unicepts, Language, and Natural Information* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2017). 在这方面, 我试图描述副司令马科斯诗意地称之为“一个适合多个世界的世界”见副司令马科斯, 我们的词是我们的武器: 选集, 编辑。胡安娜·庞塞·德莱昂(《纽约: 七故事出版社》, 2002), 80 页。

43. For theories of vagueness, see Richard Dietz and Sebastiano Moruzzi, eds., *Cuts and Clouds: Vagueness, Its Nature and Its Logic* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2010).

关于模糊性的理论, 参见 Richard Dietz 和 Sebastiano Moruzzi 编辑的《切割与云: 模糊性及其本质和逻辑》(牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 2010)。

44. See Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*.

参见 Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*。

45. Time doesn't even have to flow in one direction.

时间甚至不需要向一个方向流动。

46. The external world can't be completely illusionary.

外部世界不可能是完全虚幻的。

47. People with vision impairment or who are hard of hearing (or both) are likely to be prioritize different senses, but the point still stands.

视力障碍或听力有问题的人(或两者兼而有之)可能会优先考虑不同的感官, 但这一点仍然成立。

48. For instance, you can at least in principle see, touch, hear, and maybe even taste a sparrow (although as a vegetarian I'll recommend you do so gently). For an account of *robustness*, see Wimsatt, "Ontology of Complex Systems."

例如, 你至少可以在原则上看到, 触摸, 听到, 甚至可能尝到一只麻雀(虽然作为一个素食主义者, 我会建议你这样做温和)。对于健壮性的描述, 参见 Wimsatt, “复杂系统的本体论”

49. In Uexküll's technical language, the cat and I may inhabit separate *Um-welten*, but they overlap.

在 Uexküll 的技术语言中, 猫和我可能生活在不同的 *Um-welten* 中, 但是它们是重叠的。

50. Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*, argues for a similar ontology (although more contemporary science and less minimalist).

Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*, 主张类似的本体论(尽管更多的是当代科学而不是极简主义)。

51. I am neither presuming nor refuting sentient beings' ability to access *Ding an sich*.

我既不假定也不反駁有情众生进入自我的能力。

52. Steven Pinker, *The Language Instinct* (New York: Morrow, 1994). See also Daniel Casasanto, "Who's Afraid of the Big Bad Whorf?" *Language Learning* 58 (2008): 63–79; and Phillip Wolff and Kevin Holmes, "Linguistic Relativity," *Wiley Interdisciplinary Reviews: Cognitive Science*, no. 3 (2011): 253–65. Donald Davidson has argued that the whole idea of a worldview is incoherent—see below.

史蒂文·平克, 《语言本能》(纽约: 明天, 1994)。参见丹尼尔·卡萨桑托的《谁害怕大恶魔?》萨丕尔-沃夫假说: 语言学习 58(2008): 63-79; 菲利普·沃尔夫和凯文·霍姆斯, “语言相对论”, 《威利跨学科评论: 认知科学》, 第3期(2011): 253-65。唐纳德·戴维森(Donald Davidson)认为整个世界观的概念是不连贯的——见下文。

53. For animals, see José Luis Bermúdez, *Thinking Without Words* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2003); and James Hurford, *The Origins of Meaning* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2007). Although *contra* Pinker, Noam Chomsky, and the various philosophers who have conceived of a kind of protolinguistic, pan-human language of thought, we actually share much less of a “deep structure” than has commonly been supposed. See Nicholas Evans and Stephen Levinson, “The Myth of Language Universals: Language Diversity and Its Importance for Cognitive Science,” *Behavioral and Brain Sciences* 32, no. 5 (2009): 429–48.

关于动物，见 José Luis Bermúdez, *Thinking Without Words* (纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2003); James Hurford, *The Origins of Meaning* (纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2007)。尽管与 Pinker、诺姆·乔姆斯基(Noa Chomsky)以及构想了一种原语言、泛人类思维语言的各种哲学家相反，我们实际上共享的“深层结构”比通常假设的要少得多。参见 Nicholas Evans 和 Stephen Levinson, “语言普遍性的神话: 语言多样性及其对认知科学的重要性”，《行为与脑科学》，第 32 期，第 5 期 (2009): 429-48 页。

54. It is also worth noting that even polemically opposed works such as Guy Deutscher, *Through the Language Glass: Why the World Looks Different in Different Languages* (New York Metropolitan Books, 2010) and John McWhorter, *The Language Hoax: Why the World Looks the Same in Any Language* (New York: Oxford University Press, Oxford) have similar views on the relationship between language and thought, both dismissing strong linguistic determinism and supporting weak linguistic relativity. The power of rhetoric has been discussed at least since the original sophists. But for more recent attempts to theorize the impact of conceptual metaphors, see George Lakoff and Mark Johnson, *Metaphors We Live By* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2008).

同样值得注意的是，即使是饱受争议的作品，如《盖伊·德奇尔，透过语言的玻璃: 为什么世界在不同的语言中看起来不同》(纽约大都会图书出版社, 2010 年)和《萨丕尔-沃夫假说: 为什么世界在任何语言中看起来都一样》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 牛津)，对语言和思维之间的关系也有类似的观点，这些观点既摒弃了强烈的语言决定论，也支持弱的语言相对论。修辞的力量至少从最初的智者时代就开始被讨论。但是，对于最近试图将概念隐喻的影响理论化的尝试，参见 George Lakoff 和 Mark Johnson 的《我们赖以生存的隐喻》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2008)。

55. Ruth Millikan, *Language: A Biological Model* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2005), 133–37.

Ruth Millikan, *Language: a Biological Model* (牛津: 牛津大学出版社, 2005), 133-37。

56. Brent Berlin and Paul Kay, *Basic Color Terms: Their Universality and Evolution* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1991); and Lawrence Barsalou,

基本颜色术语: 它们的普遍性和演化(伯克利: 加州大学出版社, 1991);

“Deriving Categories to Achieve Goals,” in *Psychology of Learning and Motivation*, ed. Gordon Bower (New York: Academic Press, 1991), 1-64.

《学习与动机心理学》，“推导类别以达到目标”。戈登·鲍尔(纽约: 学术出版社, 1991), 1-64。

57. Hilary Putnam, “The Meaning of Meaning,” in *Mind, Language and Reality* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1975), 227. Putnam’s linguistic division of labor might as well be a fantasy of the Académie Française insofar as people do not defer to experts about the meaning of their words. Experts are not regarded particularly highly in contemporary America. But even in communities where they are, we do not expect botanists to know more about the meaning of the term “elm tree” so much as we expect them to know more about plant biology. We do not defer to them for the meaning of words.

希拉里·普特南(Hilary Putnam)，《意义的意义》(The Meaning of Meaning)，in *Mind, Language and Reality* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1975)，227。普特南的语言分工可能是一个幻想的法兰西学术院，因为人们不遵守专家的意思，他们的话。在当代美国，专家并没有得到特别的重视。但是，即使在他们所在的社区，我们也不期望植物学家对“榆树”一词的含义了解更多，就像我们期望他们对植物生物学了解更多一样。我们不会因为单词的含义而听从他们的意见。

58. Hurford, *Origins of Meaning*, 5.

《意义的起源》，第5页。

59. Space prohibits a full exposition. But despite their attempts to reject such, both thinkers ended up smuggling in what amounts to concepts. Kripke, for instance, was careful to suggest that his account of naming did not cover all sorts of language, but was generally confined to proper names and natural kind terms. Even in the process of making the case for externalism, Putnam suggested that competent speakers of a language are required to share at least a concept of the “stereo-typical” features of a category to count as having acquired the meaning of a word.

太空禁止一个完整的阐述。但是，尽管两位思想家都试图拒绝这种做法，但他们最终都走私了相当于概念的东西。例如，克里普克小心翼翼地暗示，他对命名的描述并没有涵盖所有的语言，而是通常局限于专有名称和自然的善意味语。即使在为外在主义提出理由的过程中，普特南建议，一种语言的能干讲者必须至少分享一个类别的“立体典型”特征的概念，才能算作已经获得了一个词的意义。

60. Saul Kripke, *Naming and Necessity* (New York: Harvard University Press, 1980). Kripke’s model is typically called “the causal theory of reference,” but more recently Kripke has rejected this formulation in favor of “the historical chain picture.” Saul Kripke, “Naming and Necessity Revisited,” lecture, University of London, May 30, 2019.

索尔·克里普克，《命名与必然性》(纽约: 哈佛大学出版社, 1980)。Kripke的模型通常被称为“参考的因果理论”，但是最近 Kripke 拒绝了这种表述，而更倾向于“历史链图”Saul Kripke, “命名与必然性再探”，演讲，伦敦大学，2019年5月30日。

61. Gareth Evans and J. Altham, "The Causal Theory of Names," *Proceedings of the Aristotelian Society, Supplementary Volumes* 47 (1973): 187–225.

《名称的因果理论》，亚里士多德学会会刊，补充卷 47(1973): 187-225。

62. Here I am thinking of Quine.

我在想奎恩。

63. We also have the classic problem of what "Mark Twain is Samuel Clemens" communicates in non-descriptivist accounts of reference (see above).

我们还有一个经典的问题，那就是“马克·吐温就是塞缪尔·克莱门斯”在非描述性参照理论中所传达的信息(见上文)。

64. See Dan Ryder et al., eds. *Millikan and Her Critics* (London: Wiley, 2012, 219. 参见 Dan Ryder 等人编辑的 *Millikan 和她的批评者*(伦敦: Wiley, 2012,219)。

65. See Steven Hager, "Afrika Bambaataa's Hip Hop," *Village Voice*, September 21, 1982. Reference (or at least indicating) seems to also be basic in animal signal-ing, albeit more typically in attached signs. That is to say, while human voluntary-signs frequently exhibit "displacement" or refer to times or places separate from the speech act itself, this displacement is comparatively rare in animal commu-nication. Charles Hockett, "The Origin of Speech," *Scientific American* 203, no. 3 (1960): 88–97. But *contra*- Hockett, bees, crows, and ants at least have been ob-served to engage in displacement.

参见史蒂文·哈格，《阿非利加·班巴塔的嘻哈》，《乡村之声》，1982年9月21日。参考(或者至少是指示)似乎也是动物信号的基础，尽管更典型的是附加符号。也就是说，虽然人类自愿性符号经常表现出“置换”或指与言语行为本身分离的时间或地点，但这种置换在动物交际中相对较少见。查尔斯·霍克特，《言语起源》，《科学美国人》203，第3期(1960): 88-97。但是反霍克特，蜜蜂，乌鸦和蚂蚁至少已经被观察到参与了位移。

66. Some responses (or meanings) are probably instinctive, but learned re-sponses to calls are definitely done by way of reference fixing (see below). (Simi-larly, humans regularly communicate via non-vocal media, like sign-languages and even the written word. This suggests that our ability to apprehend meaning is independent of our ability to produce or comprehend speech.)

一些响应(或意义)可能是本能的，但学习的响应调用肯定是通过引用修正的方式完成的(见下文)。(Simi-larly，人类经常通过非声音媒介进行交流，比如手语，甚至是书面语。这表明我们理解意思的能力独立于我们产生或理解语言的能力)

67. In Frege's terms people typically do not share senses. This is also one of the reasons that conceptual analysis is a fraught methodology for philosophy.

按照 Frege 的说法，人们通常没有共同的感官。这也是为什么概念分析对于哲学分析来说是一个充满挑战的方法论。

68. Marga Reimer, “Donnellan’s Distinction/Kripke’s Test,” *Analysis* 58, no. 2 (1998): 89100.
Marga Reimer, “Donnellan’s Distinction/Kripke’s Test,” *Analysis* 58, no. 2 (1998): 89100.

69. Charles Sanders Peirce, “Issues of Pragmaticism,” in *Collected Papers of Charles Sanders Peirce*, ed. Charles Hartshorne (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1974), vol. 5:448, note 1, para. 5–6 on p. 302. [Peirce’s *Collected Papers* will hereafter be cited as *CP* followed by volume and page number.].

查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士, 《实用主义问题》, 查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士论文集。查尔斯·哈特肖恩(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1974), 卷 5:448, 注释 1, 第 5-6 段, 第 302 页。皮尔士的论文集将在下面引用为 CP, 后面跟着卷和页码。

70. Edmund Husserl, *Logical Investigations*, vol. 2 (New York: Routledge, 2015), 221–22; Dan Zahavi, *Husserl’s Phenomenology* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2008), 25–27.

Edmund Husserl, 《逻辑研究》, 第 2 卷(纽约: Routledge, 2015), 221-22; Dan Zahavi, *Husserl’s Phenomenology* (斯坦福, 加州: 斯坦福大学出版社, 2008), 25-27。

71. Martin Heidegger, “*Der Begriff der Zeit*,” in Thomas Sheehan, *Making Sense of Heidegger: A Paradigm Shift* (London: Rowman & Littlefield International, 2014), 122. See also Martin Heidegger, *History of the Concept of Time: Prolegomena* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1992), esp. 200–214.

马丁·海德格尔, 《时代的概念》, 托马斯·希恩著, 《理解海德格尔: 范式转变》(伦敦: 莱曼和赖特菲尔德出版社, 2014), 122 页。另见马丁·海德格尔, 《时间概念的历史: 序言》(布卢明顿: 印第安纳大学出版社, 1992)。200-214。

72. Martin Heidegger, *Being in Time* (London: Blackwell, 1962), 220. I am reading *Dasein* as human existence.

马丁·海德格尔, 《在时间里》(伦敦: 布莱克威尔出版社, 1962 年), 第 220 页。

73. Jakob von Uexküll, *A Foray into the Worlds of Animals and Humans* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2010), 42.

雅各布·冯·乌克斯库尔, 《进军动物和人类世界》(明尼苏达大学出版社, 2010), 42 页。

74. We follow Eduardo Kohn in bridging Peircean semiotics and the animal world, but we reject his view that humans are the only animal that makes symbols. See Eduardo Kohn, “How Dogs Dream: Amazonian Natures and the Politics of Transspecies Engagement,” *American Ethnologist* 34, no. 1 (2007): 3–24; and Eduardo Kohn, *How Forests Think: Toward an Anthropology Beyond the Human* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2013).

我们追随爱德华多·科恩在皮尔斯符号学和动物世界之间架起桥梁, 但我们拒绝接受他的观点, 即人类是唯一制造符号的动物。参见爱德华多·科恩的《狗如何做梦: 亚马逊的自然和跨物种交往的政治》, 美国民族学家 34, 第 1 期

(2007): 3-24; 爱德华多·科恩的《森林如何思考: 走向超越人类的人类学》(伯克利: 加利福尼亚大学出版社, 2013)。

75. Discussed largely in the notes that follow.
在接下来的笔记中进行了大量讨论。

76. Dorothy Cheney and Robert Seyfarth, *Baboon Metaphysics: The Evolution of a Social Mind* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2008), 7.

《狒狒形而上学: 社会心理的进化》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2008), 7。

77. See Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*. Even the humble tick, as Jakob von Uexküll classically demonstrates (see below).

参见 Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*。甚至是如 Jakob von Uexküll 所经典证明的谦卑的滴答声(见下文)。

78. H. Paul Grice, "Meaning," *The Philosophical Review* 66, no. 3 (1957): 377-88,
保罗·格赖斯, 《意义》哲学评论 66, 第3期(1957): 377-88,

377. See also H. Paul Grice, *Studies in the Way of Words* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1991). Similarly, Millikan distinguishes between informational signs (which cannot be wrong) and intentional signs (consciously produced signs which can be either true or false).

另见 h·保罗·格赖斯, 《词汇的研究》(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1991)。同样, Millikan 区分了信息性符号(不可能是错误的)和有意识的符号(有意识地产生的符号可能是正确的或错误的)。

79. Thanks to Keith McPartland for this example, and I am indebted to conversations with him for much of the content of this section.

感谢 Keith McPartland 提供了这个例子, 我也感谢他在本节的大部分内容中与我进行的交谈。

80. See Siobhan Chapman, *Paul Grice, Philosopher and Linguist* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2008).

见西沃恩·查普曼, 保罗·格赖斯, 哲学家和语言学家(贝辛斯托克: 帕尔格雷夫·麦克米兰, 2008)。

81. Christopher Gauker, *Words without Meaning* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 2003), 17.

Christopher Gauker, *Words without Meaning* (剑桥: 麻省理工学院出版社, 2003), 17。

82. Theodore Bailey, *The African Leopard: Ecology and Behavior of a Solitary Felid* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1993).

西奥多·贝利, 《非洲豹: 独居动物的生态与行为》(纽约: 哥伦比亚大学出版社, 1993)。

83. This is where Grice's emphasis on ordinary English usage of the word "means" led him astray.

这就是为什么格赖斯强调“意思是”这个词在英语中的普通用法使他误入歧途的原因。

84. Ruth Millikan, "Natural Signs," in Barry Cooper, ed., *How the World Comes*
露丝·米利肯(Ruth Millikan), 《自然的迹象》(Natural Signs), 巴里·库珀
(Barry Cooper)编辑, 《世界如何运转》(How the World Comes)

putes (Dordrecht: Springer, 2012), 500. When I argue that meaning is inference, this is basically a way of saying that meaning is information, but it is not information as an objective commodity. Meaning needs to be thought of in terms of the information extracted by a particular meaning consumer (which can include but is never purely identical to the meaning ostensibly signaled by a meaning producer). In this I am building on Milikan. But she has a tendency to reduce meaning to reference. I would argue that reference is only part of the meaning we infer. To evoke the classic example, we infer something different about Mark Twain vs. Samuel Clemens insofar as our assumptions about each is different (even if they refer to the same person).

Putes (Dordrecht: Springer, 2012), 500. 当我认为意义是推理时, 这基本上就是说意义是信息, 但它不是作为一种客观商品的信息。意义需要根据特定意义消费者提取的信息来考虑(这些信息可以包括但绝不能完全等同于意义生产者表面上所表示的意义)。在这一点上, 我建立在 Milikan 的基础上。但是她有降低意义的倾向。我认为引用只是我们推断的意义的一部分。举一个经典的例子, 我们推断马克·吐温和塞缪尔·克莱门斯的不同之处在于我们对每个人的假设是不同的(即使他们指的是同一个人)。

85. Brandon Wheeler, “Monkeys Crying Wolf? Tufted Capuchin Monkeys Use Anti-Predator Calls to Usurp Resources from Conspecifics,” *Proceedings: Biological sciences*, vol. 276, 1669 (2009): 3013–18. See also Cecilia Heyes, “Animal Mindreading: What’s the Problem?” *Psychonomic Bulletin & Review* 22, no. 2 (2015): 313–27.

Brandon Wheeler “猴子喊狼来了?” 丛生卷尾猴利用反捕食者的叫声来篡夺 conspecific 的资源, “*Proceedings: Biological sciences*, vol. 276, 1669 (2009): 3013–18. 参见 Cecilia Heyes, “动物心理恐惧: 有什么问题?” 《心理经济学公报》第22期, 第2期(2015): 313–27。

86. Cheney and Seyfarth, *Baboon Metaphysics*, 233.
Cheney and Seyfarth, 狒狒形而上学, 233。

87. In the first case, exactly what range of inputs triggers what I am calling “fly-ing predator” is an empirical question. But it is far from an unsolvable one. See K.V. Wilkes, “Talking to Cats, Rats and Bats,” *Royal Institute of Philosophy Supplement* (1997): 177–96.

在第一种情况下, 究竟什么范围的输入触发了我所说的“飞行捕食者”是一个经验问题。但这远非一个无解的问题。参见 k.v. 威尔克斯的《与猫、老鼠和蝙蝠交谈》, 皇家哲学研究所补编(1997): 177–96。

88. As James Hurford has argued, “a more voluntary act is one less immediately subject to external stimuli, and correspondingly more determined by hidden inner mental processes.” Hurford, *Origins of Meaning*, 29–30.

正如詹姆斯·赫尔福德所说, “一个更加自愿的行为是一个不那么直接地受到外部刺激, 相应地更多地由隐藏的内在心理过程决定的行为。”Hurford, *Origins of Meaning*, 29–30 Hurford, 《意义的起源》, 29–30。

89. This latter hedge is because the question of which aspect of a sign is being analyzed is task dependent. We might think of a child who gets sick on purpose in order to skip school as analyzable by their doctor in terms of the illness’s involuntary

sign aspect and by their parents in terms of their sign's voluntarily origins. Moreover, for theists the world has intentional meaning.

后者是因为分析符号的哪个方面的问题是依赖于任务的。我们可以认为，一个孩子为了逃学故意生病，他的医生可以根据疾病的一元符号方面进行分析，他的父母可以根据他们的符号的自愿起源进行分析。此外，对于有神论者来说，这个世界是有意义的。

90. Julia Fischer, *Monkeytalk: Inside the Worlds and Minds of Primates* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2017), 187. But she largely ignores tactile signaling and gesture, which seems to be more important in ape communication.

Julia Fischer, *Monkeytalk: Inside the Worlds and Minds of Primates* (芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2017), 187. 但是她在很大程度上忽略了触觉信号和手势, 这在猿类的交流中似乎更为重要。

91. Cheney and Seyfarth, *Baboon Metaphysics*, esp. 219–20.

《狒狒形而上学》，特别是 219-20。

92. Much of the relevant literature is divided between two different models: influence and information. But I would argue it is both. For various attempts to reconcile these models, see Ulrich Stegmann, ed., *Animal Communication Theory: Information and Influence* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2013).

大部分相关文献被划分为两种不同的模型: 影响和信息。但我认为两者都是。关于调和这些模型的各种尝试, 请参阅 Ulrich Stegmann 编辑的《动物传播理论: 信息与影响》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2013)。

93. Deirdre Wilson and Dan Sperber, “Relevance Theory,” in *The Handbook of Pragmatics* (Oxford: Blackwell, 2006): 606–32.

Deirdre Wilson 和 Dan Sperber, “关联理论”, 《语用学手册》(牛津: Blackwell, 2006): 606-32。

94. Delia Graff, “Shifting Sands: An Interest--Relative Theory of Vagueness,” *Philosophical Topics* 28, no. 1 (2000): 45–81.

Delia Graff, “流沙: 一个利益相关的模糊理论”, 哲学主题 28, no. 1(2000): 45-81。

95. Ernst--August Gutt, *Relevance Theory* (Dallas: Summer Institute of Linguistics, 1992), 47; and Dan Sperber and Deirdre Wilson, *Relevance: Communication and Cognition* (Malden: Blackwell, 2004), 233.

恩斯特-奥古斯特·古特, 《关联理论》(达拉斯: 语言学夏季研究所, 1992), 47; 丹·斯珀伯和迪尔德丽·威尔逊, 《关联: 沟通与认知》(马尔登: 布莱克威尔, 2004), 233。

96. Deirdre Wilson and Dan Sperber, *Meaning and Relevance* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2012), 65.

Deirdre Wilson and Dan Sperber, *Meaning and Relevance* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2012), 65.

97. Millikan, *Language*, 57–58.

Millikan, 语言, 57-58。

98. One can also refer to things that aren't physical, like triangles or your own thoughts yesterday.

也可以指非物质的东西, 比如三角形或者你昨天的想法。

99. Indeed, in the time period in question, rival scientists were actually able to communicate about phlogiston or at least pinpoint their disagreements. For this, see Philip Kitcher, "Theories, Theorists and Theoretical Change," *The Philo-sophical Review* 87, no. 4 (1978): 519–47, an excellent and generally overlooked re-sponse to Kuhn.

事实上, 在这个问题所涉及的时间段内, 竞争对手的科学家们实际上能够就燃素进行交流, 或者至少能够指出他们之间的分歧。关于这一点, 请参阅菲利普·基切尔的《理论、理论家和理论变化》, 《哲学哲学评论》87, 第4期(1978): 519-47, 这是对库恩的一个优秀而普遍被忽视的回应。

100. See Eric Hirsch, *Validity in Interpretation* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1975).

参见埃里克·赫希, 《解释的有效性》(纽黑文: 耶鲁大学出版社, 1975年)。

101. See Gutt, *Relevance Theory*, 53; Sperber and Wilson, *Relevance*, 236–37.

参见 Gutt, 关联理论, 53; Sperber 和 Wilson, 关联, 236-37。

102. Indeed, a lot of scholarly effort is wasted trying to make a particular conception consistent when the simplest explanation might be that the author in question either changed their mind or was inconsistent in their usage (e.g., maybe Aristotle's notion of *being* cannot be reconciled across his philosophical works be-cause his ideas shifted).

事实上, 当最简单的解释可能是作者改变了他们的想法或者他们的用法不一致的时候(例如, 也许亚里士多德的存在概念不能在他的哲学著作中被调和, 因为他的思想改变了), 许多学术上的努力都是浪费在试图使一个特定的概念保持一致上。

103. Ella Frances Sanders, *Lost in Translation: An Illustrated Compendium of Untranslatable Words from Around the World* (Berkeley, CA: Ten Speed Press, 2014).

埃拉·弗朗西斯·桑德斯, 《迷失在翻译中: 世界各地无法翻译的词汇的插图汇编》(伯克利, 加州: 10 Speed 出版社, 2014)。

104. Barbara Cassin, ed., *Dictionary of Untranslatables*, trans. Steven Rendall et al. (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2014), 227.

Barbara Cassin 编辑, *Dictionary of untranslatables*, trans. Steven Rendall et al. (新泽西州普林斯顿大学出版社, 2014), 227。

105. Cassin, *Untranslatables*, xvii.

Cassin, untranslatables, xvii 卡辛, untranslatables, 17。

106. Space prohibits a full explanation, but the descriptive—redescriptive opposition proposed by various scholars as a way to identify untranslatable terms is incoherent. Because social kinds are incredibly varied, strictly applied it would make everything untranslatable.

空间禁止完整的解释，但各种学者提出的描述-重新描述的对立作为一种识别不可译术语的方法是不一致的。因为社会的种类是难以置信的多样化，严格应用它会使一切都不可翻译。

107. Kuhn argues that “students of literature” have shown that metaphor makes “translation impossible” and he tries to extend that claim to the sciences. See Thomas Kuhn, *The Road since Structure: Philosophical Essays* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2002), 75.

库恩认为，“文学学生”已经表明，隐喻使“翻译不可能”，他试图将这一主张扩展到科学领域。参见 Thomas Kuhn, *The Road since Structure: Philosophical Essays* (芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2002), 75。

108. For a longer version, see Jason Ānanda Josephson Storm, “Lion’s Roar: The (Im)possibility of Translation Revisited,” in progress, last revised July 2019. When published a link or reference to it will appear on my professional website.

更长的版本见 Jason Ānanda Josephson Storm, “Lion’s Roar: The (Im) possibility of Translation Revisited,” in progress, last revised July 2019. 当它发布的链接或参考将出现在我的专业网站上。

109. For instance, Jacques Derrida often illustrated the impossibility of translation by reference to the phrase “he war,” which suggests one thing in German (“he was”) and another in English (“he [engaged in] wars”). This provides two translations rather than none.

例如，雅克·德里达(Jacques Derrida)经常引用短语“he war”来说明翻译的不可能性，“he war”在德语中暗示一件事(“he was”)，在英语中暗示另一件事(“he [engaged in] wars”)。这提供了两种翻译，而不是没有。

110. Technically, Whorf argued that they couldn’t be translated into a Standard Average European language of which English was one example. Benjamin Lee Whorf, *Language, Thought, and Reality: Selected Writings of Benjamin Lee Whorf* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1956).

从技术上讲，沃尔夫认为，它们不能被翻译成标准普通欧洲语言，英语就是一个例子。本杰明·李·霍夫，《语言、思想与现实: 本杰明·李·霍夫作品选》(剑桥: 麻省理工学院出版社, 1956年)。

111. See also Donald Davidson, “On the Very Idea of a Conceptual Scheme,” *Proceedings and Addresses of the American Philosophical Association* 47 (1973): 5–20. For another example, see José Ortega y Gasset, “The Misery and the Splendor of Translation,” *The Translation Studies Reader*, ed. Lawrence Venuti (New York: Routledge, 2012), 49–63.

参见唐纳德·戴维森的《论概念方案的概念本身》，美国哲学协会会员会议纪要和讲话 47(1973): 5-20。另一个例子，参见何塞·奥特嘉·伊·加塞特的《翻译的苦难与辉煌》，《翻译研究》读者编辑部。劳伦斯·韦努蒂(Lawrence Venuti, 纽约: Routledge, 2012), 49-63。

112. Jacques Derrida, “What Is a “Relevant” Translation?” trans. Lawrence Venuti, *Critical Inquiry* 27, no. 2 (2001): 174–200, 179.

雅克·德里达, “什么是“相关的”翻译?”劳伦斯·韦努蒂译, 《批判性调查》27, 第2期(2001): 174-200, 179。

113. See Jean--Paul Vinay and Jean Darbelnet, *Stylistique comparée du français et de l'anglais: Méthode de traduction* (Paris: Didier, 1972).

参见让-保罗·维奈和让·达尔贝内, 《比较法语和英语的风格: 翻译方法》(巴黎: 迪迪埃, 1972)。

114. By this I mean to gesture at Nelson Goodman's famous riddle of induction. I would argue that the meaning of terms changes historically and will change in the future. So, for instance, in at least the English object language the statement “Helen of Troy was a man” would be a false statement today insofar as we believe Helen to have been a woman. But not so long ago, “man” was primarily a gender-- neutral term synonymous with “human.” So “Helen of Troy was man” would have been a true statement. Projecting from contemporary usage changes in which gender is increasingly understood as a matter of personal identification one could even imagine that in the future the statement “Helen of Troy was a man” might become undecidable on the grounds that we do not know Helen's preferred gender identity. This looks a lot like Goodman's color “grue,” which has the following property: “if observed before Jan 1, 2017 it is green, but if observed after Jan 1, 2017 it is blue.”

我的意思是指纳尔逊·古德曼著名的归纳之谜。我认为术语的含义在历史上发生了变化, 将来也会发生变化。所以, 举个例子, 至少在英语客观语言中, “特洛伊的海伦是个男人”这句话在今天是错误的, 因为我们相信海伦曾经是个女人。但就在不久以前, “man”主要是一个与“human”同义的中性词汇所以“特洛伊的海伦是男人”应该是一个真实的陈述。从当代用法的变化来看, 性别越来越被理解个人认同的问题, 人们甚至可以想象, 在未来, “特洛伊的海伦是个男人”这一说法可能会因为我们不知道海伦首选的性别认同而变得无法确定。这看起来很像 Goodman 的颜色“grue”, 它有以下属性: “如果在 2017 年 1 月 1 日之前观察到它是绿色的, 但是如果在 2017 年 1 月 1 日之后观察到它是蓝色的。”

115. This is closer to how Sapir and Whorf actually understood linguistic relativism. See Storm “Language, Mind, Cosmos: The Theosophical Roots of Linguistic Relativism,” in *Theosophy and the Study of Religion*, ed. Charles Stang and Jason Ananda Josephson Storm (Leiden: Brill, under consideration).

这更接近 Sapir 和 Whorf 对语言相对论的理解。参见《语言, 思想, 宇宙: 语言相对主义的神学根源》, 见《神学与宗教研究》。查尔斯·斯坦(Charles Stang)和杰森·南达·约瑟夫森·斯托姆(Jason nanda Josephson Storm)(莱顿: 布里尔, 考虑中)。

116. Kwame Anthony Appiah, “Thick Translation,” *Callaloo* 16, no. 4 (1993): 808–19.

奎迈·安东尼·阿皮亚, 《厚厚的翻译》, 卡拉鲁 16, 第 4 号(1993): 808-19。

117. Lydia Liu, *Translingual Practice: Literature, National Culture, and Translated Modernity—China* (Palo Alto, CA: Stanford University Press. 1995), 26.

刘丽迪,《跨语言实践:文学、民族文化与翻译的现代性》,中国(加利福尼亚州帕洛阿尔托:斯坦福大学出版社,1995年),26页。

118. This subsection is largely drawn from Brothers Josephson (Jason Josephson Storm and Seth Josephson), “Signs Following: Towards a Material Semiotics of Religion,” manuscript in progress (last modified 2019) and should be thought of as jointly authored.

这一部分主要是从约瑟夫森兄弟(杰森约瑟夫-儿子斯托姆和塞思约瑟夫森),“迹象跟随:走向一个物质符号的宗教,”手稿正在进行中(最后修改2019年),应该被认为是共同作者。

119. For an account of the religious genealogy of Peirce’s pragmatism, see M. Gail Hamner, *American Pragmatism: A Religious Genealogy* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2003).

关于皮尔士实用主义的宗教谱系,见《美国实用主义:宗教谱系》(纽约:牛津大学出版社,2003)。

120. CP 2:135.

CP 2:135.

121. Donna Haraway, “Situated Knowledges: The Science Question in Feminism and the Privilege of Partial Perspective,” *Feminist Studies* 14, no. 3 (1988): 575–99.

唐娜·哈拉维,《情境知识:女性主义中的科学问题和局部透视的特权》,《女性主义妇女研究》14,第3期(1988):575-99。

122. For an influential version of sender–receiver communication, see Claude Shannon, “A Mathematical Theory of Communication,” *Bell System Technical Journal* 27, no. 3 (1948): 379–423.

关于发送者-接收者通信的一个有影响力的版本,参见克劳德·香农,《通信的数学理论》,贝尔系统技术日报第27期,第3期(1948):379-423。

123. Charles Sanders Peirce, *Peirce on Signs*, ed. James Hoopes (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1991), 30.

查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士,《皮尔士论迹象》,埃德·詹姆斯·胡普斯(布卢明顿:印第安纳大学出版社,1991),30。

124. See Tony Jappy, *Peirce’s Twenty–Eight Classes of Signs and the Philosophy of Representation: Rhetoric, Interpretation and Hexadic Semiosis* (London: Bloomsbury Publishing, 2016).

参见托尼·贾皮,皮尔士的《二十八类符号与表征哲学:修辞学、解释和十六进制符号论》(London: Bloomsbury Publishing, 2016)。

125. Peirce, “New List of Categories,” in Charles Sanders Peirce, *The Writings of* 皮尔士,查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士的《分类新清单》

Charles S. Peirce: A Chronological Edition, vol. 2, ed. Edward C. Moore (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1982--), 49–58. Peirce referred to these as the *deictic* and *causal* sorts of indices. He also referred to a third type as a *labeling*. We will alter our vocabulary later. See also James Jakób Liszka, *A General Introduction to the Semeiotic of Charles Sanders Peirce* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1996), 38.

查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士: 编年版, 第 2 卷, 编辑。爱德华·c·摩尔(布鲁姆顿: 印第安纳大学出版社, 1982 -), 49-58。皮尔斯称这些为指示和因果类型的指数。他还把第三种类型称为标签。我们稍后会改变我们的词汇。查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士符号学概论(布卢明顿: 印第安纳大学出版社, 1996), 38。

126. Of course, it need not have a *human* observer around to be meaningful.

当然, 它不需要有一个人类的观察者在身边才是有意义的。

127. The Brothers Josephson do not fully agree about what counts as a *sentient* being. In using the term “sentient being” we mean to gesture toward the Sanskrit *sattva* and its translation in the Sino-Japanese 衆生 or 有情. Although we give a particular list of examples, we want to leave open different cosmologies including both the traditional lists of sentient beings in different schools of Buddhism and the possibility for various kinds of panpsychism, hylozoism, or pantheism.

约瑟夫森兄弟并不完全同意什么是有感知的存在。在使用术语“有知觉的存在”时, 我们的意思是指向梵文 *sattva* 及其在中日生词或有情中的翻译。虽然我们给出了一个特殊的例子列表, 但我们希望保留不同的宇宙论, 包括不同佛教派别中传统的有情众生列表, 以及各种泛灵论、人神论或泛神论的可能性。

128. For animal sentience, see Colin Allen and Marc Bekoff, *Species of Mind: The Philosophy and Biology of Cognitive Ethology* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1999); and Donald Griffin, *Animal Minds: Beyond Cognition to Consciousness* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2001). For machine consciousness, see Owen Holland, ed., *Machine Consciousness* (Charlottesville, VA: Imprint Academic, 2003). For panpsychism, see Thomas Nagel, “Panpsychism,” in Nagel, *Mortal Questions* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1991), 181–95; David Skrbina, *Panpsychism in the West* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 2005); Godehard Brüntrup and Ludwig Jaskolla, eds., *Panpsychism: Contemporary Perspectives* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2017).

关于动物感知, 参见 Colin Allen 和 Marc Bekoff 的《心灵物种: 认知动物行为的哲学和生物学》(剑桥: 麻省理工学院出版社, 1999 年)和 Donald Griffin 的《动物心灵: 超越认知到意识》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 2001 年)。关于机器意识, 参见 Owen Holland 编辑, 《机器意识》(夏洛茨维尔, 弗吉尼亚州: Imprint Academic, 2003)。关于泛灵论, 见托马斯·纳格尔的《泛灵论》, 《致命的问题》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1991 年), 181-95; 大卫·斯克比纳, 《西方泛灵论》(剑桥: 麻省理工出版社, 2005 年); 戈德哈德·布伦特鲁普和路德维希·亚斯科拉编辑的《泛灵论: 当代视角》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2017 年)。

129. Daniel Dennett, *The Intentional Stance* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1989).

丹尼尔·丹尼特, 《意向立场》(剑桥: 麻省理工学院出版社, 1989 年)。

130. Kawade Yoshimi, "The Two Foci of Biology: Matter and Sign," *Semiotica* 127, nos. 1-4 (1999): 369-84, 373.

Kawade Yoshimi, "生物学的两个焦点: 物质和符号", 符号学 127, 第 1-4 期 (1999): 369-84, 373。

131. Thomas Sebeok, *Signs: An Introduction to Semiotics*, 2nd edition (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2001), 43; Umberto Eco, *La Struttura assente: La ricerca semiotica e il metodo strutturale* (Milan: Bompiani, 1968), 110.

Thomas Sebeok, 《符号学导论》, 第 2 版(多伦多: 多伦多大学出版社, 2001 年), 43; Umberto Eco, *La Struttura assente: La ricerca semiotica e il metodo strutturale* (米兰: Bompiani, 1968 年), 110。

132. Sebeok, *Signs*; but see also John Haldane, "Animal Communication and the Origin of Human Language," *Science Progress* 43, no. 171 (1955): 385-401.

约翰·霍尔丹, 《动物交流与人类语言的起源》, 《科学进步》43, 第 171 期(1955): 385-401。

133. Peter Wohlleben, *The Hidden Life of Trees* (Vancouver, BC: Greystone Books, 2016), 7-8.

Peter Wohlleben, *The Hidden Life of Trees* (Vancouver, BC: Greystone Books, 2016), 7-8.

134. Claudia Stephan, Anna Wilkinson, and Ludwig Huber, "Have We Met Before? Pigeons Recognise Familiar Human Faces," *Avian Biology Research* 5, no. 2 (June 2012): 75-80.

Claudia Stephan, Anna Wilkinson, and Ludwig Huber, "我们以前见过吗? 鸽子识别熟悉的人类面孔," 《鸟类生物学研究》第 5 期, 第 2 期(2012 年 6 月): 75-80 页。

135. Devi Stuart-Fox, Adnan Moussalli, and Martin J Whiting, "Predator-Specific Camouflage in Chameleons," *Biology Letters* 4, no. 4 (2008): 326-29.

德维·斯图尔特-福克斯, 阿德南·穆萨利和马丁·j·怀廷, 《变色龙的捕食者特异性伪装》, 《生物学快报》第 4 期, 第 4 期(2008): 326-29 页。

136. Katoh Mitsuho, Tatsuta Haruki, and Tsuji Kazuki, "Rapid Evolution of a Batesian Mimicry Trait in a Butterfly Responding to Arrival of a New Model," *Scientific Reports* 7, no. 1 (2017): 6369.

Katoh Mitsuho, Tatsuta Haruki, and Tsuji Kazuki, "蝴蝶模仿特征的快速进化对新模型的到来作出反应", 科学报告 7, no. 1(2017): 6369。

137. Spencer Barrett, "Mimicry in Plants," *Scientific American* 257, no. 3 (1987): 76-85.
斯宾塞·巴雷特, 《植物中的拟态》, 《科学美国人》257, 第 3 期(1987): 76-85。

138. Augustine of Hippo, *The Confessions: With an Introduction and Contemporary Criticism*, ed. Maria Boulding, David Vincent Meconi, and Joseph Pearce (San Francisco: Ignatius Press, 2012), 1.8.

河马的奥古斯丁，《忏悔录》：引言和现代批评，编辑。Maria Boulding, David Vincent Meconi, and Joseph Pearce (San Francisco: Ignatius Press, 2012), 1.8.

139. Cristina Colonnese, Geert Stams, Irene Koster, and Marc J. Noom, “The Relation between Pointing and Language Development: A Meta-analysis,” *Developmental Review* 30, no. 4 (2010): 352–66.

Cristina Colonnese, Geert Stams, Irene Koster, and Marc j. Noom, “指向和语言发展之间的关系：一个元分析”，*Development-mental Review* 30, no. 4(2010) : 352-66。

140. As Millikan observes: “The addressee is part of the sign on the assumption that whatever is necessary to observe in relation to a conventional sign in order to grasp its truth conditions, granted of course that one knows all the relevant conventions, must be part of the sign. Without it the sign is incomplete.” Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*, 120.

正如 Millikan 观察到的那样：“收件人是符号的一部分，基于这样一种假设，即为了掌握一个传统符号的真理条件而观察到的任何必要情况，当然，人们知道所有相关的传统符号，都必须是符号的一部分。没有它，符号就是不完整的。”Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*, 120 《超越概念》，120 页。

141. Fred Harrington and David Mech, “Wolf Howling and Its Role in Territory Maintenance,” *Behaviour* 68, no. 3/4 (1979): 207–49; J. Riley et al., “The Flight Paths of Honeybees Recruited by the Waggle Dance,” *Nature* 435, no. 7039 (2005): 205–7.

Fred Harrington and David Mech, “狼嚎及其在土地维护中的作用”，*behavior* 68, no. 3/4(1979) : 207-49; j. Riley et al. , “ The Flight Paths of Honeybees Recruited by The Waggle Dance”，*Nature* 435, no. 7039(2005) : 205-7。

142. Tanaka--Ishii Kumiko, *Semiotics of Programming* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2010), 105.

田中石井久美子，《程序设计的符号学》(纽约: 剑桥大学出版社, 2010), 105。

143. Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*, 114–20.

Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*, 114-20.

144. Gordon Hafner, Lee Hamilton, William Steiner, Thomas Thompson, and Howard Winn, “Signature Information in the Song of the Humpback Whale,” *Journal of the Acoustical Society of America* 66, no. 1 (1979): 1–6.

戈登·哈夫纳，李·汉密尔顿，威廉·斯坦纳，托马斯·汤普森和霍华德·温，“座头鲸之歌中的签名信息”，*美国声学学会期刊* 66, no. 1(1979) : 1-6。

145. Daniel Weary, Ken Norris, and J. Bruce Falls, “Song Features Birds Use to Identify Individuals,” *The Auk* 107, no. 3 (1990): 623–25.

Daniel Weary, Ken Norris, and j. Bruce Falls, “ Song Features Birds Use to Identify Individuals,”*The Auk* 107, no. 3(1990) : 623-25。

146. By correlational sign, I am meaning in part to capture the insights of Millikan's infosign, but with an emphasis on causal and in that respect non--accidental correlations. Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*.

通过相关性符号，我的意思部分是捕捉米尔-利肯的信息符号的见解，但强调因果关系和在这方面的非意外的相关性。Millikan, *Beyond Concepts* Millikan, 超越概念。

147. Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*, 222.

Millikan, *Beyond Concepts*, 222.

148. Uexküll, *A Foray*, 45.

Uexküll, *a Foray*, 45 乌克斯库尔，一次突袭，45。

149. François Recanati, "Millikan's Theory of Signs," *Philosophy and Phenomenological Research* 75, no. 3 (2007): 674–81.

弗朗索瓦·雷康纳蒂，“密立根的符号理论”，《哲学与现象逻辑研究》75，第3期(2007)：674-81。

150. Marcel Danesi, *The Quest for Meaning* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2007), 6.

Marcel Danesi, *The Quest for Meaning* (多伦多: 多伦多大学出版社, 2007)，6。

151. The parallel between biological and mechanical systems might be over-drawn, but they suggest similar examples of the broader category of correlational signs.

生物系统和机械系统之间的相似性可能被夸大了，但它们提出了更广泛的相关符号范畴的类似例子。

152. Richard Rorty, *Philosophy and the Mirror of Nature* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1979), 3.

Richard Rorty, 哲学与自然之镜(普林斯顿, 新泽西州: 普林斯顿大学出版社, 1979)，3。

153. Barad, *Meeting the Universe*. Barad is right to focus on the emergence of entities through a process of intra--action, or as we might say in a Buddhist idiom, via *Pratītyasamutpāda* "interdependent co--arising." But I disagree with the claim that matter and meaning are identical.

巴拉德，遇见宇宙。Barad 通过一个内在行动的过程，或者我们可以用一个佛教成语来说，通过 *prat tyasamutp da*“相互依存的缘起”来关注实体的出现，这是正确的但是我不同意物质和意义是相同的这种说法。

154. Nietzsche makes a similar claim in Friedrich Nietzsche, *The Gay Science* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2001), 211–15.

尼采在弗里德里希·尼采的《同性恋科学》(纽约: 剑桥大学出版社, 2001)，211-15 中提出了类似的观点。

155. Ichikawa Hiroshi, *Seishin to shite noshintai* (Tokyo: Kōdansha, 1992).

一川浩，*Seishin to shit noshintai* (Tokyo: k dansha, 1992)。

156. For an insightful exploration of this permeability, see Stacy Alaimo, *Bodily Natures* (Indianapolis: Indiana University Press, 2010).

要深入了解这种渗透性，请参阅 Stacy Alaimo, *body nature* (印第安纳波利斯: 印第安纳大学出版社, 2010)。

157. Rodney Brooks, “Intelligence Without Reason,” *Artificial Intelligence* 47, no. 1 (1991); Kristian Tylén and John J McGraw, “Materializing Mind: The Role of Objects in Cognition and Culture,” in *Perspectives on Social Ontology and Social Cognition*, ed. Mattia Galloti and John Michael (New York: Springer, 2014), 140.

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158. Michael Dawson, “Embedded and Situated Cognition,” in *The Routledge Handbook of Embodied Cognition*, ed. Lawrence Shapiro (New York: Routledge, 2014), 59.

迈克尔道森，“嵌入式和情境认知”，在劳特里奇手册具身认知，教育。劳伦斯·夏皮罗(纽约: Routledge, 2014)，59。

159. Esther Thelen and Linda B. Smith, *A Dynamic Systems Approach to the Development of Cognition and Action* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1996).

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160. Dawson, “Embedded Cognition,” 60.
Dawson 《嵌入式认知》60 页。

161. Brooks, “Intelligence Without Reason,” 139–59.

Brooks, “Intelligence Without Reason”, 139-59 布鲁克斯，《没有理由的智慧》，139-59。

162. For a summary of some of the empirical evidence, see P.A. Ferchmin and André Eterović, “Play Stimulated by Environmental Complexity Alters the Brain and Improves Learning Abilities in Rodents, Primates, and Possibly Humans,” *Be-havioral and Brain Sciences* 5, no. 1 (1982): 164.

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163. Dawson, “Embedded Cognition,” 62; James Gibson, *The Ecological Approach to Visual Perception* (New York: Psychology Press, 2014).

Dawson, “嵌入式认知”，62; James Gibson, “视知觉的生态 ap 方法”(纽约: 心理学出版社, 2014)。

164. Ichikawa, *Seishin*. For phantom limb, Dick Plettenburg, “Prosthetic Control: A Case for Extended Physiological Proprioception,” in *MEC '02 The Next Generation, Proceedings of the 20023 MyoElectric Controls/Powered Prosthetics Symposium* (Fredericton: University of New Brunswick, 2002), 21–23.
Trol: a Case for Extended Physiological Proprioception,”in MEC'02 The Next generation , *Proceedings of The 20023 MyoElectric Controls/Powered Prosthetics symposium* (Fredericton: university of new brunswick, 2002)，21-23。

165. Herbert Simon, *The Sciences of the Artificial*, 3rd ed. (Cambridge: MIT Press, 2008), 51–52; see also Edwin Hutchins, *Cognition in the Wild* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1995), xiii.

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166. Hilary Putnam, “Meaning and Reference,” *Journal of Philosophy* 70, no. 19 (1974): 699–711.

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167. Lev Vygotsky, *Mind in Society* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1980), 39.

《社会心理学》(剑桥：哈佛大学出版社，1980年)，39页。

168. Andy Clark and David Chalmers, “The Extended Mind,” *Analysis* 58, no. 1 (1998): 7–19.

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169. Plato: *Complete Works*, ed. John Cooper and Douglas Hutchinson, (Indianapolis: Hackett Publishing, 1997), 551–52.

柏拉图：《全集》，约翰·库珀，道格拉斯·哈钦森，(印度-那不勒斯：哈克特出版社，1997)，551-52。

170. Bernard Stiegler, *Pour une nouvelle critique de l'économie politique* (Paris: Galilée, 2009).

贝尔纳·斯蒂格勒，《对政治经济学的新批判》(巴黎：加利利出版社，2009年)。

171. Tylén and McGraw, “Materializing Mind.”

泰伦和麦格劳的《物化思维》。

172. Hutchins, *Cognition in the Wild*, 115.

Hutchins, 《野外的认知》，115。

173. Jonathan Histon, “Mitigating Complexity in Air Traffic Control,” PhD diss., MIT Department of Aeronautics, 2008.

乔纳森·希斯顿，“缓解空中交通管制的复杂性”，麻省理工学院航空系博士，2008年。

174. Tylén and McGraw, “Materializing Mind”; Andy Clark, *Being There: Putting Brain, Body, and World Together Again* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1998).

泰伦和麦格劳，“物化思维”；安迪·克拉克，“在那里：再次将大脑、身体和世界放在一起”(剑桥：麻省理工学院出版社，1998)。

175. Greg Stephens, Lauren Silbert, and Uri Hasson, “Speaker--Listener Neural Coupling Underlies Successful Communication,” *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences* 107, no. 32 (2010): 14425–30.

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176. For one account of the primacy of private representations, see Jerry Fodor, *The Language of Thought* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1975).

关于私人陈述的首要性，参见杰里·福多的《思想的语言》(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1975)。

177. Dan Sperber, *Explaining Culture: A Naturalistic Approach* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1996), 77–82.

Dan Sperber, 《解释文化: 一种自然主义的方法》(Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1996), 77–82。

178. By saying that objects mediate social relations, I want to suggest that they are part of the social order, but I want to push back against the overblown version of New Materialism that suggests that they are equal participants in it. A handgun doesn't get to choose who it points at.

通过说物体调节社会关系，我想表明它们是社会秩序的一部分，但我想反驳夸张的新唯物主义，它认为物体是社会秩序的平等参与者。一把手枪不能选择它指向谁。

179. Epstein, *The Ant Trap*.

爱泼斯坦，蚂蚁陷阱。

180. Arjun Appadurai, ed., *The Social Life of Things* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1988).

《物的社会生活》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1988年)。

181. See Karl Marx, *Das Kapital: A Critique of Political Economy* (Chicago: H. Regnery, 1965); and Emile Durkheim, *The Division of Labor in Society*, trans. W.D. Halls (New York: Free Press, 1984).

参见卡尔·马克思的《资本论: 政治经济学批判》(芝加哥: H. Regnery, 1965) 和埃米尔·涂尔干的《社会中的劳动分工》，翻译。霍尔斯(纽约: 自由出版社, 1984)。

182. See for example John Betz, *After Enlightenment: The Post--Secular vision of JG Hamann* (Malden, MA: Wiley--Blackwell, 2012).

参见约翰·贝茨的《启蒙之后: JG·哈曼的后世俗视野》(马萨诸塞州马尔登: 威利-布莱克威尔, 2012)。

183. Kuhn, *Structure of Scientific Revolutions*, 99–100.

库恩，《科学革命的结构》，99–100。

184. See Larry Laudan, *Beyond Positivism and Relativism* (Boulder, CO: Westview Press, 1997), 9.

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Chapter Six

第六章

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《正义社会的愿景》(麦迪逊, 新泽西州: 费尔里·狄金生大学出版社, 2006), 191。

2. Lyotard, *The Inhuman*, 39.

利奥塔, 异人, 39。

3. Christopher Norris, *What's Wrong with Postmodernism* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1990), 185.

克里斯托弗·诺里斯, 《后现代主义怎么了》(巴尔的摩: 约翰霍普金斯大学出版社, 1990), 185。

4. See: Alan Sokal and Jean Bricmont, *Fashionable Nonsense: Postmodern Intellectuals' Abuse of Science* (New York: Picador, 1998); Paul Gross and Norman Levitt, *Higher Superstition: The Academic Left and Its Quarrels with Science* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2003), esp. 11; Stuart Sim, *Empires of Belief* (Edinburgh: Edinburgh University Press, 2006), esp. 53. For a more sophisticated critique, see Susan Haack, *Evidence and Inquiry: A Pragmatist Reconstruction of Epistemology* (Amherst, MA: Prometheus Books, 2009), 12.

参见: Alan Sokal 和 Jean Bricmont, 《时髦的胡说: 后现代知识分子对科学的糟蹋》(纽约: Picador, 1998); Paul Gross 和 Norman Levitt, 《更高的迷信: 学术左派及其与科学的争吵》(巴尔的摩: 约翰霍普金斯大学出版社, 2003)。斯图尔特·西姆, 《信仰帝国》(爱丁堡: 爱丁堡大学出版社, 2006)。53. 关于更复杂的批评, 请参阅苏珊·哈克的《证据与探究: 认识论的实用主义重建》(Amherst, MA: Prometheus Books, 2009), 12。

5. Examples: Seidman, *Postmodern Turn*, 5–6; Judith Butler, “Contingent Foundations: Feminism and the Question of ‘Postmodernism,’” in *Feminist Contentions a Philosophical Exchange*, ed. Seyla Benhabib (New York: Routledge, 1995), 35–58; Maggie MacLure, “Theoretical Resources,” *Educational Action Research* 3, no. 1 (1995): 106–16; K.M. Newton, *Modern Literature and the Tragic* (Edinburgh: Edinburgh University Press, 2008), 159; and Kang Dae Joong, “Rhizoactivity: Toward a Postmodern Theory of Lifelong Learning,” *Adult Education Quarterly* 57, no. 3 (2007): 205–20.

例子: 赛德曼, 《后现代转向》, 5-6; 朱迪思·巴特勒, 《偶然的四个时代: 女权主义与后现代主义问题》, 《女权主义论争, 哲学交流》, 编辑。马吉·麦克卢尔, 《理论资源》, 教育行动研究 3, 第 1 期(1995): 106-16; k·m·牛顿, 《现代文学与悲剧》(爱丁堡: 爱丁堡大学出版社, 2008), 159; 康大中, 《根系活动: 走向终身学习的后现代理论》, 《成人教育季刊》, 第 57 期, 第 3 期(2007): 205-20。

6. Examples: Jeet Heer, “America’s First Postmodern President,” *The New Republic*, July 8, 2018; and Helen Pluckrose, “How French ‘Intellectuals’ Ruined the West: Postmodernism and Its Impact Explained,” *Arco Magazine*, March 27, 2017.

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作者: Michael Peters, Sharon Rider, Mats Hyvönen, Tina Besley, eds., *Post-Truth, Fake News: Viral Modernity & Higher Education* (New York: Springer, 2018)。

7. For readings of Foucault as a skeptic, see Lois MacNay, *Foucault and Femi-nism: Power, Gender and the Self* (Cambridge: Polity, 1992), 5.

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8. Michel Foucault, *Politics, Philosophy, Culture: Interviews and Other Writings* 米歇尔·福柯，《政治，哲学，文化: 访谈和其他著作》(New York: Routledge, 2013), 264.
(纽约: Routledge, 2013)，264。

9. Gutting, *Foucault's Archaeology*, esp. 273; Linda Martin Alcoff, "Foucault's Normative Epistemology," in *A Companion to Foucault*, ed. Christopher Falzon, Timothy O'Leary, and Jana Sawicki (Malden, MA: Wiley-Blackwell, 2013), 205-25.

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10. Charles Altieri, "Presence and Reference in a Literary Text," *Critical Inquiry* 5, no. 3 (1979): 489-510, 490; for an argument against the common misreading of Derrida as a skeptic, see Joshua Kates, *Fielding Derrida: Philosophy, Literary Criticism, History, and the Work of Deconstruction* (New York: Fordham University Press, 2008).

查尔斯·阿尔蒂里，《文学文本中的存在与参照》，《批判性询问》5，第3期(1979年): 489-510,490; 关于反对将德里达误读为怀疑论者的论点，参见约书亚·凯茨，《菲尔丁·德里达: 哲学，文学批评，历史和解构工作》(纽约: 福坦莫大学出版社，2008年)。

11. Jacques Derrida, *Limited Inc.* (Evanston, IL: Northwestern University Press, 1988), 146. Cited in Peters et al., *Post-Truth*, 220.

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12. See Marko Zlomislíć. *Jacques Derrida's Aporetic Ethics* (New York: Lexington Books, 2007), esp. 241; Jack Reynolds, "Jacques Derrida," in *Internet Encyclopedia of Philosophy*, <https://iep.utm.edu/>, 2013; and David Bates, "Crisis between the Wars: Derrida and the Origins of Undecidability" *Representations* 90, no. 1 (2005): 1-27.

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13. Bruno Latour, *The Pasteurization of France* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1993), 232.

布鲁诺·拉图尔,《法国的巴氏杀菌》(剑桥:哈佛大学出版社,1993),232页。

14. Bruno Latour, “Why Has Critique Run Out of Steam?” *Critical Inquiry* 30, no. 2 (2004): 225–48, 231.

布鲁诺·拉图尔,《为什么批判失去了动力?》,《批判性质询》,第30期,第2期(2004):225-48,231页。

15. For “cynical reason” see Peter Sloterdijk, *Kritik der zynischen Vernunft* (Frankfurt: Suhrkamp, 1983).

为了“愤世嫉俗的理由”,参见 Peter Sloterdijk, *Kritik der zynischen Vernunft* (法兰克福: Suhrkamp, 1983)。

16. Combining the eighteenth-century Tibetan scholar Kōnchog Jigme Wangpo’s list of illusions alongside Descartes and others. See Jan Westerhoff, *Twelve Examples of Illusion* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2010).

结合十八世纪西藏学者孔雀晋美王波与笛卡尔等人的幻象清单。参见 Jan Westerhoff, *Twelve Examples of Illusion* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2010)。

17. Gilbert Harman, *Thought* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1973).

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18. Saul A. Kripke, *Wittgenstein on Rules and Private Language* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1982); and Hermann von Helmholtz, *Epistemological Writings* (Dordrecht, Holland: D. Reidel, 1977).

索尔·a·克里普克,《维特根斯坦关于规则和私人语言》(剑桥:哈佛大学出版社,1982年);赫尔曼·冯·亥姆霍兹,《认识论著作》(多德雷赫特,荷兰: d·雷德尔,1977年)。

19. W.V.O. Quine, “Two Dogmas of Empiricism,” *The Philosophical Review* 60

奎因,《经验主义的两个教条》,《哲学评论》60

(1951): 20–43.

(1951): 20-43.

20. In the *Principia*, Descartes’s preferred formulation was actually “*ego cogito, ergo sum*,” but it is often misquoted as “*cogito, ergo sum*.”

在《原理》中,笛卡尔更喜欢的表述实际上是“自我认知,因此总和”,但它经常被误引为“自我认知,因此总和”

21. Even the claim that at least “I think I am seeing a red-triangle” could be doubted, as I might be wrong about the meanings of “red” and “triangle.”

即使是“我认为我看到了一个红色三角形”的说法也是值得怀疑的,因为我对“红色”和“三角形”的含义可能是错误的

22. I take Wittgenstein to be arguing mainly that universalizing doubt is incoherent because the very act of doubting presupposes by contrast some local certainty (such as even the notion that things can be rationally evaluated), which is required to get doubting off the ground. So for that reason universalized doubt

我认为维特根斯坦的主要观点是,普遍怀疑是不连贯的,因为怀疑的行为本身就是以某种局部确定性为前提的(比如,甚至可以理性地评估事物的概念),而这种确定性是使怀疑脱离实际所必需的。因此,出于这个原因,普遍化的怀疑

would have to doubt itself and thus be rendered incoherent. See Ludwig Wittgenstein, *On Certainty/Über gewissheit* (New York: Harper Torchbooks, 2001).

将不得不怀疑自己，从而变得不连贯。参见 Ludwig Wittgenstein, *On Certainty/Über gewissheit* (New York: Harper torch books, 2001)。

23. Emphasis added. René Descartes, *The Philosophical Writings of Descartes*, vol. 1 (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1985), 10, 125.

勒内·笛卡尔，《笛卡尔的哲学著作》，第一卷(纽约:剑桥大学出版社，1985年)，第10,125页。

24. As Descartes put it in his famous *Meditations*, “that there really is a world, and that human beings have bodies . . . no sane person has ever seriously doubted these things.” Descartes, *Philosophical Writings*, vol. 2, 16. See also Stephen Gaukroger, *Descartes: An Intellectual Biography* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 2003); and Richard Popkin, *The History of Scepticism: from Savonarola to Bayle* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2003), 143.

正如笛卡尔在他著名的《沉思录》中所说的那样，“世界真的存在，人类也有自己的身体...没有一个正常人会严肃地怀疑这些事情。”笛卡尔，哲学著作，卷2,16。参见 Stephen Gaukroger, *Descartes: An Intellectual Biography* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 2003)；and Richard Popkin, *The History of skepticism: from Savonarola to Bayle* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2003)，143。

25. See René Descartes, *Oeuvres de Descartes*, ed. Charles Adam and Paul Tannery, 12 vols. (Paris: Léopold Cerf, 1897–1910).

参见勒内·笛卡尔，《笛卡尔的作品》，查尔斯·亚当和保罗·坦纳利，12卷。

26. Sextus Empiricus, *Outlines of Pyrrhonism*, vol. 1 (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1933), 3.

塞克斯图斯·恩丕里柯，第一卷(剑桥:哈佛大学出版社，1933年)，第3卷。

27. Harald Thorsrud, *Ancient Scepticism* (London: Routledge, 2014), 3.

《古代怀疑论》(伦敦:路德里奇出版社，2014年)，3。

28. Arne Næss, *Scepticism* (London: Routledge, 2005), 3.

Arne Næss, *skepticism* (London: Routledge, 2005)，3。

29. As deconstruction is typically presented not as skepticism, but as a mode of textual interpretation, I have cut my discussion of it here for space reasons.

由于解构主义通常不是以怀疑主义的形式出现的，而是作为一种文本解释的模式，因为空间的原因，我在这里停止了对它的讨论。

30. Eve Sedgwick, “Paranoid Reading and Reparative Reading,” in *Novel Gazing: Queer Readings in Fiction*, ed. Eve Sedgwick (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1997), 1–37; and Rita Felski, *The Limits of Critique* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2015).

Eve Sedgwick，“偏执的阅读和修复性阅读”，在《凝视:小说中的酷儿阅读》，ed. Eve Sedgwick (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1997)，1-37; Rita Felski, *The Limits of Critique* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2015)。

31. Storm, “A Genealogy of Genealogy: Foucault, Nietzsche, History, and Race,” unpublished manuscript, presented at the American Academy of Religion conference, 2017. I’ll post a link on my professional blog.

暴风雨，“家谱：福柯，尼采，历史，和种族，”未发表的手稿，提出在美国宗教学会会议，2017年。我会在我的专业博客上发布一个链接。

32. Against classical skeptics, the Zetetic's aim is not ataraxia, but a lively eudaimonia, and to get there we need to seek as urgently as if our head were on fire.

反对经典的怀疑论者，Zetetic的目标不是共济失调，而是一个活跃的 eudaimonia，为了达到这一目标，我们需要紧急寻找，就像我们的头部着火一样。

33. Thorne, “To the Political Ontologists,” 11.

索恩，《致政治本体论者》11。

34. In a famous section of Benito Mussolini's *Diuturna* titled “Relativismo e Fascismo,” he argues that “From the equipollence [lit. equivalence] of all views, the ancient skeptics deduced that the only thing that could be done was to give up on all judging and acting. From the equipollence of all ideologies—the recognition that they are all equally fictions—the modern [fascist] relativist deduces, therefore, that everyone has the right to create his own [ideology] and impose it on others with all the energy of which he is capable.” Mussolini's fascism was an ideology that knew itself to be merely ideological. Benito Mussolini, *Diuturna: Scritti Politici 1914–1922*, ed. Arnaldo Mussolini and Dino Grandi (Milan: Casa Editrice Imperia del Partito Nazionale Fascista, 1924), 377.

在贝尼托·墨索里尼(benito mussolini)的《迪乌特纳》(*Diuturna*)的一个著名章节《相对主义与反思主义》(*relativismo e Fascismo*)中，他认为“从等价性出发”。等价性的所有观点，古代怀疑论者推断，唯一可以做的事情是放弃所有的判断和行动。因此，现代(法西斯)相对主义者从所有意识形态的等价性——认识到它们都是虚构的——推断出，每个人都无权创造自己的(意识形态)，并用自己能力所及的一切力量将其强加于他人。”墨索里尼的法西斯主义是一种知道自己仅仅是意识形态的意识形态。贝尼托·墨索里尼，*Diuturna: Scritti Politici 1914–1922*, ed. 阿纳尔多·墨索里尼和迪诺·格兰迪(米兰：国家法西斯党帝国之家编辑，1924年)，377页。

35. Source: <http://phrontistery.info/favourite.html>. Zetetic has sometimes been associated with Flat Earthers. I don't mean it in that sense. For the classical Greek, see Sextus Empiricus, “*Pyrrhoniae Hypotyposes*,” in *Sexti Empirici Opera*, ed. Hermann Mutschmann (Leipzig: Teubner, 1984), vol. 1, esp. 7. Also, references to a “zetetic” method appear in Kant and Schelling.

来源：<http://phrontistery.info/favourite.html>。Zetetic 有时与扁平地球联系在一起。我不是那个意思。对于古希腊，参见 Sextus Empiricus 歌剧版中的 sextus empiricus，“*Pyrrhoniae Hypotyposes*”。赫尔曼·穆施曼(Hermann Mutschmann)(莱比锡：Teubner，1984)，第一卷，特别是7。另外，在康德和谢林的著作中也提到了“zetetic”方法。

36. See Arne Næss, *Selected Works of Arne Næss* (Dordrecht: Springer, 2005).

参见 Arne Næss, *Selected Works of Arne Næss* (Dordrecht: Springer, 2005)。

37. John R. Josephson, “Explanation and Induction,” PhD diss, Ohio State University
约翰·R·约瑟夫森，《解释与归纳》，俄亥俄州立大学迪斯特博士

versity, 1982; Charles S. Peirce, *Philosophical Writings of Peirce* (New York: Dover, 1955), 58.

查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士,《皮尔士哲学著作》(纽约:多佛,1955),58。

38. Here I have in mind the Indian philosopher Uddyotakara, who argued in the *Nyāya-vārttika* that false cognitions can only be called *false* in contrast to true cognitions.

在这里,我想到了印度哲学家 Uddyotakara,他在 *nyaya-v rttika* 中提出,与真实的认知相比,错误的认知只能被称为错误。

39. Næss, *Selected Works of Arne Næss*, vol. 2, lix. I disagree with his possibilism, but space prohibits a full discussion,

我不同意他的可能性,但空间禁止充分讨论,

40. Næss, *Selected Works*, vol. 8: 125–37.

næss, 精选作品,卷 8:125–37。

41. David Lewis, “Elusive Knowledge,” *Australasian Journal of Philosophy* 74, no. 4 (1996): 549–67.

《难以捉摸的知识》,澳大利亚哲学杂志,第 74 期,第 4 期(1996): 549–67 页。

42. See Jessica Brown, *Fallibilism: Evidence and Knowledge* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018). You might think you are certain about what penguins eat (Lewis’s example), but you could have only dreamed the flightless birds into existence.

参见杰西卡·布朗,《易错论:证据与知识》(牛津:牛津大学出版社,2018)。你可能认为你肯定企鹅吃什么(刘易斯的例子),但你可能只是梦想不会飞的鸟存在。

43. Cited in Thorsrud, *Ancient Scepticism*, 76.

引用于 Thorsrud, 古代怀疑论, 76。

44. This helps us address the so-called threshold problem of fallibilism. Jeremy Fantl and Matthew McGrath, “Advice for Fallibilists: Put Knowledge to Work,” *Philosophical Studies* 142 (2009): 55–66.

这有助于我们解决所谓的易错性门槛问题。Jeremy Fantl 和 Matthew McGrath,《给易犯错误者的建议:让知识发挥作用》,哲学研究 142(2009): 55–66。

45. Tanabe Hajime, *Zangedō to shite no tetsugaku* (Tokyo: Iwanamishoten, 1950).
Tanabe Hajime, *zanged to shit no tetsugaku* (Tokyo: iwanamihoten, 1950).

46. 無知 literally “ignorant.” Tanabe, *Zangedō*, 17.

无知,字面上的“无知”。田边, *zanged*, 17。

47. See David Bloor, *Wittgenstein: A Social Theory of Knowledge* (New York: Mac-millan, 1983); Ludwik Fleck, *Genesis and Development of a Scientific Fact* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1981); Sandra Harding, *Whose Science? Whose Knowl-edge?* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2016); and Barbara Herrnstein Smith, *Scandalous Knowledge: Science, Truth and the Human* (Durham, NC: Duke Univer-sity Press, 2006).

参见 David Bloor, *Wittgenstein: a Social Theory of Knowledge* (New York: Macmillan, 1983); Ludwik Fleck, *Genesis and Development of a Scientific Fact* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1981); Sandra Harding, *Who Science? 谁的知识边缘?* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2016); Barbara Herrnstein Smith, *Scandal Knowledge: Science, Truth and the Human* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2006).

48. Larry Laudan, *Progress and Its Problem* (London: Routledge, 1977).

拉里·劳丹,《进步及其问题》(伦敦:路桥出版社,1977年)。

49. See Friedrich Nietzsche, *Human, All Too Human* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1996), 13.

参见弗里德里希·尼采,《人类,都太人类了》(剑桥:剑桥大学出版社,1996),13。

50. Evoking the principle of sufficient reason.

引起充分理由的原则。

51. Samuel Arbesman, *The Half-Life of Facts* (New York: Penguin, 2012).

塞缪尔·阿贝斯曼,《事实的半衰期》(纽约:企鹅出版社,2012)。

52. Evoking Gottlob Frege, *Posthumous Writings* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1979), esp. 135.

《唤起戈特洛布·弗雷格的死后写作》(芝加哥:芝加哥大学出版社,1979年),尤其是第135页。

53. Zeteticism will avoid obsolescence if it can continue to recognize that knowledge is transient and tends to become obsolete. I cannot imagine a point at which humility toward knowledge will become totally unnecessary. So Zeteticism can persist by embracing impermanence.

如果时代主义能够继续认识到知识是短暂的并且趋于过时,它就会避免过时。我无法想象有一天,对知识的谦逊会变得完全没有必要。所以 Zeteticism 可以通过拥抱无常来持续。

54. Rens Bod, *A New History of the Humanities: The Search for Principles and Patterns from Antiquity to the Present* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2014).

《人文学科的新历史:从古至今对原则和模式的探索》(牛津:牛津大学出版社,2014年)。

55. Hume had other critiques of induction as well. Marc Lange, “Hume and the Problem of Induction,” in *Handbook of the History of Logic, Volume 10 Inductive Logic*, ed. Dov Mabbay (Waltham, MA: Elsevier, 2011), 43–91; John Stuart Mill, *A System of Logic*, vol. 1 (London: J.W. Parker, 1851), esp. 324; Georges Dicker,

休谟也有其他对归纳法的批评。Marc Lange, “Hume and the Problem of Induction,” in *Handbook of the History of Logic, Volume 10 inductive Logic*, ed 马克·朗格,《休谟与归纳问题》,《逻辑史手册》,第10卷,归纳逻辑,编辑。约翰·斯图尔特·密尔,《逻辑系统》,第1卷(伦敦:j.w. 帕克,1851)。乔治·迪克尔,

Hume's *Epistemology and Metaphysics* (London: Routledge, 1998); and Alfred North Whitehead's *《认识论与形而上学》* (London: Routledge, 1998);

Whitehead, *Science and the Modern World* (New York: Free Press, 1967), esp. 30.

《科学与现代世界》(纽约: 自由出版社, 1967), 特别是第 30 页。

56. Appears in the French film *La Haine* (1995).

出现在法国电影《海恩》(1995)中。

57. Abduction is most associated with Peirce, but other significant proponents include: Richard Boyd, Umberto Eco, Fann Kuang Tih, Elizabeth Fricker, N.R. Hanson, Gilbert Harman, Ali Hasan, Peter Lipton, Lorenzo Magnani, Cheryl Misak,

绑架与皮尔斯最为相关, 但其他重要的支持者包括: 理查德·博伊德, 翁贝托·艾柯, 范光缙, 伊丽莎白·弗里克, n.r. 汉森, 吉尔伯特·哈曼, 阿里·哈桑, 彼得·利普顿, 洛伦佐·马格纳尼, 谢丽尔·米萨克,

Ilkka Niiniluoto, and my parents John and Susan Josephson, as well as perhaps the

Classical Indian philosophers Kumārila Bhaṭṭa (~660 CE) and Vācaspati-miśra (~900 CE). In treating abduction as synonymous with inference to the best explanation, I don't mean to suggest that Peirce would have understood "abduction" as IBE. See Gilbert Harman, "The Inference to the Best Explanation," *Philosophical Review* 74, no. 1 (1965): 88–95; Fann Kuang Tih, *Peirce's Theory of Abduction* (The Hague: Martinus Nijhoff, 1970); and William McAuliffe, "How did Abduction get Confused with Inference to the Best Explanation?" *Transactions of the Charles S. Peirce Society* 51, no. 3 (2015): 300–319. For *arthāpatti* (literally "presumption" or necessary conclusion) as IBE see Akṣapāda Gautama, *The Nyāya-sūtra: Selections with Early Commentaries*, ed. and trans. Matthew Dasti and Stephen Phillips (Indianapolis: Hackett, 2017); Kisor Kumar Chakrabarti, *Classical Indian Philosophy of Induction: The Nyāya Viewpoint* (Lanham, MD: Lexington Book, 2010); and Daniel Arnold, "Kumārila," *The Stanford Encyclopedia of Philosophy*, Winter 2014, <https://plato.stanford.edu>. See also Richard Boyd, "The Current Status of Scientific Realism," in *Scientific Realism*, ed. Jarrett Leplin (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1984), 41–82; Umberto Eco, *Semiotics and the Theory of Language* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1986); Norwood Russell Hanson, *Patter-ns of Discovery* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1958); Ilkka Niiniluoto, *Truth-Seeking by Abduction* (Cham: Springer, 2018). For Ali Hasan, Cheryl Misak, and Elizabeth Fricker, see their essays in *Best Explanations: New Essays on Inference to the Best Explanation*, ed. Kevin McCain and Ted Poston (New York: Oxford University Press, 2017).

ilkka niiniloto, 我的父母 John 和 Susan Josephson, 也许还有印度古典哲学家 kum rila bha something a (公元前 660 年)和 v caspatimi ra (公元前 900 年)。在处理绑架的同义词推断最好的解释国家, 我不是说皮尔斯会理解“绑架”作为 IBE。参见吉尔伯特·哈曼的《最佳解释的溯因推理》, 《哲学评论》74, 第 1 期 (1965): 88-95; 范光缙, 皮尔斯的溯因推理(海牙: 马丁努斯·奈霍夫, 1970); 以及威廉·麦考利夫的《为什么溯因推理与最佳解释的推理相混淆?》《查尔斯·桑德斯·皮尔士学会会刊》51, 第 3 期(2015): 300-319 页。对于阿尔特帕蒂(字面上的“推定”或必要的结论)作为 IBE 参见 ak something ap da Gautama, 《纽约时报》选集与早期评论, 编辑。和翻译。马修·达斯蒂和史提芬·菲利普斯

(印第安纳波利斯: 哈克特, 2017); 基索尔·库马尔·查克拉巴蒂, 《古典印度归纳哲学: 纽约观点》(拉纳姆, 医学博士: 列克星敦书, 2010); 丹尼尔·阿诺德, 《库姆里拉》, 斯坦福大学哲学百科全书, 2014 年冬季, <https://plato.stanford.edu>。另见理查德·博伊德, 《科学实在论的现状》, 科学实在论, ed. Jarrett Leplin (伯克利: 加利福尼亚大学出版社, 1984), 41-82; Umberto Eco, 符号学和语言理论(布卢明顿: 印第安纳大学出版社, 1986); Norwood Russell Hanson, *Pat-terns of Discovery* (剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1958); Ilkka Niini-luoto, 通过诱拐来寻求真相(Cham: Springer, 2018)。对于阿里哈桑, 谢丽尔米萨克, 和伊丽莎白弗里克, 看到他们的文章在最佳解释: 新文章的溯因推理最佳解释, 编辑。凯文·麦凯恩和泰德·波斯顿(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2017)。

58. See Morag L. Donaldson, *Children's Explanations: A Psycholinguistic Study*

参见 Morag L. Donaldson, 《儿童的解释: 心理语言学研究》

(Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2006); Igor Douven, “Inference to the

(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2006); Igor Douven, “推断

Best Explanation: What Is It? And Why Should We Care?” in *Best Explanations*, ed. McCain and Poston; Stephen J. Read and Amy Marcus--Newhall, “Explanatory Coherence in Social Explanations: A Parallel Distributed Processing Account,” *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* 65, no. 3 (1993): 429-47; and Tania Lom-brozo, “Explanation and Abductive Inference,” in *The Oxford Handbook of Thinking and Reasoning*, ed. Keith Holyoak and Robert Morrison (New York: Oxford University Press, 2013), 260-76.

最佳解释: 这是什么? 我们为什么要在乎?”在最佳解释, ed. 斯蒂芬·j·里德和艾米·马库斯-纽霍尔, 《社会解释的解释一致性: 一个平行的分布式处理账户》, 《人格与社会心理学杂志》65 期, 第 3 期(1993): 429-47; 塔尼亚·洛姆-布罗佐, 《解释与溯因推理》, 《牛津思维与推理手册》, 编辑。Keith Holyoak and Robert Morrison (New York: Oxford university Press, 2013), 260-76.

59. See Warren S. Goldstein, ed., *Marx, Critical Theory, and Religion: A Critique of Rational Choice* (Chicago: Haymarket Books, 2009).

参见 Warren S. Goldstein, ed. Marx, Critical Theory, and Religion: a Critique of Rational Choice (Chicago: Haymarket Books, 2009)。

60. For another rejection of culturally relativist accounts of reason, see Kwasi Wiredu, *Cultural Universals and Particulars: An African Perspective* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1996).

另一个拒绝文化相对论的理由, 见 Kwasi Wiredu, 文化共性和细节: 非洲的视角(布卢明顿: 印第安纳大学出版社, 1996 年)。

61. N.Y. Louis Lee and P.N. Johnson--Laird, “Are There Cross--Cultural Differences?” 路易斯·李和 p·n·约翰逊·莱尔德, “是否存在跨文化差异

ences in Reasoning?” in *Proceedings of the 28th Annual Conference of the Cognitive Science Society*, ed. Ron Sun and Naomi Miyake (Hove, East Sussex: Psychology Press, 2006), 459–64; Philip Johnson-Laird, *How We Reason* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011); and Jean-Baptiste Van der Henst, Yingrui Yang, and P.N. Johnson-Laird, “Strategies in Sentential Reasoning,” *Cognitive Science* 26, no. 4 (2002): 425–68.

推理能力?”在认知科学学会第28届年会的会议记录中。Ron Sun and Naomi Miyake (Hove, East Sussex: psychological-ology Press, 2006), 459-64; Philip Johnson-Laird, *How We Reasoning* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011); Jean-Baptiste Van der Henst, Yingrui Yang, and p.n. Johnson-Laird, “句子推理的策略”, *Cognitive Science* 26, no. 4(2002): 425-68。

62. McCain and Poston, eds, *Best Explanations*, 1; and John R. Josephson and Susan G. Josephson, eds., *Abductive Inference: Computation, Philosophy, Technology* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1996), 7–12. See also Hugh Gauch, *Scientific Method in Brief* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2012); Jerry R. Hobbs, “Abduction in Natural Language Understanding,” *Handbook of Pragmatics* (2004): 724–41; Peter Lipton, “The Epistemology of Testimony,” *Studies in History and Philosophy of Science* 29, no. 1 (1998): 1–31.

《溯因推理：计算，哲学，技术》（剑桥：剑桥大学出版社，1996），第7-12页。参见《科学方法简介》（剑桥：剑桥大学出版社，2012）；杰里·r·霍布斯《自然语言理解中的诱导》，《语用学手册》（2004）：724-41；彼得·利普顿《证据的认识论》，《科学史和哲学研究》，第29卷，第1期（1998）：1-31。

63. See James Robinson, Paul Hoffmann, and John Kloppenborg, *The Critical Edition of Q* (New York: Fortress Publishers, 2000).

参见 James Robinson, Paul Hoffmann, and John Kloppenborg, *The Critical Edition of q* (New York: Fortress Publishers, 2000)。

64. For example, I have argued elsewhere that part of the reason the myth of disenchantment has held on so long is because scholars have historically pre-sumed that modernity meant a rupture and that cultures become more rational over time. Instead, we would likely have formulated better possible theories had we tried to rule out possibilities such as that disenchantment is the exception, not the rule. See Josephson--Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment*.

例如，我曾其他地方论证过，“觉醒神话”之所以存在如此之久，部分原因在于，学者们在历史上一直假设，现代性意味着断裂，文化随着时间的推移变得更加理性。相反，如果我们试图排除一些可能性的话，我们可能会提出更好的可能性理论，例如，觉醒是一种例外，而不是常规。参见约瑟夫森-斯托姆《幻灭的神话》。

65. Adapted from Josephson and Josephson, *Abductive Inference*, 14–15.
改编自约瑟夫森和约瑟夫森，溯因推理，14-15。

66. Josephson and Josephson, *Abductive Inference*. See also John R. Josephson, “On the Proof Dynamics of Inference to the Best Explanation,” *Cardozo Law Re-view* 22 (2000): 1621–43.

约瑟夫森和约瑟夫森，溯因推理。参见约翰·r·约瑟夫森的《对最佳解释的溯因推理的证明动力学》，卡多佐定律回顾 22(2000): 1621-43。

67. Here I am agreeing with the critique of sterile debates about observability discussed in Jim Bogen, “‘Saving the Phenomena’ and Saving the Phenomena,” *Synthese* 182, no. 1 (2011): 7–22.

在这里，我同意吉姆·伯根(Jim Bogen)在《拯救现象与拯救现象》(Saving the phenomenon and Saving the phenomenon)第 182 卷第 1 期(2011)7-22 节中讨论的关于可观测性的毫无结果的争论的批评。

68. Josephson and Josephson, *Abductive Inference*, 13–14.

约瑟夫森和约瑟夫森，溯因推理，13-14。

69. Josephson and Josephson, *Abductive Inference*, 15.

Josephson and Josephson，溯因推理，15。

70. Douglas Adams, quoted in Victoria de Rijke, *Duck* (London: Reaktion Books, 道格拉斯·亚当斯(Douglas Adams)在《维多利亚·德·Rijke, *Duck*》(London: Reaktion Books,

2008), 12.

2008), 12.

71. Van Fraassen has argued that the problem with IBE is that the real explanation may include a hypothesis that no one has considered. While I agree that many philosophers are too confident in conclusions determined by abduction, I don't think that this is a fatal problem. The best explanation might always be a theory we've never considered, but insofar as our current theory is doing some work to explain the data we are justified in consenting to it on Zetetic grounds, even if someday it may be overturned. Bas van Fraassen, *The Scientific Image* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1980).

范·弗拉森认为，IBE 的问题在于，真正的解释可能包括一个没有人考虑过的假设。虽然我同意许多哲学家过于相信由绑架得出的结论，但我并不认为这是一个致命的问题。最好的解释可能永远是一个我们从未考虑过的理论，但就我们目前的理论所做的工作来说，我们有理由以 Zetetic 的理由同意这个理论，即使有一天它可能被推翻。范弗拉森，《科学图像》(Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1980)。

72. Josephson, “Proof Dynamics,” 1628.

约瑟夫森，《证明动力学》，1628。

73. Readers probably needn't worry about the implications of Duhem--Quine for excluding alternatives. Quine famously argued that “our statements about the external world face the tribunal of sense experience not individually but only as

读者可能不必担心 Duhem-Quine 排除其他选择的影响。奎因有一个著名的观点：“我们对外部世界的陈述不是单独地面对感官体验的审判，而只是作为

a corporate body. . . . The unit of empirical significance is the whole of science” (Quine, “Two Dogmas of Empiricism,” 41–42.) Part of Quine’s justification for this view is that no single experiment can ever refute a scientific theory because one can always modify auxiliary hypotheses to justify the theory. For instance, if your experiment seemingly refutes the theory that all objects should fall at the same rate, then you can modify your theory by introducing a notion of wind resistance. One might worry that if this were the case no alternative hypothesis could ever be ruled out. But a Zetetic orientation to abduction would already take as given that *definitive* exclusion presumes certainty and is not an issue. All we need is the grounds to reasonably and preliminarily exclude an alternative. Moreover, Quine’s extension of “significance” to require the whole of science runs into the same contradictions as the semantic holism discussed in chapter 5.

一个法人团体。经验意义的单位是整个科学”(Quine, “经验主义的两个教条”, 41-42 奎因对这一观点的部分证明是, 没有一个单一的实验可以反驳科学理论, 因为人们总是可以修改辅助假设来证明理论的正确性。例如, 如果你的实验似乎驳斥了所有物体应该以同样的速率下落的理论, 那么你可以通过引入风阻的概念来修改你的理论。有人可能会担心, 如果是这种情况, 那么没有其他的假设可以被排除。但是对绑架的狂热倾向已经被认为是确定性的排除假定了确定性, 而不是一个问题。我们所需要的只是合理地、初步地排除其他选择的理由。此外, 奎因对“意义”的扩展要求整个科学运行到同样的矛盾的语义整体论在第 5 章中讨论。

The smaller--scale version if this argument put forth by Pierre Duhem is more persuasive, but even then it tends to ignore the cost of adding theoretical baggage. While in principle it may be possible to produce alternative accounts to preserve the theory, this is not the case in practice (sure, geocentrists could have argued that all the heliocentrists were hallucinating, but to do so they would have had to come up with a very implausible counter--theory of hallucination). Furthermore, as Laudan has persuasively argued, any theory of science (except Popper’s discredited falsification) suggests that you will typically have a reason to choose between rival theories or explanations (e.g., because one explains the evidence in more detail, is simpler, more portable across more domains, etcetera). (See Laudan, *Beyond Positivism*, 34–35.) This means that when falsifiability is understood as a component, rather than the whole of inference, then Duhem—Quine largely fails to be an issue.

如果说皮埃尔·迪厄姆提出的观点更有说服力的话, 那么规模较小的版本更有说服力, 但即便如此, 它也往往忽略了增加理论包袱的成本。虽然原则上有可能提出其他解释来维护这一理论, 但实际情况并非如此(当然, 地心主义者可以辩称所有的日心主义者都产生了幻觉, 但要这样做, 他们必须提出一个非常令人难以置信的反幻觉理论)。此外, 正如劳丹令人信服地论证的那样, 任何科学理论(除了波普尔可疑的证伪)都表明, 你通常有理由在相互对立的理论或解释之间做出选择(例如, 因为一个人对证据的解释更详细, 更简单, 在更多领域更容易携带, 等等)。(参见 Laudan, *Beyond Positivism*, 34-35 这意味着, 当可证伪性被理解为一个组成部分, 而不是整个推理, 那么 Duhem-Quine 在很大程度上不是一个问题。

74. Boaventura de Sousa Santos, *Epistemologies of the South: Justice against Epistemicide* (New York: Routledge, 2015), 190.

Boaventura de Sousa Santos, 《南方的认识论: 反对认识杀人的正义》(纽约: Routledge, 2015), 190。

75. Peirce is well known for suggesting that even basic perceptual judgments are abductive inferences. Justus Buchler, *Charles Peirce's Empiricism* (New York: Harcourt, 1939).

皮尔斯因提出即使是基本的感性判断也是溯因推理而闻名。贾斯特斯·巴勒, 查尔斯·皮尔斯的经验主义(纽约: 哈考特, 1939)。

76. John R. Josephson, "Smart Inductive Generalizations Are Abductions," in *Abduction and Induction: Essays on Their Relation and Integration*, ed. Peter Flach and Antonis Kakas (Dordrecht: Springer, 2000), 31–44. (

约翰.r. 约瑟夫森, “聪明的归纳概括是诱导,”在诱导和归纳: 关于他们的关系和整合的散文, 编辑。Peter Flach and Antonis Kakas (Dordrecht: Springer, 2000), 31-44.(

77. Hume called deduction “demonstrative reasoning.”
休谟称演绎为“证明性推理”

78. See Harman, “Inference to the Best Explanation”; and Josephson, “Smart Inductive Generalizations.” See also J. Adam Carter and Duncan Pritchard, “Inference to the Best Explanation and Epistemic Circularity,” in *Best Explanations*, ed. McCain and Poston, 133–49; and Stathis Psillos, *Scientific Realism: How Science Tracks Truth* (London: Routledge, 1999). I’m not that worried about circularity, but we could adopt a modified “Reichenbach vindication” for abduction. If any-thing has a chance at knowledge, then inference to the best explanation would seem to be our best bet. As my father says: “what are you going to do, pick the worst explanation?”

参见 Harman 的“最佳解释的溯因推理”和 Josephson 的“聪明的归纳推理”也可参见 j·亚当·卡特和邓肯·普里查德的《最佳解释的推理和认知循环》, 见 Best explains, ed. 《科学实在论: 科学如何追踪真理》(伦敦: Routledge, 1999)。我并不担心这种循环, 但是我们可以采用一种经过修改的“莱辛巴赫证明”来证明绑架。如果任何事物都有机会获得知识, 那么溯因推理似乎是我们最好的选择。就像我父亲说的: “你打算怎么做, 选择最糟糕的解释吗?”

79. Josephson and Josephson, *Abductive Inference*, 25.
Josephson and Josephson, 溯因推理, 25。

80. Lorenzo Magnani, *Abductive Cognition* (Berlin: Springer Berlin, 2013); and Tommaso Bertolotti, *Patterns of Rationality* (Cham: Springer International Publishing, 2015).

Lorenzo Magnani, 溯因认知 (柏林: 斯普林格出版社, 2013); Tommaso Bertolotti, 理性模式 (Cham: 斯普林格国际出版社, 2015)。

81. Josephson, “Proof Dynamics,” 1632.

约瑟夫森《证明动力学》1632。

82. See also Haraway, “Situated Knowledges.”

另见哈拉威《情境知识》

83. Josephson and Josephson, *Abductive Inference*, 14.

约瑟夫森和约瑟夫森, 溯因推理, 14。

84. See Larry Laudan, *Progress and Its Problems* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1977), esp. 81.

参见 Larry Laudan, *Progress and Its Problems* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1977), esp. 81。

85. Siebers, *Cold War Criticism*; and Christian Thorne, *The Dialectic of Counter-Enlightenment* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2010).

《反启蒙的辩证法》(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 2010)。

86. For a recent discussion, see Brown, *Fallibilism*.

最近的一个讨论, 参见布朗, 谬误主义。

87. For examples, see Francisco Sánchez, *That Nothing is Known (Quod nihil scitur)* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2008); and for fallibilism in classical Indian philosophy, see Sundar Sarukkai, *Indian Philosophy and Philosophy of Science* (New Delhi: Centre for Studies in Civilizations, 2005).

例如, 见 Francisco Sánchez, *That Nothing is Known (Quod nihil scitur)* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2008); 见 Sundar Sarukkai, *Indian Philosophy and Philosophy of Science* (New Delhi: Centre For Studies in Civilizations, 2005)。

88. For optimistic fallibilists, think Dewey, Karl Popper, and to a lesser extent Richard Bernstein.

对于乐观的易谬论者, 想想杜威, 卡尔·波普尔, 以及在较小程度上的理查德·伯恩斯坦。

Chapter Seven 第七章

1. Ethical relativism and nihilism are often sloppily conflated.

伦理相对主义和虚无主义经常被草率地混为一谈。

2. Gilles Lipovetsky, *Le Crépuscule du devoir: L'éthique indolore des nouveaux temps démocratiques* (Paris: Gallimard, 2007).

Gilles Lipovetsky, 《责任的阴云: 民主新时代的道德禁锢》(the crépuscule du devoir: l'éthique indolore des new times democrats, Paris: Gallimard, 2007)。

3. James Wilson, *The Moral Sense* (New York: The Free Press, 1993), 5, 9; see also John Cook, *Morality and Cultural Differences* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1999), 41.

詹姆斯·威尔逊,《道德感》(纽约:自由出版社,1993年),5,9;另见约翰·库克,《道德与文化差异》(纽约:牛津大学出版社,1999年),41。

4. Douglas Walton, *Ethical Argumentation* (Lanham, MD: Lexington Books, 2009), 36.
道格拉斯沃尔顿,《伦理论证》(拉纳姆,医学博士:列克星敦出版社,2009)36。

5. Emphasis added. This is not a very accurate summary of Nietzsche. Charles Upton, *The System of Antichrist: Truth and Falsehood in Postmodernism and the New Age* (Hillsdale, NY: Sophia Perennis, 2001), 52. Also, contra Upton, the phrase originated not in Nietzsche, but likely in Hassan-i Sabbāh. See also Raymond Williams, *The Writings of Carlos Fuentes* (Austin: University of Texas Press, 1996), 95–96.

重点加上了。这并不是一个非常准确的尼采总结。查尔斯·厄普顿,《反基督体系:后现代主义与新时代的真与假》(纽约,希尔斯代尔:索菲亚·佩伦尼斯,2001),52。另外,与厄普顿相反,这个短语并非起源于尼采,而可能起源于 Hassan-i sabb h。参见雷蒙·威廉斯,《卡洛斯·富恩特斯的著作》(奥斯汀:德克萨斯大学出版社,1996年),95-96。

6. See Honi Haber, “Richard Rorty’s Failed Politics,” *Social Epistemology* 7, no. 1 (1993): 61–74; and Andreas Huyssen, “Forward: The Return of Diogenes as Postmodern Intellectual,” in Peter Sloterdijk, *Critique of Cynical Reason* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1988).

参见 Honi Haber, “Richard Rorty 的失败政治”,《社会认识论》7,第1期(1993):61-74;Andreas Huyssen,“前进:第欧根尼作为后现代知识分子的回归”,Peter Sloterdijk,《愤世嫉俗理性批判》(明尼阿波利斯:明尼苏达大学出版社,1988)。

7. See Harvey, *Condition of Postmodernity*, and Jameson, *Postmodernism*.

参见哈维的《后现代条件》和詹姆斯的《后现代主义》。

8. See the title of Pluckrose and Lindsay below.

参见下面 Pluckrose 和 Lindsay 的书名。

9. Michael Rectenwald, *Springtime for Snowflakes: “Social Justice” and Its Postmodern Parentage* (Nashville: New English Review Press, 2018), vii.

Michael Rectenwald,《雪花的春天:社会正义》及其后现代出身(纳什维尔:新英语评论出版社,2018),vii。

10. Helen Pluckrose and James Lindsay, *Cynical Theories: How Activist Scholarship Made Everything about Race, Gender, and Identity* (Durham, NC: Pitchstone, 2020), 13–14. Rectenwald, Pluckrose, and Lindsay are not wrong to identify a

海伦·普拉克斯罗斯和詹姆斯·林赛,《愤世嫉俗的理论:激进主义学者如何让一切与种族、性别和身份有关》(Durham, NC: Pitchstone, 2020),13-14。
Rectenwald, Pluckrose 和 Lindsay 没有错

changing tenor in the mid-2010s, but they generally seem to miss its continuities with previous movements.

在 2010 年代中期改变的男高音, 但他们通常似乎错过了它的连续性与以前的乐章。

11. Max Weber, “Science as Vocation” (*Wissenschaft als Beruf*), trans. in H.H. Gerth and C. Wright Mills, *From Max Weber: Essays in Sociology* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1946), 143.

马克斯韦伯, “科学作为职业”(Wissenschaft als Beruf), 翻译。在 h.h. 格特和 c. 赖特米尔斯, 从马克斯韦伯: 社会学论文(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 1946 年), 143。

12. William Arnal, Willi Braun, and Russell McCutcheon, eds., *Failure and Nerve in the Academic Study of Religion: Essays in Honor of Donald Wiebe* (New York: Routledge, 2014).

William Arnal, Willi Braun, 和 Russell McCutcheon, 编辑, 《宗教学术研究中的失败与勇气: 向 Donald Wiebe 致敬的文章》(纽约: Routledge, 2014)。

13. Luther Martin and Donald Wiebe, “Religious Studies as a Scientific Discipline: The Persistence of a Delusion,” *Journal of the American Academy of Religion* 80, no. 3 (2012): 587-97.

路德·马丁和唐纳德·威伯, 《宗教研究作为一门科学学科: 妄想的持续》, 《美国宗教学会杂志》, 第 80 期, 第 3 期(2012): 587-97。

14. For this debate, see Warren S. Goldstein, “What Makes Critical Religion Critical?” *Critical Research on Religion* 8, no. 1 (April 2020): 73-86.

关于这场辩论, 参见沃伦·s·戈德斯坦(Warren s. Goldstein)的《是什么让批判性宗教成为批判性宗教宗教批判研究 8, 第 1 期(2020 年 4 月): 73-86。

15. See Milton Friedman, *Essays in Positive Economics* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1953). For examples of subsequent critiques, see Sandra Harding, “Can Feminist Thought Make Economics More Objective?” *Feminist Economics* 1, no. 1 (1995): 7-32; Hilary Putnam and Vivian Walsh, eds., *The End of Value-Free Economics* (Abingdon: Routledge, 2014); and Daniel Hausman and Michael McPherson, *Economic Analysis, Moral Philosophy, and Public Policy* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009).

参见米尔顿·弗里德曼《实证经济学论文集》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1953 年)。关于后续批评的例子, 参见桑德拉·哈丁的《女权主义思想能让经济学更客观吗》(《女性主义经济学》, 第 1 期(1995 年): 7-32 页; 希拉里·普特南和薇薇安·沃尔什编著, 《价值自由经济学的终结》(阿宾顿: 劳特利奇, 2014 年); 丹尼尔·豪斯曼和迈克尔·麦克弗森, 《经济分析, 道德哲学和公共政策》(剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 2009 年)。

16. The two quotations appeared in the reverse order in the interview. Michael Bess, “Power, Moral Values and the Intellectual: An Interview with Michel Foucault November 3, 1980,” *History of the Present* 4 (1988): 1-2, 11-13.

这两句话在采访中出现的顺序是相反的。迈克尔·贝斯, 《权力、道德价值和知识分子: 1980 年 11 月 3 日对米歇尔·福柯的采访》, 《当代史》4(1988): 1-2, 11-13。

17. Many of these terms were not initially understood as negative. Sexism originally meant belonging to a sex, homophobia originally meant fear of humans, patriarchy originally referred to the office of ecclesiastical patriarch, and racism was embraced (by people we would now call racists) but as a positive attribute.

这些术语中的许多最初并不被理解为负面的。性别歧视最初意味着属于一个性别，恐同最初意味着对人类的恐惧，父权制最初指的是教会的家长办公室，种族主义被接受(我们现在称之为种族主义者)，但作为一个积极的属性。

18. For examples: Joe Dunn, "In Search of Lessons: The Development of a Vietnam Historiography," *Parameters* 9, no. 1 (1979): 28–40; and Otis Graham, ed., *The New Deal: The Critical Issues* (Boston: Little, 1971), 171–73. For value neutrality, see Francis Madigan, *Philippine Sociological Review* 7, no. 4 (1959): 38–40; and also Gunnar Myrdal, *Value in Social Theory* (London: Routledge, 1958) esp. 134–52; and Ernest Nagel, *The Structure of Science* (New York: Harcourt, 1961).

例如：乔·邓恩(Joe Dunn)的《寻找教训：越南历史学的发展》(In Search of Lessons: The Development of a vietnam Historiography)，参数 9，no. 1(1979)：28-40；奥蒂斯·格雷厄姆(Otis Graham)编辑的《新政：关键问题》(The New Deal: The Critical Issues)，171-73。关于价值中立，见弗朗西斯·麦迪根，《菲律宾社会学评论》7，第4期(1959)：38-40；以及贡纳尔·米尔达尔，《社会理论中的价值》(伦敦：劳特里奇，1958)。134-52；Ernest Nagel，*The Structure of Science* (New York: Harcourt, 1961)。

19. Barthes's sympathetic gloss on Brecht. Roland Barthes, *Critical Essays* (Evanston, IL: Northwestern University Press, 1972), 140.

巴特对布莱希特的同情注释。罗兰巴特，批评散文(埃文斯顿，伊利诺伊州：西北大学出版社，1972年)，140。

20. To be fair, in many cases, this negative register is so pervasive and folded into how people have been taught to critique that this sort of value--laden work is not perceived as imbued with value.

公平地说，在许多情况下，这种消极的语域是如此普遍，并且融入到人们如何被教导去批判，这种充满价值的作品并没有被认为充满价值。

21. This is a mild caricature of Sandra Harding, *The Science Question in Feminism* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1993). Her real argument is more subtle.

这是桑德拉·哈丁《女权主义的科学问题》(纽约伊萨卡：康乃尔大学出版社，1993)的一幅温和的漫画。她真正的观点更加微妙。

22. An Emory independent investigative committee seems to have agreed and forced Bellesiles's resignation. But a similar ethically motivated source critique from the Left could be seen in the Hypatia transracialism controversy.

埃默里独立调查委员会似乎已经同意并强迫贝莱斯莱辞职。但是在希帕蒂亚跨种族主义争论中也可以看到来自左派的类似道德动机的批评。

23. The impetus toward "canceling" is not new. People may be calling for dif-
"取消"的推动力并不新鲜。人们可能会呼吁 dif

ferent things to be cancelled (norms have changed), but canceling itself does not represent a generational shift (e.g., think of the Nestle boycott of the late 1970s). Cancel culture is not a new culture. But what has changed is the algorithmic amplification of outrage to drive digital engagement (anger equals clicks equals advertising revenue, or at least increased attention). For instance, organizing an all-female screening of *Wonder Woman* (2017) with the intended goal of inspiring outrage from “men’s right activists” in order to make watching a corporate superhero movie seem like a feminist statement; or when right-wing activists dug up James Gunn’s old tweets to try and get him fired and get themselves more attention. These kinds of media strategies have been combined with the simplification of ethical argumentation promoted by superficial headline-driven news/ blog media and the bandwidth constraints of Twitter. Put differently, people were always canceling/boycotting, but canceling has just gotten more efficient, with the unfortunate side effect of being more indiscriminate and hence easier to manipulate. For a thoughtful discussion of canceling, its limits, and the vital question of “can we release our binary ways of thinking of good and bad in order to collectively grow from mistakes?” see adrienne maree brown, *We Will Not Cancel Us: And Other Dreams of Transformative Justice* (Chico: AK Press, 2020), 17.

不同的事情被取消(规范已经改变), 但取消本身并不代表一代人的转变(例如, 想想 20 世纪 70 年代末雀巢的抵制)。Cancel 文化并不是一种新的文化。但改变的是算法放大了愤怒情绪, 以推动数字化参与(愤怒等于点击率等于广告收入, 或者至少增加了关注度)。例如, 2017 年, 组织了一次全女性的《神奇女侠》(Wonder Woman)放映会, 目的是激起“男权活动家”的愤怒, 使观看一部企业超级英雄电影看起来像是一种女权主义宣言; 或者右翼活动家挖出詹姆斯·冈恩 (James Gunn) 的旧推文, 试图让他被解雇, 并获得更多关注。这些媒体策略与肤浅的标题驱动的新闻/博客媒体和 Twitter 的带宽限制促进的道德论证的简化相结合。换句话说, 人们总是取消/抵制, 但取消只是变得更有效率, 与不幸的副作用, 更不加选择, 因此更容易操纵。关于“取消”、“取消”的局限性, 以及“我们能否放弃对好与坏的二元思维方式, 从而共同从错误中成长”这一关键问题的深思熟虑的讨论参见 adrienne maree brown, *We Will Not Cancel Us: And Other Dreams of transforming justice* (Chico: AK Press, 2020), 17。

24. For example, Evelyn Barish, *The Double Life of Paul De Man* (New York: Liveright, 2014).

例如, Evelyn Barish, *The Double Life of Paul De Man* (New York: liveright, 2014)。

25. For a similar critique of critique see Felski, *Limits of Critique*.

类似的批判见 Felski, 《批判的极限》。

26. Here I am arguing against Pluckrose and Lindsay. But note that I reject both race reductionism and class reductionism.

在这里, 我反对 Pluckrose 和 Lindsay。但请注意, 我反对种族还原论和阶级还原论。

27. Indeed, much of contemporary theory promotes what amounts to a secular-ized Christian notion of universal sinfulness.

事实上, 当代的许多理论都提倡相当于世俗化的基督教普遍有罪的观念。

28. Michel Foucault, *Politics, Philosophy, Culture: Interviews and Other Writings* (London: Routledge, 2013), 49.

Michel Foucault, *Politics, Philosophy, Culture: Interviews and Other Writings* (London: Routledge, 2013), 49.

29. Foucault, cited in Neil Levy, "Foucault as Virtue Ethicist," *Foucault Studies* 福柯, 引用尼尔列维, "福柯作为道德伦理学家,"福柯研究 (2004): 20–31, 22.
(2004): 20-31,22.

30. See Josephson--Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment*.

见约瑟夫森-风暴, 幻灭的神话。

31. See Max Weber, *Gesammelte Aufsätze zur Wissenschaftslehre* (Tübingen: Mohr, 1922). Portions translated in Max Weber, *The Methodology of the Social Sciences* (New York: Free Press, 1969).

参见马克斯·韦伯, 《科学研究综述》(图宾根: 莫尔, 1922)。部分译自马克斯·韦伯, 《社会科学的方法论》(纽约: 自由出版社, 1969)。

32. See Weber, *Methodology of the Social Sciences*, 7.

参见韦伯, 《社会科学方法论》7。

33. Emphasis added. Weber, *Methodology of the Social Sciences*, 51.

强调补充。韦伯, 社会科学方法论, 51。

34. Weber, *Methodology of the Social Sciences*, 1.

社会科学方法论, 1。

35. Weber, *Methodology of the Social Sciences*, 52–53.

韦伯, 《社会科学方法论》, 52-53。

36. Robert Proctor, *Value--Free Science? Purity and Power in Modern Knowledge* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1991), 97.

罗伯特·普罗克特, 《价值自由的科学? 现代知识中的纯洁与力量》(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1991年), 97。

37. Wilhelm Dilthey, *Introduction to the Human Sciences* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1991).

威廉·狄尔泰, 《人文科学导论》(普林斯顿, 新泽西州: 普林斯顿大学出版社, 1991)。

38. Proctor, *Value-Free Science?*, 144–45.

Proctor, *Value-Free Science?*, 144-45.

39. Weber, *Gesammelte Aufsätze*, esp. 452–54.

Weber, *Gesammelte Aufsätze*, esp. 452-54 韦伯, 合集, 特别是 452-54。

40. See Jay Ciaffa, *Max Weber and the Problems of Value--Free Social Science* (London: Associated University Press, 1998).

参见 Jay Ciaffa, *Max Weber and the Problems of Value-Free Social Science* (London: Associated University Press, 1998)。

41. See Weber, *Gesammelte Aufsätze*.

看看韦伯，收集的资料。

42. John Cook, *Morality and Cultural Differences* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2003).

约翰·库克，《道德与文化差异》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社，2003)。

43. See Marvin Harris, *The Rise of Anthropological Theory* (New York: Crowell, 1968), esp. 163; and Elvin Hatch, *Culture and Morality: The Relativity of Values in Anthropology* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1983), 38.

参见马文·哈里斯的《人类学理论的兴起》(纽约: 克罗威尔出版社，1968)。埃爾文·哈奇，《文化与道德: 人类学中心价值观的相对性》(纽约: 哥伦比亚大学出版社，1983)，38 页。

44. Franz Boas, *The Mind of Primitive Man* (New York: Free Press, 1963), 203. Boas himself refers to Edward Westermarck, who provides the example of elder abandonment I use above. Both cited in Cook, *Morality and Cultural Differences*, 69–70.

弗朗茨·博阿斯，《原始人的思想》(纽约: 自由出版社，1963)，203 页。Boas 自己提到爱德华·韦斯特马克，他提供了我在上面使用的遗弃老人的例子。这两篇文章都被引用在库克的《道德与文化差异》中，69-70。

45. The origins of ethical relativism are themselves not necessarily an argument against it—although that argument has been made; see John Cook, “Cultural Relativism as an Ethnocentric Notion,” in *The Philosophy of Society*, ed. Rodger Beehler and Alan Drengson (London: Methuen, 1978), 289–315.

伦理相对论的起源本身并不一定是反对它的论据——尽管这个论据已经被提出; 参见约翰·库克在《社会哲学》一书中的“作为种族中心主义概念的文化相对论”。Rodger Beehler 和 Alan Drengson (伦敦: 梅休因，1978)，289-315。

46. See Robert Proctor and Heather Douglas, *Science, Policy, and the Value-Free Ideal* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 2009).

参见罗伯特·普罗克特和希瑟·道格拉斯，《科学，政策和无价值理想》(匹兹堡大学出版社，2009)。

47. Andrew Jewett, *Science, Democracy, and the American University* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2012).

Andrew Jewett，《科学，民主与美国大学》(纽约: 剑桥大学出版社，2012)。

48. Emphasis in original. David Hume, *A Treatise of Human Nature*, vol. 1 (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 2010), 302. 大卫·休谟(David Hume)，人性论专著，第 1 卷(Oxford: Clarendon 出版社，2010)，302。

49. The phrase “naturalist fallacy” having been appropriated from G.E. Moore, but now more often put to a different use than Moore intended.

“自然主义谬论”这个短语是从 g.e. 摩尔那里借用过来的，但是现在它的用途比摩尔想要的更加广泛。

50. See note 54 below.

见下文注 54。

51. See Alasdair MacIntyre, “Hume on ‘Is’ and ‘Ought,’” *The Philosophical Review* 68, no. 4 (1959): 451–68; and Charles Pigden, “Hume on Is and Ought: Logic,

Promises, and the Duke of Wellington,” in *The Oxford Handbook of Hume*, ed. Paul Russell (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2016), 401–15.

参见阿拉斯代尔·麦金泰尔的《休谟论“是”和“应该”》，哲学回顾 68，第 4 期(1959): 451-68; 查尔斯·皮格登的《休谟论“是”和“应该”：逻辑，承诺，和阿瑟·韦尔斯利，第一代威灵顿公爵》。保罗·罗素(牛津: 牛津大学出版社，2016)，401-15。

52. A is MacIntyre’s conclusion above and B is Pigden’s conclusion above.

A 是 MacIntyre 上面的结论，b 是 Pigden 上面的结论。

53. To increase readability and because their arguments often overlap, full citation occurs in the notes, but the theorists cited are: Max Black, Patricia Hill Collins, Heather Douglas, Philippa Foot, Allan Gibbard, Sandra Harding, Donna Haraway, Larry Laudan, Helene Longino, Georg Lukács, Alasdair MacIntyre, Robert Merton, Iris Murdoch, Michael Polanyi, Hilary Putnam, John Searle, Amartya Sen, Daniel Steel, Christine Tappolet, Pekka Väyrynen, Cornel West, and Bernard Williams.

为了增加可读性，而且因为他们的论点经常重叠，笔记中出现了完整的引用，但引用的理论家是：马克斯·布莱克、帕特里夏·希尔·柯林斯、-希瑟·道格拉斯、菲利普·福特、艾伦·吉巴德、桑德拉·哈丁、唐娜·哈拉维、拉里·劳丹、海伦·朗基诺、格奥尔格·卢卡奇、阿拉斯代尔·麦金泰尔、罗伯特·默顿、-艾瑞斯·默多克、迈克尔·波兰尼、希拉里·普特南、约翰·塞尔、阿马蒂亚·森、丹尼尔·斯蒂尔、克里斯汀·塔普莱特、佩卡卡·维莱宁、康奈尔·韦斯特和伯纳德·威廉姆斯。

54. Allan Gibbard, “Truth and Correct Belief,” *Philosophical Issues* 15 (2005): 338–50. Gibbard, however, makes a distinction between objective and subjective senses of ought that seems far-fetched.

艾伦·吉巴德，《真理与正确的信仰》，《哲学问题》15(2005): 338-50。然而，吉巴德对应有的客观感觉和主观感觉进行了区分，这似乎有些牵强。

55. John Searle, *Speech Acts: An Essay in the Philosophy of Language* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1969), 134–35.

John Searle, *Speech Acts: An Essay in the Philosophy of Language* (剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社，1969)，134-35。

56. Hilary Putnam, *The Collapse of the Fact/Value Dichotomy and Other Essays* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2002), 31. For attempts to refine the no-tion of epistemic or cognitive values, see Daniel Steel, “Epistemic Values and the Argument from Inductive Risk,” *Philosophy of Science* 77, no. 1 (2010): 14–34; and Heather Douglas, “The Value of Cognitive Values,” *Philosophy of Science* 80, no. 5 (2013): 796–806.

希拉里·普特南，《事实/价值二分法的崩溃》和其他文章(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社，2002 年)，31 页。对于试图完善无认知价值观或认知价值观的尝试，见丹尼尔·斯蒂尔，《认知价值观和归纳风险论证》，《科学哲学》77，第 1 期(2010): 14-34; 希瑟·道格拉斯，《认知价值观的价值》，《科学哲学》80，第 5 期(2013): 796-806。

57. One of the arguments that the Copernican model had over its rivals was that circles or ellipses were a simpler and more elegant description of planetary motion than multiplying epicycles.

哥白尼模型相对于其竞争对手的一个论据是，圆或椭圆是行星运动乘以本轮的更简单、更优雅的描述。

58. Readers interested in historicizing the notion of a scientific spirit in US history should read Jewett, *Science, Democracy, and the American University*.

有兴趣历史化美国历史上的科学精神概念的读者应该阅读 Jewett, *Science, Democracy, and the American University*。

59. Robert K. Merton, “The Normative Structure of Science,” in *The Sociology of Science* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1973), 267–78; Larry Laudan, *Science and Values* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1984); and Liam Kofi Bright, “Du Bois’ Democratic Defence of the Value Free Ideal,” *Synthese* 195, no. 5 (2018): 2227–45.

罗伯特·金·莫顿，《科学社会学》(芝加哥: 芝加哥大学出版社, 1973), 267-78; 拉里·劳丹,《科学与价值》(伯克利: 加利福尼亚大学出版社, 1984); 利亚姆·科菲·布莱特,《杜波依斯对自由价值理想的民主辩护》, 合并, 第5卷(2018): 2227-45。

60. Michael Polanyi, “The Republic of Science: Its Political and Economic Theory,” *Minerva* 1 (1962): 54–74.

迈克尔·波兰尼,《科学共和国: 其政治和经济理论》, *Minerva* 1(1962): 54-74。

61. Amartya K. Sen, “The Nature and Classes of Prescriptive Judgements,” *The Philosophical Quarterly* (1950--) 17, no. 66 (1967): 46–62. See also Putnam, *Fact/Value Dichotomy*, esp. 76.

阿玛蒂亚·k·森,“规定性判断的性质和类别”,《哲学季刊》(1950-)17, 第66期(1967): 46-62。另见普特南,《事实/价值二分法》, 特别是。76。

62. See Helen Goode, Hannah McGee, and Ciaran O’Boyle, *Time to Listen: Confronting Child Sexual Abuse by Catholic Clergy in Ireland* (Dublin, Ireland: Liffey Press, 2003).

参见海伦·古德, 汉娜·麦吉和克莱伦·奥博伊尔,《聆听的时间: 爱尔兰天主教主神职人员对儿童性虐待的反对》(爱尔兰都柏林: 利菲出版社, 2003)。

63. Bernard Williams, *Ethics and the Limits of Philosophy* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1985). Putnam, *Fact/Value Dichotomy*, esp. 34. See also Philippa Foot, “Moral Arguments,” *Mind* 67, no. 268 (1958): 502–13; Iris Murdoch, *The Sovereignty of Good*, 2nd edition (London: Routledge, 2008), esp. 31–32.

伯纳德·威廉姆斯,《伦理学与哲学的局限》(剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1985年)。普特南,《事实/价值二分法》, 特别是。34。参见菲利普·福特的《道德论证》,《思想》67, 第268号(1958): 502-13; 爱丽丝·默多克的《善的主权》, 第二版(伦敦: 路德里奇出版社, 2008)。31-32。

64. To be fair, some philosophers have argued that it is possible to disentangle the evaluative and non-evaluative aspects of a given thick--ethical concept. See Christine Tappolet, “Through Thick and Thin: Good and Its Determinates,” *Dialectica* 58, no. 2 (2004): 207–21; and Pekka Väyrynen, *The Lewd, the Rude and the Nasty: A Study of*

Thick Concepts in Ethics (New York: Oxford University Press, 2015). I share some of their skepticism about the possibility of there being actual “thin” ethical concepts, and clearly “thick” is on a spectrum.

公平地说，一些哲学家认为，有可能区分一个给定的厚伦理概念的评价和非评价方面。参见克里斯蒂娜·塔波莱的《穿越厚与薄：善及其决定因素》，《选择》第 58 卷，第 2 期(2004)：207-21；以及佩卡·瓦里宁的《淫荡、粗鲁和下流：伦理学中厚概念的研究》(纽约：牛津大学出版社，2015)。我和他们一样，对存在真正的“薄”伦理概念的可能性持怀疑态度，显然“厚”是一个范围。

65. Max Black, “The Gap Between ‘Is’ and ‘Should,’” *The Philosophical Review* 73, no. 2 (1964): 165–81, 173.

马克斯·布莱克，“‘是’和‘应该’之间的差距”，《哲学评论》73，第 2 期(1964)：165-81,173。

66. MacIntyre, “Hume on ‘Is’ and ‘Ought,’” 463.

麦金泰尔，“休谟在‘Is’和‘Ought’上。”。

67. See Helene Longino, *Science as Social Knowledge: Values and Objectivity in Scientific Inquiry* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1990); Georg Lukács, *History and Class Consciousness: Studies in Marxist Dialectics* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1972); Cornel West, *Ethical Dimensions of Marxist Thought* (New York: New York University Press, 1991), esp. 148–55.

《科学作为社会知识：科学探究中的价值和客观性》(普林斯顿大学出版社，1990 年)；乔治·卢卡奇，《历史与阶级意识：马克思主义辩证法研究》(剑桥：麻省理工学院出版社，1972 年)；康奈尔·韦斯特，《马克思主义思想的伦理维度》(纽约：纽约大学出版社，1991 年)。148-55。

68. I don’t give much credence to the quasi--Nietzschean and self--refuting version of this argument that suggests that all facts are values, see chapter 6.

我不太相信准尼采和自我反驳版本的这个论点，认为所有的事实都是价值，见第 6 章。

69. Donna Haraway, *Primate Visions: Gender, Race, and Nature in the World of Modern Science* (New York: Routledge, 1989).

《灵长类的视野：现代科学世界中的性别、种族和自然》(纽约：Routledge，1989)。

70. Stephen Jay Gould, *The Mismeasure of Man* (New York: W.W. Norton & Company, 1996).

史蒂芬·古尔德，人的错误量度(纽约：w.w. 诺顿公司，1996)。

71. Sandra Harding, “Rethinking Standpoint Epistemology: What is ‘Strong Objectivity’?” *The Centennial Review* 36, no. 3 (1992): 437–70; see also Patricia Hill

桑德拉·哈丁：“重新思考立场认识论：什么是‘强客观性’？”*The Centennial Review* 36, no. 3(1992)：437-70; see also Patricia Hill 百年回顾 36, no. 3(1992)：437-70;

Collins, *Black Feminist Thought: Knowledge, Consciousness, and the Politics of Empowerment* (New York: Routledge, 2015), 290.

(New York: Routledge, 2015), 290.

72. Collins, *Black Feminist Thought*, 274.

柯林斯,《黑人女权思想》274页。

73. See Mary Hesse, *Revolutions and Reconstructions in the Philosophy of Science* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1980), 33.

参见《科学哲学中的革命与重建》(布卢明顿:印第安纳大学出版社,1980年),33页。

74. See Laudan, *Beyond Positivism*, 46–47.

看劳丹,《超越实证主义》,46–47。

75. Often it takes the form of a fallacy, such as: John Bull was a colonialist. John Bull taught Shakespeare. Therefore, teaching Shakespeare is colonialist. Alternatively, it can be produced by association as a kind of six degrees of Kevin Bacon, only with Hitler. Obviously, philosophy of ethics is much more sophisticated, but unfortunately this subfield is not widely read in the rest of the academy.

通常它采取的形式是一个谬论,如:约翰牛是一个殖民主义者。约翰·布尔教过莎士比亚。因此,教授莎士比亚是殖民主义的。或者,它可以被联想成六度的凯文·培根(Kevin Bacon),只不过是希特勒的作品。显然,伦理哲学要复杂得多,但不幸的是,这个子领域并没有在学院的其他地方被广泛阅读。

76. For instance, some scholars seem to have adopted what amounts to a one-drop rule for racism, which means calling out even inspirational leaders like W.E.B. Du Bois. See Ibram X Kendi, *Stamped from the Beginning: The Definitive History of Racist Ideas in America* (New York: Nation Books, 2017), and Carlos Lozada, “The Racism of Good Intentions,” *Washington Post*, April 15, 2016. Similarly, as Rita Felski has observed, there has been increasing slippage between describing violence toward people and “symbolic violence” toward texts. See Felski, *Limits of Critique*, esp. 97–107. Thus condemnations of symbolic violence, while sometimes useful, can actually divert attention from actual systems of physical and psycho-logical violence.

例如,一些学者似乎对种族主义采取了一滴不漏的规则,这意味着即使是像w.e.b. 杜波依斯这样鼓舞人心的领导人也会被叫出来。参见 Ibram x Kendi,《从一开始盖章:美国种族主义思想的权威历史》(New York: Nation Books, 2017)和 Carlos Lozada,《善意的种族主义》,华盛顿邮报,2016年4月15日。同样,正如丽塔·费尔斯基所观察到的那样,在描述对人的暴力和对文本的“象征暴力”之间的差距越来越大。参见 Felski, *Limits of Critique*, esp. 97–107.因此,对象征暴力的谴责,虽然有时是有用的,但实际上可以转移人们对实际的身心暴力系统的注意力。

77. For Ludwig Klages as the actual originator of the term, see Josephson-- Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment*, 221.

因为 Ludwig Klages 是这个术语的真正创始人,参见 Josephson-Storm, *The Myth of Disenchantment*, 221。

78. Campbell Pryor, Amy Perfors, and Piers Howe, "Even Arbitrary Norms Influence Moral Decision--Making," *Nature Human Behaviour* 3, no. 1 (2019): 57–62.

坎贝尔·普赖尔, 艾米·佩尔斯, 皮尔斯·豪, 《即使是任意的规范也能影响道德决策》, 《自然》, 人类行为 3, 第 1 期(2019): 57-62。

79. One could ask this question of science/technology, but probably the un-spoken goal of scientific progress is increasing power or domination over matter.

人们可能会问这个关于科学/技术的问题, 但是科学进步的潜在目标可能是增加对物质的控制力。

80. An exception is Volney Gay, *Progress and Values in the Humanities: Comparing Culture and Science* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2013).

一个例外是 Volney Gay, 《人文学科的进步与价值: 比较文化与科学》(纽约: 哥伦比亚大学出版社, 2013)。

81. J. Hillis Miller, *Tropes, Parables, and Performatives* (Durham, NC: Duke University, 1991), 79.

J·希利斯·米勒, 《比喻、寓言和表现形式》(Durham, NC: Duke university, 1991), 79。

82. Pierre Hadot, *Philosophy as a Way of Life: Spiritual Exercises from Socrates to Foucault* (Oxford: Blackwell, 1995).

皮埃尔·哈多, 《哲学作为一种生活方式: 从苏格拉底到福柯的精神练习》(牛津: 布莱克威尔, 1995)。

83. G.E.M. Anscombe, "Modern Moral Philosophy," *Philosophy* 33, no. 124 (1958): 1–19.

安斯科姆, 《现代道德哲学》, 哲学 33, 第 124 期(1958): 1-19 页。

84. For some influential works which have shaped my account of what follows, see: Stephen Angle and Michael Slote, eds., *Virtue Ethics and Confucianism* (New York: Routledge, 2013); Michael Bishop, *The Good Life: Unifying the Philosophy and Psychology of Well-Being* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2015); Philippa Foot, *Virtues and Vices and Other Essays in Moral Philosophy* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 2009); Rosalind Hursthouse, *On Virtue Ethics* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1999); Alasdair MacIntyre, *After Virtue: A Study in Moral Theory* (Notre Dame, IN: University of Notre Dame Press, 2012); Murdoch, *Sovereignty of Good*; Daniel Statman, ed., *Virtue Ethics* (Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press, 2007).

对于一些有影响的作品, 塑造了我下面的叙述, 参见: 斯蒂芬·安格尔和迈克尔·斯鲁特编辑。《美德伦理与儒家思想》(纽约: Routledge, 2013 年); Michael Bishop, 《美好生活: 美德哲学与幸福心理学的统一》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2015 年); Philippa Foot, 《美德与恶习及其他道德哲学论文》(牛津: Clarendon 出版社, 2009 年); 罗莎琳德·赫斯特豪斯, 《论美德伦理》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 1999 年); 阿拉斯代尔·麦金泰尔, 《追寻美德: 道德理论研究》(After Virtue: a Study in Moral Theory)(圣母大学, IN: 圣母大学出版社, 2012)默多克, 《善的主权》, 丹尼尔·斯塔特曼, 编辑。美德伦理学(华盛顿: 乔治敦大学出版社, 2007)。

85. See, for example, Bryan Van Norden, *Virtue Ethics and Consequentialism in Early Chinese Philosophy* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2007).

参见《早期中国哲学中的德性伦理与功利主义》(纽约: 剑桥大学出版社, 2007)。

86. Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics*, trans. with commentary by Christopher Rowe and Sarah Broadie (New York: Oxford University Press, 2002). For an argument for translating of Eudaimonia as flourishing see Hursthouse, *On Virtue Ethics*.

亚里士多德, 尼各马可伦理学, 翻译。克里斯托弗·罗和莎拉·布罗迪评论(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2002)。关于将 Eudaimonia 翻译为繁荣的争论, 请参阅《赫斯特豪斯论美德伦理》。

87. I say “most” because some people might reject one or the other of these terms—for example, those who believe they need to suffer to be happy. There may even be people who are sufficiently hurt that they think they want to reject all of these, but if so, I suspect that their rejection is really a sign that they need help.

我之所以说“大多数”, 是因为有些人可能会拒绝这两个术语中的任何一个——例如, 那些认为自己需要受苦才能幸福的人。甚至有些人受到了很大的伤害, 他们认为他们想要拒绝所有这些, 但如果是这样, 我怀疑他们的拒绝真的是他们需要帮助的信号。

88. I don’t mean suggest that there are only two kinds of happiness. Nor do I mean to suggest that happiness is reducible to a clearly delineated biological kind. But I think it likely has some common neurological basis. See Kent Ber-ridge and Morten L. Kringelbach; “Affective Neuroscience of Pleasure: Reward in Humans and Animals,” *Psychopharmacology* 199, no. 3 (2008): 457–80.

我并不是说只有两种幸福。我也不是说幸福可以简化为一种清晰划分的生物学类型。但我认为它可能有一些共同的神经学基础。参见 Kent Ber-ridge 和 Morten L. Kringelbach, 《快乐的情绪神经科学: 人类和动物的奖励》, 精神药理学 199, 第 3 期(2008): 457-80。

89. Here I’m thinking of both Daoist and Marxist arguments against stasis and alienation.

这里我想到了道家 and 马克思主义者反对停滞和异化的观点。

90. See also Vivasvan Soni, *Mourning Happiness: Narrative and the Politics of Modernity* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2010).

参见 Vivasvan Soni, 《哀悼幸福: 现代性的叙事与政治》(Ithaca, NY: cornell 大学出版社, 2010)。

91. This is also perhaps what Nietzsche had in mind in his notion of eternal return. 这或许也是尼采在他的永恒回归观念中所想到的。

92. See Jennifer Whiting, “Aristotle’s Function Argument: A Defense,” *Ancient Philosophy* 8, no. 1 (1988): 33–48.

参见珍妮弗·怀廷的《亚里士多德的功能论证: 一种辩护》, 《古代哲学》第 8 卷, 第 1 期(1988): 33-48 页。

93. Molefi Asante, *The Afrocentric Idea, Revised* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1998), 200. See also Collins, *Black Feminist Thought*, 279.

《以非洲为中心的思想》, 修订版(费城: 天普大学出版社, 1998 年), 200。

94. Tu Weiming, *Humanity and Self-Cultivation: Essays in Confucian Thought* (Berkeley, CA: Asian Humanities Press, 1979), 35.

屠维明,《人性与自我修养:孔子思想随笔》(伯克利,加州:亚洲人文出版社,1979年),35页。

95. For Renaissance thought, see Giovanni Pico della Mirandola, *On the Dignity of Man* (Indianapolis: Hackett, 1998). For the Ojibwe community, Michael McNally, *Honoring Elders: Ojibwe Aging, Religion, and Authority* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2009), esp. 46–48. For Kant, see Robert B. Louden, *Kant's Human Being: Essays on his Theory of Human Nature* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2014), esp. 136–49. See also James Behuniak, *Mencius on Becoming Human* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 2005); Katherine McKittrick, ed., *Sylvia Wynter: On Being Human as Praxis* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2015); and Paulo Freire, *Pedagogy of the Oppressed* (New York: Continuum, 2017).

关于文艺复兴时期的思想,参见若望·皮科·德拉·米兰多拉的《论人的尊严》(印第安纳波利斯:哈克特出版社,1998年)。对于Ojibwe社区,Michael McNally,《向长者致敬:Ojibwe老龄化,宗教和权威》(纽约:哥伦比亚大学出版社,2009年)。46-48.参见罗伯特·b·劳登的《康德的人性:关于他的人性理论的文章》(牛津:牛津大学出版社,2014年)。136-49.另见《孟子成为人》(奥尔巴尼:纽约州立大学出版社,2005年);凯瑟琳·麦基特里奇,编辑西尔维娅·温特乐:《作为实践的人》(达勒姆,NC:杜克大学出版社,2015年);保罗·弗莱雷,《被压迫者的教育学》(纽约:连续出版社,2017年)。

96. Tibor Scitovsky, *The Joyless Economy* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1976) and Erlangga Landiyanto et al., “Wealth and Happiness: Empirical Evidence from Indonesia,” *Southeast Asian Journal of Economics* 23, no. 1 (2011): 1–17.

Tibor Scitovsky, *The Joyless Economy* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1976) and Erlangga landiyanto et al., “Wealth and Happiness: empirical evidence from Indonesia”, *Southeast Asian Journal of Economics* 23, no. 1(2011): 1-17.

97. David Graeber, *Bullshit Jobs: A Theory* (London: Penguin, 2019).
David Graeber, *Bullshit Jobs: a Theory* (伦敦:企鹅出版社,2019)。

98. Marx and Engels, *The German Ideology*.
马克思和恩格斯,《德意志意识形态》。

99. For a defense of virtue as human dispositions, see Joel J. Kupperman, “Virtue in Virtue Ethics,” *The Journal of Ethics* 13, nos. 2–3 (2009): 243–55.

为了捍卫作为人类性情的美德,参见乔尔·库珀曼的《美德中的美德伦理》
伦理学杂志 13, 第 2-3 期(2009): 243-55。

100. For an influential attempt at classification (although I think it is overly universalizing), see Christopher Peterson and Martin Seligman, *Character Strengths and Virtues* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2004). For contrast between Aris-

对于一个有影响力的分类尝试(虽然我认为它过于普遍化),参见克里斯托弗彼得森和马丁塞利格曼,《性格优点和美德》(纽约:牛津大学出版社,2004年)。对于Aris-

totelian and Confucian conceptions of virtue see Yu Jiyuan, “Virtue: Confucius 完全主义和儒家的美德观见于济源的《美德：孔子》

and Aristotle,” *Philosophy East and West* 48, no. 2 (1998): 323–47.

和亚里士多德的《东西方哲学》48，第2卷(1998)：323-47。

101. See Pierre Hadot, *The Inner Citadel: The Meditations of Marcus Aurelius*

参见皮埃尔·哈多《内城堡：马可·奥勒留的冥想》

(Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1998).

(剑桥：哈佛大学出版社，1998)。

102. See Georges Dreyfus, “Meditation as Ethical Activity,” *Journal of Buddhist*

Ethics 2 (1995): 28–54.

参见乔治·德雷福斯，《作为道德活动的冥想》，《佛教伦理学杂志》

2(1995)：28-54。

103. Analects 7.22. Confucius, *Analects with Selections from Traditional Commentaries*, trans. Edward Slingerland (Indianapolis: Hackett, 2003), 71.

《论语》7.22。《论语与传统评论选》，爱德华·斯林格兰译(印第安纳波利斯：哈克特出版社，2003)，71。

104. This is the main debate around Confucian notions of ritual 礼. For ex-ample, Xun Kuang, *Xunzi, A Translation and Study of the Complete Works* (Stan-ford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1988).

这是关于儒家礼仪观念的主要争论。例如，荀子，《全集翻译与研究》(斯坦福，加利福尼亚：斯坦福大学出版社，1988)。

105. Śāntideva, *Bodhicaryāvatāra*. See Jay Garfield, “What Is it Like to be a Bodhisattva? Moral Phenomenology in Śāntideva’s Bodhicaryāvatāra,” *International Association of Buddhist Studies* (2010): 333–57; Georges Dreyfus, “Is Compassion an Emotion?” in *Visions of Compassion: Western Scientists and Tibetan Buddhists Examine Human Nature*, ed. Richard Davidson and Anne Harrington (New York: Oxford University Press, 2001), 31–45; Charles Goodman, *Consequences of Compassion: An Interpretation and Defense of Buddhist Ethics* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2014).

Ntideva, bodhicary vat ra.看看杰·加菲尔德的《成为菩萨是什么感觉？Ntideva的bodhicary vat ra中的道德现象学，“国际佛教研究协会(2010)：333-57; Georges Dreyfus, “怜悯是一种情感吗?”在《慈悲的愿景：西方科学家和藏传佛教徒审视人性》一书中。Richard Davidson and Anne Harrington (New York: Oxford University Press, 2001)，31-45; Charles Goodman, *Consequences of Compassion: An Interpretation and Defense of Buddhist Ethics* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2014)。

106. See Francesca Borgonovi, “Doing Well by Doing Good: The Relationship between Formal Volunteering and Self-Reported Health and Happiness,” *Social Science & Medicine* 66, no. 11 (2008): 2321–34.

参见 Francesca Borgonovi, “做好事做好事：正式志愿活动与自我报告的健康和幸福之间的关系”，《社会科学与医学》，第66期，第11期(2008)：2321-34页。

107. Steven Bein, *Compassion and Moral Guidance* (Honolulu: University of Hawai’i Press, 2013).

Steven Bein, 《同情与道德指导》(檀香山：夏威夷大学出版社，2013)。

108. Collins, *Black Feminist Thought*, 282–283; and Annette Baier, *Postures of the Mind* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1985), 93–108. We can also see similar claims in Asante, *The Afrocentric Idea*, and elsewhere. That said, Virginia Held rejects the connection between compassion and care, but to my mind she is mistaking compassion for self-destructive forms of altruism. See Virginia Held, *The Ethics of Care* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2006).

柯林斯,《黑人女权主义思想》,282-283;安妮特·贝尔,《心灵的姿态》(明尼阿波利斯:明尼苏达大学出版社,1985),93-108。我们也可以在 Asante, *The Afrocentric Idea* 和其他地方看到类似的主张。也就是说, Virginia Held 拒绝同情和关怀之间的联系,但是在我看来,她把同情误认为是利他主义的自我毁灭形式。参见 Virginia Held, *The Ethics of Care* (牛津:牛津大学出版社,2006)。

109. Thích Nhất Hạnh, *Being Peace* (Berkeley, CA: Parallax Press, 1988).

《和平》(伯克利,加州:视差出版社,1988)。

110. Sara Ahmed, *The Promise of Happiness* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010).

萨拉·艾哈迈德,《幸福的承诺》(达勒姆,NC:杜克大学出版社,2010)。

111. By “Revolutionary” I mean to signal politically and ethically transformative. As has been pointed out by a colleague, my formulation also has positive resonances with Raoul Vaneigem’s maxim that “the only real joy is revolution-ary.” Raoul Vaneigem, *The Revolution of Everyday Life* (Oakland, CA: PM Press, 2012), 32.

我所说的“革命”,是指在政治上和道德上发出变革的信号。正如我的一位同事所指出的那样,我的提法也与拉乌尔·范奈杰姆(Raoul Vaneigem)的格言“唯一的真正的快乐是革命”产生了积极的共鸣 Raoul Vaneigem, *The Revolution of Everyday Life* (Oakland, CA: PM Press, 2012), 32.

112. Hannah Arendt, *On Revolution* (New York: Penguin, 1990), 255. The work is best read alongside Hannah Arendt, *The Human Condition* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1998).

汉娜·阿伦特,《论革命》(纽约:企鹅出版社,1990),255页。这本书最好与汉娜·阿伦特的《人类状况》一起阅读(芝加哥:芝加哥大学出版社,1998)。

113. Max Horkheimer, *Critical Theory: Selected Essays* (New York: Continuum, 2002), 248. We can see a parallel claim from a different political spectrum in John Milbank and Adrian Pabst, *The Politics of Virtue: Post-Liberalism and the Human Future* (London: Rowman & Littlefield, 2016).

马克斯·霍克海默,《批判理论:文选》(纽约:连续出版社,2002),248页。在约翰·米尔班克和阿德里安·帕布斯特的《美德的政治:后自由主义和人类的未来》(伦敦:罗曼和赖特菲尔德出版社,2016)一书中,我们可以看到来自不同政治光谱的类似主张。

114. For a critique, see David Harvey, *Spaces of Neoliberalization* (Stuttgart: Steiner, 2005).

要获得批评, 请参阅大卫·哈维的《新自由化的空间》(斯图加特: 斯坦纳, 2005)。

115. Steven Pinker, *Enlightenment Now: The Case for Reason, Science, Humanism, and Progress* (New York: Penguin, 2018). Perhaps neoliberals on the center--left would also add that a certain percentage of the wealthiest CEOs should be women or from minoritized backgrounds.

Steven Pinker, *Enlightenment Now: The Case for Reason, Science, Humanitarianism, and Progress* (纽约: 企鹅出版社, 2018)。也许中左翼的新自由主义者也会补充说, 一定比例的最富有的 ceo 应该是女性或来自少数族裔的背景。

116. Bruno Frey, *Not Just for the Money: An Economic Theory of Personal Motivation* (Cheltenham: Elgar, 2007).

Bruno Frey, *Not Just for the Money: An Economic Theory of Personal motivation* (Cheltenham: Elgar, 2007).

117. Name in quotes because “Hanzi Freinacht” is a pseudonym used by a pair of Danish political activists. Hanzi Freinacht, *The Listening Society* (Copenhagen: Metamoderna, 2017), 72. Space prohibits a fuller engagement with Freinacht and his definition of metamodernism, but I hope to post something on my professional website.

因为“Hanzi Freinacht”是一对丹麦政治活动家使用的笔名。Hanzi Freinacht, *The Listening Society* (Copenhagen: Metamoderna, 2017), 72. Space 禁止更多地参与 Freinacht 和他对元现代主义的定义, 但我希望在我的专业网站上发表一些东西。

118. There are reasons we might want to be skeptical of some of this whole stratum of discourse. For many European thinkers, “the Other” is other European thinkers. Referring to the unintelligibility of “the Other” without distinguishing between different kinds of othering thus can be a reification of difference and a reduction of it to a paradoxical self-similarity.

我们可能有理由怀疑整个论述的某些层次。对于许多欧洲思想家来说, “他者”就是其他欧洲思想家。提到“他者”的不可理解性而不区分不同的他者, 因此可以是差异的具体化, 并将其归结为矛盾的自相似性。

119. See Saidiya Hartman, *Scenes of Subjection: Terror, Slavery, and Self-making in Nineteenth-century America* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1997); Fred Moten, *Black and Blur* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2017); and George Yancy, *Black Bodies, White Gazes* (New York: Rowman & Littlefield, 2016). Also remember, of course, the account of blackness in Ellison’s famous novel: Ralph Ellison, *Invisible Man* (New York: Random House, 1952).

参见 Saidiya Hartman, *Scenes of subsubjection: Terror, Slavery, and Self-making in nine-century America* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1997); Fred Moten, *Black and Blur* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2017); and George Yancy, *Black Bodies, White gaze* (New York: rowman & littlefield, 2016)。当然, 还要记住埃里森的著名小说《看不见的人》(纽约: 兰登书屋, 1952)中对黑人的描述。

120. See Gayatri Chakravorty Spivak, "Can the Subaltern Speak?" in *Can the Subaltern Speak? Reflections on the History of an Idea*, ed. Rosalind Morris (New York: Columbia University Press, 2010).

参见嘎亚特里·斯匹瓦克的《低级军官能说话吗?》副手能说话吗? 反思思想的历史。Rosalind Morris (纽约: 哥伦比亚大学出版社, 2010)。

121. Howard Adelman, *Knowledge, Aesthetics and Preventing Genocide* (Toronto: Centre for Refugee Studies, York University, 1997), 15.

霍华德·阿德尔曼,《知识、美学与防止种族灭绝》(多伦多: 难民研究中心, 约克大学, 1997), 15。

122. Emphasis in original. Sönke Neitzel and Harald Welzer, *Soldiers: German POWs on Fighting, Killing, and Dying* (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 2012), 149.

原创的重点。Sonnke Neitzel and Harald Welzer, *Soldiers: German POWs on Fighting, Killing, and Dying* (New York: Alfred a. Knopf, 2012), 149。

123. Victoria Esses and Richard Vernon, eds., *Explaining the Breakdown of Ethnic Relations: Why Neighbors Kill* (London: Blackwell, 2009).

Victoria Esses and Richard Vernon, eds., *Explaining the Breakdown of Ethnic Relations: Why Neighbors Kill* (London: Blackwell, 2009)。

124. Esses and Vernon, eds., *Ethnic Relations*.
Ses 和 Vernon eds. 种族关系。

125. Nelson Mandela, *Notes to the Future* (New York: Atria Books, 2014), 84. I also have in mind Huey P. Newton's revolutionary love and Che Guevara's famous statement that "the true revolutionary is guided by strong feelings of love." Quoted in Judson Jeffries, *Huey P. Newton: The Radical Theorist* (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2002), 33.

纳尔逊·曼德拉,《未来笔记》(纽约: Atria 出版社, 2014), 84 页。我还想到了休伊·p·牛顿的革命之爱和切·格瓦拉的著名言论“真正的革命者是由强烈的爱情引导的。”引自 Judson Jeffries, Huey p. Newton: The Radical Theorist (杰克逊: 密西西比大学出版社, 2002), 33。

126. Tanabe, *Zangedō*.
田边, 换人了。

127. This presumes the possibility of mutual listening, of compassion, if not its actualization. See Cornel West, Jonathan Judaken, and Jennifer Geddes, "Black Intellectuals in America: A Conversation with Cornel West," in *Naming Race, Naming Racisms*, ed. Jonathan Judaken (London: Routledge, 2013), 227. West is para-

这假定了相互倾听、同情的可能性, 如果不能实现的话。参见康奈尔韦斯特, 乔纳森朱达肯, 詹妮弗格迪斯, “黑人知识分子在美国: 与康奈尔韦斯特的对话,” 在命名种族, 南宁种族主义, 教育。Jonathan Judaken (London: Routledge, 2013), 227. 韦斯特是帕拉

phrasing Adorno's statement "*Das Bedürfnis, Leiden beredt werden zu lassen, ist Bedingung aller Wahrheit.*" Adorno, *Negative Dialektik*, 27.

用阿多诺的话来说就是“必须承受痛苦，这是所有事实的前提。”阿多诺，否定方言，27。

128. See Sharon Cransow, "Feminist Contributions to Anthropology and Sociology," in *Philosophy of Anthropology and Sociology*, ed. Stephen Turner and Mark Risjord (Amsterdam: Elsevier, 2006), 755–89; and Marianne Janack, "Dilemmas of Objectivity," *Social Epistemology* 16, no. 3 (2002): 267–81. "Subjectivity" also means too many different things to be useful as a contrasting category.

参见《人类学和社会学哲学》中的莎伦·克兰索，“女性主义对人类学和社会学的贡献”。Stephen Turner and Mark Risjord (Amsterdam: Elsevier, 2006), 755–89; and Marianne Janack, "Dilemmas of objective", *Social cognition* 16, no. 3(2002): 267–81。“主观性”也意味着太多不同的事物，作为一个对比范畴是有用的。

129. Freire, *Pedagogy of the Oppressed*.

弗莱雷，《被压迫者的教育学》。

130. Max Horkheimer, "Traditionelle und kritische Theorie," *Zeitschrift für Sozialforschung* 6, no. 2 (1937): 245–94. For Tzotzil (also written Tsotsil) activists, *lekil kuxlejal*, and the Zapatistas more broadly, see: Juan López Intzín, "Ich'el-Ta-Muk': la trama en la construcción del Lekil-Kuxlejal," in *Prácticas otras de conocimiento(s)*, ed. Xochitl Leyva (Buenos Aires: CLACSO, 2018), 181–98; Mariana Mora, *Kuxlejal Politics: Indigenous Autonomy, Race, and Decolonizing Research in Zapatista Communities* (Austin: University of Texas Press, 2017), esp. 19; and Dylan Fitzwater, *Autonomy Is in Our Hearts: Zapatista Autonomous Government through the Lens of the Tsotsil Language* (Oakland: PM Press, 2019).

马克思·霍克海默，“传统与批判理论”，《社会研究杂志》第6期，第2期(1937): 245–94页。对于Tzotzil的活动家lekil kuxlejal和更广泛的萨帕塔主义者来说，参见：Juan López Intzín，“Ich'el-Ta-Muk': la trama in la construction of Lekil-Kuxlejal,” in *Prácticas others of knowledge (s)* ed. (布宜诺斯艾利斯：CLACSO，2018)，181–98; Mariana Mora, *Kuxlejal 政治：萨帕塔社区的土著自治、种族和非殖民化研究* (奥斯汀：德克萨斯大学出版社，2017)。Dylan Fitzwater, *Autonomy Is in Our Hearts: Zapatista Autonomous Government through the Lens of the Tsotsil Language* (Oakland: PM Press, 2019).

ConcLUision

结论

1. See for example, Hans Rosenhaupt, "Modern Foreign Language Study and the Needs of Our Times," *Monatshefte für Deutschen Unterricht* 32, no. 5 (1940): 205–16.

例如，参见 Hans Rosenhaupt，“现代外语学习与我们时代的需要”，*Monatshefte für Deutschen Unterricht* 32, no. 5(1940): 205-16。

2. See Michael Bérubé, “Days of Future Past,” *ADE Bulletin* (2002): 20–26; and Linda Pratt, “In a Dark Wood: Finding a New Path to the Future of English,” *ADE Bulletin* (2002): 27–33.

参见迈克尔·贝鲁贝《过去的未来》(2002): 20-26; 琳达·普拉特《在黑暗的森林里: 寻找通往英语未来的新路》(2002): 27-33。

3. Han Byung--Chul, *Was ist Macht?* (Stuttgart: P. Reclam, 2005).

Han Byung-Chul, what is Macht? (斯图加特: p. Reclam, 2005)。

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